Negation in the world's languages III

Papunesia, Australia, and the Americas

Edited by

Matti Miestamo

Ljuba Veselinova

With

Héloïse Calame

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Contents

Chapter 1

Introduction

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This work consists of 43 chapters describing the negation system of one language following a typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire. The questionnaire is organized according to functional subdomains of negation and pays most attention to aspects of negation that have been found salient in typological research. The introduction first discusses the background and aims of the work. The questionnaire and the conventions adopted are then introduced. Finally, the selection of languages and their areal and genealogical distribution are addressed and the organization of the work is explained.

1 Background and aims

The goal of this work is to achieve typologically-informed, multifaceted and comprehensive descriptions of the negation systems of languages from different families and geographical areas. The publication is a follow-up from a workshop organized by the editors at the Syntax of the World's Languages 8 conference in Paris in 2018. The greater part of the contributions are based on presentations in that workshop. Negation is a topic that has been widely studied in various branches of linguistics and there is an extensive body of literature devoted to it. Nevertheless, detailed and accurate descriptions of the domain of negation exist for a small minority of the world's languages.

Large-scale typological studies of negation include Dahl (1979), Dryer (2013a,b,c) and Miestamo (2005) for standard negation, van der Auwera et al. (2013), Van Olmen (2024) for negative imperatives, Veselinova (2013, 2015) for the negation of existential and other stative predications, Haspelmath (2013), Van Alsenoy (2014) and van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy (2018) for the negation of indefinite pronouns, and Miestamo (2014) for case marking under negation (for an overview

Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova. 2025. Introduction. In Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.), *Negation in the world's languages III: Papunesia, Australia, and the Americas*, 1–20. Berlin: Language Science Press. DOI: 10.5281/zenodo.17788135

of the whole domain, see Miestamo 2007, 2017, Dahl 2010 and van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova 2020).[1] However, there are several aspects of negation that have not been systematically studied from a cross-linguistic perspective. This is partly due to the fact that not enough data from particular languages are available on these subdomains. There have been few systematic efforts to collect data from a wider variety of individual languages. This is a gap that needs to be filled both for the benefit of linguistic typology and for the detailed description of individual languages. One systematic attempt saw the light in Kahrel & van den Berg (1994). In that volume, the negation systems of 16 languages from different parts of the world were described on the basis of a unified questionnaire that addressed the domain of negation with a set of questions derived from typological research done by the late 1980s. The volume has been very useful for typologists and for descriptive linguists as a source of data and as inspiration for systematic and unified collection of data from different languages with very diverse expressions of negation. However, no similar projects have been conducted since the publication of the volume 30 years ago.

A similar effort was undertaken for one specific family, namely Uralic, by Miestamo et al. (2015). For that volume, a functionally oriented questionnaire drawing from the current state-of-the-art knowledge of the typology of negation was developed. The 17 Uralic languages included in the volume were described in a similar way following one and the same template, thereby greatly improving the descriptive situation of negation in Uralic languages. However, this approach was yet to be applied to other languages and language families.

Organizing the Paris workshop and editing this work was our response to this demand. Our primary goal was to produce comprehensive and detailed descriptions of negation systems in a diverse body of languages from different parts of the world. The chapters in this work are based on a revised version of the questionnaire used in Miestamo et al. (2015). "Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language" is published as Chapter 2 in all three volumes. It is discussed in more detail in §2 of this introduction.

The authors were recruited initially following their participation in the Paris workshop and, after that, by approaching other specialists in specific areas and families to ensure the genealogical and areal balance of the project, see §3 for further discussion. Each language-specific description of negation constitutes one chapter in the work. There are 43 chapters; some of them are co-authored by several people, so all in all, there are 56 participating authors. Each chapter follows the guidelines detailed in the questionnaire. Our goal has been to cover

[1] The references mentioned here are not meant to be an exhaustive list of large-scale typological studies on negation in the literature.

the subdomains of negation that we deem as typologically salient. Additionally, authors have been encouraged to focus specifically on issues that, in their respective languages, are most distinctive or especially interesting for cross-linguistic studies. These domains may, for instance, pertain to properties that are cross-linguistically rare or may be problematic to describe.

By describing languages on the basis of the questionnaire, the chapters in this work have produced comparable datasets of the negation systems of a wide variety of languages from different families and areas. The contributions are also good examples of the fruitful cooperation between typologists and descriptive linguists in the context of diversity linguistics. Typological knowledge is crucial for language description as it helps descriptive linguists to see their data in a broader perspective, to ask new questions, and to come up with new analyses. Typologists are dependent on work done by descriptive linguists for their data collection. A typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire thus helps descriptive linguists to find relevant questions to focus on and to structure the description of negation in their respective languages. In turn, these descriptions feed back to typology as more high-quality data become comparable across languages.

The work is divided into three volumes according to geography, following the macro-areal divisions in the Glottolog (Hammarström et al. 2024). Each of the three volumes contains the same two introductory chapters (the present chapter and the questionnaire chapter). The first volume includes languages from Africa, the second volume covers languages from Eurasia, and the third volume brings together languages from Papunesia, Australia, North America and South America. As will be seen in §3, the grouping of macro-areas into three volumes relates to the number of authors we were able to recruit for each area.

2 Questionnaire and conventions

In this section, we address first the logic and the structure of the questionnaire in §2.1, then we discuss some issues that have come up during the editing process regarding the use of the questionnaire in §2.2, and finally we explain the glossing conventions adopted in the work in §2.3.

2.1 Logic and structure of the questionnaire

The idea of a typologically and functionally based questionnaire for the description of negation was originally presented in the Uralic Typology Database Conference in Vienna in 2008 and the first draft was produced for the Symposium on Negation in Uralic languages at the 2010 Congressus Internationalis Fenno-Ugristarum in Piliscsaba (Miestamo 2010). The questionnaire was published as an appendix to the introduction of the volume on *Negation in Uralic languages* (Miestamo et al. 2015), in which negation in 17 Uralic languages was described based on the questionnaire. A revision appeared in the TulQuest questionnaire repository[2] in 2016 and was distributed to the participants before the Paris workshop. For the present work, a further revision (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) was done with additional input from both editors, and this revised version is published as Chapter 2 in the present work. Note that some needs for development and revision have been identified by us in the process of editing and suggested to us by colleagues. However, as we have to show the questionnaire to our readers as it was sent to the authors and as it was used by them in preparing their contributions, it has been reproduced in this work in its 2019 version. Only the formatting has been changed to conform to the style sheet of this work. Some of the ideas for future development are discussed in §2.2.

The questionnaire has a functional-typological basis. It is organized according to different subdomains of negation, paying special attention to such domains that are typologically salient, i.e. likely to show variation across languages and to differ from basic declarative-clause negation (standard negation). The questionnaire is divided into three main sections: clausal negation, non-clausal negation and other aspects of negation. The first two parts target negative expressions (morphemes, constructions), whereas the third one is about phenomena that are related to negation and happen in connection with negation, but are not themselves expressions of negation; we admit that it is not always easy to draw the line and there will be some variation as to how things are distributed between the sections in different chapters (we will come back to this in §2.2).

The section on clausal negation is divided into 1. standard negation, i.e. the basic way(s) the language has for negating declarative main clauses with a verbal predicate, 2. negation in non-declaratives (mainly imperatives and interrogatives), 3. negation in stative predications (identity, class inclusion, property, existence, location, possession), 4. negation in non-main clauses, and 5. negative lexicalizations (lexically idiosyncratic negation). There is a final subsection, where clausal negation constructions that do not fit under any of the preceding subheadings can be discussed.

The section on non-clausal negation is divided into 1. negative replies, 2. negative indefinites and quantifiers, and 3. negative case marking and derivation. Again, there is a final subsection for non-clausal negation constructions not fitting in any of the preceding subsections.

[2] http://tulquest.huma-num.fr

Finally, the section on other aspects of negation has subsections on 1. the scope of negation, 2. negative polarity, 3. marking of NPs under the scope of negation, 4. reinforcing negation, and 5. negation, coordination and complex clauses. A final subsection addresses miscellaneous phenomena that may also be taken into account in the description, such as negative transport, metalinguistic negation, diachronic aspects of negation, etc.

In this introduction, we do not explain the contents of the questionnaire in more detail, as that would create overlap with what is explained in the questionnaire. At this point, the reader is thus referred to the questionnaire itself (Chapter 2 in this work). Note further that, for similar reasons, i.e. to avoid overlap, the questionnaire does not offer a detailed overview of the typology of the different subdomains of negation. There are many published overviews of the typology of negation, e.g Dahl (2010), van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova (2020) and Miestamo (2007, 2017), that do this and also cite further relevant literature. We advise to consult them parallel to the questionnaire. Especially the two last-mentioned ones, which have a similar structure and focus as the questionnaire, provide a typological introduction to the subdomains and aspects of negation mentioned in the questionnaire.

Some further notes on the structure of the chapters are in order. Every chapter starts with an introductory section (Section §1) that situates the language in its genealogical and areal context, describes its sociolinguistic status and provides a brief typological characterization of the language to serve as a background for the description of negation. It also informs the reader about the methods and material that the description is based on. The three main parts of the questionnaire constitute Sections §2—§4 in the chapters, and each chapter has the same second-level subheadings and numbering under these sections. Exceptions to this are the final subsections in each section (§2.6, §3.4 and §4.6, respectively), which need to be there only in case there are further negative constructions or negation-related phenomena to report that could not be discussed in the preceding sections. Third-level subheadings are generally not present in the questionnaire and they are thus not unified across the chapters; they can be freely added by authors if need be. However, the questionnaire does have third-level subheadings under subsection §4.6, but these are mere suggestions and need not be present if the authors do not have anything to report under them. Thus even in this case, the authors are bound by the second-level subheadings only. Each chapter is closed by a summary, Section 5, which contains a table that puts together the main negative expressions in the language. We have asked the authors to organize the table from form to function, so that it does not merely summarize the functionally-oriented questionnaire but rather lets a language-specific perspective take precedence.

The reader will notice that there is quite a lot of variation in the length of the chapters, so the following explanation is in order. We had originally aimed at chapters of 20—25 pages. At some point we received information from the publisher that there are no length restrictions. At that stage, we did not actively encourage authors to expand their chapters, but for authors whose chapters had become longer for different reasons, we no longer imposed strict length restrictions, hence the varying length of the chapters.

2.2 Observations on the use of the questionnaire

In this section, we present some issues that surfaced during the process of editing this work. We are not going through the questionnaire and its application section by section, but we focus on aspects that may have been interpreted in different ways by different authors, on questions/domains of the questionnaire for which data have been difficult to obtain or elicit, and on possible overlaps between different sections and how to solve them. Therefore the reader should not expect a discussion of the most central aspects of negation that the questionnaire targets, but a less systematic collection of issues that require some clarification.

One central aspect of negation addressed in the questionnaire does however require a comment. The questionnaire encourages authors to pay attention to asymmetry between affirmation and negation, i.e. structural differences that negatives show vis-à-vis affirmatives in addition to the presence of negative markers (see Miestamo 2005), in connection with all subdomains of negation. In typological literature, it is mainly standard negation that has been discussed in terms of symmetry and asymmetry, but it is possible to extend it to other subdomains as well (see e.g. Van Olmen 2024), as also suggested by the questionnaire. The chapters differ in how much weight they put on asymmetry. This is naturally also partly dependent on how much asymmetry a given language shows, i.e. how much the structure of negatives differs from the structure of affirmatives. Some chapters address (a)symmetry in many subsections whereas others only mention it briefly in connection with standard negation. As editors, we have encouraged the authors to pay close attention to how negatives differ from affirmatives in the various subdomains of negation, and pointed out that a given structure in a given language could be characterized in terms of asymmetry and the subtypes proposed by Miestamo (2005), but we have not insisted on using this typological classification as such in describing negation in the language. This work is about describing the negation systems of languages in a typological perspective, and therefore, we have encouraged authors to pay attention to questions arising from typological knowledge. However, the main point is to describe the structures of each individual language in its own terms rather than characterizing them in terms of typological classifications. Thus, regarding asymmetry, it is important to explicate how negatives differ from affirmatives in their structure, but it is secondary to the descriptive goals of the work to label these differences as one or another subtype of asymmetric negation proposed in typological work. A similar principle has been applied to other typological classifications in specific subdomains of negation.

Some of the subsections of the questionnaire are closely related to each other, and it is not always clear where to discuss a particular phenomenon. Two very closely related sections are §2.4 on non-main clauses and §4.5 on coordination and complex clauses. Section §2.4 looks at how non-main clauses are negated, but there may be phenomena related to negative non-main clauses that are not expressions of negation, and these may be better discussed in §4.5. On the other hand, if there is a negative coordinator (such as *neither... nor*) that is itself a marker of negation, it should be discussed in Section §2 or §3 depending on whether it is considered a clausal or a non-clausal negator. There is no dedicated section for such negative coordinators in the questionnaire, and in §2 and §3 their right place would be §2.6 or §3.4 addressing other (non-)clausal negation constructions. In many chapters they have been discussed in §4.5 as that is the place where they are easiest to find. This is one point of development for future versions of the questionnaire.

Another pair of subsections that address issues which are related in many languages are §3.2 on negative indefinites and quantifiers and §4.2 on negative polarity. Furthermore, §4.2 is closely related to other subsections of Section §4 addressing the scope of negation and reinforcing negation. Indefinite pronouns that appear under negation are negative polarity items in many languages, i.e. *any(body/thing)* in English. These would be primarily addressed in the section on negative indefinites, but should be mentioned and cross-referenced under negative polarity as well. Similarly, elements that express the scope of negation or emphasis under negation are often the same elements and they may be negative polarity items, so they may end up being mentioned in several subsections. What is always important is that the subsections are cross-referenced, so that the reader who is following the questionnaire can easily find what they are looking for.

While it is often pointed out that data on negation are easy to find in grammars and likewise easy to elicit, some aspects of this questionnaire have proven challenging in this respect. For instance, it has not always been clear that predications of location and existential predications are different predication types.

A locative predication asserts the location of a specific referent. An existential predication introduces a new entity into the discourse. Not all languages have a special grammaticalized existential construction (see detailed discussion in Creissels 2014, 2019; Haspelmath 2025; Veselinova & Hamari 2022). In many languages, there is a special strategy for negating predications of existence, which is, in fact, better described as a separate functional domain, the domain of absence or negative existence. On the other hand, predication of location is often encoded by several strategies, either standard negation or the negative existential, depending on the intended meaning and perspective of the speaker. The negation of predication of identity and class inclusion is often encoded by a separate strategy, different from both standard negation and the negative existential; such strategies have typically been reported. Negation strategies in the latter predication types are not always systematically covered in grammatical descriptions, which is why special attention was paid to them here.

We now turn to domains that have an intermediate status as regards lexicon and grammar. Phasal polarity is a functional domain which is typically understood to cover a system of concepts such as 'already', 'no longer', 'still', 'not yet' (see van der Auwera 1998; van Baar 1997). These concepts have to do with the existence or the non-existence of a situation at specific points in time related to other points in time. Thus ALREADY is usually defined to encode that a (possibly expected) situation has come to exist; NO LONGER expresses that a situation has ceased to exist; STILL is used to indicate that a situation continues (despite possible expectations that it should have stopped), and NOT YET encodes that a situation has not come into existence (despite possible expectations that it would). In the context of this work, NOT YET expressions, also referred to as NONDUM when clearly grammaticalized, following Veselinova & Devos (2021), have been of special interest. Their discussion would be placed differently in the questionnaire, depending on their status in the language but also following editorial guidance. Thus, fully grammaticalized nondums may appear in the discussion of standard negation as they would appear as full-fledged clausal negators, which in some languages constitute a tense-aspect category specific to the domain of negation. However, they might be also mentioned in the section on negative lexicalizations (more on this below). It should be noted that both in the pertinent literature and in this work, there are much fewer, if any, data on the encoding of the concept NO LONGER and the status of the respective expressions in specific languages. This is a gap yet to be filled by future research.

Negative lexicalizations are introduced in the questionnaire as expressions that combine lexical meaning with negation, as in Kalamang *komahal* 'not know' or *eranun* 'cannot, not be possible'; they stand in an antonymy relationship with their positive counterparts *gonggin* 'know' and *bisa* 'can' (Visser, this volume). The most prototypical cases to be discussed under negative lexicalizations are ones where a particular concept has an idiosyncratic negative counterpart that cannot combine with grammatical expressions of negation. However, the limits of this definition need to be clarified. We need to ask: 1. whether or not a negative lexicalization is the only option to negate a given positive concept; 2. whether a negative lexicalization may itself be negated by more general negation markers. Consider the English verbs *fail* and *forget* – do they count as negative lexicalizations when interpreted as 'not succeed' and 'not remember', respectively? Even if languages do not always have negative lexicalizations in the strict sense, examples that loosely meet the definition, similar to the English verbs just quoted, may also be discussed in the section on negative lexicalizations. The Kalamang verbs cited above are the only options for negating the corresponding positive expressions and they cannot themselves be negated by standard negation. On the other hand, in Aguaruna (Overall, this volume), there are expressions such as *dakitu-* 'refuse, not want'; *tuhintu-* 'be unable'; *kanina-* 'not fit' which can be negated by the standard negation expressions in this language. In this sense, and in a more stringent definition, they should be considered borderline cases of negative lexicalizations, just like the English verbs cited above.

Another issue relevant for the discussion of negative lexicalizations relates to our delimitation of lexical and grammatical meaning. This is relevant for expressions such as the negative existential or negative copulas, often glossed 'not.be', discussed in several different sections due to their numerous uses. Likewise, to come back to phasal polarity, there are expressions such as *jēn* 'not yet/nondum' in Kam (Lesage, this volume) which often have an intermediate status between lexical and grammatical markers. In addition, nondums differ from what we see as the most prototypical negative lexicalizations in that they are not idiosyncratic negative counterparts of positive concepts but can freely combine with verbs and are in that sense (similar to) grammatical markers. This brief discussion on negative lexicalizations demonstrates that this subdomain of negation, yet to be explored, is another venue for further development of the questionnaire.

Perhaps it bears pointing out again that the questionnaire used here is based on our current knowledge about important subdomains of negation. Like everything in science, it is open to improvement. The discussion in this section has shown that we have already identified some points in need of revision. We hope that this questionnaire can be developed further in the future.

2.3 Glossing conventions

In addition to unity in the structure of the chapters, we strive to achieve unity in other respects as well, including the conventions regarding the presentation of examples. In glossing the examples, we follow the Leipzig Glossing Rules (LGR).[3] This means strictly adhering to the LGR in the "morphosyntax of glossing", i.e. aligning the items on the example and gloss lines and using symbols such as the hyphen and the dot according to the rules. Additionally, it means that we base our "lexicon of glossing" on the list of grammatical category abbreviations recommended in the LGR. Obviously, in a work containing chapters on more than 40 languages, many more abbreviations are necessary than what is provided in the rather short LGR list. Each chapter has a list of abbreviations in the end, and the abbreviations are unified across chapters.

In choosing the abbreviations, we have been guided by a few important principles. One of these is brevity, and we try to use abbreviations that are not unnecessarily long, so that examples will take as little space as possible. However, due to the principle of transparency, longer abbreviations may sometimes be preferred. Transparency means that the letters used in the abbreviation actually reflect the term that is being abbreviated. Thus in order to abbreviate terms like declarative negator and imperative negator, we use the abbreviations DECL.NEG and IMP.NEG, rather than NEG1 and NEG2 even if the descriptive tradition of a specific language group might prefer the latter. This also conforms to the principle that the terms and abbreviations used should relate to the semantics/function of the categories they refer to. This means that numbers are used in glossing only when they refer to meanings like person and noun class, not merely to distinguish between categories without any reference to function (e.g. using numbers to differentiate between different negators NEG1 and NEG2 as above). This is in line with the functional-typological orientation of the work. The final principle to be mentioned here is unity, so we use the same abbreviation for the same term in different chapters and the same abbreviation will always refer to the same term across the chapters. This is a further reason to avoid abbreviations such as NEG1 and NEG2 as these could refer to declarative and imperative negation in one language and standard/verbal negation and negative existence in another. It should be emphasized that using a unified set of abbreviations is not in conflict with the theoretical position that categories are language-particular (see Lazard 1992; Dryer 1997; Haspelmath 2007, 2010). The use of a unified set only means that common principles are applied in abbreviating the terms that each author uses for the descriptive categories in their respective language.

[3]https://www.eva.mpg.de/lingua/resources/glossing-rules.php

3 Languages presented in this work

As the topic is very broad in nature and, at the same time, rendered very detailed by the questionnaire, the project attracted a lot of interest. At the start of this project we had as many as 58 interested contributors, 36 of whom also participated in the workshop at the Syntax of World's Languages conference in Paris. The workshop participants were invited to author a chapter for this work. In the course of this project, some authors dropped out and some came in after the workshop and the subsequent call soliciting participation in the project.

While strict sampling stratification is not possible in a collective enterprise like this, our ambition as editors has been to achieve a balanced representation of all linguistic macro-areas as given in the Glottolog: Africa, Eurasia, Papunesia, Australia, North and South America. We targeted languages which lack detailed descriptions of their negation systems. The inclusion of lesser studied and endangered languages was encouraged but the main criteria have been to highlight the genealogical and geographic diversity of human languages as well as to bring in high-quality contributions. Thus the reader will find descriptions of some well-studied languages, and likewise descriptions of languages whose documentation and study are just beginning, many of them severely endangered. We also tried to break the divide between the scholarship of spoken and signed languages by including a study of the Sign Language of the Netherlands.

A general breakdown of the distribution of phyla and languages according to macro-area is shown in Table 1. A detailed listing of the languages is shown in Tables 2 and 3, and their geographic distribution is displayed on the map in Figure 1. The order of languages in Tables 2 and 3 as well as in the whole work follows, to the extent possible, a direction from north to south for Africa, North America and South America; west to east for Eurasia and Papunesia.

Some comments on the presentation of the language list in Tables 2—3 are in order. The terms *top-level family, phylum* and *language stock* are used interchangeably in this section. The classification in the table follows the Glottolog. We are fully aware of the fact that the Glottolog may not always conform with the views of experts on specific families. The classification in the table may thus differ from what the authors say in their chapters. The choice to use the Glottolog here is solely motivated by the need for consistency within a single table, and we do not claim that the Glottolog would overrule the expert views of the authors. Those cases where the Glottolog deviates from the author's view have been indicated with an asterisk in Tables 2—3 (except in cases of mere orthographic variation). The 43 languages featured in the work represent 27 phyla. As discussed above, due to the interplay of different criteria – achieving adequate

Table 1: Quantitative overview of the genealogical coverage offered in this work

Macro-area	Phyla	Languages
Africa	5	13
Eurasia	9	13
Papunesia	2	3
Australia	2	2
North America	6	7
South America	5	5
	29[a]	43

[a]The actual number of phyla is 27. Indo-European occurs both in Africa, via Afrikaans, and obviously, in Eurasia. Similarly, Afro-Asiatic is found both in Africa, via Beja, Kambaata and Siwi, and in Eurasia, via Hebrew.

representation of language diversity, encouraging the study of smaller and endangered languages, specifically with regard to negation, quality of scholarship, and the availability of authors – a balanced representation of the macro-areas has not been achieved as is evident from Table 1.

As indicated in Table 1, there are five phyla represented in the African macro-area. Four of them are native to Africa: Atlantic-Congo and Afro-Asiatic cover large parts of the continent while Nilotic and Mande are more localized. Indo-European as a colonial newcomer is represented as well. As is well known, Atlantic-Congo is a major language stock that branches out into numerous and very diverse subgroups. Bantu is among the largest subfamilies and for this reason it is justified that it is represented here by several languages that also reflect the west-east divide in the family. The Atlantic-Congo phylum is further represented by other subgroups in Central and West Africa which contribute to the more adequate representation of this wide-spread phylum. As shown in Table 1, four out of five possible subfamilies of the Afro-Asiatic phylum are included. Smaller families in both East and West Africa are also covered. Given the overall number of languages included in this work, we consider the African macro-area relatively well represented.

A similar observation can be made about Eurasia. In the context of this work, its diversity is presented by including both large stocks such as Indo-European, Uralic and Sino-Tibetan but also by featuring some smaller families and isolate language clusters. They include Nakh-Daghestanian, Mongolic-Khitan

Table 2: Detailed listing of the languages in volumes I and II

Phylum	Subgrouping(s)	**Language**	Glottocode	Author(s)
Africa				
Afro-Asiatic	Cushitic, Beja*	**Beja**	beja1238	M. Vanhove
	Cushitic, East Cushitic*	**Kambaata**	kamb1316	Y. Treis
	Berber	**Siwi**	siwi1239	V. Schiattarella
Nilotic	Eastern Nilotic	**Lopit**	lopi1242	J. Moodie
Atlantic-Congo	Narrow Bantu*	**Gyeli**	gyel1242	N. Grimm
		Ngoreme	ngur1263	A. Laine, R. Bernander, H. Gibson
		Ruuli	ruul1235	E. Ruppert, S. Namyalo, A. Witzlack-Makarevich
		Cuwabo	chuw1238	R. Guérois
	North-Volta-Congo, Kam	**Kam**	kamm1249	J. Lesage
	North-Volta-Congo, Gbaya-Manza-Ngbaka	Northwest Gbaya	nort2775	P. Roulon-Doko
	Central Atlantic	**Mankanya**	mank1251	A. Montébran
Mande	Southeastern Mande*	**Mano**	mann1248	M. Khachaturyan
Indo-European	Germanic	**Afrikaans**	afri1274	D. Van Olmen, A. Breed, E. Kotzé
Eurasia				
Sign Language	Dutch-Belgian Sign	**Sign Language of the Netherlands**	dutc1253	U. Klomp, M. Oomen, R. Pfau
Indo-European	Slavic	**Bulgarian**	bulg1262	L. Veselinova
	Iranian	**Pashto**	pash1269	H. Liljegren, M. K. Khan
Afro-Asiatic	Semitic	**Modern Hebrew**	hebr1245	O. Amiraz
Uralic	Saami	**Lule Saami**	lule1254	J. Ylikoski, O. Kejonen
	Finnic	**Veps**	veps1250	R. Grünthal
Nakh-Dagestanian	Avar-Andic-Tsezic*	**Andi**	andi1255	T. Maisak
	Nakh	Tsova Tush	bats1242	F. Anker
Mongol-Khitan	Eastern Mongolic	**Khalkha Mongolian**	halh1238	B. Brosig
Sino-Tibetan	Kuki-Chin-Naga*	**Amri Karbi**	amri1238	N. Philippova
	Gyalrongic [...] Horpa	**Geshiza**	gesh1238	S. Honkasalo
Austroasiatic	Khasi-Palaung*	**Rumai Palaung**	ruma1248	R. Weymuth
Nivkh	Nivkh	**Nivkh**	nivk1234	E. Gruzdeva, M. Fedotov

Table 3: Detailed listing of the languages in volume III

Phylum	Subgrouping(s)	Language	Glottocode	Author(s)
Papunesia				
Austronesian	Malayo-Polynesian	Sundanese	sund1252	M. Butters
	Oceanic [...] Northern Vanuatu	Dorig	weta1242	A. François
West Bomberai*	Kalamang	Kalamang	kara1499	E. Visser
Australia				
Southern Daly	Murrinh Patha	Murrinhpatha	murr1258	R. Nordlinger
Worrorran	Ngarinyin	Ngarinyin	ngar1284	S. Spronck
North America				
Siouan	Mississipi Valley	Nakoda	assi1247	V. Collette
Iroquoian	Northern Iroquoian	Mohawk	moha1258	M. Mithun
	Northern Iroquoian	Oneida	onei1249	J. P. Koenig, K. Michelson
Pomoan	Southern Pomoan-Kashaya	Kashaya	kash1280	B. Olsson
Muskogean	Alabaman-Koasati	Koasati	koas1236	J. B. Martin
Otomanguean	Zapotec	Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec	teot1238	A. Gutiérrez
Mixe-Zoque	Mixe	Chuxnabán Mixe	quet1239	C. Dagostino
South America				
Chibchan	Arhuacic	Kogi	cogu1240	D. Knuchel
Arawakan	Japura-Columbia	Yukuna	yucu1253	M. Lemus Serrano, F. Rose
Chicham	Aguaruna	Aguaruna	agua1253	S. Overall
Nuclear-Macro-Je	Je	Panará	pana1307	B. Bardagil
Araucanian*	Mapundungun	Mapudungun	mapu1245	F. Zúñiga

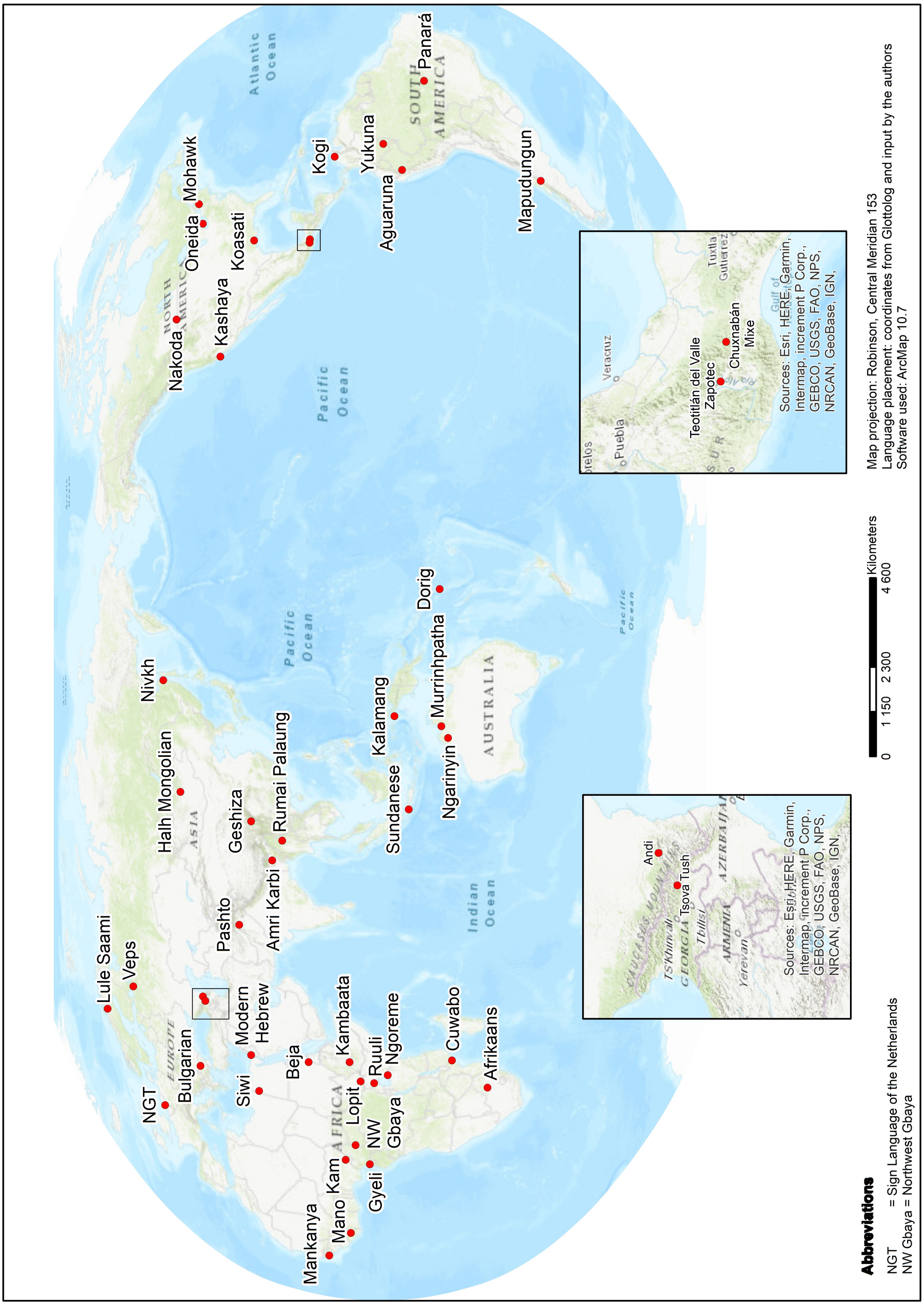

Figure 1: Geographic distribution of the languages covered in these volumes

and Nivkh, spread from the Caucasus to the Russian Far East. The Nakh-Daghestanian family is represented by two languages, which belong to two distinct branches of the family and are also geographically separated by the Caucasian Mountains: Andi (Avar-Andic-Tsezic) spoken in the Botlikhsky District of the Republic of Daghestan, in the northern part of the Caucasian mountains, and Tsova Tush, a Nakh language, spoken in a village in Eastern Georgia, in the southern part of the Caucasian mountain chain. The inclusion of Nivkh adds to the genealogical and geographic coverage of the volumes, and it also adds depth in that both of its main varieties are described.

As stated above, the genealogical diversity of Papunesia is not well covered in this work. However, it should be noted that the two phyla from this area are of very distinct character. One is Austronesian, which is geographically the most wide-spread family in the world. It is represented by two languages which are far apart both geographically and genealogically within the phylum: Sundanese, spoken primarily in West Java and Banten, Western Indonesia, and Dorig, an Oceanic language from the Torres Banks linkage, Northern Vanuatu. The other family from Papunesia is Greater West Bomberai[4] located in East Timor and West Papua. It is represented by Kalamang, considered to form a branch on its own within this family. This language is spoken on the biggest of the three Karas Islands, West Papua province, Eastern Indonesia.

The Australian languages featured in the work are Murrinhpatha (Southern Daly) and Ngarinyin (Worrorran). They are both spoken in the Northern Territory, linguistically the most diverse region of the continent. As indicated above, Murrinhpatha and Ngarinyin belong to distinct families with very different morpho-syntactic characteristics; the locations where they are still used are far apart. We have to acknowledge that the coverage of Australia would have been more adequate if at least one Pama-Nyungan language were included in the work. We hope that this can be picked up and remedied in future publications.

North America is represented by six different phyla spread across the continent, thus it can be considered relatively well represented in this work. The Iroquoian languages Oneida and Mohawk included here represent one and the same subgroup, Northern Iroquoian. While this contradicts the goal of including as diverse languages as possible, having the possibility to contrast two very closely related languages is usually very instructive for building up informed and comprehensive typologies.

As is well known, in South America we observe few very large phyla and a huge number of smaller families and isolates. Languages from three of its geographically and genealogically diverse families are represented here: Yukuna

[4] West Bomberai in Glottolog.

(Arawakan), Panará (Nuclear Macro-Je) and Kogi (Chibchan). In addition, we have also included Aguaruna, a language from a tightly knit family, Chicham (formerly known as Jivaroan), spoken in the south of Ecuador, and Mapundungun, a language isolate[5] of southern Chile. While the inclusion of more smaller families from South America would have been desirable to achieve a better genealogical representation, it has to be pointed out that the languages included here are geographically wide apart (see Figure 1) and spread across the entire continent. In this sense, the coverage of South America is acceptable.

As stated in the beginning of this section, the selection of languages presented here does not constitute a properly stratified sample. Still, we hope that the studies in this work provide a diverse enough picture of the complexities of negation as manifested in natural languages. We also hope that they will inspire future studies and new perspectives on this fascinating domain that has been and continues to be the focus of many works, in linguistics and beyond.

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[5]Araucanian in Glottolog.

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Chapter 2

Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language

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[revised August 2016, small corrections August 2018]
[February 2019, revisions done together with Ljuba Veselinova]

General remarks and instructions

This questionnaire[1] explicates the different aspects of negation that should be covered in the description of the domain of negation in a language. To keep the length of the questionnaire in reasonable proportions, the questionnaire itself does not explain very deeply the typology of the different subdomains of negation, or give examples, and typological literature is meant to be consulted while working with the questionnaire. Some pointers to relevant literature are given in the questionnaire, but this is not done systematically, and the user of the questionnaire is advised to make use of typological overviews such as Miestamo 2007, 2017, and further typological literature cited in these.

The questionnaire starts from function and asks what the formal constructions expressing these functions are in each language.

[1]As explained in the introduction to this work, the questionnaire is reproduced here in the version in which it was distributed to the authors in early 2019. The only changes are the formatting following the LSP style sheet and some very small corrections. These are mainly limited to correcting typographic errors, and changes to the content are limited to a couple of instances of replacing a word with a more fitting one and making a necessary clarification to clause structure. The history and the underlying logic of the questionnaire is discussed in the introduction. This 2019 version results from revisions done together with Ljuba Veselinova and her input is gratefully recognized.

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Note that depending on the language, some forms and constructions may fall under more than one subsections.

In Sections §2 Clausal negation and §3 Non-clausal negation, describe all the different constructions used to express negation in the language, paying attention to:

- Negative marker(s) (see Dahl 1979; Payne 1985; Dryer 2005, 2011a, 2011b):
  - type: particle, clitic, affix, verb, noun, …
  - position: preverbal, postverbal, clause-initial, clause-final…
  - number: one marker, two markers (discontinous), or even more…
- Structural differences between positives vs. negatives (see Miestamo 2005: 51ff, 2007, 2017)
  - Are negative markers simply added to a corresponding positive, or does the structure of the clause differ from the affirmative in other ways, too (constructional asymmetry)? Describe the structural differences.
  - Are the same grammatical categories available in the negative as well, or are some distinctions that are made in the affirmative lost in the negative (paradigmatic asymmetry)? Describe the differences in the paradigms available in the negative vs. affirmative.
- What are the more specific functions of these negative constructions – which environments are they used in, i.e. what do they negate?
  - Note specifically which categories/environments use the same negative construction.

Languages often have different negative constructions for negation in different environments (clausal negation, different clause types, constituent negation, negative indefinites, etc.). In Sections §2 and §3, the different negative constructions should be described: clausal negation in §2 and non-clausal negation in section §3. The subsections deal with different clause types and environments, in which negation may show dedicated constructions, different from the negation of other clause types / environments.

In the description of each negative construction, please take into account the points discussed above (negative markers, structural (a)symmetry, functions). Please also give illustrative examples (both the negative and its non-negative counterpart whenever possible).

1 The language

Give a general characterization of the language in terms of geography, genealogy, contacts, sociolinguistic status, dialectal variation etc. Please, provide also the ISO and Glottolog codes identifying the language.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (SN) refers to the (basic) way(s) a language has for negating declarative verbal main clauses (see especially Payne 1985; Miestamo 2005). For example, in Spanish (1), SN is expressed by a construction in which the negative marker *no* precedes the verb. In Finnish (2), standard negation is expressed by a construction in which the negative auxiliary *e-* appears as the finite element of the sentence, carrying the verbal person-number markers, and the lexical verb is in a non-finite form (uninflected present connegative in the present and past participle in the past tense).

(1) Spanish (constructed examples)

a. *El perro está ladrando.*
DEF dog be.3SG bark.PTCP
'The dog is barking.'

b. *El perro no está ladrando.*
DEF dog NEG be.3SG bark.PTCP
'The dog is not barking.'

c. *El perro ladró.*
DEF dog bark.PST.3SG
'The dog barked.'

d. *El perro no ladró.*
DEF dog NEG bark.PST.3SG
'The dog did not bark.'

(2) Finnish (constructed examples)

a. *Koira haukku-u.*
dog bark-3SG
'The dog is barking.'

b. *Koira ei hauku.*
dog NEG.3SG bark.CNG.PRS
'The dog is not barking.'

c. *Koira haukku-i.*
dog bark-PST.3SG
'The dog barked.'

d. *Koira ei haukku-nut.*
dog NEG.3SG bark-PST.PTCP.SG
'The dog did not bark.'

As explained above, pay attention to the type and position of the negative marker(s) as well as to any structural differences between the negatives and the corresponding affirmatives. Are negative markers simply added to a corresponding positive, or does the structure of the clause differ from the affirmative in other ways, too (constructional asymmetry)? Are the same grammatical categories available in the negative as well, or are some distinctions made in the affirmative lost in the negative (paradigmatic asymmetry)? Which types of asymmetry identified by Miestamo (2005) do these differences instantiate? For the relationship between aspectual categories and negation, see also Miestamo & van der Auwera (2011).

Languages may have different standard negation constructions, e.g., in different TAM categories, in different person/number/gender categories, etc. For example in Komi, the present and the past use negative verb constructions with a different stem of the negative verb (3a–3d), and the perfect and the pluperfect use a completely different construction with a negative particle (3e–3h).

(3) Komi-Zyrian (Rédei 1978: 105–109)

a. *Śet-ę.*
give-3SG.PRS
'(S)he gives.'

b. *O-z śet.*
NEG-3 give
'(S)he does not give.'

c. *Śet-i-s.*
give-PRET-3SG
'(S)he gave.'

d. *E-z śet.*
NEG.PRET-3 give
'(S)he did not give.'

e. *Śet-e̯m-a.*
give-PERF-3SG
'(S)he has given.'

f. *Abu śet-e̯m-a.*
NEG give-PERF-3SG
'(S)he has not given.'

g. *Śet-e̯m-a ve̯li.*
give-PERF-3SG be.PRET.3SG
'(S)he had given.'

h. *Abu śet-e̯m-a ve̯li.*
NEG give-PERF-3SG be.PRET.3SG
'(S)he had not given.'

Describe all the different constructions used in different standard negation environments (declarative verbal main clauses). One temporal meaning that very often has its own dedicated negative construction are the so-called 'not yet' or *nondum* tenses (Comrie 1985: 54; Veselinova 2017), and special attention should be paid to the existence of such negative tenses.

Languages may have clausal negation constructions differing from standard negation in different clause types. There may be a dedicated negative construction for imperatives, non-verbal clauses, etc. Sections §2.2–2.4 should describe negation in each of these clause types. In case a clause type does not have a dedicated negative construction, it should be briefly noted which negative construction, already described, is used to negate it, giving also an illustrative example.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Do imperatives have a dedicated negative construction different from standard negation (or show special behaviour with respect to standard negation in some way at least)? Describe the dedicated construction (special behaviour) according to the instruction given above (neg-markers, (a)symmetry, functions) and give examples. You may also characterize negative imperatives in terms of the typological classification proposed by van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013); for differences between negative and positive imperatives, see also Miestamo & van der Auwera 2007 and Aikhenvald 2010.

What about other non-declaratives (questions, (other) non-declarative mood categories)? If there are any special constructions, describe them here, too. For negative questions, it is especially interesting to comment on their function/use – e.g., is there an expectation of a positive or negative answer or are they neutral in this respect?

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predications (aka non-verbal predications) can be divided into different types following Payne (1997: 111ff), see also Veselinova (2014):

- equation, e.g., *She is my mother. – She is not my mother.*
- proper inclusion, e.g., *Kurumaku is a hunter. – Kurumaku is not a hunter.*
- attribution, e.g, *She is intelligent. – She is not intelligent.*
- locative predication, e.g., *The cat is on the mat. – The cat is not on the mat.*
- existential predication, e.g., *There are wild cats. – There are no wild cats.*
- possessive predication, e.g., *Tom has a car. – Tom doesn't have a car.*

As Veselinova (2015) notes, attribution can be further divided into permanent and temporary property assignment: *Luna is tall* vs. *Luna is happy*, and under existential predication, we can further identify locative-presentative constructions such as *There are wild cats in Africa.*

Note that the distinction between existentials and locatives lies in that locatives have a definite subject and they do not introduce new participants in the discourse, whereas existentials do introduce new participants. The subjects of existential predications are generic; they typically appear in bare form or if marked, their marking will be different from that of subjects in other kinds of predications, cf. also Dryer (2007), Veselinova (2013a), McNally (2016).

How are these clause types negated? Do any of these clause types have a dedicated negative construction different from standard negation or from the other non-verbal clause types (or show special behaviour with respect to standard negation or the other non-verbal clause types in some way at least)? Which types are negated similarily and which ones differently? Is there a difference between temporary and permanent property assignment as regards negation? Do generic vs. specific predicates behave differently as regards negation? Describe the dedicated construction (special behaviour) according to the instruction given above (neg-markers, (a)symmetry, functions) and give examples.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

How is negation in dependent/subordinate clauses expressed – standard negation or dedicated constructions? Describe the constructions according to the above instructions. Pay attention to both finite and non-finite dependent clauses. Can non-finite clauses be negated? Are they negated with the standard negator, a special negator or are there special negative non-finite forms?

In Finnish, for example (4), finite subordinate clauses are negated by standard negation but non-finite dependent clauses such as (4c) cannot be negated. In English, on the other hand, the equivalent of (4d) 'I saw her/him not come' would be grammatical.

(4) Finnish (constructed examples)

a. *Näin että hän tule-e.*
see.PST.1SG that 3SG come-3SG
'I saw that (s)he's coming.'

b. *Näin että hän ei tule.*
see.PST.1SG that 3SG NEG.3SG come.CNG.PRS
'I saw that (s)he's not coming.'

c. *Näin häne-n tule-va-n.*
see.PST.1SG 3SG-GEN come-PTCP.PRS-GEN
'I saw her/him come.'

d. * *Näin häne-n ei tule-va-n.*
see.PST.1SG 3SG-GEN NEG come-PTCP.PRS-GEN
'I saw her/him not come.'

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Lexical meanings may combine with negation to form lexically idiosyncratic negatives. Cross-linguistically common lexicalizations include 'not yet', 'not exist', 'not be of identity', 'not know', 'cannot, not be able to', 'not want', 'not talk', 'not need', 'not enough', 'not like', and 'not see' (cf. Veselinova 2013b). Describe the form and behaviour of any such items in the language.

Note that some of these may be better treated in other sections, e.g. 'not exist' and 'not be of identity' under stative predications, and 'not yet' under standard negation in case it can be seen as part of the tense system rather than as a more independent lexical item.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

If there are other clausal negation constructions, not covered in sections §2.1–§2.5, section §2.6 can be added to discuss them. One possible example would be clausal negation constructions appearing in special pragmatic contexts or showing special pragmatic effects.

3 Non-clausal negation

This section deals with constructions/elements expressing negation other than clausal negation.

3.1 Negative replies

How are negative replies to polar questions expressed? Are there one-word negative replies like English *no* ? Relate them to the corresponding affirmative replies.

What is the semantics of negative replies – do they disagree with the content or with the polarity of the question, i.e. do both of the replies in (5–6) mean that the dog is not barking or does the latter mean that the dog is barking?

(5) A: Is the dog barking?
B: No!

(6) A: Isn't the dog barking?
B: No!

Particles that disagree with the polarity of the question are called polarity-reversing particles by Holmberg (2015). The Guaraní particle *tove* is a polarity-reversing particle that can occur as reply to both positive and negative questions, while French *si* or German *doch* can only function as positive answers to negative questions. Please comment also on (the semantics of) affirmative replies to negative questions.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Describe the negation of indefinite pronouns and adverbs in the language, e.g. *nobody, no-one, nowhere, never, none, no; anybody, anyone, anywhere, ever, one, any.*

- How are these related to indefinites in non-negatives? What is the range of use of these indefinites in non-negative contexts (e.g., English *nobody* is negative only but *anybody* has non-negative uses as well); these functions can be described in terms of the semantic map proposed by Haspelmath (1997), cf. also Van Alsenoy (2014).

- How are they used in clauses: Are they used together with clausal negation or not (English *I saw nobody* vs. *I didn't see anybody*)? (cf. Haspelmath 2013 [2005]). In which positions can they occur in the clause?

- In case the language does not have indefinites or cannot use them in negatives, how are the equivalent meanings expressed, e.g., 'I didn't see anybody', 'Nobody came', 'The dog never barked', 'You didn't go anywhere'?

- Note that this subsection is related to negative polarity which is also a topic in §4 below. Try to find a balance between what is treated here and what is treated in §4.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking (abessives/caritives/privatives)

How are meanings of absence, opposition and antonymy, such as 'without', '-less', or 'un-', expressed on the lexical/phrasal level, e.g., *without a book, bookless, unread, unreadable*?

- Do verbs, nouns and adjectives behave similarly or do they have different markers?

- Are the markers adpositions, inflectional case markers, or derivation; if it is a primarily nominal marker, how does it combine with verbs?

- If the language has several of these, what is their division of labour, i.e. which functions does each marker express and what is its distribution?

- NB! If these markers are used in clausal negation constructions, these functions should be described in §2.

3.4 Other negative constructions/expressions

Describe and illustrate any other negative constructions/expressions that are not covered above. E.g. negative coordinators such as English *neither... nor.*

4 Other aspects of negation

This section pays attention to various morphosyntactic, semantic and pragmatic phenomena that are not negative constructions/expressions themselves, but arise in connection with negation.

Note that some of the topics overlap with each other or with points raised in Sections §2–3. Please give careful thought to how to relate the topics in different sections to each other so that the same information is not repeated but that the readers can easily see the connections.

4.1 The scope of negation

How is the scope of negation narrowed to a specific constituent (e.g., Foc Neg-Verb vs. Neg-Foc Verb)? What is the role of intonation and stress in coding the scope of negation? Prosodic prominence may be indicated, e.g., by underlining.

Scope-related questions more generally? Note that examples discussed under different topics of the questionnaire may be discussed here in terms of their scope properties.

4.2 Negative polarity

List negative polarity items, their form/meaning/use (licensing conditions). Note that this overlaps to some extent with section §3.2.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Is case marking affected under negation (e.g., partitive/genitive objects or subjects)? Any other effects negation might have on the marking of NPs, such as change or loss of determiners, effects on the marking of focus, etc? Cf. Miestamo (2014).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Describe and illustrate the means used for reinforcing negation. Prosody should also be paid attention to here. To the extent that emphatic negatives involve elements forming separate negative constructions/expressions, they can also be treated or at least mentioned at relevant points in Sections §2 or §3.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

How is the coordination of positive+negative clause or two negative clauses expressed? Are there special negative coordinators, such as *neither, nor* ? Are there special constructions for contrastive negation (e.g. *This is a dog, not a cat*; *This is not a cat but a dog*); this is also related to the scope of negation and can be taken up in §4.1 as well?

What about subordination? Are there negative conjunctions, such as *lest*? Note that this is related to section §2.4.

To the extent that the negative coordinators and conjunctions are elements forming separate negative constructions/expressions, they can also be treated or at least mentioned at relevant points in Sections §2 or §3.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Here you can take up further aspects of negation to the extent that you have been able to find data on them. It is advisable to try to cover as many as possible of the phenomena that have been given a separate subsection below. Any other aspects of negation can also be addressed in case they are of special interest in the language described.

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (neg-raising) means that a higher-clause negative is interpreted as negating a lower-clause predicate, e.g. *I don't think they're coming* meaning *I think they're not coming* (see Horn 1978, 1989). Does neg-transport occur? Which predicates allow it and which ones do not?

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation means that what is negated is not the content of the proposition but rather the way it is expressed – "a device for objecting to a previous utterance on any grounds whatever, including the conventional or conversational implicata it potentially induces, its morphology, its style or register, or its phonetic realization." (Horn 1989: 363)

- Some examples of metalinguistic negation (from Horn 1989):
  - *He doesn't have three children, he has four.*
  - *Around here we don't like coffee – we love it.*

  - *He didn't call the [pólis], he called the [polís]*
  - *Phydeaux didn't shit the rug, he soiled the carpet.*

- Metalinguistic negation may lead to different behaviour of negative polarity items:
  - *John didn't manage to solve {some/*any} problems – they were quite easy for him to do.* (Horn 1985: 130)

How does the language treat metalinguistic negation? Does it show special behaviour different from ordinary ("descriptive") negation? How does metalinguistic negation relate to contrastive negation, which may or may not be metalinguistic?

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

Are there any interesting non-negative uses of negative constructions or constructions resembling negative constructions in the language? One particular phenomenon to pay attention to here is the so-called expletive negation in complements to predicates such as 'fear' or 'doubt', e.g. in French *Je crains qu'elle **ne** vienne.* 'I'm afraid she will come', or in subordinate clauses introduced by conjunctions meaning 'until' or before', e.g. in French *...avant qu'il **ne** vienne.* '...before he comes.' If this phenomenon is found in the language, which contexts trigger it?

4.6.4 Summary of what can be negated in the language

According to the instructions at the beginning of this questionnaire, the description of each negative construction should pay attention to whether some grammatical categories are lost in the negative. Here, you can still come back to the question of what is negatable in the language? Can, e.g., quantifiers be negated – which ones can and which ones cannot? What about clauses with indefinite subjects?

4.6.5 Diachronic notes and observations

The questionnaire aims at a synchronic description of negation in a language. Notes on diachronic issues, such as Jespersen Cycles (van der Auwera 2009, 2010) or the Negative Existential Cycle (Croft 1991; Veselinova 2014, 2016), may be made here in this final section or in the relevant sections that they concern.

4.6.6 Any other phenomena

Any other phenomena that should be taken into account in describing the system of negation in your language but that has not been covered above? Anything that is of special interest in the negation system of the language but does not fit under any of the headings above.

Abbreviations

1	first person	PERF	perfect
3	third person	PRS	present
CNG	connegative	PRET	preterite
DEF	definite	PST	past
GEN	genitive	PTCP	participle
NEG	negative	SG	singular

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Chapter 3

Negation in Sundanese

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The Malayo-Polynesian language Sundanese is characterized by a rich system for the encoding of negation. While the position and number of negators in clausal negation follow the cross-linguistic majority, some elements of Sundanese negation are less common, including the distinction made in negators used in verbal versus nominal predicates and the productive use of negative lexicalizations in certain areas of cognition and volition. Negation in Sundanese also includes distinct negators in certain tense and aspectual categories; alternative negation strategies to achieve greater levels of politeness or indirectness; prohibitives with uses beyond imperative mood; and polarity phenomena relying on reduplication and scalar additive particles. This chapter comprises a detailed description of Sundanese negation following use of Miestamo (2025 [this volume]) in a field environment in West Java.

Keywords: Malayo-Polynesian, negation, negative lexicalizations, scalar semantics, existential predication.

1 The language

Sundanese, known by its speakers as *Basa Sunda,* (lit. 'Language of Sunda', ISO: sun, Glottocode: sund1252), is a Malayo-Polynesian, Austronesian language spoken primarily in West Java and Banten, Indonesia. Centuries-old migration and more recent governmental transmigration have also resulted in pockets of Sundanese speakers elsewhere in Indonesia, such as southern Sumatra, West Kalimantan, and Riau. With around 34 million speakers, Sundanese is the third most widely spoken language in Indonesia, after *Bahasa Indonesia* (Indonesian) and Javanese. Though its speakers account for approximately 15% of the population,

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Sundanese, like other *bahasa daerah* (regional languages), is in decline as speakers increasingly shift to greater use of Indonesian, the official and national language of the country. In contemporary times, monolingual Sundanese speakers are found almost exclusively in rural areas among older populations.

Like other languages of Indonesia, Sundanese has been considerably influenced by languages outside the Austronesian family. External influence on the Austronesian world began 2,000 years ago and occurred in the following order: Indian (Sanskrit), Chinese (Hokkien, Hakka, Cantonese, etc.), Islamic (Arabic), and European (Portuguese, Spanish, Dutch, English) (Blust 2013). The fall of the Sundanese Pajajaran Kingdom in the 16th century resulted in the loss of a Sundanese cultural center as power became concentrated in the *kabupaten* (the seat of the local leader) with no strong single point of influence. Today the center of Sundanese culture is widely viewed to be Priangan, in the highlands around the city of Bandung in West Java province. While there are numerous dialects of Sundanese, it is the Priangan dialect that is taken to be the standard and taught from elementary to high school in West Java and Banten provinces.

Sundanese is characterized by basic SVO word order, mostly isolating and agglutinating morphology, nasal harmony, and reduplication. Also notable is the elaborate coding of speech levels in most dialects. Lezer (1931, cited in Wessing 1974) identifies four basic levels: i) *lemes pisan* 'very polite', ii) *lemes* 'polite/ deferential', iii) *kasar* 'ordinary/ colloquial', iv) *kasar pisan* 'vulgar'. These speech levels, which consist of nearly fully distinct lexicons at each level, have long been recognized as a borrowing from Javanese. This is supported by the fact that speech levels are absent in Baduy, the region of the Sundanese world considered to be the most archaic (Gonda 1948 and oral tradition).

One particularly rich area of Sundanese grammar is negation, the focus of this chapter. The structure of the chapter mirrors that of the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). A large portion of the data presented herein was collected by the author from June 2019 to August 2019 in the village of Cipta Gelar, one of the larger villages of Kasepuhan Banten Kidul, a community in the southern region of Mount Halimun Salak National Park in West Java. The work is supplemented by data gathered by the author in Bogor, West Java from January 2019 to June 2019, and in Bandung in February 2020. The data includes utterances from different speech levels, though the majority are from the *lemes* or high speech level. The author follows Sundanese orthographic conventions throughout the chapter wherein 'é' is used for the mid front vowel /ɛ/ and 'e' represents mid central /ə/. Some of the glossed examples are also included in the analysis presented in Butters (2021).

For a full table of the negators and negative constructions discussed throughout the chapter, the reader can refer to Table 2 at the end of the chapter.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (Payne 1985, Miestamo 2005) refers to the basic ways languages have for negating declarative main clauses with a verbal predicate. The standard negator in Sundanese is the uninflected particle *henteu,* frequently in its clipped form *teu.* This negator occurs directly before the verbal predicate, the most common position for negation in Austronesian languages (Vossen & van der Auwera 2014: 61) and cross-linguistically (Dahl 1979, Dryer 2013, van der Auwera & Du Mon 2015: 411). An affirmative utterance is presented in (1a) along with its negative counterpart in (1b).

(1) a. *Urang nga-guna-keun éta ember.*
person.1pl act-use-appl dem bucket
'We use that bucket.'

b. *Urang* ***(hen)teu*** *nga-guna-keun éta ember.*
person.1pl neg act-use-appl dem bucket
'We don't use that bucket.'

Evidence that the negator is a particle rather than a verb is provided by its inability to take the plural infix *-ar-* (or its allophone *-al-*) which typically affixes to nouns and verbs, as shown in (2).

(2) a. ***Ar****anjeunna teu t****ar****uang tos sabab****ar****aha dinten.*
3pl neg pl-eat iam several day
'They hadn't eaten for several days.' (Butters 2021: 43)

b. * ***Ar****anjeunna t****ar****eu t****ar****uang tos sabab****ar****aha dinten.*
3pl neg.pl pl-eat iam several day
'They hadn't eaten for several days.'

Sundanese has a number of special negators that are used in environments where *(hen)teu* is dispreferred. Many of these will be presented in later sections. For the moment, I discuss clausal negators that are used in particular tenses or aspects. While Sundanese does not possess overt tense morphology, there are temporal adverbials (e.g. *ayeuna* 'now', *dinten ieu* 'today', *énjing* 'tomorrow') and temporal/aspectual auxiliaries (e.g. *nuju* for the progressive, *atos* 'already' for the iamitive) whose occurrence and position in the clause are quite flexible. I turn now to address a few areas of negation related to tense and aspectual distinctions. These include: a special negative future marker, 'not anymore', 'not yet', and 'never'.

Negative future is encoded by a special marker, *moal,* as demonstrated in (3a). The future counterpart in affirmative utterances is the high form *badé* 'want' or the middle-to-low form *(a)rék* 'want', shown in (3b), both of which have grammaticalized as future markers, though the lexical meaning is still transparent to speakers.[1] *Badé* and *(a)rék* cannot be negated by the standard negator. *Moal* thus constitutes an example of asymmetric negation, while most negation in Sundanese is generally symmetric, as in (1a) and (1b) (following the classification in Miestamo 2000, 2003, 2005).

(3) a. *Abdi **moal** ngiring ka ditu kumargi aya peryogi di kampus.*
1sg neg.fut act.follow to there because ex matter loc campus
'I will not join because I have something to do on campus.'

b. *Abdi **badé** ngiring ka ditu.*
1sg want act.follow to there
'I will join there.' (Butters 2021: 76)

As demonstrated in (4), *moal* is often followed by the adverbial *waka* 'too early, before its time', which tends to collocate with negatives. Consultants report the perception that leaving out *waka* 'too early, before its time' results in a statement that is too definite. Adverbials like *waka* 'too early, before its time' and *heula* 'first' are frequently affixed to verbs in Sundanese to encode politeness. When one leaves a group, for instance, one should say *indit heula* '(I'm) leaving first', even when one is not the first to go and when one does intend to return that day. Consultants note that this leaves open the possibility that one might return.

(4) ***Moal waka** angkat heula.*
neg.fut too.early go first
'(I) will not go just yet.' (Butters 2021: 77)

not anymore is encoded by the co-occurrence of the standard negator, *(hen)teu,* and *deui* 'again', as shown in (5).

[1] Other verbs, e.g., *hoyong* 'wish to', only code desire and do not have the same function of encoding future.

(5) a. *Aki atos* ***teu*** *damel di dieu* ***deui****.*
grandfather IAM NEG work LOC here again
'The older man (lit. grandfather) does not work here anymore.'

b. *Kopi éta atos* ***teu*** *panas* ***deui****.*
coffee DEM IAM NEG hot again
'That coffee is not hot anymore.'

NOT YET can be represented by a number of formal means. The first is the co-occurrence of the standard negator with *heula* 'first', as demonstrated in (6). Such a strategy is also attested in Bantu languages (Veselinova & Devos 2021).

(6) *Abdi mah* ***teu heula*** *mésér tas.*
1SG DP NEG first buy bag
'I'm not going to buy the bag just yet.' (Butters 2021: 88)

NOT YET can also be expressed by the verbal negator plus the polarity sensitive item *acan* or its clipped form *can*, as shown in (7a). In spoken Sundanese, the fused form *tacan* is also common, as in (7b). Meanwhile, the iamitives[2] include the polite form *parantos/ atos/ tos* 'already' and the colloquial *(ng)geus* 'already', as demonstrated in (7c); the iamitives cannot be negated, as shown in (7d).

(7) a. *Manéhna* ***teu acan*** *nikah.*
3SG NEG PHPC marry
'S/he is not married yet.'

b. *Abdi* ***tacan*** *pa-pendak sa-saha.*
1SG not.yet RED-meet RED-who
'I haven't met anyone yet.'

c. *Manéhna* ***tos*** *nikah.*
3SG IAM marry
'S/he is already married.' (Butters 2021: 92)

d. * *Manéhna* ***teu tos*** *nikah.*
3SG NEG IAM marry
'S/he is not married yet.'

Interestingly, in colloquial speech the particle *(a)can* frequently appears alone yet retains its negative meaning, as demonstrated in a declarative utterance in (8) and a short conversation in (9).

[2] I follow Dahl & Wälchli (2016) in using the term *iamitive* rather than *perfect*, as these markers in Sundanese can combine with stative predicates like 'be here', as in *atos di dieu* 'already here' and 'be sick', as in *atos gering* 'already sick'.

(8) *Ti isuk* ***can*** *ibak.*
from morning PHPC bathe
'From morning, (I) haven't bathed yet.'

(9) Q: *Geus dahar* ***acan****?*
IAM eat PHPC
'Have you eaten yet, or not?'

A: ***Acan****.*
PHPC
'Not yet.' (Butters 2021: 92)

The particle *acan* will appear again in §4.2 on negative polarity. I reserve the analysis of 'not yet' for §4.6.3 which handles diachronic issues.

The last expression to be covered in this section is the coding of 'never', which is done through the negation of the perfect particle *pernah*, as in (10), which encodes either negative present perfect or negative habitual. *Acan* is optional but preferred in the former instance, according to consultants.

(10) a. *Anjeuna* ***teu*** *(acan)* ***pernah*** *indit ka sekolah.*
3SG NEG PHPC PRF go to school
'He has never gone to school' / 'He never goes to school.'

b. *Anjeuna* ***pernah*** *linggih di Ciamis.*
3SG PRF live LOC Ciamis
'He once lived in Ciamis' / 'He has lived in Ciamis.' (Butters 2021: 95)

Alternatively, 'never' is encoded by a special particle *tara,* as in (11). Speakers suggest that *tara* means both 'never' and 'rarely', which again may have to do with a tendency to avoid definite negation.

(11) *Manéhna* ***tara*** *sare dina kasur.*
3SG never sleep LOC mattress
'S/he never sleeps on a mattress.' (when noting a girl's preference to sleep on a mat) (Butters 2021: 92)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

This section focuses on negation in imperative mood and interrogative mood. In imperative mood in affirmative contexts, the verb occurs in clause initial position and the subject is dropped, as in (12a), or postponed to the end of the utterance, as in (12b). A less direct command is encoded by passive voice, as in (12c).

(12) a. *Leueut kopi anjeun.*
drink coffee 2SG.POSS
'Drink your coffee.'

b. *Bobo di dieu anjeun.*
sleep LOC here 2SG
'Sleep here, you.'

c. *Mangga di-leueut kopi-na.*
HORT PASS-drink coffee-LIG
'Go ahead and drink your coffee.' (Butters 2021: 137)

The prohibitives, *ulah* in higher speech level and *tong* in lower speech level, are separate uninflected particles that occurs in phrase initial position. Sundanese joins the majority in the 495-language sample described by van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013), in having prohibitives that differ in form and position from the standard negator. The prohibitives can be used with both activities and attributes, as indicated in (14).

(13) a. ***Ulah*** *saré kapetingan supados henteu hudang kaberangan.*
PROH sleep late.night in.order.to NEG wake late.day
'Don't sleep late at night in order to not wake up too late.'

b. ***Ulah*** *osok langlang-lingling.*
PROH always wander-energetic
'Don't always be aimless.'

c. ***Ulah*** *gélo.*
PROH crazy
'Don't be crazy.' (Butters 2021: 137)

A negative command is softened by the use of passive voice, as in (14a), or the addition of the existential predicator, *aya,* as in (14b).

(14) a. ***Ulah*** *di-inum kopi manéh.*
PROH PASS-drink coffee 2SG
'Do not drink your coffee.' (if, for instance, there is a fly in the coffee)

b. ***Ulah*** *aya nu tinggal-eun.*
PROH EX REL stay-PASS
'Don't leave anything behind.' (Butters 2021: 149)

When the prohibitive is followed by the first person inclusive plural pronoun, a suggestion against collective action is encoded, as in (15).

(15) ***Ulah*** *arurang nyalah-keun manéhna.*
PROH person.PL ACT.wrong-APPL 3SG
'Let us not blame him.' (Butters 2021: 148)

The hortative *hayu,* which occurs in phrase initial position, as in (16a), can also be used with the prohibitive, as in (16b). The prohibitive is frequently used on its own for urging, even in absence of a verb, as in (16c).

(16) a. ***Hayu*** *urang ka sawah!*
HORT person.1PL to paddy field
'Let's go to the paddy field!'

b. ***Hayu*** *urang* ***ulah*** *ka lapangan heula poé ieu.*
HORT person.1PL PROH to field first day DEM
'Let's not go to the field yet today.'

c. ***Ulah*** *ka lapangan poé ieu!*
PROH to field day DEM
'Let's not go to the field today!'

The prohibitive form has functions beyond those discussed thus far, but these are reserved for §4.6.2. In the meantime, I turn to another category of negation in non-declarative utterances; namely, the behavior of negation in interrogative clauses.

Polar questions in Sundanese are typically expressed simply through the marking of a declarative utterance with rising intonation, as in (17a) and with the negator in (17b). An additional strategy is fronting the verb and optionally postposing the subject, as in (17c), and with the negator in (17d).

(17) a. *Meri ngartos?*
Meri ACT.understand
'Do you (Meri) understand?'

b. *Meri* ***teu*** *ngartos?*
Meri NEG understand
'You (Meri) don't understand?'

c. *Ngartos (anjeun) Meri?*
ACT.understand 2SG Meri
'Do you understand, Meri?'

d. ***Teu*** *ngartos (anjeun) Meri?*
NEG ACT.understand 2SG Meri
'Don't you understand, Meri?'

The verbal negator *(hen)teu* also functions as a negative tag, as in (18). It is fairly flexible in its position in an utterance and its scope is always leftward. It is a neutral tag, used to seek information without prior expectation.

(18) a. *Jarak mal sareng stasiun tebih* ***henteu****?*
distance mall COM station far NEG
'Is the distance from the mall to the station far or not?'

b. *Tebih* ***henteu*** *sareng stasiun jarak-na?*
far NEG COM station distance-LIG
'Is it far or not from the station?'

The productive nominal negator *lain,* presented in the next section, can also be used as a tag, though it is far more restricted in its position than *(hen)teu.* It occurs at the end of the utterance and has wide sentential scope. It can be paraphrased, 'isn't it?/is it not the case?', as demonstrated in (19).

(19) a. *Éta anjing ngagonggong* ***lain****?*
DEM dog bark NEG
'That's a dog barking, isn't it?'

b. *Manéhna nu datang téh* ***lain****?*
3SG REL come DP NEG
'He was the one who came, wasn't he?'

Unlike the verbal negator, the nominal negator when used as a tag encodes prior expectation on the part of the speaker and expects an affirmative response.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Payne (1997: 111) divides stative predication into the following types: equation, proper inclusion, attribution, locative predication, existential predication, and possessive predication. These types are addressed in this section.

Sundanese, like many non-Oceanic Austronesian languages, employs an entirely different negator for nominal predications than for verbal or adjectival predications. This negator, *sanés* in the high speech level or *lain* in middle speech level, occurs in the same position of the utterance as the verbal negator. (20) demonstrates the use of *lain* in an equative predication, where there is no change in word order between the affirmative and negative utterances. The use of the standard negator *(hen)teu* here would result in an ungrammatical sentence.

(20) a. *Manéhna budak leutik.*
3SG child small
'S/he is a small child.'

b. *Manéhna **lain** budak leutik.*
3SG NEG child small
'S/he is not a small child.'

The same negators are used to encode proper inclusion, as shown in (21). Once again, the standard negator is ungrammatical here.

(21) a. *Kasép tukang moro.*
Kasep craftsman hunt
'Kasep is a hunter.'

b. *Kasép **lain** tukang moro.*
Kasep NEG craftsman hunt
'Kasep is not a hunter.' (Butters 2021: 44)

The negation of attribution, on the other hand, is most typically expressed with the standard negator *(hen)teu*, as in (22b). However, in contrastive negation like (22c), the nominal negator is preferred.

(22) a. *Awak manéhna tiis.*
body 3SG cold
'S/he is very cold.'

b. *Awak manéhna **teu** tiis.*
body 3SG NEG cold
'S/he is not very cold.'

c. *Manéhna **lain** males tapi tunduh.*
3SG NEG lazy but sleepy
'S/he's not lazy, but sleepy.' (when defending a child not helping with a task)

In Sundanese, affirmative existential predicates are used to code locative predication, existential predication, locative-presentative constructions (identified in Veselinova 2013b), and possessive predication.[3] In locative predications, as in (23), the use of the existential predicator, *aya,* is optional, while locative markers are obligatory; the standard negator precedes the affirmative existential.

[3]The literature on existential predications is vast and is beyond the scope of the present paper.

(23) a. *Ucing* ***(aya) di*** *samak.*
cat EX on mat
'The cat is on the mat.'

b. *Ucing* ***teu (aya) di*** *samak.*
cat NEG EX on mat
'The cat is not on the mat.'

Locative-presentative constructions, presented in (24), contain a non-specific subject preceded by an existential or negative existential.

(24) a. ***Aya*** *jalmi* ***di*** *kampung ieu nu gaduh imah ageung.*
EX person LOC village DEM REL have house big
'There are people in this village who have big houses.'

b. ***Teu aya*** *jurig* ***di*** *leuweung.*
NEG EX ghost LOC forest
'There are no ghosts in the forest.'

Sundanese existential predications and negative existential predications are shown in (25). The affirmative existential is *aya*, which can be negated by the standard negator, as in *teu aya* or the fused form *taya*. Additionally, there is a special negative existential predicator – that is to say, a variant of the type discussed in Veselinova (2013b) that is distinct from the negative existential formed by the standard negator. In Sundanese, this form is *euweuh*, shown in (25d).

(25) a. ***Aya*** *loba béas.*
EX many rice_grains
'There is a lot of rice.'

b. ***Teu aya*** *loba béas.*
NEG EX many rice_grains
'There is a lot of rice.'

c. ***Taya*** *loba béas!*
NEG.EX many rice_grains
'There is not much rice!'

d. ***Euweuh*** *anjing anu ngagonggong di luar.*
NEG.EX dog REL ACT.bark LOC outside
'There is no dog barking outside.' (Butters 2021: 109)

The negative existentials can be used interchangeably, though *euweuh* is considered very coarse and is probably the most recent predicator, following the principle that forms associated with innovative sociolinguistic forces are likely to be newer (Greenberg 1966).[4] The selection of negative existentials in Sundanese appears to have more to do with attending to the correct speech levels than with any distinct functions performed by the existentials.

Possessive predication can be encoded through use of the high form transitive verb *gaduh* 'have' or the lower form *boga* 'have', as in (26a), which like other verbs are negated by *(hen)teu,* as in (26b). Additionally, the existential predicator can be used to code possession, as in (26c), and the negative existential can negate possession, but only when there is a definite subject in the initial slot of the utterance, as in (26d). Each of the existential predicators discussed thus far are compatible with coding possession.

(26) a. *Abdi* ***gaduh*** *seueur waktu.*
1SG have many time
'I have lots of time.'

b. *Abdi* ***teu gaduh*** *seueur waktu.*
1SG NEG have many time
'I don't have a lot of time.'

c. *Faheem* ***aya*** *karanjang nu hampang.*
Faheem EX basket REL lightweight
'Faheem has a lightweight basket.'

d. *Faheem t**aya*** *karanjang nu hampang.*
Faheem NEG.EX basket REL lightweight
'Faheem does not have a lightweight basket.'

As shown in (27), when the possessed entity is in sentence initial position, the comitative *sareng* or the locative *di* is obligatory, while the existential predicate is optional.

(27) a. *Poci-na* ***(aya) sareng*** *abdi.*
teapot-DEF EX COM 1SG
'I have the teapot.'

b. *Poci-na* ***teu (aya) sareng*** *abdi.*
teapot-DEF NEG EX COM 1SG
'I do not have the teapot.'

[4] I suspect *euweuh* might have developed from a lexeme meaning 'lost', but more evidence is needed to support this analysis

c. *Konci-na (**aya) di** abdi.*
key-DEF EX LOC 1SG
'I have the key.'

d. *Konci-na **teu (aya) di** abdi.*
key-DEF NEG EX LOC 1SG
'I don't have the key.'

The use of the comitative corresponds to a Companion schema while the use of the locative corresponds to a Location schema, in the sense of Heine (1997).

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negation in dependent and subordinate clauses is expressed through standard negation. Complementizers are optional and rarely used in spoken language. The variants in (28) are all possible.

(28) a. *Urang ningali (yén) anjeuna datang.*
person.1SG ACT.see COMP 3SG come.
'I saw (that) he's coming.'

b. *Urang ningali (yén) anjeuna teu datang.*
person.1SG ACT.see COMP 3SG NEG come.
'I saw (that) he's not coming.'

c. *Urang teu ningali (yén) anjeuna datang.*
person.1SG NEG ACT.see COMP 3SG come
'I didn't see (that) he came.'

d. *Urang teu ningali (yén) anjeuna teu datang.*
person.1SG NEG ACT.see COMP 3SG NEG come
'I didn't see (that) he did not come.'

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Earlier in this chapter, I described special negators like the future negator, *moal,* and the 'not yet' forms, *teu acan, tacan,* or *can.* The aim of this section is to present two other irregular negative verbs that fall within the realm of volition and cognition: 'not want' and 'not know'. The existence of special negators for not wanting and not knowing is not particularly surprising given what is known of domains that tend to exhibit special negative lexicalization. Veselinova (2013a), for instance, notes that after negative existentials and 'not yet' expressions, the next most common negative lexicalizations include ‘not know’, ‘not be of identity’, ‘cannot’, ‘not want’, ‘not talk’ and ‘need not’.

In Sundanese, ‘not want’ can be encoded by the irregular low form negative verb, *embung*, or the high form *alim*.[5] These negators occur in the same slot in the utterance as standard negation, as demonstrated in (29a) and (29b). *Alim* can also take the third person suffix -*eun* as shown in (29c).

(29) a. *Abdi* ***alim*** *kopi atanapi téh.*
1SG NEG.want coffee or tea
‘I don’t want coffee nor tea.’

b. *Hena* ***alim*** *emam buah ngora éta da haseum.*
Hena NEG.want eat fruit young DEM because sour
‘Hena doesn’t want to eat that unripe fruit because (it’s) sour.’

c. *Anjeunna mah* ***alim-eun****.*
3SG DP unwilling-3
‘He doesn’t want to.’ / ‘He is unwilling.’ (Butters 2021: 73)

Alternatively, the lexeme *hoyong* ‘want’ (or the colloquial *hayang*) can be negated through ordinary means, as in (30).

(30) *Hena* ***teu*** *hoyong tuang buah éta.*
Hena NEG desire eat fruit DEM
‘Hena doesn’t want to eat that fruit.’ (Butters 2021: 73)

In colloquial speech, *alim* is often used in replies, as in (31). It is frequently accompanied by the discourse particle *ah* indicating frustration.

(31) Q: *Badé ngiring sareng bapa?*
want ACT.follow COM father
‘Do you want to go with me (lit. father)?’

A: ***Alim*** *da badé ngiring sareng ibu.*
NEG.want because want ACT.follow COM mother
‘(I) don’t want to because (I’m) going with mother.’ (Butters 2021: 74)

Example (32) suggests that *alim* may be broadening into the domain of ability modality.

[5] Hardjadibrata (2003: 219) also lists the forms *narah* and *teu kersa* for NOT WANT, which are not attested in my data.

(32) A: *Kang hayu urang ka sawah!*
big.brother HORT person.1PL to paddy.fields
'Come on, man, let's go to the paddy fields!'

B: ***Alim** ah abdi badé ngala suluh!*
NEG.want DP 1SG want ACT.gather firewood
'I don't want to because I have to collect firewood!' (Butters 2021: 74)

A second negative lexicalization is *duka* meaning 'don't know'. *Duka* occurs most often in sentence initial position or in answer to questions, as in (33).

(33) A: *Manéh kunaon batuk waé?*
2SG why cough just
'Why are you coughing?'

B: ***Duka** kana kebul meureun.*
NEG.know to dust maybe
'I don't know, maybe from the dust.' (Butters 2021: 82)

The polite *terang* 'know' (or the colloquial *nyaho* 'know') can also be negated by the regular verbal negator, as in (34a) and (34c). Speakers do not accept the substitution of *duka* 'not know' here.

(34) a. *Hena **teu terang** kunaon manéhna ngambek.*
Hena NEG know why 3SG ACT.angry
'Hena doesn't know why s/he is angry.'

b. * *Hena **duka** kunaon manéhna ngambek.*
Hena NEG.know why 3SG ACT.angry
'Hena doesn't know why s/he is angry.'

c. *Upami **teu terang** jalan-na saé-na ulah angkat nyalira.*
if NEG know road-DEF good-LIG PROH go alone
'If you don't know the right road, it's better not to go alone.'

d. * *Upami **duka** jalan-na saé-na ulah angkat nyalira.*
if NEG.know road-DEF good-LIG PROH go alone
'If you don't know the right road, it's better not to go alone.'

Duka has a broader function of appealing to general ignorance, as in (35a), corresponding to the Indonesian *entah* 'who knows'. This broader function is particularly evident in expressions where *duka* occurs in the same utterance as *teu terang*, as in (35b).

(35) a. ***Duka*** *kunaon manéhna ngambek deui!*
NEG.know why 3SG angry again
'Who knows why she is angry again!'

b. ***Duka*** *abdi* ***teu terang****.*
NEG.know 1SG NEG know
'Who knows, I don't know.'

In Sundanese and in Indonesian, *duka* can also mean 'sorrow, sadness', appearing in the Sundanese *duduka* 'anger, displeasure, disgrace' and *kadukaan* 'grief, sorrow' (Hardjadibrata 2003: 210), as well as in the Indonesian *berduka cita* 'to mourn, to grieve', among other lexemes. It is possible that the ignorative meaning grammaticalized from an expression of sorrow or apology.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

This chapter has already included several means to soften negative force. An additional strategy is the substitution of the lexeme *kirang* 'less' for the standard negator, as in (36). *Kirang* can occur directly before verbs and attributes.

(36) a. *Abdi* ***kirang*** *percanten kana jawab-an-na.*
1SG less believe-3 to answer-NMLZ-3SG
'I don't really believe his answer.'

b. *Cuaca dinten ieu* ***kirang*** *saé pisan.*
weather day DEM less good very
'The weather today was really not so good.' (Butters 2021: 83)

The form *kurang* 'less' encodes the same function in Standard Indonesian. Given the high level of bilingualism between the two languages, it is likely that the construction was borrowed, though the direction of that borrowing is unclear.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Replies expressing 'no' make use of any of the negators discussed thus far, depending on the predicate type. Example (37) demonstrates a standard negative reply. (38) shows the use of *alim* 'not want' in a reply. There are no changes to these forms in replies, though there is perhaps a general preference to use a full form rather than a clipped form, especially if the reply is emphatic.

(37) A: *Linggih di dieu?*
live LOC here
'Do you live here?'

B: ***Henteu***.
NEG
'No (I don't).'

(38) A: *Badé ngiring ka ditu?*
want ACT.follow to there
'Do you want to join?'

B: ***Alim***.
NEG.want
'No, I don't want to.'

A negative reply agrees with the polarity of a negative question, such that in (39) the answer, *moal,* confirms the supposition of the questioner and in the process negates the propositional content. The affirmative future marker, *badé,* disagrees with the negative question, making it polarity reversing.

(39) Q: *Asep* **moal** *bobo di dieu?*
Asep NEG.FUT sleep LOC here
'Asep is not going to sleep here?'

A1: ***Moal***.
NEG.FUT
'Yes, that's right, (Asep) is not going to (sleep here).'

A2: ***Badé***.
FUT
'No, that's not right, (Asep) is going to (sleep here).'

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Sundanese does not have special negative indefinite pronouns like the English *nothing* nor the Latin *nemo.* Rather, like many Austronesian languages, indefiniteness in Sundanese is most often encoded via existential predication, reduplication of interrogatives, and co-occurrence of interrogatives and special particles with additive and downward entailing functions. Example (40) demonstrates indefinite pronouns formulated through the existential *aya* and the relativizer *(a)nu.* The tendency for existentials to code indefinite pronouns has also been observed in Tagalog, Cebuano, and other languages of the Philippines, as well as in Oceanic languages (Haspelmath 1997).

(40) a. ***Aya*** *nu dongkap.*
EX REL come
'Someone came.' (lit. 'There are that came.')

b. ***Teu aya*** *nu dongkap.*
NEG EX REL come
'No one came.' (lit. 'There was not that came.')

c. ***Aya*** *nu bisa di-béré-keun.*
EX REL can PASS-give-APPL
'Something can be given.' (lit. 'There is that can be given.')

d. ***Teu aya*** *nu bisa di-béré-keun.*
NEG EX REL can PASS-give-APPL
'Nothing can be given. (lit. 'There is naught that can be given.')

Quantification can additionally be encoded through both full reduplication and partial reduplication of interrogatives. The latter is more common, probably due to phonological reduction. Where partial reduplication is found, it is the first syllable that repeats, as shown in Table 1 below.

Table 1: Simplex interrogatives and reduplicated interrogatives

Saha	'who'	*saha-saha/ sasaha*	'everyone'
Naon	'what'	*naon-naon/ nanaon*	'everything'
Iraha	'when'	*iraha-iraha/*ir-iraha*	'every time'
Ka mana	'where to'	*ka mana mana/ ka mamana*	'to everywhere'
Di mana	'where at'	*di mana mana/ di mamana*	'(at) everywhere'

The reduplicated interrogatives most frequently occur in negative declarative utterances, given that reduplication is one means that is sensitive to negation and other polarity phenomena. This is demonstrated in (41) below, where each utterance is used in emphatic, newsworthy contexts.

(41) a. *Manéh* ***teu*** *terang* ***na-naon*** *ngeunaan bisnis!*
2SG NEG know RED-what about business
'You don't know anything about business!'

b. *Manéhna* ***teu*** *resep ka* ***sa-saha!***
3SG NEG like to RED-who
'She doesn't like anyone!'

c. *Tata* ***teu*** *boga* ***na-naon!***
Tata NEG have RED-what
'Tata doesn't have anything!'

d. *Galuh* ***teu*** *ka* ***ma-mana!***
Galuh NEG to RED-where
'Galuh didn't go anywhere!' (Butters 2021: 172)

The reduplicated interrogatives can also appear in affirmative declaratives, as in (42).

(42) a. *Anjeun terang* ***na-naon*** *tentang bisnis.*
2SG know RED-what about business
'You know many things about business.'

b. *Manéhna resep ka* ***sa-saha.***
3SG like to RED-who
'She likes everyone.'

c. *Tata boga* ***na-naon.***
Tata have RED-what
'Tata has everything.'

d. *Galuh ka* ***ma-mana.***
Galuh to RED-where
'Galuh goes everywhere.' (Butters 2021: 172)

The reduplicated interrogatives are used fairly infrequently in questions, except when they occur in phrase initial position, as demonstrated by the reduplication of *saha* 'who' in (43). There appear to be slightly different functions encoded in the examples below; in (43a) plurality of subjects is encoded, while in (43b) specificity is encoded.

(43) a. ***Saha-saha*** *nu ulin di buruan?*
who-RED REL play LOC yard
'Who all is playing in the yard?'

b. ***Saha-saha*** *nu meupeues-keun kaca?*
who-RED REL ACT.break-APPL glass
'Who exactly was it that broke the glass?' (Butters 2021: 173)

More commonly, interrogatives are followed by the minimizing particle *wé/ waé/ baé* 'just, merely, only', as in (44).

(44) a. *Emangna manéh terang **naon waé** tentang bisnis?*
indeed 2SG know what just about business
'Truly, what all do you know about business?'

b. *Manéhna resep ka **saha waé**?*
3SG like to who just
'Who all does she like?' (Butters 2021: 178, 179)

The same construction encodes free-choice in declarative utterances, as in (45).

(45) a. ***Saha wé** bisa nga-lapor ka kantor polisi.*
who just can ACT-report to office police
'Anybody at all can report to the police office.'

b. *Manéh tiasa dongkap ka bumi abdi **iraha waé**.*
2SG can come to house 1SG when just
'You can come to my house anytime.' (Butters 2021: 178)

In the negative, expressions with *waé* appear to be strongly dispreferred while reduplicated interrogatives commonly appear with negators, as in (46a). The interrogative can be used with *waé* under the scope of negation if more information follows, as in (46b). However, the use of *waé* with interrogatives is most felicitous in concessive utterances, as in (46c), where the interrogative + *waé* occur outside the scope of negation.

(46) a. *Abdi mah **teu** tiasa ningali **na-naon**!*
1SG DP NEG can see RED-what
'I can't see anything!'

b. *Abdi mah **teu** tiasa ningali **naon waé** nu aya di dieu.*
1SG DP NEG can see what just REL EX LOC here
'I can't see anything that is here.'

c. ***Naon waé** nu aya di dieu **teu** ka-tingali ku abdi.*
what just REL EX LOC here NEG PASS-see by 1SG
'Whatever was here was not seen by me.' (Butters 2021: 179)

It appears that expressions with *waé* are less compatible with negation given that *waé* is already downward entailing. I return to the importance of reduplication in polarity readings in §4.2.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking (abessives/caritives/privatives)

Most frequently, 'without' is expressed through a periphrastic expression wherein the negator precedes the polite *ngagunakeun* 'use' (or the colloquial *make* 'use'), as in (47b).

(47) a. *Anjeuna tuang* ***nga-guna-keun*** *sendok.*
3SG eat ACT-use-APPL spoon
'S/he eats with a spoon.'

b. *Anjeuna tuang* ***teu nga-guna-keun*** *sendok.*
3SG eat NEG ACT-use-APPL spoon
'S/he eats without a spoon.'

It is also possible to negate the comitative *sareng*, as in (48). This strategy can be employed for both animate and inanimate entities.

(48) a. *Abdi nga-leueut kopi* ***teu sareng*** *gula.*
1SG ACT-drink coffee NEG COM sugar
'I drink coffee without sugar.'

b. *Abdi maehan rusa* ***teu sareng*** *amang abdi.*
1SG hunt deer NEG COM uncle 1SG
'I hunt deer without my uncle.'

c. *Abdi bakal nyeri haté pisan lamun hirup* ***teu sareng*** *pun bapak.*
1SG FUT sick liver very if live NEG COM HON father
'I would be so very sick to my heart if I had to live without my father.'

(49) *Barudak sadayana ningali abdi téh meni* ***teu*** *leupas-leupas.*
child.PL all ACT.look 1SG DP very NEG release-RED
'All the children looked at me ceaselessly.'

At the lexical level, the verbal negator is used to mark absence, as demonstrated in (49).

Alternatively, as shown in (50), the negative existential predicators can be used to encode absence when preceding a noun, a cross-linguistically common expression described in Veselinova (2013b). In (50b) it is ungrammatical to leave *aya* out.

(50) a. *Manéhna gawé* ***euweuh*** *ka-capé nga-jelang acara pernikahan.*
3SG work NEG.EX NMLZ-tired ACT-approach event wedding
'She worked tirelessly leading up to the wedding.'

b. *Pun bapak* ***teu aya*** *ka-capé nga-damel karanjang siang wengi.*
HON father NEG EX NMLZ-tired ACT-work basket day night
'My dad doesn't feel tired making a basket all day.' (Butters 2021: 110)

Finally, the form *béak* 'finished, used up, elapsed' encodes absence, e.g. *béak tanaga* 'powerless', *béak napas* 'breathless', *béak déngkak* 'at wit's end.'

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

As indicated in §2.1, the standard negator *(hen)teu* most commonly has scope over verbs and adjectives; however, it also has scope over adverbs (e.g., *teu énjing* 'not tomorrow), numerals (e.g., *teu hiji* 'not one'), and interrogatives like *naon* 'what' (e.g., *teu naon* 'no problem'). In some situations, the scope of the negator cannot be determined syntactically, as analysis depends on context. For instance, the interpretation of (51) is ambiguous, given the sensitivity of reduplicated interrogatives to negation.

(51) *Lami* ***teu aya na-naon*** *urang tiasa papendak deui énjing.*
if NEG EX RED-what person.1PL can meet again tomorrow
'If it is no problem (with you), we can meet again tomorrow.' / 'If there is nothing going on, we can meet again tomorrow.'

Negative tags can also result in ambiguity given that they are of the same form as the standard negator. In (52a) the negator can either be interpreted as a tag or as a standard negator with scope only over the predicate that follows it. Meanwhile, (52b) unambiguously has sentential scope.

(52) a. *Manéhna resep ngi-num téh* ***henteu maké*** *gula.*
3SG like ACT-drink tea NEG use sugar
'He likes to drink tea, does he not, with sugar.' / 'He likes to drink tea without sugar.'

b. *Manéhna resep nginum téh maké gula* ***henteu****?*
3SG like ACT.drink tea use sugar NEG
'He likes to drink tea with sugar, doesn't he?'

The ambiguity of (52a) is resolved through prosody, including a pause before the negator accompanied by upward intonation if it is a tag.

4.2 Negative polarity

This section examines the contribution of two particles in particular to the polarity of an utterance. The first particle, *ogé/ gé* 'too, also', functions as both an additive particle and a focus particle, in the sense of König (1991). The interpretation of the particle is entirely pragmatically dependent, as demonstrated in (53). Indeed, it is rarely possible to determine the precise meaning of the particle without knowledge of preceding utterances.

(53) *Anjeuna* ***ogé*** *hoyong masihan kabar ka urang!*
3SG too want ACT.give news to person.1PL
'He also wanted to tell us something!' / 'HE wanted to tell us something!'
(Butters 2021: 184)

Ogé is sensitive to scalar semantics, where a scale is a set of contrastive expressions of the same category that can be arranged in linear order according to semantic strength (Horn 1972, Gazdar 1979). The examples in (54) include elicited utterances with *ogé* in both affirmative and negative contexts. While in the affirmative, *ogé* serves as an ordinary additive/focus particle, in the negative it combines with elements that are quantitatively low on a scale like *hiji* 'one', *sakeudik* 'little', or the indefinite suffix *sa-* to create a highly newsworthy reading.

(54) a. *Anjeunna* ***ogé*** *luka saeutik.*
3SG too hurt little
'HE was a little hurt.' / 'He too was a little hurt.'

b. *Anjeunna* ***henteu*** *luka* ***saeutik ogé****!*
3SG NEG hurt little too
'He wasn't even a bit hurt!'

c. *Abdi* ***ogé*** *nyandak* ***hiji*** *pulpén.*
1SG too ACT.bring one pen
'I brought a pen.' / 'I too brought a pen.'

d. *Aduh poho pisan abdi* ***teu*** *nyandak* ***hiji pulpen ogé****!*
DP forget very 1SG NEG bring one pen too
'Oh I forgot! I didn't bring a single pen!' (Butters 2021: 184)

An even more pragmatically marked reading is achieved if the minimal unit expression is fronted, as in (55). The particle *deui* 'again' can precede *ogé* in such instances for greater emphasis.

(55) ***Sa-pérak*** *deui* ***ogé*** *manéhna* ***teu*** *boga!*
INDF-silver more too 3SG NEG have
'He doesn't have a single coin (lit. piece of silver) more!' (Butters 2021: 184)

A second polarity sensitive item is the additive scalar particle *(a)can,* which, as demonstrated in §2.1, is also used to code NOT YET. *Acan* is productive in negative expressions that co-occur with reduplication. The meaning of examples (56) are the same as the negative expressions that used *ogé* above.

(56) a. *Anjeuna teu luka saeutik-eutik acan!*
3SG NEG hurt INDF-little-RED PHPC
'He wasn't even a bit hurt!'

b. *Aduh abdi poho pisan teu nga-bawa pulpen hiji-hiji acan!*
DP 1SG forget very NEG ACT-bring pen one-RED PHPC
'Oh I forgot! I didn't bring a single pen!' (Butters 2021: 185)

As evident in examples (56) as well as the reduplication of interrogatives in §3.2, reduplication is an important means in Sundanese to specify scalar readings. The inherently augmenting semantics of reduplication serve to specify an extreme end on a scale of possibility.

I return to a discussion of the role played by *acan* in 'not yet' in §4.6.3.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There do not appear to be any effects on the marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

There are several means through which negation is reinforced in Sundanese. The use of polarity sensitive particles was already discussed in §4.2. Negative reinforcement can also be achieved through the addition of *pisan* 'very' or *meni* 'very' which can be used in both affirmative and negative contexts. Examples (57a–57b) demonstrate *pisan* in negative contexts, and (57c) shows both *pisan* and *meni* used in the same utterance.

(57) a. *Abdi* ***teu*** *resep* ***pisan*** *ka manéhna.*
1SG NEG like very to 3SG
'I don't like him at all/much.'

b. *Abdi* ***teu*** *tiasa hilap* ***pisan***.
1SG NEG can forget very
'I can't forget at all.'

c. ***Meni teu aya*** *sa-potong omong-an* ***pisan*** *deui dosén éta*
very NEG EX INDF-slice talk-NMLZ very more instructor DEM
nyandak murid-murid-na indit.
bring student-RED-DEF go
'Without saying a single word more, that instructor took his students away.'

Negation can also be reinforced through the emphatic marker *teuing* 'too, overly', which directly follows verbs or negative lexemes like *tara* 'never', demonstrated in (58). It can be used in both affirmative and negative contexts.

(58) a. *Urang* ***teu*** *kudu hariwang* ***teuing***.
person.1PL NEG must worry too
'We need not worry too much.'

b. *Teu nyaho* ***teuing***!
NEG know too
'I know absolutely nothing!'

c. *Tara* ***teuing***!
never too
'Never ever!'

Another construction is the postponement of the verbal negator *(hen)teu* to the final position in the utterance, as demonstrated in (59a). The scalar additive particle *ogé* 'too' focuses the proposition under consideration, *geulis* 'beautiful', which is then rejected resoundingly. This is in contrast with the ordinary negation of attribution, as shown in (59b), which does not carry the same pragmatic force.

(59) a. *Manéhna geulis ogé* ***henteu***!
3SG beautiful too NEG
'She's not even beautiful!'

b. *Manéhna* ***henteu*** *geulis.*
3SG NEG beautiful
'She is not beautiful.'

Finally, negation is reinforced through the form *sama sakali* 'at all', which appears only in negative or downward entailing environments. The form can occur before the negator, as in (60), but also in sentence initial position, sentence final position, or after the verb.

(60) *Abdi* ***sama sa-kali*** ***teu*** *nga-gantung ka manéhna.*
1SG same INDF-time NEG ACT-hang to 3SG
'I don't depend on her at all.'

The form *sama sekali* exists in Standard Indonesian as well. As with the softening device, *kirang* 'less' mentioned in §2.6, the direction of influence is unclear.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Two nominal phrases are typically coordinated simply by occurring side-by-side, as in (61).

(61) a. *Manéhna* ***sanés*** *lalaki manéhna awéwé.*
3SG NEG man 3SG woman
'He is not a man, he is a woman.'

b. *Manéhna lalaki* ***sanés*** *awéwé.*
3SG woman NEG man
'He is a man, not a woman.'

In §2.3, I demonstrated that the use of nominal negation with attributes encodes contrastive negation. A second strategy for marking contrastive negation employs the verbal negator in the first proposition and *malah* 'even' in the second, as in (62).

(62) a. *Manéhna* ***teu*** *manggil polisi manéhna* ***malah*** *manggil kepala désa.*
3SG NEG call police 3SG even ACT.call head village
'S/he didn't call the police, but rather the village head.'

b. *Putri* ***henteu*** *se-seurian* ***malah*** *jadi pucet.*
Putri NEG RED-laugh even become pale
'Putri didn't laugh, but rather turned pale.'

Expressions of the type *neither … nor* are formulated with the co-occurrence of the negator and the comitative *sareng* 'with, and', as in (63a), which is contrasted with the use of *sareng* in an affirmative utterance, as in (63b).

(63) a. *Abdi mah* ***teu*** *gaduh ketan bodas* ***sareng*** *ketan hideung.*
1SG DP NEG have sticky.rice white COM sticky.rice black
'I have neither white sticky rice, nor black sticky rice.'

b. *Abdi mah gaduh ketan bodas* ***sareng*** *ketan hideung.*
1SG DP have sticky.rice white COM sticky.rice black
'I have white sticky rice and black sticky rice.'

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (that is, negative-raising) occurs with verbs of desire like *hayang* 'want, wish to' (or the polite form, *hoyong*), as demonstrated in (64).

(64) a. *Urang teu hayang manéhna melak paré.*
person.1SG NEG want 3SG plant paddy
'I don't want him to plant paddy.'

b. *Urang hayang manéhna teu melak paré.*
person.1SG want 3SG NEG plant paddy
'I want him to not plant paddy.'

4.6.2 Additional functions of the prohibitive

The prohibitives *ulah* and *tong* perform functions beyond simply marking the negative imperative described in §2.2. One such function is to reject an option from a series of possible choices. For instance, (65a) was uttered when a speaker rejected the author's proposal of a meeting time, while (65b) was said during a conversation between two women when a yellow sarong (chosen from a collection of sarongs) was rejected for purchase.

(65) a. ***Ulah*** *wengi ieu.*
PROH night DEM
'Not tonight.'

b. ***Ulah*** *(anu) konéng moronyoy teuing.*
PROH REL yellow bright too
'Not the yellow (one), it's too bright.' (Butters 2021: 152)

Additionally, the prohibitive *ulah* can be embedded in an utterance where it behaves more like a standard negator. In (66a) it is fronted by a proposition expressing deontic modality, and in (66b) it follows the coordinator *asal* 'as long as'.

(66) a. *Langkung saé manéhna* ***ulah*** *ng-ereun-keun kécap batur.*
more good 3SG PROH ACT-interrupt-APPL words others
'It's better that he doesn't interrupt others.' (Butters 2021: 155)

b. *Manéhna natap ka mana waé asal* ***ulah*** *ka arah Udin.*
3SG look to where just as.long.as PROH to direction Udin
'He looked anywhere except at Udin.' / 'He looked anywhere but at Udin.' (Butters 2021: 156)

A final special construction is the use of the prohibitive *ulah* with the particle *ogé* to mean 'never mind X', as demonstrated in (67). Note that in rural areas of West Java where the expression was uttered, cassava is much more widely available than water spinach.

(67) ***Ulah gé*** *sayur kangkong singkong* ***ogé*** *abdi teu boga!*
PROH too vegetable spinach casava too 1SG NEG have
'Never mind water spinach, I don't even have cassava!' (Butters 2021: 159)

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

This chapter has demonstrated the presence of a diverse set of negators with multivariant functions. In the interest of space, the focus of this diachronic section will be on two areas of Sundanese negation discussed thus far: 1) the productive distinction between the verbal and nominal negator, and 2) the development of 'not yet'.

The distinction between the Sundanese verbal negator, *(hen)teu,* and the nominal negators, *lain* or *sanés*, was described earlier in the chapter. The distinction is presented again here for clarity.

(68) a. *Manéhna* ***(hen)teu*** *leutik.*
3SG NEG small
'S/he is not small.'

b. *Manéhna* ***lain*** *lalaki leutik.*
3SG NEG man small
'He is not a small man.'

The existence of a distinction between verbal and nominal negators is extremely common in Indonesian languages. In Sundanese, the nominal negators have the additional transparent lexical meaning of 'other, different' – a use that is retained in contemporary speech, as demonstrated in (69). It is also attested in verbs like *nga**lain**keun* 'to other, to give the cold shoulder to'.

(69) *Éta mah **lain** deui.*
DEM DP different again
'That's entirely different.' (Butters 2021: 61)

The grammaticalization of the lexeme 'other' to a negator of nominal predicates is widely attested in other Western Malayo-Polynesian languages – an understandable development given that to be 'other than X' is equal to 'not be X'. The use of *lain* as a negator was already present in the Old Sundanese manuscript, *The sons of Rama and Rawana*, which probably dates from around the 16th century. An example from this manuscript is shown in (70), taken from the transliteration of this work.

(70) *Lun aing **lain** na seuweu.*
if 1SG NEG LIG son
'If I'm not your son.' (Noorduyn & Teeuw 2006: 206).

It is difficult to determine precisely how long the distinction between the nominal and the verbal negator has existed, but its presence can be accounted for by the different functions performed by the two sets of negators. The nominal negator possesses the special function of encoding contrastive negation, which is less effectively encoded by the verbal negator. Moreover, the use of *lain* and *sanés* as a rhetorical negative tag entails prior expectation on the part of the speaker. There are, therefore, important semantic and pragmatic distinctions between these negators to maintain this distinction.

A second area worthy of greater discussion is the development of 'not yet' in Sundanese, which, as presented in §2.1, can be encoded by *teu (a)can, tacan,* or *can* alone, as demonstrated again for clarity in (71).

(71) *Manéhna **tacan** saré.*
3SG not.yet sleep
'He has not slept yet.'

In §4.2, I presented a function of *(a)can* beyond its use in NOT YET; like *ogé, (a)can* has additive functions and can be used to reinforce negation in highly newsworthy contexts. Unlike *ogé, (a)can* is sensitive to reduplication, as demonstrated again in (72).

(72) a. *Teu bisa nulis-nulis* ***acan!***
NEG can ACT.write-RED PHPC
'(I) can't even write!'

b. *Teu apal laptop-laptop* ***acan!***
NEG know laptop-RED PHPC
'(I) don't even know what laptops are!'

When the preceding element is not reduplicated, as in (73b), the reinforcing particle *pisan* is used.

(73) a. *Abdi teu bisa dahar-dahar acan.*
1SG NEG can eat-RED PHPC
'I couldn't even eat.'

b. *Abdi teu bisa dahar* ***pisan.***
1SG NEG can eat very
'I couldn't eat at all.' (Butters 2021: 93)

Hardjadibrata (2003: 2) suggests that when *acan* occurs in affirmative contexts following reduplication, the interpretation is that a situation still holds true, as in (74),[6] with the author's own glossing.

(74) *Manéhna di sawah-sawah* ***acan.***
3SG LOC paddy.field-RED PHPC
'He is still in the rice fields.' (Hardjadibrata 2003: 2)

Consultants do not accept (74) but are fine with the same expression occurring in the negative, as in (75), where the understanding is that someone has broken their daily expected habit of going to the paddy fields.

(75) *Manéhna* ***teu*** *di sawah-sawah* ***acan.***
3SG NEG LOC paddy.field-RED PHPC
'He is not even in the paddy fields.' (He can't be seen there at all) (Butters 2021: 93)

[6] It should be noted that Hardjadibrata (2003) is a translation of Eringa (1984), written in Dutch. The expression is thus older than would be suggested by the publication date.

König & Traugott (1982: 170) described the close historical relationship between 'still' and 'yet' in English, defining 'still' as "continuation without boundary" and 'yet' as "continuation up to an imminent boundary/change". The authors suggest that the shared quality of continuation has resulted in frequent overlap in meanings in English but not true convergence. In a study of phasal polarity in Malayo-Polynesian languages, Veselinova et al. (2024: 15) observe the frequent presence of periphrastic expressions of 'not yet' consisting of internally negated 'still' expressions, noting that such constructions "express the continuation of a non-realized situation and as such demonstrate the direct relation between the concepts of 'still' and 'not yet' as well as their encoding. In many languages what had initially been a periphrastic expression became fused into univerbations with various degrees of transparency."

The examples presented in this chapter for the Sundanese *acan* also appear to suggest the direct relationship between 'still' and 'not yet'. An additional clue to the early meaning of *acan* is evident in an archaic entry in Kamus Besar Bahasa Indonesia (KBBI) for the Indonesian *mengacan* meaning 'to hope for' or 'to aspire to'. The appearance of *acan* in a closely related language reflects the early use of the word for an unrealized state of affairs, further elucidating the relationship between 'still not' and 'not yet'.

5 Summary

The negative forms and functions discussed in this chapter are summarized in Table 2. Key points of this chapter include the demonstration that Sundanese negation makes a productive distinction for verbal vs. nominal predicates, for certain areas of tense and aspect, and for certain realms of cognition and volition. Additionally, Sundanese possesses special prohibitive forms which participate in environments beyond imperative mood. Existential, locative, and possessive predication all make use of the same existential and negative existential predicators, though such a use is only obligatory in the former category, while it is optional in the latter categories. Polarity phenomena in Sundanese rely on reduplication, specifically the reduplication of interrogatives, as well as the use of scalar additive particles and downward entailing particles. Future work might devote more attention to the precise source of some of the negators discussed herein, drawing from a larger body of Old Sundanese manuscripts.

Table 2: Sundanese negators and functions

Negator	Function
(*hen*)*teu*	standard negation
	‘not anymore’ [NEG ‘again’]
	‘not yet’ [NEG scalar additive particle]
	‘never’ [NEG perfect]
	neutral negative tag
	negator of attributes
	‘no’
	negative quantifier [NEG INTER-RED]
	‘without’ [NEG COM] or [NEG ‘use’]
lain, *sanés*	negator of equative predications
	negator of proper inclusion
	rhetorical negative tag
	negative reply “no”
moal	negative future
tara	‘never’
teu acan, *tacan*, *can*	‘not yet’
	negative polarity item
alim	‘not want’
duka	‘not know, who knows’
ulah, *tong*	prohibitive
	rejection of a choice
	standard negation in embedded clauses
teu aya, *taya*, *euweuh*	negative existential predication
	locative predication (optional)
	locative presentative predication
	possessive predication
	negative quantifier
	negative derivation
kirang	standard negation (polite)

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Abbreviations

1	first person	INDF	indefinite
2	second person	LIG	ligature
3	third person	LOC	locative
APPL	applicative	NEG	negative
ACT	active	NMLZ	nominalizer
COMP	complementizer	PHPC	phasal poparity with continuity
COM	comitative	PL	plural
DEF	definite	POSS	possessive
DEM	demonstrative	PRF	perfective
DP	discourse particle	PROH	prohibitive
EX	extistential	PASS	passive
FUT	future	RED	reduplication
HON	honorific	REL	relative
HORT	hortative	SG	singular
IAM	iamitive		

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Chapter 4

Negation in Dorig

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Dorig, an Oceanic language spoken on Gaua island in northern Vanuatu, shows a wealth of constructions for encoding negative polarity. Verbs contrast 14 positive TAM categories with 9 negative; together, these form a "TAMP" [tense–aspect–mood–polarity] system made of 23 portmanteau categories. All negative TAMP morphemes are formally discontinuous, and synchronically non-compositional. Standard negation shows several forms of structural asymmetries, both constructional and paradigmatic, across polarities. Besides standard negation, Dorig has separate constructions for negating non-verbal predicates, existentials, locatives, and imperatives. While this study highlights the intricacy of negative structures in this particular language, it places them in their typological and areal contexts. Thanks to comparative tables showing all negative morphemes in the 17 languages of the Torres and Banks islands, it becomes clear that Dorig is mostly representative of regional patterns in north Vanuatu.

Keywords: negation, asymmetry of TAM systems, non-verbal predicates, Oceanic languages, Vanuatu.

1 The language

The present chapter examines the grammar of negation in Dorig, an Oceanic language of Vanuatu. Like other chapters in this volume, this study follows closely the structure of the typological questionnaire designed by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) – including in the order and numbering of sections.

1.1 Context and sources

Dorig (ISO: wwo, Glottocode: weta1242) is one of five languages spoken on the island of Gaua, in the Banks islands of northern Vanuatu (see Figure 1). Like all

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the 138 indigenous languages of the Vanuatu archipelago (François et al. 2015), Dorig belongs to the Oceanic subgroup of the Austronesian phylum. More specifically, Dorig forms part of a dialect chain that runs around the island of Gaua – itself a portion of the broader Torres–Banks linkage (François 2014: 182).

The language's 300 speakers live mostly in the village of *Dōrig* [ⁿdʊriɣ] on Gaua's south coast; they entertain social and linguistic ties with their immediate neighbours on the island. The two languages genealogically closest to Dorig, as measured using Historical Glottometry, are Nume and Koro (François 2016b: 56; Kalyan & François 2018: 79).

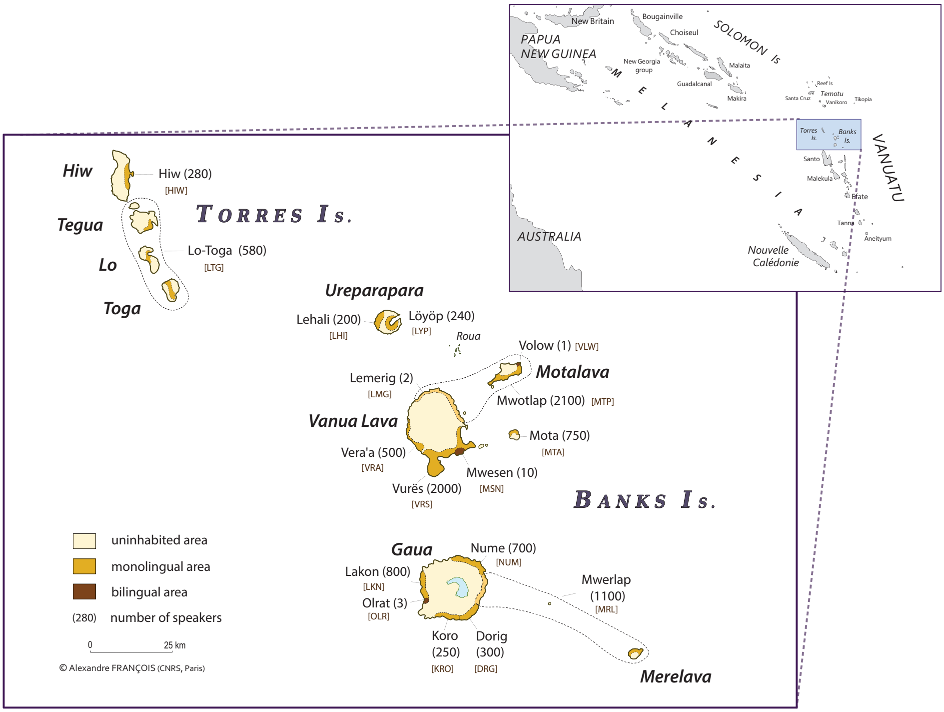

Figure 1: Location of Dorig (Gaua, Banks Islands) in northern Vanuatu

The grammar of negation shows considerable cross-linguistic variation across the vast Oceanic family (see Hovdhaugen & Mosel 1999), to say nothing of the broader Austronesian phylum (see Vossen & van der Auwera 2014) – so the present study should not be taken as representative of such large ensembles. That said, Dorig can be seen as quite typical of the grammatical structures found in its local environment of Vanuatu (especially the Torres & Banks languages) as it shares most of their semantic categories and formal tendencies; and yet, Dorig presents several structural features that make it an original system.

Apart from a wordlist under the obsolete glossonym Wetamut (Tryon 1976), nothing was known of Dorig until I conducted fieldwork on it, as part of my 2003 survey of Banks languages. I was only able to stay in the Dorig area for nine days altogether (4–12 August 2003), with no opportunity of returning there since, due to uneasy access; a second trip scheduled in 2011 was finally cancelled due to the lack of reliable transportation.

My 2003 stay allowed me to record substantial data, thanks to my in-depth knowledge of neighbouring languages, and to the "conversational questionnaire" I had designed for that purpose (François 2019). This data collection method was supplemented by language immersion, as I began to speak and understand the language in its daily context, taking field notes and recording the spontaneous speech of native speakers. Out of 151′ of various recordings, I transcribed 67′ of narratives: this yielded a corpus of 13 texts totalling 14,300 words, partially published as François (2008), and archived online.[1] The examples cited in this study come either from my field notes or from that text corpus.[2] Whenever possible, I will provide permanent (DOI) links to sentences in their original context.[3]

This is the first ever publication dedicated entirely to the Dorig language. That said, I have presented various aspects of it in my comparative studies of the Torres–Banks area: this includes information on Dorig's phonology, with a focus on its CCVC syllabic template (François 2010: 407–408); on its vowel system (François 2005b: 461, 491); on its noun articles (François 2007); its possessive morphology (François 2005b: 486); its space system (François 2015); and its personal pronouns (François 2016b). As for the data I will provide on other languages of the Banks and Torres Islands [§4.6.3, Appendix], their main source will be my own field notes and publications; the reader is also referred to the description of Vera'a by Schnell (2011), and the grammar of Vurës by Malau (2016).

[1] My audio recordings are freely accessible at https://pangloss.cnrs.fr/corpus/Dorig.

[2] Labels of the type [AF.BP3.30b] – as in sentences (13), (20), (46) – refer to my field notes; these are archived at https://www.odsas.net/. Labels of the type [Drg.d04.Kava:41] – as in (23), (36–38), (47), (70) – are taken from my field questionnaire, which can be accessed at https://tiny.cc/AF_Q_Dorig.

[3] If an example is followed by an anchor icon ⚓ and a string of characters, adding that string to the prefix https://doi.org/10.24397/pangloss-000 yields a valid DOI identifier. For example, {⚓3195#S5} yields the URL https://doi.org/10.24397/pangloss-0003195#S5.

1.2 Grammatical overview

Let us begin with a short grammatical overview of Dorig, focusing on the elements relevant to the present study on negation. Dorig forms will be spelled in the language's orthography, following the conventions in Table 1.

Table 1: Orthographical conventions for Dorig

orth	*a*	*ā*	*b*	*d*	*e*	*ē*	*g*	*i*	*k*	*l*	*m*	*m̄*
IPA	a	aː	ᵐb	ⁿd	ɛ	ɪ	ɣ	i	k	l	m	ŋ͡mʷ
orth	*n*	*n̄*	*o*	*ō*	*q*	*r*	*s*	*t*	*u*	*v*	*w*	
IPA	n	ŋ	ɔ	ʊ	k͡pʷ	r	s	t	u	v	w	

Dorig has a CCVC syllabic template, with optional consonants (François 2010: 407): e.g. *āv* [aːv] 'fire', *loq* [lɔk͡pʷ] 'wet', *wrēt* [wrɪt] 'squid', *rqa* [rk͡pʷa] 'woman', *tger* [tɣɛr] 'disappear', *m̄kār* [ŋ͡mʷkaːr] 'flying fish'.

Several prefixes have a form c(v)- with an elidable vowel: e.g. *m(e)-* 'Perfect', *s(o)-* 'Irrealis', *v(a)-* 'Stative', *v(e)-* 'Attributive'. The prefix vowel normally elides when the first syllable of the phonological word can accommodate a c- prefix into the maximal ccvc template: ***m***(*e*)- + ***t****ur* 'stand' → *m-tur* [**mt**ur] 'stood'. By contrast, when a verb already starts in a consonant cluster (e.g. ***tv****ig* 'bury'), the prefix will surface as cv-, revealing its underlying vowel (e.g. *m**e**-tvig* 'buried', *s**o**-tvig* 'will bury').

Morphemes of the form c(v)- with an elidable vowel qualify as prefixes, because their surface shape is determined by syllabification rules that apply at the higher level of the phonological word. In addition, Dorig also has cv morphemes whose surface form is independent of the next morpheme: I will analyse them as proclitics, or simply particles. For example, while the Irrealis *s(o)-* is a prefix, the homophonous Sequential aspect, with its fixed shape *so* [sɔ], is better analysed as a particle rather than an affix. Compare *s(o)-* 'Irrealis' in (1) with *so* 'Sequential' in (2): these are two distinct morphemes, in shape and in meaning.

(1) *Na s-wōr bas nēr nēr **s**-mat.*
1sg irr-bewitch all 3pl 3pl **irr**-die
'I would bewitch them all so they'd die.' {⚓3195#S5}

(2) *Ni me-tmarga, ni **so** mat.*
3sg prf-old.man 3sg **seq** die
'He got old, and then died.' {⚓3195#S26}

These notes on the morphophonology of Dorig will be relevant when discussing negation – in particular, when analysing morphemes as affixes or particles.

Dorig is an SVO language with fixed word order. Simple verbal clauses follow the general template in Figure 2, where the pointy brackets indicate the limits of the verb phrase:

subject ⟨ TAMP$_1$ **verb** postverb TAMP$_2$ ⟩ *object* adjuncts

Figure 2: Structure of the verb phrase

The predicate head is always the first (most leftward) lexical element after the subject. As for the (emically defined) class "postverb", it includes words whose function is to modify the verb head inside the verb phrase.[4] Postverbs are optional, and immediately follow the predicate head. They may correspond to English manner adverbs – cf. (9) *tavul* 'well' – or floating quantifiers – (1) *bas* 'all' – among others. The postverbal slot can also be occupied by a second verb, in a serial verb construction – as in (8) or (47) below.

Dorig collapses into a single paradigm the categories of Tense, Aspect, Mood, and Polarity. It is thus best described as a "TAMP" system[5] – hence the slots labelled TAMP$_1$ and TAMP$_2$ in Figure 2. A given predicate inflects for only one TAMP category at a time: e.g. a verb takes either the (positive, realis) Perfect *m(e)-* or the (positive) Irrealis *s(o)-*, but it cannot combine them. All TAMP morphemes will be listed in Table 2 [§2.1.1]. Note that TAMP is always overt, and never encoded by zero; thus a sentence like (3) is ungrammatical – by contrast with overtly-marked predicates like (12a–12b):

(3) **Na tek ni.*
1SG see 3SG

The coding of TAMP usually involves a preverbal element TAMP$_1$, whether a prefix or a particle, as we saw with Perfect *m(e)-*, Irrealis *s(o)-*, Sequential *so*. Several TAMP morphemes are discontinuous or "bipartite", involving a first element TAMP$_1$ (prefix or particle) plus a second element TAMP$_2$ (particle).[6] Exam-

[4]This lexical class of VP-internal "postverb" (sometimes called "VP-internal adverb" or "adjunct") is found in all northern Vanuatu languages (cf. François 2004: 137–142; François 2017: 316; Schnell 2011: 91; Malau 2016: 122–124; Rangelov 2022; François & Krauße forthcoming).

[5]Malau (2016: 461) also describes the neighbouring language Vurës as having a "TAMP" system, for *Tense-Aspect-Mood-Polarity*.

[6]The material in the TAMP$_2$ slot sometimes originates historically in a former postverb; but under a synchronic analysis, it can be shown to have grammaticalised into an obligatory component in a discontinuous TAMP morpheme.

ples of discontinuous TAMP morphemes include the Potential *s(o)-... lala*, or the Imperfective *t(o)-... ti*:

(4) [POTENTIAL]
Kmār ⟨***so**-briñ* ***lala***⟩ *nēk.*
1EXCL.DU **POT**$_1$-help **POT**$_2$ 2SG
'We can help you.' {⚓2306#S41}

(5) [IMPERFECTIVE]
Rār ⟨***to**-qlil* ***ti***⟩ *o* *matgassōñ.*
3DU **IPFV**$_1$-roll **IPFV**$_2$ ART leaf.cone
'They were rolling a leaf cone.' {⚓2306#S16}

(6) [IMPERFECTIVE]
Kma ⟨ ***t**-var* *o* *masle bē* *neñ* ***ti*** ⟩ *kak* *'Krēwelav'.*
1EXCL.PL **IPFV**$_1$-call ART path water DEM **IPFV**$_2$ QUOT (name)
'We call that river "Krēwelav".' {⚓3254#S28}

When the verb is transitive, its object usually follows TAMP$_2$ as in (4) or (5); but it can also exceptionally precede it, as in (6).

As we'll soon see, standard negation in Dorig always takes the form of bipartite morphemes, whose elements occupy the same slots as TAMP$_1$ and TAMP$_2$ in Figure 2. Throughout this study, I will make the choice to gloss TAMP morphemes, whether positive or negative, as bipartite – e.g. 'POT$_1$-... POT$_2$' for the Potential in (4) – even when one of their components can also occur on its own. This analytic decision is meant to avoid the trap of searching for compositionality when we're in fact dealing with entrenched, grammaticalised units of phraseology (François 2003: 31). This view can be taken as a *constructional* approach to morphosyntax – in the sense of the *Construction grammar* (Fillmore et al. 1988; Croft 2001; Barðdal et al. 2015); it will also guide my analysis of negation morphology.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Miestamo (2005: 39, 2007: 553) defines *standard negation* as "the basic means that languages have for negating declarative verbal main clauses". Dorig has not one, but several morphemes that meet this definition, depending on the Tense-Aspect-Mood value of the verb.

2.1.1 Negation in declarative verbal main clauses: overview

An important characteristic of Dorig is that polarity (positive vs. negative) is really in-built inside the TAMP markers. For example, the Potential *s(o)-... lala* we saw in (4), or the Imperfective *t(o)-... ti* in (5), are incompatible with negation; they really stand for "positive potential" and "positive imperfective" respectively. Their negative counterpart is a different morpheme altogether, which is not compositional. And crucially, the relation between positive and negative TAMP categories is not a straightforward one: as we'll see in §2.1.2, the Dorig language shows a rich array of asymmetries between polarities.

Table 2 shows the complete TAMP system of Dorig, and gives a preliminary idea of how declarative verbal main clauses deal with polarity. The ellipsis "..." represents here the *verbal group*, i.e. the verbal head with its postverb(s), as per the formula in Figure 2. Whatever precedes "..." in Table 2 corresponds to TAMP_1 (whether a prefix or a particle); whatever follows it fits in the TAMP_2 slot. Some morphemes occur only in TAMP_1, others only in TAMP_2; discontinuous morphemes have morphological material on both sides of the verbal group.[7] The following subsections will help understand this table, by describing the behaviour of negation in declarative verbal clauses. Certain labels will be explained later.[8]

The table's left-hand side lists the 14 affirmative TAMP markers: e.g. the Imperfective *t(o)-... ti* shown in (5–6) above. The right column then shows the nine corresponding negative TAMP morphemes. For example, the (positive) Potential *s(o)-... lala* seen in (4) maps onto the Negative potential *(v)te... late*. Evidently – as will be discussed in §2.1.4 – there is no one-to-one correspondence across polarities, neither in terms of morphology nor semantics.

As Table 2 shows, standard negation in Dorig always takes the form of a discontinuous morpheme, of the type {NEG_1 ... NEG_2}. This type of negative morpheme, known in the literature as "double negation" (Dahl 1979: 88), is present in about 10 percent of the world's languages (Dryer 2013a) – cf. *ne... pas* in Standard French. So-called double negation is widespread in Vanuatu [see §4.6.3.1]: for instance, about nearby Vera'a [Figure 1], Schnell (2011: 31) notes: "All negative TAM markers are circummorphemes". The label "double negation" is misleading, as it seems to suggest a construction where polarity would be somehow encoded

[7] Vowels in round brackets correspond to the morpheme's underlying vowel, subject to regular elision [§1.2]. The consonant *(v)* in *(v)te* is simply optional [§2.1.6]. As for the square brackets seen in the Imperative, they indicate that the form is zero in the singular, but takes the form *ar* with a non-singular agent [§2.2.2]. Finally, the abbreviation RED in the Prohibitive indicates that the verb head must show its reduplicated form [§2.2.2].

[8] For "dilatory", see fn.10. For "iamitive", "nondumitive", "continuative", "discontinuative", see §2.1.7.

Table 2: The TAMP paradigm of Dorig, showing correspondences between positive and negative morphemes

Domain	Positive polarity		Negative polarity	
Realis	Sequential	*so …*		
	Iamitive	*m(e)-… nok*	Nondumitive	*sowse … te*
	Continuative	*… mlēti*	Discontinuative	*s(o)-… nok tēmē*
	Perfect	*m(e)-…*	Negative realis	*s(o)-… tēmē*
	Stative	*v(a)-…*		
	Imperfective	*t(o)-… ti*		
	Immediate past	*qra … ti*		
	Dilatory (realis, irrealis)	*qra …*		
			Negative future	*(v)te … tēmē*
	Irrealis	*s(o)-…*		
	Imperative	*[ar] …*	Prohibitive	*(v)te …*$_{\text{RED}}$ *te* ~ *tog v(a)-…* ~ *tog … te*
	Hortative	*o …*		
	Potential	*s(o)-… lala*	Negative potential	*(v)te … late*
	Counterfactual (apodosis)	*v(a)-…*		
Irrealis	Counterfactual (protasis)	*vit …*	Negative counterfactual	*vit (v)te … te*

twice (cf. English *I cannot not call him*); yet this is not what happens with the morphemes we are discussing here. I prefer to simply describe them as discontinuous markers, in a way parallel to some of the positive TAMP morphemes [§1.2].

The two elements of each negative morpheme occupy the same slots as the TAMP markers {TAMP$_1$ … TAMP$_2$} in Figure 2 [§1.2]. The object phrase, whether it is an NP or a pronoun, is usually located outside the boundaries of negation, after NEG$_2$, just like we saw in (4) for the positive potential. Sentences (7a) and (8a), taken from my corpus, illustrate two of the negative morphemes cited in Table 2.

(7a) shows the Nondumitive *sowse… te* 'not yet' [§2.1.7], with a nominal object. The positive counterpart of (7a) would be the iamitive (7b) [see §2.1.7]:

(7) a. [(negative) NONDUMITIVE]
Tōlkma ***sowse*** *wdōn̄* ***te*** *o* *āv.*
1EXCL.TRI NDUM$_1$ set.up NDUM$_2$ ART fire
'We haven't set up the fire yet.' {⚓7437#S31}

b. [(positive) IAMITIVE]
Tōlkma ***me****-wdōn̄* ***nok*** *o* *āv.*
1EXCL.TRI IAM$_1$-set.up IAM$_2$ ART fire
'We have set up the fire already.'

The Negative potential *(v)te… late* in (8a), just like its positive equivalent (8b) *s(o)-… lala*, is carried by a complex predicate (serial verb), and followed by a pronominal object:

(8) a. *Na* ***vte*** *mōl tētēg* ***late*** *kmur.*
1SG NEG.POT$_1$ return follow NEG.POT$_2$ 2DU
[NEGATIVE POTENTIAL] 'I won't be able to follow you.' {⚓3162#S31}

b. *Na* ***s****-mōl tētēg* ***lala*** *kmur.*
1SG POT$_1$-return follow POT$_2$ 2DU
[(positive) POTENTIAL] 'I'll be able to follow you.'

2.1.2 Typological classification

Dahl (1979) proposed a first typological classification of negative strategies in the world. With respect to the morphological types of exponents, Dorig negative morphemes pertain to the type he calls "circumfixal" (Dahl 1979: 100).

As far as word order is concerned, Dryer (2013b) classified languages in terms of the negator's position with respect to the clause's subject, object and verb. Dorig would belong to his subsection 144F "*Obligatory double negation in SVO languages*". Within that group, it falls under type #2 *SNegVNegO* when NEG$_1$ is a particle, or under the similar type #7 *S[Neg-V]NegO* when NEG$_1$ is a prefix.

Throughout his publications, Miestamo (2005, 2007, 2013a,b) has studied the many forms of symmetry and asymmetry found in the marking of negation in languages. Symmetrical negation is one where "affirmative and negative structures are identical except for the presence of the negative marker(s)" (Miestamo 2005: 72); all formal contrasts that correlate with negation – whether morphological, syntaxic or semantic – are then considered types of "asymmetry".

On the basis of the first facts we have seen, we can already make some observations:

- Table 2 above makes it clear that standard negation is never symmetrical: the form taken by the portmanteau TAMP morpheme changes altogether across polarities, so there is no case where positive and negative differ only by the presence of a negator. In this respect, Dorig belongs to the subtype Miestamo (2005: 170, 2013a) calls "Asymmetric standard negation only" [type Asy]; this is his least common category, found only in 17 percent of his typological sample.

- In negative clauses, the verb is always finite, just like in positive ones. Dorig does not show asymmetry in the finiteness status of the verb (subtype A/Fin in Miestamo 2005: 73, Miestamo 2013a).

- Word order is identical across polarities: Dorig is syntactically symmetrical (cf. Miestamo 2005: 153).

- The marking of Tense-Aspect-Mood categories differs across polarities: this pertains to Miestamo's (2005: 112) A/Cat type – i.e. asymmetry in the marking of grammatical categories. Note that this is even true when there is a perfect semantic correspondance, in terms of paradigm, between the positive and the negative. For example, the nondumitive in (7a) is semantically the exact counterpart of the positive iamitive (7b), and yet their morphological exponents have nothing in common.[9] This is a case of *constructional asymmetry* (2005: 52) in the expression of tense-aspect-mood (A/Cat/TAM, 2005: 116).

- Another major type of asymmetry found in Dorig is *paradigmatic asymmetry*. The layout of Table 2 shows the pervasive mismatch between positive and negative TAM, and the lack of one-to-one correspondance across polarities. Some TAM categories that exist in the positive don't have any equivalent in the negative [Sequential *so*, cf. (2)]; and some semantic contrasts made under one polarity are lost or neutralised in the other [see §2.1.4].

- In Miestamo's fine-grained quantitative typology, Dorig would belong to his category "A in both C and P" (2005: 172), i.e., Asymmetry both in constructions and in paradigms.

- Finally, section §2.1.5 will discuss yet another type of asymmetry relevant for Dorig: the one related to the "reality status" of the clause (A/NonReal). As we'll see, one possible analysis is to describe it as a a case of "paradigmatic displacement" (A/NonReal/Displc, 2005: 98).

2.1.3 Declarative statements in the realis domain

Let us now examine in more detail the way standard negation works in Dorig. For the sake of expository convenience, I will examine separately two distinct domains in modality or "reality status", respectively the REALIS and the IRREALIS. These are defined semantically, after Elliott (2000). The realis domain targets states of affairs whose temporal anchoring precedes or includes the moment of utterance, encompassing the domains 'past' and 'present'. By contrast, the irrealis domain corresponds to "unrealized state[s] of affairs" (Cristofaro 2012), events which are only virtual at the moment of utterance. While many Oceanic languages contrast realis vs. irrealis explicitly using modal morphology, Dorig and its neighbours leave the opposition unmarked; or rather, they incorporate

[9] This configuration is parallel to the one Miestamo (2005: 117) reports for Central Siberian Yupik, or for the Songhay language Koyraboro Senni.

that modal contrast in a paradigm that also encodes oppositions of tense and aspect. In other words, Dorig really uses a *set* of realis TAMP markers on the one hand, and a *set* of irrealis ones on the other hand – as suggested in the first column of Table 2.[10]

In Dorig, the negation of declarative verbal main clauses takes different forms depending on the aspect and modality of the clause; as a result, no individual morpheme can be identified as *the* marker of negation. Table 2 however suggests some regularities, or at least some trends. Essentially, negative morphemes in declarative realis statements (top half of Table 2) tend to involve a postverbal particle (TAMP$_2$) *tēmē*, which I will provisionally gloss 'NEG.IND' for 'Negative indicative'. By contrast, irrealis statements (negative versions of the potential, conditional, imperative…) often involve a postverbal particle *te*.

As a first approximation, one could thus propose that negation in Dorig involves a general opposition between *tēmē* (≈realis) and *te* (≈irrealis).[11] However, there are exceptions to this binary contrast: *tēmē* is sometimes found in irrealis (future) contexts, and *te* in some realis (nondumitive) statements. In order to describe the behaviour of negation in the system, it is better to delve, step by step, into the semantics of each of the negative morphemes listed in Table 2.

2.1.4 Paradigmatic asymmetries

The present section will first describe the paradigmatic asymmetries that characterise TAMP categories in the realis domain. Section §2.1.5 will then discuss the paradox that the negation used with semantically realis statements seems to be borrowed from the irrealis domain. The issue of phasal negatives will be examined in a separate section §2.1.7.

[10] The identical form between (realis) Stative *v(a)-* and (irrealis) Counterfactual *v(a)-* is best analysed, synchronically, as a mere matter of homophony, as there is no semantic link between the two TAMP categories other than a common source of grammaticalization (<**va* 'thing'). The only TAMP morpheme that really straddles the semantic boundary between the two modal domains [cf. Table 2] is the form *qra*, glossed here 'Dilatory'. This aspectual category, sometimes labelled 'Time focus' (François 2003: 199–216; 2021: 221–223), is found across north Vanuatu languages. Everywhere it is compatible with realis and irrealis readings: in a realis context, the Dilatory aspect takes on an inaugural meaning ('do X for the first time'); in an irrealis one, it forms a dilatory future, i.e. a future tense with a pragmatic orientation towards later 'will do X later' – as in (22). The common denominator of these two uses is a semantic mechanism that can be glossed '*only at time T, and not earlier*' (whence the labels "Time focus" or "Dilatory"). The realis use of *qra* would be negated using the Negative realis, while its irrealis reading would correspond to the Negative future: this can be taken as evidence that the contrast of reality status (realis vs. irrealis) is in fact operational in Dorig, in spite of the ambivalence of the positive morpheme *qra*.

[11] The etymology of these two negative elements will be discussed in §4.6.3.2.

In the affirmative, the Stative particle *v(a)-* serves to assign a stative property (whether an adjective or a stative verb) to the subject:

(9) *Na* ***va-*** *vrēgēl tavul na vara-n.*
1SG **STAT-** know well ART country-3SG
'I know her country well.'

This is a purely aspectual marker, underspecified with respect to tense. While its default interpretation is the present, it can equally refer to a past situation: thus *na va-vrēgēl* in (9) can translate 'I know (now)' or 'I knew (then)'.

In order to negate a sentence like (9), one cannot just combine the Stative *v(a)-* with the negation *tēmē*: such a sentence (10) is rejected as ungrammatical.

(10) **Na* ***va-vrēgēl*** *tavul* ***tēmē*** *na vara-n.*
1SG STAT-know well **NEG.IND** ART country-3SG
[*intended*: 'I don't know her country well.']

Instead, the only way to negate the Stative *va-* is to use the Negative realis *s(o)-… tēmē* (glossed NEG.R$_1$-… NEG.R$_2$); as in (11):

(11) *Na* ***so****-vrēgēl tavul* ***tēmē*** *na vara-n.*
1SG **NEG.R$_1$**-know well **NEG.R$_2$** ART country-3SG
'I **don't** know her country well.'

The principle illustrated in (9–11) with Stative *v(a)-* also applies to other realis TAM categories. Thus, a Perfect (12a) *m(e)-* becomes (12b) *s(o)-… tēmē* when negated:

(12) a. *Na* ***m****-tek ni a gvur.*
1SG **PRF**-see 3SG LOC house
'I saw him at home.'

b. *Na* ***s****-tek* ***tēmē*** *ni a gvur.*
1SG **NEG.R$_1$**-see **NEG.R$_2$** 3SG LOC house
'I **didn't** see him at home.'

A clause in the Imperfective will also replace its discontinuous marker *t(o)-… ti* with the combination *s(o)-… tēmē*, as in (13):

(13) *Na lñ̄a ra ta Krō, radōn nēk* ***t****-roñ̄ tavul* ***ti****, radōn*
ART voice.of HUM.PL ABL Koro some 2SG **IPFV$_1$**-hear well **IPFV$_2$** some
nēk ***s****-roñ̄ tavul* ***tēmē****.*
2SG **NEG.R$_1$**-hear well **NEG.R$_2$**
'The language of Koro, some of it one understands easily, but some of it, one **doesn't** understand easily.' [AF.BP3.18b]

As a result, the negation *s(o)-… tēmē* is semantically ambiguous. A sentence like (14) may correspond to a negative Perfect, a negative Stative, or a negative Imperfective:[12]

(14) *O m̄erm̄er* ***s****-ñor tavul* ***tēmē****.*
ART child **NEG.R$_1$**-sleep well **NEG.R$_2$**
'The baby {did not sleep ~ doesn't sleep ~ is not sleeping} well.'

The distinctions made in positive statements are neutralised under a single, semantically vague category of "Negative realis", which encompasses most of the tense and aspect values found in the affirmative within the semantically realis domain.[13]

In sum, the semantic space of verbal aspect is cut up differently in the positive and in the negative – a configuration typical of northern Vanuatu languages in general.[14] This lack of a one-to-one correspondence between positive and negative polarities, which was obvious in Table 2 [§2.1.1], is known as *paradigmatic asymmetry* (Miestamo 2005, 2013b). When it involves the neutralisation of certain semantic distinctions, as happens here for realis TAM categories, it is called *paradigmatic neutralisation* (Miestamo 2005: 54), abbreviated "A/Cat/TAM/Neutr" (2005: 123).

2.1.5 Is there an asymmetry in reality status?

As explained at the end of §1.2, the analysis I favour is to consider all bipartite TAMP markers, whether positive or negative, as unitary morphemes, even though they appear to consist – at least etymologically – of two elements.

[12] The Negative realis is also the counterpart of certain less frequent TAMP categories shown in Table 2, such as the Dilatory aspect *qra* 'only then (in the past or future)' [see Footnote 10, and (22)], or its derivative the Immediate past *qra… ti* 'just recently' [see (79)].

[13] The only two TAM markers of the realis domain that have an exact correspondence between positive and negative polarities [cf. Table 2] are the two phasal aspects "iamitive" and "continuative"; these will be examined in §2.1.7.

[14] See François (2003: 33–37, 2005a: 132) for similar observations about the language Mwotlap; Schnell (2011: 31, 52, 95) about Vera'a; Malau (2016: 461) about Vurës.

Now, if we were to analyse the Negative realis *s(o)-… tēmē* into its components, we could not help noticing that it seems to combine the negation *tēmē* ("indicative" negation, often associated with the realis domain) with a prefix *s(o)-*, which is the same form as the positive "Irrealis". Indeed, when used alone in positive clauses, the prefix *s(o)-* is usually devoted to predicates with a meaning of conditional (1), future (20), potential (25), imperative (40) or deontic (76): this is the textbook definition of an Irrealis marker. Under this literal analysis, one could be tempted to present a sentence like (12b) with the tentative glosses in (15):

(15) *Na* ***s**-tek* ***tēmē*** *ni a gvur.*
1SG **IRR**-see **NEG.IND** 3SG LOC home
'I didn't see him at home.'

It may come as a semantic oddity that an Irrealis morpheme should be used in statements about semantically 'realis' situations, whether past (12b) or present (11, 13). Yet this is arguably due to a paradox inherent to negation itself: even when set in a realis (past or present) situation, the state-of-affairs that is being negated remains virtual, and indeed un-realised. In his major typological survey of negation, Miestamo (2005: 96) discusses this type[15] under the label "paradigmatic asymmetry in reality status" (realis vs. irrealis), and explains it in these words:

> "[T]he association between negation and non-reality on the formal level iconically reflects the association between negation and non-reality on the functional level." (ibid: 96)

Using the label "A/NonReal", Miestamo (2005: 192, 2013a) observes the distribution of this asymmetry across languages, and finds it in 13% of his sample (40 languages out of 297). While the pattern is well known across the world, in northern Vanuatu it is only found in Dorig: the other 16 languages of the Torres-Banks fail to show any link between negation and the irrealis. In that sense, Dorig is locally unique in enforcing this pattern, whereby negative statements impose an irrealis verb in semantically realis (past, present) contexts.

In languages with "A/NonReal" asymmetry, the typical pattern is one where the contrast between realis and irrealis exists in the affirmative, but is neutralised under negation, in favour of the irrealis. Thus for the Australian language Mawng, Miestamo (2013b) notes: "the negative clause is obligatorily marked for the irrealis category, whereas the affirmative can make a distinction between

[15] For other general references, see also Elliott (2000) and Cristofaro (2012).

realis and irrealis"; such a configuration constitutes a case of paradigmatic neutralisation (Miestamo 2005: 97). Yet this is not what happens in Dorig: the combination *s(o)-… tēmē*, even though it is originally based on an irrealis morpheme *s(o)-*, can in fact only receive a realis interpretation – that is, an anchoring in past or present situations. Thus in Table 3, the counterpart of perfect (16) *na m-tek nēr*, namely (17) *na s-tek tēmē nēr*, is strictly used for realis reference (past 'I didn't see them', or present 'I'm not seeing them'); it cannot have any irrealis interpretation (**I won't see them*). The latter meaning can only be expressed using one of the negations pertaining to the irrealis domain proper [§2.1.6], e.g. the Negative future *vte … tēmē* – as in (19).

Table 3: Preservation of realis/irrealis contrast across polarities

	Positive	Negative
Realis	Positive perfect (16) *Na* ***m****-tek nēr.* 1sg **prf**-see 3pl 'I saw them.'	Negative realis (17) *Na* ***s****-tek* ***tēmē*** *nēr.* 1sg **neg.r$_1$**-see **neg.r$_2$** 3pl 'I didn't see them.'
Irrealis	Positive irrealis (18) *Na* **s***-tek nēr.* 1sg **irr**-see 3pl 'I will see them.'	Negative future (19) *Na* ***vte*** *tek* ***tēmē*** *nēr.* 1sg neg.fut$_1$ see neg.fut$_2$ 3pl 'I won't see them.'

The system shown in Table 3 could be explained using two very different analyses. Under one hypothesis, the negative sentence (17) would be seen as the symmetric counterpart of (18) – at least if one considers only the surface forms, since it consists in adding to it the negative particle *tēmē*. Yet that formal symmetry comes along with a semantic asymmetry, because the future interpretation of the affirmative (18) corresponds to a past reading in the negative. Such a configuration is called "paradigmatic displacement" by Miestamo (2005: 98), as he describes the facts of the Papuan language Alamblak:

> "The paradigm is asymmetric but has no neutralization; realis negation uses the irrealis form but the irrealis is negated differently (…). There is thus paradigmatic displacement rather than neutralization and the asymmetry is of type *A/NonReal/Displc*."

While such an interpretation would be acceptable for Dorig, I will favour a different approach. In my view, the analytical tool of "symmetry" is only meaningful if we are comparing two sentences whose sole semantic difference is polarity. Faced with a dataset like Table 3, it does not appear useful to assess whether there is symmetry, formal or semantic, between sentences (18) and (17), simply because these two sentences do not form a pair in terms of polarity. Likewise, we do not want to assess the symmetry of negation by comparing, say, English sentences *He laughed* vs. *He won't laugh*, because they do not form a polarity pair. The only sentences relevant to this assessment are those consisting of a statement in the affirmative vs. its counterpart in the negative: that is, the pair (16–17) on the one hand; and the pair (18–19) on the other hand. For a speaker of Dorig, there is no pragmatic context in which a sentence like (17) would form the negative counterpart to (18). These two distinct sentences, involving different truth-value conditions, do not enter any form of productive polarity contrast in the modern language.

In sum, I believe that the better analysis of the Dorig facts is to analyse the Negative realis marker as a single morphological unit *s(o)-… tēmē*, albeit a discontinuous one. Synchronically, that negative construction has no tie whatsoever with the positive irrealis *s(o)-* – apart from some partial homophony; yet this homophony is best ignored by the linguist, because it's irrelevant to the speaker. Under this new analysis, what Table 3 shows is rather the solidity of the contrast between realis and irrealis in the language, which remain formally distinguished both in the affirmative and in the negative. This comes in contrast with the cases of asymmetry we saw in §2.1.4 above, where certain paradigmatic contrasts in the domain of tense and aspect are neutralised under negation.

This construction-based analysis [see §1.2] is reflected in the glosses I use in Table 3. Its logical conclusion is that Dorig really doesn't have A/NonReal asymmetry, because its Negative realis morpheme *s(o)-… tēmē*, synchronically, actually counts as [+realis], regardless of its etymology. In the remainder of this paper, I will continue to gloss the discontinuous morpheme *s(o)-… tēmē* as a single semantic category of "Negative realis", irrespective of its etymological connection with the positive irrealis.

2.1.6 Declarative statements in the irrealis domain

In the affirmative, the TAMP category of Irrealis encoded with *s(o)-*, like (20), may express intention, promise, threat – in a way equivalent to an English future:

(20) *Na* ***s****-la* *āt* *min kmur.*
1SG IRR-take thither DAT 2DU
'I will give it to you.' [AF.BP3.29a]

As we saw in Table 3 [§2.1.5], the negative equivalent of this positive Irrealis *s(o)-* is not the Negative realis *s(o)-… tēmē*, but one of the irrealis negative morphemes – for example, the Negative future *(v)te … tēmē*, as in (21):

(21) *Na* ***vte*** *la* ***tēmē*** *āt* *min kmur.*
1SG NEG.FUT$_1$ take NEG.FUT$_2$ thither DAT 2DU
'I won't give it to you.' [AF.BP3.29b]

The preverbal element *vte* or *te* never occurs alone. It only exists as the first element in three discontinuous morphemes of negation, all with irrealis semantics: see Table 4.[16]

Table 4: The three main negative markers of the irrealis domain

(v)te … tēmē	Negative future	'I won't V…'
(v)te … late	Negative potential	'I can't V…'
(v)te … te	Prohibitive	'Don't V…!'

If we tried to analyse these three discontinuous negations into their components, we might propose a generic gloss 'NEG.IRR' for *(v)te*, without too much difficulty; but then, the TAMP$_2$ particle would be impossible to gloss accurately. If *tēmē* were glossed 'FUT' (so that NEG.IRR + FUT results in a negative future), this would be incompatible with the other uses of *tēmē* in past or present contexts. Likewise, *late* cannot be glossed 'POT', as it only occurs in combination with the negation. Even more problematic would be to try and gloss separately *(v)te … te*, assuming we tried to achieve a compositional meaning of prohibitive. All things considered, the only elegant analysis – which is also more realistic in terms of modelling speakers' competence – is to adopt a constructional approach, and consider each of these combinations as bipartite, unanalysable morphemes. The three negations above will thus be glossed, respectively, NEG.FUT$_1$… NEG.FUT$_2$; NEG.POT$_1$… NEG.POT$_2$; and PROH$_1$… PROH$_2$.

The Negative future, illustrated in (21), is used to negate two types of future: the one encoded by the Irrealis *s(o)-*, but also the Dilatory future marked by (22a) *qra* [Footnote 10 p.79]:

[16] Note that only the first two of these correspond to declarative sentences, and thus to standard negation proper; as for prohibitive morphemes, they will be presented in §2.2.2.

(22) a. *Dār s-sim bas, dār* ***qra*** *gāngēn.*
1INCL.DU IRR-drink finish 1INCL.DU DILAT eat.INTR
'We'll first drink, and (only later) we will have dinner.' [Drg.d04:34]

b. *Dār s-sim, la dār* ***te*** *gāngēn* ***tēmē****.*
1INCL.DU IRR-drink but 1INCL.DU NEG.FUT$_1$ eat.INTR NEG.FUT$_2$
'We'll drink, but we won't be having dinner.'

This is another instance of paradigmatic asymmetry, as a semantic contrast made in the affirmative (between the Irrealis and the Dilatory future) is neutralised under negation.

In reality, the Negative future is very rare in my corpus: I was only able to hear it under elicitation. Much more common are the two other types of irrealis negation: the Negative potential (21 instances in my corpus), and the various forms taken by the Prohibitive (35 instances) – for which, see §2.2.2.

In the affirmative, potential statements of the type 'I can V' are expressed using the discontinuous Potential morpheme *s(o)-... lala* – see (4) and (8a) above, or (23):

(23) *O m̄at nen̄ ni* ***s****-daw rōrōw* ***lala*** *o tdun.*
ART snake DIST 3SG POT$_1$-do wrong POT$_2$ ART person
'That snake can be harmful to people.' [Drg.q.Anemol.03]

The positive Potential *s(o)-... lala* combines the Irrealis prefix *s(o)-* with a TAMP$_2$ particle *lala*; the latter results from the grammaticalisation of a former postverb [§1.2] *lala* meaning '(do) successfully, e.g. when hunting'. Yet synchronically, *s(o)-... lala* must be analysed as a single (albeit discontinuous) morpheme coding for potential modality; hence the gloss POT$_1$-... POT$_2$. One reason to consider *s(o)-... lala* as grammaticalised is precisely the form of its negative counterpart. Instead of a putative form **(v)te... lala tēmē* (which would be expected if *lala* were still a postverb), the Negative potential is an unpredictable morpheme *(v)te... late*. Thus, the negative equivalent of (4) above is (24):

(24) [NEGATIVE POTENTIAL]
Kmār ***vte*** *brin̄* ***late*** *nēk.*
1EXCL.DU NEG.POT$_1$ help NEG.POT$_2$ 2SG
'We can't help you.'

The TAMP$_2$ particle *late* results from the contraction of *lala* with **te*, which is essentially a particle of negation [see §4.6.3]; synchronically, it is unanalysable.

Whether in the positive or negative, the potential mood may refer semantically to a situation in the present or future – as in (4/24) or (8a–8b). It can also refer to a habitual possibility – as in (23), or the clause *nēk te tek late ni* in (25):

(25) *Tuar qōn̄ ni s-van nēk* ***te*** *tek* ***late*** *ni ni t-van ti.*
INDF day 3SG IRR-go 2SG NEG.POT$_1$ see NEG.POT$_2$ 3SG 3SG IPFV$_1$-go IPFV$_2$
'Sometimes [the sorcerer] can just walk around without being seen.'
(lit. 'Sometimes he'll walk *you can't see him* yet he's walking.') {⚓3195#S38}

2.1.7 The subsystem of phasal aspects

As we examined the paradigmatic asymmetries of the Dorig system, we saw how several aspect distinctions made in the affirmative are neutralised in the negative. One type of semantic boundary, though, is solid enough to be preserved across polarities: these are the contrasts involving phasal aspects with pragmatic presuppositions: 'already' vs. 'not yet', 'still' vs. 'no longer'.[17] These aspects form a subsystem of their own, with grammaticalised constructions, both in the positive and negative.

Let us call *t* the moment when a state of affairs *P* changes into its opposite state *Q* (e.g. *alive* → *dead*; *sick* → *cured*; *single* → *married*; *wet* → *dry*; etc.). If I wish to express that *t* has taken place already, I may formulate this by reference to the new state Q ('the shirt is dry already'), by using what is known as a IAMITIVE aspect.[18] Alternatively, I may use a pragmatically equivalent formulation, this time making reference to the initial state *P* ('it's no longer wet'). The latter construction, sometimes called DISCONTINUATIVE (van der Auwera 1998: 44), involves a phasal negation 'not any more, no longer'. Another possibility is that the event *t* (the change from *P* to *Q*) has not happened yet. Again, I may choose to express this by reference to *P* ('it's still wet'), which is a CONTINUATIVE; or by reference to *Q*, by employing what I'll call a NONDUMITIVE ('it's not dry yet').

Table 5 summarises these four patterns, in the form of a rectangle of phasal aspects.[19] The predicates used as examples are the adjectives *loq* 'wet' and *wow* 'dry'. The negative constructions are shown in grayed cells.

Note the binary relations that define the quadrangular structure of Table 5:

- the continuative (26) is the pragmatic equivalent of the nondumitive (27)
- the discontinuative (28) is the pragmatic equivalent of the iamitive (29)
- the discontinuative (28) is the semantic opposite of the continuative (26)
- the iamitive (29) is the semantic opposite of the nondumitive (27)

[17] For general references on phasal aspects, see Löbner (1989), van der Auwera (1993), (1998), van Baar (1997), Krifka (2000).

[18] The term "iamitive" (from Latin *iam* 'now, already') is a type of perfect that focuses on change-of-state, and often builds on speaker's expectations (Olsson 2013; Dahl & Wälchli 2016).

[19] For similar observations on other languages, see Löbner (1989), Krifka (2000). See also François (2003: 325) on Mwotlap.

Table 5: The rectangle of phasal aspects in Dorig
(referring to a change of state from P to Q)

	reference to state P	reference to state Q
P→Q has not happened	CONTINUATIVE (26) *va-loq* ***mlēti*** STAT-wet CONT 'it's **still** wet'	NONDUMITIVE (27) ***sowse*** *wow* ***te*** NDUM_1 dry NDUM_2 'it's **not** dry **yet**'
P→Q has happened	DISCONTINUATIVE (28) ***s****-loq* ***nok tēmē*** NEG.R_1-wet IAM NEG.R_2 'it's **not** wet **any more**'	IAMITIVE (29) *va-wow* ***nok*** STAT-dry IAM 'it's dry **already**'

The following lines illustrate each of these cases, with a special focus on the negative morphemes (grayed cells in Table 5).

Dorig constrasts two types of perfect aspects: the Perfect *m(e)-* and the Iamitive *m(e)-… nok*:

(30) a. *I* *ntu-k* ***m****-lāg* *le* *tuar* *sñar.*
PERS child-1SG PRF-marry LOC other month
'My child got married last month.'

b. *I* *ntu-k* ***m****-lāg* ***nok****.*
PERS child-1SG PRF-marry IAM
'My child is married (now/already).'

The semantic contrast between perfect and iamitive, which is pervasive in northern Vanuatu (François 2003: 118–130), has to do with the handling of information.[20] In a Perfect sentence like (30a), the whole predicate brings new information. By contrast, (30b) entails a pragmatic presupposition: due to local cultural expectations, the event '*get married (at some point)*' is presupposed or "pre-defined", and here the focal information is whether that expected event has yet happened, or not.

Admittedly, the contrast between (30a) and (30b) is encoded through a postverb *nok* rather than through distinct TAMP morphemes. That said, these two constructions entertain clear paradigmatic relations with their negative

[20]See also Vander Klok & Matthewson (2015) for a discussion of a contrast between 'perfect' and 'already' in Javanese.

counterparts, which form TAMP categories of their own [see Table 5]. I thus propose to take a constructional perspective here again, and consider these different combinations as TAMP categories in their own right.

Indeed, the contrast between perfect and iamitive finds its mirror image in the negative polarity. A clause in the Perfect, with no internal hierarchy of information (old vs. new), would simply be negated with the Negative realis [§2.1.4]:[21]

(31) [NEG. REALIS]
I *ntu-k* ***s**-lāg* ***tēmē*** *le* *tuar* *sñar.*
PERS child-1SG NEG.R$_1$-marry NEG.R$_2$ LOC other month
'My child didn't get married last month.'

The negative counterpart of the iamitive, on the other hand, is a specific construction equivalent to English 'not yet'. Among various names, that construction has sometimes been called *nondum*, after its Latin equivalent (Veselinova & Devos 2021); I propose to label it *nondumitive*, to highlight the mirror-relationship with the *iamitive.* In Dorig, the nondumitive is a discontinuous morpheme of the form *sowse … te* – as in (7) above, or (32):

(32) [NONDUMITIVE]
I *ntu-k* ***sowse*** *lāg* ***te***.
PERS child-1SG **NDUM$_1$** marry **NDUM$_2$**
'My child isn't married yet.'

The nondumitive also comes with pragmatic presuppositions – the very same ones we saw with the iamitive. Thus, (32) implicitly refers to the expectation that one should marry some day; the nondumitive states that such a predefined moment has not materialised yet at the moment of utterance. Likewise in (7a), in a context where the subject was supposed to be cooking food, the (predefined) moment of lighting the fire had not taken place yet.

As far as the morphology is concerned, one must note here a puzzling case of opacity between the ordinary Realis negation *s(o)-… tēmē* on the one hand, and the Nondumitive *sowse… te* on the other hand [Table 2]. While English simply contrasts *not* with *not yet*, Dorig treats the two morphemes as formally unrelated with each other. The first element *sowse* is opaque, being found exclusively in this context; as for the second element *te*, it clearly bears a relation with the negative domain, yet not in a way that would make it easy to gloss on its own.

[21] If (31) didn't have a time complement, its Negative realis could also receive a present (stative) interpretation: *I ntu-k s-lāg tēmē* 'My child isn't married' [see §2.1.4].

Finally, another example of a phasal aspect with pragmatic implications is the Continuative, expressed in English with *still* – see (26) above. Dorig expresses the positive continuative with a postverb *mlēti* 'still' (glossed CONT for 'continuative'), as in (33).[22]

(33) *Ni m-mat nok, le— ni va-ēs* ***mlēti****?*
3SG PRF-dead IAM or 3SG STAT-alive CONT
'Is he dead already, or is he still alive?' {⚓7437#S64}

The continuative particle *mlēti* is generally incompatible with negation.[23] As we saw in Table 5, the polarity counterpart of the Continuative is the Discontinuative 'no longer, not any more'. The latter obtains by combining the Realis negation *s(o)-… tēmē* [§2.1.5] with the iamitive postverb *nok*, as in (34):

(34) A: *Ni va-sem̄ mlēti?*
3SG STAT-sick CONT
'Is she still sick?'

B: *Obek, ni* ***s****-sem̄* ***nok tēmē****.*
NEGEX 3SG NEG.R$_1$-sick IAM NEG.R$_2$
'No, she's **not** sick **any more**.'

Such a combination must be understood, literally, as in (35).

(35) { it is now the case } $_{\text{IAMITIVE}}$ that [*she's not sick*]$_{\text{NEG.REALIS}}$

2.1.8 Synthesis

To summarise our observations so far, standard negation in Dorig involves a wealth of morphological elements in which polarity is inextricably mixed with semantic dimensions of tense, aspect, modality – or even pragmatic presuppositions, in the case of phasal aspects. Negation is expressed by discontinuous morphemes which can hardly be given a compositional analysis, and are best understood as unanalysable constructions.

As detailed in §2.1.2, the Dorig system is characterised by different forms of asymmetry across polarities: constructional asymmetry in the expression of tense-aspect-mood; paradigmatic asymmetry regarding tense and aspect; and possibly asymmetry with respect to reality status. In fact, there are very few

[22]In (33), the dash encodes the elongated vowel [ɛ::] typical of the word *le* in questions.

[23]The only case when the continuative *mlēti* can combine with a negation is when forming a sentential reply "Not yet" – see §3.1.2 below.

areas where Dorig maintains some form of stability across polarities: the contrast in reality status has resisted neutralisation, in a pattern of "paradigmatic displacement"; and phasal aspects form a neat "rectangle", with regular one-to-one correspondences between affirmative and negative.

All in all, there are so many differences between positive and negative TAMP markers that Dorig could be analysed as having two distinct sub-systems. Each polarity has its own cut-up of the semantic space, with no easy way to find correspondences across polarities – a type which Miestamo (2005: 54) calls "different-system asymmetry" (DiffSys).

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Questions

Little needs to be said about questions. Interrogative sentences make use of the same verbal categories as we saw in the declarative: e.g. Negative Realis (36), Nondumitive (37), Negative Potential (38). In these examples, interrogation is only marked by prosody.

(36) *Nēk* ***s****-tek* ***tēmē*** *ni?*
2SG NEG.R_1-see NEG.R_2 3SG
'Didn't you see her?' [Drg.d12.Sintia:22]

(37) *Nēk* ***sowse*** *vārdēn̄* ***te*** *ma ni?*
2SG $NDUM_1$ meet $NDUM_2$ with 3SG
'Haven't you met with her already?' [Drg.d12.Sintia:42]

(38) ***Te*** *ttās* ***late*** *kēl aqri?*
NEG.POT_1 bad NEG.POT_2 again today.FUT
'Can't it [the phone] go wrong again today?' [Drg.q.Tel:05]

2.2.2 Prohibition

In the positive, an order can be encoded by an Imperative. If the subject is dual or plural, it is encoded by a special pronoun (39b) *ar* 'IMP.2NSG' (imperative non-singular) – contrasting with (39a) Ø for 2SG:

(39) [IMPERATIVE]

a. *(Ø) sēw ma!*
(IMP.2SG) descend hither
'Come down!'

b. ***Ar*** *sēw* *ma!*
IMP.2NSG descend hither
'Come down (y'all)!'

Table 2 [§2.1.1] represented the Imperative category as *[ar]...*: this stands for the alternation between preverbal Ø and *ar*.

Another common way to formulate an order is simply to use an Irrealis clause in *s(o)-*, as in (40a–40b):

(40) [IRREALIS]

a. *Nēk* ***s****-sēw* *ma!*
2SG IRR-descend hither
'Come down!'

b. *Kmur* ***s****-sēw* *ma!*
2DU IRR-descend hither
'Come down (you two)!'

Except for the imperative prosody, such clauses are formally identical to the declarative sentences in the Irrealis – cf. (1), (20). As for the prohibitive, it involves three constructions. Speakers describe them as perfectly synonymous; and indeed, they appear to be interchangeable in all contexts. The first construction is the discontinuous morpheme *(v)te... te*. This requires the overt presence of a subject pronoun – unlike the imperative (39a) – plus reduplication of the verb, as in (41):

(41) [NEGATIVE IMPERATIVE]
Nēk ***vte*** *sēwsēw* ***te*** *ma!*
2SG **PROH$_1$** descend~RED **PROH$_2$** hither
'Don't come down!'

A non-singular subject of a Prohibitive can be either an ordinary pronoun or a special imperative pronoun. Thus, the dual equivalent of (41) can be *Ar (v)te... te* as in (64) or (75) below, but it can also take the form *Kmur (v)te... te* as in (42):

(42) *Kmur* ***vte*** *vanvan tvilag* ***te*** *vak!*
2DU **PROH$_1$** go~RED beyond **PROH$_2$** DIR
'Don't you (two) ever walk beyond that point over there!' {±3254#S7}

In terms of morphology, the Prohibitive can thus be seen as the negative counterpart of the Imperative *[ar]...* of (39), but also of the Irrealis with imperative reading *s(o)-…* of (40). This double correspondence was represented in Table 2 in §2.1.1.

The second construction consists of a clause-initial prohibitive particle *tog* and a *v(a)-* prefix, following the atypical template (43).

(43) ***Tog*** subject ⟨ ***v****(a)-* verb … ⟩ …

Even though it is homophonous with the Stative, the prefix *v(a)-* is likely to represent here a different morpheme, namely the Counterfactual [§2.4]. In any case, the best analysis here again is to assign a single meaning 'Prohibitive' to the construction as a whole (i.e. *tog… v(a)-* 'PROH$_1$… PROH$_2$'):

(44) ***Tog*** *nēk* ***v****-savāg* *nēk vatm̄e sa neñ!*
PROH$_1$ 2SG **PROH$_2$**-boast 2SG like FOC DIST
'Stop showing off like that!' [AF.BP3.34b]

(45) *Kmur s-van,* ***tog*** *nēk* ***va****-vavgat* *min i Wrisris.*
2DU IRR-go **PROH$_1$** 2SG **PROH$_2$**-talk~RED with PERS (name)
'As you walk together [to the Underworld], don't talk to Wrisris.'
{⚓3197#S12}

While (44–45) illustrate the prohibitive with a second person, (46) shows it may also be used with third person subjects:

(46) ***Tog*** *ra=rqa* ***v****-van* *gin o qāti bē!*
PROH$_1$ PL=woman PROH$_2$-go OBL ART source water
'Women must not go to the river source.' [AF.BP3.30b]

Finally, a third construction exists, that is somewhat a hybrid of the first two. It takes the form of a sequence *tog… te*, which I also gloss 'Prohibitive'. The coding of its second-person subjects is parallel to the positive counterpart we saw in (39): if the subject is singular (47), it may be encoded with a zero; but a non-singular subject (48) would involve *ar*:

(47) ***Tog*** *dōdōm* *mawmawis* ***te*** *aē!*
PROH$_1$ think~RED suffer~RED **PROH$_2$** ADV.ANAPH
'Don't worry about it!' [Drg.d04.Kava:41]

(48) *Ar* ***tog*** *vanvan rās* ***te*** *vak!*
IMP.2NSG **PROH$_1$** go~RED far **PROH$_2$** DIR
'Don't you (two) walk too far over there!' {⚓7437#S29}

Dorig's three prohibitive constructions are used in the same pragmatic contexts, and appear to be perfectly interchangeable – as shown in (49):

(49) a. *Nēk (v)**te** simsim **te**!*
2SG PROH$_1$ drink~RED PROH$_2$

b. *Nēk **tog** simsim **te**!*
2SG PROH$_1$ drink~RED PROH$_2$

c. ***Tog** nēk **v**-sim!*
PROH$_1$ 2SG PROH$_2$-drink
'Don't drink it!'

This diversity of forms for the prohibitive adds to the profusion of negative morphemes we had seen already.[24]

These three constructions can be situated within the typology of prohibitive patterns proposed by van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013). Dorig belongs to their subtype #4, labelled "special imperative + special negative":

- *special imperative*: the three prohibitives involve morphosyntactic patterns specific to them, and not found in the positive imperative (obligatory reduplication, obligatory exponence of the subject);
- *special negative*: the three prohibitives employ (bipartite) negators that are all reserved to the expression of the prohibitive, and never used in declaratives.

van der Auwera & Lejeune's (2013) typological study included a sample of six Vanuatu languages, which pertain to different subtypes. Among that sample, the language geographically closest to Dorig, namely Mwotlap, was also assigned to their subtype #4.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

The previous sections examined verbal clauses. Following the structure of the reference questionnaire (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]), we now turn to *stative predication*. As we'll see, this umbrella category encompasses quite different types of negation again.

[24] In addition, Dorig also has a marker of apprehensive modality, which in some contexts may be used as an indirect form of prohibitive: this will be briefly discussed in §4.5.

2.3.1 Equative and ascriptive predicates

In the absence of a copula like English *be*, noun phrases in Dorig are directly predicative.[25] In (50), the predicate NP is shown between brackets ⟨…⟩:

(50) *Ni ⟨o tdun vi-lwo nami kma⟩.*
3SG ART person ATTR-great POSS 1EXCL.PL
'He is a major figure for us.' {⚓3197#S35}

Such nominal predicates are negated using the negator *tēmē*. Whereas verbs only use it in combination with a pre-verbal TAMP element – e.g. *s(o)-… tēmē* or *vte… tēmē* – non-verbal predicates feature *tēmē* as the sole marker of negation. When *tēmē* occurs alone like this, I propose to gloss it NEG.IND [§2.1.3]. Thus compare the positive noun predicate (51a) (*X is an N*) with its negative counterpart (51b) (*X is **not** an N*):

(51) a. *O masa ⟨oror nami m̄erm̄er⟩.*
ART knife toy POSS child
'A knife is a toy for children.'

b. *O masa ⟨oror nami m̄erm̄er **tēmē**⟩.*
ART knife toy POSS child NEG.IND
'A knife is **not** a toy for children.' [Drg.d05.Naef:43]

2.3.2 Negation of attributive predicates

Dorig has a category of adjectives. Unlike verbs, adjectives can modify nouns, by means of the 'Attributive' prefix *v(e)-* (cf. (50) above). In spite of their structural difference, adjectives behave the same as stative verbs in predicate position, and take the same array of TAMP markers. Thus if the meaning is stative as in (52), the adjective inflects for the Stative aspect *v(a)-*:

(52) ***Va**-wē.*
STAT-good
'It's okay / That's fine / It's beautiful.' {⚓3189#S14}

In principle, adjectival predicates are negated following the same rules as for verbs [§2.1]. Thus the Stative, Perfect, or Imperfective aspects in the positive are all negated with the Negative Realis (53) *s(o)-… tēmē*:

[25] This is true of other languages in north Vanuatu – e.g. Mwotlap (François 2005a: 128), Vera'a (Schnell 2011: 32), Vurës (Malau 2016: 68), Hiw (François 2017: 326) – and widespread in Oceanic (van Lier 2016; François 2026).

(53) *Na bē-k* ***s****-wē* ***tēmē****.*
ART body-1SG **NEG.R1**-good **NEG.R2**
'My body is aching.' (lit. my body is not well) [Drg.d02.Krae:06]

However, my corpus shows several examples, like (54), where a negated adjectives has kept the stative *v(a)-*:

(54) ***Va****-wē* ***tēmē!***
STAT-good NEG.IND
'That's not okay.' {⚓2306#S67}

Such a combination is excluded with stative verbs – see (10) above – but it is allowed with adjectives. This is coherent with our earlier observation about nominal predicates [§2.3.1], suggesting that *non-verbal predicates* follow simpler rules than verbal ones. Negating a non-verbal predicate only takes adding the negator *tēmē*. This is the only domain where Dorig negation shows full "symmetry" between polarities.

This principle also works with a handful of adjectives that happen to be incompatible with the stative prefix – e.g. (55) *arās* 'remote, far away'. They are simply negated by adding *tēmē*:

(55) A: *Arās soqsoq sa!*
far INTS DIST
'That's really far!'
B: *Bek! Arās* ***tēmē****.*
NEGEX far NEG.IND
'Not at all! It's not far.' [Drg.q.d01.Road:21]

Finally, Dorig has a similative predicate (François 2026: 1052) *tam̄rag* 'be like…' – derived from *m̄rag* 'like…' – that behaves neither like an adjective nor like a verb. As (56) shows, this similative takes the same negation as other non-verbal predicates, namely *tēmē*:

(56) *Tam̄rag* ***tēmē*** *aēsa le Vanuatu.*
be.like NEG.IND here LOC Vanuatu
'It's not like here in Vanuatu.' [AF.BP3.28a]

2.3.3 Existential, possessive, locative predicates

In the affirmative, Dorig usually forms its existentials using the word (57) *aē*:[26]

(57) *O tne vre* ⟨***aē***⟩*, Diwtag.*
ART location.of village EX Diwtag
'There is an abandoned village, (called) Diwtag.' {⚓3195#S45}

The negation of an existential predicate (58a) employs a dedicated negator, namely (58b) *bek* or *obek* 'NEGEX' (Negative existential):

(58) a. *O bē* ⟨*aē*⟩*.*
ART water EX
'There is water.'

b. *O bē* ⟨***obek***⟩*.*
ART water NEGEX
'There is no water.'

Existential constructions are also used to encode predicative possession. The equivalent of English *I have an N* is a structure meaning literally "There is my N" ~ "My N exists". This may refer to alienable (59) or to inalienable (60) possession:

(59) *Namo-n o ak sōsō vi-lwo* ***aē****.*
POSS-3SG ART ship paddle~RED ATTR-big EX
'He had a large canoe.' {⚓2306#S1}

(60) *I nti kmār nok* ***aē****.*
PERS child.of 1EXCL.DU IAM EX
'We already have children.' [Drg.q.d12.Sintia:36]

Such possessive predicates are also negated using *(o)bek* – see (61):

(61) *Nēk magse-n̄, i ntō-n̄* ***obek****.*
2SG alone-2SG PERS child.of-2SG NEGEX
'You are alone, you don't have children.' {⚓2306#S41}

[26]The original use of *aē* is as an oblique anaphoric 'about it, with it, at it, there', used in adjunct position – see (47). When used in predicate position, that adverb has grammaticalised into an existential operator (compare English *there* → *be there*). A similar path can be reconstructed in various other Oceanic languages: e.g. Mwotlap (François 2005a: 128, 2026: 1055), East Uvean (Moyse-Faurie 2018: 305).

With a definite subject, a Negative existential *obek* also serves to negate a locative predicate such as (62a):

(62) a. *Ni le mo-n o vre.*
3SG LOC POSS-3SG ART village
'He is in his village.' {⚓3197#S8}

b. *Ni* ***obek*** *le mo-n o vre.*
3SG NEGEX LOC POSS-3SG ART village
'He isn't in his village.'

We'll see in §3.1.1 how the Negative existential *obek* is also used for negative replies.[27]

Table 6 recapitulates the different constructions discussed in §2.3 on stative predications.

Table 6: Negation in some stative predications

Type of predication	Positive polarity	Negative polarity	sym?
Equational, ascriptive	SBJ ⟨NP⟩$_{\text{PRED}}$	SBJ ⟨NP ***tēmē***⟩$_{\text{PRED}}$	+
Attributive	SBJ ⟨TAM adjective⟩$_{\text{PRED}}$	SBJ ⟨*s(o)-*/TAM adjective ***tēmē***⟩$_{\text{PRED}}$	+
Existential, possessive	SBJ ⟨***aē***⟩$_{\text{PRED}}$	SBJ ⟨***obek***⟩$_{\text{PRED}}$	–
Locative	SBJ ⟨LOCATIVE⟩$_{\text{PRED}}$	SBJ ⟨***obek*** LOCATIVE⟩$_{\text{PRED}}$	–

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

The rules of negation are identical in main and non-main clauses. Example (63) has two clauses in a causal relation {*P because Q*}. The second clause uses the Negative realis, just like an independent clause would (cf. 12b):

(63) *Kmur me-briñ na sur o āv* ***s****-gān* ***tēmē*** *na.*
2DU PRF-help 1SG CSL ART fire NEG.R$_1$-burn NEG.R$_2$ 1SG
'You helped me dodge the fire.'
(lit. 'You two helped me *so* the fire didn't burn me.') {⚓2306#S68}

In a relative clause, the subordinator *ka* inserts between the clause's subject and predicate. The relative clause in (64) features a nondumitive:

[27] The syntactic and phraseological behaviour of Dorig *obek* is parallel to that of equivalent morphemes in northern Vanuatu languages – Hiw *tego*, Vurës *odiañ* (cf. Malau 2016: 66), Mwotlap *tateh*, Lemerig *niv*, etc.; see the comparison in François (2011: 214, 219–221).

(64) *Ar* *te* *vanvan* *vga* *te* *vak gēn neñ sa*
IMP.2NSG PROH_1 go~PROH beyond PROH_2 DIR FOC DIST TOP
{gēn *ka* ***sowse*** *van* ***te*** *aē}.*
1INCL.PL SUB NDUM_1 go NDUM_2 ADV.ANAPH
'Don't you two walk beyond the point over there,
where *we haven't been yet*!' {⚓7437#S20}

The morphosyntax of negation is here identical to the one found in an independent sentence (cf. 8). Section §4.5 below will examine a type of quasi negation in quasi subordinate contexts: namely, the apprehensive *tekor* 'so that not...; for fear that...'.

I will here focus on one particular type of syndesis: conditional systems. Conditional systems in Dorig present two semantic subtypes: HYPOTHETICAL vs. COUNTERFACTUAL systems. As Table 7 shows, these two types of conditionals require different negations when the conditional protasis is negated.

Table 7: Negation in conditional protases

Type of system	Positive protasis	Negative protasis
Hypothetical	{ *kak* X *m*-V_1...}, Y *s(o)*- V_2 'if X *did* V_1, then Y *would* V_2'	{ *kak* X ***mtē*** V_1 **tēmē** ...}, Y *s(o)*- V_2 'if X *did* ***not*** V_1, then Y *would* V_2'
Counterfactual	{ X *vit* V_1...}, *m̄rag* Y *v(a)*- V_2 'if X *had* V_1, then Y *would have* V_2'	{ X *vit* (***v***)***te*** V_1 **te**... ⟩}, *m̄rag* Y *v(a)*- V_2 'if X *had* ***not*** V_1, then Y *would have* V_2'

In HYPOTHETICAL systems like (65), the conditional subordinator (English *if*) is the complementiser *kak*, usually followed (in the affirmative) by a verb in the Perfect *m(e)-*:

(65) *Kak* *o* *dm̄ug* ***m****-kot* *nēk,* *nēk s-gār* *nēk s-dēñ* *o*
COMP ART mosquito PRF-bite 2SG 2SG IRR-scratch 2SG IRR-reach ART
mrān.
daylight
'If you're bitten by mosquitoes, you'll scratch yourself all night.'

If the protasis is negative as in (66), the Perfect marker *m(e)-...* is replaced by a combination *mtē... tēmē* in the usual TAMP slots:

(66) *Kak nēk* ***mtē*** *vrisa wālōg* ***tēmē*** *mi (…),*
COMP 2SG HYP.NEG run round NEG.IND with.it
nēk s-gān o m̄la neñ, v-marmar.
2SG IRR-eat ART scrubfowl DEM STAT-hard
[*a magic ritual to make meat tender*] ‘If you don’t run in circles while holding it, then when you eat the scrubfowl, [its meat] will be too hard.’ {⚓3189#S41}

The TAMP marker *mtē… tēmē* is only found in this context (although see ex. 86). The use of the negator *tēmē*, normally reserved to realis or “indicative” modality, is somewhat paradoxical in the case of a hypothesis; but it is coherent with the use of a (realis) Perfect in the affirmative equivalent (65).

As for COUNTERFACTUAL hypotheses, they involve a dedicated counterfactual system *vit… m̄rag* [Table 7], as seen in (67) with two positive clauses:

(67) *Ni* ***vit*** *ttuw na mta-n,*
3SG if.CNTF hit ART eye-3SG
m̄rag *na mta-n* ***v****-qel ni!*
then.CNTF ART eye-3SG CNTF-blind OBL.ANA
‘If he had hit her eyes, she would have become blind.’ [Drg.d08.Rao:15]

In such a system, a negative protasis requires a special negation, namely *(v)te… te* – as in (68):

(68) *Na* ***vit*** ***te*** *lōblōb* ***te*** *o wrēt sa,* ***m̄rag***
1SG if.CNTF NEG.CNTF$_1$ pound~RED NEG.CNTF$_2$ ART squid TOP then.CNTF
v*-marmar.*
CNTF-hard
‘If I hadn’t pounded this squid, it would be too hard.’ [AF.BP3.33a]

It is noteworthy that the negation *(v)te… te* is used both for the prohibitive [§2.2.2] and for a negative Counterfactual hypothesis. Indeed, those are two contexts when the speaker elaborates a virtual situation in contrast with reality.[28]

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The notion of “negative lexicalization” (Veselinova 2013a) refers to the case when a negative meaning is expressed by lexical rather than morphological means. In

[28] Likewise, a language like Latin would use the subjunctive in both cases: the Counterfactual (*si eum occidisset* ‘if she had slain him…’) and the Prohibitive (*ne facias* ‘don’t do!’).

other words, negative polarity is baked into a word's lexical semantics, rather than being part of a compositional expression. For example, English *refuse* can be seen as the negative counterpart of *accept*.

Except for the contrast between positive and negative existentials [§2.3.3], Dorig does not have clearcut cases of such a pattern. Among Dorig's neighbours, some languages show lexicalisation for meanings such as 'not want' (Teanu *mene*), or 'not know' (Hiw *yiñetog*, Teanu *mui*: François 2021). But in such cases, Dorig would use a phrasal negation: *so-mrōs tēmē* 'not want', *so-vrēgēl tēmē* 'not know'.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

Somewhat peripheral to the domain of negation proper is the frustrative postverb *mtēl* '(do) in vain' – e.g. (69). A common translation is often a negative construction in English, such as 'be unable to, can't':

(69) *Sō sag neñ, t-rev mlē namon o ak neñ ti,*
paddle up DIST IPFV$_1$-tow again POSS.3SG ART canoe DIST IPFV$_2$
la t-revrev ***mtēl*** *ti.*
but IPFV$_1$-tow~RED in.vain IPFV$_2$
'Once he reached the shore, he tried again to tow his boat, but *didn't manage to*.' (lit. 'but *he towed in vain*' = he tried to tow it but was NOT able to) {±2306#S35}

In spite of its English translation, this frustrative construction cannot be considered a proper instance of a negative structure in the grammar of Dorig.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

3.1.1 Equivalent of a Negative declarative clause

When answering negatively a yes/no question, Dorig can use either of two strategies:

- the 'light no', consisting of a "prosodic gesture" of the form [˥.˧.˦] uttered on a vowel /ɔ/: *Óòó* [˥ɔ.˧ɔ.˦ɔ];
- the 'heavy no', which is the Negative existential used absolutely (with no argument).

The use of Negative existentials for negative replies is shared by all Vanuatu languages (François 2011: 220), and is in fact common typologically (Veselinova 2013b). A negative reply in Dorig will thus include the Negative existential *obek*, or its shorter variant *bek* – see (34) and (55) above, or (70):

(70) A: *Namu-k o vriñriñ va-wow nok?*
POSS-1SG ART thing STAT-dry IAM
'Are my clothes dry yet?'

B: ***Bek**, va-loq mlēti.*
NEGEX STAT-wet CONT
'No, they're still wet.' [Drg.q.Adj:41]

The negation *(o)bek* may contradict a negative statement or question uttered by the addressee, in which case it may translate in English as a strong 'yes' (Fr. *si!*, Germ. *doch!*):

(71) A: *Kmur vte briñ late na!*
2DU NEG.POT_1 help NEG.POT_2 2SG
'You won't be able to help me!'

B: ***Obek**, va-wē!*
NEGEX STAT-good
'**Yes** (we will), that's fine!' {⚓2306#S21}

A dialogue like (71) shows that Dorig behaves like Japanese, in that its negative replies disagree with the polarity of the previous utterance, rather than with its propositional content (see Holmberg 2015; Miestamo 2017). In that sense, it serves as a "polarity-reversing particle" (Moser 2018: 23).

3.1.2 Equivalent of a Nondumitive clause

The standalone equivalent of the nondumitive *sowse… te* 'not yet' [§2.1.7] is a combination of *(o)bek* with the continuative marker *mlēti*. Such a combination reads literally as shown in (72).

(72) $\{$ it is still the case $\}_{\text{CONTINUATIVE}}$ that $[\textit{no}]_{\text{NEGEX}}$

This is in fact parallel to English *not yet* or French *pas encore*. Note that the negative reply *bek mlēti* can also be used as a tag in the question (73).

(73) A: *Ni m-lāg nok, le bek mlēti?*
3SG IAM$_1$-marry IAM$_2$ or NEGEX CONT
'Is she married, or not yet?'

B: ***Bek mlēti.***
NEGEX CONT
'Not yet.' [Drg.d12.Sintia:33]

This combination of the negative existential *bek* with the continuative *mlēti* provides a standalone equivalent to the nondumitive (74):

(74) *Ni **sowse** lāg **te**.*
3sg **NDUM$_1$** marry **NDUM$_2$**
'She isn't married yet.'

In English, the relation between the clausal construction (*not… yet*) and the standalone equivalent (*Not yet.*) is formally transparent; in Dorig, it is quite opaque – compare (73–74).

3.1.3 Equivalent of a Prohibitive

A standalone prohibitive uses the interjection (75) *tog!* 'don't!'. This is the same word as the formative found in *tog … v(a)-*, one of the TAMP markers for prohibitive – see (45) in §2.2.2.

(75) ***Tog!** Ar te qāgqēg vtē te!*
PROH 2NSG.IMP PROH$_1$ throw~RED away PROH$_2$
'Don't! Don't you throw it away!' [Drg.d09.Karen:41]

Dorig also has a special interjection (76) *tuqa (titi)* for what can be called the "dilatory prohibitive", i.e. 'Not yet!' or 'Wait!':

(76) ***Tuqa** titi! So-wdōn̄ m̄o o āv.*
DILAT.PROH POL.IMP IRR-set.up before ART fire
'*Not yet / Wait!* You must first set up the fire.' [Drg.d10.Bekem:10]

This sort of interjection is a common feature in northern Vanuatu – see Table 11 in the Appendix.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Dorig does not have inherently negative indefinites or adverbs equivalent to English *never*, *nobody*, *nothing*, *no X*, etc. These meanings are expressed by combining the expected negation with a generic noun (hyperonym) such as:

- *o tdun* '(a) person' + NEG → 'nobody'
- *o sa(v)* '(a) thing, what' + NEG → 'nothing'

In the typology of negative indefinites proposed by Haspelmath (2013a, 2013b), *sav* and *tdun* would be "generic-noun-based indefinites". (77) shows the equivalent of *nobody* in an existential clause:

(77) *Am̄o,* ***o*** ***tdun*** ***obek.***
in.past ART person NEGEX
'In the olden days, [in this island] there was *nobody*.'
(lit. 'there was not a person') {⩲3195#S7}

The negated participant can be the syntactic subject as in (77), or an object as in (78):

(78) *Kmār* *s-tek* *tēmē* ***o*** ***sa*** *aēsei.*
1EXCL.DU NEG.R$_1$-see NEG.R$_2$ ART what here
'We haven't seen *anything* here.' [Drg.d05.Naef:08]

Just like other nouns, the NP heads *tdun* and *sa(v)* take the common noun article *o*. As we'll see in §4.3 for noun phrases in general, that article *o* remains unchanged whether the sentence is affirmative or negative.

3.3 Negative derivation and case-marking

Patterns of negative derivation (such as English *un-friendly*, *im-possible*, *timeless*) are rare in Oceanic languages, and evidently absent in Dorig.

Likewise, Dorig has no adposition similar to English *without*. In order to express a caritive meaning, one would resort to a complex sentence with a negative existential. For example, *without a child* or *childless* would be expressed by a sentence like (61) above – a strategy which is typologically very common (Veselinova 2013a: 118).

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Dorig does not have grammaticalised devices to specify the scope of negation. As a rule, the negation is carried by the predicate head (generally, a verb) regardless of which constituent is semantically the focus of the negation:

(79) *La Wrisris, ni **s**-mat **tēmē** attua soqsoq,*
but Wrisris 3SG NEG.R$_1$-die NEG.R$_2$ long.ago INTS
Wrisris ni qra mat wor ti.
Wrisris 3SG RECPST$_1$ die just RECPST$_2$
'[Our god] Wrisris *didn't die* a very long time ago, he died just recently.'
{⚓3197#S36}

In (79), the negation formally surrounds the verb *mat* 'die', even though its semantic scope is really the time adjunct *attua* 'a long time ago' – in a way similar to its English translation.

Because the negation is only marked on the predicate head, sentence (80) would be ambiguous between three readings (a, b, c). Only prosody can here be used as a clue to identify the scope of negation.

(80) *O tdun sa **so**-vsōg **tēmē** o wiag neñ.*
ART person this NEG.R$_1$-plant NEG.R$_2$ ART yam that
(lit. 'This person here didn't plant those yams.')

a. 'It was *not this man* who planted those yams.'
b. 'This man *did not plant* those yams (he bought them).'
c. 'This man didn't plant *those yams* (he planted these other ones).'

That said, the scope of negation is sometimes specified using a strategy, namely topicalisation by left-dislocation. Thus, Dorig commonly has complex predicates that involve more than two lexemes – either a serial verb {V+V}, or a verb and its modifier {V+Adjective}, {V+Postverb}; such complex predicates invariably share the same TAMP marking. If that marking is negative, it has scope over the whole predicate: see the examples (8a), (11), (14), (42), (47). In a sentence like (81), the negation is thus shared by the action verb *daw* 'do' and the postverb *tavul* 'well, correctly':

(81) *Na **s**-daw tavul **tēmē**.*
1SG **NEG.R$_1$**-do well **NEG.R$_2$**
'I'm not doing it correctly.'

Dorig can sometimes break up these complex predicates, and distribute them across two separate clauses – one being topicalised, the second under focus. In such cases, each predicate head recovers its own autonomous TAMP marking. Thus compare (81) with its biclausal variant (82):[29]

(82) *Na t-daw t' sa,* ***va**-wē* ***tēmē!***
1SG IPFV_1-do IPFV_2 TOP **STAT**-good **NEG.IND**
'[The way] I'm doing it, that's not correct!' {⚓2306#S67}

Breaking apart a complex predicate may be seen as a way to specify the exact scope of the negation.

4.2 Negative polarity items

So-called *negative polarity items* (Baker 1970), or *scale reversal items* (Haspelmath 1997: 34), are words – such as English *any* or *ever* – that occur typically in negative contexts, but are also found in other forms of non-assertive sentences, such as questions, hypotheses, generic statements, etc. Dorig does not have such morphemes.

For example, the generic noun *(o) tdun* 'person' combines with a negation to yield the equivalent of 'nobody' as in (77) or (87); but it is also found in affirmative statements, as in (23) or (50). The same would be true of the inanimate *(o) sa(v)* 'what/anything' – see (78).

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Dorig has the following noun determiners (François 2007):

- *i* – 'personal article', reserved to human nouns with high individuation such as proper names [→ ex. (45)] or kin terms [→ (30–32), (61), (88)]
- *na* – 'possessive article' for common nouns (i.e. non-human, or human with low individuation) that are inalienably possessed (suffixed) [→ (9), (13), (53)]
- *o* – 'common article' for common nouns that are unbound: either alienably possessed as in (59), or simply unpossessed as in (7), (14), (23).
- *tuar* – 'indefinite article' for all nouns, as in (25), (87).

[29] Because *tavul* is a postverb ('well, properly'), it cannot head a predicate; its clausal equivalent is the adjective *wē* ('good, proper').

The function of these articles is mostly syntactic, that of a determiner: it's a D in a DP. Crucially, the first three articles are underspecified with respect to the features [±definite] or [±referential]: depending on the context, they may refer to an indefinite ('a', 'some') or a definite article ('the'), to a specific entity or a generic one. This explains why the same articles are compatible both with positive and negative clauses, whether they are to be interpreted as referential or not. A noun marked by one of these determiners will be ambiguous in its interpretation. The same sequence *o masa* '(a/the) knife' is thus found in positive (83a) or negative (83b) statements alike:[30]

(83) a. *Na m-tek* ***o*** ***masa*** *allon.*
1SG PRF-see ART knife inside
[±def] [+ref] 'I saw a/the knife inside.'

b. *Na s-tek tēmē* ***o*** ***masa*** *allon.*
1SG NEG.R$_1$-see NEG.R$_2$ ART knife inside
[-def] [-ref] 'I didn't see any knife inside.'

The default reading of *o masa* in (83b) is non-referential (English *any knife*); but the presence of another modifier, like a possessor (84) or a demonstrative, can override this interpretation by forcing a [+definite] reading:

(84) *Na s-tek tēmē* ***namo-n̄ o*** ***masa*** *allon.*
1SG NEG.R$_1$-see NEG.R$_2$ POSS-2SG ART knife inside
[+def] [+ref] 'I didn't see your knife inside.'

In sum, noun phrases bear the same determiners in positive and negative contexts. In this respect, the Dorig system shows perfect symmetry across polarities.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

In order to reinforce its negative statements, Dorig uses an auxiliary *tē* 'Negation intensifier' (INTS.NEG), of unknown origin.[31] The reason it can be analysed as a

[30]While Dorig here behaves like its immediate neighbours, it contrasts with several languages of Vanuatu that employ different NP articles in positive vs. negative sentences. Thus Hiw (Torres Is.) contrasts two indefinite articles, one [+ref] and one [-ref] (François 2016a); further south, Araki also forces the use of *partitive* determiners in irrealis and/or negative clauses (François 2002: 54–67).

[31]The form *tē* [tɪ] is unrelated with the *te* [tɛ] we have seen as a formative in several negative morphemes [§2.1.3].

(verb-like) auxiliary is that it bears the TAMP marking instead of the lexical verb, which follows it immediately.

The ordinary negation (85a) can be compared with the intensified negation (85b):

(85) a. *Ni* ***s****-vit* ***tēmē*** *o sav.*
3SG NEG.R$_1$-say NEG.R$_2$ ART thing
'He didn't say anything.'

b. *Ni* ***so-tē*** *vit* ***tēmē*** *o sav, ni so mōl.*
3SG NEG.R$_1$-INTS.NEG say NEG.R$_2$ ART thing 3SG SEQ return
'He didn't **even** say anything, and left.' {⚓2306#S26}

This auxiliary is also attested with the perfect *m(e)-*:

(86) *Tōlnēr so ñor, i rār* ***m-tē*** *ñor tavul* ***tēmē****.*
3TRI SEQ sleep PERS 3DU PRF-INTS.NEG sleep well NEG.IND
'The three of them went to sleep, but the two (brothers) didn't manage to sleep **at all**.' {⚓3107#S20}

This sequence *m-tē… tēmē* may well be the origin of the homophonous negation we saw in hypothetical sentences [§2.4].

4.5 Negation in complex clauses: the case of the apprehensive

Dorig does not have any coordinator that would be specialised for negation, such as Latin *neque*, or English *neither… nor.* As for subordination, special mention must be made of negative purposives, or rather their pragmatic equivalent.

When a clause P is meant to avoid the realisation of an event Q, many languages – like English – employ a negation in the subordinate clause, in a pattern {P, *so that not* Q} – e.g. *Stand firm, so you don't fall.* In Vanuatu languages, such meanings are usually expressed by a special construction called "apprehensive" – of the type {P, *lest* Q}.

In Dorig, the apprehensive linker is a form *tekor*, followed by a positive irrealis:

(87) *Na t-ñor gor ti* ***tekor*** *tuar tdun s-bāl.*
1SG IPFV$_1$-sleep over IPFV$_2$ APPR INDF person IRR-steal
'I sleep on it [my money] so nobody can steal it.'
(lit. 'I sleep on it *lest* anyone steals it') [Drg.d05.Naef:14]

This apprehensive particle *tekor* is grammaticalised from a verb *tekgor* [tɛkɔr] 'beware, look out' – etymologically 'watch (*tek*) over (*gor*)'. So a sentence like (87) arguably involves three underlying predicates: "I sleep on it, [*bewaring*] someone might steal it".

Even though *tekor* appears to serve as a subordinator in (87), the very same word also routinely surfaces sentence-initially as in (88), as a morpheme coding for apprehensive modality:

(88) *Ar te vanvan vga te vak gēn neñ sa*
IMP.2NSG PROH$_1$ go~RED beyond PROH$_2$ DIR FOC DIST TOP
gēn ka sowse van te aē.
1INCL.PL SUB NDUM$_1$ go NDUM$_2$ ANAPH
***Tekor** kmur s-van wōn i tbi-kmur.*
APPR 2DU IRR-go find PERS ancestor-2DU
'Don't you two walk beyond the point over there, where we haven't been yet! *You might come across* [the ghost of] your ancestor.' {⚓7437#S21}

Even if *tekor* does not, strictly speaking, encode syntactic subordination, it does encode a form of pragmatic dependency between the two sentences. Indeed, the main function of the apprehensive modality is to present a scenario as undesirable ('you might meet an evil ghost'); this utterance, in turn, serves as a justification for an imperative or a prohibitive, whether the latter is made explicit or not.[32] As a corollary, the apprehensive is sometimes used – e.g. in (89) – as a polite or indirect variant of a prohibitive [§2.2.2]:

(89) ***Tekor** nēk so-dlōm o sri-n!*
APPR 2SG IRR-swallow ART bone-3SG
'[Make sure you] *don't swallow* the bones!' [Drg.q.Rerem.04]

Yet crucially for our purposes, it bears highlighting that apprehensive modality does not, in fact, pertain to negation. Such constructions are relevant to a discussion of negative polarity only insofar as they constitute a pragmatic equivalent of constructions which, in other languages, might involve negative morphology (cf. 'so *nobody* can steal it'); yet the apprehensive does not, strictly speaking, belong to the set of negative constructions.

[32] I have developed this argument about the apprehensive of Mwotlap (François 2003: 301–312; François forthcoming); see also Malau (2016: 679–680) for Vurës. For a typology of apprehensives, see Vuillermet et al. (2026).

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Contrastive negation

In contrastive systems of the form {*not P (but) Q*}, some languages employ a special conjunction for 'but' (e.g. German *sondern*, Spanish *sino*). In such cases, illustrated in (90), Dorig simply uses parataxis:

(90) *Bek, o gasi āv **tēmē**, o sawi o naw wor.*
NEGEX ART smoke fire NEG.IND ART steam ART salt.water just
'No, that's not smoke, that's just steam!' [Drg.d10.Bekem:26]

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives

Clausal negation is always semantically negative or prohibitive. One case, though, deserves mention, where a formally negative morpheme is routinely assigned a meaning that cannot be reduced to negation strictly speaking.

We saw in §3.1 how the negative existential *bek* ~ *obek* is commonly used as a negative declarative reply ('No!'). The same negation can also commonly take a broader meaning, that of politely contradicting the relevance of the addressee's utterance, even when it was not a yes/no question. This is shown in the dialogue (91):

(91) A: *Nēk t-daksa ti?*
2SG IPFV$_1$-do.what IPFV$_2$
'What are you doing?

B: ***Bek**, na m-mōl kēl ma ti na t-rev namu-k o*
NEGEX 1SG PRF-return back hither COORD 1SG IPFV$_1$-tow POSS-1SG ART
ak ti, la na t-revrev mtēl ti.
canoe IPFV$_2$ but 1SG IPFV$_1$-tow~RED in.vain IPFV$_2$
***No** (=nothing in particular, don't worry).* Just that I was trying to tow my boat on my way back home, and I was unable to do it!'
{⚓2306#S18}

This polite use of sentential negation is common in the daily phraseology of Vanuatu languages (François 2011: 221).

4.6.3 Diachronic notes

In the absence of ancient documents in Dorig, the language's history must be reconstructed based on language comparison with its immediate neighbours. In that perspective, the appendix provides a comprehensive list (so far unpublished) of negative morphemes in all 17 Torres–Banks languages [see the map in §1.1], based on my firsthand data.

While a full comparison would go beyond the purpose of the present study, I will at least mention here the main paths of change that can shed light on the origin of Dorig negative morphemes.

4.6.3.1 Jespersen's cycle in the Banks islands' languages

The comparison of north Vanuatu languages shows that standard negation was initially (i.e. at the level of PTB 'Proto Torres–Banks') a simple proclitic **ate=*. Mota, a conservative language spoken north of Dorig, has kept that simple system: ***ate*** *aras* <NEG far> 'It's not far'. Out of the 15 languages of the Banks islands, twelve later added a postverbal element, resulting in discontinuous markers. The data in (92) is a list (in IPA) of Realis negations in a few Banks languages. These are all semantically and structurally equivalent to Dorig *s(o)-… tēmē*, including their distribution across two slots TAMP$_1$… TAMP$_2$ [see §1.2]:

(92)

	Lehali	/tɛt… **tæ**/
	Löyöp	/tɛ… **ʧɛ**/
	Mwotlap, Volow	/ɛt-… **tɛ**/
	Lemerig	/(e)… **ʔæ**/
	Vera'a	/(ɪʔ)… rɔs/
	Nume	/veta… *mi*/
	Dorig	/s(ɔ)-… tɪmɪ/
	Koro	/t-… wʊs-*mɪ*/
	Olrat	/tɛ… wʊs/
	Lakon	/tɪ… avʊh/
	Mwerlap	/ti… **tɛa**/

In five of the languages cited in (92), the element in bold reflects a proto-form **tea*. This word **tea* goes back to a former numeral 'one', found for example in the form **lavea-tea* 'six', literally '[five]-one' (François 2005b: 496). Some modern languages, like Mwotlap in (93), still reflect that form **tea* as an indefinite or partitive ('some'):

(93) *Kimi ne-myōs ne-gengen* ***te*** *en, ami lep.*
2PL STAT-want ART-food PAR TOP 2PL.IMP take
'[If] you want *some*/*any* food, help yourselves.' {⚓7413#S250}

That partitive grammaticalised into the second element of a double negation (‘not … even a little’ ⟶ ‘not’): see (94) for Mwotlap (François 2003: 317).

(94) *Imam* ***et***-*ēglal* ***te***.
father NEG.R$_1$-know NEG.R$_2$
‘Father doesn’t know.’ {⚓7413#S27}

Several languages of north Vanuatu went through the same grammaticalisation path, whereby a former partitive (‘some, any’ < **tea* ‘one’) became an obligatory component of a bipartite negation.[33] This is an instance of Jespersen’s Cycle.[34] In some languages, the cycle has even reached its ultimate consequence – i.e. the loss of the first component of negation. Thus in (95), the negative meaning ends up being carried by the reflex of **tea* on its own:

(95) Mwotlap (François 2003: 318)
Ino ***te***, *ikē!*
1SG.PRED NEG 3SG.PRED
‘It’s not me, it’s him.’

With the form *te* /tɛ/ found in neighbouring languages, the reader will have recognised the postverbal element *te* we had observed earlier in various negative constructions of Dorig: e.g. the nondumitive *sowse*… ***te*** [§2.1.7], the prohibitive *(v)te*… ***te*** or its variant *tog*… ***te*** [§2.2.2], the counterfactual protatic *vit (v)te*… ***te*** [§2.4]. That said, while a historical demonstration can show that *te* has its ultimate origin in a former quantifier **tea*, this is no longer perceptible to Dorig speakers: in synchrony, the only function that could be assigned to *te* is a general sense of “negation”. Strictly speaking, *te* is not even a full-fledged *morpheme*, since it never occurs on its own: it is no more than a formative in several compound morphemes, which are semantically non-compositional.

4.6.3.2 Morpheme coalescence as the source of Dorig negators

Among the many morphological elements associated with negation in Dorig, several result from processes of coalescence, or contraction, between two formerly separate morphemes.

[33]Further south on Ambae island (Vanuatu), Hyslop (2001: 260) describes the double negation *hi* … *tea* in Lolovoli. For an overview of negation in several languages of Vanuatu, with an emphasis on the language Lewo, see Early (1994: 89).

[34]About Jespersen’s cycle, see van der Auwera (2009) for a general account; Vossen & van der Auwera (2014) for a comparison of Austronesian languages. For case studies dedicated to other Oceanic languages, see Barbour (2015), Roversi & Næss (2019).

Thus in the negative potential *(v)te … **late*** [§2.1.6], the second element arguably results from a contraction of negative *te* with the former postverb **la* or *lala* coding for the potential: **la* + *te* → *late*. This reduplicated form *lala* is itself cognate with a postverbal morpheme *lai found in some Banks languages, to encode Potential modality, of the form *lai* or *le* – see the forms of the Negative potential in Table 10 of the appendix.

The other common marker of negation, namely ***tēmē***, can also be explained if we follow the path of Jespersen's cycle in north Vanuatu, and pursue our cross-linguistic comparison. Among the 12 Banks languages that have reinforced their initial negation with a second element, (94) showed not only reflexes of *tea, but also of other strengtheners: /rɔs/; /wʊs ~ avʊh/; /mi ~ mɪ/, all of unknown etymology.

My proposal is that the Dorig negation *tēmē* /tɪmɪ/ results from the contraction of *te* /tɛ/ (marker of negation < quantifier *tea) and of a second form **mē* /mɪ/. The latter is not a morpheme in modern Dorig, but is attested (as /mi/ or /mɪ/) as a negative formative in Dorig's two neighbours Nume and Koro. Considering the contrast between the negations in *…te* and those in *…tēmē* (see Table 2 in §2.1.1), it appears that {*te*+**mē*} would combine only in declarative utterances (as opposed to prohibitives), and under so-called "indicative" modality – covering realis contexts (past, present) as well as the rare declarative future [§2.1.6]. (Note however that the nondumitive, which is semantically realis or indicative, shows the unexpected form *te* instead of expected *tēmē*.)

The hypothesis of a coalescence {*te*+**mē*} is confirmed if we compare Dorig with its close neighbour Koro (François, field notes). In those contexts where Dorig would have *te*, Koro has a form *wōs* /wʊs/ (which it shares with Olrat /wʊs/ and Lakon /avʊh/); whereas Dorig *tēmē* systematically corresponds in Koro to an augmented negation of the form *wōsmē*. The morphomic parallelism[35] between the two languages is striking: see Table 8.

In sum, the history of negative morphemes in Dorig instantiates the Jespersen cycle in three steps:

- In Pre-Dorig, a quantifier *tea ('one, some') was grammaticalised into the 2nd element of negation in several bipartite combinations (*X… tea > *X… te*), to the point of becoming the main marker of negation.

- While some bipartite combinations in Dorig kept the bare form *te* / tɛ/, other constructions, found in declarative utterances, reinforced that second element with a suffix **mē*, yielding an augmented negation *tēmē* (parallel to the augmented negation *wōsmē* of neighbouring Koro).

[35]For the notion of *morphomic pattern*, see Aronoff (1994), Maiden (2005).

Table 8: Morphomic parallelism between negative morphemes in Dorig and Koro: bare vs. augmented forms of negation

type	meaning	Dorig	Koro
BARE NEGATION	negative imperative	*(v)te … **te***	*t- … **wōs***
	negative potential	*(v)te … la-**te***	*t- … wēs-**wōs***
	nondumitive	*sowse … **te***	*t- … **wōs** mele*
AUGMENTED NEGATION	negative realis	*s(o)-… **tēmē***	*t- … **wōsmē***
	negative future	*(v)te … **tēmē***	*vata-… **wōsmē***
	non-verbal negation	*… **tēmē***	*… **wōsmē***

- In some contexts – especially, non-verbal predicates [§2.3] – the augmented form *tēmē* now functions as the sole exponent of negation: this constitutes the final stage of a Jespersen cycle.

5 Summary

The 17 Oceanic languages of the Torres–Banks linkage of northern Vanuatu vary considerably in the forms of their words, yet share a number of structural and typological features in the internal organisation of their grammars (François 2011). This is true for the semantic domain of negation.

Thus, all Torres–Banks languages draw a formal contrast between (*a*) a set of clausal negators carried by the predicate phrase (Drg *s(o)-… tēmē*, etc.), and (*b*) a "Negative existential" word (Drg *obek*), which is itself a predicate of its own. That NEGEX word [§2.3.3] is used in existential, locative and possessive clauses, and also forms negative replies ("No !").

In most Torres–Banks languages, standard negation takes the form of bipartite morphemes, resulting historically from a Jespersen Cycle. Those morphemes are portmanteau forms that combine polarity with semantic features of Tense, Aspect, Mood: this results in a TAMP system, with often non-compositional morphemes [§2.1]. A widespread configuration in the region is the lack of one-to-one correspondence between positive and negative TAMP morphemes, either in form or in meaning – an asymmetry known as "A/Cat" in typological work (Miestamo 2005, 2013a).

Among the Torres–Banks languages, this study focused on Dorig, chosen as a solid representative of these typological tendencies. In fact, Dorig also stands out among its neighbours, due to several features that are more original.

Table 9 recapitulates all the negative constructions we examined for Dorig, with a reference to each relevant section.

Table 9: The negative constructions of Dorig: recapitulation

TAMP negators			
s(*o*)-V *tēmē*	'doesn't/didn't V'	Negative realis	§2.1.5
s(*o*)-V *nok tēmē*	'no longer V'	Discontinuative	§2.1.7
sowse V *te*	'not V yet'	Nondumitive	§2.1.7
(*v*)*te* V *tēmē*	'won't V'	Negative future	§2.1.6
(*v*)*te* V *late*	'can't V'	Negative potential	§2.1.6
(*v*)*te* V_{RED} *te* ~ *tog v*(*a*)-V ~ *tog* V *te*	'don't V!'	Prohibitives	§2.2.2
vit X (*v*)*te* V *te*	'if X hadn't V'	Negative counterfactual	§2.4
Other negative constructions			
P *tēmē*	'isn't P'	Negation of nominal, adjectival, similative predicates	§2.3.1
X (*o*)*bek*	'there's no X'	Negative existential	§2.3.3
X (*o*)*bek* LOC	'X is not at LOC'	Negative locative	§2.3.3
X POSS-Y (*o*)*bek*	'Y doesn't have X'	Negative possession	§2.3.3
(*o*)*bek*	'No.'	Standalone negation	§3.1.1
bek mlēti	'Not yet.'	Standalone nondumitive	§3.1.2
tog	'Don't!'	Standalone prohibitive	§3.1.3
tuqa	'Don't yet!'	Standalone dilatory prohibitive	§3.1.3
tekor + clause	'so that not V'	Apprehensive construction	§4.5

Compared to its neighbours, Dorig is original in using irrealis modality in semantically realis contexts, at least etymologically [§2.1.5]. Also unique to this language is the contrast between *te* and *tēmē* negations, bearing strong links with clausal modality (declarative vs. imperative; "indicative" vs. "subjunctive"), and only paralleled by its neighbour Koro [§4.6.3.2]. Equally noteworthy is the general insensitiveness of noun phrases and determiners to the polarity of the clause [§4.3].

In a sense, Dorig constitutes an extreme case: that of a language in which the complexities of negative constructions are all concentrated in the predicate phrase, yet virtually absent from the rest of the clause.

Abbreviations

1	first person
2	second person
3	third person
ADV	adverb
ANAPH	anaphoric
APPR	apprehensive
ART	article for nouns
ATTR	attributive prefix for adjectives
CSL	causal linker
CNTF	counterfactual
CONT	continuative
COMP	complementiser
COORD	coordinator
DAT	dative
DEM	demonstrative
DILAT	dilatory (temporal delay)
DIR	directional
DIST	distal demonstrative
DU	dual
EXCL	exclusive
EX	existential
FOC	focus
FUT	future
HYP	hypothetical
IAM	iamitive
IMP	imperative
INCL	inclusive
INDF	indefinite
IND	indicative
INTS	intensifier
INTR	intransitive
IPFV	imperfective
IRR	irrealis
LOC	locative
NDUM	nondumitive
NEG	negative
NEGEX	negative existential
NSG	nonsingular
OBL	oblique
PAR	partitive
PERS	personal article (for humans)
PL	plural
POLIT	polite order
POSS	possessive classifier
POT	potential
PRED	predicate, predicative
PRF	perfect
PROH	prohibitive
PST	past
QUOT	quotative
R	realis
RECPST	recent past
RED	reduplication
SBJ	subject
SEQ	sequential aspect
SG	singular
STAT	stative aspect
SUB	subordinator
TAM	tense, aspect, mood
TOP	topicalizer
TRI	trial number
TRI	trial number

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Appendix: Negation in the Torres–Banks languages

While the present study was dedicated to negative constructions in the Dorig language, the very same linguistic categories can be consistently observed across all seventeen languages of the Torres and Banks Islands. In line with a very common configuration in the region (François 2011), this near-perfect isomorphism of structures goes along with an intense diversity of phonological forms.

The following tables, based on my firsthand notes, list all the negative morphemes of Torres–Banks languages, provided here for the first time in print. Forms are given in IPA. The letter ‘X’ refers to the predicate head – or the whole predicate phrase (e.g. complex predicate, verb+postverb, verb+verb, etc.) that carries the negative morphemes. If the head must be reduplicated, it is coded as ‘X²’.

Table 10: Negative constructions in Torres–Banks languages: four clausal negations

	NEGATIVE REALIS ‘did~does not X’	NONDUMITIVE ‘hasn’t X yet’	NEGATIVE FUTURE ‘will not X’	NEG^{VE} POTENTIAL ‘cannot X’
Hiw	*tati* X	*tati* X *kʷe*	*tat* X	*tat* X
Lo-Toga	*tatə* X	*tatə* X *kʷɛ*	*tat* X	*tat hɔ* X
Lehali	*tɛt* (*nɛ*) X *tæ*	*tɛt* X *kʷɔ*	*tɛt* X *tæ*	*tɛt* X *vɪstæ*
Löyöp	*tɛ*(*t*) X *ʧɛ*	*tɛ* X *ʧɛk͡pʷɛ*	(*tɛ*)*t* X *ʧɛ*	(*tɛ*)*t* X *taŋ͡mʷas ʧɛ*
Mwotlap	*ɛt* X *tɛ*	*ɛt* X *k͡pʷɛtɛ*	*tit* X *tɛ*	*tit* X *vɪstɛ*
Volow	*ɛt* X *tɛ*	*ɛt* X *tɛᵑg͡bʷɛ*	*t-* X *tɛ*	*t-* X *vɪhtɛ*
Lemerig	(*ɛʔ*) X (*k͡pʷæl*) *ʔæ*	(*ɛʔ*) X *ʔæ kiʔi*(*s*)	*mɛ* X *ʔæ*	(*ɛʔ*) X *ŋ͡mʷæs-ʔæ*
Vera’a	(*ɪʔ*) X *rɔs*	(*ɪʔ*) X *ʔɪn*	*mɛ* X *rɔs*	*mas* X *ŋ͡mʷas*
Vurës	*ɣ*V*t*V- X	*ɣ*V*t*V- X *tɛn*	*mit*V- X	*mit*V- X *lɛ*
Mwesen	*ɛtɛ* X	*ɛtɛ* X *vɪs*	*mɛtɛ* X	*mɛtɛ* X *lɛ*
Mota	*ɣate* X	*ɣate* X *tk͡pʷe*	*tete* X	*tete* X *lai*
Nume	*vɛta* X *mi*	*vitis* X *mi*	*manta* X	*manta* X *lɛ*
Dorig	*s*(*ɔ*)- X *tɪmɪ*	*sɔwsɛ* X *tɛ*	(*v*)*tɛ* X *tɪmɪ*	(*v*)*tɛ* X *latɛ*
Koro	*t-* X *wʊsmɪ*	*t-* X *wʊs mɛlɛ*	*v*(*t*V)- X *wʊsmɪ*	*t-* X *wɪs wʊs* ~ *t-* X *wʊswʊs*
Olrat	*tɪ* X *wʊs*	*tɪ* X *wʊs mɛlɛ*	*tɪ* X *wʊs*	*tɪ* X *ɪs wʊs*
Lakon	(*ɣ*)*a*(*tɪ*) X *avʊh*	*ɣatɪ* X *avʊh malɛ*	(*ɣ*)*a*(*tɪ*) X *avʊh*	(*ɣ*)*a*(*tɪ*) X *ɪs avʊh*
Mwerlap	*ti-* X *tɛ͡a*	*ti-* X *tɪkʷɪ tɛ͡a*	*ᵐbit* X *tɛ͡a*	*ᵐbit* X *lɪ tɛ͡a*

Table 11: Negative constructions in Torres–Banks languages: Prohibitive constructions and standalone negations

	Clausal prohibitive ‘Don’t do X !’	Standalone prohibitive ‘Don’t!’	Negative existential = Standalone negation	Stand^{ne} nondumitive ‘Not yet.’	Stand^{ne} dilatory proh^{ve} ‘Don’t yet! Wait!’
Hiw	*tati* X^2 ~ *takə* X^2	*təɣɔ*	*təɣɔ*	*tɔk^{w}e*	(*k^{w}e*)*tuk^{w}e*
Lo-Toga	*tatə* X^2 ~ *mit* X^2	*tatəɣɛ*	*tatəɣɛ*	*tak^{w}ɛ*	*melək^{w}ɛ*
Lehali	*sɛv* X^2	*tɛtɣɛ*	*tɛtɣɛ* ~ *tɛtɣɔsɔn*	*tɔk^{w}ɔ*	*tɔk^{w}ɔ vɔtjæ*
Löyöp	*tɛt* X^2	*tɔ*	*mɛp*	*ʧɛk͡p^{w}ɛ*	*ʧɛk͡p^{w}ɛ*
Mwotlap	(*ni*)*tɔɣ* X^2	*nitɔɣ*	*tatɛh*	*tatɛh k͡p^{w}ɛtɛ*	*makʊh*
Volow	*sap* X^2	*sap*	*tatɪh*	*tatɪh tɛ^{ŋ}g͡b^{w}ɛ*	*magʊh*
Lemerig	*ʔɔkiʔi* X^2 ~ *ʔɛn* X^2 ~ (*n*)*ʔɔɣ* (*ʔɛn*) X^2	*ʔɔkiʔi*	*niv*	*niv kiʔi*(*s*)	*ʔɔkiʔi*
Vera’a	*ʔɔvi*(*ʔi*) X^2	*ʔɔviʔi*	*ɣitaɣ*	*ɣitaɣ ʔɪn*	*k͡p^{w}ɛʔi*
Vurës	*mit*V= X ~ *kere* X^2 ~ *nitɔɣ* X^2	*nitɔɣ*	*ɔ^{n}diaŋ*	*ɔ^{n}diaŋ tɛn*	*kɪti*
Mwesen	*mɛtɛ* X ~ *nitɔɣ* X^2	*nitɔɣ*	*ɛnɛŋ*	*ɛnɛŋ vɪs*	*turtɪk͡p^w*
Mota	*nipea* (*we*) X^2	*nipea*	*taɣai*	*taɣai tuk͡p^{w}e*	*taɣai tuk͡p^{w}e*
Nume	*tɔɣ vɛ*- X^2	*tɔɣ*	*^{m}bɛk*	*^{m}bɛk tuk͡p^{w}a* ~ *^{m}bɛk vaɛnti*	*tuk͡p^{w}a*
Dorig	*tɔɣ v*(*a*)- X ~ *tɔɣ* X^2 *tɛ* ~ (*v*)*tɛ* X^2 *tɛ*	*tɔɣ*	(*ɔ*)*^{m}bɛk*	(*ɔ*)*^{m}bɛk mlɪti*	*tuk͡p^{w}a* (*titi*)
Koro	*t*- X^2 *wʊs* ~ *t*- X^2 *lɛr*	?	*^{m}bɛk*	*^{m}bɛk mɛlɛ*	*tuk͡p^{w}a*
Olrat	*mɪtɪ* X^2 *lɛj*	*sʊw*	*taya*	*taya mɛlɛ*	*asval ti*
Lakon	*mɪtɪ* X^2 *lɛː*	*ta*	*ta*	*ta malɛ*	*læwʊn tɔtɔ*
Mwerlap	(*wɔ*)*tɔkɔr* X^2 ~ *tɔɣ* X^2	*tuɣutu*	*tɪɣɪ*	*tɪk^{w}ɪt͡ɛa*	*tuk^{w}ɪt͡ɛa* ~ *tuk^{w}atu*

Chapter 5

Negation in Kalamang

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The Papuan language Kalamang has standard clausal negation with a predicate clitic *=nin*. Prohibitives are formed with a suffix *-mun* on the pronoun, and a clitic *=in* on the verb. Non-verbal clauses may be negated with propositional negator *ge* 'no; not' or with negative existential *saerak* 'NEG.EX'. Kalamang has dedicated negative verbs with the meaning 'to not want', 'cannot' and 'to not know'. Negative replies are made with *ge* 'no; not'. *Ge* or derivatives thereof are used in other negative constructions or expressions such as polar question tag *ye ge* 'or not', negative conditional *get me* 'if not' and negative answer *ge mera* 'oh, nothing'.

Keywords: Papuan languages, negation, verbal morphology, negative lexicalization, prohibitive.

1 The language

Kalamang (also known as Karas, ISO: kgv, Glottocode: kara1499) is a Papuan language of the Greater West Bomberai family spoken by around 130 people in eastern Indonesia, in West Papua province. Kalamang is spoken on the biggest of the three Karas Islands. This island is home to two villages, Mas and Antalisa. In both villages, Kalamang is the main indigenous language. All Kalamang speakers are bilingual in Papuan Malay (a cover term for local varieties of Malay used in the provinces Papua and West Papua). Papuan Malay is the main language in mixed-language marriages, in village meetings, at school and for interaction with anyone who is not a Kalamang speaker. Kalamang is an endangered language: there are no fluent speakers born after 1990.

Besides Kalamang, the Greater West Bomberai family is composed of Iha and Mbaham, which form their own subgroup, and a subgroup formed by the Timor-Alor-Pantar languages (Usher & Schapper 2022), see Figure 1.

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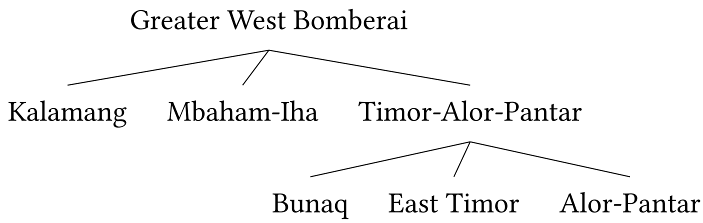

Figure 1: Greater West Bomberai language family

In this chapter, I describe aspects of negation in Kalamang following the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). First, I describe clausal negation in §2, including standard negation, the negation of declarative verbal main clauses (Miestamo 2005). Non-clausal negation is described in §3, including negative replies, negative indefinites and negative derivations. I treat other aspects of negation in §4, including among other topics the scope of negation in multi-verb constructions, the negation of quantifiers and reinforcement of negation.

To understand the examples in this chapter, it is good to know that Kalamang has two verb classes: regular and irregular verbs. Regular verbs may end in any phoneme and have an invariable root. Irregular verbs have a vowel-final root, with variants ending in *-n* and *-t*, depending on the inflection the verb carries. Irregular verbs also have two variants when they are uninflected: one vowel-final and one with *-n*, which seem to be used interchangeably. Within the class of irregular verbs there is some minor variation, but most verbs pattern like *bara* 'to descend', illustrated in Table 1, where it is contrasted with the regular verb *muap* 'to eat'.

Another important aspect of Kalamang grammar is that almost anything can be the predicate (including nouns, nouns inflected with the locative postposition, numerals and demonstratives), and that mood, aspect and modality enclitics attach to the predicate. There is no tense marking. Note also that Kalamang has no adjective word class: properties like colours and attributes are expressed with monovalent verbs. Attributive use of verbs is indicated with the attributive clitic *=ten*.

All data in this chapter is drawn from the Kalamang corpus, which is based on eleven months of field work carried out by the author between 2015 and 2019. The corpus contains spontaneous conversations and narratives (abbreviated "conv" or "narr"), stimulus-based conversations such as director-matcher tasks and stimulus-based narratives such as the pear story (both abbreviated "stim") and elicitation (abbreviated "elic"). Examples from recorded natural speech are

Table 1: Behaviour of the regular verb *muap* 'to eat' and the irregular verb *bara* 'to descend'

		muap 'eat'	*bara*/*bara**n*** 'descend'
=i	PLNK	*muap=i*	*bara**n**=i*
=et	IRR	*muap=et*	*bara**t**=et*
=kin	VOL	*muap=kin*	*bara**t**=kin*
=nin	NEG	*muap=nin*	*bara**t**=nin*
=in	PROH	*muap=in*	*bara**t**=in*
=te	IMP	*muap=te*	*bara=te*

labelled with the genre and number of the recording and the time stamp of the utterance, e.g. [conv8_2:03], while references to elicited examples code the topic of elicitation, e.g. [elic_dem]. All examples can be found with help of these codes in the corpus.[1] The natural spoken part of the corpus contains 15.5 hours of transcribed recordings, with almost 70000 words in total. A reference grammar of Kalamang is published as Visser (2022).

2 Clausal negation

This section starts with a description of standard negation, the negation of declarative verbal main clauses. It then goes on to discuss negation in non-declarative, non-verbal and non-main clauses, in §2.2–2.4. Dedicated negative verbs with the meanings 'not know', 'not like' and 'cannot' are discussed in §2.5.

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is achieved by cliticising negator *=nin* to the predicate. (1) contrasts an affirmative and a negated clause, showing that the only difference between the two is the negator clitic.[2]

[1]The Kalamang corpus can be accessed at http://hdl.handle.net/10050/00-0000-0000-0003-C3E8-1. The example tags in this chapter are clickable links that lead to the relevant corpus entry.

[2]I do not use punctuation in the Kalamang line, because it is the underlying (phonemic) form and because it is often taken from the bigger context of a narrative or conversation, where it is more often than not unclear where the sentence boundaries are. The English translation includes interpunction to increase readability. The interpunction, like the translation itself, is a free interpretation of the original Kalamang.

(1) a. *ma sem*
3sg be.afraid
'She's afraid.' [conv11_2:14]

b. *ma sem=**nin***
3sg be.afraid=neg
'She's not afraid.' [narr40_16:33]

Examples (2) and (3) show a negated transitive verb and a negated intransitive stative verb. In both cases, the constituent order of the non-negated counterpart is the same, as is shown in the a-examples.

(2) a. *ma tumun=at kona*
3sg child=obj see
'He sees the child.' [stim7_25:19]

b. *ma yuon=at konat=**nin***
3sg sun=obj see=neg
'He didn't see the sun.' [stim7_22:55]

(3) a. *wa me kang*
prox top sharp
'This one is sharp.' [conv18_5:50]

b. *wa me mang=**nin***
prox top bitter=neg
'This one isn't bitter.' [narr34_3:10]

In general, the negative construction is symmetrical to the affirmative. Negative clauses differ from affirmatives in that there are some co-occurrence restrictions with other markers on the predicate.

The clitic *=kin*, used in affirmative clauses for the expression of volition and about-to-happen situations (glossed vol), is incompatible with predicate negator *=nin*. This is illustrated in example (4). The range of semantic distinctions that *=kin* can express is lost, or underspecified, once a clause is negated. Thus, (4c) is ambiguous between a reading that the child does not want to eat, or any other of the meanings expressed by *=kin* in affirmative clauses, and a plain negation of the verb 'to eat', i.e. 'the child does not eat'. Note that for explicitly expressing 'not want' or 'not agree', the Kalamang speaker can use a dedicated expression *suka*-poss *ge*, as discussed in §2.5.

(4) a. *tumun muap=kin*
child eat=VOL
'The child wants to eat.'

b. * *tumun muap=**kin=nin***
child eat=VOL=NEG
'The child doesn't want to eat.'

c. *tumun muap=**nin***
child eat=NEG
'The child doesn't (want to) eat.' [elic_neg]

Irrealis mood, indicated by the enclitic *=et* on the predicate, is compatible with negator *=nin*, following it. It always gets the reading of a negative conditional, whereas irrealis mood in affirmative clauses is not exclusively used for conditionals. (For a discussion of the form *eranun* 'cannot' in 5b see §2.5.)

(5) a. *ki newer=**et** eba in kahetmat=et*
2PL pay=IRR then 1PL.EXCL open=IRR
'If you pay, then we open.' [narr5_3:46]

b. *ki tok newer=**nin=et** ki sabua nerungga rat-un eranun*
2SG yet pay=NEG=IRR 2PL tent inside.LAT move-NMLZ cannot
'If you haven't paid yet, you cannot go inside the tent.' [narr5_2:18]

Two aspectual markers are compatible with negated verbs, but change in meaning. The aspectual particle *tok* 'yet; still; first' can be combined with a negated verb to form the meaning 'not yet', and iamitive *se* can be combined with a negated verb to form the meaning 'not any more'.

The word *tok* can mean 'still', 'first', or 'yet'. The former two meanings are illustrated in (6a) and (6b) and are used in positive clauses. The use of *tok* with the meaning 'yet' is with negated or inherently negative verbs, expressing non-realised expectations, and is called nondum (Veselinova & Devos 2021). Thus, in (6c), the expectation is that Nyong's father will go, but at the time of speaking he has not left.

(6) a. *ma **tok** nawanggar*
3SG still wait
'He still waits.' [stim29_1:34]

b. *harus an **tok** bo=et eciet=et eba*
must 1SG first go=IRR return=IRR then
'I must go first, when [I] return, then...' [conv13_11:15]

c. *Nyong esun* ***tok*** *bot=**nin***
Nyong father.3POSS yet go=NEG
'Nyong's father doesn't go yet.' [conv10_7:16]

The iamitive particle *se*, often translatable as 'already' in positive clauses,[3] can be combined with a negated verb to form the meaning 'not any more'. This is illustrated in (7).

(7) a. *in* ***se*** *mia*
1PL.EXCL IAM come
'We had already come.' [conv8_2:34]

b. *ma* ***se*** *paruot=**nin***
3SG IAM do=NEG
'He won't do it any more.' [stim7_28:36]

Table 2 shows the meanings associated with *se* and *tok* in affirmative and negative clauses. As also described in van Baar 1997, 'no longer' is rendered by negation of 'already' and 'not yet' is rendered by negation of 'still'. The negative meanings given in Table 2 hold for use with any negative verb, whether negated with *=nin*, or whether inherently negative or prohibitive.

Table 2: Aspectual particles *se* and *tok* in affirmative and negative clauses.

	iamitive *se*	nondum *tok*
affirmative	perfect; already	yet; still; first
negative	no longer	not yet

As stated in §3.2, the meanings 'ever' and 'never' are underspecified. Sentences with 'ever' are translated with iamitive *se*, and those with 'never' with nondum *tok* and a verb negated with *=nin* in elicitation. In the natural spoken corpus one may find sentences that express actions or states that have never been realised before, but that nevertheless are expressed with a nondum, making reference to cultural expectations. After marriage, a woman has to be welcomed with a short

[3] Iamitives are "more or less grammaticalised markers that have functions shared by 'already' and the perfect" (Olsson 2013: 4). Their semantics also include speaker and cultural expectations. For example, in Kalamang (as in Indonesian) one cannot ask the question 'Are you married?' or 'Do you have children?' without using the iamitive.

ritual in every new house she enters. In (8) a woman who has grown up in the Kalamang community and has been married for more than ten years expresses her surprise at the fact that there are still houses she has never officially entered.

(8) *ba an me* ***tok*** *wandi mengga barat=****nin*** ***tok*** *kewe mengga*
but 1SG TOP yet like.this DIST.LAT descend=NEG yet house DIST.LAT
*sarat=****nin***
ascend=NEG
'But as for me, I have never gone down there like this, never went up to that house.' [conv9_22:14]

There is another, minor, strategy to express the meaning 'not anymore' than the combination of iamitive *se* and a negated predicate. The use of *koi* 'again' with a negated predicate has the same semantics (parallel to Indonesian *tidak lagi* 'not again'), as can be seen in (9).

(9) *pi konenen=nin koi ran mian=nin*
1PL.INCL remember=NEG again go come=NEG
'We don't have to remember to go back and forth anymore.' [conv3_3:55]

Give-constructions, with the zero morpheme 'give', are negated by attaching *=nin* to the zero morpheme, as (10) illustrates (Visser 2022: 288).

(10) a. *an kon-i ka ∅ some*
1SG one-QUANT.OBJ 2SG give ENCRG
'I gave you one, come on!' [conv12_17:12]

b. *an me ka* ***an*** *∅=****nin*** *o*
1SG TOP 2SG 1SG give=NEG EMPH
'Me, you didn't give me!' [conv12_17:43]

When the recipient in a give-construction is expressed as a noun instead of as a pronoun, it is followed by benefactive postposition *=ki*.[4] In a negated clause, the zero morpheme follows the benefactive clitic, and *=nin* is attached to the zero morpheme, as illustrated in (11).

(11) a. *guru dodon=at di=tumtum=ki ∅*
teacher thing=OBJ CAUS=child=BEN give
'The teacher gives the children the gift.' [elic_giv]

[4]The use of causative *di=* is optional both when the recipient is expressed as a noun or as a pronoun.

b. *guru* *tok* *dodon=at* *di=tumtum=ki* *∅=**nin***
teacher yet thing=OBJ CAUS=child=BEN give=**NEG**
'The teacher hasn't given the children the gift yet.' [elic_giv]

Standard negation is also used to negate certain non-verbal predicates, as discussed in §2.3.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Polar questions are formed by adding *ye ge*, literally 'or not', at the end of an affirmative clause, as in (12). Leaving *ye ge* out but keeping question intonation is possible, but this is pragmatically weird, because *ye ge* is neutral in the sense that there is no expectation of either a positive or negative answer. (It is possible to only leave out *ye* 'or' and keep *ge* 'not', but this results in a tag question, as illustrated in example 46 in §3.1).

(12) *mu* *kat* *gonggung* *ter-nan* ***ye ge***
3PL 2SG.OBJ call tea-drink or not
'Are they calling you for tea?' [conv12_20:16]

If one wants to express a negative expectation to an answer, one may use predicate negator *=nin* as in (13). Note that there are no occurrences of this type in the natural spoken corpus.

(13) *ma* *pasa=at* *nat=**nin***
3SG rice=OBJ eat=NEG
'Doesn't he eat rice?' [elic_neg]

Prohibitive constructions are marked by the combination of a pronominal suffix *-mun* and a predicate clitic *=in*. The combination of *-mun* and predicate negator *=nin* is ungrammatical. Example (14) contrasts an imperative and a prohibitive clause.

(14) a. *ka* *ewa=te*
2SG speak=IMP
'You speak!' [stim15_0:41]

b. *ka-**mun*** *se* *reidak-i* *ewa=**in***
2SG-PROH IAM much-QUANT.OBJ speak=PROH
'Don't you speak much anymore!' [stim7_21:00]

Other persons than second person singular may be the subject of prohibition, such as 'smoke' in (15). Because *-mun* cannot be attached to nouns, the noun is proceeded by a pronoun.

(15) *ma-**mun** dugar sara=**in***
3SG-PROH smoke go.up=PROH
'The smoke must not rise!' [narr40_8:01]

As illustrated in (15), *-mun* cannot be suffixed to nouns. To deal with this, when a speaker wishes to use someone's title or name, the pronoun with *-mun* follows the noun, as exemplified in (16).

(16) a. * ***esa-mun*** *sara=in*
father-PROH go.up=PROH
'Father, don't go up!'

b. ***esa*** *ka-**mun** sara=in*
father 2SG-PROH go.up=PROH
'Father, don't (you) go up!' [elic_proh]

When the pronoun is elided, *-mun* is elided as well, such as in (17).

(17) *bo kuet=te tik=**in***
go bring=NFIN take.long=PROH
'Don't [you] bring it for a long time!' [narr42_34:19]

All mood, aspect and modality marking is incompatible is incompatible with the prohibitive, except for the iamitive and nondum. Example (14b) above illustrates the combination of the iamitive *se* and the prohibitive, which results in the meaning 'not anymore'. The nondum *tok* plus a prohibitive results in the meaning 'not yet', illustrated in (18).

(18) *ki-**mun** tok na=**in***
2PL-PROH yet eat=PROH
'Don't you eat yet!' [conv11_3:41]

In multi-verb constructions, it is the last verb that carries prohibitive *-in*. It has scope over the whole construction. Example (19) is one clause.

(19) *ka-**mun** melelu ewa=**in***
2SG-PROH sit speak=PROH
'Don't you sit speaking!' [elic_neg19]

One may combine a prohibitive and an imperative in one message as follows in (20), which is biclausal as indicated by square brackets.

(20) *[ka-**mun** ewa=**in**] [melelu=te]*
2SG-PROH speak=PROH sit=IMP
'Don't you speak, sit!' [elic_neg19]

General prohibition, not directed at a specific person, is expressed with *ka-mun* or *ki-mun*, second person singular or plural, respectively. One could use this for example on a prohibition sign. In spoken Kalamang, one may also leave out the verb, and just say *kamun!* 'don't!' (for example when warning a child against doing something naughty).

It is unclear what the origin of the pronominal suffix *-mun* is. Perhaps there is a relation with the verb *mamun* 'leave' (as in 'leave be; leave in place'). Kuteva et al. (2019) give 'leave' as a source for imperatives and negation, but not for prohibitives. It does not seem strange, in any case, that a language would develop a prohibitive marker on the pronoun, seen that prohibition is both urgent and person-oriented. By signalling that one wants to convey a prohibition on the first constituent of the clause, a pronoun, it is immediately clear for the addressee that action (or rather: no action) must be undertaken.

The Kalamang corpus does not contain any examples of "soft prohibitives" akin to Indonesian *tak usah* 'NEG need'.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Kalamang clauses may have a noun phrase, demonstrative or quantifier as predicate, or a noun inflected with the locative or similative postposition. Locative and similative predicates are negated with predicate negator *=nin*, as illustrated in (21), (22) and (23). This also counts for adverbial demonstratives, such as the lative demonstrative *mengga* 'to/from there' in (24) or the manner adverb *mindi* 'like that' in (25).

(21) a. *ma tok kit=ko*
3SG still top=LOC
'He is still on top.' [stim21_3:08]

b. *ma ewun naun-kit=ko=**nin***
3SG root.3POSS soil-top=LOC=NEG
'Its root is not on top of the soil.' [narr34_4:58]

(22) a. *ka kalamang emumur=kap to*
2SG Kalamang woman.PL=SIMV right
'You are like the Kalamang women, aren't you?' [conv12_6:51]

b. *wise=kap=**nin***
long.time.ago=SIMV=NEG
'It's not like it used to be.' [conv9_32:32]

(23) a. *ma se mahara Mustafa mu=konggo*
3SG IAM ascend Mustafa 3PL=AN.LOC
'He went up to Mustafa's.' [conv10_3:20]

b. *pengalaman kon yume sampi in=konggo=**nin***
experience one DIST until 1PL.EXCL=AN.LOC=NEG
'That experience hasn't reached us yet.' [narr26_15:54]

(24) a. *an mengga*
1SG DIST.LAT
'I went there.' [conv9_24:01]

b. *tete Manggan mu tok mengga=**nin** weinun*
grandfather Manggan 3PL yet DIST.LAT=NEG too
'[I] haven't yet been to grandfather Manggan's either.' [conv9_24:27]

(25) a. *in-ninggan mindi*
1PL.EXCL-all like.that
'All of us [were invited] like that.' [narr1_0:47]

b. *mindi=**nin***
like.that=NEG
'It's not like that.' [conv7_10:11]

In equational clauses such as (26) and (27), where the predicate is a noun, *ge* 'not' is used because the whole proposition is negated. *Ge* 'not' is clause-final.

(26) a. *ma me ema anggon*
3SG TOP mother 1SG.POSS
'She is my mother.' [elic_neg]

b. *me me ema anggon **ge***
DIST TOP mother 1SG.POSS not
'That is not my mother.' [elic_neg]

(27) a. *kon se guru tumtum kon guru*
one IAM teacher children one teacher
'One is already teacher, one child [one of my children] is teacher.' [conv12_9:15]

b. *dun-an me me guru* ***ge***
cross.sex.sibling-1SG.POSS DIST TOP teacher not
'My sibling is not a teacher.' [elic_neg]

Clauses with proper inclusion can alternatively be negated with predicate negator *=nin* as in (28). It is unclear how the meaning of this construction differs from that in (27b).

(28) *dun-an me me guru=**nin***
cross.sex.sibling-1SG.POSS DIST TOP teacher=NEG
'My sibling is not a teacher.' [elic_neg]

Quantifiers are not negated. Finally, existential and possessive predication clauses are negated with negative existential *saerak*, which also comes clause-finally. Examples (29) and (30) show existential negation. *Saerak* is the opposite of existential *mambon*, as shown in (31), which together with (32) illustrates the negation of possessive clauses.

(29) A: *ba sor mambon*
but fish EX
'But is there fish?'

B: *sor* ***saerak***
fish NEG.EX
'There is no fish.' [conv5_6:49]

(30) *karena pak* ***saerak*** *karek=ki=a kanie*
because nail NEG.EX string=INS=FOC tie
'Because there were no nails [we] tied with string.' [narr7_1:03]

(31) *utkon kadok-un* ***mambon*** *utkon muin* ***saerak***
some cloth-3POSS EX some 3PL.POSS NEG.EX
'Some had their cloths, some didn't have theirs.' [narr40_19:28]

(32) *tang-un me hal<al>us=ten me* ***saerak***
seed-3POSS TOP fine<INTS>=ATTR TOP NEG.EX
'It doesn't have fine seeds.' [conv13_5:55]

It is ungrammatical to combine either *mambon* or *saerak* with predicate negator *=nin*. *Saerak* is more common than *mambon*. For negated possessive clauses, *saerak* is obligatory, whereas for affirmative possessive clauses *mambon* only stresses the presence of a possessed item, but is not necessary to express possession. Compare Veselinova (2013), who finds that negative existentials state non-existence or absolute absence rather than negate positive existence. It is unclear what the origin of *saerak* is, and whether it is diachronically composed of several morphemes.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negative conditional clauses are introduced by *get me* 'if not', which is likely derived from *ge* 'no' and irrealis clitic *=et*. *Get me* 'if not' is illustrated in (33).

(33) *kacamata-an rat=et eba kawas=at kosiaur=et sin=ka*
glasses-1SG.POSS move.path=IRR then yarn=OBJ put.in=IRR needle=LAT
get me *eranun*
not TOP cannot
'If I put on my glasses, then [I can] put the thread through the needle, if not, [I] cannot [do it].' [conv13_4:50]

Kalamang has only one other type of non-main clause: complement clauses with direct or reported speech. There is no special strategy for negating non-main clauses. This is illustrated with complement clauses introduced by *toni* 'say' and *kona* 'think' in (34) and (35), respectively.

(34) a. *ma toni tumun-an boda*
3SG say child-1SG.POSS stupid
'She says my child is stupid.' [elic_neg_35]

b. *ma toni tumun-an boda=**nin***
3SG say child-1SG.POSS stupid
'She says my child is not stupid.' [elic_neg_36]

(35) a. *an kona ma-nan bara ming-jie*
1SG think 3SG-too descend oil-buy
'I though he went down to buy oil.' [conv7_5:23]

b. *an kona in barat=**nin***
1SG think 1PL.EXCL go.down=NEG
'I thought we didn't go down.' [conv16_28:32]

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Apart from negative existential *saerak* (the opposite of existential *mambon*), discussed in §2.3, there are three inherently negative verbs: 'not want; not agree', 'cannot' and 'not know'. They are listed with their closest positive counterparts in (36–38).

(36) a. *lo* 'to want; to agree'
b. *=kin* volitional verbal clitic
c. *suka*-POSS *ge* 'to not want; to not agree' [dictionary]

(37) a. *bisa* 'can'
b. *eranun* 'cannot; to not be possible' [dictionary]

(38) a. *gonggin* 'to know'
b. *komahal* 'to not know' [dictionary]

Suka-POSS *ge* is a dedicated negative construction that means 'not want; not agree'. The construction is made with the borrowed positive verb *suka*,[5] nominalised by inflection with a possessive suffix and followed by *ge* 'no; not'. The standard possessive suffix is third person *-un*, which can be used for all persons. A speaker can, however, choose to inflect *suka* with another person. An example with a third person subject *lek* 'goat' is given in (39). Inflection for all persons are given in Table 3.

(39) *canam opa me mat narorar ba lek* ***suka-un ge***
man DEM TOP 3SG.OBJ lead but goat want-3POSS no
'That man is leading it, but the goat doesn't want.' [stim31_0:51]

It is perhaps best to paraphrase *suka*-POSS *ge* as 'is not of SUBJECT's liking'. As for the lexical opposite of 'not want; not agree', there is a verb *lo* 'want', but it is rather uncommon. An example is given in (40a). *Lo* cannot be negated with *=nin*. Wishes and desires are more commonly expressed with volitional *=kin*, see (40b). As illustrated in §2.1, *=kin* and predicate negator *=nin* are incompatible with each other. *Suka*-POSS can also be used in combination with predicate negated with *=nin*, as in (40c). In that case, propositional negator *ge* is not needed.

[5] Compare Indonesian *suka* 'to like', also used as habitual marker in colloquial varieties of Indonesian (Conners & Brugman 2014, Jeoung 2020). *Suka* is not used with either of those meanings in Kalamang

Table 3: Inflections of *suka*-POSS *ge* 'to not want; to not agree'.

1SG	*an suka-n-an ge*
2SG	*ka suka-ca ge*
3SG	*ma suka-un ge*
1PL.INCL	*pi suka-pe ge*
1PL.EXCL	*in suka-un ge*
2PL	*ki suka-ce ge*
3PL	*mu suka-un ge*

(40) a. *an bo mu et-un=at paning paning=i koyet mu se* ***lo***
1SG go 3SG canoe-3POSS-OBJ ask.for ask.for=PLNK finished 3PL IAM want
'I went to ask for their canoe, after asking, they consented.' [narr8_0:12]

b. *bal napikir an sor=at nat=**kin***
dog think 1SG fish-OBJ eat=VOL
'The dog thinks: "I want to eat the fish."' [stim1_0:34]

c. *sontum haus ba an **suka-n-an** parin=**nin***
people thirsty but 1SG want-*n*-1SG.POSS sell=NEG
'People are thirsty (keen to buy) but I don't want to sell.' [narr42_34:03]

In the pair *bisa* 'can'/*eranun* 'cannot' we are again dealing with an Indonesian loan, but this time for the positive form: *bisa* also means 'can' in Indonesian. But whereas *bisa* in Indonesian is negated with standard negation marker *tidak* (*tidak bisa* 'cannot'), Kalamang has a dedicated form *eranun*. The use of *eranun* triggers nominalisation of the negated proposition with *-un*. *Eranun* is clause-final. They are illustrated in (41).

(41) a. *ka marua hukat yume **bisa***
2SG towards.sea fishing.net DIST can
'Can you go seawards with the fishing net?' [conv1_2:56]

b. *ning-kabor pasiengga bor-un **eranun***
sick-stomach to.beach go-3POSS cannot
'[If you have] stomachache [you] cannot go to the toilet.' [conv20_15:58]

An alternative translation of the construction *V-un eranun* might be 'V-ing isn't possible', such that (41b) translates as 'toilet-going isn't possible.'

The pair *gonggin* 'to know'/*komahal* 'to not know' is illustrated in (42). Note also *yeso* 'I don't know' in (42a). This is a clause-initial interjection uttered at high pitch which expresses indignation, and not a verb like *komahal*. It can only be used with reference to a first person subject.

(42) a. *yeso* *ka-tain=a* ***gonggin***
I.don't.know 2SG-alone=FOC know
'I don't know, only you know.' [conv12_18:43]

b. *ema* *tamatko* *eh* *ema* *in-nan* ***komahal***
mother where INJ mother 1PL.EXCL-too not.know
'Where's mother?' 'Eh, we don't know either.' [narr40_5:19]

Negation of any of the verbs discussed in this section, whether they are positive or negative forms, with predicate negator *=nin* is ungrammatical. The negative verbs and constructions in this section behave like other negated verbs with aspectual particles iamitive *se* and nondum *tok*, giving them the meanings 'not anymore' and '(not) yet', as illustrated in (43).

(43) *an* *tok* *komahal*
1SG yet not.know
'I don't know yet.' [stim27_7:32]

3 Non-clausal negation

In this section I discuss constructions expressing negation other than clausal negation, starting with negative replies in §3.1. Negative indefinites and quantifiers are dealt with in §3.2 and negative derivation is treated in §3.3.

3.1 Negative replies

The negative reply is *ge*, which is the same as the propositional negator, and serves to negate the preceding proposition. The affirmative reply *ya* or *yo* is less frequent, perhaps because there are more strategies to agree with someone or with a preposition, such as *haidak* 'true' and *yor* 'true'. A piece of discourse with a negative reply with (a repeated) *ge* is given in (44).

(44) A: *an toni ka ∅ to* […]
1SG think 2SG give right […]
'I thought I gave [it] to you, right […]?'

B: ***ge ge***
no no
'No, no.'

A: *tamandi=a* ***ge***
how=FOC no
'What do you mean "no"?'

B: *ka di=an ∅=nin*
2SG CAUS=1SG give=NEG
'You didn't give [it] to me.'[conv12_17:05]

An affirmative example from the same text is (45).

(45) A: *manadu naun tem~temun eh*
taro fruit INTS~big TAG
'A big taro, eh?'

B: ***yo***
yes
'Yes.' [conv12_0:23]

Ge seems to disagree with the content of the question, not with its polarity. That is, whether or not there is negation in the question seems to be irrelevant. Consider the four questions in (46). For all of them, if they are answered with *ge*, it means that the child is not crying. As there are no examples of negated questions answered with *ge* in the corpus, this had to be elicited.

(46) a. *tumun wa me ecuan*
child PROX TOP cry
'Is this child crying?'

b. *tumun wa me ecuat=nin*
child PROX TOP cry=NEG
'Is this child not crying? / Isn't this child crying?'

c. *tumun wa me ecuan, ge*
child PROX TOP cry no
'This child is crying, isn't it?'

d. *tumun wa me ecuan ye ge*
child PROX TOP cry or not
'Is this child crying or not?' [elic_neg]

If these are answered with an affirmative reply, it means the child is crying. For example (46a), the affirmative answer may be just *ya/yo* 'yes', *yor* 'true' or *haidak* 'true'. For examples (46b–46d), seen that they already contain a negation, it is more natural for the answer to (also) contain a repetition of the clause, as in (47).

(47) A: *yua me pulisi=a wa ye ge*
PROX TOP police=FOC PROX or not
'This one, is this the police or not?'

B: *pulisi=a wa*
police=FOC PROX
'This is the police.' [stim6_11:24]

There are two common answers involving *ge* to the questions *nebara paruo* 'what are you doing', *tamanggara bot* and 'where are you going', which are used as greetings. They are illustrated in (48).

(48) A: *nebara paruo / tamanggara bot*
what.OBJ.FOC do / where.LAT go
'What are [you] doing?' / 'Where are you going?'

B: ***ge*** *o* / ***ge*** *mera*
no EMPH / no INJ
'Oh, nothing/nowhere.' [overheard]

Both *ge o* and *ge mera* mean 'nothing' or 'nowhere' and downplay the importance of the speaker's activity or destination.[6] It is wrong to answer just **ge* 'no' in this context. By using *ge o*, the speaker affirms that he or she is doing nothing of importance, or nothing that he or she wants to elaborate on. (49) is another illustration of *ge mera*, used in a conversation acted out by one speaker. *Ge mera* can also be used as an answer to other questions, as illustrated in (50), where it functions as an ironic or denigrating comment on the yield of the speaker's husband.

[6] *Mera* is an interjection expressing downplay, obviousness or encouragement. In combination with *ge* 'no' it always expresses downplay.

(49) *“Ka tamanggara bot?” “Ge mera!” “Ka nebara paruo?” “Ge mera,*
ka tamangga=ta bot **ge.mera** ka neba=at=a paruo **ge.mera**
2SG to.where=*ta* go nothing 2SG what=OBJ=FOC do nothing
in pasakajie reba!”
in pasa-kajie=teba
1PL.EXCL rice-pick=PROG
‘“Where are you going?” “Nowhere!” “What are you doing?” “Oh, nothing, just picking rice!”’ [conv13_10:44]

(50) A: *wis ma ramie*
yesterday 3SG pull
‘Did he catch any fish yesterday?’
B: ***ge.mera** tagier-un et-kon*
nothing mackerel-3POSS ANML.CLF-one
‘Nothing, he had one mackerel.’ [conv10_8:24]

Tok ‘still; yet; first’ (discussed in §2.1) can also be an interjection meaning either ‘yes (still)’ or ‘no (not yet)’, depending on whether the question contained a negative or not. This contrast is illustrated in (51) and (52).

(51) A: *ka tok sekola*
2SG still go.to.school
‘Do you still go to school?’
B: *tok*
still
‘Yes [I still go to school].’ [elic_wc19]

(52) A: *ka tok sekola=nin*
2SG yet go.to.school=NEG
‘Don’t you go to school yet?’
B: *tok*
not.yet
‘Not yet.’ [elic_wc19]

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Negative indefinites, meanings related to English nobody, no-one, nowhere, never, none and no (Haspelmath 1997), are expressed with a number of strategies. Most strategies are the same as positive indefinites in combination with a negated verb. Some indefinite strategies seem to be unique to negatives. These are the constructions with *-barak* 'any', which must be combined with a negated verb, and constructions with *don konkon V=nin* 'not any(thing)'. Table 4 summarises the constructions and their translational equivalents discussed in this section. Sometimes there are two translational equivalents for one construction. For each construction is indicated whether it is found in the natural spoken corpus or not. It is also indicated whether the construction is parallel to the positive indefinite (except for the negator, of course).

Table 4: Indefinite constructions. Q = question word, V = verb, N = noun (phrase)

construction and gloss	translational equivalent	corpus?	same as positive?
biar Q=*taet-o* V=*nin* although Q-again=COND V=NIN	not anybody, not anywhere	no	yes
N-*barak* V=*nin* N-any V-NEG	no-one, not any	no-one: no, not any: yes	no
Q-Q V=*nin* Q~RED V-NEG	not anywhere	no	yes
don konkon V=*nin* thing one~RED V-NEG	not any(thing)	yes	no
V=*nin=i koyet* V-NEG=PLNK finished	not any	no	no

Constructions with *naman=taet=o* 'anybody' or *tamatko=taet=o* 'anywhere' do not occur in the corpus, and elicited examples are complicated strategies rather than set constructions, relying partly on Indonesian loans, suggesting that these indefinites are not well-established. Consider (53a) and (54a), which make use of the Indonesian loan *biar* 'although',[7] *-taet* 'more; again' and conditional *-o* on a question word, and relativiser *-ten* and *-saet* 'only; exclusively; all' on a verb. In the negated versions of these sentences, two strategies are adopted. In (53b), a suffix *-barak* 'any' is added to the NP, followed by a negative verb. In (54b), the same strategy as in the positive examples is applied, at least with *biar* and *-taet* and *-o* on the question word, followed by a negative verb.

[7]In Indonesian, but not in Kalamang, *biar* can also mean 'let'.

(53) a. *biar naman=taet=o bisa paruon pi=niningggan bisa-ten=saet*
although who-again=COND can do 1PL.INCL-all can-ATTR=only
'Anyone can do it, we all can do it.' [elic_ind]

b. *som kon-**barak** karajang-un **eranun***
person one-any work-NMLZ cannot
'No-one can do the work.' [elic_ind]

(54) a. *sor kerkap-ten wa me tamatko-taet=o mambon-ten=saet*
fish red-ATTR PROX TOP where-again=COND EX-ATTR=only
'There's red fish everywhere.' [elic_ind]

b. *lawan wa me **biar** tamatko-**taet**=**o** **saerak***
grouper PROX TOP although? where-again=COND NEG.EX
'There are no groupers anywhere.' [elic_ind]

The strategy with *-barak* 'any' is found several times in the corpus, such as in (55). *-barak* 'any' is a negative polarity item that has to be accompanied by a negated verb, such as *konatnin* 'not see' in (55). It is also used as 'even' in negative clauses. *-barak* 'any' was also elicited with the meaning 'not any', see (56) (although this is arguably the same meaning as in (53b), which could be paraphrased as 'not any person').

(55) *lampur-**barak** ma konat=**nin***
lamp-any 3SG see=NEG
'He didn't see any lamp.' [stim7_29:22]

(56) *sairarar reidak ba kon-**barak** an jiet=**nin***
lobster many but one-any 1SG get=NEG
'There were many lobsters but I didn't get any.' [elic_neg]

Another strategy to create indefinites, both negative and positive, is by full reduplication (a common cross-linguistic strategy, Haspelmath 1997: 179). Example (57) illustrates the meanings 'anywhere' and 'not anywhere', which are both created by reduplicating the question word *tamangga* 'to/from where'. The negated version is made by negating the verb.

(57) a. *an marmar=i tamangga~tamangga bisa bot*
1SG walk=PLNK to.where~RED can go
'I can walk anywhere.' [elic_neg]

b. ***tamangga~tamangga****=ta an bot=****nin***
to.where~RED=*ta* 1SG go=NEG
'I don't (want to) go anywhere.' [elic_neg]

Reduplication is also used to create yet another instance of 'not any', as in (58).

(58) *ma* ***don kon~kon*** *paruot=****nin***
3SG thing one~RED do=NEG
'He didn't do anything.' [stim7_25:50]

Note that negator *=nin* can also be added directly to *don konkon* to create the meaning 'it doesn't matter', as in (59). There is no positive variant of either *don konkon V=nin* or *don konkonin*.

(59) *ma miat=nin=et eh* ***don kon~kon=nin***
3SG come=NEG=IRR INJ thing one~RED=NEG
'She didn't come, it doesn't matter.' [conv7_11:27]

One strategy to create the meaning 'no-one' or 'nobody', with *-barak* 'any' and a negated verb, was shown in (53b). Another strategy is to negate the construction *=i koyet*, literally the predicate linker and the verb 'to be finished', but here used to mean 'all'. This is shown in (60).

(60) a. *tabaruop-bon=i koyet*
lead-COM=PLNK finished
'[The sinkers are] all with lead.' [stim16_1:28]

b. *an jiet=****nin=i*** ***koyet***
1SG get=NEG=PLNK finished
'I didn't get any.' [elic_neg]

The meanings 'ever' and 'never' are underspecified. Sentences with 'ever' are translated with iamitive *se*, and those with 'never' with nondum *tok* and a verb negated with *=nin*. These constructions are also used to create meanings such as 'already' and 'not yet' (§2.1).

The quantifier *reingge* 'not much/many' is the negation of quantifiers *reidak* 'many, much', *ikon* 'some, a few' and *taukon* 'some, a few'. Consider (61).

(61) *mu buoksarun=at paruo ba bolodak to sontum tok* ***reingge***
3PL offering=OBJ make but just.little right people yet not.many
'They made the offerings, but just a little, right, there weren't many people yet.' [narr7_0:49]

Reingge 'not much/many' is a contraction of a morpheme *rei-* with unknown meaning (though compare *reidak* 'much/many') and propositional negator and negative answer *ge*.

3.3 Negative derivation

There are no morphological ways to derive negative forms from nouns. The only kind of negative derivation is with the inherently negative verb *eranun* 'cannot', which triggers nominalisation of the verb it follows. Consider (62). Perhaps a better paraphrasis of the example is 'cooking is not possible'. *Eranun* 'cannot' is also discussed in §2.5.

(62) *pi* *pasor* *kuar-un* *eranun*
1PL.INCL fry cook-NMLZ cannot
'We fry, [we] cannot cook.' [conv4_3:46]

4 Other aspects of negation

Here I will discuss aspects of negation that have not been treated in §2 or §3. I will describe the marking and scope of negation in multi-verb constructions (§4.1), negative polarity (§4.2), marking of NPs under negation (§4.3), reinforcing negation (§4.4), and, finally, negation in complex clauses (§4.5).

4.1 The scope of negation

In negated multi-verb constructions,[8] predicate negator *=nin* comes on the last verb and has scope over the entire construction. When *=nin* comes on the first of a series of two verbs, or when both verbs are negated with *=nin*, the construction is biclausal. This is marked with intonation, with the repetition of the subject, and/or with conjunction *ba* 'but', preferably with all three. Example (63) illustrates all possible placements of predicate negator *=nin* in a multi-verb construction with two verbs.

(63) a. *canam* *marmar* *mia*
man walk come
'The man comes walking.'

[8]Because multi-verb constructions may be linked by the predicate linker *=i* or non-final *=te* on the first verb, these constructions are not defined as serial verb constructions, following the criteria in Haspelmath (2016).

b. *canam marmar miat=**nin***
man walk come=NEG
'The man doesn't come walking.'

c. *canam mian ba ma marmar=**nin***
man come but 3SG walk=NEG
'The man comes but he isn't walking.'

d. *canam miat=**nin** ba ma marmar=teba*
man come=NEG but 3SG walk=PROG
'The man doesn't come, but he's walking.' [elic_neg]

Speakers disprefer clauses where the first in a series of two verbs was negated, or where both verbs were, but where the two verbs were not separated with repetition of the subject or with *ba*. That is, forms like *marmarnin mia*, *miatnin marmar* and *marmarnin miatnin* were usually rejected.

Negated multi-verb constructions in the corpus are rare, but (64) is an example.

(64) *pi nabestai nain mengga **marmar=i erat=nin***
1PL.INCL well like DIST.LAT walk=PLNK go.uphill=NEG
'Usually we don't walk up the hill.' [conv9_24:36]

4.2 Negative polarity

Except for *-barak* 'any' and the constructions with *don konkonin* 'it doesn't matter' and *don konkon* V=*nin* 'not any', discussed in §3.2, there are no negative polarity items.

4.3 The marking of NPs in the scope of negation

NPs in the scope of negation are not marked any differently that those in affirmative clauses.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The generic emphatic interjection *o* can be added to basically anything. It is also seen after *ge* 'no; not' and predicate negator *=nin*. Example (65) illustrates a reinforced negation with *=nin*, and (66) illustrates a reinforced negation with *ge*, as part of an exchange between two people doing a picture matching task; (66) also has reinforcer *o*.

(65) *an paruot=**nin** **o***
1SG do=NEG EMPH
'I won't do it!' [conv12_10:09]

(66) A: *coba an tok sanggarat=et anggon=at*
try 1SG still search=IRR 1SG.POSS=OBJ
'Try, I'm still searching mine.'

B: *tok mambara opa me mm **ge** **o***
still standing DEM TOP INJ no EMPH
'That one where [he's] still standing, hmm, no.' [stim42_13:02]

4.5 Negation and complex clauses

There are no special ways to negate complex clauses. Two coordinated negatives or a coordinated positive and negative do not have any special effects. Thus, each clause in a coordination can be negated with predicate negator *=nin*, as illustrated in (67). There are no negative conjunctions. Note that the conjunction *ba* 'but' is only used when there is a mismatch between the two actions, i.e. when there is negation in one clause but not in the other, as in (67b) and (67c).

(67) a. *Tumun ma me ewanin, ma tirinin.*
*tumun ma me ewa=**nin** ma tiri=**nin***
child 3SG TOP speak=NEG 3SG run=NEG
'That child, he doesn't speak and he doesn't run.'

b. *Tumun ma me ewa ba, ma tirinin.*
*tumun ma me ewa ba ma tiri=**nin***
child 3SG TOP speak but 3SG run=NEG
'That child, he speaks but he doesn't run.'

c. *Tumun ma me ewanin ba, ma tiri.*
*tumun ma me ewa=**nin** ba ma tiri*
child 3SG TOP speak=NEG but 3SG run
'That child, he doesn't speak but he runs.' [elic_neg]

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

The propositional negator and negative answer *ge* 'no' is used in two non-negative contexts. First, it is used as a confirmation tag, as in (68). Second, it is used to form polar questions, as in (69). Note that *mu sem ge* in (68) cannot mean 'they are not afraid', as *sem* is a stative verb 'to be afraid' which has to carry the verbal negation marker *=nin* in order to be negated.

(68) *mu sem* ***ge***
3PL afraid NO.TAG
'They were afraid, you see?' [narr40_15:32]

(69) *ma sungsung=at napaki* ***ye ge***
3SG pants=OBJ use or not
'Is he wearing pants?' [narr17_0:45]

An apparent derivative from *ge* is *gen* 'maybe'. There is no productive morphology that explains the *-n* in *gen*. An example is given in (70). *Gen* is either clause-initial or follows the subject.

(70) *ma* ***gen*** *sara tabai-jie*
3SG maybe go.up tobacco-buy
'Maybe he came up to buy tobacco?' [conv9_22:03]

5 Summary

Kalamang has three main morphemes that aid in the construction of negative clauses and negation: predicate negator *=nin*, propositional negator and negative answer *ge*, and existential negator *saerak*. The forms and functions are summarised in Table 5.

Table 5: Summary of negation in Kalamang

Form	Function
PRED=*nin*	standard negator
ge	propositional negator, negative answer
saerak	existential negator, negator of possessive clause
PRO=*mun* PRED=*in*	prohibitive

Standard negation is done with negator *=nin*. This is a clitic that attaches to the predicate, and which is thus also used for non-verbal predicates like locatives. *Ge* is the propositional negator, used in for example negated equational clauses. It is also the negative answer. *Saerak* is the existential negator, and is also used for negation of possessive clauses. There is little that sets positive and negative clauses apart, with the NP remaining the same and most clausal modifiers available also under negation. The prohibitive is formed with two markers at different places in the clause: a suffix *-mun* on the pronoun and a dedicated morpheme *=in* on the predicate. There do not seem to be well-established negative indefinite constructions, except for the reduplication of *kon* 'one'. The only negative derivation happens with use of the dedicated negative verb *eranun* 'cannot', which triggers nominalisation of the preceding verb. Iamitive *se* and nondum *tok* interact will all kinds of negation, be it standard negation, inherently negative verbs or otherwise negated clauses to form the meanings 'not anymore' and 'not yet'. Nondum *tok*, like *ge*, can also be used as a negative answer. *Ge* has several derivatives, such as *get me*, which introduces negative conditionals, and *gen* 'maybe'. It is also used non-negatively as a confirmation tag and in polar questions.

Abbreviations

1	first person
2	second person
3	third person
AN	animate
ATTR	attributive
ANML	animals
BEN	benefactive
CAUS	causative
CLF	classifier
COND	conditional
COM	comitative
DEM	demonstrative
DIST	distal
EMPH	emphasis marker
ENCRG	interjection of (annoyed) encouragement
EXCL	exclusive
EX	existential
FOC	focus
IAM	iamitive
IMP	imperative
INCL	inclusive
INS	instrumental
INJ	interjection
INTS	intensifier
IRR	irrealis
LAT	lative
LOC	locative
NEG	negator, negative
NMLZ	nominaliser
OBJ	object marker
PROG	progressive
PL	plural
PLNK	predicate linker
POSS	possessive
PRED	predicate
PRO	pronoun
PROH	prohibitive
PROX	proximal
QUANT	quantifier
RED	reduplication
SIMV	similative
SG	singular
TAG	sentence tag
TOP	topic
VOL	volitional

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Chapter 6

Negation in Murrinhpatha

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This chapter discusses negation strategies in Murrinhpatha, a non-Pama-Nyungan polysynthetic language from the Daly region of northern Australia. Murrinhpatha is spoken by 2500–3000 people, mainly located in the remote township of Wadeye (Port Keats) in the Northern Territory, where it is the language of daily communication and one of a small number of Australian languages still learned as a first language by all children in the community. Standard negation structures in Murrinhpatha are typical for languages of northern Australia, with an initial negative particle combining with a verb in irrealis mood; therefore of the mixed Type SymAsy category of Miestamo (2013). The expression of negative existence and possession requires a distinct construction type involving specialized negative predicates formed from the nominal classifiers. Such a system appears new to the typological literature on negation.

Keywords: Australian languages, nominal classifiers, irrealis, negation, Murrinhpatha.

1 The language

This chapter discusses negation strategies in Murrinhpatha (ISO: mwf, Glottocode: murr1258), a non-Pama-Nyungan polysynthetic language from the Daly region of northern Australia. Murrinhpatha is spoken by 2500–3000 people, mainly located in the remote township of Wadeye (Port Keats) in the Northern Territory. Murrinhpatha is the primary language of daily communication in Wadeye and surrounding communities, and one of a small number of Australian languages still learned as a first language by all children in the community. It is therefore one of the stronger traditional languages in the Australian context.

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In early research Murrinhpatha was assumed to be a language isolate (Tryon 1974), but more recently it has been shown to belong to the Southern Daly family with Ngan'gityemerri (Green 2003). Broader relationships are as yet unestablished, but there are clear areal (or possibly genetic) similarities with the Western Daly family, as discussed in Nordlinger (2017). Aspects of the grammatical structure of Murrinhpatha have been described by a number of researchers, most notably Walsh (e.g. 1976; 1996; 1997), Street (e.g. 1987; 1996), and more recently Blythe (e.g. 2009; 2013), Mansfield (e.g. 2014; 2016; 2019) and Nordlinger (e.g. 2010; 2011; 2015; 2017), but none of these publications have focused in detail on negation.

Murrinhpatha shares many typological characteristics common to polysynthetic languages, including syntactically free clausal word order, optionality of argument NPs, and a complex verbal template. This means that clauses often consist of just a verb, and that external NPs for arguments are often not present. Verbs in Murrinhpatha are (mostly) complex predicates, made up of two discontinuous stem elements which together define the predicational semantics and argument structure. These are referred to as the 'classifier stem' and the 'lexical stem'. Classifier stems belong to 38 distinct paradigms encoding generic event-classifying semantics and also encode tense/mood and subject person and number. 11 of the 38 classifier stems can occur alone as the sole verbal predicate. Lexical stems provide more specific lexical semantics and can never occur alone without combining with a classifier stem.[1]

The basic templatic structure of the Murrinhpatha verb is shown in Table 1;[2] the two stem elements are given here in bold. The only truly obligatory slot in the verb is Slot 1, since some verbs can consist of just a classifier stem, but most verbs are complex predicates, and so have slots 1 and 5 minimally filled.

This chapter aims to provide a detailed overview of negation and negation constructions in Murrinhpatha following the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). Some features of negation constructions in Murrinhpatha that have not been discussed in the literature before include the polarity reversal that arises from the use of irrealis mood in both negative declarative and negative deontic constructions, which results in a single clause being ambiguous between meanings with opposite truth conditions (e.g. 'didn't do' vs

[1]For a more detailed discussion of the system see Nordlinger (2015), Mansfield (2019), and the references cited therein.

[2]Mansfield (2019) notes some variation in morph order on the right edge of this template, especially in the speech of younger speakers, but this variation doesn't affect the data being discussed in this paper.

Table 1: Murrinhpatha basic verbal template

Slot 1	Slot 2	Slot 3	Slot 4	Slot 5	Slot 6	Slot 7	Slot 8	Slot 9
Classifier stem (portmanteau with SUBJ person/ number and TAM)	SUBJ Number / OBJ marker / OBL marker	Reflexive-reciprocal	Incorporated body part/ Applicative	**Lexical Stem**	Tense/ aspect/ mood (TAM)	Incorporated adverbial	Number (SUBJ or OBJ)	Incorporated adverbial

'shouldn't do (but did)') (§2.1); and the existence of negative classifier predicates to express negative existence and negative possession (§2.3.3).

The data for this chapter is taken primarily from my fieldwork on the language since 2005; a collaborative Murrinhpatha corpus (Mansfield et al. 2019) with contributions from a number of researchers; a corpus shared with me by Joe Blythe, and published sources on Murrinhpatha. The source of each example is provided – those from my own fieldwork recordings are identified with RN in the source code; those from Joe Blythe's corpus are marked with JB. All examples provided here are from spontaneous natural speech unless marked as elicited.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation in Murrinhpatha is expressed with a negative particle before the verb. The verb must also be inflected with the irrealis mood (see below for further discussion). There are a few different negative particles in the corpus, which appear to vary in use amongst speakers, as described below. The most common negator is *mere*, as in (1b) and (2b).[3] When speakers are asked to provide the negative equivalent of a declarative sentence (as in (2a)), this is the negator that is typically used (as in (2b)).

(1) a. *berengunh ngam-rilil*
already 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write
'I wrote it down already.' (MP-20100917-RN01)

b. ***mere*** *nge-rilil-dha*
NEG 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-write-PST
'I didn't write it down.' (MP-20100917-RN01)

(2) a. *pan-ngi-bat*
3SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).NFUT-1SGO-hit
'He hit me.' (elicited, RN-20090930-002:079)

b. ***mere*** *puy-ngi-bat-dha*
NEG 3SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).PST:IRR-1SG.OBJ-hit-PST
'He didn't hit me.' (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)

[3] Although analysed as a particle, in fast speech *mere* often is reduced to a proclitic *me=*.

Other negative particles are *marda* (3) and *manangka* (4). The choice of negative particle appears to be motivated by sociolinguistic variation, rather than by semantic function: *marda* is reported by Walsh (1976: 215) to be the main clausal negator at the time of his fieldwork, but it is now used by only the oldest speakers; *manangka* is more usually a nominal negator (see §2.3.1) but is being extended to clausal negation as well, in free variation with *mere*. Example (4) is from an elicitation session where the speaker was asked how to say 'he didn't come'. They replied initially with (4a) and then followed with (4b), describing the two options as being equivalent. An example of this use in spontaneous speech is given in (5).

(3) ***marda*** *the ma-bath*
NEG ear 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-have
'I don't know.' (Street & Street 1989 #marda)

(4) a. ***mere*** *wurri-dha*
NEG 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).PST:IRR-PST
'He didn't come.' (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

b. ***manangka*** *wurri-dha*
NEG 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).PST:IRR-PST
'He didn't come.' (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

(5) *ba* ***manangka*** *parne-kut-dha-neme,*
oh NEG 3DU.SBJ.BE(4).PST:IRR-collect-PST-PC.M
pibim-wirra-puth-neme
3DU.SBJ.STAND(3).NFUT-3PL.OBL-throw_away-PC.M
'Oh they didn't keep (the gun), they threw it away from them.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2012-06-02_P-D-W)

The negative particle almost always immediately precedes the verb, as in the above examples. However, temporal affixes (6) and adverbials (7) come between *mere* and the verb. There are also a small number of examples in which noun class markers (8) and pronouns (9) come between the negative particle and the verb, but as shown by the (b) examples, this is not obligatory and these elements are regularly found to the left of the negative particle in other examples. There are no examples in the corpus of a complex NP or anything more than a single word coming between the two.

(6) *mere-warda ngena-nham-dha ngay-yu*
NEG-TEMP 1SG.SBJ.POKE:RR(21).PST:IRR-fear-PST 1SG-DM
'I wasn't frightened anymore.' (MP-20100916-RN01)

(7) a. *murrinh mere thathpirr nge-riwatha-dha*
CLF:LANG NEG correctly 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-do.properly-PST
'I didn't really say it the right way.' (JB20050703JB02.txt)

b. *mere dangatha ngurri-dha Perrederr-yu*
NEG YET 1SG.SBJ.GO(6).PST:IRR-PST Perrederr-DM
'I've not yet been to Perrederr.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(8) a. *ngay-ka mere murrinh ma-mpa-bath*
1SG-TOP NEG CLF:LANG 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBL-have
'I don't believe you.' (JB20070728JBvid01c.txt)

b. *murrinh mere puddi-ngarra-riyith-dha*
CLF:LANG NEG 3PL.SBJ.SHOVE(29).PST:IRR-1PL.EXCL.OBL-explain-PST
'They didn't tell us the story.' (MP-20120724-RN01)

(9) a. *awu, mere ngay nge-ngurru-dha*
no NEG 1SG 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-provoke-PST
'No, I did not threaten him.' (Ford & McCormack 2011: 8)

b. *awu, ngay-ka mere nge-rdarrup-dha*
no 1SG-TOP NEG 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-cover-PST
'No, I didn't cover it up.' (Ford & McCormack 2011: 13)

In Miestamo's (2005) terms, these negative clauses in Murrinhpatha show constructional symmetry since the only structural distinction between the negative clause and the corresponding affirmative construction is the presence of the negative marker. However, the verb in negative clauses must always be in irrealis mood – realis tense categories are excluded from being in the scope of the negative particle – and thus we have paradigmatic asymmetry: realis affirmative clauses are negated with the irrealis mood, as can be seen in (1) above. In (1a) the classifier stem is in the (realis) non-future form, whereas in the negative equivalent in (1b) the classifier stem is in the past irrealis form (see Nordlinger & Caudal (2012) for detailed discussion of the tense/aspect/mood system in Murrinhpatha). Thus, Murrinhpatha belongs to the mixed TypeSymAsy category of Miestamo (2013) and the paradigmatic asymmetry is of the A/NonReal subtype (Miestamo 2005; Miestamo 2013), similar to many other northern Australian languages (Miestamo 2007).

In order to mark imperfective aspect, one of a small set of classifier stems is encliticised to the end of the main verb (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012), as shown in (10). The encliticised classifier must also appear in the irrealis form in negative constructions, showing it to be within the scope of the negative operator. This is shown in the contrast between (10a) and its negative counterpart (10b): in (10b) both the classifier in the main verb (*ka-*) and the encliticised classifier *=ki* must appear in the future irrealis form.

(10) a. *dam-rilil=dim*
3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT
'He's writing it down.' (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)

b. *mere ka-rilil=ki*
NEG 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT:IRR
'He's not writing it down.' (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)

The tense/aspect/mood system of Murrinhpatha makes a different set of tense distinctions in the realis mood than in the irrealis mood (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012). Since negative clauses are restricted to irrealis mood inflections only, negative clauses make different tense distinctions to their affirmative counterparts. This results in a derived asymmetry (Miestamo 2013) as the asymmetry arises from the properties of the tense/aspect/mood system so cannot be attributed to the negative construction directly, but it is nonetheless a characteristic of negative clauses. The traditional pattern is shown in Table 2, and exemplified below.

Table 2: Murrinhpatha TAM inflection in positive and negative clauses (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012)

<table>
<tr><td rowspan="3" colspan="2"></td><td colspan="6">TAM category expressed</td></tr>
<tr><td colspan="4">realis</td><td colspan="2">irrealis</td></tr>
<tr><td>Past imperfective</td><td>Past perfective</td><td>Present</td><td>Future</td><td>Future</td><td>Past</td></tr>
<tr><td rowspan="2">TAM inflection on classifier stem</td><td>Positive polarity</td><td>PST:IPFV</td><td colspan="2">NFUT</td><td>FUT</td><td>FUT:IRR</td><td>PST:IRR</td></tr>
<tr><td>Negative polarity</td><td colspan="2">PST:IRR</td><td colspan="3">FUT:IRR</td><td>PST:IRR</td></tr>
</table>

For example, in affirmative clauses with telic predicates, the non-future tense is used for present and past events (11a, 11b), and the future tense for future events (11c):

(11) a. *dam-rilil=dim*
3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT
'He's writing it down.' (constructed, for illustration)

b. *dam-rilil*
3sg.sbj.poke(19).nfut-write
'He wrote it down.' (constructed, for illustration)

c. *pa-rilil-nu*
3sg.sbj.poke(19).fut-write-fut
'He will write it down.' (constructed, for illustration)

In the irrealis paradigm, however, present and future tense are expressed with the future irrealis while past tense is expressed with the past irrealis. Thus, while (11a) and (11b) involve the same realis tense form of the classifier stem, their negative counterparts use distinct irrealis forms (12a, 12b). Example (11c), on the other hand, which is marked with a distinct form in the affirmative, uses the same irrealis classifier stem form as the present tense (12a) in the negative (12c).

(12) a. *mere ka-rilil=ki*
neg 3sg.sbj.poke(19).fut:irr-write=3sg.sbj.sit(1).fut:irr
'He's not writing it down.' (constructed, for illustration)

b. *mere de-rilil-dha*
neg 3sg.sbj.poke(19).pst:irr-write-pst
'He didn't write it down.' (constructed, for illustration)

c. *mere ka-rilil-nu*
neg 3sg.sbj.poke(19).fut:irr-write-fut
'He won't write it down.' (constructed, for illustration)

Table 2 above presents the traditional system, but in present day Murrinhpatha the distinction between the future irrealis and the past irrealis is being reanalysed, with the future irrealis forms coming to be used as general irrealis forms in all tenses (Mansfield 2014). This means that there is quite a bit of variation in terms of how the past irrealis is expressed both across the community and in the speech of individuals. For example, one speaker in an elicitation session offered the two options in (13) as alternatives meaning 'he didn't come':

(13) a. *mere kurru-dha*
neg 3sg.sbj.go(6).fut:irr-pst
'He didn't come.'

b. *mere wurri-dha*
neg 3sg.sbj.go(6).pst:irr-pst
'He didn't come.' (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

The same speaker spontaneously provided the two sequential lines in (14) in a narrative – in the first she uses the future irrealis form in a past context, and in the second she switches to the past irrealis:

(14) a. *murrinh mere*
CLF:LANG NEG
***kuddu**-ngarru-riyith-dha-ngime*
3PL.SBJ.SHOVE(29).FUT:IRR-1DU.EXCL.OBL-explain-PST-PC.F
'They didn't explain that story to us.'

b. *murrinh mere **puddi**-ngarra-riyith-dha*
CLF:LANG NEG 3PL.SBJ.SHOVE(29).PST:IRR-1PL.EXCL.OBL-explain-PST
murrinh nhini-yu
CLF:LANG this-DM
'They didn't explain that story to us.' (MP-20120724-RN01)

Nonetheless, despite the variation in the irrealis paradigm, the overall generalization that negative polarity clauses require irrealis verb forms holds across all Murrinhpatha speakers. In the examples in the rest of this paper where the speaker is clearly using the future irrealis form in past irrealis contexts, I gloss it simply as IRR.

In affirmative constructions, the irrealis categories are used to encode counterfactuals, conditional constructions and deontic constructions as in the following:

(15) *ku beg me-art-dha-ka*
CLF:ANIM bag 1SG.SBJ.SNATCH(9).PST:IRR-get-PST-TOP
'I should have brought my bag.' (JB2004-09-12JB04.txt)

(16) *kuma-nhi-manpi mardinhpuy*
3PL.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBJ-help young.girl
'The young girls should help you.' (RN20090930-002:079)

An interesting consequence of the fact that the realis/irrealis distinction is collapsed in negative contexts is that we find ambiguity between standard negative constructions and negative deontic constructions (the negative counterparts of constructions such as (15) and (16)) (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012), since all are marked with the irrealis categories. This is shown in (17) and (18).

(17) *marda the-na-mut-dha palngun*
NEG 2SG.SBJ.POKE(19).PST:IRR-3SG.M.OBL-give-PST woman
a. 'You didn't give him that woman.'
b. 'You shouldn't have given him that woman.' (JB2007-08-27JB04c.txt)

(18) *nukunu-ka mere kani-ngerren murrinh wiye*
3SG.M-TOP NEG 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR-speak CLF:LANG bad
a. 'He doesn't say rude words.'
b. 'He shouldn't say rude words.' (JB2004_08_08JB03b2.txt)

This ambiguity results in a type of polarity reversal whereby on one meaning, e.g. (18a), the interpretation is that the event did not take place (i.e. rude words were not spoken); yet on the other meaning, (18b), the interpretation is that the event *did* take place (i.e. rude words *were* spoken, but the speaker feels they shouldn't have been).[4]

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Imperatives are negated in the same way as second person present/future tense declarative clauses, and therefore belong to Type 1 in the typology of van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013). Examples are provided in (19) and (20).[5]

(19) *mere thu-ngi-bat!*
NEG 2SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).FUT:IRR-1SG.OBJ-hit
'Don't hit me!' (MP-20100917-RN01)

(20) *manangka na-rithuk mi pana-yu!*
NEG 2SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-pester CLF:VEG RCGN-DM
'Don't pester him for that food!' (RN20090606-002:077)

[4]As far as I am aware, this has not been discussed in the literature for other languages, although the same ambiguity is found in other northern Australian languages, such as Bininj Kunwok, and can be particularly difficult when interpreting in legal contexts (Murray Garde, pers. comm.).

[5]Note that there is no distinction in the verbal paradigms between future realis and future irrealis for second person. However, given that realis tenses are not permitted in negative declarative clauses, I assume the same is true in negative imperatives, and so treat the verb in these examples as being inflected with the future irrealis.

A stronger deontic meaning, including prohibition, is expressed by adding the *-nukun* 'LEST' suffix (see also §4.6). The *-nukun* suffix can be attached either to the verb (21) or to the negative particle *mere* (22) and adds the implication that something bad or undesirable might happen if the order is not followed.

(21) *mere thu-ngi-rerda-nukun!*
NEG 2SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).FUT:IRR-1SG.OBJ-blame-LEST
'Don't blame me!' (Ford & McCormack 2011: 9)

(22) *da pana-wangu-ka mere-nukun nunna-ngime*
CLF:PLACE RCGN-away-TOP NEG-LEST 2DU.SBJ.TRAVEL(7).FUT:IRR-PC.F
'Don't go near that place.' (MP-20120724-RN01)

Example (22) was then repeated by the speaker as (23), showing the two potential positions for *-nukun*:

(23) *mere nunna-nukun-ngime*
NEG 2DU.SBJ.TRAVEL(7).FUT:IRR-LEST-PC.F
'Don't go (there).' (MP-20120724-RN01)

A special interjection *pirda* 'don't, stop it, leave it' is frequently used in place of, or in conjunction with, negative imperative constructions, especially when admonishing children (24, 25).

(24) *pirda!*
stop
'Don't (touch it), leave it alone!' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-338.1)

(25) *pirda, mere numa-rdurt-nukun dedi-yu*
stop NEG 2DU.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-wake_up-LEST father-DM
'Stop it! Don't wake up your father.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-69.1)

There are no dedicated hortative constructions in the language distinct from the imperative constructions illustrated above. The corpus also contains no examples of negative interrogative clauses.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

There are two different constructions involved in negating stative (non-verbal) predications. Assuming the categories of Payne (1997: 111ff), equational, proper inclusion, and attributive constructions are negated similarly to verbal clauses, with the addition of the negative particle *mere* or *manangka*. Existential, locative and possessive non-verbal clauses use a unique construction involving negated noun classifier predicates (see §2.3.3).

2.3.1 Equative and proper inclusion clauses

These clause types are expressed with non-verbal predicates and are negated by placing a negative particle immediately before the predicate. *Mere* is used before pronouns (26, 27), and *manangka* is usually used with nouns (28, 29) (although for some speakers, *mere* is possible with nouns too as in (30)).

(26) a. *mi ngay-ka!*
CLF:VEG 1SG-TOP
'That's my food!' (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)

b. *mi **mere** ngay pana-yu!*
CLF:VEG NEG 1SG RCGN-DM
'That's not my food!' (elicited, MP-20100917-RN01)

(27) ***mere** ngay*
NEG 1SG
'It wasn't me.' (Ford & McCormack 2011: 3)

(28) ***manangka** ku were ngay*
NEG CLF:ANIM dog 1SG
'That's not my dog.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(29) *kardu **manangka** garbage bag ngay-yu!*
CLF:HUMAN NEG garbage bag 1SG-DM
'I'm not a garbage bag!' (RN-20180725-004:039)

Examples involving proper inclusion include (30–32):

(30) *kardu **mere** ku teacher pangu-yu*
CLF:HUMAN NEG CLF:ANIM teacher there-DM
'That man's not a teacher.' (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

(31) ***manangka** murrinh*
NEG CLF:LANG
'That's not a word.' (RN-20180724-004:038)

(32) *telephone-gathu, nanthi* ***manangka*** *camera pana-yu!*
telephone-HITHER CLF:THING NEG camera RCGN-DM
'Give me the telephone – that's not a camera!' (RN20120726-003:037)

2.3.2 Attributive clauses

Like equative clauses, these use the standard clausal negators before the attributive predicate, as in (33–35):

(33) *ku were* ***mere*** *ngala pangu-yu*
CLF:ANIM dog NEG big there-DM
'That dog is not big.' (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

(34) ***manangka*** *dhepdhep-wun-dhay*
NEG food-3PL.OBJ-mouth
'They are never eating.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(35) *kuguk dangatha* ***mere*** *patha-ngi*
wait YET NEG good-1SG.OBJ
'Wait a minute, I don't feel well.' (JB20040808JB03b1.txt)

2.3.3 Negative classifier predicates

The negation of all other stative predications, namely existential, locative and possessive clauses, is expressed using a distinct construction type which involves negative classifier predicates. Negative classifier predicates have not been previously reported in the typological literature on either noun classifiers or negation (e.g. Aikhenvald 2003; Miestamo 2007; Eriksen 2011; Veselinova 2013b).[6] While they have been mentioned in previous descriptive work on Murrinhpatha (e.g. Walsh 1976; Blythe 2009), and briefly in grammatical descriptions of other Daly languages such as Marrithiyel (Green 1989) and Ngan'gityemerri (Reid 2011), they have not been previously discussed in detail.

[6]Sentani (Trans New Guinea) has four classificatory negators used in existential constructions that appear similar to those described here in some respects: *olo* 'no person'; *an* 'no bird, animal'; *ban* 'no animate'; *u* 'no inanimate' (Hartzler 1994, and thanks to Ljuba Veselinova for alerting me to this data). However, Sentani does not appear to have a nominal classifier system from which these negators derive and it's not clear from the description whether they are predicates as we find in Murrinhpatha; they may be more like the negative indefinite pronouns 'nobody, nothing' in English, although it is not possible to determine on the data available to me.

Murrinhpatha has a set of 10 noun classifiers (Walsh 1993), which co-occur with nouns in an NP as in (36) and (37), or can occur alone as general nouns (38). These noun classifiers occur only once in an NP, and do not participate in agreement.

(36) ***kardu*** ***wakal*** *ngurdu-thuk-nu* *ngarra*
clf:human child 1sg.sbj.shove(29).fut-send-fut loc
da-warda
clf:place-temp
'I'll send the little boy home now.' (RN-20070608-002:037)

(37) ***ku*** ***tumtum*** *mam-lerrkperrk*
clf:anim egg 1sg.sbj.hands(8).nfut-destroy
'I crushed the egg in my hands.' (RN-20070608-002:039)

(38) ***kardu*** *mere kurru-lili*
clf:human neg 3sg.sbj.go(6).fut:irr -walk
'That person can't walk.' (RN-20180724-004:038)

As is common in such systems, nouns may combine with different classifiers to reflect different semantic construals. The noun *menek* for example combines with the general inanimate (thing) classifier *nanthi* to describe the ironwood tree (*nanthi menek)*, and with the spear classifier *thamul* to refer to a particular type of spear made from the ironwood tree (*thamul menek*). The full set of nominal classifiers is in (41):

(39)

kardu	'human'	e.g. kardu pule 'old man'
ku	'animate'	e.g. ku lawarnka 'wallaby'
kura	'water'	e.g. kura yelyel 'rain'
thamul	'spear'	e.g. thamul nguni 'short light spear'
thu	'weapon'	e.g. thu paku 'large club'
thungku	'fire'	e.g. thungku thay 'firewood'
mi	'vegetable food'	e.g. mi lawam 'flour
da	'place or time'	e.g. da pemanhay 'sandhill'
murrinh	'language'	e.g. murrinh English 'English'
nanthi	'residue, thing'	e.g. nanthi thelput 'house'

Each of these noun classifiers has a special negative form used in the expression of existential, locative and possessive predications. For most of the classes this is formed by prefixing *ma-* to the noun classifier, but for two classes (*da* and *murrinh*) this involves combining the noun classifier with the regular negative particle *manangka*, see (40):

(40)

makardu	'NEG:HUMAN'
maku	'NEG:ANIM'
makura	'NEG:WATER'
mathamul	'NEG:SPEAR'
mathu	'NEG:WEAPON'
mathungku	'NEG:FIRE'
mami	'NEG:VEG'
manangka da	'NEG:PLACE/TIME'
manangka murrinh	'NEG:LANG'
mananthi	'NEG:THING'

Some examples of these negative classifier predicates are given in (41–44). Although they are formally based on the nominal classifiers, these negative forms are in fact predicative, not referential, and cannot function as nominal classifiers themselves. In contexts where the presence of a particular noun is being negated, the regular noun classifier must also be used with the noun, as shown in (42) and (44).

(41) *marra-ka* ***makura**-warda*
NOW-TOP NEG:WATER-TEMP
'Now there's no rain.' (Street 1987: 46)

(42) *ngay-ka* ***mananthi nanthi*** *marluk-yu*
1SG-TOP NEG:THING CLF:THING didgeridoo-DM
'I don't have a didgeridoo.' (Street 1987: 45)

(43) Q: *ngarra John-yu?*
where John-DM
'Where's John?'

A: ***makardu***
NEG:HUMAN
'(He's) not here.' (lit. 'There is no person.') (RN, overheard)

(44) ***ku*** *were-ka* ***maku*** *ngarra da-yu*
CLF:ANIM dog-TOP NEG:ANIM LOC CLF:PLACE-DM
'The dog's not at home.' (elicited, RN-20180724-004:038)

Example (45) provides further evidence for the predicative status of these negative classifiers since it is not possible for them to appear in regular argument positions with a verbal predicate (45b), unlike noun classifiers (45c).

(45) a. *makardu-warda*
NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
'No-one is there.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

b. * *makardu kani/kem*
NEG:HUMAN 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR/3SG.SBJ.BE(4).EX
(both options offered to speaker, but rejected and replaced with (45a), MP-20180718-RN01)

c. *kardu kem*
CLF:HUMAN 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).EX
'Someone is there.' (constructed, for illustration)

Negative classifier predicates form a distinct negation construction that is used to express negative locative, existential and possessive predications. In this respect Murrinhpatha is consistent with the claims of Veselinova (2013b: 112) who found that 66% of languages in her sample had a distinct construction used in negative existentials with no overlap with the expression of standard negation, and that the most common functions of this special negative construction are negation of existence, possession and location (ibid.: 118).

Examples of negated locative clauses are shown in (46–49). As is clear from these examples, the negative classifier predicates can be used for both specific and general reference.

(46) *Barbara da* ***makardu**-warda*
Barbara CLF:PLACE NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
'Barbara's not here anymore.' (When arriving at the dongas and realising Barbara had gone back to Melbourne) (RN20090606-002:075)

(47) *kardu wakal* ***makardu**-ya ngarra truck-yu*
CLF:HUMAN small NEG:HUMAN-DM LOC truck-DM
'The child is not in the truck.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(48) *ngathan ngay-ka Daly River wardarra, kardu* ***makardu**-warda*
brother 1SG-TOP Daly River already CLF:HUMAN NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
Darwin-kathu-yu
Darwin-HITHER-DM
'My brother is in Daly River already, he's not in Darwin anymore (heading this way).' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(49) *ku* *were-ka* ***maku*** *ngarra da-yu*
CLF:ANIM dog-TOP NEG:ANIM home-DM
'The dog's not at home.' (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

The PLACE/TIME classifier *da* (also the LANGUAGE classifier *murrinh*) doesn't have a synthetic negative form, but is just negated with the regular NP negator *manangka*, as shown in (50):

(50) *manangka da* *dangatha*
NEG CLF:PLACE YET
'It wasn't there at the time.' (JB20050705JB01.txt:107)

It can therefore be hard to determine whether these constructions are negative predicate constructions, such as those above, or simple NP negation as illustrated in §2.3.1 above. However, examples such as (51) suggest that *manangka da* functions predicatively like the other synthetic negative classifier predicates, since it co-occurs with the regular noun classifier when a particular place is being discussed:

(51) … *ngarra da* *purtek* *ngala kanhi-ka* ***da*** ***manangka***
REL CLF:PLACE ground big this-TOP CLF:PLACE NEG
da *dangatha*
CLF:PLACE yet
'Before the world began…' (lit. 'When this entire place was not a place yet') (Mansfield et al. 2019, 01-Christ-Comes-to-the-World)

Negative classifier predicates are also the standard way to encode negative existence. Examples include (52–55):

(52) *bere ku* *ngalmungku-ka* ***maku***
SO CLF:ANIM red.kangaroo-TOP NEG:ANIM
'Then the kangaroo was gone.' (RN Kanamkek-Stanner.wav)

(53) *perrkenku* ***makardu****-warda*
two NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
'(and) the two who have passed away now' (MP-20120724-RN01)

(54) ***makardu****-warda*
NEG:HUMAN-TEMP
'No-one is around.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(55) Q: *mi* *tham-rimut?*
clf:veg 2sg.sbj.poke(19).nfut-leave.over
'Did you leave some (food)?'
A: *awu mi* *ngam-rigerdek* ***mami**-warda*
no clf:veg 1sg.sbj.poke(19).nfut-finish neg:veg-temp
'No, I finished it all. There's nothing left.' (MP-20110810-RN01)

In (56), the existence of the feet is not actually being negated, but rather the awareness of them by the protagonists:

(56) *nanthi* *me* ***mananthi*** *mere pube-me-ngkardu-dha*
clf:thing foot neg:thing neg 3du.sbj.see(13).pst:irr-foot-see-pst
'They didn't see (Thiniminh's) feet (sticking out from under the paperbark).' (RN Kanamkek-Stanner.wav)

Negative actions expressed by non-verbal clauses are also a type of negated existential predicate (57–58):

(57) ***makura**-wun-thay*
neg:water-3pl.obj-mouth
'No drinking, they don't drink.' (lit. 'Their mouths have no water.') (RN, written on sign in the Wadeye community)

(58) *da* *four month kaka-yu* ***kura*** ***makura***
clf:time four month uncle-dm clf:water neg:water
'It's nearly four months that your uncle hasn't been drinking.' (lit. 'It's four months uncle has no water.') (JB20090707JBvid04.wav)

However, when the nominal classifier is itself used as predicate (59), the regular nominal negator must be used instead, as it is with other nominal predicates (see (31) and (32) above, for example):

(59) *ngankungintha kardu* ***manangka kura (*makura)***
1du.excl.nsib clf:human neg drunk
'The two of us weren't drunk.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-01-29_AMN_NAATI)

Possessive clauses are also negated with negative classifier predicate constructions as illustrated in (60–65). The regular NP negator is not possible in these constructions as shown by (60b).

(60) a. *ngay-ka ku were* ***maku***
1sg-top clf:anim dog neg:anim
'I don't have a dog.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

b. * *ngay-ka manangka ku were*
1sg-top neg clf:anim dog
Attempted: 'I don't have a dog.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(61) *ngay-ka* ***maku*** *ku tumtum*
1sg-top neg:anim clf:anim egg
'I don't have any eggs.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(62) *ngay-ka kardu wakal* ***makardu***
1sg-top clf:human child neg:human
'I don't have any children.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(63) *kardu wakal dimu* ***mananthi***
clf:human child tooth neg:thing
'The baby's got no teeth.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(64) *ngay-ka mi peka* ***mami***
1sg-top clf:veg tobacco neg:veg
'I don't have any tobacco.' (RN20130702-003:054)

(65) *nukunu-ka the kanthin-nan ngarra mi* ***mami***
3sg.m-top ear 3sg.sbj.have(22).nfut-2pl.obj rel clf:veg neg:veg
narnam i nanthi ***mananthi*** *narnam*
2pl.sbj.be(4).nfut and clf:thing neg:thing 2pl.sbj.be(4).nfut
'and God knows that you need things (that you don't have).' (lit. 'He knows about you that you are 'food no food' and you are 'thing no-thing'') (RN, Mt6:24-34-009)

Affirmative possessive constructions of this type are very rare in the corpus, but when elicited are generally expressed with a verbal construction as in (66) and (67). Affirmative existential constructions also use a verbal construction, as in (68) repeated from above. We therefore have another type of structural asymmetry here where the affirmative construction involves a construction with a verbal predicate while the negative equivalent is expressed using a negative classifier predicate.

(66) *nigunu-ka dimu kanthin*
3SG.M-TOP tooth 3SG.SBJ.HAVE(22).NFUT
'He (the baby) has teeth.' (elicited, Bill Forshaw, pers. comm.)

(67) *nigunu-ka ngathan numi kanthin*
3SG.M-TOP brother one 3SG.SBJ.HAVE(22).NFUT
'He has one brother.' (elicited, Bill Forshaw, pers. comm.)

(68) *kardu kem*
CLF:HUMAN 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).EX
'Someone is there.' (constructed, for illustration)

The existence of negative classifier predicates in Murrinhpatha is consistent with Veselinova's (2013b) claim that negative existence is a separate functional domain, distinct from both standard negation and affirmative existence. However, negative classifier predicates in Murrinhpatha further expand the typology of negative existentials by showing that negative existential strategies can develop from nominal classifiers, something which has not been reported before in typological literature (Eriksen 2011; Veselinova 2013b).

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Murrinhpatha doesn't have non-finite verbal clauses; any non-main verbal clauses have the same structure as main clauses, with the same negation strategies. The negative particle can have scope over just the higher (69) or lower (70) clause; the scope of the negative particle is clearly indicated by irrealis marking on the verb (or lack thereof).

(69) ***mere the ma-bath*** *ngarra-kama*
NEG ear 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-have where-MAYBE
parnam
3PL.SBJ.BE(4).NFUT
'I don't know where they are.' (RN20091006-002:121)

(70) *murrinh nukunu wurran-ngerren* ***mere***
CLF:LANG 3SG.M 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-speak NEG
bi-ma-yepup
1SG.SBJ.LISTEN(16).FUT:IRR-APPL-hear
'He's talking a language I can't understand.' (JB20040624JB01.txt)

Embedded non-verbal clauses are negated with negative classifier predicates (§2.3.3), as shown in (71):

(71) *bam-ngkardu* ***nanthi*** ***me boot*** ***mananthi**,*
1sg.sbj.see(13).nfut-see clf:thing foot boot neg:thing
nungam-winharart-yu
3sg.sbj.foot(7).nfut-run-dm
'I saw him running without boots.' (lit. 'I saw him without boots, running.') (MP-20180718-RN01)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Murrinhpatha has a lexicalized interjection *pirda* 'don't, stop it, leave it' (exemplified in §2.2 and (72)) , a number of lexical stems that encode a negated event as part of their inherent semantics (73–74) and an idiomatic construction meaning 'don't want, don't like' (76–78). The meanings of many of these negative lexicalizations are consistent with the cross-linguistic tendencies identified by Veselinova (2013a), especially the lexicalized construction meaning 'don't want, don't like', which her study found to be very commonly lexicalized across languages in her sample.

(72) *pirda!*
stop
'Don't (touch it), leave it alone!' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-338.1)

Other negative lexicalizations arise from the meanings of specific lexical stems, which encode a negated state or event as part of their semantics, such as *-ngkapi* 'not recognize' (73), and *-biye* 'not realise' (74). While these are semantically negative, they are not grammatically negative constructions as shown by the fact that they occur inflected with realis tense categories (73a, 74), and can themselves be negated (in which case they are inflected with irrealis mood) as in (73b).

(73) a. *wurdam-**ngkapi***
3sg.sbj.shove:rr(30).nfut-not.recognize
'He didn't recognize them.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-21 210.1)

b. *mere-warda kurdi-nhi-**ngkapi***
neg-temp 3sg.sbj.shove:rr(30).fut:irr-2sg.obj-not.recognize
'So he won't treat you like a stranger.' (lit. 'So he won't not recognize you.') (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-07-21 168.1)

(74) *kanam-part=wurran* *nukunu-ka puy*
3SG.SBJ.BE(4).NFUT-leave=3SG.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT 3SG.M-TOP keep.going
*me-nu-the-**biye**=wurrini*
3SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).PST:IPFV-RR-ear-not.realise=3SG.SBJ.GO(6).PST:IPFV
yileyile-yu
father-DM
'She left him and kept going, but her father didn't realise.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, CS1-017-A_07)

There is also an idiomatic construction for 'don't want' that is different to the construction used to express the positive 'want'. While the expression for 'want' is an idiom which combines the body part noun *marda* 'belly' with the verb meaning 'to get/grab' (75), the meaning 'don't want' is formed with the negated clause 'not be happy' (76–77). This negated clause makes use of a regular negated construction and so this is not a negative lexicalization in the strict sense, however it is included here as it is lexicalized as the idiomatic way to encode 'not want'.

(75) *mi-nu* ***marda mangan-art**=dim*
CLF:VEG-DAT belly 3SG.SBJ.SNATCH(9).NFUT-get=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT
'She wants some food.' (elicited, RN-20180724-004:038)

(76) ***manangka le*** ***kani*** *mi* *dhepdhep*
NEG happy 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR CLF:VEG food
'She doesn't want any food.' (lit. 'She isn't happy food-wise.' (elicited, RN-20180724-004:038)

(77) ***mere le*** ***ngurru**,* *durdu*
NEG happy 1SG.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR breathless
ma-marda-nukun=ngurru
1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-belly-LEST=1SG.SBJ.GO(6).FUT
'I don't want to go, I might get breathless.' (lit. 'I won't go happy') (JB20040912JB04.txt)

This construction is also used for 'don't like' (78):

(78) ***mere le*** ***ngani-na***
NEG happy 1SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR-3SG.M.OBL
'I don't like him.' (lit. 'I am not happy about him.') (JB20110901_B_video_GYHM100_01)

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

2.6.1 *wurda* 'no' as a negative predicate

In some examples the negative word *wurda* 'no, nothing' (see §3.1) is used as a negative predicate in a verbless clause to indicate that something won't, can't or didn't happen, see (79–80):

(79) *mi* *peka-ka* ***wurda-wa*** *ngarra* *prison-yu*
clf:veg tobacco-top no-emph loc prison-dm
'Tobacco is banned in prison.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2015-01-29_AMN_NAATI)

(80) *kardu* *kigay* *ngamere-nimin* *pumpanka-pek-neme*
clf:human youth few-other 3du.sbj.go(6).nfut-destroy-pc.m
nanthi *truck-yu,* *mu* *nhinhi-ka* ***wurda-wa***
clf:thing truck-dm but 2sg-top no-emph
'The other boys destroyed the truck, but you didn't.' (Ford & McCormack 2011: 1)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

In appropriate contexts, negative replies to polar questions can be expressed with the negative classifier predicates discussed in §2.3.3. For example, a negative response to a question like 'Did you catch any fish?' might be *maku* 'neg:anim'; or in response to the question 'Is anyone inside the house' a negative reply might be *makardu* 'neg:human'. It is also possible to use one of two negative words: *wurda* and *awu.*

Wurda is the more general negative word, translating as 'no, nothing'. It can be used as an interjection to either reinforce a negative statement (81), answer a question (82, 83), or as a negative tag question (84) (see also §2.6.1):

(81) *manangka* *lurruth* *kardu,* ***wurda***
neg strong clf:human no
'He's not a strong man, no.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 1981_CS1-03A_GM)

(82) Q: 'Do you light fires there?'

A: ***wurda**, mere*
no NEG
nga-rdudrurt=ngarni da
1PL.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-light.fires=1PL.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR CLF:PLACE
pangu-yu
there-DM
'No, we don't light fires there.' (MP-20091008-RN01)

(83) Q: 'Will you be taking me home?'

A: *ngay-ka **wurda-wa***
1SG-TOP no-EMPH
'Not me (someone else will).' (MP-20100920-RN01)

(84) *kura kanhi nukunu wurran=dim mu*
CLF:WATER here 3SG.M 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT OR
***wurda**?*
no
'Does he go through this water here or not?' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2012-06-20_landing_29)

Awu is an interjection and is always initial in the clause. While it is a negative interjection, it has a different pragmatic force to *wurda* and is often used in situations where the utterance is considered to be counter to expectations in some way.

It can be used to signal disagreement with a prior suggestion or statement, as in (85):

(85) A: *kura ti kanhi-ka pa-winhipak-warda*
CLF:WATER tea here-TOP 1INCL.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-spill-TEMP
'Let's tip out this tea.'

B: ***awu**, kura pi-gurdugurduk-ngime*
no CLF:WATER 1INCL.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT:IRR-drink-PC.F
'No, let's drink it.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 20110828_JB_video)

In some examples it is used to mark contrast with a preceding statement, rather than negation. In the example in (86), two characters in a story are talking about where they want to go; *awu* is used to contrast with the preceding utterance, rather than to negate or disagree with its content.

(86) *nukunu-ka mem-nu* *Kanamkek-yu*
3SG.M-TOP 3SG.SBJ.HANDS:RR(10).NFUT-RR Kanamkek-DM
'Kanamkek said to himself,

"ngay-ka nga-wintigat-nu *kanhi-ngu"*
1SG-TOP 1SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT-descend-FUT here-WAY
"I'll go down (to the water) this way."

Thinaminh-ka *mam*
Thinaminh-TOP 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT
Thinaminh said,

*"**awu** ngay-ka ngi-mardawith-nu* *kanhi-ngu, palyirr"*
no 1SG-TOP 1SG.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT-ascend-FUT here-WAY hill
"No, I'm going up this way, to the hills."' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2000-11-10_LKLM)

Awu is also used in corrections, including self-corrections (87):

(87) *piguna-ka* *pumpanka* *[…]* ***awu!*** *mi* *bamngutut*
3DU.SIB-TOP 3DU.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT no CLF:VEG boab
kuba-birr=kuru
3PL.SBJ.BASH(14).FUT:IRR-plant=3PL.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR
'The sisters were going […] no! they were all going to plant boab fruit.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 2000-11-319.1)

In some examples *awu* is used in response to a content question. In these examples it may be used to deny the implicature generated by the question. In (88), for example, B's use of *awu* denies the implicature that there is anything particularly wrong.

(88) A: *thangkudha yawu?*
what.from HEY
'What's wrong?'

B: ***awu***, *mi* *peka* *lurruth ngala-wa*
no CLF:VEG tobacco strong big-EMPH
'*Awu*, the tobacco is really strong.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 20171403_AN)

The two negative words can combine to mean 'definitely not'. In this case, they are always in the order *awu wurda* (89):

(89) *"nhinhi-ka kale ngay?" mam*
2SG-TOP mother 1SG 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT
'"Are you my mother?" he said.

*"**awu wurda**!" mam ku ngurlmirl-yu*
no no 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT CLF:ANIM fish-DM
"No, definitely not!" said the fish.

"ngay-ka ku ngurlmirl-wa!"
1SG-TOP CLF:ANIM fish-EMPH
"I'm a fish!"' (*Are you my mother?* children's book)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

There is a set of indefinite/interrogative pronouns including *nangkarl* 'someone, who' (90), *ngarra* 'sometime/somewhere, when/where' (91) and *thangku* 'something, what' (92). When functioning as indefinites these are often found co-occurring with the epistemic suffix -*kama* 'MAYBE' as in (90).

(90) ***nangkarl**-kama pan-nga-bat*
who-MAYBE 3SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).NFUT-1SG.OBL-hit
'Someone called me (on the phone).' (MP-20091008-RN01)

(91) *da pana **ngarra** purru-lili*
CLF:PLACE RCGN where 1INCL.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-walk
'We just go walk somewhere.' (MP-20091008-RN01)

(92) *ku balli-ya ngarde-wat-ngime-ya ku*
CLF:ANIM mud.crab-DM 1DU.EXCL.SBJ.BE(4).PST:IPFV-go-PC.F-DM CLF:ANIM
***thangku**-wu pana ngurlmirl*
what-EMPH RCGN fish
'We would go for crabs, and, something else, fish.' (MP-20120724-RN01)

These indefinite pronouns can be negated with the clausal negator *mere*, as with all other pronouns (93):

(93) ***mere thangku** deyida*
NEG what again
'nothing else' (20110730_JB_video_GYHM100_04)

Indefinite pronouns combine with standard clausal negation in a verbal clause to form their negated versions, thus Murrinhpatha belongs to Kahrel's (1996) Type 1 in this respect. Note that while standard clausal negation is used, in these constructions the indefinite pronoun always immediately follows the negative particle, which is not the usual position for nominal arguments in standard negation. Nonetheless, the fact that the verb must appear in the irrealis mood, as with regular clausal negation, shows that the negative marker *mere* has scope over the whole clause, not just the indefinite pronoun (94–96).

(94) ***mere thangku***
NEG what
ku-ngi-mathak=kani
3SG.SBJ.SLASH(23).FUT:IRR-1SG.OBJ-have.things=3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR
'I've got nothing (in my pockets).' (MP-20091001-RN01)

(95) ***mere nangkarl****-warda kani*
NEG who-TEMP 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR
'No-one is living there.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(96) ***mere nangkarl*** *be-rdurt-dha*
NEG who 1SG.SBJ.BASH(14).PST:IRR-find-PST
'I didn't see (find) anyone (there).' (MP-20180718-RN01)

Mere ngarra appears to have been extended into other negative functions as well, including meanings such as 'not ever, never, can't' (97–99):

(97) *da* *kura* ***mere ngarra*** *karni-yel* *da*
CLF:TIME CLF:WATER NEG what 3SG.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR-rain CLF:TIME
mirrangan-wa *kanhi-yu*
dry.season-EMPH here-DM
'It never rains in the dry season (which is now).' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(98) *mu* ***manangka ngarra*** *fix kama-na*
BUT NEG what fix 3SG.SBJ.DO(34).FUT:IRR-3SG.M.OBL
'but (the doctor) can't fix him' (RN, overheard)

(99) ***mere ngarra*** *pani-la*
NEG what 1INCL.SBJ.BE(4).FUT:IRR-climb
'We can't climb (that hill).' (20110825_JB_video_GYHM100_01)

In some examples, *mere ngarra* seems to express lack of volition, rather than meaning 'never, can't'. In (100) and (101) the use of *mere ngarra* indicates a choice on the part of the speaker not to undertake the actions described.

(100) ***mere ngarra*** *me-watha-dha, le wiye*
NEG what 1SG.HANDS(8).PST:IRR-make-PST tired
'I didn't make (any tea), (I'm) tired.' (MP-20100920-RN01)

(101) ***mere ngarra*** *ngurru*
NEG what 1SG.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR
'I'm not going.' (RN-20180725-004:038)

Example (102) shows nicely the interaction of the different negative construction types. Speaker A uses an indefinite pronoun to ask a question. In their response, speaker B answers first with the negative word *wurda* (§3.1), then a negative existential construction using a negative classifier predicate (§2.3.3), and then reiterates with the use of a negative indefinite construction in which the indefinite pronoun *nangkarl* is used as an argument NP in the negated verbal clause.

(102) Q: *kardu nangkarl-ngadha bam-nhi-ngkardu?*
CLF:HUMAN who-STILL 3SG.SBJ.SEE(13).NFUT-2SG.OBJ-see
'Did someone come to see you?'

A: ***wurda*, *makardu*. *mere nangkarl***
no NEG:HUMAN NEG who
be-ngi-ngkardu-dha
3SG.SBJ.SEE(13).PST:IRR-1SG.OBJ-see-PST
'No, no-one. No-one came to see me.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

In general, the meaning of absence at the lexical level – the equivalent to English 'without' – is expressed as a non-verbal subordinate clause with a negative classifier predicate as discussed in §2.3.3, §2.4 and illustrated in (103–104). The use of negative classifier predicates in this way is consistent with Veselinova's (2013b) finding that negative existential constructions commonly also have privative functions cross-linguistically.

(103) *kardu nungam-pinharart nanthi me boot* ***mananthi***
CLF:HUMAN 3SG.SBJ.FOOT(7).NFUT-run CLF:THING foot boot NEG:THING
'Someone's running without shoes.' (lit. 'A person is running, (s/he is) without shoes') (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

(104) *bam-ngkardu nanthi me boot* ***mananthi****,*
1SG.SBJ.SEE(13).NFUT-see CLF:THING foot boot NEG:THING
nungam-winharart-yu
3SG.SBJ.FOOT(7).NFUT-run-DM
'I saw him running without boots.' (lit. 'I saw him, (he was) without boots, he was running.') (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

The NP negator *manangka* is also possible in this function, for some speakers (105–106). Note that in these constructions it never combines with a nominal classifier relating to the negated element:

(105) ***manangka*** *me boot parde-wilili-dha-neme*
NEG foot boot 3DU.SBJ.BE(4).PST:IPFV-WALK-PST-PC.M
'They walked without any shoes.' (Mansfield et al. 2019, 20152-07-13_CW_verb-suffixes)

(106) *kardu* ***manangka*** *pemarr-we*
CLF:HUMAN NEG hair-head
'person without head hair' (Walsh 1976: 182)

There is one idiomatic construction in which an associative suffix *-ma* is suffixed to the negative classifier predicate *makardu* to indicate absence of a wife or girlfriend (107–108). This construction is not possible without the *-ma* as shown in (109).

(107) *kardu palngun* ***makardu-ma***
CLF:HUMAN woman NEG:HUMAN-ASSOC
'single man' (lit. 'person without a woman') (MP-20180718-RN01)

(108) *palngun* ***makardu-ngi-ma***
woman NEG:HUMAN-1SG.OBJ-ASSOC
'I've got no girlfriend/wife.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

(109) * *palngun makardu*
woman NEG:HUMAN
'He's got no girlfriend/wife.' (MP-20180718-RN01)

In other contexts the nominal suffix *-ma* functions as a comitative (Walsh 1976: 183) or associative, as in (110) and (111):

(110) *kardu thamul-ma*
CLF:HUMAN spear-ASSOC
'a person habitually associated with spears' (Walsh 1976: 187)

(111) *batbat-ngi-ma*
right.hand-1SG.OBJ-ASSOC
'I'm right-handed.' (Mansfield 2019: 166)

The fact that the construction in (107) is idiomatic is shown by the fact that the comitative/associative *-ma* is not possible in other contexts, such as when talking about a woman without a husband. In this case the nominal classifier predicate is not possible (cf. (113) with (107) above), and the regular NP negator must be used instead, as in (112).

(112) *kardu manangka nugalin*
CLF:HUMAN NEG husband
'single woman' (lit. 'person without a husband') (elicited, MP-20180718-RN01)

(113) * *kardu nugalin makardu-ma*
CLF:HUMAN husband NEG:HUMAN-ASSOC
Attempted: 'single woman' (checked in elicitation, rejected and replaced with (112), MP-20180718-RN01)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The negative particle generally has scope over the entire clause, reflected in the presence of irrealis mood marking on the verb (§2.1). The serialised classifier stem which marks imperfective aspect (Nordlinger & Caudal 2012) must also appear in the irrealis form in negative constructions, showing it to be within the scope of the negative operator (114).

(114) a. ***dam**-rilil=**dim***
3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).NFUT-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).NFUT
'He's writing it down.' (MP-20100917-RN01)

b. *mere* ***ka**-rilil=**ki***
NEG 3SG.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-write=3SG.SBJ.SIT(1).FUT:IRR
'He's not writing it down.' (MP-20100917-RN01)

As discussed in §2.4, in complex sentences the negative particle can have scope over just the higher or lower clause, with the relevant verb inflecting for irrealis mood, as shown in (115–116) (repeated from above).

(115) ***mere the ma-bath*** *ngarra-kama*
NEG ear 1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-have where-MAYBE
parnam
3PL.SBJ.BE(3).NFUT
'I don't know where they are.' (RN20091006-002:121)

(116) *murrinh nukunu wurran-ngerren* ***mere***
CLF:LANG 3SG.M 3SG.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-speak NEG
bi-ma-yepup
1SG.SBJ.LISTEN(16).FUT:IRR-APPL-hear
'He's talking a language I can't understand.' (JB20040624JB01.txt)

4.2 Negative polarity

As far as I have been able to determine, there are no negative polarity items in Murrinhpatha. See §3.2 for a discussion of indefinite pronouns and their interaction with negative particles.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Case marking on NPs in Murrinhpatha is very limited and mostly not obligatory (see Nordlinger 2015; Mansfield 2019). There is no special marking of NPs within the scope of negation, although the language does have special negative classifier predicates which are used in existential, locative and possessive constructions as discussed in §2.3.3.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The negative particle *mere* can be inflected with the 'LEST' suffix *-nukun* to emphasise the undesirability of the negated action. This construction is common in imperatives (see §2.2), but can be found in declarative clauses too, as in (117–118).

(117) *nekineme-ka* ***mere-nukun***
1PC.M.INCL-TOP NEG-LEST
pa-yetmut-neme=purru
1INCL.SBJ.POKE(19).FUT:IRR-refuse-PC.M=1INCL.SBJ.GO(6).FUT:IRR
'We won't refuse him.' (JB20100827_JB_video_02_modified.wav)

(118) *da* *pana-wangu-ka* ***mere-nukun***
CLF:PLACE RCGN-AWAY-TOP NEG-LEST
nunna-ngime
2DU.SBJ.TRAVEL(7).FUT:IRR-PC.F
'Don't you ever go near that place (warning children).'
(MP-20120724-RN01)

Reinforced negation is also achieved through combining the two negative words *awu wurda* to mean 'definitely not', as discussed in §3.1, and shown in (119) (repeated from above):

(119) *"nhinhi-ka kale ngay?" mam*
2SG-TOP mother 1SG 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT
'"Are you my mother?" he said.

*"**awu wurda**!" mam ku ngurlmirl-yu*
no no 3SG.SBJ.SAY/DO(34).NFUT CLF:ANIM fish-DM
"No, definitely not!" said the fish.

"ngay-ka ku ngurlmirl-wa!"
1SG-TOP CLF:ANIM fish-EMPH
"I'm a fish!"' (*Are you my mother?* children's book)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

There are no special negative coordinators in the current Murrinhpatha corpus, and no examples where a negator has scope over a coordinated construction. §2.4 provides examples showing the independent negation of the higher and lower clauses in complex sentences. In the following examples we see that *wurda* 'no, nothing' can be used to negate an ellipsed negative declarative in contrastive 'X but didn't' clauses (120), or those with contrastive subjects (121).

(120) *me-watha-dha-warda* *mu* ***wurda***
1SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).PST:IRR-make-PST-TEMP BUT no
'I tried to make (some tea) but didn't. (MP-20100920-RN01)

(121) *kardu kigay ngamere-nimin pumpanka-pek-neme*
CLF:HUMAN youth few-OTHER 3DU.SBJ.GO(6).NFUT-destroy-PC.M
nanthi truck-yu, mu nhinhi-ka ***wurda****-wa*
CLF:THING truck-DM BUT 2SG-TOP NO-EMPH
'The other boys destroyed the truck, but you didn't.' (Ford & McCormack 2011: 1)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Murrinhpatha also has an apprehensive, or 'lest' construction, which is encoded with the suffix *-nukun* 'lest' added to a verb inflected with the future irrealis. These constructions are not negative constructions, *per se*, but are related to the domain of negation in that they express undesirable consequences that the speaker believes should be avoided. These constructions are different to those discussed in §2.1–§2.3 since they don't include a negative particle of any kind. Some examples are given in (122–124):

(122) ***pubu****-wath-****nukun***
1INCL.SBJ.17.FUT:IRR-fall-LEST
'We might fall down.' (20110825_JB_video_GHYM100_01)

(123) ***thirra****-pe-warda*
2SG.SBJ.STAND(3).FUT:IRR-care.for-TEMP
ma*-nhi-ngkangath-****nukun***
3SG.SBJ.HANDS(8).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBJ-hide-LEST
'Look after her, she might get lost.' (MP-20100916-RN01)

(124) ***ke****-nhi-bath-****nukun****!*
3SG.SBJ.POKE:RR(21).FUT:IRR-2SG.OBJ-cook-LEST
'It might burn you!' (RN20070608-002:035)

It is possible to add -*nukun* to an NP to create a non-verbal clause expressing an undesirable consequence. The NP+*nukun* encodes the fact that something bad might happen related to the NP. The hearer draws on pragmatics and context to interpret the action that is being negated or cautioned against. These constructions may be imperative (125) or declarative (126–128):

(125) *mange-nukun!*
hand-LEST
'Look out for your hand (in the car door)! (e.g. it might get jammed)' (RN, overheard)

(126) *jection-nukun!*
injection-LEST
'[I'm not coming because] (she) might (give me) an injection!' (RN, overheard)

(127) *ku tharnkin-nukun*
CLF:ANIM king_brown_snake-LEST
'A King Brown might (come out after us … and we'll have to get away from it).' (JB20040808JB03b1.txt)

(128) *ngay-ka wakay mayern-nukun-warda Nungalinya*
1SG-TOP finish track-LEST-TEMP place_name
'My (money) might all get used up on the trip to Nungalinya.' (JB20090707JBvid04.wav)

5 Summary

The discussion above covers the key aspects of negation and negative construction types in Murrinhpatha, based on our current knowledge about the language. The set of negative constructions and their functions are summarized in Table 3. Murrinhpatha contributes to our typologies of negation in a number of ways, most notably in the existence of negative classifier predicates, which have not previously been described for any language in the typological literature (§2.3.3).

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Table 3: Murrinhpatha negative constructions and their functions

Negation strategy	Function
mere: negativeparticle	Standard negation, verbs marked with irrealis mood (§2.1)
	Negative imperatives (§2.2)
	Negating pronouns in equative and proper inclusion verbless clauses (§2.3.1)
	Negative attributive clauses (§2.3.2)
manangka: negative particle	Standard negation, verbs marked with irrealis mood (§2.1)
	Negative imperatives (§2.2)
	Negating nouns in equative and proper inclusion verbless clauses (§2.3.1)
	Negative attributive clauses (§2.3.2)
mere ‘NEG’ + *-nukun* ‘LEST’ suffix	Emphatic negation (§4.4)
	prohibition (§2.2)
pirda: interjection	‘Don’t!, Stop it!’ (§2.2)
negative classifier predicates	Negating existential, locative, possessive clauses (§2.3.3)
mere/ manangka ‘NEG’ + *ngarra* ‘what’	‘never, can’t’ (§3.2)
-nukun ‘LEST’	Encoding warnings, undesirable events, admonitives (§4.6)
wurda: negative word, ‘no’	Negative replies (§3.1)
	Negative predicate in verbless clauses (§2.6.1)
awu: negative word, ‘no’	Negative replies, negation of expectation (§3.1)

Abbreviations

1	first person	M	masculine
2	second person	NEG	negative
3	third person	NFUT	non-future
ANIM	animate	NSIB	non-siblings
APPL	applicative	O	object
ASSOC	associative	OBL	oblique
CLF	classifier	PC	paucal
DAT	dative	PL	plural
DM	discourse	PST	past
DU	dual	RCGN	recognitional demonstrative
EMPH	emphatic	REL	relativizer
EXCL	exclusive	RR	reflexive/reciprocal
EX	existential	S	subject
F	feminine	SG	singular
FUT	future	SIB	siblings
INCL	inclusive	TEMP	temporal
IPFV	imperfective	TOP	topic
IRR	irrealis	VEG	vegetable
LANG	language		
LOC	locative		

Classifier stems are glossed with an indicative semantic gloss where possible (provided in small caps) and a number which corresponds to the traditional description of these elements (e.g. Blythe et al. 2007). Examples are provided in morphemic transcription.

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Chapter 7

Negation in Ngarinyin

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Ngarinyin is an Australian Aboriginal language of the Worrorran family, belonging to the West Kimberley region. Its morphological expression of negation is very regular and demonstrates the close relation between negation and modality. Following Miestamo's (2025) typological questionnaire, the chapter sketches the basic properties of negation in Ngarinyin within and across clause boundaries and proposes several diachronic and semantic connections between negation markers and (other) particles, interjections and lexical expressions.

Keywords: Aboriginal languages (Ngarinyin); Worrorran; negation; modality.

1 The language

Ngarinyin (ISO: ung, Glottocode: ngar1284) is a Worrorran (non-Pama-Nyungan) language of the Kimberley region in North-Western Australia (Rumsey 1982; Spronck 2015.[1] Although once spoken in a dialect chain spanning most of the central Kimberley region, the language is currently critically endangered. However, efforts from Ngarinyin elders to record stories and conversations with missionaries and linguists since the 1930s have resulted in a rich archive of spoken narratives, personal histories and spontaneous speech. In collaboration with remaining speakers, younger generations are applying these materials in language teaching programmes in schools and in individual training.

[1] In earlier work I referred to the language as 'Ungarinyin', following the preference of language consultants involved and in order to distinguish the language name from the ethnonym for the Ngarinyin people. Here, I will use the label 'Ngarinyin' for both, in accordance with common practice in the literature and with contemporary Ngarinyin community practice.

Stef Spronck. 2025. Negation in Ngarinyin. In Matti Miestamo & Ljuba Veselinova (eds.), *Negation in the world's languages III: Papunesia, Australia, and the Americas*, 199–226. Berlin: Language Science Press. DOI: 10.5281/zenodo.18234073

Ngarinyin is mostly agglutinative, non-configurational and head-marking. The language is syntactically nominative-accusative, but does not distinguish morphological nominal or accusative case. It has a genitive and a dative case, alongside several locational cases, but most nominal morphology is optionally marked and frequently left out in discourse. Nouns agree with one of five noun classes, masculine, feminine, collective/plural and two neuter classes, roughly corresponding to locational and temporal concepts.

Verbal constructions either consist of a single verb root or constitute 'coverb' (also 'preverb') constructions, as also found elsewhere in the Kimberley (Schultze-Berndt 2000; McGregor 2002; Bowern 2010). In a coverb construction, a minimally inflecting preverbal lexeme is combined with a fully inflected auxiliary verb, chosen among a (mostly) closed set of about 15 verb roots, cf. coverb *kunin* 'cover.up' and verb y_2i 'be' in example (1a) below. Inflecting verbs carry pronominal object/subject prefixes and allow several other verbal prefixes (irrealis, future, imperative, 'identifiable' subject)[2], but are mostly suffixing (reflexive, tense, optative, dual/paucal, continuative aspect, direction, indirect object/oblique). Morpheme boundaries are often blurred by the assimilation of consonants and vowels, following strengthening and lenition rules as proposed by Rumsey (1982), indicated in the morphemic transcriptions below by subscript numbers 1 and 2 (for details, see Rumsey 1982: 17–24). Note that none of the subscript numbers appearing in the glosses of examples in this chapter have semantic significance.

Ngarinyin narratives and conversation predominantly consist of simple clauses and (in)subordinate clauses formed through one single general subordinating strategy (see §2.4), as has been reported for other Australian languages (cf. Hale 1976; Nordlinger 2006). Further complex clause marking is limited to a construction used in reported speech, thought and intention, cf. examples (18) and (19) (Spronck 2015) and some conditional clauses headed by the conjunction *wana* 'if'. The anaphoric 'temporal neuter' pronoun *di* 'then' can head clauses with an approximate conjunctive function, but Ngarinyin does not have explicitly marked coordinating constructions.

The language has been described in a dictionary that remains one of the largest of any Australian language (Coate & Elkin 1974) and two grammars, an early and mostly superseded description in Coate & Oates (1970) and a detailed description in Rumsey (1982). Spronck (2015) contains a more recent sketch grammar and observations about complex clauses, modality and discourse.

Examples cited in this chapter derive from four sources: original field recordings by the author (indicated with a label consisting of numbers and letters plus

[2] For a description of the identifiable subject marker, glossed here as DEF 'definite subject', see Spronck (2020).

a time stamp). In examples cited from this source, the label indicates the time and type of the recoding and the name of the language consultant (in case of, e.g. example (1a), the label 100903-25NGUN, 2:25-2:26 indicates that the recoding was made on 3 September 2010, that it was the 25th file on that day, that the speaker was 'NG', Pansy Nulgit, and that the recording consisted of Unelicited Narrative. The sentence is spoken between 2'25" and 2'26" in the file.) A fuller description of the labels and a list of recordings is given in Spronck (2015) and the corpus is archived at the Endangered Language Archive (ELAR). A second source of examples are transcripts made by missionary linguist Howard Coate between the 1930s and 1970s (Coate 1930–1971). These examples are followed by a label consisting of the letter C and a document number, a page number and a line number in the corpus. The full corpus of transcripts and matched sound recordings will be deposited at the archive of the Australian Institute of Aboriginal and Torres Strait Islander Studies in Canberra, once it is completed. A third source of examples are published sources, which are referenced in the customary way. Glosses and translations of these examples may have been modified, as indicated for the relevant examples. In the case of examples cited from the dictionary Coate & Elkin (1974), the relevant dictionary entry is provided as well (cf. 5). Finally, in cases where clear minimal pairs are lacking in the corpus, some examples have been constructed by the author (marked as '*constructed*'), as in (1b).

The discussion of negation in the following sections closely follows the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Ngarinyin standard negation, 'i.e. the basic way(s) a language has for negating declarative verbal main clauses' (Miestamo 2005: 1) is constructed by the preverbal particle *wa* 'not' and irrealis inflection on the verb, as in (1a). The positive version of this sentence, without negation particle and irrealis form is given in (1b).

(1) a. *Wa kuninba nginkingi.*
wa kunin-ba ngin-wa$_2$-y$_2$i-ngi
NEG cover.up-ITER 1SG-IRR-be-IRR.PST
'I did not cover up [my belongings].' (100903-25NGUN, 2:25-2:26)

b. *Kuninba* *nginyi.*
kunin-ba ngin-y_2i-nyi
cover.up-ITER 1SG-be-PST
'I covered up.' (*constructed*)

According to the typology in Miestamo (2013), the opposition between (1a and (1b), in which the irrealis marker doubles as a negative expression, classifies Ngarinyin as a language displaying asymmetric negation. Note that in (1a) the negation particle *wa* appears before the coverb *kunin* 'cover up', demonstrating that the coverb and the following inflecting verb form a single verb phrase. Apart from some clitics and, occasionally, modifiers, no non-verbal elements appear between the negation particle and the inflecting verb. As the minimal pair in (1a) and (1b) shows, in addition to the irrealis prefix, the negative/irrealis form can also be distinguished from the positive/realis form through some tense inflections, in this instance a dedicated irrealis/realis past tense. This only occurs in the verbal paradigms of a limited amount of verb roots.

The common standard negation construction in (1a) has two less frequent variants. The first type is shown in (2), where the negation particle *wa* takes the minimally different form *way*.

(2) *Karrabirri* *mindi* *way* *irrkungurli.*
karrabirri mindi way irr-w_2a_2-ngurli-ø
boomerang N_m-ANA NEG 3M.PL.OBJ:3PL.SBJ-IRR-give-PRS
'They do not give them (any) boomerangs.' (111015-02PNNKDDJEUD, 14:42-14:45)

Whether *way* is an older form of *wa*, an innovation or (dialectal) variation is unknown, but the form does not seem to imply any semantic contrast.[3]

Occasionally, the particle is left out entirely and negation is marked by the irrealis alone, as in (3) (also see 19).[4]

(3) *Darak* *anya* *nyingan* *darak* *nyinkayirri.*
darak a_1-a-nya nyingan darak nyin-w_2a_2-a-yirri
go.in 3M.SG-go-DIST 2SG go.in 2SG-IRR-go-CONT
'He enters, but you don't.' (lit. 'He enters, you are not entering.') (Coate 1966: 118, line 285)

[3] In (2), the variant may also be phonologically conditioned, although *way* is not restricted to assimilation contexts.

[4] For an example of the modal irrealis function of this marker, see (5) below and the brief discussion in §4.6.5.

Rather than acting as the primary marker of negation, *wa*(*y*) therefore mostly seems to serve to disambiguate negated verbs. In cases where such disambiguation is unnecessary, the irrealis suffices as negation marking: note that a likely reason why the negative marking is sufficiently implied in (3) is because of the contrast set up with the preceding positive clause. It should be noted, however, that the disambiguating function of the negation particle *wa* is often necessary, since the irrealis does express modal functions suggested by the name of the category. This can be illustrated by the insubordinated verbal construction in (4) in which the irrealis signals a hypothetical event.

(4)

Anjaku	*rimij*	*nginkenungarri*	*ngin*	*maji*	*buluk*
anja-ku	rimij	ngin-w_2a_2-y_2i-ø-nu-ngarri	ngin	maji	buluk
what-DAT	steal	1SG.SBJ-IRR-be-PRS-2SG.IO-SUB	1SG	MUST	look.around

ba	*wura*	*jadarn.*
ba_2-a	wura	jadarn
IMP-go	sideways	properly

'Why would I steal from you? You should look around properly.' (100903-24NGUN, 0:13-0:17)

The irrealis may also express epistemic modality, either by itself (as in 5a) or in combination with a range of modal particles that, like the negation particle, appear in preverbal position. The minimal pair in (5), adapted from the Ngarinyin dictionary Coate & Elkin (1974), shows the semantic contrast between the epistemic interpretation (without particle *wa*) and the negative interpretation (with particle *wa*) particularly clearly.

(5) a.

Ngoy	*angkuma.*
ngoy	a-w_2a_2-ma-ø
breathe	3M.SG-IRR-do-PRS

'He might breathe.'

b.

Wa	*ngoy*	*angkuma.*
wa	ngoy	a-w_2a_2-ma-ø
NEG	breathe	3M.SG-IRR-do-PRS

'He won't breathe.' (Coate & Elkin 1974: 427, entry: *ŋoj*)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The verbal marking in non-declarative negative clauses is the same as in declarative ones, i.e. all involve irrealis inflection. The expression of the preverbal particle is affected by illocution, however: in interrogative clauses, the question clitic *=ka* attaches to the negative particle *wa*, as in (6).

(6) *Waka laybiru kurrkengi?*
wa=ka laybiru kurrk-yi-ngi
NEG=Q know 2PL.IRR-be-PST:IRR
'Did you not know?' (Coate & Elkin 1974: 470, entry: *waga*)

In interrogative clauses, the ambiguity between a negative and a modal interpretation of the irrealis prefix holds to a similar degree as in declarative clauses, which explains the prevalent, although not absolute, occurrence of the preverbal negation marker in both. This ambiguity is neutralised in irrealis marked imperatives, however, which in my corpus do not occur with a preverbal *wa*, cf. (7).

(7) *Nyulwankurr kurrke.*
nyulwankurr kurrk-y$_1$i
humbug 2PL.IRR-be
'Don't bother me.' (100831-01NGUN, 2:52-2:54)

Plural imperatives, as in (7), are simply formed with the second plural irrealis prefix and no tense marking on the verb and the preverbal particle omitted.

Even though Ngarinyin has a dedicated imperative prefix for singular intransitive imperatives, as illustrated in the first clause in (8), expression with this prefix cannot be explicitly negated since imperatives cannot combine with an irrealis form. Instead, the second person irrealis prefix can be used, without tense inflection. Instead of the negative particle *wa*, several other preverbal particles are available, such as the modal particle *kajinka* 'cannot' in (8).

(8) *Mok buwa kajinka buk nyingkalu!*
mok bu-w$_1$a kajinka buk nyinga$_2$-w$_2$a$_2$-a-ø=lu
hide IMP-fall CANNOT come.out 2SG-IRR-go-PRS=PROX
'Hide, you cannot come out!' (110925-NGUN, 2:45-2:48)

Another particle that may take the preverbal position in negative imperatives, in the absence of the regular negation marker *wa*, is *burray*, cf. (9).

(9) *Burray dalu winjaw ngabun!*
burray dalu winja$_2$-a$_2$-w$_1$u ngabun
EMPH:NEG pour.out 3N$_W$.OBJ:2SG.SBJ-IRR-act.on water
'Don't pour out the water!' (Rumsey 1982: 168)

The particle *burray* in (9) highlights the negative imperative and is therefore glossed here as 'emphatic negation' marker, but it can (diachronically) be analysed as *burr-ay* '3PL-nothing'. Various inflected forms of *-ay* are found in Ngarinyin in negative roles beyond negative verbal clauses, as illustrated in the next sections.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Ngarinyin formally distinguishes two types of stative clauses, each with a separate marking strategy for negation. Stative clauses also appear to involve a third strategy that occurs both under verbal and non-verbal stative predication.

Verbal stative clauses, commonly formed with the verb *-y₁i-* 'be' or another stative intransitive verb, display the most frequent negation strategy in Ngarinyin, with the negation particle *wa* and irrealis inflection, as in (10), (11) and (12).[5]

(10) a. *Jukurl nyarri.*
jukurl nyarr-y_1i
happy 2PL-be
'We are happy.' (*constructed*)

b. *Wa jukurl nyerrke.*
wa jukurl nyerrka$_2$-y_1i
NEG happy 2PL.EXCL:IRR-be
'We are not happy.' (090812JENGPDg, 1:00-1:03, *edited*)

(11) a. *Deyj badmara.*
deyj barr-ma-ra
crack 3PL-do-PST
'They are cracked.' (*constructed*)

b. *Wa deyj bargumara.*
wa deyj barrka$_2$ma-ra
NEG crack 3PL:IRR-do-PST
'They are not cracked.' (C26:14)

[5]Impressionistically, the verbal strategy appears to be slightly more used for the first three types of stative clauses listed in the questionnaire, i.e. that of equation, proper inclusion and attribution, and the non-verbal one introduced below in locative predication, existential predication and possessive predication but the correlation is not absolute, as, e.g., the locative stative clause in (12) illustrates.

(12) a. *Ngabunda e.*
ngabun-ra a_1-y_1i
water-LOC 3M.SG-be
'He is in the water.' (*constructed*)

b. *Ngabunda angke.*
ngabun-ra angka$_2$-y_1i
water-LOC 3M.SG:IRR-be
'He is not in the water.' (*constructed*)

As is common in stative constructions cross-linguistically, 'be'-verbs are optional in most stative constructions in Ngarinyin and are frequently left out, as in (13a). For the standard marking of negation, however, the irrealis marker requires a verbal host and therefore a form of the verb -y_1*i*- 'be', or equivalent (13b).

(13) a. *Ngin rimijbarda.*
ngin rimij-barda
1SG steal-NMLZ
'I am a thief.' (100903-21NGUN, 3:10-3:11)

b. *Ngin rimijbarda ngangke.*
ngin rimijbarda ngangka$_2$-y_1i-Ø
1SG steal-NMLZ 1SG:IRR-be-PRS
'I am not a thief.' (*constructed*)

Instead of a verbal predicate, Ngarinyin may also use the dedicated negative predicate -*ay* 'no(thing)' in stative and possessive clauses, as is the case in other Australian languages (Veselinova 2013b: 135). Like nominal predicates in Ngarinyin more generally, this predicate takes a pronominal prefix that agrees with its head noun or pronominal subject and it can host nominal affixes, like case suffixes, but it does not display any verbal categories, as illustrated in B's response in (14).

(14) D: *Kanangkurr burrnangka jirri?*
kanangkurr burr-nangka jirri?
dog 3PL-GEN 3SG.ANA
'Does he have dogs?'

B: *Kanangkurr burraynangka.*
kanangkurr burr-ay-nangka
dog 3PL-nothing-GEN
'He has no dogs.' (C62:8:24–27)

The negative predicate *-ay* 'no(thing)' is quite versatile in Ngarinyin and seems to serve as the source construction for other, more crystallised forms in the language, like the particle *burray* illustrated in (9) and in §3.

In addition to the *wa* + irrealis marking strategy and the negative predicate *-ay* 'no(thing)', Ngarinyin appears to have (had) a third negation strategy, which is attested in stative constructions, simply formed by the question clitic *=ka*. This strategy is found both in non-verbal clauses, as in (15) and verbal stative constructions, as in the second clause in (16).

(15) *Bidibidika budmareri.*
bidibidi=ka burr-ma-ra-yirri
small=Q 3PL-do-PST-CONT
'They are not small, they were saying.' (Coate & Elkin 1974, entry: *bidibidi*)

(16) *Didi emularu maniyangarri embularuka malwa*
di-di Ø-emularu ma$_1$-aniyangarri Ø-embularu=ka malwa
N_m.ANA-RED 3M.SG-foot N_m-good 3M.SG-foot=Q be.bad
mingkengingarri.
mangk-y$_1$i-ngi-ngarri
3N_m:IRR-be-PST-SUB
'That's how his feet were good, his feet were not ugly.' (C6:6:70)

The usage of the question particle as in (15) and (16) is rare in my contemporary text corpus of Ngarinyin, but does occur occasionally and is also reported by Rumsey (1982).

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Ngarinyin has two clearly identifiable complex clause constructions: a general subordinate construction and a construction for attributing speech, thought and intentions. In both constructions the marking of negation is the same as in simple clauses.

The Ngarinyin subordinate construction is signalled by the verbal suffix *-ngarri* SUB and often appears to carry an adverbial function (translated as 'because' or 'when/while'), rather than signal clear dependency relation with a main clause, as illustrated in (17a). A similar structure has been reported for other Australian languages (Hale 1976; Nordlinger 2006). This construction also frequently occurs in discourse without an accompanying main clause, carrying a pragmatic backgrounding function instead of a syntactic one (cf. Mithun 2008). Negation in clauses marked with *-ngarri* is indicated with the negative particle *wa* and the irrealis prefix, like negation in other Ngarinyin verbal constructions, as in (17b).

(17) a. *jarl* *birrinngarri*
jarl burr-y$_1$i-n-ngarri
put.in.oven 3pl-be-prs-sub
'When/Because they baked it' (*constructed*)

b. *wa* *jarl* *burrkengarri*
wa jarl burrka$_2$-y$_1$i-ngarri
neg put.in.oven 3pl:irr-be-sub
'When/Because they don't bake it' (C55:10:177)

Like in simple clauses, the negative particle *wa* may be left out in subordinate constructions, which, therefore, do not appear to differ in any way from negation in non-subordinated clauses.

The same assessment applies to the second type of complex clause construction in Ngarinyin, illustrated in (18) and (19). This construction consists of a clause or subclausal element (representing an utterance, thought or intention), followed by an inflected form of the verb *-ma-* 'do', which in this context is commonly translated as 'say', 'think' or 'want' (for details of this construction, see Rumsey 1982: 157–166 and Spronck 2015).

(18) [[*Jinda* *waka* *angkulu*] *irrumara.*]
jinda wa=ka arrka$_2$-ngulu a$_1$-irra$_2$-ma-ra
m.prox neg=q 3sg.obj:1pl.incl.sbj:irr-give 3m.sg-def-do-pst
' "Why don't we give it to him?" he said.' (C14:2:14)

(19) [[*Jinda* *nguru* *nginke*] *ama.*]
jinda nguru ngin-w$_2$a$_2$-y$_2$i-ø a$_1$-ma-ø
m.prox listen 1sg-irr-be-prs 3m.sg-do-prs
'He doesn't want to listen and he shuts his ears' (lit. ' "I do not listen," he does/says) (090831AJMJSMPDm, 1:21-1:22)

In (18) and (19), clausal boundaries are indicated with square brackets and the examples illustrate negation in a verbal construction with and without the marker *wa*, respectively. Since the construction in (18) and (19) also allows nonverbal embedded (sub-)clauses, all negation types introduced above may occur in this grammatical context.

2.5 Negative lexicalisations

Negative lexicalisations in Ngarinyin appear to follow the most common semantic patterns Veselinova (2013a,b) describes, including concepts such as 'be unknown/not know' (as in 20), 'not understand', 'not present', 'not sacred', etc. As (20) and the contrasting positive example of 'know' in (21) illustrate, however, negative lexicalisations neither receive a specific form of marking, nor stand in a paradigmatic relation with their positive counterpart.

(20) *Nyinilimbani.*
nyin-ilimba-ni
2SG.OBJ:1SG.SBJ-not.know-PST
'I did not know you.' (Coate & Elkin 1974, entry: -*alimba*)

(21) A: *Jirringka laybiru nyindinangka?*
jirri-nga$_1$=ka laybiru nyinda$_2$-y$_1$i-nangka
m.ANA-only=Q know 2SG-be-3SG:OBL
'Do you know only him?'

B: *Jirringa laybiru nginangka.*
jirri-nga$_1$ laybiru ngi$_2$-y$_1$i-nangka
m.ANA-only know 1SG-be-3SG:OBL
'I know only him.'

In the absence of any specific formal marking of negative concepts as in (20), negative lexemes in Ngarinyin do not constitute a distinguishable class of verbs and their relevance for negation primarily emerges in translation. A relevant cultural observation in this respect is that licensed distribution of knowledge according to life stages and (kinship) affiliation is central to membership of the Ngarinyin community and absence or presence of an object or entity may have direct consequences on daily life. For example, not belonging to a certain social group, not talking to an avoidance relative or feeling the presence of deceased ancestors in a place or situation, all affect concrete decisions in the behaviour and actions of individuals, as they do in other Australian Indigenous societies (cf. Fleming 2014; Merlan 2020). Lexemes applying to such cases may require a negative translation in English, but are therefore not necessarily felt as less real or less part of the physical world for a Ngarinyin speaker, which might explain that these concepts do not form a dedicated lexical class.

The only other lexicogrammatical domain closely related to negation in Ngarinyin is that of modality, with which negation shares its main coding features.

For example in (22) the irrealis receives a modal interpretation, signalled by the particle *kajinka* 'cannot', appearing in the same slot as the preverbal negation particle *wa*.

(22) *Kajinka ni wungkuminda.*
kajinka ni wunga$_2$-w$_2$a$_2$-minda-ø
CANNOT think 3N$_W$.OBJ:3SG.SBJ-IRR-take-PRS
'He can't think about it.' (100809-01NGUN, 3:01-3:03, *elicited*)

Given the similarities between the expression of modality and negation in Ngarinyin and other Worrorran languages, some authors have questioned whether negation in these languages actually constitutes a separate construction class, or, e.g., rather forms a subtype of modality. I will briefly address this discussion in §4.6.5.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

As the brief dialogue in (21) illustrates, positive replies may be formed in Ngarinyin by echoing a turn of the addressee. Alternatively, speakers may use the interjection *yow* 'yes' to confirm a positive reply (as in 25 below). The negative counterpart of these strategies is constructed in a parallel fashion: a speaker may deny a proposition simply with a negative clause, or by using the interjection *burray* 'no', as in (23).

(23) NG: *Wa warda wanyirrko ngurr*
wa warda wanyirr-w$_2$a$_2$-w$_1$u ngurr
NEG like 3N$_W$.OBJ:1PL.EXCL.SBJ-IRR-act.on hit

nyijilanngarri wungay.
nyirr-iy-y$_1$ila-n-ngarri wungay
3F.SG.OBJ:3PL.SBJ-FUT-hold-PRS-SUB woman

warda wunjon ngurrbangarri?
warda wunja$_2$-w$_1$u-n ngurr-ba-ngarri?
like 3N$_W$.OBJ:2SG.SBJ-act.on-PRS hit-ITER-SUB
'We don't like it when they hit her. Do you like hitting?'

JE: *Wije.*
wije
different
'Absolutely not.'

NG: *Burray.*
burray
no
'No.'

JE: *Burray.*
burray
no
'No.' (090812JENGPDi, 2:06-2:14)

The second turn in (23), by speaker JE, uses the interjection *wije* 'different', which is here interpreted as 'absolutely not'. This use of *wije* 'different' appears not to be dialectal, however, the interjection *burray* 'no', which is a negative reply to the question *warda wunjon ngurrbangarri* 'do you like hitting?', is frequently used in this function. The interjection likely derives from the inflected form *burr-ay* '3PL-no' and, as Veselinova (2013b) points out, the use of negative existentials is quite common cross-linguistically. The interjection *burray* 'no' in (23) is a fully conventionalised, non-variable form, rather than an inflected negative existential predicate (hence the different gloss) and, as illustrated in §3.2 also has additional quantifying functions.

In addition to *burray* 'no', which has the positive equivalent *yow* 'yes', Ngarinyin also has an interjection that is not part of a positive-negative pair, but exclusively constitutes a negative strategy: *aka* 'not so'. This interjection denies an expectation raised in the preceding clause, often in interaction, as in (24).

(24) Describing a picture from the Family Problems Picture Task (San Roque et al. 2012) in which two men offer the protagonist beer and he refuses:

Koj	*ba*	*budmanangka*
koj	ba$_2$-a	burr-ma-nangka
drink	IMP-go	3PL-do-3SG.OBJ

' -"Come drink," they say.'

aka	*wa*	*warda*	*wangka*	*kokoj*	*kudirri*
aka	wa	warda	wangka$_2$-(r)a	ko-koj	kurr-y$_2$i-irri
NOT.SO	NEG	like	3N$_W$.OBJ:1SG.SBJ:IRR-go.to	RED-drink	2PL-be-DU

amarndirri	*jinda.*
a$_1$-ma-rndu-rri	jinda
3M.SG-do-3PL.IO-DU	M.PROX

'-"No I don't like it. You two can drink," he tells them two.' (090812JENGPDi, 1:10-1:17)

In the situation described in the narrative fragment in (24) the drinkers (‘they’) invite the protagonist to join them for a beer, leading to the socially desirable response to accept, which is rejected by the particle *aka* ‘not so’. In the corpus, *aka* ‘not so’ exclusively follows positive statements, but it may introduce both negative elaborating clauses (as in 24) and positive ones (25):

(25) *Yow budmara kanda birriwangilu Bungkunikurdeyali*
yow burr-ma-ra kanda birriwa$_2$-a-ngi-lu Bungkuni-kurde-yali
yes 3PL-do-PST N$_w$.ANA 3PL:DEF-go-OPT-PROX Bungkuni-COM-EMPH
jina budmara aka Bungkuni jirri joli awanya.
jina burr-ma-ra aka Bungkuni jirri joli a$_1$-w$_1$a$_1$-nya
m.PROX 3PL-do-PST NOT.SO Bungkuni m.ANA return 3M.SG-fall-DIST
‘ “Yes,” they said here, “let them come with this Bungkuni as well,” they said. “No, Bungkuni can return”. ’ (C22:50–51)

As these examples illustrate, *aka* ‘not so’ is particularly well suited for argumentative dialogue contexts and is often found at the left boundary of reported speech constructions in narratives.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Ngarinyin has two negative expressions used as independent pronouns and adnominal quantifiers: *malyan* ‘no’, ‘nothing’ and *burray* ‘no’, ‘nothing, ‘nobody’.

In the brief dialogue in (26) the speakers contemplate the loss of traditional knowledge and JE’s first turn shows *malyan* ‘nothing’ both as part of the predicative construction ‘there is nothing’ and the independent expression ‘nothing’, ‘none’. The word *burray* in PN’s turn is interpretable either as a negative reply ‘no’, as introduced in the previous section, or the independent pronoun ‘none’, ‘nothing’.

(26) JE: *Kanangkan malyan… wa lindiba burrkawi malyan.*
kanangkan malyan… wa lindij-ba burrka$_2$-w$_1$u-yi malyan
now nothing NEG flake-ITER 3PL:IRR-act.on-PST nothing
‘Nowadays (there is) nothing, they didn’t make spearheads, none.’

PN: *Burray wa layburru burrke.*
burray wa layburru burrka$_2$-y$_2$i-ø
nothing, NEG know 3PL:IRR-be-PRS
‘Nothing, they don’t know how.’

JE: *Way layburru burrke.*
way layburru burrka$_2$-y$_2$i-ø
NEG know 3PL:IRR-be-PRS
'They don't know.' (11101502-PNNKDDJEUD, 4:36-4:43)

While *malyan* 'no', 'nothing' appears to be exclusively used for objects, *burray* 'no, nothing, nobody' can also refer to human beings, either as an independent pronoun or as a modifier. Even in the latter function it does not agree with the noun it modifies, however, as illustrated in (27).

(27) *Wa mara bundawi dubalangarri burray yila.*
wa mara bunda$_2$-y$_2$i-ø dubalangarri burray yila
NEG see 3PL.OBJ:3PL.SBJ:IRR-be-PRS red no child
'They do not see any light-skinned ones, no children.' (110925-05NGUN, 1:36-1:37)

An alternative interpretation of the phrase *burray yila* 'no children' in (27) could be a predicative translation like 'there are none, children', in which case *burray* may be analysed as the predicative construction *burr-ay* '3PL-no'. In contemporary Ngarinyin, however, *burray*, both in its attributive and pronominal function, does not appear in any other inflectional form, so should therefore best be treated as a single, non-segmented morpheme.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Ngarinyin does not have a common strategy for deriving negative nouns or modifiers, but can approximate such derivations through the negative use of the question clitic (as in 15), or, more commonly, through collocations with the form -*aynangka* 'not having', as in (14).

An example in which the suffix -*nangka*, which may signal both genitive case and nominalisation, occurs in both functions together with the predicate -*ay* 'no' is shown in (28).

(28) *Munduwarri aynangkanangka.*
munduwarri a$_1$-ay-nangka-nangka
louse 3M.SG-no-GEN-NMLZ
'He has no lice.' (lit. '(He is) a person not having lice') (100722-04NGUS, 1:49-1:51)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Where negation is marked with a verb inflection in Ngarinyin, it necessarily scopes over the entire clause. Or, at least, the language does not allow to formally distinguish clausal negation from negation that only scopes over a verb construction. Hence, both translations in (29) are equally appropriate.

(29) *Yali* *wa* *banyirrkumerernnyirri.*
yali wa ba-nyirrka$_2$-mara-y$_1$i-nyirri
kangaroo NEG 3PL.OBJ-1PL.EXCL.SBJ:IRR-take-IRR.PST-DU
'We did not catch (any) kangaroos.' / 'We caught no kangaroos.' (100722-08NGUS, 3:58-4:00)

As far as I am aware, speakers do not differentiate between these scope interpretations, nor do they do so through prosodic means. Highlighting narrow negative scope is of course possible under contrastive negation and in verbless clauses, in which negative verbal predicates and the negation marking question clitic scope over their associated head noun.

4.2 Negative polarity

No negative polarity items have been found in Ngarinyin.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Elements within the scope of the negative inflection (or a negative modifier) do not receive any special marking, such as a case form. This observation fits with the use of case in Ngarinyin more generally: although the language has a set of semantic cases to express relational and locational meanings, these are not conditioned by their syntactic environment and their use is always optional (cf. Spronck 2015: 19–25).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

An emphatic suffix that exclusively attaches to verbs is -*yali* EMPH. It may occur on negative verbs as well, thereby reinforcing the negative meaning expressed, as illustrated in (30).

(30)

Wa	*durr*	*irrkumareyali*	*ru-di*
wa	durr	irrka$_2$-mara-ø-yali	ru-di
NEG	strike	3M.SG.OBJ:1PL.INCL.SBJ:IRR-do-PRS-EMPH	only-N$_W$.ANA

nangkurr	*irrwini.*
nangkurr	irr-w$_1$u$_1$-ni
miss	3M.SG.OBJ:1PL.INCL.SBJ-act.on-PST

'We do not hit him at all, we completely missed him.' (C58:2:37-38)[6]

The most common intensifier in Ngarinyin is the suffix *-nga* 'only', 'just', which attaches to (pro)nominal elements. It frequently combines with *malyan* 'no', 'nothing' to form *malyannga* 'nothing at all'.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Ngarinyin discourse does not often involve explicit coordination, but negative meanings can be interpreted across clauses, as in the case of the example of contrastive negation in (31).

(31)

Mangarri	*wa*	*minjarl*	*burrkume*	*me*	*wa*	*minjarl*
mangarri	wa	minjarl	burrka$_2$-ma-y$_1$i	me	wa	minjarl
food	NEG	eat	3PL:IRR-do-IRR:PST	food	NEG	eat

burkume,	*burray,*	*nalijanga.*
burrka$_2$-ma-y$_1$i,	burray,	nalija-nga
3PL:IRR-do-IRR:PST	no	tea-only

'They did not eat one type of food or another type of food. Nothing, only tea.' (111013-01NGUN: 2:13-2:16)

In this example, the positive phrase *nalijanga* 'only tea' contrasts with the preceding negative clauses *mangarri/me wa minjarl burrkume* 'he did not eat food'.[7] In my analysis, this constitutes a pragmatic contrast, rather than a distinct syntactic construction.

Contrastive negation is also exemplified in (3), repeated for convenience below as (32), which has the same structure as standard clausal negation elsewhere, but the presence of the free pronoun, which is often omitted in Ngarinyin, results from the pragmatic prominence of the subject, *nyingan darak nyinkayirri* 'you do not enter (he does)'.

[6]The difference in tense between these clauses may be an error, but such changes are also common in mythological narratives, in which the narrator frequently alternates between presenting the events as part of an eternal here-and-now and a past, ancestral world.

[7]For further discussion of this construction, see example (34).

(32) *Darak anya nyingan darak nyinkayirri.*
darak a_1-a-nya nyingan darak nyin-w_2a_2-a-yirri
go.in 3M.SG-go-DIST 2SG go.in 2SG-IRR-go-CONT
'He enters, but you don't.' (lit. 'He enters, you are not entering.') (Coate 1966: 118, line 285)

These examples show that, even though contrastive negation does not form a coherent syntactic construction, it may affect the expression of various elements in the clause.

In complex clauses, a negated main clause scopes over the subordinated clause, as in (33)

(33) Commenting on a picture from the Family Problems Picture Task (San Roque et al. 2012).
Wa wardawa nyirrko budmangarri jinda picture.
wa warda-wa nyirr-w_2a_2-w_1u bud-ma-ø-ngarri jinda picture
NEG like-ITER 1PL.EXCL-IRR-act.on 3PL-do-PRS-SUB M.PROX picture
'We don't like it when they do as in this picture.' (090812JENGPDi, 1:24-1:27)

Ngarinyin does not explicitly mark coordinated clauses, but direct apposition as in (34) may be interpreted as coordination. Since negative inflection occurs on every finite verb, negation marking in both 'coordinated' and subordinated sentences is marked on each negated clause.

(34) *Mangarri wa minjarl burrkume me wa minjarl*
mangarri wa minjarl burrka_2-ma-y_1i me wa minjarl
food NEG eat 3PL:IRR-do-IRR:PST food NEG eat
burkume.
burrka_2-ma-y_1i
3PL:IRR-do-IRR:PST
'They did not eat one type of food or another type of food.'
(111013-01NGUN: 2:13-2:15)[8]

As these examples illustrate, negation marking in Ngarinyin complex clauses does not differ from marking in simple clauses.

[8] The nouns *mangarri* and *me* both denote (vegetable) food, so the most likely interpretation of this sentence is that the two clauses re-enforce each other to express 'They did not eat any type of food'. Also see example (31).

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Ngarinyin does not display negative transport, i.e. the negative interpretation of an embedded clause on the basis of negation in a matrix clause (e.g. 'I don't think that it will rain today' for 'I think that it will not rain today').

Two syntactic factors preclude this phenomenon from happening in the language: the absence of a construction that explicitly marks thought as opposed to speech (Spronck 2015: 97) and the lack of a common strategy to embed propositions, i.e. a class of propositional attitude constructions (Spronck 2015: 133).

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

I am not aware of any occurrences of expletive negation in Ngarinyin, but the corpus contains instances of the use of *waka* NEG=Q in tag questions. Although (35) has been taken from a historical corpus and the example probably dates from the 1960s, English was already widespread in the Ngarinyin community at the time, so it is possible that this particular use represents an English calque.

(35) *Aw ru dambun wungunjura waringarri waka?*
aw ru dambun wa$_1$-ungunja-ra waringarri waka
INJ only place n$_w$-where-LOC East NEG=Q
'Ah, only the place is somewhere East, isn't it?' (C62:84)

4.6.3 Phasal polarity

Phasal polarity is not marked differently than negation in general, with an added temporal adverb. Compare the following example from (Coate & Oates 1970, orthography updated to the Ngarinyin spelling used in the rest of this chapter).

(36) *di irr-wilje-ni, wada a-minda-ni jinda wali wa*
then 3OBJ:3PL.SBJ-spear-PST cry.out 3M.SG-take-PST spear while NEG
laybiru burrk-e-ngi-nangka malngarri
know 3PL.IRR-be-PST-3SG.OBJ white
'He cried out when he was being speared, for as yet they didn't know the white man' (Coate & Oates 1970: 82)

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations: re-cycling *wa*

Both the preverbal negation particle and the inflectional negation marker (irrealis), which Rumsey (1982) transcribes as w_2a_2, have the same underlying phonological form. Even the question clitic =*ka*, which is also used to mark (non-verbal) negation (as in 15), may be derived from /wa/, since in Rumsey's (1982) notation -w_2 may 'strengthen' to a velar nasal. This leads to the intriguing possibility that the three main elements involved in the marking of negation in Ngarinyin have all derived from the same diachronic source. Speculatively, this could have taken the form of a 'Jespersen (re)cycling' process (Jespersen 1917; Dahl 1979), whereby, e.g., the negation particle could have developed into an inflectional element and clitic through several steps of grammaticalisation.

- Hypothesis: Jespersen (re)cycling of w_2a
  irrealis inflection = question clitic (Rumsey 1982: 128) = negation particle?

While this scenario would make it easier to explain why the question clitic =*ka* Q is part of the inventory of negation markers in Ngarinyin as well, it is not supported by solid evidence in the absence of sufficient long term historical data.

Unfortunately, comparative data within the Worrorran language family (McGregor & Rumsey 2009) also does not offer further clues for either confirming or rejecting the hypothesis either since the pattern of similarity between the preverbal particle and the inflectional marking of negation seems to be unique to Ngarinyin.

In one of the closest neighbours of Ngarinyin, Worrorra (ISO: wro, Glottocode: worr1237), the negation particle has a similar form as in Ngarinyin but the verbal inflection is not cognate, cf. (37).

(37) Worrorra (Worrorran, Kimberley region)
Waa jukurljukurl banganineerri.
waa jukurl-jukurl ba-nga=ni-n-nu-eerri
not happy-happy CNTE-1=be-NPST-2DAT-PROG
'I'm not happy to see you.' (Clendon 2014: 195)

In Wunambal, which McGregor & Rumsey (2009) identify as another branch of the Worrorran family, the preverbal particle resembles the negation particle of Worrorra's Eastern neighbour, the unrelated language Kija, rather than the negation particle of Worrorra and Ngarinyin.

(38) Wunambal (Worrorran, Kimberley region)
Nguwa minja nyaanama.
nguwa minja nyaa-na=ma
NEG eat 1EXCL:PL-NEG=do
'We don't eat (it).' (Carr 2000: 184, cf. Kija (Jarrakan) *nguwan* NEG)

Even though the functions of irrealis and negation marking are shared by the inflectional elements in all three languages of the family, the Worrorra and Wunambal inflections do not appear to be cognate with the Ngarinyin one.

Also in the Worrorra dialect Unggumi (39) and the Wunambal dialect Gambera (40) negation marking appears to have a different origin. The preverbal particle differs from Ngarinyin in both languages.

(39) Unggumi (Worrorran, Kimberley region)
Nyindi mudan jay bungunu.
nyindi mudan jay bu-ngu-nu
2SG NEG laugh NEG?-2SG-do?
'You are not laughing.' (Coate1676B, 9:45–9:47, *tentative gloss*)

(40) Gambera (Worrorran, Kimberley region)
Gabo nguwa buniyangi.
gabo nguwa bu-ni-ya-ngi
no NEG 3SG-NEG-go-PST
'No, he did not go.' (Coate1675B, 47:01–47:03, *tentative gloss*)

Only in Worrorra does the preverbal particle seem cognate, whereas the form of the inflectional marker differs from that of Ngarinyin in all of its closest relatives. These observations may indeed support a scenario in which negation marking in Ngarinyin has undergone a process that is rather idiosyncratic within the Worrorran family and involves the particle *wa*, but none of the clues introduced here constitute definitive evidence.

4.6.5 Negation and modality

Across the Worrorran language family, epistemic modal marking and negation show strong similarities, as is reflected in the glossing of inflectional elements involved in negation in these languages. In Worrorra, Clendon (2014) glosses the inflection on negative verbs (and epistemic modals) as 'counterfactual', suggesting that negation falls within the class of modal structures. Carr (2000), noting a similar overlap between negative and epistemic meanings in Wunambal decides to gloss the inflectional element involved in both as 'negation', given the relative frequency of the negative function.

The decision between these glosses is somewhat arbitrary: in all cases the inflectional element that in Ngarinyin I have glossed as 'irrealis', following Rumsey (1982), reflects an event that does/did *not occur in the real world.* This core meaning can be brought out particularly poignantly in Ngarinyin by considering the modal particles that do and do not combine with irrealis inflection. The particles that are shaded grey in Table 1 all combine with the irrealis, like the negation marker. The particles without colouring combine with the regular indicative.[9]

Table 1: The Ngarinyin mood markers ordered by modal meaning and polarity

	negative	neutral	positive
epistemic	*kajinka* 'cannot'		*biyarra* 'can'
		marri 'would' =*karra* 'maybe'	
neutral	*wa* 'not' *burray* 'no', 'not'		
deontic	*menya* 'should not (have)'		*biya* 'ought to'
		maji 'should' $\boxed{yaku}$ 'try'	

Each of the particles that are not restricted to irrealis constructions indicate modal meanings about events that either do occur or need to occur, according to the attitude indexed by the modal, whereas those particles combining with irrealis inflection exclusively reflect non-occurring or hypothetical events. The non-irrealis particles *marri* 'would' and *maji* 'should' signal events that customarily occur or *have to* occur, events with the irrealis particles *kajinka* 'cannot', *burray* 'not' and *wa* 'not' do not occur and the irrealis particles *biyarra* 'can' and *biya* 'ought (to have)', indicate that an event is held to be merely possible or should have occurred (but didn't), respectively. (The clitic =*karra* 'maybe' is

[9]The one particle shown in a box in the table, $\boxed{yaku}$ 'try', has a different mood restriction: it only combines with future tense or the imperative. For further exemplification of each of these markers, see Spronck (2015).

included for completeness but is not a preverbal particle and does therefore not condition irrealis mood.)

Given these distributions, the one apparent outlier seems to be *menya* 'should not (have)', which expresses a negative meaning but does not combine with the irrealis. For a closer inspection of the semantics of this particle, consider (41).

(41)
Bala	*wungo*	*amara*	*arri*	*ngawa*	*menyi*
bala	wunga$_1$-w$_1$u-ø	a$_1$-ma-ra	arri	ngawa	menya
spread	3N$_W$.OBJ:1SG.SBJ-act.on-FUT	3M.SG-do-PST	about	rain	alas

merr	*amanga.*
merr	a$_1$-ma-nga
get.near	3M.SG.OBJ:3SG.SBJ-take-PST

'He wanted to spread it out, but when there was rain it got close to him, although it shouldn't have.' (Coate 1970: 2, *retranscribed and glosses added*)

The situation described in (41) makes it clear that the deontic meaning 'should not' applies to an event the speaker would like not to have occurred, *but it did*. For this reason, I have glossed the particle as 'alas' in (41); it reflects an event that is presented as having taken place in the real world and therefore belongs with the non-irrealis particles. Although the status of the irrealis as a modal category appears to be varied and controversial in some languages (Mithun 1995), in Ngarinyin irrealis marking seems to be highly consistent: the category applies to events that are portrayed as not actually occurring. This naturally includes negated events.

5 Summary

In summary, Ngarinyin has a small number of highly regular strategies for marking negation: both clauses and non-verbal phrases can be negated, although the division between the two is not always fully transparent.

As a general characterisation of the semantics of negation in Ngarinyin, I would suggest that it seems to be concerned with three separate semantic dimensions.

First, and most prominently, the relation between (verbally marked) negation and modality appears to hinge on a core meaning of the inflection involved in both categories: the prefix analysed as 'irrealis' signals that the event denoted by a verb so marked should not be interpreted as taking place in the actual world. If one would like to characterise this meaning as a pole of a scale it would be a scale of reality vs. irreality, as is further demonstrated by the relation between negative meanings, irreality and modality illustrated in §4.6.5 below.

Second, the non-verbal strategy does not receive irrealis marking and is either signalled with the non-verbal predicate *-ay* 'no, none' or the question clitic *=ka*, attaching to the negated referent. The main semantic distinction made with these strategies could perhaps be qualified as an opposition between absence and presence.

Finally, in the realm of discourse and argumentative dialogue, the interjection *aka* 'not so' (as in 24) carries a function that could be qualified as 'disalignment' (Du Bois 2007), contradicting the interlocutor's expectations or an implicature raised by a sentence. The particle *burray* 'no', which may both occur as a preverbal negation particle and an interjection, connects 'discourse' negation with clausal negation *and* non-verbal negation, demonstrating that the same lexical element can operate in all three negation types in Ngarinyin.

The marking strategies identified in this chapter are summarised in Table 2, shown here along with their specific functions.

Table 2: Summary of negation marking in Ngarinyin

marking	negation type
wa NEG + IRR-	any type of clausal negation
IRR-	clausal negation (but potentially ambiguous)
=ka Q (+ IRR-)	sub-clausal or non-verbal negation
-ay 'nothing'	negative predication
burray 'no', 'nothing', 'nobody'	negative particle and interjection
aka 'not so'	negative interjection
malyan 'no', 'nothing'	negative pronoun

This chapter illustrated the various constructions and strategies in which these markers and inflections appear and noted that negation in Ngarinyin is highly consistent. It also demonstrates close interaction with the semantic (and morphological) domain of modality.

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Abbreviations

1	first person
2	second person
3	third person
ANA	anaphoric (pronoun)
CNTE	counterfactual
COM	comitative
CONT	continuative
DAT	dative
DEF	definite subject
DIST	distal
DU	dual
EMPH	emphatic
EXCL	exclusive
F	feminine
FUT	future
GEN	genitive
IMP	imperative
INCL	inclusive
INJ	interjection
IO	indirect object suffix
IRR	irrealis
ITER	iterative
LOC	locative
M	masculine
N_{m}	m-class neuter gender (location)
NPST	non-past
N_{w}	w-class neuter gender (time)
NEG	negation
NMLZ	nominaliser
OBJ	object prefix
OBL	oblique
OPT	optative
PL	plural
PRS	present
PROG	progressive
PROX	proximal
PST	past
Q	question particle
RED	reduplication
SBJ	subject prefix
SG	singular
SUB	subordinate

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Chapter 8

Negation in Nakoda

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This chapter is a description and analysis of clausal and non-clausal negation in Nakoda, a moribund Siouan language also known as Assiniboine. In Nakoda the enclitics *=šį* and *=ge(n)* negate verbs, adverbs, modality particles, and predicative pronouns, while the suffix *-ni* negates indefinite pronouns and other quantifiers. Conjunctions, postpositions, and nouns (when they are not derived into a stative verb through zero conversion) cannot be negated. The chapter also deals with different topics including the narrow scope of negation, how to reinforce negation, negation in coordination and complex clauses, as well as negative transport. Lastly, synchronic data on negation in Nakoda also help to shed light on the historical development of Proto-Siouan negator **aši* and adversative **-šV* in daughter languages.

Keywords: negation, Nakoda, typology, Siouan, diachrony.

1 The language

The Nakoda or Nakota language (ISO: asb, Glottocode: assi1247) – also known as Assiniboine – is a Siouan language of the Mississippi Valley Siouan branch spoken in southern Saskatchewan (Canada) and northern Montana (USA). Closely related languages of the Dakotan branch includes Dakota, Lakota and Stoney. Although Nakoda is relatively homogeneous, there are two subdialects which reflect minor lexical and phonological differences between the western communities (i.e. Carry The Kettle, Mosquito / Grizzly Bear Head / Leanman, Canada; Fort Belknap, USA) and the eastern communities (i.e. Pheasant Rump, White Bear, Ocean Man, Canada; Fort Peck, USA) (Parks & DeMallie 1992 and Collette 2022).

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Nakoda is now seriously endangered and has less than 100 speakers in Montana and Saskatchewan combined. While the language is more viable in Montana where there are still some fluent speakers and a good deal of advanced learners, in Canada the number of fluent speakers does not amount to more than ten, but efforts are being made to teach the language at the local and university levels. The situation can be summarized as such: 1) All competent speakers of Nakoda (seventy years old or more) are bilingual in English and some have rudiments of Dakota, and Plains Cree;[1] 2) While Nakoda has diminished communicative viability (e.g. greetings, simple commands), it is nevertheless widely used by some elderly speakers in ceremonies, greetings, songs and prayers, and constitutes the backbone of Nakoda culture and ethnic identity.

Some typological features of Nakoda are provided here (based on Cumberland 2005: viii–ix; Ullrich 2018: 40). Nakoda is a left-branching, head-marking, and strictly verb final language (SOV), with the exception of post-verbal enclitics. It has no morphological marking of tense, no definite article and no nominal case markers. Core arguments are indexed by means of affixes on the verb, and can optionally be expressed by NPs. Nakoda is a polysynthetic language with an active/stative indexing system (or split intransitivity) that surfaces in the 1st and 2nd persons only; active verbs take volitional agent marking (e.g. *-wa-* 'I'; *-ma-* 'me'), while stative verbs take non-volitional patient marking (*-ma-* 'I'). 3rd person singular is not overtly marked, while 3rd person plural is marked for animate agent (*=bi*) or animate patient (*-wį̨ca-*). The inflectional morphology for pronominal indexes is prefixal or infixal, while negation, aspects and modalities, and sentence types (declarative, interrogative, imperative) are encoded by verbal enclitics and post-verbal particles.

In this paper I use data from my fieldwork on the Western dialect spoken in Carry The Kettle, textual examples drawn from a series of texts collected in Fort Belknap (Parks et al. 2012a,b) as well as Cumberland's (2005) reference grammar. Unreferenced examples stem from my fieldwork. The partly phonemic spelling system used in this chapter is known as the "Fort Belknap orthography"[2] and is

[1]In the late 19th and early 20th century, Nakoda was still the dominant language in many Canadian reservations but began to lose ground in favor of Plains Cree or English. McLeod (2000: 447) reports, for example, that in Mosquito/Grizzly Bear's Head/Leanman Reserve (located in the Battleford area in Saskatchewan), the migration of three Plains Cree women from the nearby Red Pheasant Reserve at the turn of the 20th century weakened Nakoda language transmission since the children of these mixed couples learned Plains Cree from their mother despite the fact that their fathers spoke Nakoda.

[2]The Fort Belknap spelling system uses the American Phonetic Alphabet like the subscript hook ̨ for nasal vowels, *c* for [ʧʰ], *š* for [ʃ], *ž* for [ʒ], *ȟ* for [x], *ğ* for [ɣ] and the apostrophe ' for the glottal stop [ʔ] and the ejective consonants.

the one actually in use in many Nakoda communities. Data collection followed the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]).

2 Clausal negation

In this section I analyse five types of clausal negations: standard negation (§2.1), negation in non-declaratives clauses (§2.2), negation in stative clauses (§2.3), negation in non-main clauses (§2.4), and negative lexicalization (§2.5).

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Negative enclitic *=šį*

In Nakoda a declarative verbal clause is negated with one of two post-verbal enclitics *=šį* or *=gen*. The choice between the enclitics is motivated by pragmatic factors as shown below. There are no structural differences (or constructional asymmetry) in simple declarative clauses between a negative and the corresponding affirmative, as shown in (1).

(1) a. *Mağážu no.*
rain MALE.DECL
'It is raining.'

b. *Mağážu=šį no.*
rain=NEG MALE.DECL
'It is not raining.'

Table 1 displays the post-verbal position template for enclitics (1–8) and particles (9–11) (adapted from Cumberland 2005: 310).[3] An example of a verb that shows three enclitics and a male declarative particle is: *ecų́=bį*$_3$*=kte*$_6$*=šį*$_7$ *no*$_{11}$ 'they will not do it'.

[3]My placement of enclitics and particles differs from that of Cumberland (2005: 310). First, the enclitics *=ȟ*, *=ȟtįyą*, *=š*, and *=s* have been included since they occur after the negator *=šį* so an extra slot has been inserted. Second, *hųštá* 'hearsay' (originally of position 11) can be assigned to position 10 since both the gender-neutral declarative *c* and the female declarative ' can occur after *hųštá*. There is no evidence to slot *c* 'declarative' in its own terminal position and on semantic grounds it should occur in position 11 with the rest of the sentence type particles.

Table 1: Template positions for post-verbal enclitics and particles

STEM	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11
	=hą 'continuative aspect'	*=:ga* 'durative aspect'	*=bi* '3PL animate'	*=na* 'diminutive'	*=s'a* 'habitual aspect'	*=kta* 'potential mood' (POT)	*=šį* *=gen* 'negation'	*=ȟ* 'intensifier, focus' *=ȟtįyą* 'augmentative, emphasizer' focus' *=š* 'adversative' focus' *=s* 'hortative'	*jé'e* 'always'	*cá,* *céyaga* *otí'įga* 'deontic, epistemic modals' focus' *hųštá* 'hearsay'	*he* 'interrogative' focus' *no* 'declarative (male)' focus' *c* 'declarative' focus' *'* 'declarative (female)' focus' *wo* 'imperative SG (male)'

The ordering of position 2, 3, and 5 enclitics compared to that of the negative enclitic *=šį* (position 7) is shown in the following examples (2) and (3).

(2) *Ná=bį=kte=šį.*
2sbj.go.there=pl=pot=neg
'You all will not go there.'[4]

(3) *(...) ž-e-Ø-Ø-yá=:ga=bi=šį*
that-dst-3p-3a-say=dur=pl=neg
'(...) they haven't been saying that'[5] (Parks et al. 2012b: 33)

Textual examples as well as elicited data contain no paradigmatic asymmetry since the negative *=šį* occurs with TAM (tense-aspect-mood) enclitics of all positions, as well as with person/number, and the diminutive. However, the data reveal some templatic re-ordering when the negative *=šį*$_7$ co-occurs with the aspectual enclitics *=hą*$_1$ 'continuative aspect' (4), and *=s'a*$_5$ 'habitual aspect' (5a vs 5b). The enclitic *=bi*$_3$ '3^{rd} animate plural' also triggers re-ordering[6]

(4) *Duwé į-Ø-Ø-knįge=šį*$_7$*=hą*$_1$*.*
people dst-3p-3a-mind=neg=cont
'People didn't mind about her.'

(5) a. *Dóhą-ni Ø-basí=s'e*$_5$*=šį*$_7$*.*
when-neg 3sbj-drive=hab=neg
'She never drives.' (Cumberland 2005: 320)

b. *Wįcą́=bi wa-'á'i'-Ø-a=bi*$_3$*=šį*$_7$*=s'a*$_5$*.*
man=pl indf-gossip-3sbj-dst=pl=neg=hab
'Men don't usually gossip.'

[4]In this article I indicate regressive phonetic nasalization, so an enclitic like *=bi* 'animate plural' can appear as *bi* or as *bį* if followed by an adjacent or non-adjacent nasal vowel.

[5]Nakoda verb stem can be split into two parts by person indexes, and the initial part is usually shorter than the final one. dst stands for the shortest part of a discontinuous stem. It is not a root since it does not have any meaning in itself.

[6]The following sentence provides evidence of the templatic position of *=hą*$_1$ (when occurring with *=:ga*$_2$), as well as the shift of position for *=bi*$_3$ '3^{rd} animate plural':

(i) *Écen Ø-yá=bi=hą:=ga.*
so 3sbj-go=pl=cont=dur
'So they kept going.' (Cumberland 2005: 315).

Some speakers have the expected order (5a), while others do not (5b). One of my consultants rejected the re-ordering in (5b) but McBride (2016: 171–174) reports similar re-ordering between the negative enclitic and some aspectual markers in Kansa (a Siouan language of the Dhegiha branch). I do not know if violation of the basic order is motivated by dialectal, idiolectal, or chronolectal differences, elicitation context, or pragmatic or semantic factors like intensification of a preceeding enclitic (see §4.5). Nevertheless, the fact that this phenomenon is widely attested in other Siouan languages may indicate that strict templatic ordering might not be the best way to analyse Siouan grammatical morphology (see Rankin et al. 2003: 186).

Standard negation is also used with three types of monoclausal complex verbs: auxiliary, modal, and adverbial constructions. Monoclausal complex verbs form a single semantic unit that contains a main verb or primary predicate (either an auxiliary or a modal verb) preceded by a complement verb or secondary predicate. These are labelled "compound verbs" by Boas & Deloria (1941) and Cumberland (2005: 391–398), and "secondary predication" by Ullrich (2018: 122).

As indicated by Cumberland (2005: 399), in auxiliary verb constructions, the auxiliary is the head of the phrase and it is inflected for person, number, aspect, modality, and negation. The complement verb, on the other hand, is non-finite and functions as the semantic core of the construction which is modified by the auxiliary verb. The most common auxiliaries are: *ų́* 'be continuously doing; wandering around' (6a); *áya* 1) 'become (stative); 2) 'continue doing (active)' (6b); *iyáya* 'become gradually'; and *yągá* ~ *yįgá* '(sit) continuously; keep on' (6c). In auxiliary verb constructions, only the auxiliary verb can be negated.

(6) a. *Įȟá Ø-ų́=bi=šį.*
laugh 3SBJ-be.continuously=PL=NEG
'They were not continuously laughing.'

b. *Nodį́n t'á a-Ø-yé=šį.*
hunger die DST-3SBJ-become=NEG
'He is not that hungry.' (lit. 'He is not starting to die from hunger.')

c. *Įdé-ša-ya i-Ø-yáye=šį.*
face-red-ADV DST-3SBJ-gradually=NEG
'He didn't blush.'

Modal verbs can also function as primary predicate. As shown by Cumberland (2005: 392) modal verbs have the following features: 1) they express degrees of certainty, ability, permission, and obligation; 2) they require a complement marker either *=bi* (similar in function to English infinitival *to*) or *=kta* ‘POT (potential modality)’ or none in some cases (e.g. *ogíhi* ‘be able’); and 3) the subject of the complement verb may be identical to that of the main verb, but often times the implied subject of the complement verb is omitted. As with the auxiliaries only modality verbs like *cįgá* ‘want’ (7) and *snokyá* ‘know’ (8), *ogíhi* ‘be able’ (9), and *šką́* ‘try’ (10) can be negated (e.g. **ecų́=kte=šį šką́* ‘try not to do that’).

(7) a. *Eyá=bi Ø-wa-cįge=šį.*
say=COMP 3P-1A-want=NEG
‘I don’t want/like to say it.’

b. *Téhą yįgá=bi Ø-wa-cįge=šį.*
long.time sit=COMP 3P-1A-want=NEG
‘I don’t want/like to wait for too long.’

(8) *Dóken ecų́=bi snok-Ø-wá-ye=šį.*
how do=COMP know-3P-1A-DST=NEG
‘I don’t know how to do it.’

(9) *Maní o-Ø-Ø-gíhi=bi=šį.*
walk DST-3P-3A-able=PL=NEG
‘They cannot walk.’

(10) *Ecų́=kta šką́=šį.*
do=POT try.2.IMP=NEG
‘Don’t try to do that.’

The last type of complex monoclausal verb construction is those involving a main verb and what Cumberland (2005: 406) labels “adverbial verb complements” (see also Ullrich 2018: 122–125). The morphosyntactic properties of this complex construction are as follows: 1) the verbal complement is non-finite (although it can be negated); 2) it often lacks the final stem-forming *-a* (resulting in the devoicing of voiced consonants); 3) both the verbs describe separate actions which combine to form a single event. Active verbs occur in secondary predication as in (11) which is a simultaneous predicate construction (Ullrich 2018: 273–274). The verbs are adjacent and not truncated, and they share minimally one argument. When the negator *=šį* is added to the verbal complement the construction is translated as ‘do X without Y’. The complement verb is non-finite and no 1st or 2nd person markers can be added.

(11) a. *Wa'óyabi k-nuhé=šį Ø-hí.*
book POSS-have=NEG 3SBJ-arrive
'She arrived without her book.'

b. *Yuȟ'ú=šį Ø-Ø-yúda.*
peel=NEG 3P-3A-eat.it.
'He is eating it without peeling it.'

In (12) the negated verb *dágeyešį* 's/he does not say a thing' can be made into a secondary predicate by adding the adverbial morpheme *-ȟ*. My corpus also contains examples as in (13d) where the negator *=šį* is positioned before the derivational morpheme *-yą* indicating that it has scope only over the derived modifier *teȟíyą* 'with difficulty' and not over the primary predicate *mawáni* (13e).

(12) *Gá wįcíjana žé Ø-giktá, hįkna pamą́knena-ȟ,*
then girl that 3SBJ-get.up and head.bowed-ADV
dág-eye=šį=ȟ Ø-yągá.
thing-say=NEG=ADV 3SBJ-sit
'Then this girl got up and with her head bowed, she sat silently.' (Parks et al. 2012a: 52)

(13) a. *teȟí* 'it is difficult' (verb)

b. *teȟíyą* 'with difficulty' (adverb)

c. *teȟį́šį* 'it is easy; cheap' (verb) (with regressive nasalization)

d. *teȟį́šįyą* 'easily; without difficulty'

e. *Teȟį́šį-yą ma-wá-ni.*
difficult.NEG-ADV DST-1SBJ-walk
'I walk easily.'

Finally, although *=šį* occurs mainly on verbs and deverbal nouns (e.g. *wąyága* 's/he sees it' (VB.TR) > *wąyágešį* 'blindness' (N)) it can also be used on some predicative pronouns (e.g. *miyé* 'it is me, I' > *miyéšį* 'it is not me'), adverbs (e.g. *aké* 'again' > *akéšį* 'not again'; *nahąȟ* 'still, yet' **nahą́ȟci* > *nahą́ȟtįšį* 'it is not yet' (VB.INTR)), and some modality particles (e.g. *céyaga* 'should, must' > *céyagešį* 'should not, must not').

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Negation in non-declarative clauses like prohibitives (i.e. negated imperative) and negated hortatives are formed by simply negating imperatives. The imperatives are formed by taking the bare stem (which corresponds on the surface with a verb inflected with *-Ø-* a 3rd person agent or subject) as such for a single addresse or adding the plural enclitic *=bi* to indicate a plurality of addresses. Gendered particles are used depending on the speaker only: *m*11 (neutral for the speaker); *wo*11 (male speaker talking to a single addressee of both genders) and *bo*11 (male speaker talking to two addressees or more, of both genders). There are no specific female particles.

Prohibitives (or negated imperatives) are marked simply by adding the negator *=šį* on the positive imperative form. Examples (14) show uses of a prohibitive by female speakers and examples (15) by speakers of both genders, while examples (16) display the equivalent male forms. Cumberland (2005: 332) notes that male imperative particles are used in relationships of respect.

(14) Female speaker

a. *Céye=šį!*
cry.2.IMP=NEG
'Don't cry!'

b. *Įknįíge=šį!*
mind.2.IMP=NEG
'Don't mind it!'

c. *Iyúhana ecų́=bi=šį!*
all do.2.IMP=PL=NEG
'Don't you all do it!'

(15) Gender neutral

a. *"A-ną́-mi-ji-ȟma=bi=šį m," e-Ø-yá [...]*
LOC-DST-1P-BEN-hide=PL=NEG IMP DST-3SBJ-say
'"Don't [you all] hide it from me," she said [...]' (female speaker) (Parks et al. 2012b: 53)

b. *Mi-cį́ja-bi, wóda m," e-Ø-yá.*
1-child-PL eat.2.IMP IMP DST-3SBJ.say
'"My children, eat," he said.' (male speaker) (Parks et al. 2012b: 87)

(16) Male speaker

a. *Dóhą-ni škáde=šį wo.*
when-NEG play.2.IMP=NEG MALE.IMP.SG
'Never play with it.'

b. *[…] eyé=šį ca wo.*
say.2.IMP=NEG must MALE.IMP.SG
'[…] you must not say that.' (Parks et al. 2012b: 31)

c. *"Kúwa=bi=šį bo," e-Ø-yá.*
bother.2.IMP=PL=NEG MALE.IMP.PL DST-3SBJ.say
'"Don't bother her," he said.' (Parks et al. 2012b: 79)

d. *A-k-núštą=bi=šį, a-wą́-k-naga bo.*
DST-POSS-lose=PL=NEG over-DST-POSS-see MALE.IMP.PL
'Do not lose your own [language], protect it you all.'

The hortative construction (*let's*) is obtained by adding the prefix/infix *ų(g)-* 'dual' and the enclitic *=s* 'hortative' on the positive imperative form (e.g. *yá* 's/he goes there' > *ų-yá=s* 'let's go there'). The negative hortatives (*let's not*) adds *=šį*$_7$ before *=s*$_8$: (e.g. *yé=šį* 's/he does not go there' > *ų-yé=šį=s* 'let's not go there').[7]

2.3 Negation in stative predications

According to Payne (1997: 114) proper inclusion is used when an entity is identified as belonging to a particular group or class of individuals, while equative predication is when an entity (usually the subject) is coreferential to the entity expressed by the predicate nominal, such as in *She* (SBJ) *is my mother*. In Nakoda proper inclusion is expressed with a denominal stative verb (17) or with the stative verb *žéca* 's/he/it is of that kind' (VB.STAT) that follows a noun which indicates a given trade or ethnic group (18). Stative predications are negated by the enclitic *=šį*.

(17) Proper inclusion
Na-Ø-kóda=šį duká Šahí-Ø-ya.
DST-3SBJ-Nakoda=NEG but Cree-3SBJ-DST
'He is not Nakoda but Cree.'

(18) a. *Sakná žé-Ø-ca.*
Metis that-3SBJ-be
'She is Metis.'

b. *Sakná žé-Ø-ce=šį.*
Metis that-3SBJ-be=NEG
'She is not Metis.'

[7] I wish to thank Tom Shawl (pers. comm. 2020) who has provided these examples. I have not been able to find textual examples of negative hortative verbs.

Equative predication is when the subject of a verb is coreferential with a complement NP. In Nakoda this is expressed with the copula verb *é* 's/he/it is' (VB.STAT), which often occurs attached on a demonstrative as shown in (19a) and (20b).

However, with kinship nouns negation of an equative prediction is done using a negated transitive verb instead of *žé'eší̧* 'that one is not'. In (19b) the transitive kinship verb *hų́guya* 'she is his/her mother' is built on the nominal stem *hų́gu* 'his/her mother' on which a relational or causative suffix *-ya* is added. Other transitive verbs of non-kin relation are built like this as shown in (20b). (Note the suppletive kinship terms for 'mother' in (19).)

(19) Equation

a. *Žé-Ø-'e iná.*
that-3SBJ-be 1SBJ.mother
'That's my mother!' / 'She is my mother!'

b. *Hų́gu-Ø-wa-ye=šį.*
mother-3P-1A-RLN=NEG
'I don't have her as a mother.' (intended: 'She is not my mother.')

(20) a. *Žé-Ø-'e koná.*
that-3SBJ-be friend
'That's my friend.'

b. *Koná-Ø-wa-ye=šį.*
friend-3P-1A-RLN=NEG
'I am not friends with him/her.' (intended: 'She is not my friend.')

In Nakoda, attributive, locative, existential and possessive predications are all expressed verbally and negated accordingly with the standard negative enclitic *=šį* as seen in (21b, 22b). There is no distinction between permanent properties and temporary ones and no special ways to negate them.

(21) Attributive predication

a. *Wį̧cá žé wa-snók-Ø-ya.*
man that INDF-know-3SBJ-DST
'That man is knowledgeable.'

b. *Wį̧cá žé wa-snók-Ø-ye=šį.*
man that INDF-know-3SBJ-DST=NEG
'That man is not knowledgeable.'

(22) Locative predication

a. *Mína žé cą'ówą én Ø-yįgá.*
knife that floor on 3SBJ-sit
'The knife is on the floor.'

b. *Mína žé cą'ówą én Ø-yįgé=šį.*
knife that floor on 3SBJ-sit=NEG
'The knife is not on the floor.' (lit. 'The knife is not sitting on the floor.')

Predicative possession can be expressed with the intransitive verb *táwa* 's/he owns it; his/her thing' (23) or with the transitive verb *yuhá* 's/he has it; carries it' (24). Both verbs are negated using the standard negative enclitic *=šį*.

(23) Possessive predication

a. *Tí-bi žé Ø-táwa.*
live-NMLZ that 3SBJ-own
'He owns that house.'

b. *Tí-bi žé Ø-táwa=šį.*
live-NMLZ that 3SBJ-own=NEG
'He doesn't own that house.'

(24) a. *Amų́giya Ø-mn-uhá.*
car 3P-1A-have
'I have a car.'

b. *Amų́giya Ø-mn-uhé=šį.*
car 3P-1A-have=NEG
'I don't have a car.'

Traditionally, the label 'existential predication' has been used to analyse expressions that predicate the existence of an entity in a given location or in general (i.e. non-locational). This is misleading as shown by Creissels (2014) who highlights the fact that such constructions have discourse turning functions in that they introduce new referents (*Look! There's Peter.*). Cumberland (2005: 256) showed that the stative verb *yuką́* 'it exists' (VB.STAT) is a general existential verb that predicates the existence of an entity but with no reference to location or position. This verb inflects only for third person singular and is negated with the enclitic *=šį* (25). Other ontological stative verbs like *dágu* 'it is a thing' or *duwé* 'it is someone' can also predicate existence and are negated with *=šį* or *=gen* (26).

Negative locative-presentative predication (e.g. 'there are no opossums here') is expressed with the negative lexical verb *wanį́ja* 'there is none; s/he lacks something' (see §2.5), which is the most common way to encode negative existence.

(25) Existential predication

a. *Mázaska Ø-yuką́.*
money 3SBJ-be
'There is money.'

b. *Mázaska Ø-yuké=šį.*
money 3SBJ-be=NEG
'There is no money.'

(26) *Ø-Dágu-gen.*
3SBJ-thing-NEG
'It is nothing.'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In Nakoda complement and subordinate clauses are nominalized clauses that function as a core argument of the verb (Cumberland 2005: 415); they are introduced by a demonstrative such as *žé* 'that one' or *né* 'this one'. As seen in the examples below the negative enclitic *=šį* can occur on the complement verb (27), on the main verb (28b), or on both (28c).

(27) *Wa-n-įc'i-jaǧa=bi=šį žé Ø-wašté.*
INDF-2SBJ-REFL-make=PL-NEG COMP 3SBJ-good
'It's good you didn't make it happen; it's good it wasn't your fault.' (Cumberland 2005: 415)

(28) a. *Ø-Ú=kte žé snok-Ø-wá-ya.*
3SBJ-come=POT COMP know-3P-1A-DST
'I know that he is coming.'

b. *Ø-Ú=kte žé snok-Ø-wá-ye=šį.*
3SBJ-come=POT COMP know-3P-1A-DST=NEG
'I didn't know that he was coming.'

c. *Ø-Ú=kte=šį žé snok-Ø-wá-ye=šį.*
3SBJ-come=POT=NEG COMP know-3P-1A-DST=NEG
'I didn't know that he was not coming.'

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Negative lexicalization deals with lexically idiosyncratic negatives that may fuse a negator and a verb with a positive meaning (although it is not always the case). Some senses are more prone than others to be encoded as separate lexical items. Examples of negative lexicalization in the languages of the world include 'not yet', 'not know' (e.g. English *dunno*), or 'not talk', etc. (see Veselinova 2013: 137). In Nakoda negative existential predication can be expressed with verbs built on the stative root *-nį̨ja-* 'to not exist; to lack' (*nį́ja* 's/he/it lacks'; *manį́ja* 'I lack it', *ninį́ja* 'you lack it') which often occurs with locational adverbs. When the indefinite object prefix *wa-* is added on *-nį̨ja-* the resulting verb negates the existence of an entity or indicates the lack of an entity (animate or inanimate) and the resulting meaning of *wanį́ja* is 's/he/it is nothing, dead; there is none; s/he/it lacks things', as shown in example (29).

(29) a. *Wó̜'ošija Ø-wa-nį́ja=bi nén.*
rattlesnake 3SBJ-INDF-be.none=PL here
'There are no rattlesnakes here.'

b. *Pahá Ø-wa-nį́ja=bi.*
hair 3SBJ-INDF-be.none=PL
'They are bald.'

c. *Wó̜yude Ø-wa-nį́ja.*
food 3SBJ-INDF-be.none
'There is no food.'

d. *Waną́gaš Ø-wa-nį́ja.*
long.ago 3SBJ-INDF-be.none
'He passed away a long time ago.'

Veselinova (2013: 137) has shown that cross-linguistically negative existentials often originate from verbs meaning 'to lack', 'to be absent', 'there is not', 'to be empty', or 'to be dead'. Theses verbs state the non-existence of an entity, rather then negating a positive predicate. The Nakoda example described above conforms to this typological generalization since *wanį́ja* has no positive version and cannot be negated; instead the predicate 's/he/it did not die' is expressed by negating the verb *t'á* 'to die', *t'éšį* 's/he/it did not die'.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

As shown in Table 1, position 7 hosts another negative enclitic *=gen* (~*=ge*). It is used by fluent speakers although rarely in elicitation context. The enclitic *=gen* also has a wide distribution as it can occur on verbs, quantifiers and indefinite pronouns (see §3.2.). Cumberland (2005: 321–322) discusses the negative enclitic *=gen* but does not provide its pragmatic meaning, saying only that it is synonymous with *=šį*. However, in elicitation contexts speakers provide slightly different translations for minimal pairs as seen in (30).

(30) a. *Ec-Ø-Ø-ų́=kte=šį.*
do-3P-3A-DST=POT=NEG
'He won't do it.'

b. *Ec-Ø-Ø-ų́=kte=gen.*
do-3P-3A-DST=POT=NEG
'He won't do it anyways.'

Nakoda *=ge(n)* is cognate with the Lakota enclitic *=ka* which, according to Ullrich (2011: 69), expresses "shock in response to something or an attitude of strong contradiction or discredit or negation, often with a touch of irony". My consultant provided similar meanings for *=gen* and explained the distinction between *=šį* and *=gen* in the following way: "If someone asks you about something and you have no clue, you say *snokwáyešį* 'I don't know' but if s/he keeps on asking the same question then you say *snokwáyegen* 'I don't know [and stop bothering me with it]'". As seen in (30b) and below the stronger emotional nuances expressed by *=gen* are often translated as 'not … anyways' or 'not … for what I care' in (31–32).

(31) *Wah̆té-Ø-wa-na=gen!*
hate-3P-1A-evaluate=NEG
'I don't like it (and I don't care).' (the speaker shrugged her shoulders while uttering this sentence)

(32) *Táh̆ca wąží Ø-Ø-kté=gen.*
deer INDF 3P-3A-kill=NEG
'He didn't kill a deer anyways.'

Like the Lakota enclitic *=ka*, Nakoda *=gen* expresses a stronger negative statement than *=šį* and may express sarcasm, carelessness, or surprise when faced with the unexpected. Textual examples illustrate these pragmatic effects. Example (33) is especially revealing since the sentence starts with *waȟtéšįȟtįyena*, an expression of discouragement or extreme disgust.[8]

(33) *Waȟté=šį-ȟtįye-na!* *Mi-tágoš,* *wį́bazoką* *wé-[ci]-ji-kną=gen.*
bad=NEG-INTS-evaluate 1-grandson juneberries 1A-[2P.1A]-BEN-save=NEG
'For Pete's sake. Grandson, I didn't save those juneberries for you.' (Parks et al. 2012b: 127)

As suggested by an anonymous reviewer the negators *=ka* in Lakota and *=gen* in Nakoda may stem from an ancestral combination of the distal demonstrative **ka* 'that one' + **-rį* 'negation' (one of the three negatives found in Proto-Siouan). Lakota kept only *=ka* while Nakoda has reflexes of both **ka* (> *=ge*) and **karį* (***kani* > ***keni* > *=gen*). The vowel discrepancy between Nakoda *=g**e**(n)* and Lakota *=k**a*** is due to vowel interference from the two other demonstratives *né* 'this one (near speaker)' and *žé* 'that one (near the listener)'.

Although *=gen* is unfrequently used, both orally and in narratives, in the few occurrences I could gather it seems to display paradigmatic asymmetry occurring mainly with enclitics *=bi* '3rd plural animate' and *=kta* 'potential'. More textual data is needed in order to fully circumscribe the paradigmatic (a)symmetry of *=gen*.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

In Nakoda a negative reply to a polar question is expressed with the interjections *hiyá* 'no'. For positive replies the gendered interjections *hą́* 'yes' (male and female), 'hello' (female) or *háu* 'yes, hello' (male) are used. Although (34–35) do have the verb repeated in the answer, this is not obligatory, as shown in (38–39).

(34) Q: *Wąží-ȟ* *é-Ø-n-agu?*
one-SPEC DST-3P-2A-take
'Did you take one specifically?'

[8] The verb *waȟténašį* 's/he hates, dislikes sb, smth' (VB.TR) which occurs in examples (31) and (33) is derived from the stative verb *wašté* 's/he/it is good' through fricative symbolism of the type *š* > *ȟ* which is common in Siouan languages (Rankin et al. 2003: 181, fn 4). That *waȟté-* does not mean 'dislike' by itself is shown by the fact that it always requires the negative enclitic *=šį* and rarely *=ge(n)* as in *Dágu waȟtége!* 'It's good for nothing!'

A: *Hiyá, dágu é-Ø-mn-agu=šį.*
no any DST-3P-1A-take=NEG
'No, I didn't take any.'

(35) Q: *Ø-Iyé=bi he Ø-ú=bi žé?*
3SBJ-be=PL Q 3SBJ-come.here=PL that
'Is it them coming?'

A: *Hą́, Ø-iyé=bi.*
yes 3SBJ-be=PL
'Yes, it's them.'

In Canada, Nakoda is an endangered language that is not transmitted to children and it is spoken fluently by a handful of elderly people. Nakoda language is only taught a few hours per cycles in school and occasions to hear fluent speakers discuss in their language for more than a few seconds are rare. The fact that traditional texts rarely contain casual conversations combined with the impossibility to document natural conversations – which are fundamental to elucidate whether Nakoda has content-based or truth-based replies to negative interrogations – forces me to leave the question open. Data obtained from translations (36–37) seems to parallel English too closely to provide a clear picture of the situation.

(36) Q: *Ø-Dąyą́=šį he?*
3SBJ-good=NEG Q
'Isn't it good?'

A: *Hiyá, Ø-dąyą́=šį.*
no 3SBJ-good=NEG
'No, it is not good.'

(37) Q: *Ø-Dąyą́=šį he?*
3SBJ-good=NEG Q
'Isn't it good?'

A: *Hą́, Ø-dąyą́.*
yes 3SBJ-good
'Yes, it is good.'

However, on comparative grounds one could expect Nakoda to align on Lakota where both *háŋ* 'yes' and *hiyá* 'no' have polarity reversing properties, see (38–39).

(38) Q: *Ø-L-uhá šni he?*
3P-2A-have NEG Q
'Do you not have it?'

A: *Háŋ Ø-bl-uhá šni.*
yes 3P-1A-have NEG
'No, I don't have it. (lit. yes I don't have it)'

(39) Q: *Ø-Hí šni he?*
3SBJ-arrive NEG Q
'Did he not come?'

A: *Hiyá, Ø-hí.*
no 3SBJ-arrive
'Yes, he came (lit. no, he came)'

3.2 Negative indefinite pronouns, and quantifiers

In this section I describe the morphology, syntax and semantics of Nakoda negative indefinite pronouns and negative quantifiers. As shown by Haspelmath (1997: 21–22), in many languages indefinite pronouns come in series and are formed with a root expressing one of the major ontological categories (PERSON, THING, PLACE, etc.) to which is added a marker of indefiniteness, as in English *some-*, *any-*, and *no-*. Nakoda, like other Siouan languages, functions differently since indefinite pronouns do not have a dedicated indefinite morpheme like in English. Nakoda has a weak noun/verb distinction and nouns for generic categories (e.g. *duwé* 'person') can be converted into stative verbs (*duwé* 's/he is someone'; *Madúwe he?* 'Who am I?'), interrogative pronouns (*duwé* 'who'), or even indefinite pronouns (*duwé* 'someone') with no change in the surface form. Negative indefinite pronouns are formed by adding the negative suffix *-ni* ~*-na* for some speakers (from Proto-Siouan **rį*) on the interrogative pronouns as indicated in Table 2.

In this section I will treat the forms of Table 2 that can be negated, namely the stative verbs and the indefinite pronouns. As stated before *dágu* 'thing' and *duwé* 'person' can be used as nouns and stative verbs, but it should be added that the negative indefinite pronouns in *-ni* can also be turned into stative verbs: *duwé* 'person' (N, VB.STAT) > *duwéni* 'noboby, no one' (PRO) > *duwéniši̧* 'there is nobody, no one' (VB.STAT). Examples in (40) illustrates the negative derivations with the noun/pronoun *dágu* 'thing, something'. These negative stative verbs can also express existential predication and occur in sentence final position unlike pronouns as in (41–42).

Table 2: Nakoda generic nouns and derived indefinite pronouns

ontological categories	thing	person	place
noun	*dágu* 'thing, any'	*duwé* 'person, none'	--
stative verb	*dágu* 'it is something'	*duwé* 's/he is someone'	--
interrogative pronoun	*dágu* 'what'	*duwé* 'who'	*duktén* 'where' (static)
indefinite pronoun	*dágu* 'something'	*duwé* 'someone'	*duktéȟ* 'somewhere' *dokíya* 'somewhere'
negative indefinite pronoun	*dágu**ni*** 'nothing, none' (animate)	*duwé**ni*** 'nobody'	*dukté**ni*** 'nowhere'

(40) a. dágu 'thing, something' (N, PRO)
b. dágu-ni 'nothing, none' (PRO)
c. *Dágu-ni-ȟ Ø-wa-ç̨íge=šį.*
thing-NEG-EMPH 3P-1A-want=NEG
'I want nothing at all.'
d. Ø-dágu-ni=šį 'it is nothing' (VB.STAT); 'zero' (N)
e. *Ø-Dágu-ni=šį=ȟtįyą.*
3SBJ-thing-NEG=NEG=EMPH
'It is nothing at all.' (VB.STAT)

(41) *Ókšą a-Ø-Ø-kída=bi ųká Ø-duwé-ni=šį.*
around DST-3P-3A-look=PL but 3SBJ-person-NEG=NEG
'They looked around for him but there was nobody.'

(42) a. *Mázaska Ø-dágu-ni=šį.*
money 3SBJ-thing-NEG-NEG
'There is no money.'

b. *Hąwí Ø-dágu-ni=šį.*
moon 3SBJ-thing-NEG=NEG
'There is no moon.'

The indefinite pronouns function as an argument of the verb and can be replaced by an NP. They are negated with the suffix *-ni* (or a variant *-na*). The major morphosyntactic feature of negative indefinite pronouns is that the verb must obligatorily be in the negative form as in (43–44).

(43) *Dágu-ni Ø-wa-çíge=šį.*
thing-NEG 3P-1A-want=NEG
'I want nothing.' (lit. 'I don't want nothing.')

(44) *Duwé-ni Ø-hí=šį.*
person-NEG 3SBJ-arrive.here=NEG
'Nobody came.' (lit. 'No one did not come.')

Nakoda also has a construction involving the generic nouns *dágu* 'thing' and *duwé* 'person' and a negated clause. The meaning of these negated clauses is similar to that of *dáguni* 'nothing' or *duwéni* 'no one, nobody' and a negated verb and these may be in free variation (e.g. *Duwéni híšį.* vs. *Duwé híšį* 'Nobody came.') as noted by Cumberland (2005: 361). One of my consultants proposed that the difference between the two sets was due to formality, where speakers often truncated the redundant *-ni* in fast speech. However, here the single English translation is misleading. Based on comparison with Lakota equivalent constructions I suggest that the indefinite negative pronouns in *-ni* function as pronoun, while the generic nouns are more accurately analysed as nouns functioning as direct object of the verb as seen in (45–47) – compare Lakota ***tákuni** eye šni* 'She said nothing; She didn't say nothing' with ***táku** eye šni* 'She didn't say a thing' (Ullrich & Black Bear 2018: 284). This is why I translate them with a generic noun (thing, person, place).

(45) a. *Dágu Ø-wa-çíge=šį.*
thing 3P-1A-want-NEG
'I want none of it.' (lit. 'I do not want a thing.')

b. *Dágu o-yápte=šį!*
thing LOC-leave.over.2.IMP=NEG
'Don't you leave food over!' (lit. 'Do not leave a thing over.')

(46) a. *Duwé Ø-hí=šį.*
person 3SBJ-arrive=NEG
'Nobody came.' (lit. 'People did not arrive.')

b. *Duwé wa-'į-Ø-yųğe=šį.*
person INDF-DST-3SBJ-ask=NEG
'No one was asking questions.' (lit. 'People did not ask questions.')

(47) *Dóki yį=kte=šį.*
place 3SBJ.go=POT=NEG
'He is going nowhere.' (lit. 'He is not going to a place.')

When *dágu* and *duwé* (or in some cases the indefinites pronouns *dáguni* 'nothing' and *duwéni* 'no one, nobody') occur after a noun phrase in a negated clause as in (48), the reading of the generic noun *dágu* or the indefinite negative pronoun *dáguni* is quantificational 'no, not … any' according to Cumberland (2005: 361) and Ullrich & Black Bear (2018: 112) for the Lakota equivalents.[9] Here it is important to note that *dágu* and *duwé* do not have this quantificational meaning in positive clauses so the construction *generic noun + negated verb* could be considered as a collocation.

(48) a. *Dáguškina dágu wicá-mn-uhe=šį.*
child any 3P.PL-1A-have=NEG
'I don't have any children.' (Cumberland 2005: 361)

b. *Mázaska dágu ų-k'ú=bi=šį.*
money any 1PL.SBJ-give=PASS-NEG
'We were not given any money.'

c. *Žéhąc'ehą dágu cótąga Ø-yuké=šį.*
back.then any gun 3SBJ-be=NEG
'Back then there weren't any guns.' (Parks et al. 2012b: 78)

A demonstrative (*žé* 'that; the' or *né* 'this') often occurs with count nouns (49–50) but this is not obligatory, as seen in (48).

(49) *Taspą́ žé dágu-na tem-Ø-Ø-yá=bi=šį.*
apple the thing-NEG devour-3P-3A-DST=PL=NEG
'They didn't eat any of the apples; they ate none of the apples.'
(Cumberland 2005: 360)

[9]The Lakota indefinite pronouns *tákuni* or *tuwéni* occurring after a noun in a negated clause (e.g. *Hokšíla tákuni waŋwičhablake šni* 'I did not see any boys.') are labelled "indefinite negative articles" by Ullrich (2011: 812).

(50) *Mi-sų́ga-bi né duwé-ni-ȟ Ø-hą́ske=šį.*
1sbj-younger.sibling-pl this person-neg-emph 3sbj-tall=neg
'None of my younger brothers is tall.'

Other pronouns and quantifiers can be negated with *-ni* or even *-ge(n)*. This is the case for *umá* 'one of two; the other(s)' > *umáni* 'neither of them' (51) and the universal quantifier *iyúha* 'all; every' > *iyúhagen* 'any of it' (52).

(51) *Umá-ni-ȟ dágu-ni ųg-ógini=bi=šį.*
both-neg-? thing-neg 1pl.sbj-get=pass=neg
'Neither of us got anything.' (Cumberland 2005: 360)

(52) a. *Iyúha-gen Ø-we-ksúye=šį.*
all-neg 3p-1a-recall=neg
'I don't remember any of it.' (Parks et al. 2012a: 36)

b. *Iyúha į-Ø-yútą=bi=šį.*
all ins-3sbj-try=pl=neg
'None of them tried it.'

Cumberland (2005: 367) lists the following positive partitives: *abá* 'some, some of' [count or mass]; *cogán* 'half' [count or mass]; *edáhą* 'some, some of' [count or mass]; *dóna* 'some, several, how many'; and *wąžíȟ* 'any one'. The last affirmative partitive *wąžíȟ* 'any one' has a negative counterpart with *-ni* built from the numeral *wąží* 'one; a': *wąží*> * *wąžíni* > *wąžíniȟ* 'no; not one; not a single one; neither' (Cumberland 2005: 362–363). The final suffix *-ȟ* 'augmentative' (according to Cumberland 2005: 363) is obligatory with *wąžíniȟ*, but its exact semantic input is still obscure as seen in (53–54) and (51) above.

(53) *Wįcá-bi né wąží-ni-ȟ snok-Ø-Ø-yá=bi=šį.*
man-pl dem one-neg-? know-3p-3a-dst=pl=neg
'Neither of the men knew it.'

(54) *Dáguški-bi-na wąží-ni-ȟ Ø=hí=šį.*
child-pl-dim one-neg-? 3sbj-arrive.here=neg
'None of the children came.'

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Nakoda nouns have no case markers for subject, object or any other functions. Plurality is marked with *=bi* but only for animates, while inanimate nouns have no specific or obligatory marking for plurality (besides plural demonstratives or reduplication on the verb). Absentative, privative or antonymic meanings are expressed with postpositions (55a–55d) or with negated verbs (56–59). The postposition *cóna* 'lacking, deprived of' is the functional correspondent of the English suffix *-less* and expresses a destitutive or privative meaning which derives an adverb, a derived noun or a stative verb from a simple noun. The postposition *cóna* attaches directly on monosyllabic nouns (55a–55b) or on contracted nouns such as *hąm-* (< *hą́ba* 'shoe') (55c). With non-contractible nouns *cóna* provokes a change of stress (55d). Finally, with nouns of three syllables of more *cóna* carries its own accent and is written separately (55e).

(55) a. *pá* 'head' (N) > *pacóna* 's/he/it is headless' (VB.STAT)
b. *sí* 'foot' (N) > *sicóna* 'barefoot' (ADV)
c. *hą́ba* 'shoe' (N) > *hąmcóna* 's/he is without moccasins' (VB.STAT); 'shoeless' (ADV)
d. *ókne* 'sleeve' (N) > *oknécona* 'sleeveless vest' (N)
e. *Huȟnáȟyabi, asą́bi cóna wašté-Ø-wa-na.*
coffee milk without good-3P-1A-evaluate
'I like coffee without milk.'

Antonymy, as expressed in English with the lexical prefix *un-* (e.g. *spoken* vs *unspoken*), can be indicated by adding the negative enclitic *=šį* on the positive version of a stative (56–57) or active verb (58b).

(56) *ecédu* 'in a common correct way' (VB.STAT)
> *ecédušį* 'in an uncommon way, not the way it is supposed to be' (ADV)

(57) *Huȟnáȟyabi skúye=šį žé Ø-mn-áktą.*
coffee sweet=NEG DEM 3P-1A-drink-POT
'I'll drink coffee unsweetened.'

(58) a. *Wa'óyabi k-nuhá Ø-hí.*
book POSS-have 3SBJ-arrive
'She arrived with her book.'
b. *Wa'óyabi k-nuhé=šį Ø-hí.*
book POSS-have=NEG 3SBJ-arrive
'She arrived without her book.'

Other antonyms are formed with a negative verb (59a), negative verbal compounds (59b), zero-derived negative verb (59c). Verbs lexicalized with =*šį* often have a meaning that is lexicalized and thus more compositional (59b, 60c). The asterisk (*) as in (59d) indicates that the intermeditate stage in the derivation is not attested synchronically or diachronically as in (59d).

(59) Derived verbs

a. *wį́yukcą* 's/he thinks about things.' (VB.INTR.INDF)
> *wį́yukcą́šį* 's/he is bold, brave' (VB.INTR) (lit. 's/he does not think about things');

b. *tawácį ecédu* 'his/her mind is right' (VB.STAT)
> *tawácį ecédušį* 's/he is stupid' (VB.STAT) (lit. 'his/her mind is not right');

c. *miní* 'water' (N)
> *miníšį* 'it is dry, arid, waterless' (VB.STAT) (lit. 'it is not wet');

d. **įtų́* 's/he tells the truth'
> *įtų́šį* 's/he is lying' (VB.INTR) (lit. 's/he is not telling the truth').[10]

Example (60) shows derived nouns that are more or less transparent.

(60) Derived nouns

a. *dąyą́šį yįgá* 's/he is not well seated' (VB.INTR)
> *dąyą́šį yįgá* 'death bed' (N);

b. *wąyága* 's/he sees sb, smth' (VB.TR); 's/he sees' (VB.TR)
> *wąyágešį* 'blindness' (N);

c. *ecá* 's/he/it is of that kind' (VB.STAT)
> **ecábi* (NI) > *ecábišį* 'invisible spirit, ghost' (N);

d. *i'á* 's/he speaks, talks to sb' (VB.TR1)
> *i'éšį* 'mute' (N);

e. *gicízabi* 'they fight one another' (VB.INTR.RECP)
> *gicízabišį* 'peace' (N);

f. *špą́* 'it is cooked' (VB.STAT)
> *špą́šį* 'it is raw' (lit. 'it is not cooked') (VB.STAT)
> *špą́šį yúda* 's/he eats it raw' (lit. 'S/he eats it uncooked.')
> *špą́šį yúdabi* 'watermelon' (N) (lit. that which is eaten uncooked').

[10]The verb *įtų́* 'S/he tells the truth' has never been reported for Nakoda, but must have existed in an anterior stage of the language since it occurs in Riggs' dictionary of Dakota (1992 [1890]) where he notes that it is now obsolete.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In a negated clause the denial can be neutral (e.g. *he did not go*) or it can have a narrow scope (i.e. ***he*** *did not go* [underlying that someone else did]). There are three means of narrowing the scope of negation to a core argument or a constituent in Nakoda: with adversative pronouns, emphatic pronouns, and changes in word order. Adversative pronouns are formed by adding the suffix *-š* 'adversative' on the pronominal stem *-iye-* 'be, self; one's own'; *m-iyé* 'I, myself, my own' > *m-iyé-š* 'as for me, myself, my own, I on the other hand'. Cumberland (2005: 173–174) describes the suffix *-š* as expressing "[…] a negative contrast between what is expected and what actually occurs." As seen in (61–62) the adversative pronoun occurs before the negated verb and narrows the scope of the negation to the subject of the verb.

(61) *Ø-Bohą́ cén Ø-**iyé-š** **Ø**-yé=šį iyáme-**Ø**-ye=šį. Žécen*
3SBJ-swell thus 3-self-ADVS 3SBJ-go=NEG hunt-3SBJ-go=NEG then.later
cįhą́ga-bi iyáme-Ø-ya=bi.
older.brother-PL hunt-3SBJ-go=PL
'It was swelling so **he** did not go, **he** did not go hunting. Then later his older brothers went hunting.' (Wing 2002: 50)

(62) ***M-iyé-š*** *dágu Ø-ká=bi žé o-Ø-wá-pe=šį.*
1SBJ-self-ADVS thing 3SBJ-discuss=PL DEM DST-3P-1A-take.part=NEG
'As for me **I** didn't take part in the discussion.'

Another way to narrow the scope of a negated verb is to use the emphatic pronoun *į́š* 's/he, it, they too, as well' or a compounded version *né'įš* 'this one too' (with demonstrative *né*) after the word under emphasis. In a clause with a negated verb these pronouns have an adversative meaning similar to the adversative pronoun (63).

(63) a. *John šųgatąga Ø-Ø-kté=šį.*
John horse 3P-3A-kill=NEG
'John killed the horse.' (neutral scope)

b. *John **né'įš** šųgatąga Ø-Ø-kté=šį.*
John this-EMPH horse 3P-3A-kill=NEG
'**John** didn't kill the horse.' (narrow scope on subject)

Lastly, constituent negation under a narrow scope can be conveyed by word order modification from the neutral order Adverb + Verb order (64a) to Verb + Adverb final (64b).[11]

(64) a. *Hąhébi dóki Ø-yį́=kte=šį.*
tonight somewhere 3SBJ-go=POT=NEG
'He is going nowhere tonight.' (neutral scope)

b. *Mi-hį́kna ti'óda ektá Ø-yé=šį* ***ȟtánihą.***
1-husband town to 3SBJ-go=NEG yesterday.
'My husband didn't go to town **yesterday**.' (narrow scope)

4.2 Negative polarity

I have not been able to find cases of negative polarity in Nakoda texts, or field work. This is a topic that will require more investigation.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

As mentioned in §1, Nakoda does not have nominal case markers and all grammatical relations are indicated on the verb via pronominal affixes. Bare nouns in Nakoda can have definite or indefinite readings in English as with (65) which has a definite meaning. However, definiteness is often expressed with a demonstrative *né* this one' or *žé* 'that one; the' (66), or a numeral *wąží* 'one' that can function as an indefinite article 'a' (67).

(65) *Coníca bus-Ø-Ø-yá jé.*
dried.meat dry-3P-3A-CAUS HAB
'He always dries the meat (under the sun).'

(66) *Šų́ga žé wí a-Ø-Ø-néža.*
dog DEM tent LOC-3P-3A-urinate
'That dog urinated on the tent.'

(67) *Búza wąží Ø-Ø-k'ú=bi.*
cat a 3P-3A-give=PL
'They gave her a cat.'

[11] I thank Tom Shawl (p.c. 2022) who provided examples for the last two ways of expressing narrow scope on negation.

In negative constructions there is a tendency to use the bare noun as in (63b) independently with an definite (68) or an indefinite reading (69).

(68) *Šų́ga caš-Ø-Ø-tų́=šį.*
dog name-3P-3A-bear=NEG
'He didn't name the dog.'

(69) *Iyécįgayena opé-Ø-wa-tų=šį.*
car buy-3P-1A-DST=NEG
'I didn't buy a car.'

With mass nouns the partitive *edáhą* is optional in negative constructions as seen in (70b–70c) (see Miestamo 2014 for more details).

(70) a. *Wahˇpé edáhą Ø-wá-cįga.*
tea some 3P-1A-want
'I want some tea.'

b. *Wahˇpé Ø-wá-cįge=šį.*
tea 3P-1A-want=NEG
'I don't want tea.'

c. *Wahˇpé edáhą Ø-wa-cį́ge=šį.*
tea some 3P-1A-want=NEG
'I don't want tea.'

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Derivational suffixes, phonetic lengthening and less frequently double negators are used to reinforce negation in Nakoda. For the sake of brevity I will concentrate on the intensifying or augmentative functions of *-hˇtįyą* as shown in negative clauses. The formative *-hˇtįyą* occurs as a suffix with stative and active verbs, but also on a handful of lexicalized combinations with nouns, pronouns and adverbs. When the suffix *-hˇtįyą* occurs before the grammatical enclitics it functions as a derivational intensifier of gradable expressions like stative verbs. In other words, it scales upward or downward the degree of a gradable expression and enables the speaker to project his/her subjectivity on the outside world. As can be seen in (71b) the negative *=šį* has scope only over the intensifier *-hˇtįyą* and not over the predicate *dąyą́* 's/he/it is good' (VB.STAT).

(71) a. *Onówą né Ø-dąyą́=šį.*
song this 3SBJ-good=NEG
'This song is not good.'

b. *Onówą né Ø-dąyą́-ȟtį̨ye=šį.*
song this 3SBJ-good-INTS=NEG
'This song is really not that good.'

However, the formative *=ȟtį̨yą* can also cliticize on active verbs. In this case it is slotted in position 8 (as seen in Table 1) and has scope over the immediately preceding grammatical enclitic. In (72b) for instance *=ȟtį̨yą* intensifies, or reinforces *=šį* 'NEG' and is translated with adverbs such as 'absolutely' or 'completely':[12]

(72) a. *O-Ø-wá-gihį=šį.*
DST-3P-1A-able=NEG
'I cannot do it.'

b. *O-Ø-wá-gihį=šį=ȟtį̨yą!*
DST-3P-1A-able=NEG=EMPH
'I absolutely cannot do it!'

Example (73) displays a set of derivatives based on the generic noun *dágu* that highlights the meaning of *-ȟ* and *=ȟtį̨yą* in negative clauses. In (73c, 73e, and 73f) *=ȟtį̨yą* and *-ȟ* accentuate the negative scope of the sentence but without modifiying its content. In (73f), *=ȟtį̨yą* emphatically denies that the younger brothers are tall.

(73) a. *duwé* 'person, someone' (N, PRO)
b. *duwé-ni* 'nobody, none' (PRO)
c. *duwé-ni-ȟ* 'nobody at all; none at all' (PRO)
d. *Ø-duwé-ni=šį* 'it is nobody' (VB.STAT)
e. *Ø-Duwé-ni=šį=ȟtį̨yą.*
3SBJ-person-NEG=NEG=EMPH
'It is nobody at all.' (VB.STAT)
f. *Mi-sų́ga-bi né duwé-ni-ȟ Ø-hą́ske=šį.*
1-younger.brother-PL this someone-NEG-EMPH 3SBJ-tall=NEG
'None of my younger brothers is tall.'

[12] Although more work needs to be done in this area of Nakoda enclitics I hypothesize that with active verbs the enclitic *=ȟtį̨yą* does not signal intensification in the strictest sense of the term (since an active verb is not gradable), but sentence emphasis (i.e. truth-value focus). The speaker seems to imply that there are no chances, even remote ones, for the sentence not to be true. To this effect de Reuse (1982: 157) notes that in Lakota when the intensification enclitic *=ȟča* occurs after the negator *=šni*, it is dominated by the sentence and not by the verb.

A second mechanism used to reinforce negation is the phonetic lengthening of vowels (shown below with a triangular colon (ː) after the vowel). With negative interrogative pronouns or negative adverbs built with the non-verbal negative suffix *-ni*, emphatic vowel lengthening affects the vowel of the stressed syllable as seen in (74a, 74b).

(74) a. *(...) duwéː-ni-ȟ dág-e-Ø-ye=šį hųštá.*
person-NEG-EMPH thing-DST-3SBJ-say=NEG it.is.said
'(...) no one at all didn't say anything, it is said.' (Parks et al. 2012a: 74)

b. *Dóːhą-ni Ø-gišní=bį=kte=šį.*
when-NEG 3SBJ-be.well=PL=POT=NEG
'They will never be well.' (Parks et al. 2012a: 52)

Reduplicated negation (see also Boas & Deloria 1941: 105) which consists in doubling the standard negator *=šį* on verbs (*=šįšį*) is also used to reinforce negation as in (75) but it is seldom heard, although it appears on some derived adverbs: *ektá* (postposition) 'at, in, to a location or destination' > *ektášį* 'wrongly' > *ektášįšį* 'mistakenly'.

(75) *Žé dágu Ø-wašté=šį=šį žé Ø-Ø-ké no.*
that thing 3SBJ-good=NEG=NEG that 3P-3A-indicate MALE.DECL
'What he talked about (lit. indicated) is really not good.' (Parks et al. 2012b: 115–116; my translation)

Lastly, as seen in (76) (replicated from (32)), the negative enclitic *=gen* can also pragmatically reinforce a negative statement. Another example includes the interjection *Waȟtéwana**gen***! 'I don't like it (and I don't care)'.

(76) *Táȟca wąží Ø-Ø-kté=gen.*
deer a 3P-3A-kill=NEG
'He didn't kill a deer anyways.'

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negative coordination is expressed by conjoining the coordinator *eštá* 'or' ('nor' in negative constuction) (77a) and the post-verbal particle *kó* 'also, too' which means 'either' when followed by a negated verb (77b).

(77) a. *Wį́-Ø-yą eštá wį-Ø-cá.*
woman-3SBJ-DST or man-3SBJ-DST
'Was it a woman or a man?'

b. *Wašín-'i'a-bi wąží-na-ȟ eštá, wa-Ø-mn-ápi=šį*
English-speak-NMLZ one-NEG-? or DST-3P-1A-speak
na-Ø-wá-ȟ'ų=šį kó.
DST-3P-1A-understand=NEG either
'I didn't speak a word of English, I couldn't understand or speak, either.' (Parks et al. 2012b: 127)

I did not find any special constructions that express contrastive negation, except by joining two clauses (with an initial negated verb) with the coordinator *duká* 'but', as in (78). This falls under standard negation.

(78) *Na-Ø-kóda=šį duká Wa-Ø-šíju.*
DST-3SBJ-Nakoda but DST-3SBJ-White
'He is not Nakoda but White.'

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (or negative raising) is the phenomenon whereby the negator of a main clause predicate negates a subordinated clause. Horn (1978) observed that predicates such has *think*, *believe*, *should*, and *want* allow negative transport, while *be able*, *be possible*, *may*, *can*, *know*, *cause*, and *order* do not. For instance, in *I think [he is not sleeping]* the negator *not* negates the lower clause *be sleeping* (and not *I think*) while in *I do not think [he is sleeping]* the negator *not* negates the sleeping as well and not the thinking, although negation is expressed in the main clause.

Examples (79–80) show negative transport with the verb *cįgá* 's/he wants/likes somebody, something' (VB.TR) which is used here as a modal in a compound verb (see §2.2 above).

(79) *Kná=bi Ø-wa-cįge=šį.*
go.back=COMP 3P-1A-want=NEG
'I don't want to go back.'

(80) *John Ø-yá=kte žé Ø-wa-cįge=šį.*
John 3SBJ-go.there=POT COMP 3P-1A-want=NEG
'I don't want John to leave.'

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation refers to clauses where the speaker objects how negation is expressed, but agrees with its content (e.g. *It's not hard to do, it's infeasible.*). Example (81) illustrates metalinguistic negation where the negative clause has scope not over the predicate but on the numeral adverb *nų́ba* 'two'.

(81) *Nų́ba wįcá-Ø-yuhe=šį, dóba wįcá-Ø-yuha.*
two 3P.PL-3A-have=NEG four 3P.PL-3A-have
'She doesn't have two (children), she has four.'

As said before Nakoda is not used on a daily basis anymore in Canada (except when older speakers visit one another, and some speak only English even in that context). Because of these constraints I have not been able to collect natural utterances illustrating metalinguistic negation and the associated intricacies expressed by differences in prosody or sign language.

4.6.3 Diachrony of Siouan negation

Three negative morphemes have been reconstructed for Proto-Siouan (Rankin et al. 2015): **-ku*, **-rį* (> Dakota, Lakota and Nakoda pronominal negator *-ni*) and **-aši* (> Osage *aži*; Lakota *=šni*; Nakoda and Stoney *=šį*). Rankin et al. (2015) suggest that the unexpected nasalization of *i* into *į* in both Nakoda and Stoney is due to the long association of *=šį* with reflexes of **-rį*. While Boas & Deloria (1941: 109) put forth the idea that the Dakota/Lakota negative enclitic *-šni* is the adversative suffix *-š* on which is added the negative *-ni*, a closer examination of Siouan comparative data strongly suggests that the segment *š* occurring in Lakota/Dakota *-šni* and the adversative suffix *-š* are in fact two distinct elements. This is shown by their distinct ablauting behavior. On the basis of Dhegiha Siouan languages the initial *a* of **-aši* can be analysed as part of the suffix (e.g. Osage *aži*) although linguists working on Dakotan dialects segment it as a stem-final vowel. Rankin (2006: 6) suggests that *a* is an ablaut vowel that contracts with the stem-final vowel of verbs and ablauts to *e* in Dakotan dialects, while the adversative enclitic *-š* (< **-šV*) does not trigger ablaut. Thus, Dakota/Lakota *=šni* combines two negators **aši* and **rį* (> **širį* > *šni*) just like Mandan *-nix* is a fusion of two negative markers **-rį* and **-axi* (plus consonant symbolism *š* > *x*). Kasak (2019: 303) suggests the following historical development: **-rį-axi* > ***-rį-xi* > *=nix*. In sum, Nakoda data on the morphophonological behavior of these elements reinforces the conclusion that Proto-Siouan **-aši* 'negation' and **-šV* 'adversative' have different etymologies since the negative *=šį* ablauts systematically (*a*>*e*) while the adversative *=š* does not: *mağážukt**aš** otí'įga* 'I think it might rain.' (Cumberland 2005: 239) vs. *mağážukt**ešį*** 'it will not rain'.

5 Summary

To summarize the present chapter, in Nakoda the enclitics *=šį* and *=ge(n)* negate verbs, adverbs, modality particles, and predicative pronouns, while the suffix *-ni* negates indefinite pronouns and other quantifiers. Conjunctions, postpositions, and nouns (when they are not derived into a stative verb through zero conversion) cannot be negated. Table 3 gives an overview of the forms and their functions.

Abbreviations

1	first person	INTS	intensifier
2	second person	LOC	locative
3	third person	MALE	male speaker
A	agent	N	noun
ABSTR	abstract	NEG	negation
ADV	adverb	NMLZ	nominalizer
ADVS	adversative	P	patient
BEN	benefactive	PASS	passive
CAUS	causative	PL	plural
COMP	complementizer	POSS	possessive
CONT	continuative	POT	potential
DECL	declarative	PRO	pronoun
DEM	demonstrative	Q	interrogative
DIM	diminutive	RECP	reciprocal
DST	discontinous stem	REFL	reflexive
DUR	durative	RLN	relational
EMPH	emphatic	SBJ	subject
HAB	habitual	SG	singular
IMP	imperative	SPEC	specific
INDF	indefinite	STAT	stative
INS	instrumental	TR	transitive
INTR	intransitive	VB	verb

Table 3: Summary of negation in Nakoda

		Section	Example
=šį	negative postclitic used with		
	a) clauses		
	- simple clauses	2.1.1	(1–5)
	- monoclauses (verb + auxiliary)	2.1.1	(6)
	- monoclauses (verb + modal auxiliary)	2.1.1	(7–10)
	- monoclauses (adverb + verb)	2.1	(11–13)
	b) non-declarative clauses	2.2	(14–16)
	c) stative predications		
	- proper inclusion	2.3	(17–18)
	- equation	2.3	(19–20)
	- attributive predication	2.3	(21)
	- locative	2.3	(22)
	- possessive predication	2.3	(23–24)
	- existential predication	2.3	(25–26)
	d) non-main clauses	2.4	(27–28)
	e) non-clausal structures		
	- negative replies	3.1	(34–37)
	- negative derivation	3.3	(56–60)
	f) reinforcing negation (with the sentence emphatic *=ȟtįyą*)	4.4	(71–73)
	g) coordination and complex clauses	4.5	(77–78)
	h) negative transport	4.6.1	(79–80)
	i) metalinguistic negation	4.6.2	(81)
=gen	negative enclitic used to pragmatically reinforce negation with monoclauses, quantifiers, and indefinite pronouns	2.6	(30–33)
-cona	suffix meaning ‘without; lacking’ used in negative derivation	3.3	(55)
wanį́ja	negative lexicalization ‘it is nothing; there is none’	2.5	(29)
-ni	suffix used to negate indefinite pronouns, quantifier and partitives	3.2	(40–54)
-š, *į́š*	adversative suffix and the emphatic pronoun *į́š* ‘too’ indicate scope relationships	4.1	(61–64)

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Chapter 9

Negation in Mohawk

Marianne Mithun

The patterns of negation in individual languages are often not unrelated to other structural characteristics. Mohawk, an Iroquoian language of northeastern North America, is polysynthetic, with a high proportion of verbs in spontaneous speech. This trait has implications for its inventory of negative constructions. Most of the kinds of non-verbal clauses mentioned in the Questionnaire for Describing the Negation System of a Language by Miestamo (2025 [this volume]) are expressed in verbal predications in Mohawk, and are accordingly negated like other verbal clauses, with a construction that has evolved via a Jespersen cycle. There are no non-finite clauses, so most dependent clauses are negated in the same way as main clauses. There is no nominal case, so negation does not affect case marking, and negation has no effect on determiners. There is no negative nominal derivation. The language does offer features of interest in the interplay between negation and tense, aspect, and modality.

Keywords: aspect, modality, Mohawk, polysynthesis, tense.

1 The language

Mohawk (ISO: moh, Glottocode: moha1258) is an Iroquoian language indigenous to northeastern North America. It is currently spoken mainly in six communities in modern Canada and the United States, in Quebec, New York State, and Ontario. The number of first-language speakers is estimated at around 900, but there are more highly competent second-language speakers, and their numbers continue to grow. Dialectal variation across the six communities is minor: primarily the pronunciation of an affricate and a liquid, and certain lexicalizations. Morphological and syntactic structure are essentially the same in all. Just three

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lexical categories are distinguished in terms of their morphological structures: verbs, nouns, and particles.

Verbs can be relatively complex. All contain specification of the core arguments in a pronominal prefix, and apart from imperatives, an aspect suffix. They may also contain additional prefixes, suffixes, and/or an incorporated noun stem. Examples are in (1–4).[1]

(1) *Wahaté:ko'.*
wa-ha-ate-ko-'
FACT-M.SG.AGT-MID-escape-PFV
'He escaped.'

(2) *Iostáthen.*
io-astath-en
N.PAT-be.dry-STAT
'It is dry.'

(3) *Wahshakotiianerónhkwen'.*
wa-hshakoti-ianeron-hkw-en-'
FACT-M.SG>3PL-feel.spooked-CAUS-BEN.APPL-PFV
'He spooked them.'

(4) *Ia'tesa'kharakè:tote'.*
ia'-te-sa-'khar-a-ke'tot-e-'
TRL-DV-2SG.PAT-slip-LNK-peek-EP-STAT
'Your slip is showing.'

Most of the morphological structure is templatic. The verb template is in Table 1.

Table 1: Basic verb template

pre-pronominal	pronominal	reflexive, middle	noun	verb	derivational	aspect	tense, aspect
prefixes			stem		suffixes		

Several of these slots have multiple slots within them. The prepronominal prefix slots are detailed in Table 2.

[1]Examples are given here in the community orthography. Most symbols are close to their IPA counterparts. Nasalized vowels are represented with digraphs <en> [ʌ̨] and <on> [ų], the palatal glide [j] with <i>, and glottal stop with an apostrophe <'> [ʔ]. Stress with high or rising tone is indicated with an acute accent <á>, and stress with falling tone with a grave accent <à>. Vowel length is indicated with a colon <:> after the vowel: <a:>, <en:>, etc.

Table 2: Prepronominal prefixes

<table>
<tr><td>Partitive</td><td rowspan="3">Translocative</td><td rowspan="3">Factual</td><td rowspan="3">Duplicative</td><td>Future</td><td>Repetitive</td></tr>
<tr><td>Coincident</td><td rowspan="2">Irrealis</td><td rowspan="3">Cislocative</td></tr>
<tr><td>Contrastive</td></tr>
<tr><td colspan="5">Negative</td></tr>
</table>

There are nearly 60 pronominal prefixes: one paradigm for grammatical agents like the masculine singular *-ha-* 'he' in (1) 'he escaped', one for grammatical patients like the neuter *io-* 'it' in (2) 'it is dry', and one for transitive combinations, like the masculine singular acting on multiple third persons *-hshakoti-* 'he>them' in (3) 'he spooked them'. Paradigm choice is semantically based but lexicalized with each verb stem. Verb stems fall into two categories: 1) event verbs, which have imperative, habitual, perfective, and stative forms, and 2) stative-only verbs, which have only stative forms. In the imperative, habitual, and perfective aspect forms of event verbs, grammatical agents are generally in control, and grammatical patients are not in control but significantly affected. In the stative aspect forms of these verbs, which often function as perfects, single participants of intransitives are identified with grammatical patient prefixes. In stative-only verbs, the pronominal paradigm often reflects a distinction between inherent and resultant states.

Multiple derivational suffixes can co-occur. These include reversives, inchoatives, causatives, instrumental, benefactive, and directional applicatives, a facilitative, an ambulative, a purposive, and distributives. Final post-aspectual verb suffixes can further distinguish progressives, remote pasts, and continuatives.

Morphological verbs can function as in other languages as predicates. They can also serve as clauses in themselves. All are finite. Ideas conveyed in nonfinite clauses in many other languages are expressed in finite clauses in Mohawk, as illustrated in (5). In what follows, examples drawn from spontaneous speech are identified by the speakers and the communities from which they come: Kahnawà:ke Kw, Kanehsatà:ke Ks, Wáhta' W, Ahkwesáhsne A, Ohswé:ken' O, and Tyendinaga T. (Examples were recorded, transcribed, and analyzed by the author. Separate intonation units are represented on separate lines.)

(5) Finite clauses
Tahiatáhsawen'
ta-hi-at-ahsawen-'
CIS.FACT-M.DU.AGT-MID-start-PFV
'They started for home,'

tontahiateristíta’,
t-onta-hi-ate-rist-ita’
DV-CIS.FACT-M.DU.AGT-MID-metal-follow.PFV
‘following the railroad tracks,’

tehotisterihenhatie’.
te-hoti-sterih-en-hatie’
DV-M.DPL.PAT-be.hurrying-STAT-PROG
‘hurrying along.’ (Rita Konwatsi’tsaién:ni Phillips, Kw)

Morphological verbs can also function as referring expressions without further marking. Such constructions are lexicalized to varying degrees. The term for ‘bell’ in (6) is a morphological verb but is fully lexicalized as a referring expression.

(6) Verb as referring expression
iehwista’ékstha’
ie-hwist-a-’ek-st-ha’
FI.AGT-metal-LNK-strike-INS.APPL-HAB
‘one strikes metal with it’ = ‘bell’

Verbs far outnumber nouns in spontaneous speech, in part because they are often used to refer, in part because of the density of noun incorporation, as in (7), and in part because many ideas are simply conveyed with verbs that might be conveyed with nouns in some other languages, as in (8).

(7) Verb in use
Na’tkanien’kwatasehon’.
n-a’-t-ka-nien’kw-atase-hon-’
PAR-FACT-DV-N.AGT-snow-twirl-DISTR-PFV
‘There was a blizzard.’ (Josephine Kaieríthon Horne, Kw)

(8) Verbs in use

Teiotenonhianihton	*tsi*	*ni:*	*tsi*	*wahonteri:io’.*
te-io-ate-nonhiani-ht-on	tsi	ni:	tsi	wa-hon-ate-riio-’
DV-N-MID-frightened-CAUS-STAT	as	so	as	FACT-M.PL.AGT-REFL-fight-PFV
it has caused fear	as	so	as	they fought each other

‘A fierce battle took place.’ (Josephine Kaieríthon Horne, Kw)

The internal structure of morphological nouns is less complex. Basic nouns contain a gender prefix or a possessive prefix, a noun stem, and a noun suffix, which adds no information beyond marking the word as a noun. Some examples are in (9) and (10).

(9) *o'tá:ra'*
o-'tar-a'
N-clay-NS
'clay, chimney, clan'

(10) *akhwá:tsire'*
ak-hwatsir-e-'
1SG.AL.POSS-family-EP-NS
'my family'

Noun stems may be simple roots, as in (9) and (10) above, or formal nominalizations, as in (11).

(11) *kahiatónhsera'*
ka-hiaton-hser-a'
N-write-NMLZ-NS
'book'

Morphological nouns are used only as referring expressions. Various enclitics may be added to words functioning as nominals, such as diminutives, distributives, and decessives (used when referring to deceased persons).

Particles are by definition monomorphemic, though they may be compounded. They serve a variety of syntactic and discourse functions. Some examples are in (12).

(12) *ki'* 'in fact' *iaken* HEARSAY
tsi 'at, as, that' *wáhi'* TAG
tho 'there' *kí:ken* 'this'

The language could be characterized as head marking, since arguments are identified pronominally in every verb and there is no nominal case. There is no unmarked, syntactically-defined basic constituent order. All orders are pragmatically significant: apart from various discourse particles, constituents appear essentially in decreasing order of newsworthiness.

The description of negation in Mohawk in this chapter is based on the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and mirrors its structure.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is expressed by a negative particle *iah* near the beginning of the clause and a prefix on the verb. There are two negative constructions. The first consists of the negative particle *iah* and the negative verb prefix *te'-*. This is used if there are no prepronominal prefixes in the verb, or only a repetitive or cislocative. An assertion and its negative counterpart with this construction are in (13) and (14).

(13) Assertion
Khe-nòn:we'-s.
1SG>3-like-HAB
'I like her.'

(14) Standard negation
***Iah te**-khe-nòn:we'-s.*
not NEG-1SG>3-like-HAB
'I **don't** like her.'

The second negative construction consists of the negative particle and contrastive verb prefix *th-*, used if there are other prepronominal prefixes in the verb. An assertion and its negative counterpart with this second construction are in (15) and (16).

(15) Assertion
Iesakwéhtha'.
ie-sa-akw-eht-ha'
TRL-RPT-1EXCL.PL.AGT-stop.by-HAB
'We go back there.'

(16) Standard negation
***Iáh th**iesakwéhtha'.*
iah th-ie-s-akw-eht-ha'
not CNTR-TRL-RPT-1EXCL.PL.AGT-stop.by-HAB
'We **don't** go back there.'

Outside of negative contexts, the contrastive marks surprising information. Both the negative and contrastive prefixes occur in various context-conditioned phonological forms.

For the affirmative and negative pairs discussed so far, the verb forms are the same, apart from the negative or contrastive prefix. There are several contexts in which they are not perfect counterparts, however.

Perfective aspect verbs co-occur with one of three prefixes: the factual, the future, or the irrealis (often called the optative or indefinite tense in the literature). Factual perfectives are usually interpreted as past tense. Their negative counterparts are not formed simply with the negative particle plus a prefix on the factual perfective verb, however. Rather than saying that something did not happen with a factual perfective ('He did not see it'), speakers use a stative form of the verb, interpretable as a perfect ('He is/was in the state of not having seen it.'). Past affirmative and negative counterparts are in (17) and (18).

(17) Factual perfective
__Wa__hatkáhto__'__.
wa-ha-atkahto-'
FACT-M.SG.AGT-see-**PFV**
'He **saw** it.'

(18) Negative stative
Iáh te**hotkáhth**on
iah **te**-ho-atkahth-**on**
not **NEG**-M.SG.PAT-see-**STAT**
'He **hasn't** seen it.'

Future perfectives are used for future events. Their negative counterparts are also not formed simply with the negative particle plus a prefix on the future perfective verb. An irrealis perfective is used instead. Future affirmative and negative counterparts are in (19) and (20).

(19) Future perfective
__En__hatkáhtho'.
en-ha-tkáhtho-'
FUT-M.SG.AGT-see-PFV
'He **will** see it.'

(20) Negative irrealis
***Iáh tha**:hatkáhtho'.*
iah **th**-**aa**-ha-atkahtho-'
not **CNTR-IRR**-M.SG.AGT-see-PFV
'He **won't** see it.'

Future perfectives are also used for recurring events in the past. In these uses as well, negative counterparts are inflected as irrealis. Describing her childhood, one speaker noted that her family would never begin to eat before her father said grace. She used a future perfective verb for 'before my father would pray', but an irrealis perfective for the negative 'you could not' in (21).

(21) Customary past events

Iáh th*aón:ton'*	*tahsatskà:kon',*
iah th-aa-w-aton-'	t-aa-hs-at-ska'nhon-'
not CNTR-IRR-N.AGT-be.possible-PFV	DV-IRR-2SG.AGT-MID-dine-PFV

'You could**n't** eat'

tsik	***en****haterén:naien'*	*ne*
tsi=ok	**en**-ha-ate-renn-a-ien-'	ne
at=only	**FUT**-M.SG.AGT-MID-song-LNK-lay-PFV	ART

rake'níha.
rake-'ni=ha
M.SG>1SG-be.father.to=DIM

'before my father prayed.' (Kanatí:res Grace Franks, W)

The factual and future prefixes never co-occur with negative prefixes.

Since irrealis perfectives are used for events with no specified time, they are somewhat less common in main clauses than factuals and futures, but they do occur, often translated 'might, would, could, should' etc. In (22) Mr. Deer was talking about a tornado.

(22) Irrealis
Aón:ton'
aa-w-aton-'
IRR-N.AGT-be.possible-PFV
'It **might** be possible,'

a*:kì:ron'*	***a****:kanatarihsión:ko'.*
aa-k-ihron-'	**aa**-ka-natar-ihsionko-'
IRR-1SG.AGT-say-PFV	**IRR**-N.AGT-town-destroy-PFV

'I'**d** say, that it **could** demolish the town.' (Joe Awenhráthon Deer, Kw)

In most contexts, irrealis perfectives are negated in the standard way, with the negative particle *iah* and a contrastive prefix, as in (23).

(23) Negative irrealis
Iah th*aón:ton'*
iah th-aa-w-aton-'
not CNTR-IRR-N.AGT-be.possible-PFV
'I could**n't**'

a:kì:ron' *teiona'tarákhen.*
aa-k-ihron-' te-io-na'tar-akh-en
IRR-1SG.AGT-say-PFV DV-N.PAT-bread-be.twins-STAT
'say the bread has two lumps.' (Margaret Kahentawákhon Mcdonald, A)

But when irrealis perfectives are used with a deontic sense to mean 'should', they are negated with a different particle *tóhsa'*, here glossed NEG, and no prefix on the verb, as in (24).

(24) Negative Perfective
Tówa' nòn:wa' ***tóhsa'*** *aétewake'.*
towa' nonhwa' **tohsa'** aa-etewa-k-e-'
maybe now **NEG** IRR-1INCL.PL.AGT-eat-EP-PFV
'Maybe we should**n't** eat it.' (Sonny Edwards, A)

Further discussion of deontic uses of irrealis perfectives and their negation is in §2.4

This patterning is reminiscent of the A/Cat subtype of Miestamo's (2013) inventory of Asymmetric Standard Negation strategies, with structural differences between affirmative and negative counterparts based on verb categories such as tense, aspect, and modality.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Prohibitives, that is, negative imperatives, are formed with the second negative marker *tóhsa'*. Like *iah*, this particle occurs at or near the beginning of the clause. There is no negative or contrastive prefix on the verb, as can be seen in (25) and (26).

(25) Command
Ia'tsiá:ken'n!
ia'-ts-iaken'n
TRL-2SG.IMP-go.out
'Go out!'

(26) Basic prohibitive

Tóhsa' *ia'tsiá:ken'n.*

tohsa'	ia'-ts-iaken'n
NEG	TRL-2SG.IMP.AGT-go.out

'**Don't** go out!'

Basic imperatives differ from other verbs in lacking an aspect suffix, but they do contain a second person pronominal prefix that distinguishes singular, dual, and plural addressees. The form of the singular agent in indicatives is *-hs(e)-* with loss of the *h* word-initially or after a consonant. It thus most often appears as *s(e)-*. The indicative and imperative second person singular agent prefixes are descended from different forms, *-(h)s- and *-č-. They have merged to *s(e)-* in most contexts, but the imperative never appears with an initial *h*, and before a high front vowel or glide it is still an affricate, spelled <ts>. In some dialects this is pronounced as an alveo-palatal [ʧ]; in others it is now pronounced as an alveolar affricate [ʦ], and a following glide has disappeared.

There is also a second prohibitive construction, with the future prefix *en-*. This is also formed with *tóhsa'*, as in (27).

(27) Future Prohibitive

Tóhsa' ***ien****hsiá:ken'n(e').*

tohsa'	i-**en**-hs-iaken'n-e-'
NEG	TRL-**FUT**-2SG.AGT-go.out-EP-PFV

'**Don't** go out.'

For some speakers, the future prohibitives lack an aspect suffix, like basic imperatives, but for others, they end in a perfective suffix, like future perfective statements. For all speakers, the form of the second person singular agent pronoun in this construction is that used with indicatives. Speakers find it difficult to articulate the precise difference in meaning and use between the basic and future prohibitives. Though a difference in time is often involved, speakers agree that forms with the future prefix are not simply delayed imperatives as might be expected, and they are not necessarily more polite.

Basic prohibitives are used for immediate situations, where there is no time for discussion. If a man is about to put a forkful of food into his mouth, but it is suddenly discovered that there might be something wrong with it, he might get the warning in (28).

(28) Basic prohibitive
Tóhsa' *í:sek!*
tohsa' i-s-ek
NEG PROTH-2SG.IMP.AGT-eat
'**Don't** eat it!' (Á:nen Konwaroniá:wi Deer, Kw)

But if someone has made a cake for a bake sale, and the man comes in and spies it on the counter, he would be more likely to get the warning in (29).

(29) Future prohibitive
Tóhsa' én*hsek(e')!*
tohsa' **en**-hs-ek-e-'
NEG FUT-2SG.AGT-eat-EP-PFV
'**Don't** eat it!' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

Speakers note that these future forms are more likely to be used for longer-term prohibitions: 'Don't plan to …'. Kanáhstatsi Nancy Howard suggests that the future prohibitive might imply a warning: 'You'd better not …', as in (30).

(30) Future prohibitive
Tohsa' *wakerónhak* *i****en****hsia:ken'n(e').*
tohsa' wake-ron-hak i-**en**-hs-iaken'n-e-'
NEG 1SG.PAT-warn-CONT TRL-FUT-2SG.AGT-go.out-EP-PFV
'**Don't** you dare go out!' (Kanáhstatsi Nancy Howard, Ks)

Addressees might expect a consequence if they went ahead and acted, and would be likely to ask for a reason. The context in (31) is typical.

(31) Future prohibitive
Tóhsa' én*hsek(e')* *tanon' ensanonhwákten!*
tohsa' **en**-hs-ek-e-' tanon' en-sa-nonhwakt-en-'
NEG FUT-2SG.AGT-eat-EP-PFV and FUT-2SG.PAT-sick-BEN.APPL-PFV
'**Don't** eat it or you'll get sick.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

The basic prohibitive construction thus falls into the second prohibitive type defined by van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013), with an imperative verb form but a different negative particle than that used in standard negation. The future prohibitive falls into their fourth type, with a future tense verb either with no aspect suffix like imperatives, or a perfective suffix like other future verbs, and the different negative particle.

Hortatives are formed like commands, with a first person inclusive dual or inclusive plural pronominal prefix and no aspect suffix, as in (32).

(32) Basic hortative
Thó tetewá:ta'n.
tho te-tewa-t-a'n
there DV-1INCL.PL.AGT-be.standing-INCH
'Let's stand there.'

Negative hortatives are formed in the same two ways as prohibitives. Basic negative hortatives consist of the second negative particle and a basic imperative verb, as in (33).

(33) Basic negative hortative
Tóhsa' *thó tetewá:ta'n.*
tohsa' tho te-tewa-t-a'n
NEG there DV-1INCL.PL.AGT-be.standing-INCH
'Let's not stand there.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

Future negative hortatives consist of the second negative particle and a future tense verb, with or without a perfective aspect suffix, depending on the speaker. As with commands, listeners may expect a reason, as in (34).

(34) Negative future hortative
Tóhsa' *thó tentewá:ta'n(e').*
tohsa' tho t-en-tewa-t-a'n-e-'
NEG there DV-FUT-1INCL.PL-stand-INCH-EP-PFV
'Let's not stand there.'

Ratikwen'tsheráhrhohs.
rati-kwen'tsher-a-rho-hs
M.PL.AGT-paint-LNK-coat-HAB
'They're painting.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

Negative questions and answers are formed with the standard negation construction. Polar questions begin with the questioned element, which is the constituent in focus, in initial position, followed by the question particle *ken*, as in (35).

(35) Polar question
Iowísto ***ken****?*
io-wisto **ken**
N.PAT-be.cold.STAT **Q**
'Is it cold?'

Their negative counterparts include the basic negative particle *iah* and a negative or contrastive prefix on the verb, as in (36).

(36) Negative polar question
*Iáh ken te*iowísto?*
iah ken te-io-wisto
not Q **NEG**-N.PAT-be.cold.STAT
'Is**n't** it cold?'

Negative questions convey a positive presupposition. Answers address the proposition, not the presupposition. The exchange in (37) was prompted when Mrs. Curotte noticed that her daughter was about to leave without a jacket.

(37) Question and answer

GOC: ***Iáh*** *ken* ***te****iowísto ne átste?*
iáh ken **te**-io-wísto ne átste
not Q **NEG**-N.PAT-be.cold.STAT ART outdoors
'Is**n't** it cold outside?' (Grace Ohsontí:io Curotte, Kw)

AC: ***Hén****:, iowísto.*
yes it.is.cold
'**Yes**, it's cold.' (Audrey Curotte, Kw)

A negative question with a negative response is in (38).

(38) Question and answer

CKB: ***Iáh ken te****hsheienté:ri?*
iah ken te-hshe-ienteri
not Q **NEG**-2SG>FI-know.STAT
'**Don't** you know her?' (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush, Kw)

AKJ: ***Iáh****.* ***Iáh te****kheienté:ri.*
iah iah te-khe-ienteri
no not NEG-1SG>FI-know.STAT
'**No**. I **don't** know her.' (Annette Kaia'táhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

Answers to negative questions are discussed further in §3.1.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

There is no adjective category in Mohawk. Most meanings expressed by adjectives in other languages are expressed by verbs in Iroquoian languages. To a certain extent, stative verbs denoting permanent qualities occur with grammatical agent prefixes, and those denoting temporary situations occur with grammatical patient prefixes, but paradigm choice is lexicalized with each verb. The two are negated with the standard construction, consisting of the negative particle *iah* and either the negative *te'*- or the contrastive *th-* prefix on the verb. A description and its negative counterpart are in (39) and (40).

(39) Description
Wahétken.
w-ahetk-en
N.AGT-be.bad-STAT
'It was terrible.'

(40) Negative description
Iáh te*wahétken.*
iah te-w-ahetk-en
not NEG-N.AGT-be.bad-STAT
'It was**n't** terrible.' (Kanatí:res Grace Franks, W)

There may or may not be an incorporated noun evoking the entity described. Examples (41) and (42) contain the incorporated noun stem *-hsenn-* 'name'.

(41) Description with incorporated noun
Kahsenní:io.
ka-hsenn-iio
N-name-be.nice.STAT
'It's a nice name.' (Dorris Montour, Kw)

(42) Negative description
Iáh te*kahsenní:io.*
iah te-ka-hsenn-iio
not NEG-N-name-be.nice.STAT
'It's **not** a nice name.'

Location is also predicated with verbs and negated like other verbs, as in (43) and (44).

(43) Locative predication
Shé:kon tkanónhsote'.
shekon t-ka-nonhs-ot-e-'
still cis-n.agt-house-stand-ep-stat
'The house is still there.' (Joe Awenhráthon Deer, Kw)

(44) Negative locative predication
Iah *áro'k* ***te****kontì:teron'* *ne* *kítkit.*
iah aro'k **te**-kont-i'teron-' ne kitkit
not yet **neg**-z.pl.agt-dwell-stat art chicken
'The chickens were**n't** in there yet.' (Ima Johnson, O)

Existence is similarly predicated with verbs and negated accordingly, as in (45) and (46).

(45) Existential predication
Tóhka's *ki'* *nikahéhtaien'* *thí:ken.*
tohkara'=se's ki' ni-ka-heht-a-ien-' thiken
several=formerly in.fact par-n.agt-garden-lnk-lie-stat that
'There were several gardens there.' (Joe Awenhráthon Deer, Kw)

(46) Negative existential predication
Iáh *kwi'* *ne'* *lektic* ***te****kahahseró:tahkwe'* *ne:* *thò:ne.*
iah ki'+wahi' ne:' lektic **te**-ka-hahser-ot-ahkwe' ne: thohne
not in.fact+tag that electric **neg**-n-light-stand-pst that there
'There were **no** electric lights at that time.' (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

Possession is also predicated with verbs and negated with the standard construction. The most common verb of possession is *-ien*, which is also the verb meaning 'to be sitting or lying'. An example of basic predicative possession is in (47), and of negative predicative possession in (48).

(47) Predicative possession: Margaret Kahentawákhon McDonald, A
Nia'té:kon *rotí:ien'.*
n-ia'-te-k-on roti-ien-'
par-trl-dv-n-amount.stat m.dpl.pat-have-stat
'They have a lot of things.'

(48) Negated predicative possession: John Maracle, O

Iáh te*hó:ien-'*	*ne*	*tewatokwáhtha'.*
iáh te-hó:-ien-'	ne	te-w-atokw-áht-ha'
not NEG-M.SG.PAT-have-STAT	ART	DV-N.AGT-scattered-CAUS-HAB

'He **didn't** have a spreader.'

As noted earlier, many words used as referring expressions are morphological verbs. Most kinship terms originated as verbs, like that in (49). When they predicate a relationship, they are negated in the standard way, as in (50).

(49) Predicating a relationship

Shakotere'okòn:'a	*nè:'e.*
shako-atere'=okon'=a	ne'e
M.SG>3DPL-have.as.grandchild=DISTR=DIM	it.is

'He has them as grandchildren' = 'He is their grandfather.'

(50) Negation of a relationship

Iáh te*hshakotere'okon:'a.*

iah te-hshako-atere'=okon'=a

not NEG-M.SG>3DPL-have.as.grandchild=DISTR=DIM

'He is **not** their grandfather.' (He's just a friend.)

Nominal possessive constructions distinguish alienable and inalienable possession, but since these kinship terms are not morphological nouns, there is no comparable distinction. When such verbs function as predicates in equative constructions, a demonstrative is used as in (51), or the verb *í:ken'* 'it is' as in (52). In their negative counterparts, the verb 'be' is negated in the standard way: *iah tè:ken'* 'it is not', as in (53).

(51) Equation

Shakotere'okòn:'a	*thí:.*
shako-atere'=okon'=a	thiken
M.SG>3DPL-have.as.grandchild=DISTR=DIM	that

'That is their grandfather.'

(52) Equation

Shakotere'okòn:'a	*í:ken'.*
shako-atere'=okon'=a	i-ka-i-'
M.SG>3DPL-have.as.grandchild=DISTR=DIM	PROTH-N.AGT-be-STAT

'That is their grandfather.'

(53) Negative equation
Iáh *shakotere'okòn:'a* ***tè:ken'***.
iah shako-atere'=okon'=a **te'-ka-i-'**
not M.SG>3DPL-have.as.grandchild=DISTR=DIM **NEG-N.AGT-be-STAT**
'That's **not** their grandfather.' (The guy next to him is.)

The morphological verb *rató:rats* is literally 'he hunts', but it is also the term for 'hunter'. The word in (54) is a morphological verb, but it can be used either to predicate or to refer.

(54) *rató:rats*
ra-atorat-s
M.SG.AGT-hunt-HAB
'he hunts' = 'hunter'

When used to describe his activities, it is negated with the standard construction, as in (55).

(55) ***Iáh te****ható:rats.*
iah **te**-ha-atorat-s
not **NEG**-M.SG.AGT-hunt-HAB
'He **doesn't** hunt.'

For proper inclusion the negated verb 'be' is used, as in (56).

(56) Proper inclusion
Iáh *rato:rat-s* ***tè:ken***.
iah ra-atorat-s **te'-ka-i**
not M.SG.AGT-hunt-HAB **NEG**-N-be.STAT
'He is **not** a hunter.'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

All Mohawk verbs are finite. Most dependent clauses are negated in the same way as independent sentences, with the particle *iah* plus a negative or contrastive prefix on the predicate, as in (57).

(57) Negative complement
Wa'onkhró:ri' *[tsi* ***iáh te****honhrónkha'].*
wa'-onk-hrori-' tsi **iah** **te**-hon-aronk-ha'
FACT-FI>1SG-tell-PFV that **not** **NEG**-M.PL.AGT-understand.a.language-HAB
'They told me that they **don't** understand.' (Susie Lynch, T)

Irrealis verbs frequently occur in dependent clauses, as in (58).

(58) Irrealis complement
Rotina'khwèn:'en,
roti-na'khwen-'-en
M.PL.PAT-be.angry-INCH-STAT
'They were angry'

tsi ***iah tháon:ton',***
tsi **iah th-aa**-w-aton-'
that **not CNTR-IRR**-N.AGT-be.possible-PFV
'that they **could not**'

iahatiiá:ken'ne'.
i-aa-hati-iaken'n-e-'
TRL-IRR-M.PL.AGT-go.out-EP-PFV
'go out.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

But as in main clauses, if there is a deontic sense, the second negative particle *tóhsa'* is used, with no prefix on the verb, as in (59).

(59) Negative deontic irrealis
Ionkwaterièn:tare'
ionkwa-ate-rien'tar-e-'
1PL.PAT-MID-know-EP-STAT
'We knew'

tóhsa' *thó niaiákwe'.*
tóhsa' tho ni-**aa**-iakwa-e-'
NEG there PAR-**IRR**-1EXCL.PL.AGT-go-PFV
'that we were **not** supposed to go there.' (Watshenní:ne' Sawyer, Ks)

The same construction is used in negative purpose clauses 'so that not', 'in order that not', as in (60).

(60) Negative purpose
É:ren kwi' ***à:rehte'*** *kèn:tho ne*
eren ki'+wahi' **aa**-hr-eht-e-' ken'tho ne
away in.fact+TAG **IRR**-M.SG.AGT-move-EP-PFV here ART

Kahnawà:ke
ka-hnaw-a'ke
N-rapids-place
'He **should** move away from here, Kahnawake,'

tóhsa’ *iahshonkwakarón:ni’*
tohsa’ i-aa-hshonkwa-kar-onni-’.
NEG TRL-IRR-M.SG>1PL-story-make-PFV
‘**so that** he does**n’t** cause us problems.’ (Joe Awenhráthon Deer, Kw)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

No negative lexicalizations have been found in the data so far.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Positive and negative answers to polar questions were seen in §2.2. Simple negative particles are also used on their own: *Hén:, Én:*, or *Enhén:* ‘Yes’ and *Iáh* ‘No’ or *Iáhten* ‘Absolutely not’. Examples can be seen in the exchanges in (61) and (62).

(61) Positive response

JJD: ‘We had half an hour to play.’ (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

AKJ: *Né: ken ne: kon’tátie’?*
it.is Q it.is day
‘You mean in a day?’ (Annette Kaia’titáhkhe’ Jacobs, Kw)

JJD: Én:, en:.
‘Yes, yes.’ (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

(62) Negative response
‘She asked me, “Is Terè:s coming?”’

Wa’kì:ron’ ***“Iáh”.***
wa’-k-ihron-’ **iáh**
FACT-2SG.AGT-say-PFV **no**
‘I said, “**No**”.’ (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush Provencher, Kw)

The material questioned is often repeated, as in (63) and (64).

(63) Positive response

CKB: *Sè:iahre' ken ní:se'?*
s-ehiahr-e-' ken ne=ise'
2SG.AGT-remember-EP-STAT Q ART=2
'Do you remember?' (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush, Kw)

DMM: ***Hén:***, *kè:iahre'*
hen: k-ehiahr-e-'
yes 1SG.AGT-remember-EP-STAT
'**Yes**, I remember.' (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush, Dorris Montour, Kw)

(64) Negative response

CKB: ***Iah*** *ken* ***te****hsheienté:ri?*
iah ken **te**-hshe-ienteri
not Q **NEG**-2SG>F-know.STAT
'**Don**'t you know her?' (Charlotte Kaherákwas Bush, Kw)

AKJ: ***Iáh***. ***Iáh te****kheienté:ri.*
iah iah te-khe-ienteri
no not NEG-1SG>F-know.STAT
'**No**. I don't know her.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

As noted earlier, negative responses are the same with positive and negative questions. Examples of affirmative and negative responses are in (65).

(65) Negative response to positive question

KHN: *Satkáhthon ken ne ní:io?*
sa-at-kahtho-on ken ne ni-io-ht
2SG.PAT-MID-see-STAT Q ART PAR-N.PAT-be.so
'Have you seen anything like that?' (Kanerahtenhá:wi Hilda Nicholas, Ks)

SMP: *Né: ken ne: kaná:takon?*
ne'e ken ne'e ka-nat-a-kon
it.is Q it.is N-town-LNK-place.inside
'You mean in the village?' (Sha'tekenhátie' Marion Patton Philips Kw)

KHN: Enhén:.
'Yes.' (Kanerahtenhá:wi Hilda Nicholas, Ks)

SMP: Iáhten.
'**No**.' (Sha'tekenhátie' Marion Patton Philips Kw)

The same particles are used as responses to tag questions, as in (66) and (67).

(66) Positive response to tag

JTD: *Nè:'e tehonta'enhrané:ken*
ne'e te-hon-at-a'enhr-a-nek-en
it.is DV-M.PL.PAT-MID-fence-LNK-be.side.by.side-STAT
wáhe'.
wahe'
TAG
'They were neighbors, weren't they.' (Joe Tiorhakwén:te' Dove, Kw)

DMM, JKH: Én:.
'**Yes.**' (Dorris Montour, Josie Horne, Kw)

(67) Negative response

AKJ: *É:so' ki' ní:se' tehsahthénno'ks, wáhe'.*
eso' ki' ne=ise' te-hs-ahthenno-'k-s wahe'
much in.fact ART=2 DV-2SG.AGT-ball-hit-HAB TAG
'You play [golf] a lot, don't you.' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

CKB: ***Ia::***
iah
'**No**.' (Charlotte Kaherákwahs Bush, Kw)

AKJ: *A:, **iáh** ken?*
a: **no** Q
'Oh, **no**?' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

CKB: ***Ia:*** *iáh ó:nen.*
iah iah ó:nen
no NEG now
'**No**, not anymore.' (Charlotte Kaherákwahs Bush, Kw)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Indefinite pronouns are negated with the standard construction, consisting of an initial negative particle, an indefinite word, and a negative or contrastive prefix on the predicate if the particle is *iah*, or no prefix if the particle is *tóhsa'*. In most cases the indefinite word is the same as in non-negatives. The equivalent of 'no one' is 'not anyone, not someone, not who'. The interrogative *ónhka'* 'who' can be seen in (68), the indefinite *ónka'k* 'someone, anyone' in (69) and (70), and the negative *iah ónhka'* 'no one', literally 'not anyone', in (70).

(68) Indefinite 'who'
Ónhka' *thí:ken teionhsénthohs?*
onhka' thiken te-ie-ahsentho-hs
who that DV-FI.AGT-cry-HAB
'**Who** is that crying?' (Josephine Kaieríthon Horne, Kw)

(69) Indefinite 'anyone'
Ónhka'*k* *ken, sheienté:ri* *ne* *kèn:'en?*
onhka'=ok ken she-ienteri ne ken'en
anyone=just Q 2SG.AGT>FI-know.STAT ART here
'Do you know **anybody** here?' (Kanerahtenhá:wi Hilda Nicholas, Ks)

(70) Indefinite 'someone' and 'no one'
Tóka' ensathón:te'ne' ***ónhka'k***
toka' en-sa-at-honte'n-e-' **onhka'**=ok
if FUT-2SG.PAT-MID-hear-EP-PFV **someone**=just
taieken'to'ókhon'
t-aa-ie-ken'to'ok-hon
DV-IRR-FI.AGT-knock-DISTR
'If you hear **someone** knocking,'

tánon' ***iáh ónhka' té****:ien's,*
tanon' **iah onhka' te**'-ie-e-'s
and **not anyone NEG**-FI.SG-go-STAT.DISTR
'and **no one** is there,'

né: kén:ton' *tsi* ***ónhka'****k* *eniaíheie'.*
ne'e ka-iton-' tsi **onhka'**=ok en-ia-ihei-e-'
that N.AGT-mean-STAT that **someone**=just FUT-FI-die-EP-PFV
'**someone** will die.' (Mary Wathahí:ne' Nicholas, Ks)

The term for 'nothing' is based on an indefinite pronoun *othé:nen'* 'something' or shorter form *thé:nen'*, used in non-negative statements but not questions. The basic indefinite *othé:nen'* 'something' is in (71) and its negative counterpart *iah thé:nen'* 'nothing' in (72).

(71) Indefinite 'something, anything'

Wa'katkwé:ni'	***othé:nen'***.
wa'-k-atkweni-'	**othenen'**
FACT-1SG.AGT-win-PFV	**something**

'I won **something**.' (Vina Loft, O)

(72) Negated indefinite 'nothing'

Tóhsa'	***thé:nen***	*enhsi:ron.*
tohsa'	**othenen'**	en-hs-ihron
NEG	**something**	FUT-2SG.AGT-say

'Don't say **anything**.' (Watshenní:ne' Sawyer, Kw)

Temporal indefinites show the same patterns, as in (73) and (74).

(73) Temporal indefinite 'ever'

Nowén:ton	*satkáhthon?*
nowenton	sa-at-kahtho-on
ever	2SG.PAT-MID-see-STAT

'Have you **ever** seen it?' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

(74) Negated indefinite 'never'

Iáh	***nowén:ton'***	***te****ionkwahní:non*	*kanà:taro.*
iah	**nowenton'**	**te**-ionkwa-hninon-on	ka-na'tar-o-k
not	**ever**	**NEG**-1PL.PAT-buy-STAT	N-bread-be.in.water-CONT

'We **never** bought bread.' (Watshenní:ne' Sawyer, Kw)

Different forms are used for indefinite and negative locatives, however, as in (75–77).

(75) Locative question 'where'

Ka'	***nón:we***	*nontahsitsiénhawe'?*
ka'	**nonwe**	n-onta-hs-itsi-enhaw-e-'
what	**place**	PAR-CIS.FACT-2SG.AGT-fish-carry-EP-PFV

'**Where** did you get the fish?' (Dorothy Karihwénhawe' Lazore, A)

(76) Indefinite locative ‘somewhere’
Ka’ tsi nón:we *kí:ken Kanó:no karístatsi thotiió’te-hkwe’.*
ka’ tsi nonwe kiken Kanono ka-ristatsi t-hoti-io’t-e-hkwe’
some at place this NYC N-metal CIS-M.PL.PAT-work-HAB-PST
‘They were working **somewhere** in New York City.’ (Rita Konwatsi’tsaién:ni Phillips, Kw)

(77) Negative indefinite ‘anywhere’
Iáh káneka othé: te:.
iah kaneka othenen te’-ka-i
not anywhere anything NEG-N.AGT-be.STAT
‘There was**n’t** anything **anywhere**.’ (Minnie Hill, O)

Multiple constituents may be negated within the clause, as in (77).

Degree terms and quantifiers typically appear at or near the beginning of the clause, as in (78).

(78) Positive ‘too’
Sótsi *tiótkon teionkwaweienharà:’on*
so’tsi tiótkon te-ionkwa-weienhara’-on
too always DV-1PL.PAT-be.busy-STAT
‘We’re always **too** busy.’ (Josephine Kaieríthon Horne, Kw)

They are negated in the same way as other constituents. A negative particle appears at or near the beginning of the clause, the degree term soon follows, and if the particle is *iah*, the verbal predicate carries a negative or contrastive prefix, as in (79).

(79) Quantifier negation ‘not too’
Iáh *kwí: kwáh* ***sótsi te****wenhniserí:io’s.*
iah ki’=wahi’ kwah **so’tsi te**-w-enhniser-iio-’s
not in.fact-TAG quite **too NEG**-N.SG.AGT-day-be.good-STAT.DISTR
‘As you know, the weather was**n’t too** good.’ (Joe Awenhráthen Deer, Kw)

If the particle is *tóhsa’* there is no prefix, as in (80).

(80) Quantifier negation ‘not too’
‘The government said we should move so that’

tóhsa’ sò:tsi *akentiohkowanénhake’* *ne* *Kanehsatà:ke.*
tohsa’ **so’tsi** aa-ka-itiohkw-owan-en-hak-e-’ ne Kanehsatà:ke
NEG **too** IRR-N-group-be.big-STAT-CONT-EP-PFV ART NAME
‘there would **not be too** many people in Kanehsatà:ke.’ (Kanatí:res Grace Franks, W)

The same construction is used for *é:so’* ‘much, many, a lot’, as can be seen in (81) and (82).

(81) Positive ‘much’
É:so’ *ki:,* *teionkwatstikáhwhén.*
eso’ kiken te-ionkwa-at-stikawh-en
much this DV-1PL.PAT-MID-travel-STAT
‘**We** traveled a lot.’ (Sha’tekenhátie’ Marion Phillips, Kw)

(82) Negative ‘not much’
Iáh é:so’ *átste* ***th****ie:ke’s.*
iah **eso’** atste **th**-ie-k-e-’s
not **much** out **CNTR**-TRL-1SG.AGT-go-HAB
‘I do**n’t** go out **much**.’ (Susie Lynch, T)

And the same construction is also used for *akwé:kon* ‘all’, often shortened to *akwé:*, as in (83) and (84).

(83) Positive ‘all’
Akwé:kon *ráonha* *rohiá:ton.*
akwekon raonha ro-hiaton
all M.SG M.SG.PAT-write.STAT
‘He had written **all** of it, everything.’ (Lazarus Jacob, Ks)

(84) Negative ‘not all’
Iáh akwé: ***te****kheinte:ri.*
iah **akwekon** **te**-khe-ienteri
not **all** **NEG**-1SG>3PL-know.STAT
‘I do**n’t** know them **all**.’ (Susie Lynch, T)

As a focus of contrast, the quantifier may be highlighted prosodically. Pitch traces of the sentences in (85) and (86) can be seen in Figures 1 and 2.

(85) Quantifier negation 'not all'
Iah. ***Iáh akwé:kon te****kerihwaienté:ri.*
iah **iah akwekon te**-ke-rihw-a-ienteri
no **not all** **NEG**-1SG.AGT-matter-LNK-know.STAT
'No. I do**n't** know **everything** that went on.' (Joe Awenhráthen Deer, Kw)

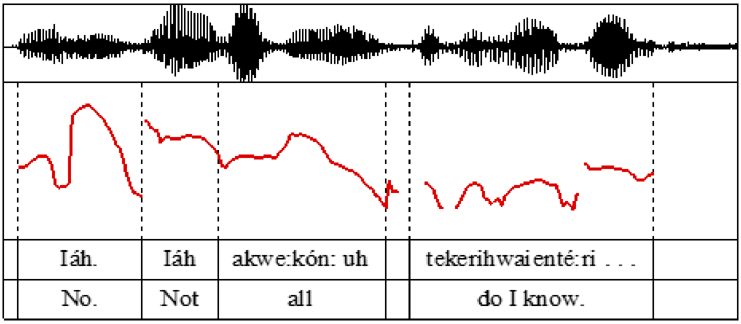

Figure 1: Quantifier negation

(86) Quantifier negation 'not one'
Kwah ***iáh ne skaià:ta***
kwah **iah ne s-ka-ia't-at**
even **not ART RPT-N-body-be.one**
te*ionkwentsiaientà:'on.*
te-ionkwa-itsi-a-ient-a'-on
NEG-1PL.PAT-fish-LNK-have-INCH-STAT
'We did**n't** even catch **one** fish.' (Sonny Edwards, A)

Neutral sentences generally show a continuous decline in pitch.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

As noted earlier, there is no nominal case marking in Mohawk. There are also no particles or derivational affixes with meanings comparable to English *without* or *-less*, In many situations, ideas expressed with nominals in other languages are expressed with verbs. To say something comparable to English *You shouldn't go out without a coat*, a Mohawk speaker would be likely to say something quite different, as in (87).

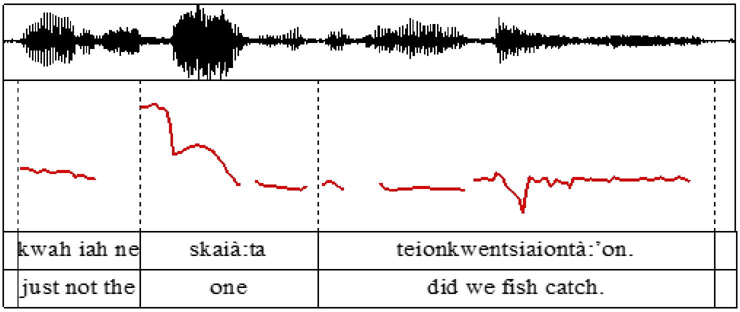

Figure 2: Quantifier negation

(87) Absence

Iáh thiahsiá:ken'ne'
iah th-i-aa-hs-iaken'n-e-'
not CNTR-TRL-IRR-2SG.A-go.out-EP-PFV
not should you go out
'Don't go out'

tóka' iáh thahsatià:tawi'te'!
toka' iah th-aa-hs-at-ia't-a-wi-'t-e-'
if not CNTR-IRR-2SG.AGT-MID-body-LNK-encircled-CAUS-EP-PFV
if not would you put your coat on
'if you don't put your coat on!' (Annette Kaia'titáhkhe' Jacobs, Kw)

3.4 Other negative constructions

Negation of sentence fragments, which lack a verbal predicate, is accomplished with just a negative particle, as in (88).

(88) Negated fragment

a. *Iáh kwi' thaón:ton'*
iah ki' wahi' th-aa-w-aton-'
not in.fact TAG CNTR-IRR-N-be.possible-PFV

aiontá:ti' Tiorhèn:sha ne
aa-io-atati-' t-io-rhen'-s-ha ne
IRR-FI.AGT-speak-PFV CIS-N-dawn-HAB-CHAR ART

kanónhskon.
ka-nonhs-kon
N-house-interior
'You couldn't speak English in the house.'

b. ***Iáh*** *ni' ne O'seronni'kéha'.*
iah oni' ne o-a'ser-onni-'keha'
not also ART N-axe-make-CHAR
'**Not** French either.' (Grace Franks, W)

In (89) the speaker was describing how to make cornbread. (The entire discussion was in Mohawk.)

(89) Negated fragments

a. *Enhsera' akehrà:ke,*
en-hs-er-a' akehr-a'ke
FUT-2SG.AGT-be.in-INCH.PFV dish-place
othe:sera',
o-the'ser-a'
N-flour-NS
'You'll put the flour into the bowl.'

b. *Ó:nenste' othè:sera',*
o-nenst-e' o-the'ser-a'
corn flour
'Cornmeal.'

c. ***Iáh*** *onèn:'a.*
iah o-nen'-a'
not N-wheat-NS
'**Not** wheat flour.'

d. *Onekwénhtara' nikasahe'tò:ten*
o-nekwenhtar-a' ni-ka-sahe't-o't-en
N-red-NS PAR-N-bean-be.a.kind.of-STAT
ténhsieste'.
t-en-hs-iest-e'
DV-FUT-2SG.AGT-mix-PFV
'You'll add red beans.'

e. ***Iáh*** *nohné:ka’ [...]*
iah ne o-hnek-a’
not ART N-liquid-NS
‘**Not** the liquid.’ [...]

f. *Teiohnekóntie’s* *entisá:ti*
te-io-hnek-ontie’-s en-ti-s-ati-’
DV-N-liquid-throw-STAT.DISTR FUT-CIS-2SG.PAT-throw-PFV

tenhsawénrie’,
t-en-hs-awenrie-’
DV-FUT-2SG.AGT-mix-PFV

‘You’ll mix in boiling water,’

g. ***tóhsa’*** *é:so’* *teiohnekóntie’s*
tohsa’ eso’ te-io-hnek-ontie-’s
NEG much DV-N.PAT-liquid-throw-STAT.DISTR
‘**not** too much boiling water.’ (Watshenní:ne’ Sawyer, Kw)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Issues of scope in the negation of indefinite and quantifier constituents were discussed in §3.2. Negation of other constituents is similar, with the constituent to be negated in initial focus position preceded by the negative particle *iáh* plus a negative prefix *te’*- or contrastive prefix *th-* on the predicate, or the particle *tóhsa’* without a prefix on the verb.

Negation of a demonstrative can be seen in (90).

(90) Negated demonstrative
‘They took the case to Europe.’

Thanon’ ne:’ rakhsotkén,
thanon’ ne:’ rak-hsot=kenha’
and that M.SG>1SG-be.grandparent.to=DEC
‘But my grandfather,’

iáh né:’ ***th****iehawé:non.*
iah ne:’ **th**-ie-haw-e-n-on
not that.one **CNTR**-TRL-M.SG.PAT-go-DIR.APPL-STAT
‘**him**, he didn’t go.’ (Lazarus Jacob, Ks)

The contrast is often heightened prosodically, as can be seen in Figure 3.

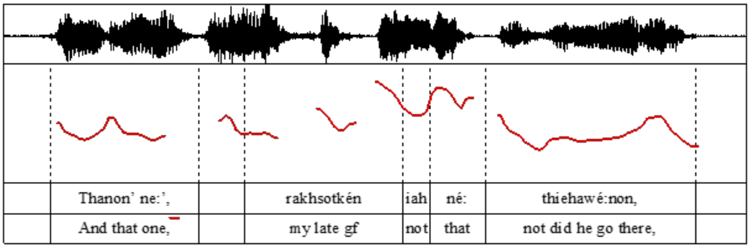

Figure 3: Constituent negation

Though all core participants are identified by pronominal prefixes in every verb, independent pronouns can be added for contrast. These can be negated in the same way, with the usual negative constructions, as in (91).

(91) Negated pronoun
Tóka’ ***ní:se’*** *enhsaté:ko’,*
toka’ ne=**ise**’ en-hs-ateko-’
maybe ART=**2** FUT-2SG.AGT-escape-PFV
‘Maybe **you**’ll run away,’

iáh *ki’* ***ni:*** ***tha****:katé:ko’.*
iah ki’ ne=**i’i** **th**-aa-k-ateko-’
not actually ART=**1** **CNTR**-IRR-1SG.AGT-escape-PFV
‘but **I won’t** run away.’ (Lazarus Jacob, Ks)

Adverbial particles can also be negated in the same ways, with the negated element appearing immediately after or soon after the negative particle, as in (92).

(92) Negated adverbial constituent
Iáh *ki’* ***óksa’k*** ***te****iakawenhé:ion.*
iah ki’ **oksa’k** **te**-iakaw-enhei-on
not actually **immediately** **NEG**-F.SG.PAT-die-STAT
‘She didn’t actually die **right away**.’ (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

It is clear that this speaker was negating the adverbial ‘right away’ in (92); the woman in question did die. Again the contrast was heightened prosodically, as can be seen in the pitch trace in Figure 4.

In (93) the adverbial ‘once’ is negated.

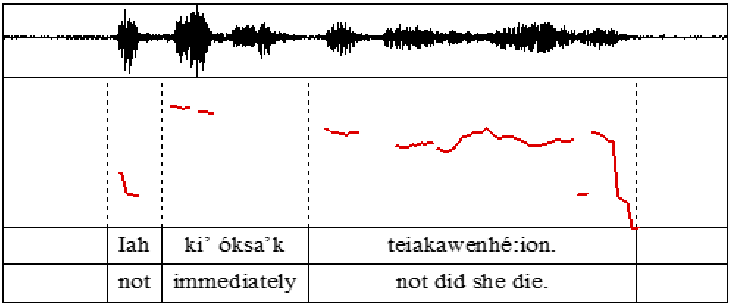

Figure 4: Constituent negation

(93) Negated constituent 'not once'

Iáh nen ***nénska*** ***tha'****tetewaké:non.*
iah onen **ne=enska tha'**-te-te-wak-e-n-on
not then **ART=one** **CNTR**-DV-CIS-1SG.PAT-go-DIR.APPL-STAT
'Not **once** did I come back.'

Iáh ni' ne ***énska te****khé:kén né:--*
iah ohni' ne **enska te**-khe-ken ne
not also ART **one** **NEG**-1SG>3PL-see.STAT ART
'And not **once** did I see'

akhwá:tsíre', thó nikarì:wes.
ak-hwatsir-e-' tho ni-ka-rihw-es
1SG.AL.POSS-family-EP-NS there PAR-N.AGT-matter-be.long.STAT
'my family, that whole time.' (Sha'tenkenhatie' Phillips, Kw)

The heightened prosody on the negated constituents *ènska* 'once' can be seen in the pitch trace in Figure 5.

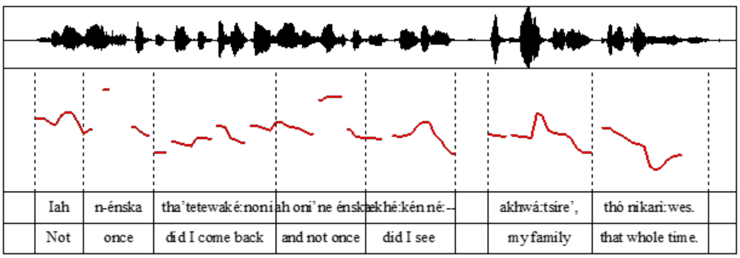

Figure 5: Constituent negation

4.2 Negative polarity

There are few negative polarity items. One is the particle *áre'kho*, which normally occurs in negative constructions to mean 'not yet'. It is sometimes pronounced *áro'khe* and is often shortened to *áro'k*. In fast speech, the negative particle *iah*, which occurs at or near the beginning of the clause, can be barely audible or even omitted.

Asked about the name of her baby, a mother responded with the answer in (94).

(94) Negative polarity 'not yet'

Iah	*ki'*	***áre'kho***	***te**iakohsén:naien'.*
iah	ki'	**are'kho**	**te**-iako-hsenn-a-ien-'
not	actually	**yet**	**NEG**-F.SG.PAT-name-LNK-have-STAT

'She actually does**n't** have a name **yet**.' (Lazarus Jacob, Ks)

The particle can co-occur with other negated items, as in (95).

(95) Negative polarity 'not yet'

Iah	***ónhka'***	***áro'k***	***th**ieiakokwáthon*
iah	**onhka'**	**aro'khe**	**th**-ie-iako-kwatho-on
not	**who**	**yet**	**CNTR**-TRL-FI.PAT-stop.by-STAT

'**No one** has stopped by there **yet**'

naiontken'sè:ra'.
n-a-ie-at-ken'se-hra-'
PAR-IRR-FI.AGT-MID-examine-PURP-PFV
'to check it out.' (Margaret Kahentawákhon Mcdonald, A)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

As noted earlier, there is no nominal case in Mohawk, and the article does not distinguish definiteness.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Alongside the regular negative particle *iah* 'no, not' is a more emphatic *iáhten*, which is used both as a simple answer 'absolutely not' and as a sentential negative, as in (96) and (97). The source of the element *ten* is unclear.

(96) Emphatic negative

‘Would you like a ride?’

***Iáhten**, tewaksterihénhsere’.*
iahten te-wak-sterihen-hser-e’
no DV-1SG.PAT-be.hurried-PURP-STAT
‘**Certainly not**, I’m in a hurry.’ (Dorothy Karihwénhawe’ Lazore, A)

(97) Emphatic Negative
***Iahten th**aón:ton’ éh náhsiere’.*
iahten **th**-aa-w-aton-’ eh n-aa-hs-ier-e-’
not **CNTR**-IRR-N-be.possible-PFV that PAR-IRR-2SG.AGT-do-EP-PFV
‘You **absolutely** can**not** do that.’ (Minnie Hill, O)

Negation can also be reinforced with the particle *thé:*, a short form of *othé:nen’* ‘anything’, as in (98).

(98) Emphatic negative
Iáh** ki’ ne: ónhte’ **thé:
iah ki’ ne’e onhte’ **the**:
not actually it.is perhaps **anything**

__th__aesewatkarón:ni’.
th-aa-esewa-at-kar-onni-’
CNTR-IRR-2PL-MID-story-make-PFV

‘It would**n’t** be any loss **at all** to you.’ (Dorothy Karihwénhawe’ Lazore, A.)

4.5 Negation, coordination, and complex clauses

There are no special forms for ‘neither … nor’. Contrastive and corrective negation can be accomplished by simply supplying the alternative, as in (99).

(99) Contrast

AKJ: *Ahskwà:ke ken roió’tehkwe’ thi:?*
ahskw-a’-ke ken ro-io’t-e-hkwe’ thiken
bridge-NS-place Q M.SG.PAT-work-HAB-PST this
‘Did he work on the bridge?’ (Annette Kaia’titáhkhe’ Jacobs, Kw)

JJD: Iáh.
‘No.’

Iáhten, Tiohtià:ke thí:.
no Montreal that
'No, in Montreal.' (Josie Jacobs Day, Kw)

Contrastive negation can also be expressed with the equational construction described in §2.3, consisting of a negative particle and the negative verb *tè:ken'* 'it is not', as in (100).

(100) Contrastive negation
Iáh *okwáho* ***tè:ken',*** *tsítsho í:ken'.*
iah o-kwaho **te'-ka-i-'** tsitsho i-ka-i-'
not N-wolf **NEG-N.AGT-be-STAT** fox PROTH-N.AGT-be-STAT
'It's **not** a wolf, it's a fox.'

The negative particle *tóhsa'* described earlier, in combination with an irrealis perfective verb, is used for negative purpose: 'in order that not', 'so that not', as in (101).

(101) Negative reason
Nek tsi ohén:ton ki: ne' kà:niote' ne:
ne=ok tsi ohenton kiken ne'e ka-hniot-e-' ne'e
that=only as before this it.is N.AGT-stand-EP-STAT it.is
'But something was standing in front [of the fireplace]'

tóhsa' *ki: sótsi t**a**onré:ni' kí:ken.*
tohsa' kiken so'tsi t-**aa**-w-areni-' kiken
NEG this too.much DV-**IRR**-N.AGT-disperse-PFV this
'**so that** the embers would**n't** spread too much.' (Sadie Sesír Smoke Peters, A)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Negative constructions within the Iroquoian family can be seen to have developed via Jespersen cycles (Mithun 1995, 2016), a not uncommon trajectory. The family consists of two main branches, Southern Iroquoian, now represented only by Cherokee, and Northern Iroquoian. Within the Northern branch, the first group to separate became the Tuscarora-Nottoway, followed by the Wendat (Huron)-Wyandot. The remaining Northern people, known as Iroquois, became the Seneca, Cayuga, Susquehannock, Onondaga, Oneida, and Mohawk.

The negative prefix *te'*- was apparently grammaticalized early in the development of Iroquois verb morphology, because it is one of the innermost prefixes, occurring immediately before the cislocative, repetitive, or pronominal prefix, as can be seen in Table 2. It has cognates in all of the Iroquois languages. This early attachment is not surprising. Negation is extremely common in daily speech, and frequency can lead to the processing of a recurring sequence of words as a chunk, here a negative particle and a following verb, then fusion. But negation is also usually one of the most important parts of the message. Once fused with the verb, the negative prefix could no longer carry independent stress. And as more prefixes were added to the verb over time, the inner position of the negative prefix would have further reduced its salience.

Speakers of the various Iroquois languages remedied the mismatch between form and function in slightly different ways. For verbs with additional prepronominal prefixes, Seneca speakers reorganized the prefix order, moving the negative *te'-* outward to a position before newer prefixes. Cayuga, Onondaga, Oneida, and Mohawk speakers opted instead to exploit an existing outer prefix for this purpose in these situations, the Contrastive *th-*.

But even word-initial prefixes are less salient than separate words. They cannot be given emphatic stress, and they are usually small, in these languages often little more than a single syllable or less. Cayuga, Onondaga, Oneida, and Mohawk speakers began reinforcing their negative constructions with additional particles based on their words for 'no', the pattern still seen in the match between the *iah* of the Mohawk negative construction and the answer *iah* 'no'. The origin of this particle is no longer discernible. These reinforcements apparently occurred after the languages had separated, since they are not cognate across the languages.

5 Summary

In concert with the typological profile of Mohawk as polysynthetic and dependent marking, with a preponderance of verbs and no non-finite clauses, the same constructions are used for most negation. The standard negative construction consists of a negative particle *iáh* at or near the beginning of the clause, plus a negative prefix *te'-* or contrastive prefix *th-* on the verbal predicate. This construction is used for declarative clauses, questions, answers, and descriptive, locative, existential, and possessive predications. Equation and proper inclusion are negated with the negative particle *iah* and the negated form of the verb 'be', with the negative prefix. They negate both independent and dependent clauses, as well as constituents, including indefinite pronouns and quantifiers.

There is, however, an interplay between the standard negation construction and tense, aspect, and modality. Event verbs are inflected for habitual, perfective, or stative aspect, except for commands. Negative factual perfectives (usually interpreted as past) differ slightly from their positive counterparts. Negation of past events is accomplished with negative statives, interpreted as perfects. Negation of future events and recurring events in the past is accomplished with negative irrealis perfectives.

Commands, future imperatives, and hortatives are negated with a different marker *tóhsa'* and no prefix on the verb. Irrealis perfectives with a deontic obligation sense ('should, be supposed to') or purposive sense ('on order that') are negated with the same particle *tóhsa'* and no prefix on the verb.

Sentence fragments which lack a predicate are negated simply with a negative particle *iah* or *tóhsa'*.

Strategies for negation are summarized in the Table 3 below.

Table 3: Summary of negation strategies in Mohawk

Negation strategy	Functions
Clause-initial particle *iáh* + verb prefix *te'*- or *th*- Negative of past perfective = negated past perfect Negative of future perfective = negated irrealis perfective	Standard negation
Prohibitive particle *tóhsa'*, no verb prefix	Prohibitive for commands, hortatives, deontic irrealis, purpose clauses
Negative particle *iáh* or *tóhsa'* before focused element with verb prefix *te*- or *th*- No noun case effect	Negation of focused element
Simple particle *iáh* 'no'	Negative reply, answers the proposition, not the presupposition
Indefinite pronouns, quantifiers in standard negation constructions	Negative indefinites and quantifiers
are'kho in standard negative construction	'not yet'
iáhten 'absolutely not' *iáh the:nen* 'not anything'	reinforcing negation

Abbreviations

1	first person	INCH	inchoative
2	second person	INCL	inclusive
3	third person	INS	instrumental
AGT	grammatical agent	IRR	irrealis
AL	alienable	LNK	linker
APPL	applicative	M	masculine
ART	article	MID	middle
BEN	benefactive	N	neuter
CAUS	causative	NEG	negative
CHAR	characterizer	NMLZ	nominalizer
CONT	continuative	NS	noun suffix
CNTR	contrastive	PAR	partitive
CIS	cislocative	PAT	grammatical patient
DEC	decessive	PFV	perfective
DIM	diminutive	PL	plural
DIR	directional	POSS	possessive
DISTR	distributive	PROG	progressive
DPL	duoplural	PROTH	prothetic
DU	dual	PURP	purposive
DV	duplicative	Q	question marker
EP	epenthetic	REFL	reflexive
EXCL	exclusive	RPT	repetitive
F	feminine	SG	singular
FACT	factual	STAT	stative
FI	feminine-indefinite	TAG	tag question
FUT	future	TRL	translocative
HAB	habitual	Z	zoic
IMP	imperative		

Abbreviations for communities are: Kahnawà:ke Kw, Kanehsatà:ke Ks, Wáhta’ W, Ahkwesáhsne A, Ohswé:ken’ O, and Tyendinaga T.

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Chapter 10

Negation in Oneida

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This chapter focuses on the expression of negation in Oneida, which involves both an independent word (usually the particle *yah*) and a negative prefix on verbs or the word *té·kʌ*. Overall, negation in Oneida is uniform across phrases and clauses, and the relation between scope and negation is also uniform (the negative particle *yah* must occur to the left of any operator or predicate it scopes over). Nevertheless, the expression of negation in Oneida is remarkable for the complexity of its morphological expression, and the presence of a series of ontologically general words that are both used as negative polarity items and serve as the basis of the "derivation" of corresponding indefinite expressions.

Keywords: Oneida, Iroquoian, negation, morphology.

1 The language

Oneida (ISO: one, Glottocode: onei1249) is one of five Northern Iroquoian languages still spoken by those who learned their language as a first language, before English. The others are Mohawk, the most closely related to Oneida, Onondaga, Cayuga, and Seneca. The Iroquoian languages are polysynthetic, known for their pervasive noun incorporation and enormously complex prefixal inflection with sometimes funky phonological processes making it difficult to unambiguously decide on discrete morpheme boundaries. Today, there are three Oneida territories in the United States and Canada. The Oneida Nation of New York is located on territory east of Syracuse, New York. During the 1800s groups of Oneidas moved away from New York and established settlements in southwestern Ontario and in the vicinity of Green Bay, Wisconsin. Oneida has been considered a severely endangered language. Presently Oneida is spoken by speakers who

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learned Oneida as a first language only in Ontario at the Oneida Nation of the Thames, where according to latest estimates there are fewer than 40 fluent first-language speakers. Fewer than 30 elders were reported to have learned Oneida before English in Wisconsin in the mid-1990s, and the last speaker, Maria Hinton, died at age 103 in 2013. There have been no first-language speakers from the Oneida Nation in NY since at least the mid-1970s or 80s. Encouraging though, is that all the Northern Iroquoian communities (including Tuscarora and Wendat in addition to the five mentioned above) have programs that are committed to the inter-generational transmission of the languages, and some of these efforts have been remarkably successful. More and more, second-language learners provide an expertise when first-language speakers cannot.

The presentation of Oneida negation patterns in this paper follows the organization in the questionnaire provided by the editors of this volume (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). The data is almost exclusively from the Oneida Nation of the Thames. There are some differences between the variety of Oneida spoken in Ontario and in Wisconsin. For example, the word for ‘no’ in Wisconsin is *yáhtʌʔ*, which is related to the negative particle *yah*. In Ontario, the word for ‘no’ is *táh*. Most of the examples in this paper were gleaned from the text collections in Michelson et al. (2016). Extracts are reproduced exactly as in the original, including any punctuation (or lack of it) when the extract is only part of an utterance. The speaker’s name is identified after the extract, followed by the page number where the extract can be found, and the utterance number. The excerpts from texts are supplemented by data from Michelson & Doxtator (2002) and from collaborative work with the late Mercy Doxtator, the late Norma Kennedy, and Olive Elm. Occasionally approximations of English sentences from the questionnaire were requested from Olive Elm, and all unattributed examples were confirmed with Olive Elm.

The expression of negation in Oneida, aside from imperative and prohibitive contexts, is for the most part uniform. Only clausal negation is present in the language and the same formal expression is used in all major syntactic structures (including questions, stative predications, and indefinites) and in both main and embedded clauses. Still, slightly different constraints are operative in a number of contexts of use, and there are certain structures, for example what we call *negation spreading* and different structures for negating category membership (or identification) versus negating a participant in a situation, where there is more to be said in a description that calls for completeness. Also, a few aspects of negation in Oneida stand out typologically; especially notable is that the distribution of negative formatives in Oneida offers a particularly clear example of the distinction between *morphosyntactic features*, in this case the feature *negative*, and the *exponents* of that feature.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is expressed in Oneida by a particle, which is *yah* in most contexts except those noted below and in §2.2, plus a negative prefix on the verb. In the example of standard negation in (1) the negative prefix is *teʔ-*.[1] Whereas in other Northern Iroquoian languages the particle that occurs in standard negation is the same as the word for 'no,' this is not the case in Oneida as spoken at the Oneida Nation of the Thames (the variety represented in this paper); the negative particle is *yah* while 'no' is *táh*.

(1) a. *wakanúhteʔ*
wak-anuhte-ʔ
1SG.P-know-STAT
'I know' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 107)

b. *yah teʔwakanúhteʔ*
yah teʔ-wak-anuhte-ʔ
not NEG-1SG.P-know-STAT
'I don't know' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 107)

This pattern – particle plus verbal prefix – is usually classified as *double negation* (Dryer 2013; Van Alsenoy & van der Auwera 2014) and it occurs in all clauses except (non-declarative) imperatives and prohibitives. In Miestamo's (2003) typology, Oneida exhibits symmetrical negation: a negative clause involves only the addition of the particle plus prefix to the corresponding positive. However

[1] In the Oneida orthography the vowel *u* is a high (for some speakers closer to mid) back mildly rounded nasalized vowel and *ʌ* is a low-mid central nasalized vowel. A raised period indicates vowel length. Underlining indicates devoicing, one of a set of phonological processes that occur at the ends of utterances. In the interlinear glosses a bare numeral 3 abbreviates a number of third person categories: feminine singular, indefinite or non-specific, masculine dual and plural, and feminine-zoic dual and plural (see Michelson 2015 for the gender categories of Oneida). When we give excerpts from recorded texts, we generally do not cite a sentence or utterance in its entirety; any punctuation, or lack of it, is as in the original transcriptions of the recording. Also note that Oneida has over 150 uninflected particles, and speakers find some of them difficult to translate into English; these are simply glossed 'PTCL' in the interlinear glosses.

negation in Oneida is also asymmetrical because it is restricted to certain aspect–mode categories. The negative structure occurs in two of the three basic aspects, the habitual (imperfective) and stative. The third basic aspect, the punctual (or perfective) always occurs with one of three modal prefixes: future, optative, or factual. The optative mode of the punctual aspect can be negated, but the factual and future cannot. Verbs that otherwise occur in the factual mode are negated with the stative aspect (2), and verbs that otherwise occur in the future mode are negated with the optative mode (3). The example in (3) shows also that material can intervene between the negative particle and the negative verb form.

(2) a. *waʔukwanú·lyahkeʔ*
wa?-yukwa-nuhlyaʔk-eʔ
FACT-1PL.P-get.hurt-PNC
'we got hurt'

b. *yah teʔyukwanuhlyá·ku*
yah teʔ-yukwa-nuhlyaʔk-u
not NEG-1SG.P-get.hurt-STAT
'we weren't hurt' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 538)

(3) a. *ʌtehsanúhtuʔ*
ʌ-te-hs-anuhtu-ʔ
FUT-CIS-2SG.A-determine/control-PNC
'you will determine it' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 108)

b. *nʌ kiʔ yah isé· thaesanúhtuʔ*
nʌ kiʔ yah isé· th-ae-s-anuhtu-ʔ
now actually not you CNTR-OPT-2SG.P-determine/control-PNC
'you are not going to have your way.' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 338 (256))

The form *th-* in (3b) is usually identified as the contrastive prefix. It occurs instead of the negative form *teʔ-* under two conditions: (i) when the verb is in the optative mode, as in the example in (3b), or (ii) when either (or both) the dualic (4b) or translocative (5b) verbal prefixes are also present.[2]

(4) a. *tewakatuhutsyoní*
te-wak-atuhutsyoni
DLC-1SG.P-want/need[STAT]
'I want or need it' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 254)

[2]An additional, unusual, exponent of the negative with the translocative is discussed in §4.6.3.

b. *yah thaʔtewakatuhutsyoní*
yah th-aʔte-wak-atuhutsyoni
not CNTR-DLC-1SG.P-want/need[STAT]
'I don't want or need it'

(5) a. *tho yʌhʌ́skeʔ*
tho yʌh-ʌ-s-k-e-ʔ
there TRL-FUT-RPT-1SG.A-walk/go-PNC
'I will go there again' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 295)

b. *yah tho thyusa·ké·*
yah tho th-y-u-s-a-k-e-ʔ
not there CNTR-TRL-OPT-RPT-OPT-1SG.A-go/walk-PNC
'I won't go there again'

It is important, for the proper classification of Oneida negation, to recognize that it is not the case that in examples such as (4b) and (5b) the particle *yah* is simply added to a positive verb form with the contrastive prefix. Outside of the negative, the contrastive is relatively unproductive, and negated contrastive forms are not accepted. Abbott (2000: 12) is explicit about this point: "the negative and contrastive are mutually exclusive semantically". The contrastive is the realization, or exponent, of the negative morphosyntactic *feature* under the conditions stated above; it is *not* just an exponent of the contrastive feature. An example of a verb form with the contrastive feature can be seen in (6), which was spoken in the context of people nowadays being on welfare instead of working for their money.

(6) *nʌ seʔ kwáh ok thiyesahwista·wíheʔ*
nʌ seʔ kwáh ok thi-yesa-hwist-awi-heʔ
then too just only CNTR-3>2SG-money-give-HAB
'you just get money given to you.' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 322(100))

In sum, clausal negation in Oneida involves a negative particle and an exponent of the negative feature, either *teʔ-* or *th-*. Both *teʔ-* and *th-* occur word-initially in the verb, i.e. in the same "slot" in the morphological template of the Oneida verb. Two other prefixes that occur in the word-initial "slot" are the *partitive* and *coincident* prefixes (using Iroquoianist terms) and thus are in complementary distribution with the negative and contrastive exponents; discussion of these in negative structures is deferred to §4.6.2.

To end this section, we mention two additional negative particles, *áhsu* 'not yet', exemplified in (7), and *ahsuhkʌ́* (for an example see (78) in §4.6.2). In the excerpt in (7) the narrator is telling us that the house her father was building was not even finished when they moved there. Both the particles *áhsu* and *ahsuhkʌ́* are attested far less often than *yah*.

(7)

áhsu	*kwahotokʌ́·u*	*teʔyotéhsuʔ*	*ókhnaʔ*
áhsu	kwahotokʌ́·u	teʔ-yo-atehs-uʔ	ókhnaʔ
not.yet	just.for.real	NEG-3Z/N.SG.P-get.finished-STAT	and.then

yaʔakwanáklateʔ.
y-aʔ-yakw-anaklat-eʔ
TRL-FACT-1EXCL.PL.A-move/settle.in-PNC

'it [the house] wasn't finished yet and already we moved in.' Olive Elm (Michelson et al. 2016: 106 (3))

2.2 Non-declarative negation

In this section we describe polar questions, and imperatives and prohibitives. Negative polar questions use standard negation and so are discussed first.

Polar questions are formed with the second-position polar question particle *kʌ* (8). In negative polar questions *kʌ* occurs after the negative particle, and otherwise the question is like any other standard negation; (9) is an example of a negative polar question. The expected reply to a negative polar question is normally *táh* 'no' (see also §3.1). Utterances with the structure of negative polar questions, however, are attested more frequently as indirect speech acts.

The excerpt in (10) was uttered by the narrator's father after he scared her mother by showing a pig head through a window; this happened after some spooky events that led the narrator's mother to believe their house was haunted, and she was not happy about being pranked by a pig head.[3]

(8)

shekú	*kʌ*	*yetshi·kʌ́heʔ*	*thikʌ́*	*atyanlúhslaʔ*	*owahá·ke.*
shekú	kʌ	yetshi-kʌ-heʔ	thikʌ́	atyanlúhslaʔ	owahá·ke
still	Q	2DU>3-see-HAB	that	ghost	on.the.road

'do you still see that ghost on the road?' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 67 (21))

[3] Woodbury (2018: 394) reports that in the related language Onondaga negative polar questions occur rarely in her corpus, and when they do, they usually are interpreted as polite requests.

(9) *Yah kʌ teʔsatkáthu n aké·slet.*
yah kʌ teʔ-s-atkath-u n ake-ʔslet
not Q NEG-2SG.P-see-STAT PTCL 1SG.POSS-car
'You haven't seen my car?' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 133 (27))

(10) *yah kʌ teʔsatshanuní kóskos okúhsaʔ ʌ́hseke*
yah kʌ teʔ-s-atshanuni kóskos okúhsaʔ ʌ-hse-k-eʔ
not Q NEG-2SG.P-happy[STAT] pig face FUT-2SG.A-eat-PNC
ʌyólhʌneʔ.
ʌyólhʌneʔ
tomorrow
'you're not happy? you can eat the pig face tomorrow?' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 114 (43))

Polar questions can occur with modal verbs, for example *-atu-* 'possible, can be.' This verb, when inflected with the feminine-zoic/neuter singular prefix, expresses possibility or permission (11) and necessity (12). The examples in (12) differ from those in (11) only by the presence of the particle *nok* (otherwise 'only'); in other words the particle *nok* has the effect of altering an expression of possibility to one of necessity.

As expected, (11c), (11d) and (12c), (12d) adhere to the structure of standard negation. Also, as expected, while the future prefix occurs with the verbs in the positive sentences, the optative prefix occurs in the negative ones.

(11) a. *Ʌwa·tú· ʌkatnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.*
Ʌ-w-atu-ʔ ʌ-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC FUT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
'I can go and play.'

b. *Ʌwa·tú· kʌ ʌkatnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.*
Ʌ-w-atu-ʔ kʌ ʌ-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC Q FUT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
'Can I go and play?'

c. *Yah thau·tú· a·katnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.*
yah th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
not CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
'I can't go and play.'

d. *Yah kʌ thau·tú· a·katnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.*
yah kʌ th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
not Q CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
'I can't go and play?'

(12) a. *Nok ʌwa·tú· ʌkatnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.*
nok ʌ-w-atu-ʔ ʌ-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
only FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC FUT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
'I have to go and play.'

b. *Nok kʌ ʌwa·tú· ʌkatnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.*
nok kʌ ʌ-w-atu-ʔ ʌ-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
only Q FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC FUT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
'Do I have to go and play?'

c. *Yah nok thau·tú· a·katnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.*
yah nok th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
not only CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
'I don't have to go and play.'

d. *Yah kʌ nok thau·tú· a·katnutolyaʔtá·naʔ.*
yah kʌ nok th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-k-atnutolyaʔtahn-aʔ
not Q only CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-1SG.A-go.and.play-PNC
'I don't have to go and play?'

Negative imperatives and prohibitives deviate from the standard negation structure in that the particle *tákʌʔ* occurs instead of the negative particle *yah* and the verb does not have a negative prefix. Negative imperatives require the future modal prefix on the verb, while prohibitives require the optative. An imperative form is given in (13), a negative imperative in (14) and a prohibitive in (15). The ending of the verb form that usually occurs in the imperative (both negative and non-negative) and prohibitive is best described as based on the punctual aspect verb form, but with some substractive morphology in that the imperative lacks a final glottal stop or a final vowel *e* (historically an epenthetic vowel) plus glottal stop, and if the punctual form ends in a long vowel, the imperative form ends in a short vowel.[4] Sometimes though (unpredictably) the punctual ending occurs.

[4]In the punctual aspect, the verb in (13) would end in a long vowel, (14) and (15) in *ʔ*, and (17) in *-neʔ*.

(13) *Wá·s yaʔsenhotukó ohná·kʌʔ nukwá·,*
wá·s yaʔ-se-nhotuko ohná·kʌʔ nukwá·
go TRL-2SG.A-open.door[IMP] back where
'Go open the back door,' Olive Elm (Michelson et al. 2016: 60 (4))

(14) *tákʌʔ náhteʔ ʌhsí·lu.*
tákʌʔ náhteʔ ʌ-hs-ihlu
don't anything FUT-2SG.A-say[IMP]
'you don't say anything.' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 230 (85))

(15) *Né· kyuhte wí· thikʌ́ waʔshakohlo·lí· tákʌʔ*
né· kyuhte wí· thikʌ́ waʔ-shako-hloli-ʔ tákʌʔ
ASRT supposedly that FACT-3M.SG>3-tell-PNC don't

a·yakotétshʌ.
aa-yako-atetshʌ
OPT-3FI.SG.P-become.afraid[IMP]
'He told her she shouldn't become afraid.' Olive Elm (Michelson et al. 2016: 169 (47))

As evident from examples (16) and (17), the prohibitive structure is used not just to state that something should be avoided but also to describe a reason for doing something when an alternative action would, supposedly, result in an undesirable outcome. These negative purpose clauses are perhaps the closest equivalent to contexts where the English conjunction 'lest' is found.

(16) *Senhotú kwí· tákʌʔ utahutáyaht*
se-nhotu kwí· tákʌʔ u-t-a-hu-atayaht
2SG.A-close.a.door[IMP] PTCL don't OPT-CIS-OPT-3M.PL.A-enter-[IMP]
tsíks.
tsíks
flies
'Close the door so the flies don't come in!' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 526)

(17) *tákʌʔ a·knahko·lʌ́n kyuhte wáh.*
tákʌʔ aa-k-nahkw-olʌʔ-n kyuhte wáh
don't OPT-1SG.A-mate-find-IMP supposedly indeed
'(It's kind of like she watched over me,) so I would not get a man supposedly.' Pearl Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 310 (130))

2.3 Negation in stative predications

In many languages, like English, the same negative structure is used for concepts such as attribution, possession, and locations. English neutralizes the semantic distinction between predicative phrases that describe, e.g. occupations (*John is a dentist*) and membership in a category of objects (*Pop is a beagle*); they are both predicative phrases. The syntax and the morphology of Oneida, however, distinguishes between stative situations and objects. The former are expressed by verbs, the latter by nouns (but see Koenig & Michelson 2020, 2023 for what the terms *verb* and *noun* mean in this context), and different patterns of negation apply to these two kinds of stative predicates. In what follows we give examples that show that standard negation applies to attributes, locations, existential meaning, and possession. Then we describe a different structure for category membership and kin relations, as well as an alternative possession pattern (see Koenig & Michelson 2021 for details on the morphosyntax of possession in Oneida).

Stative predications that involve verbs – occupations and similar offices; attribution; proper inclusion; locative, existential and possessive predication – are all negated with the clausal negation pattern described in §2.1. Occupations are generally expressed with the habitual aspect of verbs (e.g. *shakonawilahslu·níheʔ* 'dentist,' literally, 'he fixes their teeth') and attribution is generally expressed with stative verbs (indicated *v.s.* in Michelson & Doxtator 2002 or *state* in Abbott et al. 1996). These are negated as any other clause. An example of attribution and its negation is given in (18).

(18) a. *yokʌhákste?*
yo-kʌh-a-kst-eʔ
3Z/N.SG.P-blanket-JOIN-heavy-STAT
'it's a heavy blanket'

b. *yah teʔyokʌhákste?*
yah teʔ-yo-kʌh-a-kst-eʔ
not NEG-3Z/N.SG.P-blanket-JOIN-heavy-STAT
'it's not a heavy blanket' (Olive Elm, p.c.)

Locative and existential meanings, and possession, are all conveyed with verbs of position: *-yʌ-/-yʌt-* 'put or lie something down (on the ground),' *-ot-/-hnyot-* 'erect or stand something up,' *-hl-hel-* 'set or place on top of,' and *-t-* 'be standing' occur most often, although there are other verbs whose meaning includes location of a particular category of entity (such as snow, in (19c) below). Turning first to locatives, the verb specifies the position or orientation of an entity, and the located entity is more often than not denoted by a noun stem that has been incorporated into the verb; in the examples in (19a) and (19b) the stem *-nuhs-* 'house' is incorporated into the verb *-ot-* 'stand.' The specific location (where something is located) is expressed by the particle *tho* 'there' plus the separate clause *aʔé· naʔoháhati* 'over on the other side of the road' in (19a), or a form that has a locative suffix, *owahaʔkéshuʔ* 'on the roads', in (19c). Negation of clauses that include a positional verb take the usual form, *yah* plus negative prefix.

(19) a. *aʔé· naʔoháhati kʌ́·, tho*
aʔé· naʔ-yo-hah-ati kʌ́· tho
great par-3z/n.sg.p-road-other.side[stat] y'know there
tkanúhsoteʔ,
t-ka-nuhs-ot-eʔ
cis-3z/n.sg.a-house-stand-stat
'over on the other side of the road, there was a house,' Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 142–143 (5))

b. *né· aolí·waʔ yah tho teʔskanúhsoteʔ.*
né· aolí·waʔ yah tho teʔ-s-ka-nuhs-ot-eʔ
asrt the.reason not there neg-rpt-3z/n.sg.a-house-stand-stat
'(we had a fire,) that's why the house isn't there anymore.' Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 142 (4))

c. *yah tho teʔkanye·yʌ́·*
yah tho teʔ-ka-nyeyʌ-ʔ
not there neg-3z/n.sg.a-snow.gets.on.the.ground-stat
owahaʔkéshuʔ,
o-wah-aʔke-shuʔ
3z/n.sg.p-road/path-loc-distr
'there wasn't snow on the roads,' Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 193 (13))

Existential meaning is expressed with positional verbs, as pointed out above, and, for animate beings, with the habitual aspect of the verb *-e-* 'walk, go.' Examples are given in (20). Negative existentials often include indefinite expressions (§4.2). The example in (20c) shows the effect of a regular phonological alternation of Oneida, whereby a glottal stop (in this case the *ʔ* of the negative prefix *teʔ-*) is deleted when it follows an accented vowel, and the accented vowel lengthens.

(20) a. *tahnú· kwáh kok nikú ska·yʌ́· thikʌ́ othé·tsliʔ,*
tahnú· kwáh kok nikú s-ka-yʌ-ʔ thikʌ́ othé·tsliʔ
and just a.little amount RPT-3Z/N.SG.A-put-STAT that flour
'and there was just a small amount of flour left,' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 224 (42))

b. *wahʌ́·luʔ thikʌ́ shakotsyapslatshʌlyá·se,*
wahʌ́·luʔ thikʌ́ shako-tsyap-sl-a-tshʌly-a-ʔse
he.said that 3M.SG>3-job-NMLZ-JOIN-look.for-JOIN-BEN[STAT]
wahʌ́·luʔ "yah náhteʔ teʔka·yʌ́·",
wahʌ́·luʔ yah náhteʔ teʔ-ka-yʌ-ʔ
he.said not anything NEG-3Z/N.SG.A-put-STAT
'the person who finds jobs for people said, he said "there's nothing available"' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 231 (90))

c. *Wahotétshʌʔ lonúhteʔ tsiʔ yah úhkaʔ*
wa-ho-atetshʌ-ʔ lo-anuhte-ʔ tsiʔ yah úhkaʔ
FACT-3M.SG.P-get.scared-PNC 3M.SG.P-know-STAT COMP not anyone
oyá· tho té·yʌhseʔ,
oyá· tho teʔ-yʌ-e-ʔseʔ
else there NEG-3FI.A-walk/go-HAB
'He got scared knowing that there wasn't anyone else there,' Rose Antone (Michelson et al. 2016: 100 (12))

An example of possession is the following excerpt. It includes two positional verbs, first one where possession is asserted, and then one where possession is negated, as in (21).

(21) *kítkit ok oniʔ usayukwayʌ·tákeʔ yah oniʔ*
kítkit ok oniʔ u-s-a-yukwa-yʌt-ak-eʔ yah oniʔ
chicken(s) only too OPT-RPT-OPT-1PL.P-put/have-CONT-PNC not too
né· teʔtsyukwa·<u>yʌ́·</u>.
né· teʔ-ts-yukwa-yʌ-ʔ
ASRT NEG-RPT-1PL.P-put/have-STAT
'we should have chickens too, we don't have them anymore either.' Hazel Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 181 (13))

Stative predications that assert that an entity is a member of a category and involve nouns, in the simplest case, involve the so-called "assertion" particle *né·* and either a demonstrative particle or the particle *né·n*, as in the excerpt in

(22). Here the speaker is talking about her father telling his children about what will happen in the future, including things like airplanes, which didn't exist at the time. Membership in a category (23), as well as statements of non-identity (24), are denied with the special form *té·kʌ*. Etymologically this form probably is the negative prefix *teʔ-* plus a component *-kʌ-* which in the contemporary language occurs most obviously in the proximal and distal demonstrative words *kaʔikʌ́* 'here' and *thikʌ́* 'there.'[5] (Again, by regular phonological rule, a glottal stop that follows an accented vowel deletes and the vowel lengthens, and so *teʔ-kʌ* is realized as *té·kʌ*.).

(22)

náhteʔ	*katiʔ*	*né·*	*lʌ·té·*	*kaʔi·kʌ́.*	*Né·n*	*né·*	*kwí·*	*né·n*	*airplane.*
what	then	ASRT	he.means	this		PTCL	ASRT	PTCL	PTCL	airplane

'What does he mean by this? It's an airplane.' Margaret Antone (Michelson et al. 2016: 176 (27–28))

(23)

ókhaleʔ	*nʌ*	*sʌ*	*waʔkáttokeʔ*	*tsiʔ*	*yah*	*seʔ*	*kóskos*	*té·kʌ.*
ókhaleʔ	nʌ	sʌ	waʔ-k-attok-eʔ	tsiʔ	yah	seʔ	kóskos	té·kʌ
and	now	too	FACT-1SG.A-notice-PNC	COMP	not	EMPH	pig	it's.not

'and then I noticed that this was no pig.' Abbott (1982–1983: 75)

(24) A:

Isé·	*kʌ*	*tho*	*tsyá·taleʔ.*
isé·	kʌ	tho	ts-yaʔt-a-l-eʔ
you	Q	there	2SG.A-body-JOIN-be.in-STAT

'Is that you in the picture?'

B:

Yah	*kiʔ*	*í·*	*té·kʌ.*
not	in.fact	1	it's.not

'It's not me.'

Kin relations (25) and possessed nouns (26) can also be negated with *té·kʌ*. Possession is usually conveyed by the use of the predicative structure with positional verbs described above, but subsequent references to a possessed entity can be made by means of a possessive prefix on the stem denoting the possessed entity; in this case negation is expressed with *té·kʌ*.

(25)

Yah	*né·*	*laksótha*	*té·kʌ,*	*laknulhá·*	*nʌʔ né·.*
not	ASRT	my.grandfather	it's.not	my.uncle	that.one

'That's not my grandfather, he's my uncle.'

[5] Woodbury (2018: 214) hypothesizes that the cognate word in Onondaga, *déʔgę̨h* includes the verb root *-i-* 'to be the total of, be all of it, be only'.

(26) *Yah í· akwá·shaleʔ té·kʌ.*
yah í· akw-aʔshal-eʔ té·kʌ
not 1 1SG.POSS-knife-NS it's.not
'It's not my knife.'

Interestingly, both kinship and possessed entities can be negated with the pattern that usually applies to clauses, i.e. with the particle *yah* and the prefix *teʔ-*, as in, for example, *yah tehaksótha* 'he is not my grandfather.' However, this structure is accepted by speakers only sporadically for kin relations, and for possessed entities consistently only with the stem *-awʌ-* 'belonging' (27). (Note that the negative form of *-awʌ-* 'belonging in (27b) has a verbal patient prefix, and not a possessive prefix as in the positive form in (27a).) Also, it should be noted that some speakers are careful to point out that, though sentences like 'he is not my grandfather' do occur, the pragmatics are such that they are not often uttered (regardless of which structure is used). So the way someone might ask about the identity of a person's mother (say an older lady and a young man are standing together) is *Né· uhte kʔ lonulháh?* 'It's presumably his mother? i.e. I wonder/You think maybe it's his mother?' And the response then might be *Táh, Lucy né· lonulháh.* 'No, Lucy is his mother.'

(27) a. *Í· né· akwawʌ́ thikʌ́ (oʔwáshaleʔ).*
í· né· akw-awʌ thikʌ́ (oʔwáshaleʔ)
1 ASRT 1SG.POSS-belonging that earring(s)
'Those are mine (my earrings).'

b. *Yah né· akaulhá· teʔyakowʌ́ thikʌ́ (oʔwáshaleʔ).*
yah né· aka-ulhaʔ teʔ-yako-awʌ thikʌ́ (oʔwáshaleʔ)
not ASRT 3FI.P-self NEG-3FI.P-belonging that earring(s)
'Those aren't hers (her earrings).'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

As noted already, standard negation is used in all clauses, and regardless of whether the clause functions as a main or dependent clause, or whether the clause expresses location, existence, membership in a category, or possession. In the excerpt in (28) both clauses are negative.

(28) *Yah kwí· teʔwaklʌʔnhá·u yah kánikeʔ*
yah kwí· teʔ-wak-lʌʔnhaʔ-u yah kánikeʔ
not PTCL NEG-1SG.P-know.how-STAT not anywhere

tha·hné·sheke?.
th-aa-hn-e-ʔshek-eʔ
CNTR-OPT-3M.DU.A-walk/go-CONT-PNC
'I wasn't used to the two of them [my parents] not being there.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 118 (8))

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Oneida has a number of stems whose meanings appear to include some negative component; several are listed in (29); inflected forms of these may be found in Michelson & Doxtator (2002). These are not the negative correspondents of lexical items expressing positive meanings. Only one of the verbs in (29), *-atanowʌht-* 'doubt', is clearly analyzable (it is based on the stative verb root *-anowʌ-* 'lie', to which the causative suffix has been added, *-anowʌ-ht-* 'tell lies', and then the semi-reflexive or middle prefix *-at-anowʌ-ht-* 'doubt, be doubtful'). Examples of three of the stems in (29) are given in (30–32). In addition to the stems in (29) there is also the particle *áhsu* 'not yet' mentioned in §2.1.

(29)	*-ahtakw-/-ahtakwʌʔ-*	'be unable to do, fail in an attempt'
	-alahsalʌ-	'hold back, not want to do something'
	-atanowʌht-	'doubt'
	-atstahl-	'be unable to find something'
	-luhyaʔtahkw-	'be uncooperative'
	-nolu-	'be unable to quite make it, have a hard time, get stuck'
	-oʔkt-	'run out of, lack'
	-yehwa-/-yehwha-	'be unable to find'

(30) *Né·n waʔtyutkahtúniʔ* *kaʔikʌ́ átste,* *kwáh kiʔ* *né·*
né·n waʔ-t-yu-atkaht-unyu-ʔ kaʔikʌ́ átste, kwáh kiʔ né·
PTCL FACT-DLC-3FI.A-look-DISTR-PNC this outside just actually ASRT
sayutatyaʔtátstaleʔ *utatyʌ́ha,*
s-a-yutat-yaʔt-atstal-eʔ utatyʌ́ha
RPT-FACT-3FI>3FI-body-unable.to.find-PNC her.daughter
'She looked all around outside, she just couldn't find her daughter,' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 52 (23))

(31)	*swatyelʌ́*	*s*	*tsiʔ*	*naʔteyukwayenhalá·u*	*thikʌ́*
	swatyelʌ́	s	tsiʔ	n-aʔte-yukwa-yenhalaʔ-u	thikʌ́
	sometimes	usually	COMP	PAR-DLC-1PL.P-get.busy-STAT	that

yukwatʌhni·nú· *Swatyelʌ́* *s*
yukw-atʌhninu-ʔ swatyelʌ́ s
1PL.P-sell-STAT sometimes usually
waʔakwathnʌnaʔtó·ktʌʔ,
waʔ-yakw-at-hnʌnaʔt-oʔkt-ʌʔ
FACT-1EXCL.PL.A-SREFL-potato-run.out.of-PNC
'sometimes we would be really busy selling. Sometimes we ran out of potatoes,' Georgina Nicholas (Michelson et al. 2016: 216 (141–142))

(32) *Wahatano·wʌ́hteʔ* *náhteʔ wahetshlo·lí·.*
wa-h-at-anowʌ-ht-eʔ náhteʔ wa-hets-hloli-ʔ
FACT-3M.SG.A-SREFL-lie-CAUS-PNC what FACT-2SG>3M.SG-tell-PNC
'He had doubts about what you told him.'

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The words for 'yes' and 'no' in Oneida (as spoken at the Oneida Nation of the Thames territory) are, respectively, *hʌ́·* and *táh*. Both can function as replies to questions. But only *táh* normally answers a negative polar question.[6] The assumption by the person uttering the negative polar question is that the content is negative, and the answer *táh* 'no' agrees with that content. For example, *táh* 'no' answers the polar question in (33), and *táh* 'no' or better *áhsu kiʔ* 'not yet in fact' is the response to the polar question in (34).

(33) *Yah kʌ nok thau·tú·* *a·hoyo·tʌ́·.*
yah kʌ nok th-aa-w-atu-ʔ aa-ho-yotʌ-ʔ
not Q only CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC OPT-3M.SG.P-work-PNC
'He doesn't have to work?'

(34) *Áhsu kʌ tha·yesaka·lí·* *otsiʔnu·wá·.*
áhsu kʌ th-aa-yesa-kali-ʔ otsiʔnu·wá·
not.yet Q CNTR-OPT-3>2SG-bite-PNC bug(s)
'The bugs haven't bitten you yet?'

[6]According to Sadock & Zwicky (1985: 180) the related language Onondaga has been claimed to have only biased questions. In Oneida, positive polar questions are neutral, and only negative polar questions are biased.

A positive *hʌ́·* 'yes' response can be given to negative polar questions, but it must be followed by a confirmation, as in example (35).

(35) A: *Yah kʌ tha·hakwe·ní· a·hakhu·ní·.*
yah kʌ th-aa-ha-kweni-ʔ aa-ha-khuni-ʔ
not Q CNTR-OPT-3M.SG.A-able-PNC OPT-3M.SG.A-cook-PNC
'He can't cook?'

B: *Hʌ́·, ʌhakwe·ní· kih.*
hʌ́· ʌ-ha-kweni-ʔ kiʔ
yes FUT-3M.SG.A-able-PNC actually
'Yes, he can actually.'

As mentioned in §2.2, most attested negative polar questions in our corpus are indirect speech acts used for special effect, and often in a good-natured way. They can sometimes elicit a positive answer, without the hearer agreeing with the content, or even treating it as a question. In fact, some of these negative questions seem to invite a positive answer, but one which contradicts the intent of the person asking the question, as in the example in (36); here a mother is admonishing her child, and the child may be thinking 'yes, of course' with respect to the literal reading of the question but may not be in agreement with the intent of the question. In other cases, the negative question may be used playfully; the excerpt in (37) was spoken at the end of a scary story about a ghost. The storyteller is uttering this question as a way of engaging her audience. (In (37) the *ʔ* of the negative prefix *teʔ-* is regularly deleted before a following *h*.)

(36) *Yah kʌ thaʔtehsahuhtaká·luteʔ.*
yah kʌ th-aʔte-hs-ahuht-a-kahlut-eʔ
not Q CNTR-DLC-2SG.A-ear-JOIN-be.an.opening-STAT
'Don't you have holes in your ears?' (Michelson & Doxtator 2002: 83)

(37) *Yah kʌ téhselheʔ a·sheyaʔtisákhaʔ.*
yah kʌ teʔ-hs-elh-eʔ aa-she-yaʔt-isakh-aʔ
not Q NEG-2SG.A-want-STAT OPT-2SG>3-body-go.look.for-PNC
'Don't you want to go and look for her?' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 69 (45))

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

There are no negative quantifiers in Oneida; negative existential quantification corresponding to English *nothing*, *nobody* and the like (called *negative indefinites* in Haspelmath 1997: 194) is expressed using standard clausal negation, i.e. the negative particle *yah* and the negative form of the verb together with a negative polarity item (specifically a word that otherwise functions as an interrogative pronoun) in the scope of *yah*. Negative polarity items are introduced in the section on negative polarity, §4.2.

3.3 Negative derivation

Semantically, notions such as the reverse of a situation may be construed as a kind of negation, and in Oneida certain pairs of contrary meanings are conveyed morphologically: some actions (e.g. open/close) (38a), scalar expressions (e.g. long/short) (38b), and transfer of ownership (e.g. buy/sell) (38c). These are conveyed, respectively, by the "reversative" suffix, the diminutive ending, and the "semi-reflexive" prefix, although it should be noted that each of these morphemes has other functions as well. There is no derivational equivalent to English *un-* or *-less*.

(38) a. *-nhotu-* 'close a door' — *-nhotukw-* 'open a door'
-ashalut- 'tie someone up' — *-ashalutakw-* 'untie, unleash'
-hweʔnuni- 'wrap into a package, bundle' — *-hweʔnunyahsyu-* 'unwrap, unbundle'

b. *-es-* 'be a (certain) length' — *-esha-* 'be short'
-aʔslatye- 'be a (certain) width' — *-aʔslatyeha-* 'be narrow'

c. *-hninu-* 'buy' — *-atʌhninu-* 'sell'
-niha- 'lend' — *-atʌniha-* 'borrow'

3.4 Other negative expressions

In our corpus there are examples of utterances with *yah*, but no (negative) verb. Because there is no verb they are aptly discussed in a section devoted to non-clausal negation, although we do not commit to an analysis in which all examples involve non-clausal negation. In this type of example what is denied is that a particular entity is the right one (39) and (40), or belongs to the right category (41).[7] The entity is specified by a noun or other nominal element – the particle cluster *nʌʔ né·* in (39), *í· lakeʔníha* in (40), *é·lhal* in (41); what is being negated may be known from previous context, as in (39) and (40), or it can be mentioned later in the same utterance (41).

[7] We do not provide a line that segments words into morphs for examples that contain only uninflected words or where inflected words are not analyzed.

(39) *Ok ne? thikʌ́, yah nʌ? né·.*
but PTCL that not that.one
'(So then you turn on a light, it illuminates the whole house; if you turn on a light.) But not that one.' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 112 (17))

(40) *Yah ki? né·n í· lake?níha.*
not in.fact PTCL 1 my.father
'(Your father is mean.) Not my father.'

(41) *yah kwí· né· shekú né·n é·lhal yah tha·hakwe·ní·*
yah kwí· né· shekú né·n é·lhal yah th-aa-ha-kweni-?
not PTCL ASRT even PTCL dog not CNTR-OPT-3M.SG.A-able-PNC
aá·lake? ni·yót.
aa-hla-k-e? ni·yót
OPT-3M.SG.A-eat-PNC how.it.is
'not even a dog could eat it, how it was.' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 225 (53))

Sometimes it is a whole proposition that is denied, as in (42); hence the English translation 'it wasn't the case.'.

(42) *Ok ne? thó·ne? yah nʌ? né·,*
but at.that.time not that's.it
'(Even to cut wood you have to have an education.) But at that time it wasn't the case,' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 236 (116))

The negative particle *yáhtʌ?* 'not so' also functions to deny an entire proposition; but it appears additionally to be anaphoric. In other words, *yáhtʌ?* seems to function as a negative propositional anaphor (43–45).[8]

(43) *Nók tsi? sʌ́ha? ki? yah te?kattókhahkwe? kwí·*
nók tsi? sʌ́ha? ki? yah te?-k-attok-hahkwe? kwí·
but more actually not NEG-1SG.A-be.wise-HAB.PST PTCL
utahséhtahkwe? ok oni? n yáhtʌ?,
u-t-a-hs-ehtahkw-e? ok oni? n yáhtʌ?
OPT-CIS-OPT-2SG.A-believe-PNC and or PTCL not.so
'But even more I had no sense, you can believe it or not,' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 228 (74))

[8] *Yáhtʌ?* is the word for 'no' in the Wisconsin variety of Oneida, and is clearly related to *yah*. This is the only context where *yáhtʌ?* is attested in our corpus of the Ontario variety of Oneida.

(44) *Nók tsiʔ neʔ thó·neʔ yah kwí· náhteʔ got no brain. Shekú núwaʔ*
but at.that.time not PTCL anything got no brain still this.time
né· yáhtʌʔ.
ASRT not.so
'But back then I didn't have any brains. I still don't.' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 320 (82–83))

(45) *Tá·t yáhtʌʔ ʌhotiná·khwʌʔ kiʔ,*
tá·t yáhtʌʔ ʌ-hoti-naʔkhwʌ-ʔ kiʔ
if not.so FUT-3M.PL.P-get.mad-PNC actually
ʌyesaná·khwahseʔ tá·t yah tha·shni·nú·.
ʌ-yesa-naʔkhw-a-hs-eʔ tá·t yah th-aa-hs-hninu-ʔ
FUT-3>2SG-get.mad-JOIN-BEN-PNC if not CNTR-OPT-2SG.A-buy-PNC
'If not, they'll get mad, they will get mad at you if you won't buy it.' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 326–327 (146))

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Scope is generally left-to-right in Oneida. This is shown with the quantificational word *akwekú* 'all, the whole of' in the two contrasting examples below (46–47).

(46) *Yah akwekú teʔshakokwáhtu.*
yah akwekú teʔ-shako-kwaht-u
not all NEG-3M.SG>3-invite-STAT
'He didn't invite all of them, everyone.'

(47) *nʌ kyuniʔ wí· né· akwekú yah kánikeʔ*
nʌ kiʔ-uniʔ wí· né· akwekú yah kánikeʔ
now in.fact-too PTCL ASRT all not anywhere
teʔshʌ·né·seʔ.
teʔ-s-hʌn-e-ʔseʔ
NEG-RPT-3M.PL.A-walk/go-HAB
'(It used to be just [names],) they're all not around anymore.' Pearl Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 309 (112))

However when eliciting examples like these, speakers generally reject the order attested in (47). In this example those who are no longer around were identified in the preceding discourse. Out of context, though, speakers prefer to use a negative indefinite expression (see §4.2), as in (48) ('not anyone' rather than 'everyone not'). Or a close (though not exact) equivalent of *akwekú*, *kwah tsiʔ nihatí* can be used, as in (49).

(48) *yah né· úhkaʔ tha·yesa·kʌ́·.*
yah né· úhkaʔ th-aa-yesa-kʌ-ʔ
not ASRT anyone CNTR-OPT-3>2SG-see-PNC
'nobody will see you.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 128 (16))

(49) *Kwah tsiʔ nihatí yah*
kwah tsiʔ ni-hat-i yah
just how PAR-3M.PL.A-make.up.the.whole.of[STAT] not
tehone·ká·seʔ onuʔúseliʔ.
te-hon-ekaʔ-seʔ onuʔúseliʔ
NEG-3M.PL.P-like.the.taste-HAB squash
'However many there are (all of them) don't like squash.'

A contrast in scope is also attested with the modal verb *-atu-* 'possible, can be' (see §2.2 for additional examples of this verb). In the excerpt in (50), the speaker is talking about something which is not possible, but in (51) the speaker is talking about the possibility of a negative situation.

(50) *yah kwí· thau·tú· óksaʔ*
yah kwí· th-aa-w-atu-ʔ óksaʔ
not PTCL CNTR-OPT:3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC right.away
a·kyatekhu·ní·
aa-ky-atekhuni-ʔ
OPT-3FZ.DU.A-eat.a.meal-PNC
'they coudn't eat right away' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 50 (3))

(51) *Né· tsiʔ ʌwa·tú· seʔ yah*
né· tsiʔ ʌ-w-atu-ʔ seʔ yah
ASRT COMP FUT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC EMPH not
tha·hotiyo·tʌ́·.
th-aa-hoti-yotʌ-ʔ
CNTR-OPT-3M.PL.P-work-PNC
'Because it's possible for them not to work.' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 328 (156))

4.2 Negative polarity

In Oneida, indefinite expressions form a paradigm with words that are used in content questions and that we analyze as negative polarity items. These are: *úhkaʔ* 'anyone, who?' *náhteʔ* 'anything, what?', *kátshaʔ* 'anywhere, where?,' *kánhke* 'anytime, when?,' and *tó·* 'how' (used in questions having to do with manner and quantity, such as 'how long …'). Some of these are followed in some contexts by particles which have a classificatory function, such as *nú·* in *kátshaʔ nú·* 'when?' The particle *ok* (otherwise 'only, and') forms corresponding indefinite expressions, such as *úhkaʔ ok* 'someone,' *tok náhteʔ* or *thok náhteʔ* 'something,' *kátshaʔ ok nú·* 'somewhere.' Indefinite expressions in Oneida thus make use of both major kinds of "derivational bases" identified in Haspelmath (1997: 26): words used in content questions and generic ontological classifiers. Negative indefinites are expressed using standard clausal negation, i.e. the negative particle *yah* and the negative form of the verb together with a negative polarity item in the scope of *yah*, as in (52) and (53). The excerpt in (54) is a negative indefinite with *tákʌʔ*, used in prohibitives (see §2.2 on non-declarative negation.)

(52) *Yah úhkaʔ teʔyé·tluʔ,*
yah úhkaʔ teʔ-ye-iʔtlu-ʔ
not anyone NEG-3FI.A-sit/stay-STAT
'Nobody lived there,' Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 143 (6))

(53) *Yah kiʔ ní· nuwʌtú náhteʔ teʔyukyatkáthu í· khále? Masyha,*
yah kiʔ ní· nuwʌtú náhteʔ teʔ-yuky-atkath-u í· kháleʔ Masyha
not actually 1 ever anything NEG-1DU.P-see-STAT 1 and dear.Mercy
'But the two of us never ever saw anything, me and Mercy,' Olive Elm (Michelson et al. 2016: 64 (24))

(54) *wahatá·listeʔ tákʌʔ úhkaʔ a·yehlotʌ́ tho kanúsku*
wa-h-atahlist-eʔ tákʌʔ úhkaʔ aa-ye-hlotʌ tho kanúsku
FACT-3M.SG.A-forbid-PNC don't anyone OPT-3FI.A-smoke[IMP] there in.the.house
'he tells people no one should smoke in the house' Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 186 (16))

The contrast between *yah úhkaʔ* 'not anyone' ('no one') in (55) and *úhkaʔ yah* 'anyone not' in (56) shows the expected scopal relation of the negative polarity item with the negation.

(55) *Yah úhkaʔ teʔyakonúhteʔ.*
yah úhkaʔ teʔ-yako-anuhte-ʔ
not anyone NEG-3FI.P-know-STAT
'No one knows.' Margaret Antone (Michelson et al. 2016: 177 (47))

(56) *úhkaʔ yah tha·yutawyaʔtá·naʔ,*
úhkaʔ yah th-aa-yu-atawyaʔtahn-aʔ
anyone not CNTR-OPT-3FI.A-go.to.school-PNC
'[if] anyone wouldn't go to school,' Verland Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 328 (160))

In addition to questions and clausal negations, NPIs occur with the particle *ati* 'no matter, never mind, although,' which does not require a negative verb, but whose meaning suggests that no one or nothing can be excluded from the situations being described. Examples are the excerpts in (57) and (58).

(57) *Tsiʔ kwí· né· nihoyaʔtaseʔtslaká·teʔ, ati*
tsiʔ kwí· né· ni-ho-yaʔtaseʔtsl-a-kaʔte-ʔ ati
COMP PTCL ASRT PAR-3M.SG.P-girlfriend-JOIN-have.many-STAT no.matter
né· úhkaʔ á·neʔ kih.
né· úhkaʔ aa-hn-e-ʔ kiʔ
ASRT anyone OPT-3M.DU.A-go-PNC actually
'He had so many girlfriends, he would go out with just anybody (nevermind who).' Georgina Nicholas (Michelson et al. 2016: 32 (6))

(58) *tsiʔ ati úhkaʔ ʌhakwe·ní· kiʔ*
tsiʔ ati úhkaʔ ʌ-ha-kweni-ʔ kiʔ
COMP no.matter anyone FUT-3M.SG.A-able-PNC actually
ʌhoyo·tʌ́· tsiʔ náhteʔ wakyó·tʌhseʔ.
ʌ-ho-yotʌ-ʔ tsiʔ náhteʔ wak-yoʔtʌ-ʔseʔ
FUT-3M.SG.P-work-PNC COMP anything 1SG.P-work-HAB
'because anybody (no matter who) could do the work that I worked at.' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 233 (101))

Two additional NPIs: *nuwʌtú* 'ever,' and *kánikeʔ* 'nowhere' have a more restricted distribution in that they cannot co-occur with the PTCL *ok* to form indefinite expressions. The NPI *nuwʌtú* 'ever' occurs only in polar questions (59) and in negative clauses (60) and (61). *Kánikeʔ* oocurs only in negative clauses (62). Examples (61) and (62) have two negative polarity items in the same clause. (Another example with *kánikeʔ* is (47) in §4.1.)

(59) *Nʌ kʌ nuwʌtú Tony Roma's yesatekhu·ní.*
nʌ kʌ nuwʌtú Tony Roma's ye-s-atekhuni
now Q ever Tony Roma's TRL-2SG.P-eat.a.meal[STAT]
'Have you ever eaten at Tony Roma's?'

(60) *Kwáh yah nuwʌtú thaʔteyukyatlihotálhu,*
kwáh yah nuwʌtú th-aʔte-yuky-atlihotalh-u
just not ever CNTR-DLC-1DU.P-quarrel-STAT
'We never ever quarreled,' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 147 (8))

(61) *Né·n yah kiʔ nuwʌtú úhkaʔ teʔshakohlo·lí.*
né·n yah kiʔ nuwʌtú úhkaʔ teʔ-shako-hloli
PTCL not actually ever anyone NEG-3M.SG>3-tell[STAT]
'He never told anyone.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 78 (48))

(62) *wé·ne tsiʔ yah úhkaʔ kánikeʔ té·yʌhseʔ.*
wé·ne tsiʔ yah úhkaʔ kánikeʔ teʔ-yʌ-e-ʔseʔ
evidently COMP not anyone anywhere NEG-3FI.A-walk/go-HAB
'must be that there was no one there' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 77 (33))

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

The occurrence of referring expressions (nouns or noun phrases) in the scope of negation does not affect how they are expressed.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The so-called assertion particle *né·* occurs widely in Oneida; much remains to be understood about this particle, but one of its functions is to signal (narrow) focus, as in the following excerpt:

(63) A: *Wá·lelheʔ né· kʌ n swahyo·wáneʔ, ohnaná·taʔ nʌʔ né·.*
he.thought ASRT Q PTCL apple potato that.one
'He thought it was an apple, it was a potato.'

B: Ohnaná·taʔ.
potato
'A potato?'

A: *Hʌ́·, ohnaná·taʔ né· lonʌskwʌháti̲ʔ̲.*
yes potato ASRT he.is.going.along.stealing
'Yes, he was stealing a potato .' Pearl Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 303 (50–52))

The particle *né·* occurs in negative contexts, as in the second clause in the excerpt in (64).

(64) *né· kwí· tsiʔ teki·tʌ́heʔ seʔ niʔí·, yah né·*
né· kwí· tsiʔ te-k-itʌ-heʔ seʔ niʔí· yah né·
ASRT PTCL COMP DLC-1SG.A-fly-HAB EMPH 1, not ASRT
tha·hatikwe·ní· ta·hati·tʌ́· thikʌ́ tho
th-aa-hati-kweni-ʔ t-aa-hati-tʌ-ʔ thikʌ́ tho
CNTR-OPT-3M.PL.A-able-PNC DLC-OPT-3M.PL.A-fly-PNC that there
thʌ·né·seʔ,
t-hʌn-e-ʔseʔ
CIS-3M.PL.A-walk/go-HAB
'because me too, I fly, they can't fly, the ones who are walking around over there,' Ruben Cutcut (Michelson et al. 2016: 36 (8))

NPIs generally occur in focus position, after the negative particle *yah*, and in appropriate pragmatic contexts the order of NPIs and the modal verb *yah thau·tú·* 'can't' (§2.2) can interact to encode two distinct meanings. In (65) the speaker cannot do anything because there *is* nothing to do, with the NPI in narrow focus position, while in (66) the speaker cannot do anything because, say, s/he hasn't gotten permission.

(65) *Yah náhteʔ thau·tú· na·kátye̲l̲e̲ʔ̲.*
yah náhteʔ th-aa-w-atu-ʔ n-aa-k-atyel-eʔ
not anything CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC PAR-OPT-1SG.A-do-PNC
'I can't do anything, there's nothing I can do.'

(66) *Yah thau·tú· náhteʔ na·kátye̲l̲e̲ʔ̲.*
yah th-aa-w-atu-ʔ náhteʔ n-aa-k-atyel-eʔ
not CNTR-OPT-3Z/N.SG.A-can-PNC anything PAR-OPT-1SG.A-do-PNC
'I can't do (e.g. I'm not allowed to do) anything.'

Finally, this might be a good place to mention the emphatic word for 'no' *ta·ím*, although it does not appear to be used very often. The excerpt below comes from a conversation about how poor many of the Oneida were when they were growing up; one of the two speakers observes that in spite of what they now know to be true (that they were poor), that's not what they thought of their situation at the time. The other speaker responds saying *ta·ím*, agreeing with the observation (that they didn't think they were poor).

(67) *Nók tsiʔ thikʌ́ neʔ thó·neʔ tshiwathawinútiʔ, yah kiʔ nuwʌtú*
but that at.that.time during.those.times not actually ever
aʔnyóh né· teʔtwanuhtúnyuheʔ tsiʔ niyukwʌ·tʌ́t.
seems.like ASRT we.don't.think how we.are.poor
'But back in those times, we never seemed to think that we were that poor.' Pearl Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 304 (63))

4.5 Negation, coordination, and complex clauses

In this section we provide examples of clauses describing exceptions to a generalization, the equivalent of English uses of 'except' and 'instead of.' We also discuss here a phenomenon to which we have assigned the term *negative spreading*.

We begin with coordination, and in particular with exception clauses. When the first clause includes the equivalent of universal quantification, as in (68) and (69), the exception clause has just the negative particle *yah* or *yáhtʌʔ* (see §3.4 for other contexts that have only the negative particle).

(68) *Kwah tsyoʔk niwahyó·tʌhseʔ wake·ká·seʔ nók tsiʔ yah kiʔ*
just all different.kinds.of.fruit I.like.the.taste but not actually
né·n raspberries.
PTCL raspberries
'I like the taste of (I like to eat) every kind of fruit, but not raspberries (except for raspberries).'

(69) *Akwekú wá·lakeʔ kwah nók ohnaná·taʔ yáhtʌʔ.*
all he.ate just potato(es) not.(so)
'He ate it all, just not the potatoes (except for the potatoes).'

In the coordination in (70) the negative clause comes first and is expressed as the usual standard negation, with both negative PTCL and negative prefix on the verb.

(70) *Yah náhteʔ oyá· tehawekú kwah nók ohnaná·taʔ.*
yah náhteʔ oyá· te-haw-ek-u kwah nók ohnaná·taʔ
not anything other NEG-3M.SG.P-eat-STAT just potato(es)
'He didn't eat anything else, just the potatoes.'

A positive situation that is an alternative to a non-event is expressed as comparison ('rather than, as compared with'), as in (71).

(71) a. *Sarnia yahá·leʔ tsiʔ ni·yót London.*
Sarnia he.went.over.there COMP how.it.is London
'He went to Sarnia rather than (instead of) London (Ontario).'

b. *Sʌ́haʔ lahnʌ·yés tsiʔ ní· ni·yót.*
more he.is.tall COMP 1 how.it.is
'He is taller than I am.'

Finally, the closest equivalent to the English coordinator 'lest' includes the particle *tákʌʔ*; see examples in §2.2.

We now turn to a different phenomenon, which we call ”negative ”spreading”. As we have seen so far, Oneida is a language where clausal negation involves the simultaneous expression of two morphs (particle and prefix), or *double negation*. But, under certain conditions not completely understood at this time, two verbs occur with a negative prefix; yet only one instance of the particle *yah*. Some examples of this are given below.

It appears that negative spreading is required with certain expressions of quantity, extent, or manner (72–75).[9]

(72) *tá·t núwaʔ yah tho té·ku tehoti·yʌ́· atáhsliʔ,*
tá·t núwaʔ yah tho teʔ-ku te-hoti-yʌ-ʔ atáhsliʔ
maybe not thus NEG-amount NEG-3M.PL.P-put/have-STAT stick(s)
'maybe they didn't have enough sticks,' Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 258 (76))

[9]Some of the forms in the examples require explanation for those interested in details that go beyond negation. In (72) the verb root of *té·ku* is *-u-* 'be amount, amount to.' The prefix *k-* is an anomalous form. In (73) the idea of 'every' is conveyed by the verb *-ke-* 'amount to' plus the translocative and dualic (and sometimes also the partitive) prefixes.

(73) *Yah thyaʔtewʌhnislaké*
yah th-y-aʔte-w-ʌhnisl-a-ke
not cntr-trl-dlc-3z/n.sg.a-day-join-amount.to[stat]
teʔwakyó·tʌhseʔ.
teʔ-wak-yoʔtʌ-ʔseʔ
neg-1sg.p-work-hab
'I don't work everyday.'

(74) *Yah tho teʔyo·lé·*
yah tho teʔ-yo-le-ʔ
not thus neg-3z/n.sg.p-how.far-stat
thaʔteyakonuhsanú·yaniht tsiʔ ni·yót yesaʔkʌ́ha.
th-aʔte-yako-nuhs-anuhyaniht tsiʔ ni·yót yesaʔkʌ́ha
cntr-dlc-3fi.sg.p-house-be.dirty[stat] comp how.it.is your.older.sister
'Her house is not as dirty as your older sister's.'

(75) *yah ní· teʔwaklʌʔnhá·u a·kka·látuʔ, yah tho*
yah ní· teʔ-wak-lʌʔnhaʔ-u aa-k-kalatu-ʔ, yah tho
not 1 neg-1sg.p-know.how-stat opt-1sg.a-tell.stories-pnc not thus
té·yot tsiʔ teʔwakatatlihunyʌ·ní.
teʔ-y-ot tsiʔ teʔ-wak-atat-lihunyʌni
neg-3z/n.sg.a-how.it.is[stat] comp neg-1sg.p-refl-teach[stat]
'I don't know how to tell stories, that's not the way I taught myself.'
Hazel Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 181 (15))

4.6 Other aspects of negation

4.6.1 Non-negative uses of negation

There are two negative expressions in Oneida that have a positive import: *yah teʔwé·ni* (*yah teʔwé·ne* for some speakers) 'it is amazing, incredible' and *yah thya·ya·wʌ́· tsiʔ* 'it has to be, it is necessary, must.' The first expression, in (76), is based on the verb *-é·ni-/-é·ne-* 'be evident', which occurs most frequently as a particle in the form *wé·ni/wé·ne* 'evidently, must be, I guess.' The second expression, *yah thya·ya·wʌ́· tsiʔ*, in (77), is based on the root *-ʌ-* 'happen,' which, in this meaning, occurs with the contrastive prefix (serving as the exponent of the negative feature) and translocative prefix.

(76) *Yah teʔwé·ni* *naʔukniká·tʌneʔ*
yah teʔ-w-eʔni n-aʔ-yukni-kaʔt-ʌʔ-neʔ
not NEG-3Z/N.SG.A-be.evident[STAT] PAR-FACT-1DU.P-have.a.lot-INCH-PNC
porridge thikʌ́ neʔ thó·neʔ,
porridge thikʌ́ neʔ thó·neʔ
porridge that at.that.time
'It's incredible (lit. It's not evident) what a lot of porridge we got at that time,' Clifford Cornelius (Michelson et al. 2016: 223 (37))

(77) *Yah thya·ya·wʌ́·* *tsiʔ Muncey*
yah th-y-aa-yaw-ʌ-ʔ tsiʔ Muncey
not CNTR-TRL-OPT-3Z/N.SG.P-happen-PNC that Muncey
yʌhʌ·ké·.
yʌh-ʌ-k-e-ʔ
TRL-FUT-1SG.A-walk/go-PNC
'I have to (lit. It can't happen) go to Muncey.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 92–93 (11))

4.6.2 A note on the distribution of the negative vs. contrastive

Standard negation in Oneida is expressed with a negative particle and a prefix on the verb, either the negative or the contrastive. This structure occurs with verbs in all three verbal aspects (habitual, stative, punctual). The punctual aspect requires one of three modes – future, factual, or optative – and only the optative can be negated. Typically, a verb that would otherwise occur in the future mode is negated with the optative, and a verb that otherwise occurs in the factual mode is negated with the stative aspect.

It is important, for the appropriate classification of Oneida, to come back to a point that we made in §2.1 at the beginning of this paper – the need to distinguish features from their exponents. The negative and contrastive prefixes both occur in the same "slot" or "position class" in the verb structure of Oneida, the word-initial slot. Prefixes that occur in the same slot cannot both have an overt realization – complementary distribution and competition for expression are defining characteristics of a position class morphology. Since contrastive meaning is never negated, as noted in §2.1, the negative and contrastive prefixes do not compete for expression – the exponent of the contrastive simply occurs when the negative prefix cannot. There are two additional prefixes that occur in the word-initial slot, the partitive and the coincident. Here we briefly mention what happens when verb forms with the partitive or coincident are negated. When a verb that otherwise requires the partitive is negated, the negative exponent occurs at the expense of the partitive. Thus in (75) *yah tho té·yot* 'that's not how it is' has the negative prefix *teʔ-* (or *té·-* under accent); the positive form *tho ni·yót* 'that's how it is' has the partitive prefix *ni-*. Likewise, the verb form *té·ku* in *yah tho té·ku* 'not enough' in (72) includes the negative prefix when otherwise (in the positive) the same verb occurs with the partitive, *tho nikú* 'that's how much, that's enough.' In contrast, a verb that otherwise has the coincident keeps the coincident when negated. In the example in (78) the negative particle is *ahsuhkʌ́*, mentioned in §2.1 as one of the less common negative particles, but the verb form *tshiyukwa·yʌ́·* has the exponent for the coincident feature *tshi-* rather than the negative's exponent (see Diaz et al. 2019 for details).

(78)	*Kháleʔ*	*ahsuhkʌ́*	*tshiyukwa·yʌ́·*	*wí·*	*n*	*hydro.*
	kháleʔ	ahsuhkʌ́	tshi-yukwa-yʌ-ʔ	wí·	n	hydro
	and	not.yet	COIN-1PL.P-put/have-STAT	PTCL	PTCL	hydro

'And it was before we had hydro.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 73 (5))

4.6.3 Diachronic and comparative notes and observations

It is intriguing that the contrastive serves as an exponent of the negative feature. This is the case in all the Northern Iroquoian languages that have double negation (all the languages except Tuscarora, where standard negation is expressed with several different particles, without a verbal prefix). In fact, at least in Oneida, and probably in the other languages too, the contrastive prefix occurs with far greater frequency as an exponent of the negative feature than of just the contrastive feature.

In all the languages, the contrastive prefix expounds the negative feature in the optative mood.[10] In Oneida (and Mohawk) the contrastive exponent occurs also with the dualic prefix; see example (4b) given in §2.1 at the beginning of this paper. In Onondaga and Seneca, however, an allomorph *t-* of the negative occurs with the dualic prefix. Thus in Oneida and Mohawk, the contrastive plus dualic is *thaʔt-* but in Onondaga and Seneca it is *taʔt-* (written *daʔ-* in the contemporary orthography).

In all the languages except Mohawk (where the form of the negative is *te-* rather than *teʔ-*), outside of its co-occurrence with the optative, the exponent of the contrastive "overlaps" with the translocative. (The term *overlap* is due to

[10] In Seneca, according to Chafe (2015: 54), the negative prefix, as well as the contrastive, can occur with the optative.

Chafe 2015: 53.) For example, in Oneida, as shown in (79) and (80), the contrastive plus translocative is *thyeʔ-* where it is difficult to uniquely identify which portion is contrastive and which translocative. If it were not for the presence of the glottal stop in *thyeʔ-*, the form would be analyzed easily as the contrastive *th-* plus translocative *ye-*. In Onondaga (Woodbury 2018: 186–187) and Seneca (Chafe 2015: 53) the form of the translocative is *h-*, and combined with the negative there is also overlap in these languagaes: *theʔ-*. It is interesting that the translocative exponents are quite different in the two sets of languages, yet in all four languages there is overlap with the negative.

(79) *Tahnú· kwí· yah thyeʔshuwahʌlú,*
Tahnú· kwí· yah thyeʔ-s-huwa-hʌl-u
and ptcl not neg.trl-rpt-3>3m.sg-call/summon-stat
'And she didn't call him back,' Mercy Doxtator (Michelson et al. 2016: 140 (5))

(80) *Yah kiʔ nuwʌtú kwaʔahsuté·ke tho nú·*
yah kiʔ nuwʌtú kwaʔahsuté·ke tho nú·
not actually ever nighttime that's where

thyeʔtsyukne·nú.
thyeʔ-ts-yukn-e-nu
neg.trl-rpt-1du.p-walk/go-stat
'We never went there again at night-time.' Norma Kennedy (Michelson et al. 2016: 95 (39))

5 Summary

In Table 1 we summarize in expressions of negation in Oneida. As we have detailed in this chapter, Oneida's expression of negation involves both an independent word (usually the particle *yah*) and a negative prefix on verbs or the word *té·kʌ*. In other words, Oneida's expression of negation is an example of double clausal negation. Overall, negation in Oneida is uniform across phrases and clauses, and the relation between scope and negation is also uniform. But, the expression of negation in Oneida is remarkable for at least the following three reasons. First is the complexity of its morphological expression, including the fact that both the negative and the contrastive prefixes are exponents of the negative feature. Second are the restrictions on scopal relations that negation can enter into. In particular, it seems that the negative particle *yah* must occur to the

Table 1: Expressions of negation in Oneida

Type of negation	Formatives	Form
Standard negation	PTCL …NEGV PTCL …CONTRV	*yah …teʔV* *yah …thV*
Negative replies	PTCL	*táh* 'no' *áhsu kiʔ* 'not yet in fact' *yáhtʌʔ* 'not so'
Negative imperatives	PTCL …FUTV	*tákʌʔ …ʌV*
Negative prohibitives	PTCL …PPTV	*tákʌʔ …aaV*
Equatives and category membership	PTCL …NEGV/CONTRV	*té·kʌ*
Other stative predications	See standard negation	

left of any operator or predicate it scopes over, and inverse scope is not allowed. The third is that Oneida includes a series of ontologically general words that are used both as negative polarity items and serve as the basis of the "derivation" of corresponding indefinites expressions.

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Abbreviations

1	first person	JOIN	joiner
2	second person	LOC	locative
3	third person	M	masculine
A	agent	N	neuter
ASRT	assertion	NEG	negative
BEN	benefactive	NMLZ	nominalizer
CAUS	causative	NS	noun suffix
CIS	cislocative	OPT	optative
COIN	coincident	P	patient
COMP	complementizer	PAR	partitive
CONT	continuative	PL	plural
CNTR	contrastive	PNC	punctual aspect
DISTR	distributive	POSS	possessive prefix
DLC	dualic (or duplicative)	PST	past
DU	dual	PTCL	particle
EMPH	emphatic particle	Q	polar question particle
EXCL	exclusive	REFL	reflexive
FACT	factual mode	RPT	repetitive
FI	feminine-indefinite	SG	singular
FUT	future	SREFL	semi-reflexive
FZ	feminine-zoic	STAT	stative aspect
HAB	habitual aspect	TRL	translocative
IMP	imperative	Z/N	(default) feminine-zoic
INCH	inchoative		

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Chapter 11

Negation in Kashaya

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Negation in Kashaya, a Native North American language, is described based on a textual corpus. The main strategies for clausal negation are a negative verb suffix and a negative clitic, and I show that their distribution can be predicted to a large extent from the inflectional form of the verb. Negation of nominal and adjectival predicates, as well as constituent negation, employs the negative clitic. A special negative existential verb is employed to negate existential and locative predications. I pay special attention to a non-negative use of the negative clitic, which is used to form (positive) indefinite pronouns, a phenomenon that, to my knowledge, has not been described for any other languages.

Keywords: Pomoan languages, negation, evidentiality, switch-reference, indefinite pronouns.

1 The language

Kashaya (ISO: kju, Glottocode: kash1280) belongs to the Pomoan family, a small family of Northern California consisting of seven closely related languages. The traditional Kashaya territory is in Sonoma County, just north of the San Fransisco Bay. The language is critically endangered with a small number of speakers remaining (Golla 2011: 111). In this chapter, I describe negation in the language based on the fully segmented and interlinearised corpus made available in Buckley (2019), a resource based on the 82 texts collected in Oswalt (1964) (and 8 texts from Halpern 1940). The structure of the chapter follows the negation questionnaire designed by the editors of this book (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]).

The primary research on Kashaya was undertaken in the late 1950s by Robert L. Oswalt, whose grammar (Oswalt 1961), text collection (Oswalt 1964) and dictionary manuscript (Oswalt n.d.) are the main sources on the language. Oswalt's

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grammar focuses on morphophonological processes and morphotactics, and with the exceptions of e.g. the evidentials (Oswalt 1986) and the switch-reference system (Oswalt 1983), many areas of Kashaya morphosyntax remain unexplored. Later research has primarily concerned theoretical aspects of the intricate morphophonology of the language (e.g. Buckley 1994a,b, 1997).

Kashaya has relatively free word order, although SOV dominates. Verb morphology is mostly suffixing. There is no participant indexing (i.e. person/number agreement) on the verb, but there is rich derivational and inflectional encoding of manner, direction, aspect, tense, evidentiality and a range of other categories.

The suffixes are organised according to a system of position classes in Oswalt (1961) and Buckley (1994b). One of the position classes, labelled Class XIV in Oswalt (1961), deserves mention here. This position class contains the largest number of suffixes, and one suffix from this class has to be present in every verb. Some common suffixes from this class have evidential and modal meanings. In contexts in which none of these suffixes are appropriate, speakers resort to a default-like suffix that Oswalt (1961) labels the "Absolutive". The exact meaning of this highly frequent suffix, at least in its uses on main clause verbs, is unclear to me. It is also used to form deverbal nouns, and provides the citation form of verbs. As pointed out by Walker (2016), Oswalt's term is somewhat confusing for a modern reader, so I opt for Walker's more informative label Default Verbal Suffix (abbreviated dvs). In the nominal domain, case marking distinguishes semantic agents from patients (cf. §4.3).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Overview of the standard negation constructions

Two options exist for negating declarative verbal main clauses. The first option is to add the negative clitic *=tʰin* to the verb. A declarative main clause is given in (1), and a negated clause, with the same verb (*ʔdu·cicʼ-* 'know') is given in (2), illustrating the negative clitic option.[1]

[1]An identifier at the start of every example indicates the source: KT for the *Kashaya Texts* (Oswalt 1964) and H for the materials in Halpern (1940); the following numbers indicate text, paragraph and sentence, so 'KT 3:19.11' for the 11th sentence in the 19th paragraph in the 3rd of Oswalt's texts. Examples labelled Kashaya Dictionary are taken from Oswalt (n.d.). A preliminary online version of the dictionary is being prepared by Gene Buckley, and can be accessed at https://www.webonary.org/kashaya/. The first line of the example sentences provides the

(1) *[...] he· q'ó?o hlaw ?du·ci?*
he· q'ó?o hlaw ?du·cic'-?
and song also know-DVS
'...and [they] know songs too.' (KT 47:9.3)

(2) *[...] ?a mu ?cay? yaco?k^{h}e q'o?o ṭ'o dú·ci? t^{h}in*
?a mu =?cay? =yaco?k^{h}e q'o?o =?ṭ'o ?du·cic'-? =t^{h}in
1SG.NOM that =person =POSS song =EMPH know-DVS =NEG
'[However] I don't know his song.' (KT 17:11.2)

The second option is to add the negative suffix *-t^h* to the verb, as in (3) and (4).

(3) *"be·li ṭ'o ma·dú·t^{h}e·" nihci?*
be·li =?ṭ'o ma·duc-t^h-a-e· nihcic'-?
here =EMPH one.arrive-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL say.PL.AGT-DVS
'"He hasn't come here, " they said.' (KT 58:6.5)

(4) *"?aca? t'a?t^{h}é· to" nihcedu*
?aca·c t'a·d-t^h-a-e· to nihced-u
person feel-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1SG.ACC say-DVS
'"I didn't think it was a person" [he said].' (KT 45:16.4)

The factors that determine the choice between the clitic *=t^{h}in* and the suffix *-t^h* are described in §2.1.2. The impact of negation on the aspectual value of the verb is described in §2.1.3. The expression of 'not yet' is described in §2.1.4.

2.1.2 The distribution of *=t^{h}in* and *-t^h* as clausal negators

The two options differ rather dramatically in frequency in corpus data. Table 1 shows counts performed on the corpus. In the 933 instances of negation that were extracted, the suffixal negative *-t^h* accounted for only 11.1% of the attestations, while the negative clitic *=t^{h}in* accounted for the remaining 88.9%.[2]

original orthography. The second line provides a morphemic analysis (based on Buckley 2019). Note that clitics (such as the negative *=t^{h}in*) are written as separate orthographic words in the first line, but indicated by means of equals signs in the second line. In the Kashaya orthography, <t> is the dental plosive, <ṭ> is the alveolar plosive, <š> is the palatal fricative, <c> is the alveopalatal affricate, and <y> is the palatal approximant. The raised dot, as in <a·>, marks a long vowel. Other symbols have the same values as their IPA equivalents.

[2] This number excludes prohibitives (§2.2). It also excludes the positive indefinite pronouns, which are formed by adding the negative clitic to question words, as discussed in §4.6.1.

Table 1: Frequencies of negative structures

	Syntactic context			Morphological context		
Suffix *-tʰ*	Verb	104	(100%)	V-NEG-EVID	31	(29.8%)
				V-NEG-COND	24	(23.0%)
				V-NEG-RESP	16	(15.4%)
				V-NEG-SR	33	(31.7%)
					104	(100%)
	Total:	104	(11.1%)			
Clitic *=tʰin*	Verb	644	(77.6%)	V-DVS =NEG	415	(64.4%)
				V-FUT =NEG	219	(34.0%)
				V-SR =NEG	9	(1.3%)
				V-GRL.INTV =NEG	1	(0.2%)
					644	(100%)
	Non-verb	185	(19.8%)			
	Total:	829	(88.9%)			
	Total:	933	(100%)			

SR = any of the switch-reference suffixes; EVID = any of the evidential suffixes

Both syntactic and morphological context seem to determine the speakers' choice between the suffixal and clitic options. The clitic *=tʰin* accepts any part of speech as its host, whereas the suffix *-tʰ* is restricted to verbal morphology. I extracted 185 instances of *=tʰin* attached to non-verbal hosts (mostly noun phrases; see further §2.3 and §4.1) accounting for about a fifth of its uses. The remaining 644 instances of *=tʰin* attached to verbs, where it is in competition with the suffix *-tʰ*.

The choice between *=tʰin* and *-tʰ* in verbal contexts depends largely on the form of the verb, and more specifically on which of the suffixes in Class XIV is used on the verb. Here I will show that certain suffixes, such as the evidentials and the Conditional *-iʔba*, only occur with suffixal negation, whereas others, such as the Future suffix *-ʔkʰe* and the Default Verbal Suffix *-w*, only occur with the negative clitic. The suffixes marking switch-reference on subordinate (adverbial) clauses occur with both options.

First, I will consider the rich evidential system of Kashaya (Oswalt 1986). Table 2 lists suffixes with evidential functions, plus the 'Inferential' *-bi*, which seems

Table 2: The Kashaya evidential suffixes

	IPFV	PFV
Performative	*-(w)ela*	*-mela*
Visual	*-w(a)*	*-y(a)*
Auditory	*-inn(a)*	
Circumstantial	*-q(a)*	
Hearsay	*-do*	
Inferential	*-bi*	

to have mirative rather than evidential semantics. The labels are self-explanatory except for the 'Performatives', which "signify that the speaker knows of what he speaks because he is performing the act himself or has just performed it" (1986: 34). [3] Note that some evidentials alternate according to the aspectual value of the verb (either imperfective or perfective), which will be relevant for the discussion of aspect and negation in §2.1.3.

The corpus data show that verbs containing an evidential suffix are negated by means of the suffix *-t^h^*, and not by the clitic *=t^h^in*. Of the 31 negated verbs with evidential specification in Table 1, all exhibit the suffixal option.[4] The relatively low number of negated verbs inflected with evidentials in the corpus makes it difficult to interpret the significance of the association between evidentials and suffixal negation, however, and the grammar (Oswalt 1961) does not clarify whether the negative clitic is disallowed or merely dispreferred with verbs marked by evidential suffixes.[5]

Consider next the use of the Default Verbal Suffix. The sparsity of verbs directly inflected for evidentiality finds its correlate in the frequent use of this suffix (which seems to contribute no meaning of its own) in the text corpus. As pointed out by Oswalt (1961: 239), verbs with the Default Verbal Suffix can only

[3]The evidential pair *-(w)a* and *-(y)a* are called "Factual" and "Visual", respectively, in Oswalt (1961) and Buckley (1994b), and "Visual-Factual" and "Visual" in Oswalt (1990). I prefer to use the Visual label for both suffixes and distinguish them by their aspectual value.

[4]A reviewer correctly points out that the evidential suffixes are not consistently segmented in Buckley (2019). This problem was easily solved by manually inspecting the 104 verbs with suffixal negation that were extracted.

[5]I was able to identify about two dozen additional examples of negated verbs marked for evidentiality in the dictionary manuscript (Oswalt n.d.), all of which occurred with the suffixal option.

be negated by means of the clitic *=tʰin*. Such verbs consitute the overwhelmingly most common type of negated verb in Table 1, with 415 corpus attestations.

There are good reasons to suspect that the prevalence of (negated and non-negated) verbs marked with the Default Verbal Suffix, and the relatively low number of verbs bearing evidential suffixes, is an artefact of the type of materials represented in the corpus. The texts contained in the corpus mostly feature monologic narrative discourse, and it seems that the use of evidential suffixes in this text type is very different from their use in spontaneous, interactive speech. Narrative discourse typically makes use of what Oswalt (1986: 34) refers to as the NARRATIVE CONSTRUCTION. In this mode, the Hearsay evidential *-do* is suffixed to the Assertive (a defective, auxiliary-like verb), which is added after a demonstrative element (e.g. *mul* 'that'), and such chunks, which can be glossed as 'it is said that', are typically sprinkled throughout the paragraphs, whereas the main verb in each sentence is suffixed with the Default Verbal Suffix. This has the consequence that verbs directly suffixed with evidentials are comparatively rare in the textual corpus (except in reported speech), while verbs with the Default Verbal Suffix are comparatively common. It is therefore likely that a corpus consisting of a larger portion of interactive speech would have contained more verbs directly suffixed with evidentials, and hence more instances of the suffixal negator *-tʰ*.

In the corpus, negated verbs with evidential suffixes are mostly attested in direct speech, as in (3) and (4) above. It is interesting to note that verbs that are directly suffixed by means of the Hearsay evidential are more common in the older sections of the corpus, in the texts collected by Abraham Halpern in the 1940s. In these texts, one finds examples such as (5), with the suffixal negator attached to a verb directly inflected for Hearsay evidentiality.

(5) *cuʔt'émtʰido soh ʔacʰuláʔ soh hís'u· ʔel*
cuʔt'em-tʰ-do soh ʔacʰulaq-ʔ soh his'u· =ʔel
shoot-NEG-HRSY just miss.PL-DVS just arrow =ACC
'But they didn't hit him; the arrows just missed.' (H 4:3.6)

The third domain of verb morphology to consider is future tense marking. The most common markers of future tense are the Future suffix *-ʔkʰe*, which expresses e.g. planned, predicted and intended events, as in (6), and the Performative Intentive suffix *-te*, which only expresses intentions of the speaker, seen on the first verb in (7).

(6) *ʔama hc^{h}óc'k^{h}e ʔdo· yal*
ʔama· hc^{h}oc-ʔk^{h}e ʔ-do-e· yal
land disappear-FUT ASRT-HRSY-NFNL 1PL.ACC
'We have heard our world is coming to an end.' (KT 66:2.6)

(7) *sáhqaʔte· ʔa ʔacaʔ duhk^{h}uyá·dal ʔa*
sahqac'-te-e· ʔa ʔaca·c duhk^{h}uy-ad-a-el ʔa
quit-PRFM.INTV-NFNL 1SG.NOM person kill-DUR-VIS.IPFV-ACC 1SG.NOM
ʔacaʔ bimucí·dal
ʔaca·c bimucid-a-el
person eat-VIS.IPFV-ACC
'I am going to quit killing people and eating them.' (KT 6:9.8)

Negated clauses with future time reference seem to be formed only with the Future suffix *-ʔk^{h}e*, as in (8) and (9), and never with the Performative Intentive suffix.[6] A verb suffixed with *-ʔk^{h}e* can only be negated with the clitic *=t^{h}in*, and not with the suffix *-t^h* (Oswalt 1961: 258).

(8) *ʔama hc^{h}óc'k^{h}e t^{h}in [...]*
ʔama· hc^{h}oc-ʔk^{h}e =t^{h}in
land disappear-FUT =NEG
'The world isn't going to end [...].' (KT 66:13.2)

(9) *bihk^{h}úyʔk^{h}e t^{h}in qahmulʔk^{h}é· ya mito*
bihk^{h}uy-ʔk^{h}e =t^{h}in qahmu·l-ʔk^{h}e-e· ya mito
eat.up-FUT =NEG leave.food-FUT-NFNL 1PL.NOM 2SG.ACC
'We won't eat it up; we'll save some for you.' (KT 10:11.5)

The Future suffix *-ʔk^{h}e* also has more broadly modal uses, most prominently in a construction in which it combines with negation to express inability, 'cannot', as described in §2.6. The Future suffix is very frequent in the corpus, and it is frequent in negated contexts. Its incompatibility with the negative suffix *-t^h* contributes to the high frequency of the clitic *=t^{h}in* in Table 1.

Two additional suffixes occur only with suffixal negation: the Conditional *-iʔba* and the Responsive *-em*. The Conditional, illustrated in (10), has various modal meanings relating to ability and epistemic possibility (see also §2.4.1 and §2.6). The uses of the Responsive seem to relate to information structure (cf. Oswalt

[6] Another suffix, the General Intentive *-ti*, occurs in some subordinate clause types. It occurs negated in the formation of negative purpose clauses, as described in §2.4.3.

Table 3: Summary of main types of negated verbs: the suffix *-tʰ* vs. the clitic *=tʰin*

	Negator	
Class XIV-suffix on the verb	*-tʰ*	*=tʰin*
Evidential suffixes	✓	
Default Verbal Suffix		✓
Future *-ʔkʰe*		✓
Conditional *-iʔba*	✓	
Switch-reference suffixes	✓	✓

1961: 283; Olsson 2010: 32–34), but I leave the functions of this suffix, and its interaction with negation, for future research.

(10) *buṭaqa tʰín he· buṭaqá pʰiʔyahtʰíʔba, [...]*
buṭaqa =tʰin =he· buṭaqa pʰiʔya·q-tʰ-iʔba
bear =NEG =or bear recognise.by.sight-NEG-COND
'Whether it was a bear or not a bear couldn't be told just by looking, [...].' (KT 44:2.6)

Table 3 summarises the choice between suffixal and clitic negators, according to the form of the verb (excluding the Responsive and the General Intentive; for the latter, see §2.4.3). Overall, verbs marked with the Future tense *-ʔkʰe* or the Default Verbal Suffix account for almost all instances of the clitic *=tʰin* in verbal contexts in the corpus. I am not aware of any synchronic explanation for the patterning of the negative clitic with certain verb suffixes, and the negative suffix with others, which seems to be an arbitrary quirk of the grammar. Negation in non-verbal clauses exclusively employs the negative clitic, as will be seen in §2.3.

Note finally that both the suffixal and clitic options are attested in switch-reference clauses, as discussed further in §2.4.2.

2.1.3 Negation and aspect

Aspect is an important component of Kashaya verb morphology. Oswalt (1990) describes the central opposition as one between perfective and imperfective. Many verb roots are inherently perfective or imperfective, others are aspectually neutral. Various derivational suffixes (typically with directional semantics: 'up', 'away' etc.) have perfectivising or imperfectivising functions and can be used to derive a new verb with a different aspectual profile than that of the root (somewhat suggestive of Slavic aspectual systems). Whether a verb form is perfective or imperfective is most clearly seen from some of the evidential suffixes in Table 2. The Performative and the Visual evidentials occur in pairs in which one member combines with a perfective verb and the other with an imperfective verb (aspectually neutral roots without derivational markers can combine with either member, depending on the meaning that the speaker wants to convey).

But the aspectual potential of verbs is limited when the verb is negated: a verb suffixed with the negative *-tʰ* can only combine with the imperfective members of the Visual and Performative evidentials (Oswalt 1961: 244–246). The minimal triplet in (11) is taken from Oswalt (1990: 45). The aspectually neutral root 'pack' can in the affirmative combine with either the perfective or imperfective Performative suffixes (11a–11b). Under negation, only the imperfective variant is possible (11c).[7] This triplet is given without context in the source (and is probably elicited), but I have not found any counterexamples to this pattern in the corpus. The neutralisation of the perfective/imperfective contrast is a clear example of paradigmatic asymmetry under negation (cf. Miestamo 2005: 54; see also Miestamo & van der Auwera 2011 for the interaction between negation and aspect cross-lingustically).

(11) a. *qowáhmela*
qowaq-mela
pack-PRFM.PFV
'I just packed (a suitcase).'

b. *qowá·qala*
qowaq-ela
pack-PRFM.IPFV
'I am packing (a suitcase).'

c. *qowáhtʰela*
qowaq-tʰ-ela
pack-NEG-PRFM.IPFV
'I am not packing.'

[7] Oswalt does not say explicitly whether (11c) can also have past time reference, i.e. 'I didn't pack', but this seems to be implied by his discussion of these examples. There are only 6 corpus attestations of the negated Performative, and none of them has unambiguous past time reference, so these attestations shed no light on the issue. Note that (40) below does not have unambiguous past time reference, despite its English translation ('We haven't hid anybody') which could be rendered in the present without change in meaning ('We aren't hiding anybody.').

Note that the aspectual membership of the roots (and derivational suffixes) does not affect their combinability with negation. Any type of verb root or derived verb can be negated, but the resulting form is always treated as imperfective by the evidential suffixes that are sensitive to this distinction. It is not clear whether negation by means of the clitic *=tʰin* has any consequences for aspect. The evidential suffixes that reveal the aspectual profile of a verb form do not combine with the negative clitic *=tʰin* (as discussed above), so there is no way of finding this out.

Other than the restriction against the perfective members of those evidential pairs that show a perfective/imperfective contrast, I am not aware of any morphological asymmetries between negative and affirmative verbs.

2.1.4 Negation and phasal markers

Many languages employ non-compositional expressions for 'not yet'. In Kashaya, the negative continuative 'not yet' is expressed compositionally, by simply negating the continuative adverbial *ʔoʔ* 'still' (root /ʔoc/), i.e. 'still not'. Compare the affirmative clause in (12) with the negated clauses in (13) and (14).

(12) *mi·meʔ ṭ'o ʔoʔ ʔacaʔ mukʰúyʔtahqaw*
mi·meṭ =ʔṭ'o ʔoc ʔaca·c mukʰuyʔtahqa-w
at.that.time EMPH still person burn.PL-DVS
'At that time they still cremated people.' (KT 45:11.1)

(13) *ʔoʔ da·bícʰqaw ʔtʰin*
ʔoc da·bicʰqa-w ʔ=tʰin
still a.few.go.up-DVS ASRT=NEG
'They had not yet started to go.' (KT 5:6.2)

(14) *ʔóʔ miʔdaqʰanʔ ma·du·tʰehni*
ʔoc mi-ʔdaqʰanʔ ma·duc-tʰ-a-e·=hni
still 2-husband.NOM arrive-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL=Q
'Didn't your husband return yet?' (KT 14:7.3)

Expressing 'not yet' as 'still not' is common cross-linguistically, see e.g. Veselinova & Devos (2021) for Bantu languages.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Positive imperatives are formed by suffixing the verb with *-i* (for a singular addressee) or *-me* (plural addressee, and polite imperative used with in-laws). A glottal stop is often added at the end of the command, as in 15.[8]

(15) *talá·mec'i mi· tow ʔ*
htala·mec'-i mi· =tow =ʔ
climb.down-IMP there =from =CMND
'Climb down from there!' (KT 21:5.4)

Negative imperatives are expressed by means of the suffixes *-tʰu* (for a singular addressee) or *-tʰume*, plus the glottal stop at the end of the clause. Examples are in (16) and (17). In the descriptions of Kashaya morphophonology in Oswalt (1961) and Buckley (1994b), the negative suffix *-tʰ* is treated as having a special allomorph *-tʰu*, which only occurs before the Singular Imperative *-i* (which does not surface) and the Plural Imperative *-me*. I opt for a less abstract description here and treat them as dedicated prohibitive suffixes.

(16) *qaʔc'áʔtʰuʔ*
qaʔc'aṭ-tʰu=ʔ
cry-PROH=CMND
'Don't cry!' (KT 9:7.10)

(17) *bahcil hayómtʰumeʔ*
bahcil hayom-tʰume=ʔ
far many.go.here.and.there-PROH.PL=CMND
[Their mother told them:] 'Don't go far!' (KT 7:4.4)

The negative clitic *=tʰin* does not occur in prohibitives.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative verbs, such as 'know' in (2), are negated using the same two options as other verbs in the language. In this section, I describe the negation of nominal and existential predications.

[8] See Buckley (1994b: 335–336) and Buckley (2015) for the distribution of the final glottal stop, here given the separate gloss CMND, as in 'command'.

2.3.1 Nominal and adjectival predication

Nominal and adjectival predication is expressed without any lexical verb. Usually, the copula- or auxiliary-like Assertive element *=ʔ* is present in the clause. The Assertive can act as a host to inflectional morphology that would otherwise have been borne by a full lexical verb (such as evidentials, but typically only the 'Non-Final Verb' suffix *e·*). Negation is expressed by attaching the negative clitic *=*t^h*in* directly to the relevant noun phrase. Nominal predication illustrating proper inclusion ('X is a Y') is seen in examples (18) and (19). The negative suffix *-*t^h is not used in non-verbal clauses.

(18)

ʔama· dunawá·du hqal	*e·*	*maʔu*	*dúwi*
ʔama· dunawa·du hqal	=ʔ-a-e·	maʔu	duwi
cheater	=ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL	this.NOM	coyote

'This Coyote is a cheater.' (KT 4:8.2)

(19)

ʔa·	*ṭ'o*	*walé·pu*	t^h*in*	*e*	*muʔnati*
ʔa·	=ʔṭ'o	wale·pu	=t^hin	ʔ-a-e·	muʔnati
1SG.NOM	=EMPH	feather.sorcerer	=NEG	ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL	but

ʔa	*ku·yi*	*cadu*	*ʔé·*	*wale·pu*
ʔa·	ku·yi	cad-u	ʔ-a-e·	wale·pu
1SG.NOM	once	see-DVS	ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL	feather.sorcerer

'I am not a walépu but I once saw one.' (KT 40:1.2)

The same structure is used in contexts of negated equation ('X is not Y'), as in (20), and negated adjectival predication, as in (21).

(20)

meʔe	t^h*ín*	*e·*	*mu*
meʔe	=t^hin	ʔ-a-e·	mu
2.father.NOM	=NEG	ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL	that.NOM

'He is not your father.' (KT 13:2.3)

(21) a.

pišun	*é·*	*mu*
pišun	=Ø-a-é·	mu
strange	=ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL	that

'It is strange.'

b.

pišúnʔ	t^h*in*	*e·*	*mu*
pišúnʔ	=t^hin	=Ø-a-e·	mu
strange	=NEG	=ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL	that

'It is not strange.' (Kashaya dictionary, entry *pišunʔ*)

2.3.2 Locative and existential negation: *c^{h}ow* 'not exist'

Location and existence can be predicated by means of the semantically general verb *ʔi* 'be, remain', as illustrated in (22), or by more specific positional verbs ('sit', 'stand', etc.).[9]

(22) *ʔahca· hiʔbayá ʔiw*
ʔahcaw hiʔbaya ʔi-w
in.house man be-DVS
'There is a man in the house.' (Kashaya Dictionary, entry *ʔi*)

A special verb is used for the negation of locative and existential clauses: *c^{h}ow* (from the root /hc^{h}o·/), which I gloss as 'not exist'. Example (23) shows a negated locative predication, and (24) a negated existential. Dedicated negative existentials such as Kashaya *c^{h}ow* are common cross-linguistically (see Veselinova 2013).

(23) *mi·meʔ miyá·konʔ ʔaca· c^{h}ow*
mi·meṭ miya·-ko·nʔ ʔaca· hc^{h}o·-w
at.that.time 3-sister's.husband.NOM at.home not.exist-DVS
'At that time, his sister's husband was not at home.' (KT 12:11.1)

(24) *mi·meʔ ṭ'o ʔacaʔ c^{h}ow*
mi·meṭ =ʔṭ'o ʔaca·c hc^{h}o·-w
at.that.time =EMPH person not.exist-DVS
'At that time, there were no human beings.' (KT 1:3.1)

Possessive predication is expressed by means of the proprietive postposition *=q'o* 'with, having'. There are two competing options for the negative equivalent: the negative existential verb *c^{h}ow* 'not exist', or the privative postposition *=c^{h}oʔ* 'without' (phonemic /c^{h}ot/). A minimal triplet is in (25). See also §3.3.

(25) a. *pé·su q'o ʔe· ya*
pe·su =q'o =ʔ-a-e· ya
money =with =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1PL.NOM
'We have money.'

[9] The textual corpus contains no clear instances of purely locational ('the cat is on the mat') or existential ('there are ghosts') predications in the affirmative; but their negated counterparts, as described in this section, are amply attested.

b. *pe·su* *c^h^owé·* *yaʔk^h^e*
pe·su hc^h^o·-wa-e· yaʔk^h^e
money not.exist-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1PL.OBL
'We don't have money.'

c. *pé·su* *c^h^ot'e·* *ya*
pe·su =c^h^ot =ʔ-a-e· ya
money without =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1PL.NOM
'We don't have money.' (Kashaya Dictionary, entry *q'o*)

The privative *=c^h^oʔ* 'without' is probably related to the root of 'not exist', /hc^h^o·/. Some other forms that seem to be derivationally related to /hc^h^o·/ are in Table 4. The verb root /hc^h^oc/ in (b–d) is probably derived from the negative existential /hc^h^o·/ 'not exist' by suffixation of the Semelfactive *-c*, literally 'start to not exist'.

Table 4: Expressions related to /hc^h^o·/ 'not exist'

	Expression	Analysis	Meaning
a.	*c^h^o·nati*	/hc^h^o·-nati/ [not.exist-CONC.SS]	'barely'
b.	*bahc^h^obáhc^h^oʔ*	/ba-hc^h^oc/ [MOUTH-disappear]	'wear away with mouth'
c.	*c^h^oyíʔ*	/hc^h^oc-ic'/ [disappear-REFL]	'die'
d.	*c^h^oyic'qa*	/hc^h^oyic'-hqa/ [die-CAUS]	'kill'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

2.4.1 Complement clauses

Complement clauses of verbs such as 'want', 'know' and 'say' differ from independent main clauses in their strictly verb-final constituent order (this is a feature they share with other types of subordinate clauses in Kashaya) and in the limited morphological possibilities of the subordinate verb (Olsson 2010). The subordinate verb in such clauses is always suffixed with the Default Verbal Suffix, or, if the clause has future or modal semantics, a suffix such as the Future *-ʔk^h^e* or (more rarely) Conditional *-iʔba*. As pointed out in §2.1.2, the Default Verbal Suffix and the Future suffix are incompatible with the negative suffix *-t^h^* and only allow negation by means of the clitic *=t^h^in*. The Default Verbal Suffix and the Future are the overwhelmingly most common suffixes on verbs in complement clauses, so it follows that the most common negation strategy in complement clauses is the clitic *=t^{h}in*, as in (26).

(26) *ʔul duwe lébaṭ^{h}emʔ qowíc'k^{h}e t^{h}in šiyiʔ*
ʔul duwe lebaṭ^{h}emʔ hqowic-ʔk^{h}e =t^{h}in hšiyic'-ʔ
then [midnight return-FUT =NEG] say.about.self-DVS
'He said that he would not go back home until midnight.' (KT 3:12.4)

The negative suffix *-t^h* is used if the subordinate verb is marked by the Conditional *-iʔba*, since this suffix permits suffixal negation (27). This shows that the preference for *=t^{h}in* in complement clauses is not a direct consequence of their status as non-main clauses, but depends on which suffix marks the subordinate verb.

(27) *[…] dú·ciʔ mul ʔacaʔ yaʔ heʔen dac^{h}acíʔt^{h}iʔba […]*
ʔdu·cic'-ʔ mul ʔaca·c =yac heʔen dac^{h}ac-ic'-t^h-iʔba
know-DVS [that person =AGT how steal-REFL-NEG-COND]
'[Then the boss had the Indians guard it,] knowing that Indians wouldn't steal it […].' (KT 64:15.3)

2.4.2 Switch-reference clauses

Kashaya has an extensive system of switch-reference suffixes that are used to form clause chains ('X happened, then Y happened, and then Z happened') or adverbial-like clauses ('if X happens, then Y happens'). Descriptions of the Kashaya switch-reference system are in Oswalt (1961, 1983) and Olsson (2010: 35–44). Switch-reference clauses can be negated by the suffix *-t^h*, as in (28) and (29), or by the clitic *=t^{h}in*, as in (30). The counts in Table 1 show that the suffixal option is somewhat more common in the corpus.

(28) *ma moʔóʔtat^{h}ip^{h}ila ʔa· ʔé·*
ma moʔoʔta-t^h-p^{h}ila ʔa· =ʔ-a-e·
2SG.NOM whip.with.stick-NEG-IRR.DS 1SG.NOM =ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL
ma·dal ci·c'ínʔk^{h}e
ma·dal ci·c'id-ʔk^{h}e
3SG.F.ACC do-FUT
'If you don't whip her, I'll do it.' (KT 29:4.1)

(29) *… maʔa cóʔdoʔ tiya·col hqayíʔt^heti*
maʔa coʔdoq-ʔ tiya·col hqayic’-t^h-eti
food give.several-DVS 3PL.REFL.ACC ask.for.PL-NEG-CONC.DS
‘[…] and [they] gave them food even though they didn’t ask for it.’ (KT 57:10.4)

(30) *mulido mul ma·dúʔli t^hin k’eša·c’iwaʔ […]*
mulido mul ma·duc-ʔli =t^hin k’e·š-ac’-iwac’-ʔ
it.is.said that one.arrive-SEQ.DS =NEG search-along.PL-DISTR.PL-DVS
‘When he did not return home, they searched far and wide […].’ (KT 52:2.2)

I have not been able to find any semantic difference that explains the choice between suffixal and clitic negation of switch-reference clauses. The only exception is the use of the negative clitic *=t^hin* in (31), which presumably is motivated by the clause being in the scope of replacive focus. The intended meaning is ‘not because I happened to feel like it’, whereas the use of the negative suffix *-t^h* probably would correspond to the reading ‘because I didn’t feel like it’.

(31) *mul cáhnoʔte· ʔa bíhqatol nihín*
mul cahno·d-te-e· ʔa bihqatol nihin
that talk-PRFM.INTV-NFNL 1SG.NOM at.this.time to.self
t’alahqaba t^hin
t’ala-hqa-ba =t^hin
start.to.feel-CAUS-SEQ.SS =NEG
‘I must say this at this time not because I just happen to feel like it.’ (But because I’ve been told by God.) (KT 78:6.4)

The use of the negative clitic on constituents within narrow scope is further discussed in §4.1.

2.4.3 Negative purpose: ‘lest’-clauses

Purpose clauses are signalled by the Purposive suffix *-ti* on the verb (Olsson 2010: 39). Only one example of a clause expressing negative purpose has been found in the corpus, and it is formed by means of the standard Purposive *-ti* followed by the negative clitic *=t^hin* (32).

(32) *[...] hiʔbayá ʔel ma·caʔ tiyá·coʔk^{h}e his'u· ʔel ʔul ṭ'i·*
hiʔbaya =ʔel ma·cac tiya·coʔk^{h}e his'u· =ʔel ʔul ṭ'i·
man =ACC 3PL.NOM 3PL.REFL.POSS arrow =ACC already all
doʔq'óʔdiwaʔ ma·c'ic^{h}qati t^{h}in
doʔq'oʔdi-wac'-ʔ ma·c'ic-qa-ti =t^{h}in
prepare-DUR.PL-DVS one.arrive.PL.AGT-CAUS-PURP =NEG
'[Then] the menfolk prepared their arrows so as to prevent [the giant] from coming in.' (KT 21:10.4)

2.5 Negative lexicalisations

No clear examples of inherently negative lexical items have been found. Possible exceptions (admittedly more grammatical than lexical) are the verb *c^{h}ow* 'not exist' and the postposition *=c^{h}oʔ* 'without', as discussed in §2.3.2. Another candidate is *naʔbaʔ* 'not know how' (root /naʔbac/), but the few attestations of this verb make it impossible to decide whether it is truly inherently negative. (See also §3.1 for the answers 'no' and 'I don't know'.)

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions: The inability construction

Ability – 'can, be able to' – is mainly expressed by suffixing the verb with the Conditional *-iʔba* or Future *-ʔk^{h}e* (Oswalt 1961: 251, 257). Interestingly, inability is expressed not by simply negating such expressions, but by negating them and adding an interrogative word, typically *heʔen* 'how', to the clause. The presence of the interrogative word makes the structure a non-compositional counterpart of positive expressions of ability (which occur without an interrogative word), and the structure must therefore be considered a separate construction. The inability construction is very frequent in the corpus; examples are in (33) and (34). In fact, instances of this construction are much more frequent than expressions of (positive) ability, which often seems to be expressed implicitly (i.e. 'I see' rather than 'I can see').

(33) *heʔen mu·kinʔ hiʔda daʔt'áʔk^{h}e t^{h}in*
heʔen mu·kinʔ hiʔda daʔt'a-ʔk^{h}e =t^{h}in
how 3SG.M.NOM path find-FUT NEG
'He couldn't find the trail.' (KT 27:4.6)

(34) *[…] mens'in ya heʔen bayatáʔk^{h}e t^{h}in ma·caʔk^{h}e ya*
mens'in ya heʔen bayataq-ʔk^{h}e =t^{h}in ma·caʔk^{h}e ya
and 1pl.nom how understand.pl-fut =neg 3pl.obl 1pl.nom
kúʔmul s'iʔí ʔnati
kuʔmul s'iʔi ʔ-nati
same flesh asrt-conc.ss
'[Other people have different languages] and we can't understand theirs even though we are of one flesh.' (KT 2:8.7)

Interrogative expressions such as *ciba·* 'who' function as negative indefinite pronouns in negated clauses ('nobody' etc.; see §3.2 below), so *heʔen* 'how' should perhaps be interpreted as meaning something like 'in no way' in these contexts. But *heʔen* 'how' is usually omitted if some other interrogative expression is present, as in (35) and (36), so the generalisation seems to be that the expression of inability requires some interrogative word to be present, with the default being *heʔen* 'how'.

(35) *hiʔdi ʔahq^{h}a daʔt'áʔk^{h}e t^{h}in*
hiʔdi ʔahq^{h}a daʔt'a-ʔk^{h}e =t^{h}in
where water find-fut =neg
'He couldn't find water anywhere.' (KT 2:9.4)

(36) *muʔnati ciba· mul các'k^{h}e t^{h}in*
muʔnati ciba· mul cac'-ʔk^{h}e =t^{h}in
but who that see.pl.agt-fut neg
'But nobody can see that.' (KT 37:7.3)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

One-word replies to polar questions are: *hu·ʔ* 'yes', *da·* 'no' (and *huhu·* 'I don't know'). If the question is negated, as in (37a), the reply *da·* 'no' disagrees with the content of the question, not with its polarity: in (37b) Cricket Woman is replying that her husband did not return home.

(37) partly repeated from (14)

a. *"ʔóʔ miʔdaq^{h}anʔ ma·du·t^{h}ehni" hcedu*
ʔoc mi-ʔdaq^{h}anʔ ma·duc-t^{h}-a-e·=hni hced-u
still 2-husband.nom arrive-neg-vis.ipfv-nfnl=q say-dvs
'[He] asked, "Didn't your husband return yet?" '

b. *“dá·” cedu ṭʰoʔo·koyʔmenʔ*
da· hced-u ṭʰoʔo·koyʔ-menʔ
no say-DVS cricket-FEMALE.NAME
‘“No,” said Cricket Woman.’ (KT 14:7.3–4)

Positive replies to negative questions use *hu·ʔ* ‘yes’. In (38), the verb from the question is repeated, but this is not an obligatory feature of positive replies to negative questions (see e.g. KT6:4.11).

(38) a. *[…] “ma ṭ’o šo·me q’oʔo dú·ciʔ tʰin*
ma =ʔṭ’o šo·me q’oʔo ʔdu·cic’-ʔ =tʰin
2SG.NOM =EMPH younger.sister.VOC song know-DVS =NEG
ehni men ʔbakʰe” […]
ʔ-a-e·=hni men =bakʰe
ASRT-VIS.IPFV-NFNL=Q thus for
‘[Then his mother said to my grandmother,] “Sister, you don’t know a song for that, do you?”’

b. *mulido “hú·ʔ dú·cic’em ṭa ʔa” nihcedu*
mulido hu·ʔ ʔdu·cic’-em =ṭa ʔa nihced-u
it.is.said yes know-RESP =FOC 1SG.NOM say-DVS
‘“Yes, I know one,” she replied.’ (KT 41:11.2)

3.2 Negative indefinites

Like in many other languages, interrogative expressions such as *ciba·* ‘who’ are used as negative indefinites in negated clauses, as in (39–41). There is no ambiguity with content questions, because in content questions the Interrogative *-wa* is present in the clause (Oswalt 1961: 286).

(39) *ciba· duyáʔtaw ʔtʰin*
ciba· duyaʔta-w ʔ=tʰin
who help-DVS ASRT=NEG
‘Nobody helped him.’ (KT 2:4.2)

(40) *cibal ya q’awá·c’i·tʰela*
ciba·l ya q’awa·c’ic-tʰ-ela
who.ACC 1PL.NOM hide.PL-NEG-PRFM.IPFV
‘We haven’t hid anybody.’ (KT 16:12.6)

(41) *mulido baq'o maci·biʔ t^{h}in*
mulido baq'o ma·c-ibic-ʔ =t^{h}in
it.is.said what burn-INCEP-DVS =NEG
'Nothing started to burn.' (KT 16:14.3)

As seen in (42), interrogatives have the negative indefinite meaning in clauses with *c^{h}ow* 'not exist' too, which shows that this verb must be regarded as inherently negative.

(42) *hḿ··· ʔacaʔ mihšewé· […]. c^{h}o·wé· cibá· […]*
hm ʔaca·c mihše-wa-e· hc^{h}o·-wa-e· ciba·
hm person smell-VIS.IPFV-NFNL not.exist-VIS.IPFV-NFNL who
' "Hmm, I smell a person" [said Eagle]. "There is no one" [said Old Lady Kestrel].' (H 4:6.5)

Unfortunately, there is no data showing whether the negative indefinite use of interrogatives extends across clause boundaries, i.e. whether one can say (the equivalent of) 'I don't think WHO helped him' to mean 'I don't think anybody helped him' (so called indirect negation).

A remarkable feature of Kashaya is that the formation of positive indefinite pronouns also involves negation: these are formed by adding the negative clitic directly to the question words, as described in §4.6.1.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

The only known item that can be said to express negative meanings on the phrasal level is *c^{h}oʔ* 'without' (§2.3.2), as in (43). This utterance is an example of standard non-verbal predication (as discussed in §2.3 above), with the postpositional phrase *s'aʔs'a c^{h}oʔ* 'clean' (lit. 'without dirt') functioning as the predicate. All examples of such expressions that I found are used predicatively (either as non-verbal predicates or as depictive secondary predicates), so it is not known if these expressions can be used attributively, as adnominal modifiers ('a clean cloth').

(43) *mu ṭ'o s'aʔs'a c^{h}oʔ*
mu =ʔṭ'o s'aʔs'a =c^{h}ot
that =EMPH dirt without
'It was not dirty.' (KT 5:4.5)

Some expressions containing *c^{h}oʔ* ‘without’ are in Table 5, taken from Oswalt (n.d.). It is not known to what degree these are established idioms or nonce creations.

Table 5: Expressions with *c^{h}oʔ* ‘without’

Expression	gloss	meaning
maʔa c^{h}oʔ	food without	‘hungry’
šimamo c^{h}oʔ	inner.ear without	‘flirtatious man’
ciliʔ c^{h}oʔ	be.worth without	‘cheap’
cahno c^{h}óʔ	speech without	‘quiet’
ʔama c^{h}íyaʔ c^{h}oʔ	thing be.afraid without	‘brave, fearless’

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

There appear to be several options for narrowing down the scope of negation to a specific constituent. The most frequent option is to mark the constituent in the scope of negation directly, by means of the negative clitic *=t^{h}in*. In (44), the expression *ʔacaʔ* ‘person, people’ is negated directly, as it is in the scope of contrastive negation.

(44) *mens’iba miq^{h}ama·tow ʔṭ’o mul ʔacaʔ t^{h}in nihciʔ šiʔbaši*
mens’iba miq^{h}ama·tow =ʔṭ’o mul ʔaca·c =t^{h}in nihcic’-ʔ šiʔbaši
and.then after.that =EMPH that person =NEG say.PL.AGT-DVS animal
nihciʔ
nihcic’-ʔ
say.PL.AGT-DVS
‘Thereafter they weren’t called people; they were called animals.’ (KT 10:22.8)

Second, focus particles (usually the Emphatic focus particle *=ʔṭ’o*) can be used, as in (45).

(45) *da·qáʔ t^{h}in ku ṭ’o*
da·qac’-ʔ =t^{h}in ku =ʔṭ’o
want-DVS =NEG one =EMPH
‘He did not want just one.’ (i.e., he wanted several) (KT 4:9.4)

Finally, constituent focus can be expressed with standard clausal negation, as in (46). Prosodic prominence is perhaps relevant for the interpretation of such utterances.[10]

(46) *[…] ma·caʔ ṭ'o mul ʔacaʔ s'iʔi bimuyíʔ tʰin, bihše máʔyul*
ma·cac =ʔṭ'o mul ʔaca·c s'iʔi bimuyic'-ʔ =tʰin bihše maʔyul
3PL.NOM EMPH that person flesh eat.PL-DVS =NEG deer only
bimuyiʔ […]
bimuyic'-ʔ
eat.PL-DVS
'[…] they didn't dine on human flesh; they only ate meat […]' (KT 6:2.3)

See also the discussion of negative scope in complex clauses in §4.5.

4.2 Negative polarity

No idiomatic negative polarity items of the type *lift a finger* are attested in the textual corpus or in the Kashaya Dictionary. The use of interrogatives as negative indefinites under negation was noted in §3.2.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Like the other languages of the Pomoan family, Kashaya has a case system based on semantic alignment (see e.g. Mithun 1991). The Nominative case clitic *=ʔem* marks NPs expressing agent-like participants (e.g. the sole argument of an agentive verb such as 'dance') and the Accusative *=ʔel* marks patient-like participants (e.g. the sole argument of a patientive verb such as 'die'). Certain expressions, such as personal pronouns, kinship terms, and clausal nominalisations, are obligatorily marked for case (marked by suffixes rather than clitics). Lexical NPs seem to be case-marked under discourse conditions that are not yet well understood, but it seems to be mainly referential, definite NPs that are marked for Nominative and Accusative case. These principles seem to be at work in negated clauses too, so a definite NP such as 'the bear' in (47) is overtly marked by case, whereas a non-referential NP such as 'water' in (35) above is unmarked for case.

[10] Oswalt's original recordings are archived in the Survey of California and Other Indian Languages (http://cla.berkeley.edu/collection/11055), but analysis of the interaction between prosody and negation was outside the scope of this study.

(47) *miq^{h}amá·to· buṭaqá ʔel caʔ t^{h}in*
miq^{h}ama·tow buṭaqa =ʔel cac’-ʔ =t^{h}in
after.that bear =ACC see.PL.AGT-DVS =NEG
‘After that the bear was never seen again.’ (KT 5:19.5)

At present, then, there is no evidence suggesting that case marking is affected by negation, but this conclusion must be regarded as preliminary pending more work on case marking in Kashaya.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Reinforcing or minimising expressions such as ‘(not even) one’ or ‘(not even) a little’ are formed with the element *-nati* (usually attached to the Assertive *ʔ*), as in (48) and (49). (*-nati* is also a concessive marker meaning ‘although’.)

(48) *kú ʔnati dacew ʔt^{h}in*
ku ʔ-nati dace-w ʔ=t^{h}in
one ASRT-even catch-DVS ASRT=NEG
‘They didn’t catch even one.’ (KT 59:12.12)

(49) *qawí ʔnati maʔal miʔk^{h}e míhṭ^{h}e di·c’íʔt^{h}uʔ*
qawi ʔ-nati maʔal miʔk^{h}e mi-hṭ^{h}e di·c’-id-t^{h}u =ʔ
little ASRT-even this.ACC 2SG.POSS 2-mother tell-DUR-NEG =IMP
‘Don’t breathe a word to your mother.’ (KT 29:14.2)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The main strategy for coordinating complex clauses is the system of switch-reference, as discussed in §2.4.2. I already discussed negation of the non-main clauses in such constructions; here I will add some information about the scope that negation takes when it is expressed in the main clause. There are two possibilities for an utterance containing a switch-reference clause and a main clause in which the main verb is negated. Either the main clause negation has scope only over the main clause, as in (50a), or over both clauses, as in (50b).

(50) Having done A, I NEG did B.
a. ‘I did A, and I didn’t do B.’
b. ‘I didn’t do A, and I didn’t do B.’

Both of these options are frequent in the corpus. Examples of negation with scope over only the main clause, as in (50a) above, are in (51) and (52).

(51) *"bihše boʔoba ma·dú·t^{h}e·" nihcedu*
bihše boʔo-ba ma·duc-t^h-a-e· nihced-u
deer hunt-SEQ.SS one.arrive-NEG-VIS.IPFV-NFNL say-DVS
'"Having gone hunting, he didn't come back," she said.'
(NOT: 'He didn't go hunting, and he didn't come back') (KT 7:3.5)

(52) *maʔa ʔel dahólmadun daʔt'aci·du t^{h}in men haʔdá·*
maʔa =ʔel dahol-m-ad-in daʔt'a-cid-u =t^{h}in men haʔdaw
food =ACC search-ESS-DUR-SIM.SS find-DUR-DVS =NEG thus hungry
caci·du
ca-cid-u
sit-DUR-DVS
'While searching for food [the child] wouldn't find it; it sat hungry.'
(NOT: 'When it didn't search for food, it didn't find it') (KT 51:3.2)

An example of negation with scope over both the main clause and the switch-reference clause, as in (50b) above, is in (53).

(53) *mens'in ʔdú·cic'e· ʔa be·li ʔa q^{h}aʔbe*
mens'in ʔdu·cic'-a-e· ʔa be·li ʔa q^{h}aʔbe
and know-VIS.IPFV-NFNL 1SG.NOM here 1SG.NOM rock
cíc'p^{h}i t'et^{h}maʔk^{h}e t^{h}in
ci·c'-p^{h}i t'e·t^{h}ma-ʔk^{h}e =t^{h}in
become-IRR.SS one.stand-FUT =NEG
'I know that I am not going to turn into a rock and stand here.'
(NOT: '…that when I have turned into a rock, I won't stand here.') (KT 78:15.7)

Similar cases of flexibility in the interpretation of negative scope have been noted for other languages with switch-reference systems (e.g. Reesink 2002: 258–259).

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Non-negative uses of negation: indefinite pronouns

The standard indefinite pronoun series in Kashaya are formed by adding *=t^{h}in*, i.e. the negative clitic, to the interrogatives, as shown in Table 6. Thus, *ciba· t^{h}ín* 'someone' is literally 'who not' and *baq'o t^{h}ín* 'something' is literally 'what not'. Indefinite pronouns that are based on interrogative pronouns are very common cross-linguistically (e.g. Haspelmath 1997), but the combination of interrogative pronouns with negation to form positive indefinite pronouns has not been documented in the literature,[11] and is indeed a very surprising feature of the language.

Table 6: Interrogatives and indefinites

Interrogative		Indefinite	
cibá·	'who'	*ciba· tʰín*	'someone'
baq'ó	'what'	*baq'o tʰín*	'something'
buté·	'when'	*bute· tʰín*	'sometimes'
béṭ'bu	'how many, how much'	*béṭ'bu tʰin*	'a few, some'
heʔéy	'where'	*heʔéy tʰin*	'somewhere'
hiʔdí	'whereabouts'	*hiʔdi tʰín*	'somewhere'
heʔén	'how'	*heʔén tʰin*	'somehow, in some way'

The standard indefinite series are used in most of the non-negative functions identified in Haspelmath (1997). For example, *ciba· tʰín* 'someone' can be used to express a specific, unknown indefinite referent (54), and it can be used in conditionals (55).

(54) *[...] to cibá· tʰin da·qaʔ*
to ciba· =tʰin da·qac'-ʔ
1SG.ACC who =NEG like-DVS
'[That is when I know that] someone wants me.' (KT 50:18.5)

(55) *cibá· tʰin mito ʔama· mito men hqacínʔpʰila [...]*
ciba· =tʰin mito ʔama· mito men hqac-id-pʰila
who =NEG 2SG.ACC thing 2SG.ACC thus ask-DUR-DS.IRR
'If anyone ever asks anything of you, [you should not say, 'No']'

Compare these uses of the positive indefinite pronouns with the uses of bare interrogatives as negative indefinite pronouns in negated clauses, described in §3.2 above. Using the concept 'who' as illustration, the two uses of interrogatives outside content questions can be summarised as follows:

(56) WHO+NEG VERB 'Someone VERB-ed.'
WHO VERB+NEG 'Nobody VERB-ed.'

[11] Note that the English expression *and whatnot* means 'and similar items, etc.' and is not an indefinite pronoun.

The use of negation to form non-negative indefinites is so surprising that it is worth asking whether the element *t^hin* in these expressions is not simply a case of accidental homophony with the negative clitic *=t^hin*, but I am not aware of any other element of the shape *t^hin*, either in Kashaya or in other closely related Pomoan languages, that could have provided the diachronic source for the indefinite marker.

Note also that *=t^hin* clearly behaves as a clitic even in indefinite expressions, because it detaches from the interrogative word when other elements, such as postpositions, are added to the indefinite expression. In such complex indefinite expressions, *=t^hin* appears at the right edge of the complex interrogative expression, following the added material. In (57), the interrogative *heʔé·* 'where' is followed by the postposition *tow* 'from', which intervenes before *=t^hin*, resulting in a complex indefinite *heʔé· tow ʔt^hin* 'from somewhere'. The fact that *=t^hin* behaves like a clitic even in indefinite expressions could be considered to be evidence that it is the 'same' item as the negative clitic.[12]

(57)

mulidom	*p^{h}iʔt'an*	*heʔé·*	*tow*	*ʔt^hin*	*cibá·*	*t^hin*
mulidom	p^{h}iʔt'an	heʔey	=tow	ʔ=t^hin	ciba·	=t^hin
it.is.said	suddenly	where	=from	ASRT=NEG	who	=NEG

buʔs'uná·yadu
buʔs'unay-ad-u
make.kissing.noise-DUR-DVS
'Suddenly from somewhere someone was making a kissing noise.' (KT 24:3.2)

Comparison with indefinite pronouns in the closest relatives of Kashaya does not shed any light on the diachronic origin of the positive indefinite pronouns.[13] Haspelmath (1997) mentions one source of positive indefinite pronouns that involves negation, the 'dunno' type, i.e. expressions that originally meant 'I don't

[12] Note that the negative clitic attaches to the Assertive *ʔ* (which functions as an auxiliary verb) in complex indefinite expressions. The Assertive occasionally hosts the negative clitic in standard clausal negation too, as in (13) and (48) above. I am not aware of the function of the Assertive in these uses. A reviewer suggests that *=ʔt^hin* might simply be an allomorph of *=t^hin* in certain contexts, perhaps historically related to the Assertive.

[13] Southern Pomo uses interrogative words such as *čaʔ:a* 'who' followed by the clitic *ʔnaṭi* 'but, even' as negative indefinite pronouns, combined with a negated verb (data from Halpern's Southern Pomo Texts; cf. also Walker 2020: 259); I have found no data on positive indefinite pronouns in this language. Central Pomo uses bare interrogative pronouns (e.g. *bá:* 'who'; cf. Kashaya *ciba·* 'who') as indefinite pronouns in both positive and negative contexts (e.g. Mithun 2008: 238, ex. 58, Mithun 1998: 83, ex. 15)

know who’ (e.g. Old Norse *nekkver* ‘somebody’ < **ne wait ik hwarir* ‘I don’t know who’; 1997: 131). Haspelmath notes that ‘dunno’-type indefinites seem restricted to European languages, and there is nothing in Kashaya indefinites such as *ciba·tʰín* ‘someone’ suggesting that these have a clausal origin. It is worth noting, however, that utterances combining ‘don’t know’ and an interrogative word, as in (58), are not uncommon in the Kashaya corpus, so it is possible that this type of structure is the diachronic source of the indefinite pronouns. This would have involved placement of the negative clitic after the interrogative word (as in constituent negation, §4.1) and a meaning change, i.e. ‘don’t know where X went’ > ‘X went somewhere’. Unfortunately there is no data to support this scenario, so the explanation for the use of negation in the indefinite pronouns remains an enigma.

(58)	*muʔnati*	*heʔé·*	*wa·du*	*dú·ciʔ*	*tʰin*	*[…]*
	muʔnati	heʔey	wa·d-u	ʔdu·cic’-ʔ	=tʰin	
	but	where	one.go.along-DVS	know-DVS	=NEG	

‘But they didn’t know where she went; [she was lost.]’ (KT 51:6.3)

4.6.2 Comparative remarks on negation in Pomoan languages

The existence of multiple negation strategies in Kashaya (suffix *-tʰ*, clitic *=tʰin*, verb *cʰow*) appears to be shared with the other Pomoan languages. The closest relative, Southern Pomo, shows a very similar pattern with competition between a negative suffix *-t̪ʰ* (used with e.g. Conditional verb forms) and a negative clitic *=t̪ʰot̪’* or *=t̪ʰoṭ’* (used with the Future suffix, and in non-verbal predication; Walker 2020: 246–248), plus a negative existential verb *ʔačʰ:ów*, corresponding to Kashaya *cʰow* ‘not exist’ (Walker 2020: 308).

Central Pomo, spoken north of Kashaya, shows a slightly more complex situation (Mithun 1998). The markers of negation are clearly cognate with the negative morphemes in Kashaya and Southern Pomo, but their functions are different. According to Mithun’s description, Central Pomo negation is intertwined with aspect, and distinguishes the perfective negator *čʰów* (cognate with Kashaya *cʰow* ‘not exist’) from the imperfective negator *t̪ʰin* (cognate with Kashaya *=tʰin*). Mithun observes that *čʰów* also functions as a negative existential, and that *t̪ʰin* is used in nominal and adjectival predication, just like the Kashaya cognates.

Negation in Eastern Pomo employs the suffixal element *-kʰúy* (McLendon 1975: 105), which is cognate with Kashaya *cʰow*, Southern Pomo *ʔačʰ:ów*, and Central Pomo *čʰów*. These reflect Proto-Pomo **ʔakʰ·ów* (McLendon 1973: 83). The geographic distribution of the descendants of Proto-Pomo **ʔakʰ·ów* is restricted to existential negation in the southernmost languages (Kashaya and Southern Pomo), extends to negating verbs in some contexts in Central Pomo, and functions as the standard negator in Eastern Pomo. This aligns neatly with different diachronic stages of the so-called Negative Existential Cycle, which describes the development of standard negators from negative existentials (Croft 1991; Veselinova 2014).

The other Pomoan languages for which data are available appear to feature double-marked negation, combining negative verb forms with pre-verbal negative particles (Moshinsky 1974; O'Connor 1987). Untangling the history of the diverse negation strategies of the Pomoan family would be a rewarding comparative task.

The fascinating 'what-not' indefinite pronoun series described in §4.6.1 lack equivalents in other Pomoan languages. The formation of positive indefinite pronouns from interrogatives and the negative marker appears to be a quirk of Kashaya, and a typological rarissimum to boot.

5 Summary

Kashaya has three main strategies for expressing negation: a verb suffix *-t*^{h}, a clitic *=t*^{h}*in* and a negative existential verb *c*^{h}*ow*. Table 7 outlines the distribution of the three strategies.

Table 7: Summary of negation strategies

Negation strategy	Functions	
Suffix *-t*^{h}	Negating verbs marked with evidential suffixes, Conditional *-iʔba*, etc.	(2.1.2)
Clitic *=t*^{h}*in*	Negating verbs marked with Future *-ʔk*^{h}*e*, Default Verbal Suffix, etc.	(2.1.2)
	Negation in nominal & adjectival predication	(2.3.1)
	Constituent negation	(4.1)
	Formation of positive indefinite pronouns	(4.6.1)
Verb *c*^{h}*ow* 'not exist'	Existential & locative negation	(2.3.2)
Suffixes *-t*^{h}*u* (sg), *-t*^{h}*ume* (pl)	Prohibitive	(2.2)

I showed that the three strategies are largely in complementary distribution, with determinants involving both morphological context (e.g. verbs with evidentials only taking the negative suffix *-tʰ*; §2.1.2) and syntactic context (e.g. constituent negation and nominal/adjectival predication selecting the clitic *=tʰin*; §2.3.1, §4.1). I noted that some contexts show variation between the suffixal and clitic options (as in the negation of switch-reference clauses, §2.4.2), but overall, the patterning of the three strategies is straightforward.

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Abbreviations

1	first person	F	feminine
2	second person	FOC	focus
3	third person	FUT	future
ACC	accusative	GNR	general
AGT	agent	HRSY	hearsay evidential
ASRT	assertive (auxiliary)	IMP	imperative
CAUS	causative	INCEP	inceptive
CMND	command	INTV	intentive
CONC	concessive	IPFV	imperfective
COND	conditional	IRR	irrealis
DISTR	distributive	M	masculine
DS	different subject	NEG	negative
DUR	durative	NFNL	non-final verb
DVS	default verbal suffix	NOM	nominative
EMPH	emphatic focus	NP	nominal phrase
ESS	essive	OBL	oblique
EVID	evidentials	PRFM	performative

PFV	perfective	SEQ	sequential
PL	plural	SG	singular
POSS	possessive	SIM	simultaneous
PROH	prohibitive	SR	switch-reference
PURP	purposive	SS	same subject
Q	yes/no-question	V	verb
REFL	reflexive	VIS	visual evidential
RESP	responsive	VOC	vocative

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Chapter 12

Negation in Koasati

Jack B. Martin
William & Mary

Koasati has a complex negative pattern with three markers on the verb whose placement is determined by verb class. The complexity of the morphological system has hindered understanding of negation as a whole in the language. This paper thus explores the larger topic of Koasati negation in typological perspective, with special attention to tone, aspect, and the origin of the system.

Keywords: negation, Koasati, Muskogean, infixation.

1 The language

Koasati (ISO: cku, Glottocode: koas1236) is a Muskogean language spoken by 200 members of the Coushatta Tribe of Louisiana and by a portion of the Alabama-Coushatta Tribe of Texas. It is closely related to Alabama, and more distantly related to Choctaw, Chickasaw, Apalachee, Mikasuki, and Muskogee (Creek). The data in this paper are from elicited data collected while developing pedagogical materials with the Coushatta Heritage Department. The structure of the paper follows the negation questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]).

The vowel phonemes of Koasati are short /a i o/, long /a: i: o:/, and nasal /a^n i^n o^n/. The consonant phonemes are /b č f h k l ł m n p s t w y/. /č/ and /y/ are phonetically [ʧ] and [j] in IPA. Within a word, acute, grave, caron, and circumflex accents are used for tone (generally indicating verbal aspect). Phrase-final intonation patterns are indicated with ˊ (high) and ^ (falling) after a word.

Koasati generally has SOV word order (1).

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(1) *a:t-osi-k* *łało-^{n}* *ì:p.*
person-DIM-SBJ fish-NSBJ eat.LGR
'The child is eating the fish.'

Enclitics appear after noun phrases to indicate case or discourse status: *-k* for subject (with a focused form *-ok*), *-^{n}* for nonsubject (focused form *-on*), and *-p* for topic, among others. In conversation, subjects, objects, and other phrases may be placed after the verb as afterthoughts.

Verbs are highly synthetic and are marked for the person and number of their arguments. Koasati distinguishes the three series of person markers in (2–4): agent (A), patient (P), and dative (DAT).[1]

(2) Agent series (stem *hiča-* 'see'):

*hiča-**l**-laho^n*	'I will see it'[2]
***is**-hiča-laho^n*	'you will see it'
hiča-laho^n	'he/she will see it'
***il**-hiča-laho^n*	'we will see it'
***has**-hiča-laho^n*	'you all will see it'

(3) Patient series (stem *banna-* 'want'):

***ča**-banna-laho^n*	'I will want it'[3]
***či**-banna-laho^n*	'you will want it'
banna-laho^n	'he/she will want it'
***ko**-banna-laho^n*	'we will want it'
***hači**-banna-laho^n*	'you all will want it'

(4) Dative series (stem *im-aka:no-* 'be hungry'):

***am**-aka:no-laho^n*	'I will be hungry'[4]
***čim**-aka:no-laho^n*	'you will be hungry'
***im**-aka:no-laho^n*	'he/she will be hungry'
***kom**-aka:no-laho^n*	'we will be hungry'
***hačim**-aka:no-laho^n*	'you all will be hungry'

[1]For simplicity, verbs are cited here in future forms ending in *-laho^n*.
[2]In (2), *hiča-l-laho^n* is glossed see-1SG.A-FUT.SF, and *is-hiča-laho^n* is glossed 2SG.A-see-FUT.SF.
[3]In (3), *ča-banna-laho^n* is glossed 1SG.P-want-FUT.SF.
[4]In (4) *am-aka:no-laho^n* is glossed 1SG.DAT-be.hungry-FUT.SF.

Person markers are prefixed in the patient and dative series. In the agent series, the first person singular -*li* (or -*l*) is always a suffix. The other agent person markers may be prefixed, infixed, or suffixed depending on verb class.[5]

The verb *hiča-* ‘see’ in (2), for example, belongs to a small class of verbs (“SEE verbs” or Kimball’s class 1A) that prefix agent person markers other than the first person singular.

Verbs belonging to the SING class (class 2C) differ in infixing these markers. This is seen with the stem *talwa-* ‘sing’ in (5).

(5)	*talwa-**l**-laho*^{n}	‘I will sing’
	*ta<**či**>lwa-laho*^{n}	‘you will sing’
	talwa-laho^{n}	‘he/she will sing’
	*ta<**li**>lwa-laho*^{n}	‘we will sing’
	*ta<**hači**>lwa-laho*^{n}	‘you all will sing’

Most other verbs are suffixing, but belong to several classes based on the specific form of the markers. The stem *bitli-* ‘dance’ in (6) (class 2Aii) is typical of the large number of verb roots ending in -*li*.[6]

(6)	*bitli-**l**-laho*^{n}	‘I will dance’
	*bit-**či**-laho*^{n}	‘you will dance’
	bitli-laho^{n}	‘he/she will dance’
	*bit-**hil**-laho*^{n}	‘we will dance’
	*bit-**hači**-laho*^{n}	‘you all will dance’

The stem *na:łi:ka-* ‘speak’ in (7) is another suffixing verb, this time typical of verbs ending in -*ka* (class 3A).

(7)	*na:łi:ka-**l**-laho*^{n}	‘I will speak’
	*na:łi:-**hiska**-laho*^{n}	‘you will speak’
	na:łi:ka-laho^{n}	‘he/she will speak’
	*na:łi:-**hilka**-laho*^{n}	‘we will speak’
	*na:łi:-**haska**-laho*^{n}	‘you all will speak’

[5]Verb classes are established based on the placement and form of the agent person markers (if the verb is agentive) or, as we will see, on the placement and form of negative *ik-*. Verb class also affects the form of verbal nouns (Kimball 1991: 273ff). Haas (1946) described six verb classes in Koasati (I, IIA, IIB, IIC, IIIA, IIIB). Kimball (1991, 1994) recognized ten classes (1A, 1B, etc.), though some of his classes have only a few members. For reasons of space, I focus here on four classes. See also Montler & Hardy (1991) for a description of negation in Alabama.

[6]The same pattern is used for a number of verbs like *isi-* ‘take’ that don’t end in -*li* (Kimball’s class 2Ai).

Koasati has a system of GRADES or internal changes typically applying to the penultimate syllable of a verb stem and affecting verbal aspect. As (8) shows, a verb stem like *hača:li-* 'stand' can thus appear in the lengthened grade (L-grade, LGR) to indicate an event in progress, or in the geminating-rising tone grade (GR-grade, GGR) to indicate a state resulting from an event.

(8) a. *hačà:lí-l.*
stand.SG.LGR-1SG.A
'I am standing up.' (event; L-grade)

b. *haččǎ:li-l.*
stand.SG.GGR-1SG.A
'I am standing.' (resulting state; GR-grade)

Other grades include the rising tone grade (R-grade), the aspirating grade (H-grade), and the nasalizing grade (N-grade).

In questions and emphatic environments, the final vowels of verbs may be nasalized (9a). Final oral vowels are deleted in statements and commands (9b).

(9) a. *hačà:lí-^{n}.*
stand.SG.LGR-SF
'Is he/she standing up?'

b. *hačà:l.*
stand.SG.LGR
'He/she is standing up.'

Koasati has a measured tense system with several degrees of remoteness in past time. Table 1 shows four past tenses with forms used in statements (with loss of final vowel), questions, and emphatic statements.[7]

2 Clausal negation

Many aspects of Koasati negation have been described in Kimball (1991).[8] This description reflects further research on Koasati tone and grades and describes negation in a wider typological context (Dahl 1979, Miestamo 2005, 2025).

[7] Past 1 is glossed in examples as REC.PST and past 2 is glossed as MED.PST.

[8] Kimball (1991) is particularly thorough in investigating verb classes associated with negation. Kimball (1994) is a dictionary indicating class membership.

Table 1: Past tense suffixes

	Statement	Question	Emphasis
Past 1 (today/last night)			
Perfective	*-t*	no mark	*-ti*$^{n\wedge}$
Imperfective	*-:s*	*-:sa*$^{n\prime}$	
Past 2 (yesterday/a year ago)	*-t*	*-to*$^{n\prime}$	
Past 3 (long ago)	*-k*	*-ki*$^{n\prime}$	*-ki*$^{n\wedge}$
Past 4 (very long ago)	*-to*^{n}	*-to:li*$^{n\prime}$	

Negation in Koasati is restricted to verbs. It is unusual in being signaled by three separate markers on the verb: an affix *ik-*, a suffix *-o*, and use of rising tone. Of these, the affix *ik-* is the most reliable and salient mark of negation.[9]

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (negation of indicative clauses) is a morphological operation in Koasati applying to verbs. In (10), the verb stem is *ipa-* 'eat'.[10]

(10) a. *a:t-osi-k* *ɬaɬo-*^{n} *ì:p.*
person-DIM-SBJ fish-NSBJ eat.LGR
'The child is eating the fish.'

b. *a:t-osi-k* *ɬaɬo-*^{n} ***ǐk**-p-**o**-*^{n}.
person-DIM-SBJ fish-NSBJ NEG-eat.RGR-NEG-SF
'The child is not eating the fish.'

Three morphological operations apply to make a verb negative:

1. a form of the negative affix *ik-* is prefixed, infixed, or suffixed (depending on verb class);
2. a negative suffix *-o* is added;
3. the verb stem is put in the rising tone grade. Rising tone is assigned to the syllable before *-o*. If the vowel in that syllable is short and open, it is lengthened.

[9] I say this because *-o* sometimes deletes and because rising tone can be difficult to hear.

[10] When rising tone falls on a syllable closed by an obstruent (as in *ǐk-p-o-*^{n} in (10b)), the rise is often carried over to the following syllable: *ìk-p-ó-*^{n}.

Negative *ik-* and *-o* are unique to negation and can be considered a type of two-part negation. The final *-o* may delete before another vowel, but a form of *ik-* is always present. The rising tone grade is a grammatical aspect limited to negatives, some nominalizations, and as part of the geminating-rising tone grade (which indicates a resulting state). These three uses suggest the rising tone grade was once a type of imperfective, but the three uses have little to do with each other now, and the rising tone grade helps distinguish a negative verb.

Whether negative *ik-* is prefixed, infixed, or suffixed depends on verb class. The placement of *ik-* is thus parallel to the placement of the agent person markers. In fact, the agent person markers and *ik-* are fused as a separate series of negative agent person markers. Verbs like *hiča-* 'see' that prefix the positive agent person markers also prefix the negative agent person markers (11).[11]

(11)	*hiča-**l**-laho*^{n}	'I will see it'
	***is**-hiča-laho*^{n}	'you will see it'
	hiča-laho^n	'he/she will see it'
	***il**-hiča-laho*^{n}	'we will see it'
	***has**-hiča-laho*^{n}	'you all will see it'
	***ak**-hǐ:č-o-laho*^{n}	'I won't see it'
	***čik**-hǐ:č-o-laho*^{n}	'you won't see it'
	***ik**-hǐ:č-o-laho*^{n}	'he/she won't see it'
	***kil**-hǐ:č-o-laho*^{n}	'we won't see it'
	***hačik**-hǐ:č-o-laho*^{n}	'you all won't see it'

Verbs like *talwa-* 'sing' that infix the agent person markers also infix the negative agent person markers (12).

(12)	*talwa-**l**-laho*^{n}	'I will sing'
	*ta<**či**>lwa-laho*^{n}	'you will sing'
	talwa-laho^n	'he/she will sing'
	*ta<**li**>lwa-laho*^{n}	'we will sing'
	*ta<**hači**>lwa-laho*^{n}	'you all will sing'
	*ta<**kǎ**>lw-o-laho*^{n}	'I won't sing'
	*ta<**čikǐ**>lw-o-laho*^{n}	'you won't sing'
	*ta<**kǐ**>lw-o-laho*^{n}	'he/she won't sing'
	*ta<**likǐ**>lw-o-laho*^{n}	'we won't sing'
	*ta<**hačikǐ**>lw-o-laho*^{n}	'you all won't sing'

[11] As Miestamo (2005: 129) has noted, this is an asymmetric system, because agentive person marking is expressed differently in positive and negative clauses.

Verbs like *bitli-* 'dance' in (13) and *na:łi:ka-* 'speak' in (14) that suffix the agent person markers also suffix the negative agent person markers.

(13)	*bitli-**l**-laho*^{n}	'I will dance'
	*bit-**či**-laho*^{n}	'you will dance'
	bitli-laho^{n}	'he/she will dance'
	*bit-**hil**-laho*^{n}	'we will dance'
	*bit-**hači**-laho*^{n}	'you all will dance'
	*bit-**tăkko**-laho*^{n}	'I won't dance'
	*bit-**čĭkko**-laho*^{n}	'you won't dance'
	*bĭt-**ko**-laho*^{n}	'he/she won't dance'
	*bit-**kĭlko**-laho*^{n}	'we won't dance'
	*bit-**hačĭkko**-laho*^{n}	'you all won't dance'

(14)	*na:łi:ka-**l**-laho*^{n}	'I will speak'
	*na:łi:-**hiska**-laho*^{n}	'you will speak'
	na:łi:ka-laho^{n}	'he/she will speak'
	*na:łi:-**hilka**-laho*^{n}	'we will speak'
	*na:łi:-**haska**-laho*^{n}	'you all will speak'
	*na:łi:-**hăkko**-laho*^{n}	'I won't speak'
	*na:łi:-**čĭkko**-laho*^{n}	'you won't speak'
	*na:łi:-**hĭkko**-laho*^{n}	'he/she won't speak'
	*na:łi:-**kĭlko**-laho*^{n}	'we won't speak'
	*na:łi:-**hačĭkko**-laho*^{n}	'you all won't speak'

Many verbs use the agent series for their subjects, but some use the patient or dative series instead. For these, the person markers are not fused with negative *ik-*. Instead, negation has the same form as the third person negative. The verb *banna-* 'want', for example, uses the patient series for its subject, but as (15) shows, negation uses the same pattern as *bitli-* 'dance' in the third person.

(15)	***ča**-banna-laho*^{n}	'I will want it'
	***či**-banna-laho*^{n}	'you will want it'
	banna-laho^{n}	'he/she will want it'
	***ko**-banna-laho*^{n}	'we will want it'
	***hači**-banna-laho*^{n}	'you all will want it'
	***ča**-băn-**ko**-laho*^{n}	'I won't want it'
	***či**-băn-**ko**-laho*^{n}	'you won't want it'

	băn-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘he/she won’t want it’
	ko-*băn*-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘we won’t want it’
	hači-*băn*-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘you all won’t want it’

The verb *im-aka:no-* ‘hungry’ uses the dative series for its subject. Again, as (16) shows, negation for this verb is as for *bitli-* ‘dance’.

(16)	***am***-*aka:no-laho*^{n}	‘I will be hungry’
	čim-*aka:no-laho*^{n}	‘you will be hungry’
	im-*aka:no-laho*^{n}	‘he/she will be hungry’
	kom-*aka:no-laho*^{n}	‘we will be hungry’
	hačim-*aka:no-laho*^{n}	‘you all will be hungry’
	am-*akăn*-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘I won’t be hungry’[12]
	čim-*akăn*-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘you won’t be hungry’
	im-*akăn*-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘he/she won’t be hungry’
	kom-*akăn*-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘we won’t be hungry’
	hačim-*akăn*-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘you all won’t be hungry’

A third feature of negative clauses is the use of the rising tone grade. As the examples in (11–16) show, rising tone is assigned to the syllable preceding *-o*, either on the verb root (17) or on an affix (18).

(17)	*banna-laho*^{n}	‘he/she will want it’
	băn-***ko***-*laho*^{n}	‘he/she won’t want it’

(18)	*na:łi:*-***hilka***-*laho*^{n}	‘we will speak’
	na:łi:-***kĭlko***-*laho*^{n}	‘we won’t speak’

Rising tone leads to lengthening of short vowels in open syllables (19).

(19)	*hiča-laho*^{n}	‘he/she will see it’
	ik-*hĭ:č*-***o***-*laho*^{n}	‘he/she won’t see it’

The rising tone grade is a restricted form of imperfective (limited to negatives, some nominalizations, and as a component of the geminating-rising tone grade). In the present tense, a positive verb may be in the lengthened grade for an event or in the geminating-rising tone grade for a resulting state. In the negative, however, only the rising tone grade is possible, so this distinction is lost (Table 2).

[12] Kimball (1991: 73) records infixation with this verb: *am-aka<**kĭ:**>n-**o**^{n}* ‘I am not hungry’. Speakers sometimes use different conjugation patterns with the same verb and sometimes also switch patterns between persons. Note that the root has a short vowel in negative forms like *am-akăn-ko-laho*^{n} ‘I won’t be hungry’. Koasati does not normally permit long vowels in syllables closed by sonorants.

Table 2: Present (stem *čoko:li-* 'get seated')

Event (L-grade)	*čokò:lí-l*	'I'm getting seated'
Resulting state (GR-grade)	*čokkǒ:li-l*	'I'm sitting'
Negative (R-grade)	*čoko:-tǎkko-*^{n}	'I'm not sitting'

The past 1 time frame (for earlier today up to last night) differs. If an event was perfective (successfully completed once), a suffix *-ti* is used with the lengthened grade. If an event was ongoing, a resulting state, or a negative, then a suffix *-:sa* is used with different grades (Table 3).[13]

Table 3: Past 1 (stem *čoko:li-* 'get seated')

Perfective (L-grade + *-ti*)	*čokò:lí-li-t*	'I sat down'
Event (L-grade + *-:sa*)	*čokò:lí-li-:s*	'I was getting seated'
Resulting state (GR-grade + *-:sa*)	*čokkǒ:li-li-:s*	'I was seated'
Negative (R-grade + *-:sa*)	*čoko:-tǎkko-:s*	'I didn't sit'

In examining the present and past 1 forms in Table 2 and Table 3, it is clear that negative verbs have more limited aspectual distinctions. This may be due to the fact that negative actions are inherently incomplete and thus inherently imperfective. Negative verbs also occur in a specific grade, however, which means that other grade distinctions are not possible.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The same form of negation is used in statements and in questions (though questions have higher intonation at the end) (20).

(20) a. *ik-hǐ:č-o-*^{n}.
NEG-see.RGR-NEG-SF
'He/she doesn't see it.'

b. *ik-hǐ:č-o-*$^{n\prime}$*?*
NEG-see.RGR-NEG-SF
'Doesn't he/she see it?'

[13] For reasons of space, I describe only the present and past 1 time frames here.

Koasati has a dedicated construction for negative commands (Kimball 1991: 263). In this pattern, a prohibitive suffix *-nna* is added to the agentive second person singular or second person plural. The forms in (21–23) are of the stem *talwa-* 'sing'.

(21) *talw^!*
sing
'Sing!'

(22) *ta<či>lwa-**nna**-^{n}^!*
sing<2sg.a>-proh-sf
'Don't you sing!'

(23) *ta<hači>lwa-**nna**-^{n}^!*
sing<2pl.a>-proh-sf
'Don't you all sing!'

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predications in Koasati can be divided into copular predications, resultative stative predications, and existential predications.

Copular predications use the verb *ommi-* 'be'. The regular negative form is *ŏnko-*, but it is often shortened to *ko-*. Copular predications are used for equative sentences (24):

(24) a. *y-ok ič-ok om.*
this-foc.sbj deer-foc.sbj be
'This is a deer.'

b. *y-ap ič-ok ko-^{n}.*
this-top deer-foc.sbj be.neg-sf
'This is not a deer.'

Attributes like *homma* 'red' are verbs in Koasati. These words may be used to modify nouns: *čokbani hŏmma* 'red ant'. When used as stative predicates, however, they are generally turned into participles (deverbal nouns) by adding *-hči*. The verb *ommi-* 'be' is then used as with equative sentences (25):

(25) a. *pokko-k hommá-hč-ok om.*
ball-sbj red-ptcp-foc.sbj be
'The ball is red.'

b. *pokko-k hommá-hč-ok ko-*^{n}
ball-SBJ red-PTCP-FOC.SBJ be.NEG-SF
'The ball is not red.'

Some verbs use the lengthened grade for an event and the geminating-rising tone grade for a resulting state. The negative is the same for both forms, so this aspectual distinction is lost (26).

(26) a. *čokò:lí-l.*
sit.SG.LGR-1SG.A
'I am getting seated.' (event)

b. *čokkǒ:li-l.*
sit.SG.GGR-1SG.A
'I am seated.' (resulting state)

c. *čoko:-tǎkko-*^{n}.
sit.SG-1SG.A.NEG.RGR-SF
'I am not seated/getting seated.'

Existential predications express quantity ('we are three'), existence, and 'have' sentences. To express existence, the verb *nǎ:ho-* 'exist' is used (27), with an unexpected negative form *ǐkso-*. Lexicalized negative existentials of this type are common in other languages, as Veselinova (2013) has discussed.

(27) Q: *hapi-k nǎ:ho-*$^{n'}$*?*
salt-SBJ exist.GGR-SF
'Is there salt?'

A: *hapi-k ǐkso-*^{n}.
salt-SBJ NEGEX.RGR-SF
'There is no salt.'

The same verbs are used to express 'have' and 'not have' (28). In this use, a dative prefix *im-* (or *in-*) is added to the verb.

(28) a. *a:t-osi-k ɬaɬo-k in-nǎ:ho-:s.*
person-DIM-SBJ fish-SBJ DAT-exist.GGR-REC.PST.IPFV
'The child had a fish.' (lit. 'Child, fish to-her-existed.')

b. *a:t-osi-k ɬaɬo-k im-ǐkso-:s.*
person-DIM-SBJ fish-SBJ DAT-NEG.exist.RGR-REC.PST.IPFV
'The child didn't have a fish.'

Location is generally expressed with posture verbs (29). These posture verbs use standard negation.

(29) *pokko-k mobĭ:la obă:li-*^{n} *čokkŏ:l.*
ball-SBJ car behind-NSBJ sit.SG.GGR
'The ball is (sitting) behind the car.'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Any type of clause may be negated in Koasati, and negation is done the same way in main clauses and non-main clauses. Negation is limited to verbs, however. (30–31) show negation on verbs in adverbial clauses.

(30) *fala*^{n}*-**hĭkko**-ska-n, ho<kĭ>kf-o-:s.*
wake-NEG-because-DS wake.NEG.RGR-NEG-REC.PST.IPFV
'Because he didn't wake up, he didn't get dressed.'

(31) *o<**kĭ:**>b-o-:p.*
rain<NEG>.RGR-NEG-TOP
'If it doesn't rain ...'

As Kimball (1991: 239) notes, the suffix *-ha:lo-* 'while' usually appears with negatives (32).

(32) *hopon-tăkk-o-ha:l-ok…*
cook-1SG.A.NEG-NEG-while-FOC.SS
'Before I cook…' (lit. 'While I do not cook ...')

Koasati makes little use of non-finite clauses. The verb *banna-* 'want, try' is one verb that can appear with both finite and non-finite complements for different meanings (33–34).

(33) *aɬɬa-l-a:hi:-k ča-bànnă-:s.*
go.SG-1SG.A-going.to-SS 1SG.P-want.LGR-REC.PST.IPFV
'I wanted to go.' (lit. 'I wanted that I am going to go.')

(34) *aɬɬa-h ča-bànnă-:s.*
go.SG-INF 1SG.P-want.LGR-REC.PST.IPFV
'I tried to go.'

The complement clause in (33) is marked for first person singular and can be considered finite. The complement clause in (34) has no marking of the subject and no obvious tense or aspect. I therefore consider the complement clause in (34) to be non-finite.

As (35) shows, speakers accept negative versions of non-finite clauses.

(35) a. *Skye-ka-k tabak-čampoli-ⁿ ipa-h bànná-t.*
Skye-LN-SBJ bread-sweet-NSBJ eat-INF try.LGR-REC.PST
'Skye tried to eat the cake.'

b. *Skye-ka-k tabak-čampoli-ⁿ ĭk-p-o-h bànná-t*
Skye-LN-SBJ bread-sweet-NSBJ NEG-eat.RGR-NEG-INF try.LGR-REC.PST
'Skye tried not to eat the cake.'

In (35b), *ĭk-po-h* 'not to eat' has no mark for the person of the subject.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

As described in §2.3, the verb *ĭkso-* 'not exist, not have' is a lexical negative (serving as the negative of *nă:ho-* 'exist, have'). The negative copula *ŏn-ko-* 'not be (a noun), not be (a property)' is regular, but is generally shortened to *ko-*. A few words describing properties have had their negative forms lexicalized as antonyms (§3.3).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Replies to yes/no questions (36) can be made with *ay* 'yes' or *ĭnkoⁿ* 'no' (37).

(36) *ifa-k wo:wòhká-ⁿ?*
dog-SBJ bark.LGR-SF
'Is the dog barking?'

(37) a. *ay, wo:wòhk.*
yes bark.LGR
'Yes, it's barking.'

b. *ĭnkoⁿ, wo:woh-ĭkko-ⁿ.*
be.not.so bark-NEG.RGR-SF
'No, it's not barking.'

A negative yes/no question can be asked with *-tĭkko-ⁿ* ‘it isn’t the case?’ (38). In that context, *ay* ‘yes’ can be used to mean ‘that’s right’ (39a), although *ĭnkoⁿ* ‘no’ can also be used (39b).

(38) *ifa-k wo:wohka-tĭkko-ⁿ?*
dog-s bark-NEG.RGR-SF
‘Isn’t the dog barking?’

(39) a. *ay, ŏnko-ⁿ.*
yes do.RGR-NEG-SF
‘Yeah, he’s not.’

b. *ĭnkoⁿ, wo:woh-ĭkko-ⁿ.*
be.not.so bark-NEG.RGR-SF
‘No, it’s not barking.’

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Kimball (1991: 423ff) discusses indefinite pronouns in Koasati. As he notes, the same word is often used for *some-* or *any-* words in English (‘something’, ‘(not) anything’, etc.), as well as interrogatives (‘what’, etc.) (40–42).

(40) *na:s-on hì:čá-l.*
what/thing-FOC.NSBJ see.LGR-1SG.A
‘I see something.’

(41) *na:s-on ak-hĭ:č-o-ⁿ.*
what/thing-FOC.NSBJ 1SG.A.NEG-see.RGR-NEG-SF
‘I don’t see anything.’

(42) *na:s-on is-hì:čá-ⁿ?*
what/thing-FOC.NSBJ 2SG.A-see.LGR-SF
‘What do you see?’

The following indefinite pronouns are like *na:si* in having ‘some-’, ‘any-’, and ‘wh-’ uses: *nakso-fa* ‘somewhere, (not) anywhere, where’; *nakso-fo:ka* ‘sometime, (not) anytime, when’. The human indefinite pronoun *a:ti* can be used for ‘someone’ and for ‘(not) anyone’, but never for ‘who’. To express ‘who’, the word *nakso* ‘which one’ is used (and so is not specifically for humans).[14]

Modifiers can be added to these pronouns to express other senses (43).

[14] My description of this section is informed by the work of Haspelmath (1997).

(43) free-choice: *nak(so)-**santik*** ‘which**ever**’
universal: *a:t-**ohya*** ‘**every**one’, *nakso-f-**ohya*** ‘**every**where’
else: *a:t-**mi:ta*** ‘someone **else**’

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Only verbs may be negated in Koasati. To express ‘without’, the verb *ĭkso-* ‘not exist’ is used (44).

(44) *ilhič-ĭkso* ‘invisible’ (lit. “appearance-without”)
a:ti im-ililla ĭkso ‘God’ (lit. “person their-death-without”)

Some instances of clausal negation in Koasati have been lexicalized as antonyms (45).

(45) *kano-* ‘good’ *kăn-**k**-**o**-*^{n} ‘bad, not good’
čoba- ‘big’ *čo<**kĭ:**>b-**o**-*^{n} ‘small, not big’
čayha- ‘tall’ *ča<**kĭ:**>h-**o**-*^{n} ‘short, not tall’

One reason for distinguishing these negatives from clausal negatives is that they may themselves be negated (46).[15]

(46) *kăn-**k**-**o**-**tĭkk**-**o**-*^{n} ‘it’s not that he/she/it is bad’
*ča<**kĭ:**>h-**o**-**tĭkk**-**o**-*^{n} ‘it’s not that he/she/it is short’
*čo<**kĭ:**>b-**o**-**tĭkk**-**o**-*^{n} ‘it’s not that he/she/it is small’

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Verbs in Koasati are highly synthetic, with nine prefix slots, fifteen suffix slots, and different grades and internal changes to stems (Kimball 1991). In some cases, negation can be marked in different places within the verb to indicate differences in scope. Kimball (1991: 196–197), for example, notes that the sentence in (47) has the two corresponding negatives in (48).[16]

[15] One speaker describes these double negatives as “kind of awkward, but okay in an argument”. The same speaker rejects a double negative in an ordinary (non-lexicalized) negative: **ho<**kĭ**>kf-**o**-**tĭkk**-**o**-*^{n} ‘it’s not that he isn’t getting dressed’.

[16] I have changed the transcription and glossing to match the rest of the paper.

(47) *ča-tamm-ă:pi-t.*
1SG.P-fall-almost-REC.PST.PFV
'I almost fell.'

(48) a. *ča-tăn-**k**-a:pi-t.*
1SG.P-fall.RGR-NEG-almost-REC.PST.PFV
'I almost didn't fall.'

b. *ča-tamm-a:pi-**tĭkko**-t.*
1SG.P-fall-almost-NEG.RGR-REC.PST.PFV
'I didn't almost fall.'

Kimball (1991: 197) observes that if the verb root itself is negated, the regular negative of the root is used (*tăn-k-o-* 'not fall'). If a modifier of the verb is negated, then a form of *-tĭkko* is used. I record similar forms, where the negative of *lokba-* 'be hot' is *lo<**kĭ**>kb-**o**-*^{n} 'it is not hot', but the negative of *lokb-ă:*^{n}*hos* 'it is very hot' is *lokb-ă:*^{n}*hos-**tĭkko**-*^{n} 'it is not very hot'. In general, the negative in *-tĭkko-* appears to be used for newer patterns or expanded patterns (what we might call a periphrastic negative).

Negation can have scope over several different phrases within a clause. Examples (49–51) are contexts in which negation has scope over a subject, complement, and time adverb, respectively.

(49) *Linda-k aɬkĭ:y-o-t, Houston-ka-fa-p,*
Linda-SBJ go.SG<NEG>.RGR-NEG-MED.PST Houston-LN-LOC-TOP
nihtaka-p. Eli-ka-k ommi-t
yesterday-TOP Eli-LN-SBJ do.LGR-MED.PST
'Linda didn't go to Houston yesterday. Eli did.'

(50) *Linda-k aɬkĭ:y-o-t, Houston-ka-fa-p,*
Linda-SBJ go.SG<NEG>.RGR-NEG-MED.PST Houston-LN-LOC-TOP
nihtaka-p. Lake Charles-ka-f-on aɬì:yá-t.
yesterday-TOP Lake Charles-LN-LOC-FOC.NSBJ go.SG.LGR-MED.PST
'Linda didn't go to Houston yesterday. She went to Lake Charles.'

(51) *Linda-k aɬkĭ:y-o-t, Houston-ka-fa-p,*
Linda-SBJ go.SG<NEG>.RGR-NEG-MED.PST Houston-LN-LOC-TOP
nihtaka-p. Tahollo-fo:k-on aɬì:yá-t.
yesterday-TOP Sunday-when-FOC.DS go.SG.LGR-MED.PST
'Linda didn't go to Houston yesterday. She went on Sunday.'

The scope of negation seems to be limited to the clause containing the negation, however. There is no evidence of negative transport, for example (§4.6.1). Similarly, in several types of complex clauses, negation is again limited to the negative clause.

Instead of using coordination to join clauses, Koasati makes extensive use of clause chaining.[17] The same-subject marker -*k* (focused form -*ok*) or different-subject marker -*n* (or -^{n}, focused form -*on*) are used at the ends of dependent non-final chained clauses. The final verb form is an independent form and is marked for tense and mood (52).

(52) Chained clauses:
[$_{\text{S1}}$ [$_{\text{S2}}$ ...VERB-*k/n*] [$_{\text{S3}}$ ...VERB-*k/n*] VERB-TENSE-MOOD]

The same switch-reference markers appear at the ends of complement clauses (53) and adverbial clauses (54).

(53) Complement clauses:
[$_{\text{S1}}$ [NP] [$_{\text{VP}}$ [$_{\text{S2}}$ ...VERB-*k/n*] VERB-TENSE-MOOD]

(54) Adverbial clauses:
[$_{\text{S1}}$ [$_{\text{S2}}$ ...VERB-*k/n*] ... VERB-TENSE-MOOD]

In each of these structures, negation is restricted to the clause containing the negative element. We see this in chained clauses in (55).

(55) a. *Linda-k čokòhl-ók ì:pá-t.*
Linda-SBJ sit.SG.HGR-FOC.SS eat.LGR-REC.PST.PFV
'Linda sat down and ate.'

b. *Linda-k čokòhl-ók ĭk-p-o-:s.*
Linda-SBJ sit.SG.HGR-FOC.SS NEG-eat.RGR-NEG-REC.PST.IPFV
'Linda sat down and didn't eat.' (not: 'Linda didn't sit down and eat.')

The same is true for chained clauses in imperatives (56):

(56) a. *čokòhl-ók ohomp^!*
sit.SG.HGR-FOC.SS eat.IMP
'Sit down and eat!'

[17]See Martin (2024) for a discussion of clause chaining and case in Muskogean languages.

b. *čokòhl-ók ohompa-n^*
sit.SG.HGR-FOC.SS eat-PROH
'Sit down and don't eat!' (not: 'Don't sit down and eat!')

Interestingly, Koasati has another clause type that is used in expressing manner adverbs. These coverbs or coverb phrases are reduced clauses ending in a suffix *-t* that modify a verb (57).[18]

(57) *-t* phrases:
$[_{S1}$ [NP] $[_{VP}$ $[_{S2}$ ...VERB-*t*] VERB-TENSE-MOOD]

These *-t* phrases are within the scope of a negative verb. We can see this in the indicative examples in (58).

(58) a. *ɬoyka-t ì:lá-t.*
return-CVB get.here.SG.LGR-REC.PST.PFV
'He/she came back.' (lit. 'He/she got here returning.')

b. *ɬoyka-t ĭk-l-o-:s.*
return-CVB NEG-get.here.SG.RGR-NEG-REC.PST.IPFV
'He/she didn't come back.' (lit. 'He/she didn't get here returning.')

Coverbs are also in the scope of negative commands, which use the prohibitive construction (59–60):

(59) *haččă:li-t is-pa-n^!*
stand.GGR-CVB 2SG.A-eat-PROH
'Don't eat while standing!' (lit. 'Don't eat standing!')

(60) *čoko:-či-n^, mat-ča-hì:čá-t!*
sit.SG-2SG.A-PROH DIR-1SG.P-look.LGR-CVB
'Don't sit there looking at me!'

With the exception of coverbs, then, the scope of negation in Koasati is limited to the clause containing the negative element.

4.2 Negative polarity

I have so far not found any elements that only occur in negative environments.

[18]Kimball (1991: 227) refers to *-t* as a coordinating conjunctive suffix. See Broadwell (2006) for a similar suffix in Choctaw.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

In Koasati, the subject and non-subject case markers are often replaced by a "topic" marker *-p* (or *-ap* on pronouns) when a sentence is negative (61).[19]

(61) a. *akk-ok if-ok om.*
that-FOC.SBJ dog-FOC.SBJ be
'That is a dog.'

b. *akk-ap if-ok ko-^{n}.*
that-TOP dog-FOC.SBJ be.NEG-SF
'That is not a dog.'

This use is reminiscent of Japanese *wa*, which is also called a topic marker and which may indicate the target of negation (see, for example, Hinds 1986: 149ff; Nyberg 2012: 45–46). When I have specifically tested this idea, however, I have found a poor correlation between *-p* and target of negation. This can be seen in (49–51) above, where *-p* is found several times in negative sentences, but doesn't correspond with the target of negation. What is most striking about the examples in (49–51) is that *-p* appears on phrases that have been added after the verb (normally a position for afterthoughts).

My feeling is that *-p* serves to set a phrase apart from the rest of the sentence, whether to establish a frame of reference ('as for X', 'if it is X') or to fill in incomplete information ('he's going to town, John is'). In (62), for example, we see *-p* used in a constructed phone conversation between two people discussing plans for Thanksgiving.

(62) *kosn-**ap** ama:-hilka-laho-k om, Texas-ka-f-on,*
we-TOP go.TPL-1PL.A-FUT-SS be Texas-LN-LOC-FOC.NSBJ
ča-fono:si-fa-^{n}.
1SG.P-sister-LOC-NSBJ
'Us, we're going to Texas, to my sister's.'

This usage seems common in exchanges of this type. One person makes a statement (e.g., 'my name is Mary') and then a second person might use *-p* to distinguish himself or herself from the previous speaker ('me, my name is Betty').

[19] Kimball (1991: 411) describes *-p* as a marker of "new topic" indicating "that the topic into which a discussion is about to enter, or which is just finished, is new, or contains new information." In my experience, *-p* often clarifies or resumes an established topic. For now, I will simply refer to it as "topic".

Why, then, would case markers commonly shift to *-p* in negative sentences? Negative sentences do commonly have a phrase in focus. That means that the other phrases will be out of focus (backgrounded). It may be that *-p* is used in negative sentences to mark the backgrounded phrases, which are often added as afterthoughts, as in (63).

(63) *ak-hǐ:č-o-:s,* *ya-:fa-p.*
1SG.A.NEG-see.RGR-NEG-REC.PST.IPFV here-LOC-TOP
'I didn't see him over here.'

This would explain the frequency of *-p* in negative sentences, the fact that it may appear on multiple phrases, and the fact that these phrases are often (though not always) postverbal.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

I haven't yet found any examples where a distinct pattern is used to reinforce or emphasize negation in Koasati.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

As noted above, Koasati lacks true coordination, though extensive clause chaining and subordination are used. The scope of negation over various types of subordinate clauses is described in §4.1.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

As Fillmore (1963) observed, when a verb like *think* is negated in English, the implication is that it is the complement that is negated (thus *I didn't think that Linda would come* implies *I thought that Linda wouldn't come*).

Koasati does not have negative transport. In Koasati, the mark of negation goes on the verb of the semantically-negated clause (64–65).

(64) *Linda-k* *o<kǐ>nt-o-laho-*^{n} *ǎ:lo-l.*
Linda-SBJ come<NEG>.RGR-NEG-FUT-DS think.GGR-1SG.A
'I don't think Linda will come.' (lit. 'I think Linda will not come.')

(65) *o<kǐ>:b-o-laho-*^{n} *ǎ:lo-l.*
rain<NEG>.RGR-NEG-FUT-DS think.GGR-1SG.A
'I don't think it will rain.' (lit. 'I think it will not rain.')

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation is "a device for objecting to a previous utterance on any grounds whatever" (Horn 1989: 363). In Koasati, the verb *tǐkko-* 'be not the case that' can be used to focus negation on a particular element (66–67).

(66) *John-ka-k in-nǎ:ho-^{n}, toččǐ:na-t im-atlawista-k.*
John-ln-sbj dat-have.rgr-sf three.rgr-ss dat-children-sbj
'John has three children.'

(67) *ǐnko-^{n} toččǐ:na-t tǐkko-hči. ostǎ:ka-t in-nǎ:ho-^{n}.*
be.not.so.rgr-sf three.rgr-ss be.not-ptcp four.rgr-ss dat-exist.rgr-sf
'No, he doesn't have three. He has four.'

As shown in (66–67), the verb *tǐkko-* 'be not the case that' appears to be used for metalinguistic negation. We have seen the same element used in negative questions (38), negation of lexical negatives (46), and alternative negative patterns like (48b). The common thread seems to be that *tǐkko-* has broader scope than the morphological negative.

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

From a cross-linguistic perspective, two aspects of Koasati negation seem especially unusual: a. the use of three separate marks of negation (a form of *ik-*, *-o*, and use of the rising tone grade); and, b. the placement of the primary negative marker *ik-* as a prefix, infix, or suffix.

The prefixing pattern appears to have been limited to a set of 'short' verbs of the shape #(C)V(:)CV#. These were negated directly in an earlier form of the language, without an auxiliary, as in (68a).[20] This order of affixes is maintained in the modern language without change, as in (68b).

(68) a. Earlier
ak-hǐ:č-o-^{n}.
1sg.a.neg-see.rgr-neg-sf
'I do not see.'

b. Modern
ak-hǐ:č-o-^{n}.
1sg.a.neg-see.rgr-neg-sf
'I do not see.'

[20] See Booker (1980) and Martin & Munro (2005) for more discussion of negation in the Muskogean languages. The development of infixation in Muskogean is discussed in Yu (2007).

Short verbs that were inflected directly included *hiča-* 'see', *ha:lo-* 'hear', *ipa-* 'eat', *ila-* 'get here', *kaha-* 'say', and *noči-* 'sleep' (Class 1 verbs).

A larger set of verbs (Class 3) used periphrastic negation. In this pattern, an auxiliary **k-* was added after the verb, and the auxiliary was inflected for negation (69).

(69) a. Earlier
hopon-t ăk-k-o-^{n}*.*
cook-ss 1sg.a.neg-neg.aux.rgr-neg-sf
'I am not cooking.'

b. Modern
hopon-tăkko-^{n}*.*
cook-1sg.a.neg-sf
'I am not cooking.'

The modern language preserves this order, but now treats same subject *-t* as part of the negative marker.

The infixing verbs (Class 2) are more difficult to understand. Infixing verbs generally have the shape …$C_1C_2V\#$, where two different consonants appear before the final vowel. I would suggest that infixing arose when speakers began inflecting the final $C_1C_2V\#$ as though it were an auxiliary (70).

(70) a. Earlier
talwa-t ăk-k-o-^{n}*.*
sing-ss 1sg.a.neg-neg.aux-neg-sf
'I don't sing.'

b. Modern
ta<kă>lw-o-^{n}*.*
sing<1sg.a.neg>.rgr-neg-sf
'I don't sing.'

Verbs where the final C_1C_2V was inflected include *hokfi-* 'put in', *hofna-* 'smell', *hokfa-* 'get inside', *iltohno-* 'work', *ohompa-* 'eat (several things)', *onti-* 'come', and *talwa-* 'sing'.

5 Summary

The various strategies for expressing negation are matched to their functions in Table 4. Koasati negation is marked on verbs with an affix *ik-* and a suffix *-o*.

A negative verb must be in a specific aspect, called the rising tone grade. Verb stems fall into different classes based on the placement of the *ik-* affix, which has different forms depending on verb class and fuses with agent person markers. Except for one specific coverb construction, the scope of negation is limited to the immediate clause containing the negated verb.

Table 4: Koasati negation strategies and their functions

Negation strategy	Function	Section
ik- + *-o* + rising tone grade on verb	Standard negation	2.1,
	Negation in non-declaratives	2.2,
	Negative locative	2.3,
	Negative indefinites and quantifiers	3.2
-nna, *-n*	Negative command	2.2, 4.1
ko-^{n} (lexical negative of *ommi-* 'be')	Negating nouns in equative clauses	2.3,
	Negative attributive clauses	2.3
ĭkso-^{n} (lexical negative of *nă:ho-* 'exist')	Negative existential, negative 'have'	2.3
ĭnko-^{n} 'no'	Negative reply	3.1
-tĭkko-^{n} 'be not the case that'	Negative yes/no question	3.1,
	Negative of lexicalized negative	3.3,
	Periphrastic negative	4.1,
	Metalinguistic negation	4.6.2

Koasati has rich verbal morphology. Negation can appear in different places within a verb to indicate that different elements are negated.

Stative predicates are generally negated in the same way as other predicates. The verb *ĭkso-* 'not exist, not have' is the only lexical negative form: other negatives are formed morphologically, though the verb *ommi-* 'be' is developing an irregular negative *ko-*.

Koasati negation, while complex, may have developed from a system like that in Finnish in which a negative auxiliary is inflected for person marking. In the case of Koasati, the system is more complicated in that a few short verbs can be inflected like auxiliaries, and some verbs allow a final prosodic unit (…C_1C_2V) to be inflected.

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Abbreviations

1	first person
2	second person
A	agent person marking
AUX	auxiliary
CVB	coverb
DAT	dative
DIM	diminutive
DIR	directional prefix
DS	different subject
FOC	focus
FUT	future
GGR	geminating rising tone grade
HGR	aspirating grade
IMP	imperative
INF	infinitive
IPFV	imperfective
LGR	lengthened grade
LN	loan word marker
LOC	locative
MED	medial
NEG	negative
NSBJ	nonsubject
P	patient person marking
PFV	perfective
PL	plural
PTCP	participle
PROH	prohibitive
PST	past
REC	recent
RGR	rising tone grade
SBJ	subject
SF	sentence final marker
SG	singular
SS	same subject
TOP	topic
TPL	triplural (three or more)

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Chapter 13

Negation in Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec

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Negation in Zapotec (Otomanguean) languages is expressed by a variety of constructions that have not yet been broadly explored, perhaps due to the phonological and morphosyntactic complexity of the several dialects, as well as their extensive variation. In this chapter, I will discuss several negative constructions in Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec, a variety spoken in the Central Valley of Oaxaca, Mexico. I will show that in this language, as in other Zapotec languages, there are different negative constructions and negators that convey specific functions: standard negation; *not yet expressions*; negation in existential clauses; focus negation; *not even* (or emphatic) negative constructions, among others. As I demonstrate, most of the negative markers in this language are clitics and some of the negative constructions exhibit structural and paradigmatic asymmetries (Miestamo 2005, 2007).

Keywords: negation, prohibitives, clitics, Zapotec, indefinite pronouns.

1 The language

In this chapter, I discuss various negative constructions that occur in Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec (TdVZ) (ISO: zap, Glottocode: teot1238).[1] This language is spoken by approximately five thousand speakers in Teotitlán del Valle, a town located in the Valley of Oaxaca, Mexico. It is part of the Otomanguean family, and within the Zapotec family, it is considered to belong to the central group (Smith-Stark 2007). For my discussion, the relevant features of TdVZ are the following.

[1]The data presented here comes from the author, who is a native speaker of Teotitlán Zapotec and has been doing research on this language since 2011. Also, a corpus of at least 10 hours of transcribed and translated material have been used in addition to direct elicitation to explore the phenomenon discussed here.

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TdVZ has VSO word order, and it follows most of the predicted correlations for VO languages (Dryer 1997). The verb takes an obligatory TAM prefix, and it can optionally be followed by a comitative suffix or an affective morpheme. After these, free function word (FFW) adverbials may appear followed by adverbial enclitics. Also, between the TAM prefix and the verb, the grammaticalized verb roots *æ* 'go'[2] or *æ̰d* 'come' may appear, glossed as AND and VEN, respectively, in the verb template in Figure 1. These indicate the movement of the subject to perform the action. In addition, if the subject is pronominalized, the clitic form attaches to the verb complex after the adverb enclitic(s) if any. The template in Figure 1 summarizes the structure of the verb, and an illustrative example is given in (1).

TAM-(VEN/AND-)**VERB.STEM**(-COM)(-AFFT) (FFW ADVERB(S))(=ADVERB(S))(=SUBJ)

Figure 1: Morphosyntactic structure of TdVZ verb

(1) *Re.ˈkī'.zá.dān ˈxhŭb.*
r-e-kī'=zá=dān xhŭb
HAB-go-toast=also=3PL.F corn
'They also go (and/to) toast the corn.'

The preverbal position, on the other hand, contains at least three positions that may be filled by a subordinator, a focused noun phrase, and by the clausal negator, as in (2). If these cooccur, they must take the order shown below (i.e., subordinator – focused element – negation).

(2) *Kom ˈJwáyn kēd.rá.ˈzuyn.di, ˈtyéz.rú*
kom Jwáyn kēd=ra-zuny=di tyéz=rú
because Juan NEG=HAB-arrive=NEG good=more
ˈzyó.pún.
z´-yōp=ūn
PROG-come:1PL=1PL.EXCL
'Because Juan is/was not arriving, (we decided that) it was better for us to come.'

In TdVZ, vowels present a three-way distinction in phonation, that is, modal vowels /a, æ, i, ɨ, u, o/ contrast with creaky /a̰, æ̰, ḭ, ɨ̰, ṵ, o̰/ and glottalized /aʔ, æʔ, iʔ, ɨʔ, oʔ, uʔ/ vowels. Creaky vowels are represented in this chapter with the

[2] /æ/ alternates with /e/ in non-accented syllables (Uchihara & Gutiérrez 2020).

IPA symbol (̰) while glottalization is represented with an apostrophe (’). Also, the language has five contrastive tones (Uchihara & Gutiérrez 2019), which are represented here as follows: high (´), mid (¯), rising (ˇ), falling (^), while low tone is unmarked. In addition, there are several tonal processes, but three of them are important to mention here since they occur in most of the examples shown in this paper.

Firstly, High Tone Sandhi (HTS)[3] of mid tone assigns a high tone to the following syllable within the same phonological utterance, as shown below. Notice that in (3a), the mid-tone of the verb root assigns a high tone to the pronominal clitic that lexically has a low tone (second line). In (3b), the mid-tone of the third person formal pronominal clitic assigns a high tone to the beginning syllable of the following noun *bada̰w* ‘baby’, which lexically has a low tone.

(3) a. *Ri.ˈdxā̰.gán* *ˈluy.*
ri-dxā̰g=**an** luy
HAB-get.along.with=3SG.IF 2SG.IF
‘S/he gets along with you.’

b. *Ru.ˈyā̰.nān* *bá.ˈda̰w.*
ru-ya̰n=ān **ba**da̰w
HAB-feed=3SG.F baby
‘S/he feeds the baby.’

Secondly, potential and counterfactual moods are marked with a prefix and a high or rising tone that typically docks onto the verb root. In the examples below, I show how the high tone that comes with these moods change the lexical tone of the verb root (second line), as in (4a) and (4b). This high tone can also be anchored to the first element of a compound, as in (4c).

(4) a. *ga.ˈzûyn*
ga´-zuny
POT-arrive
‘will arrive’

[3]The way in which the High Tone Sandhi (HTS) affects the following syllable depends on the lexical tone of this element, and whether this element is prominent or non-prominent. In the first case, the high sandhi affects low and mid tone, but it does not affect high, falling, or rising tones. On the other hand, the HTS affects the following low or mid tone differently. That is, if the following syllable is prominent and has a low tone, the HTS would result in a falling tone (HTS + a → â), but if the following syllable is non-prominent and has a low tone, the HTS would be expressed as a high tone (HTS + a → á). Nevertheless, with mid-tone, the HTS always triggers high tone on the following syllable whether this is prominent or non-prominent (HTS + ā → á).

b. *gu.ˈkí'*
gu´-kī'
POT-toast
'will toast'

c. *gu.kwá.ˈdyag*
gu´-kwadyag
POT-listen
'will listen'

Thirdly, the completive prefix has an allomorph that triggers a tone change in the verb root (glossed here as COMPL$_2$). This allomorph occurs in relativization, focus constructions, interrogatives, and clausal negation (see Gutiérrez et al. 2022 for more information on this topic). In (5), I show an example of a focus construction where this allomorph occurs.

(5) *ˈBǽ.dēn bá.ˈllṵ̂b lo.ˈnæz.*
Bǽd=ēn ba´-**llṵb** low=næz
Pedro=FOC COMPL$_2$-sweep RN.face=road
'(It was) Pedro (who) swept the Street.'

In the following, I describe various negative constructions in TdVZ and define the morphosyntactic status of the negators involved, using the negation questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). Also, I discuss the asymmetries observed, if any. This situates TdVZ negative constructions into a broader typological perspective.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (Payne 1985, Miestamo 2005) in TdVZ is expressed with the markers *kēd=* and *=di*. The proclitic *kēd=* appears pre-verbally while *=di* is attached post-verbally, where adverbial enclitics may occur.[4] In (6) and (7), I show an affirmative clause and its negative counterpart. As noted, no asymmetries are

[4] *Kēd=* and *=di* are clitics since they present most of the phonological and morphosyntactic characteristics of this type of element in TdVZ (i.e., they are non-prominent elements, thus, there is no vowel lengthening even when *kēd=* is followed by a lenis consonant, and *=di* does not have coda; also, both morphemes have level, or non-complex tones: mid and tone respectively). In §2 I discuss their clitic morphosyntactic behavior.

observed in standard negation. The tone change on the prefix in (7) is due to Tone Sandhi (see §1).

(6) *Ru.ˈllu̯b ˈJwáyn lo.ˈnæz.*
ru-llu̯b Jwáyn low=næz
HAB-sweep Juan RN.face=road
'Juan sweeps the road / the street.'

(7) *Kēd.rú.ˈllu̯b.di ˈJwáyn lo.ˈnæz.*
kēd=ru-llu̯b=**di** Jwáyn low=næz
NEG=HAB-sweep=NEG Juan RN.face=road
'Juan doesn't sweep the road / the street.'

The proclitic *kēd=* may be separated from the verbal word (TAM + verb stem) if adverbial clitics[5] modify the negated clause. Also, the enclitic *=di* may be separated from the verb if free function word adverbials occur in the clause, as shown in (8). Note that *=di* must occur before the NP, or pronominal clitic, arguments.

(8) *Kēd.zá.bi.ˈdzîyn ˈga.dyan ˈnna̯y.*
kēd=**zá**=biˊ-dzɨny **ga**=di=an ˈnna̯y
NEG=also=COMPL$_2$-arrive soon=NEG=3SG.IF yesterday
'S/he didn't arrive early/soon yesterday either.'

Kēd= and *=di* are obligatory in monoclausal declarative sentences. If either *kēd=* or *=di* is omitted, the construction becomes ungrammatical. This is not the case in prohibitives, where the proclitic negator alone forms this negative construction (see §2.2.1)

Even though there are no asymmetries observed in relation to the form of the construction when the negative markers occur, the relation between negation and the aspectual markers is paradigmatically asymmetric. That is, not all declarative clauses have a negative formal counterpart, as I discuss below.

TdVZ has six productive TAM prefixes; three of which encode aspect (habitual, completive, progressive) and three encode modality (future, potential, and counterfactual). Any clause containing a verb with an aspectual prefix has a negative formal counterpart, as shown in the contrasted examples (9–11) below.

(9) a. *ˈRæ'n ˈnis.*
r-æ'=an nis
HAB-drink=3SG.IF water
'S/he drinks water.'

[5] In closely related varieties, these adverbial clitics have been discussed as second position clitics (Munro 2004).

b. *Kēd.ˈrǽ’.dyan ˈnis.*
kēd=r-æ’=di=an nis
neg=hab-drink=neg=3sg.if water
‘S/he doesn’t drink water.’

(10) a. *Gwæ’n ˈnis.*
gu-æ’=an nis
compl-drink=3sg.if water
‘S/he drank water.’

b. *Kēd.ˈgwǽ’.dyan ˈnis.*
kēd=gu´-æ’=di=an nis
neg=compl$_2$-drink=neg=3sg.if water
‘S/he didn’t drink water.’

(11) a. *Ká.ˈyæ’n ˈnis.*
káy-æ’=an nis
prog-drink=3sg.if water
‘S/he is drinking water.’

b. *Kēd.ká.ˈyæ’.dyan ˈnis.*
kēd=káy-æ’=di=an nis
neg=prog-drink=neg=3sg.if water
‘S/he is not drinking water.’

However, a clause containing those prefixes that encode modality has certain characteristics in declarative as well as in negative constructions. First, in TdVZ a verb, or clause containing the potential, or the counterfactual prefix generally occurs in subordinated clauses where the negation of the main clause (predicate) involves the negation of the subordinate clause[6] (see negative transport §4.6).

[6]A clause with potential or counterfactual prefix in a non-subordinated construction has an optative mood reading, as in (i), and not a declarative. In fact, the constructions below could be considered fronted complement clauses of an omitted desiderative verb.

(i) a. *ˈgǽ’n ˈnis*
g´-æ’=an nis
pot-drink=3sg.if water
‘May s/he drink water.’

b. *ˈnyǽ’n ˈnis*
ni´-æ’=an nis
cntf-drink=3sg.if water
‘May s/he have drunk water.’

Second, although an indicative (main) clause with a verb prefixed with the future is common, as in (12), this does not have a formal negative counterpart.[7] That is, the negative marker *kēd=* and the future prefix do not coexist, as shown in (12b). To negate a future event, the potential prefix must occur on the verb as shown in (13). Therefore, the negative counterpart of a declarative clause with a future prefix is one with a potential prefix.

(12) a. *ˈZæ’n ˈnis.*
z-æ’=(a)n nis
FUT-drink=3SG.IF water
‘S/he will drink water.’

b. * *Kēd.ˈzæ’.dyan ˈnis.*
kēd=z-æ’=di=an nis
NEG=FUT-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
Intended reading: ‘S/he won’t drink water.’

(13) *Kēd.ˈgæ̂’.dyan ˈnis.*
kēd=g´-æ’=di=an nis
NEG=POT-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
‘S/he won’t drink water.’

Third, although the counterfactual prefix does not occur in main clauses, a negative (non-subordinated) clause that involves the counterfactual prefix is common in TdVZ. In fact, a negative clause with a counterfactual prefix may alternate with a negative clause with a completive prefix. That is, a clause containing the counterfactual, or one with a completive prefix are both potential answers for a polar question whose answer is negative. For instance, if someone asks ’Did s/he drink water?’ and the answer is negative, both (10b) above or (14) are potential answers.

(14) *Kēd.ˈnyæ̂’.dyan ˈnis.*
kēd=ni´-æ’=di=an nis
NEG=CNTF-drink=NEG=3SG.IF water
‘S/he didn’t drink (the) water.’

[7] This TAM marker exhibits several restrictions in TdVZ; for instance, in *Serial Verb Constructions* (SVC), two verbs marked with the *future* are not possible (Gutiérrez 2014). In fact, various of these restrictions hold in other Central Zapotec varieties such as the San Dionisio Ocotepec Zapotec (Broadwell 2012) and San Pablo Güilá Zapotec (López Cruz, personal communication).

Standard negation in TdVZ is then paradigmatically asymmetric since not all indicative clauses have a negative counterpart, a verb prefixed with future does not have a formal negative counterpart and there are two alternative ways for expressing completive in the negative as compared to just one in the affirmative. This is summarized in the table below. Thus, following the typological classification defined by Miestamo (2005), TdVZ standard negation is considered here to be of the type A/Cat/TAM.

Table 1: Prefixes in declaratives and their negative counterpart in TdVZ

Prefix on declarative (main) clauses	Prefix on the negative counterpart
Habitual	Habitual
Progressive	Progressive
Completive	Completive or Counterfactual
Future or Potential	Potential

Also, due to the clitic status of the negative marker, it is clear that TdVZ exhibits syntactic negation and not morphological (Dahl 1979). Clitics are elements that attach at the phrase level. They can have different hosts and their position is not consistent. As mentioned, *kēd=* does not always precede verbs since adverbial clitics can interrupt the sequence *kēd=* + verb stem, as in (15); also, *kēd=* can appear with other lexical categories such as adverbials, as in (16), or interrogative pronouns, as in (17). This latter example also demonstrates the same clitic status for *=di*.

(15) *Kēd.pká.ru.ˈsyā.dyán ˈli.zan.*
kēd=**pká**=ru-syā=di=an liz=an
NEG=**always**=HAB-clean=NEG=3SG.IF POSS.house=3SG.IF
'He never cleans his home.' / 'He doesn't clean his home at all.'

(16) *Kēd.ˈǽs.tá ˈru̯.núx.*
kēd=ǽstá r-u̯n=u=x
NEG=later HAB-cry=2SG.IF=DE
'Don't be crying later!' (lit. 'Don't later you cry then!')

(17) *Kēd.ˈká.lī.dí ˈbyôʼn.*
kēd=kālī=di b-yôʼ=un
NEG=where=NEG COMPL-go:1PL=1PL
'We went nowhere.'

Finally, a particular characteristic of standard negation is that it selects for the allomorph of the completive prefix that causes a tone change on the verb root (Gutiérrez et al. 2022). This tone change can be observed with verb roots that have a lexical low or mid tone, as shown in (18). The verb *-llu̯b* ‘sweep’ lexically has a low tone (second line in the example), and it takes a high falling tone (first line) when occurring with the completive prefix in standard negation. No other negative construction in TdVZ selects for this completive prefix allomorph.

(18) *Kēd.bá.ˈ**llû̯b**.di ˈJwáyn lo.ˈnæz.*
kēd=ba´-llu̯b=di Jwáyn low=næz
NEG=COMPL$_2$-sweep=NEG Juan RN.face=road
‘Juan didn’t sweep the road / the street.’

‘Not yet’ expression is a subtype of standard negation (§2.1) since it exhibits structural and functional characteristics of the latter in TdVZ. That is, the negator appears preverbally and *=di* is required post-verbally. Also, it negates a monoclausal predicate, as shown in (19).

(19) *Gád.gútx.ˈnyâ̰.di.dán.*
gád=g´-utxnyâ̰=**di**=dán
NEG=POT-get.married=NEG=3PL.IF
‘They haven’t gotten married yet.’

This negative construction, however, differs from the main type of clausal negation in two ways: 1) the proclitic negator is *gád=* instead of *kēd=*, and 2) the negated predicate/verb must be marked with the potential prefix, as shown above. This construction, as noted, is exclusive for events that have not occurred but will potentially do. Therefore, the meaning of the negative marker *gád=* is interpreted as ‘not yet’.

Interestingly, this type of negative construction does not have an affirmative counterpart. Formally, its negative counterpart would be a declarative clause with the potential marker. However, as mentioned above, this type of predicate gets an optative mood reading, as shown in (20).

(20) *Gútx.ˈnyâ̰.dán.*
g´-utxnyâ̰=dán
POT-get.married=3PL.IF
‘That they get married (I say/suggest).’

Semantically, the affirmative counterpart of a 'not yet' expression may be a clause that expresses a (possible) completive event, as in (21), or a clause that indicates a previous state/process of an event that is expected to occur, as in (22). In the first case, the construction requires the adverbial marker *á=* 'already' and the completive prefix on the verb. In the second case, a verb with a stative prefix and the adverb *zegāk* 'still' must occur in the construction. In both cases, the negative counterpart varies from the affirmative one. Thus, this type of negation shows functional and structural asymmetries.

(21) *Á.bitx.ˈnyâ̰.dán.*
á=bi-utxnyâ̰=dán
already=COMPL-marry=3PL.IF
'They are married.' / 'They have married.' (lit. 'Already they married.')

(22) *Ze.ˈgāk zu.ˈgwá'.nǽ.zī ˈsâ'.dán.*
zegāk zugwā'-nǽ=zī sa'=dán
still STAT.dwell-COM=without.motives same.type=3PL.IF
'They are still living together with each other just because (without being married).'

A particular characteristic of this negative construction is that it has an alternative form. That is, the marker *gáti* alternates with *gád=* and *=di*, as shown in the examples (23–24) below. However, note that *gáti* is a prominent element, then, a phonological and morphosyntactic word, while *gád=* and *=di* are clitics. I posit that *gáti* is the conflation of *gád=* and *=di* since both negative constructions shown are in free variation in TdVZ.

(23) *ˈGá.ti gútx.ˈnyâ̰.dán.*
gáti g´-utxnyâ̰=dán
NEG POT-get.married=3PL.IF
'They haven't gotten married yet.'

(24) *Gád.gútx.ˈnyâ̰.didán.*
gád=g´-utxnyâ̰=di=dán
NEG=POT-get.married=NEG=3PL.IF
'They haven't gotten married yet.'

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Negation of imperatives

Imperatives in TdVZ have two forms depending on the number of the addressee. Singular imperatives are formed with the completive prefix on the verb as in (25a). Plural imperatives are formed with the proclitic *gūl=* and potential prefix on the verb, as in (25b). Either imperative construction does not allow a subject as in a declarative clause. This, in addition to the tone allomorphy of the completive prefix, helps disambiguate the completive aspect from the singular imperative since in the former the subject NP or enclitic is obligatory, and the imperative prefix does not show an allomorph with a tone change.

(25) a. *Gu.ˈdow ˈgæt!*
gu-dow gæt
IMP.SG-eat tortilla
'Eat (the) tortilla (you.SG)!'

b. *Gūl.ˈgâw ˈgæt.*
gūl=g-aw gæt
IMP.PL=IMP.PL-eat tortilla
'Eat the tortilla (y'all).'

In the negation of imperatives (or *prohibitives,* van der Auwera & Lejeune 2013), a habitual prefix must appear on the verb if the action has started; otherwise, the potential marker is required. Also, prohibitive constructions require the subject on the verb, as shown in (26). As can be observed, in prohibitives, only the negator *kēd=* is used; if *=di* is added, the negative construction is interpreted as the negation of a declarative statement, as shown in (27).

(26) a. *Kē.ˈdrô̰w ˈndǣn!*
kēd=r-aw=u ndǣn
NEG=HAB-eat=2SG.IF that
'Do not eat that!' / 'Stop eating that!'

b. *Kēd.ˈgô̰w ˈndǣn.*
kēd=g´-aw=u ndǣn
NEG=POT-eat=2SG.IF that
'Do not eat that!'

(27) a. *Kē.ˈdrôw.dyu ˈndǣn.*
kēd=r-aw=**di**=u ndǣn
NEG=HAB-eat=NEG=2SG.IF that
'You do not eat that.'
*'Do not eat that!'

b. *Kēd.ˈgów.dyu ˈndǣn.*
kēd-g´-aw=**di**=u ndǣn
NEG=POT-eat=NEG=2SG.IF that
'You won't eat that.'

2.2.2 Negation of interrogatives

In TdVZ, polar questions are formed using the proclitic *(l)á=*, as in (28). Notice that when this type of construction contains a negative clause in it, this requires both both *kēd=* and *=di*, as in (29). If any of these markers are omitted, the construction becomes ungrammatical, as shown in (30).

(28) *(L)á.row ˈbǣkw.rǣ ˈdzɨ̂t?*
(l)á=r-aw bækw=rǣ dzɨt
Q=HAB-eat dog=DIST.DEM bone
'Does that dog eat bone(s)?'

(29) *(L)á.kē.ˈdrôw.di ˈbǣkw.rǣ ˈdzɨ̂t?*
(l)á=**kēd**=r-aw=**di** bækw=rǣ dzɨt
Q=NEG=HAB-eat=NEG dog=DIST.DEM bone
'Doesn't that dog eat bone(s)?' / 'That dog doesn't eat bone(s)?

(30) * *(L)á.kēd.rôw ˈbǣkw.rǣ ˈdzɨ̂t?*
(l)á=**kēd**=r-aw bækw=rǣ dzɨt
Q=NEG=HAB-eat dog=DIST.DEM bone
Intended reading: 'Doesn't that dog eat bone(s)?'

When a polar question acquires a rhetorical connotation (from a context in which an agreement is expected rather than an affirmative or negative answer), it is introduced by the interrogative marker *tā=*. In these types of interrogatives, *=di* becomes optional, as shown in (31).

(31) *Tā.kédˈrôw(di) ˈbǣkw.rǣ ˈdzɨ̂t?*
tā=kēd=r-aw(=di) bækw=rǣ dzɨt
Q=NEG=HAB-eat(=NEG) dog=DIST.DEM bone
'That dog doesn't eat bones?' / 'Doesn't that dog eat bones?'

Interestingly, in a potential answer to the previous question, *=di* does not appear when the answer is introduced by *nī=*,[8] which I gloss here as ’not even’, as in (32). Nevertheless, if *nī=* doesn’t occur, *=di* is obligatory, as shown in (33). Thus, polar rhetorical questions allow for the lack of *=di,* and when the potential answer of these is introduced by *ni=*, *=di* cannot occur.

(32) *Nī.kē.ˈdrôw* *ˈbǣkw.rǣ* *ˈdzɨ̂t.*
nī=kēd=r-aw bækw=rǣ dzɨt
not.even=NEG=HAB-eat dog=DIST.DEM bone
‘That dog doesn’t even eat bones.’

(33) *Kēd.ˈrôw.di* *ˈbǣkw.rǣ* *ˈdzɨ̂t.*
kēd=r-aw=di bækw=rǣ dzɨt
NEG=HAB-eat=NEG dog=DIST.DEM bone
‘That dog doesn’t even eat bones.’

On the other hand, open questions in TdVZ are formed with the various interrogative elements, i.e., *tū=* ‘who’, *xī=* ‘what’, *kālí* ‘where’, *xá=*[9] ‘how’, *gŭk* ‘when’, and *xíxh* ‘why’, that occur in the preverbal position, as shown in (34). These clauses are also negated with both *kēd=* and *=di*, as in (35). If any of these markers are omitted, the construction becomes ungrammatical. Thus, one could conclude that interrogatives are negated just like declaratives in TdVZ.

(34) *Tū.ri.ˈka̰z* *ˈtxæ̂?*
tū=ri-ka̰z tx´-æ?
who=HAB-want POT-go
‘Who wants to go?’

(35) *Tū.kēd.rí.ˈka̰z.di* *txæ̂?*
tū=**kēd**=ri-ka̰z=**di** tx´-æ?
who=NEG=HAB-want=NEG POT-go
‘Who doesn’t want to go?’

Interestingly, as with polar rhetorical questions, the interrogative *xíxh* ‘why’, which introduces the (clausal) question with the subordinator *té=*, can omit *=di*,

[8] I have not been able to define the functions of this element, it is identical in form to the proclitic *nī=* that occurs in ‘not even one’ constructions (see §4.4), but it’s function in this construction suggest that it may be another morpheme (with the same form) that adds the speaker’s ‘negative connotation’ to the phrase.

[9] This interrogative was not tested since it is semantically awkward to ask ’How didn’t you do something?’.

as shown in (36). The subordinator *té=* is the subordinator for purpose and reason adverbial clauses (Gutiérrez 2021).

(36) *ˈXíxh té.kēd.ˈgwǽ.(dy)u ˈxkwíly nna'.ˈdxi?*
xíxh **té**=kēd=gu´-æ(=**di**)=u xkwíly nna'dxi
why SUB=NEG=COMPL$_2$-go(=NEG)=2SG.IF school today
'Why (is the case that) didn't you go to school today?'
(The speaker sees that a student is at home during school hours)

The negation of non-declarative clauses differs from standard negation since prohibitives do not contain *=di*, and polar rhetorical questions and the interrogative with *xíxh=* 'why' allow for the lack of *=di*. However, polar and content questions (with *tū=* 'who', *xī=* 'what', *kālí* 'where', *gǔk* 'when') behave just like standard negation.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

2.3.1 Nominal and adjectival predication

In TdVZ adjectival or nominal predicate constructions occur with the copula *nā,* as shown in (37a) and (38a) respectively. As noted, in declarative sentences, the noun or adjective is first in the construction followed by the copula, and the subject takes the last position. The negation of this predication is expressed by the same markers as standard negation, that is, *kēd=* and *=di* cliticize to the copula, as in (37b) and (38b). Interestingly, the order of the elements varies in the negative counterpart since the copula (together with the negative clitics) must occur first in the construction. Therefore, this type of negation exhibits a constructional asymmetry.

(37) a. *ˈMwǽs* ***ˈnā*** *ˈBǽd.*
teacher COP Pedro
'Pedro is (a) teacher.'

b. *Kēd.ˈná.dí ˈBǽd ˈmwǽs.*
kēd=**nā**=di Bǽd mwǽs.
NEG=COP=NEG Pedro teacher
'Pedro is not (a) teacher.'

(38) a. *Na.ˈsínny ˈnǎn.*
nasínny **nā**=an
intelligent COP=3SG.IF
'S/he is intelligent.'

b. *Kēd.ˈná.dyán* *na.ˈsínny.*
kēd=**nā**=di=an nasínny
NEG=COP=NEG=3SG.IF intelligent
'S/he is not intelligent.'

2.3.2 Locative predication

Locative predicates in TdVZ involve the use of a positional verb + a locative phrase that generally contains a body part relational noun, as shown in (39). Thus, in addition to stating existence and location, they also specify the position of the predicated entity.

(39) *ˈZŭb* *ˈxhĭt.kī* *kyæ.ˈyu'.*
zŭb xhĭt=kī kyæ=yu'
STAT.sit cat=TEMP.DEM RN.head=building
'The cat is/was sitting on top of the roof.'

In order to negate this type of predicate, just as with standard negation, *kēd=* and *=di* cliticize to the verb stem, such as in (40). Since the negators cliticize to the positional verb, but the scope of negation is over the whole phrase, two possible readings are triggered: one that negates the place and one that negates the position. To specifically negate the location, focus negation must occur, this type of negation, however, is discussed in §3.3.

(40) *Kēd.ˈzŭb.di* *ˈxhĭt kyæˈyū'kī.*
kēd=zŭb=di xhĭt kyæ=yu'=kī
NEG=STAT.sit=NEG cat RN.head=bulding=TEMP.DEM
'The cat is not sitting on that roof (is somewhere else).'
'The cat is not sitting on that roof (but lying/ standing).'

2.3.3 Possessive predication

TdVZ, like many other languages, distinguishes between alienable and inalienable nouns. In this section, I describe one specific case of possessive predication with each type of noun. I look at cases that exhibit a more 'prototypical' possessive situation: the possessor is close to an object over which s/he has control (Stassen 2009). Thus, I show possessive predications of alienable nouns that occur with the verb *-āp* 'have' and possessive predication with body parts that occur with positional verbs. The first type occurs as shown in (41), while the second as in (42). As noted, the second construction requires a specific positional verb to denote the attachment of the body-part to the body (of the possessor). This last type of predication can also occur with a verb of existence and can be negated as such; this is discussed in §2.3.5.

(41) *ˈRāp ˈBǽd ˈgûʼn.*
r-āp Bǽd gûʼn
HAB-have Pedro bull
'Pedro has bull(s).'

(42) *ˈZǔb ˈtyōp ˈnyâ̰n̄.*
zǔb tyōp nyâ̰=ān
STAT.sit two POSS.hand=3SG.F
'S/he has two arms.' (lit. 'There is placed two hands of his/hers (a doll, for example).')

Both types of possessive predications are negated similarly to standard negation, that is, *kēd=* and *=di* attach to the verb, as in (43) and (44) respectively.

(43) *Kēd.ˈráp.dí ˈBǽd ˈgûʼn.*
kēd=r-āp=di Bǽd gûʼn
NEG=HAB-have=NEG Pedro bull
'Pedro doesn't have bull(s).'

(44) *ˈKēdzǔbdi ˈte ˈnyâ̰n̄.*
kēd=zǔb=di te nyâ̰=ān
NEG=STAT.sit=NEG INDF POSS.hand=3SG.F
'S/he doesn't have an arm.' (lit. 'There isn't placed a hand of his / her (a doll, for example).)

2.3.4 Equation

One type of equative predication is used to express family relationships in TdVZ; this requires the copula *-ak* 'be', as shown in (45). As can be observed, this construction is similar to nominal and adjectival predication since the nominal that is being equated occupies the first position followed by the copular element. Also, to negate this type of predication, the markers *kēd=* and *=di* must occur on the verb, as in (46). In this type of negative construction, a word order change is also observed when compared with the affirmative counterpart. Thus, this type of negation also exhibits a constructional asymmetry.[10]

(45) *ˈXhá.ná ˈrak ˈla̰n.*
xhǎn=a r-ak la̰n
POSS.mother=1SG HAB-be 3SG.F
'She is my mother.'

(46) *Kēd.ˈrâk.di ˈxhá.ná ˈla̰n.*
kēd=r-ak=di xhǎn=a la̰n
NEG=HAB-be=NEG POSS.mother=1SG 3SG.F
'She is not my mother.'

2.3.5 Existential predication

Existential predication is expressed by the verb *-u'* 'exist'. This verb has a suppletive form in the stative aspect, i.e., *yū'* STAT.EX, as shown in (47). Even though both forms belong to the same verb root, their morphosyntax and function are different. *Yū'* STAT.EX differs from *-u'* 'exist' since it has mid tone and its negative counterpart does not contain a verb, but the marker *kěty* NEG.EX, as in (48). Unlike the negator(s) in standard negation, this negative marker is not a clitic but a phonologically and morphosyntactically independent element.

(47) *ˈYū' ˈnîs nna'.ˈdxi.*
yū' nis nna'dxi
STAT.EX water today
'There is water (service) today.'

[10] A construction with a very similar meaning occurs with the pronoun in focus position, as in (i.a). However, the negation of this construction requires the focus negator, as in (i.b). This is discussed in §3.3.

(i) a. *ˈla̰n ˈrâk ˈxhá.ná*
la̰n r-ak xhǎn=a
3SG.F HAB-be POSS.mother=1SG
'[She]$_{FOC}$ is my mother.'

b. *ádí.ˈla̰n ˈrâk ˈxhá.ná*
ádí=la̰n r-ak- xhǎn=a
NEG=3SG.F HAB-be POSS.mother =1SG
'[She]$_{FOC}$ is not my mother.'

(48) *ˈKěty ˈnis nna'.ˈdxi.*
NEG.EX water today
'There is no water (service) today.'

On the other hand, *-u'* 'exist' has a low tone and conjugates with the full TAM paradigm, as shown in (49) with the completive prefix. Interestingly, the latter is negated with the same markers that occur in standard negation; that is, *kēd=* and *=di* attach to the verb stem, as in (50). Thus, in TdVZ, *yū'* STAT.EX is a lexicalized form of the verb that is used to predicate existence without indication of an initial or end point of that existence. On the other hand, *-u'* 'exist' is a verb that is used to indicate an existence that has ceased or that will start sometime in the future.

(49) *ˈGu' ˈnis ˈnna̰y.*
g-u' nis nna̰y
COMPL-exist water yesterday
'There was water (service) yesterday.'

(50) *Kēd.ˈgû'.di ˈnis ˈnna̰y.*
kēd=g´-u'=di nis nna̰y
NEG=COMPL$_2$-exist=NEG water yesterday
There was not water (service) yesterday.'

Note that the negator for existential predicates *kěty* has some resemblance to the clausal negator *kēd=*.[11] This is a typologically common pattern for this type of predicate (Veselinova 2013). In TdVZ, the existential negator resembles the clausal negator, but it is not formally identical to it, and the phonological and morphosyntactic status of each element differs, as well as the constructions in which they appear.[12]

A particular characteristic of *kěty* NEG.EX is that it can host pronominal enclitics, as shown in (51). No other negator exhibit this property in TdVZ.

[11]In closer Zapotec varieties (i.e., San Pablo Guilá Zapotec (SPGZ), and San Lucas Quiaviní Zapotec (SLQZ)) *kěty* (or *kǐty* or *ke'ity* respectively) is the negator in standard negation. This suggests that in TdVZ *kēd=* may be the evolved form of *kěty,* which has maintained its form in existential negation. Also, since the negation with *kěty* does occur with *=di* one could hypothesize that *kěty* may be the conflation of *kēd= + =di*, but in the closer varieties, the homologous of *kěty* does coexist with *=di.*

[12]Nevertheless, historically these two negators may have had one single source.

(51) *ˈKē.tyán ˈgwâ’.*
kěty=an gu-â’
NEG.EX=3SG.IF COMPL-go:1SG
‘He (was) not (there) (when) I went.’

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Most subordinate clauses are negated in the same way as monoclausal constructions. That is, the negator *kēd=* occurs preverbally and *=di* occurs post-verbally, as shown in (52) with a complement clause, in (53) with a relative clause, and in (54) with an adverbial clause. If *=di* is omitted in these constructions, they become ungrammatical.

(52) *Gu.dixh.ˈlæ’n kēd.ˈgǽ̰d.dyán.*
gu-dixhlæ’=an **kēd**=g´-ǣ̰d=**di**=an
COMPL-tell=3SG.IF NEG=POT-come=NEG=3SG.IF
‘He told (us) that he will/would not come.’

(53) *Gu.ˈnnæ̰z.dān ˈbénny ní.kēd.gú.ˈdîxh.dī.kī.*
gu-nnæ̰z=dān bēnny ni=**kēd**=gu´-dixh=**di**=kī
COMPL-catch=3PL.F person SUB=NEG=COMPL$_2$-COMPL:pay=NEG=TEMP.DEM
‘They caught the person who didn’t pay.’

(54) *Ba.ˈtyu’.nan kom.kēd.bá.ˈzûyn.dyan.*
ba-tyu’n=an kom=**kēd**=ba´-zuyn=**di**=an
COMPL-lose=3SG.IF SUB=NEG=COMPL$_2$-arrive=NEG=3SG.IF
‘He lost (in the game) because he didn’t arrive.’

There are, however, various negative subordinated clauses in which *=di* is non-obligatory. For instance, in complement clauses used for reported speech,[13] as in (55); in head fronted relative clauses, as in (56); and in adverbial conditional clauses, as in (57).

(55) *ˈRæby dok.ˈtór ˈLlúpy kēd.ˈgáw.(dy)an bǣ̰l.ˈkŭtx.*
ræby doktór Llúpy kēd=g´-aw(=**di**)=an bǣ̰l-kŭtx
COMPL.say.to doctor Lupe NEG=POT-eat(=NEG)=3SG.IF meat-pig
‘The doctor told (recommended) Lupe not to eat meat pork.’

[13] The last construction is considered by Lee (1999) as being derived from an indirect imperative.

(56) *'Dbénny ní.kēd.gú.'dâw(di) 'ndǣ 'zû 'rǣ.*
d´=bēnny ni=kēd=gu´-daw(=**di**) ndǣ zu rǣ
PL=person SUB=NEG=COMPL$_2$-eat(=NEG) that STAT.stand LOC.ADV
'(The) people that didn't eat are standing there.'

(57) *Txi.kēd.'rǽ.(di) 'Bǽd 'xkwíly, 'ræ̰n lo'kăntx.*
txi=kēd=r-æ**(=di)** Bǽd xkwíly r-æ=an low=kăntx
SUB=NEG=HAB-go(=NEG) Pedro school HAB-go=3SG.IF RN.face=court
'When/if Pedro doesn't go to school, he goes to the court field.'

Also, there are counterfactual subordinated expressions, as the one shown in (58), which can also omit *=di*.

(58) *'Blé kēd.'nyáw.(di)á 'bæ̰l'kŭtx té'nna'…*
Blé kēd=ni´-aw(=di)=a bæ̰l+kŭtx té=nna'
hopefully NEG=CNTF-eat(=NEG)=1SG meat+pig SUB=now
'I wish I hadn't eaten pork because now…'

In addition, there are subordinate clauses in which *=di* restricts the type of clause that may follow it. In (59), just as with *prohibitives*, relative clauses followed by a clause expressing a request do not allow *=di*. However, *=di* is optional in a similar construction if the following clause (the main clause) expresses a (declarative) consequence, as in (60). This suggests that *=di* contrasts with deontic modalities, specifically directive modalities.

(59) *'Ddxâp ni.kē.drí'zi̯, 'gúyn.dán pa.'búr*
d´=dxap ni=**kēd**=ri-zi̯ g´-uny=dán pabúr
PL=girl SUB=NEG=HAB-buy POT-do=3PL.IF favor
bī.'ká.dán.
bīká=dán
POT.be.removed=3PL.IF
'Girls that would/do not buy, please do the favor of moving away.'

(60) *'Ddxâp ni.kē.drí.'zi̯(di), 'ruyn 'gán.*
d´=dxap ni=kēd=ri-zi̯(=di) r-uny gán
PL=girl SUB=NEG=HAB-buy(=NEG) HAB-do win
'Girls that would/do not buy, win.'

Furthermore, there are subordinated adverbial conditional clauses in which the addition of *=di* results in ungrammaticality, as can be observed when comparing the examples below.

(61) *ˈBǣll.ké.drí.ˈka̰.zan gā.ˈdxâ.gan, ˈsyǣ̰̂.nēn.*
bǣll=**kēd**=ri-ka̰z=an ga´-dxag=an sı̰̂=an=ēn
if=NEG=HAB-want=3SG.IF POT-get.tired=3SG.IF POT.buy=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN
'If he doesn't want to get tired, he better buy it (something to help).'

(62) * *Bǣll.ké.drí.ˈka̰.za.dyan ga.ˈdxâ.gan,*
bǣll=**kēd**=ri-ka̰z=**di**=an ga'-dxag=an
if=NEG=HAB-want=NEG=3SG.IF POT-get.tired=3SG.IF
ˈsyǣ̰̂.nēn.
sı̰̂=an=en
POT.buy=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN
Intended reading: 'If he doesn't want to get tired, he better buy it (something to help).'

This fuzzy behavior of *=di* in subordinated clauses may not be defined by the syntax but by the semantics of the construction. That is, as I showed in (53–55), there are complement, relative and adverbial subordinated clauses in which *=di* is obligatory, but there are many others in which *=di* is not because there is no certainty as to whether the event expressed in the subordinate clause will occur or not.

As I have shown, *kēd=* is obligatory in all negative clausal constructions and in the three mood distinctions (declarative, interrogative, imperative) while *=di* is not. Therefore, *kēd=* is a negator in TdVZ, but the status of *=di* is less clear.[14] However, since *=di* is obligatory in monoclausal declarative constructions, I consider it to be a negative marker in a double negative construction.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The present state of analysis does not allow me to say anything about these yet.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The negative reply in TdVZ is *ā'ā* 'no'. This, however, is generally followed by the negated clause, as shown in the answer to the question in (63).

[14] Diachronically *=di* may have been a marker that contributed to the declarative mood of the constructions it appeared. This is because the type of sentences that are not compatible with *=di* (*e.g.*, prohibitives, requests, *bǣ́ll* 'if' conditionals) or that show *=di* optionally (counterfactuals, interrogatives, and *masy* 'even if' & *txi* 'when' conditionals), all involve possible events, but not facts.

(63) Q: *(L)á.ˈgwæ ˈBǽd ˈLlwâ’ ˈnnḁy?*
(l)á=gu-æ Bǽd Llwâ’ nnḁy
Q=COMPL-go Pedro Oaxaca yesterday
Did Pedro go to Oaxaca yesterday?

A: *ˈĀ’ā’, kēd.ˈgwǽ.dyan.*
ā’ā kēd=gu´-æ=di=an
NEG NEG=COMPL$_2$-go=NEG=3SG.IF
‘No, he didn’t go.’

Interestingly, if the question contains a negative clause, as in (64Q), *ā’ā* ‘no’ would be used as an answer to indicate that the proposition is correct, as shown in (64A1). If the answer, on the other hand, contradicts the negative proposition, a declarative clause would occur as the answer, as shown in (64A2). In this type of negative construction then, the *ā’ā* ‘no’ agrees with the polarity of the question’s proposition.

(64) Q: *(L)á.kēdˈgwǽdi ˈBǽd ˈLlwâ’ ˈnnḁy?*
(l)á=kēd=gu-æ=di Bǽd Llwâ’ nnḁy
Q=NEG=COMPL$_2$-go=NEG Pedro Oaxaca yesterday
Didn’t Pedro go to Oaxaca yesterday?

A1: *ˈĀ’ā, kēd.ˈgwǽ.dyan.*
ā’ā kēd=gu´-æ=di=an
NEG NEG=COMPL$_2$-go=NEG=3SG.IF
‘No, he didn’t go (you are right).’

A2: *Gwæ̰n.*
gu-æ=an
COMPL-go=3SG.IF
‘He went (you are/were wrong).’

The existential negator *kěty* (§2.3.5) may also be used as a negative reply, as in (65), and this can optionally be followed by the negated clause. However, *kěty* generally occurs in replies that refer to future events, and which generally are directed to the interlocutor, as noted in the examples below.

(65) Q: *(L)á.ˈzæ̰w ˈLlwâ’?*
(l)á=z-æ=u Llwâ’
Q=FUT-go=2SG.IF Oaxaca
Will you go to Oaxaca?

A: *Kěty, kēdtxâ'dya.*
kěty kēd=tx´=â'=di=a
NEG NEG=POT-go:1SG=NEG=1SG
'No, I am not going to go.'

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

In TdVZ, the indefinite pronouns *nobody*, *nothing*, and *nowhere* are formed using the monoclausal negation markers (i.e., *kēd=/gád=* and *=di*) and the interrogative clitics, as I show in (66). These forms, however, are used only as short answers that do not contain a verb.

(66) a. *kē.ˈtú.dí*
kēd=tū=di
NEG=who=NEG
'nobody'

b. *kē.ˈtxí.dí*
kēd=xī=di
NEG=what=NEG
'nothing'

c. *kēd.ˈká.(lī)dí*
kēd=kā(lí)di
NEG=where=NEG
'nowhere'

If the (questioned) verb occurs in the answer, the position of *=di* is now after the verb, as in (67a). Indefinite constructions can also occur with the potential mood clause negator *gád=*, as shown in (67b). This feature confirms the proposal that the negation of potential mood clauses is a subtype of clausal negation in TdVZ.

(67) a. *Kēd.tú.ˈbǣ̰d.dí.*
kēd=tū=b-ǣ̰d=**di**
NEG=who=COMPL-come=NEG
'Nobody came.'

b. *Gád.ˈtú.gǣ̰́d.dí.*
gád=tū=g´-ǣ̰d=**di**
NEG=who=POT-come=NEG
'Nobody has come yet.'

In addition, when the question or the indefinite construction focalizes some specific noun, as in (68), the meaning as well as the construction are modified, as shown in (69). In this case, note that *=di* cliticizes right after the negated constituent.

(68) *(L)á.yū'* *xí.'gæ̂t* *ba.'dæ̰̂d.dān* *'lă̰n?*
lá=yū' xī=**gæt** ba´-dæ̰d=dān lă̰n?
Q=STAT.EX what=tortilla COMPL$_2$-give=3PL.F 3SG.IF
'Did they give him some/any tortilla?'

(69) *Kē.txī.'gæ̂t.di* *ba.dæ̰̂d.dān* *lă̰n.*
kēd=xī=**gæt=di** ba´-dæ̰d=dān lă̰n
NEG=what=tortilla=NEG COMPL$_2$-give=3PL.F 3SG.IF
'They didn't give him/her any tortilla.' (lit. 'Any/no tortilla they gave him.')

The use of *kēd=* in these last examples does not seem to be negating nouns in a contrastive way but instead, their existence. Then, in this construction *=di* seems to add emphasis to the non-existence of the entity, like the negative item 'at all' in English.

Other means to form an indefinite pronoun in TdVZ do not involve negation. Therefore, I do not discuss them here.

3.3 Negative derivation

The present state of analysis does not allow me to say anything about negative derivation such as English *-less* or *un-*. Thus, in this section, I discuss focus negation since it is one of the most common strategies for negating nominals in Zapotec languages.

In focus negation, the marker *ádí=* is used to negate focused elements that appear in the preverbal position. The negated element can be a noun phrase or some other type of phrase, as shown in (70) and (71) respectively. This element has all the properties of clitics in this language even though it may be a compound element as I discuss below.

(70) *Á.dí.'Jwáyn(īn)* *ba.'llṵ̂b* *lo.'næz.*
ádí=Jwáyn(=īn) ba´-llṵb low=næz
NEG=Juan(=FOC) COMPL$_2$-sweep RN.face-road
'It wasn't Juan who swept the street (but someone else).'

(71) *Á.dí.nna'.ˈdxi ˈtxô'ūn.*
ádí=nna'dxi tx´-æ=ūn
NEG=today POT-go=1PL.EXCL
'We won't go today (but some other day).'

Ádí= seems to be the remnant of a more morphologically complex structure that involves *ád=* 'the negator', a base (i.e., *lā̰*)[15] and *=di*, as shown in (72). *Ádlā̰dí* is in free variation with *ádí=* in more conservative registers.

(72) *Á.ˈdlā̰.dí ˈJwáyn(īn) ba.ˈllṵ̂b lo.ˈnæz.*
ád=**lā̰**=**di** Jwáyn(=īn) ba´-llṵb low=næz
NEG=lā̰=NEG Juan(=FOC) COMPL$_2$-sweep RN.face-road
'It is not the case that Juan swept the road / It wasn't Juan who swept the road.'

I showed above that *gád=*, the negator in 'not yet' expressions, may merge with *=di* to form *gáti*. Thus, I assume that the same type of process derived the focus negator *ádí=*. I consider this to be the case since *ád=* and *=di* can appear separately, as shown in (73). In addition, when *ádí=* and *=di* co-occur the construction is ungrammatical, as in (74). Thus, *ádí=* contains *di=*, and the high tone of this element may be a remnant of the high tone this element acquired (and maintained) from the more complex form (*ádlā̰dí*) in which *=di* was preceded by a mid-tone.

(73) *Ád.ˈdxap.di.rǣ gú.ˈzḭīn.*
ád=dxap=**di**=rǣ gu´-zḭ=īn
NEG=girl=NEG=DIST.DEM COMPL$_2$-buy=3SG.INAN
'It wasn't that girl who bought it (but someone else).'

(74) * *Á.dí.ˈdxap.di.rǣ gú.ˈzḭ̂īn.*
ádí=dxap=**di**=rǣ gu´-zḭ=ēn
NEG=girl=NEG=DIST.DEM COMPL$_2$-buy=3SG.INAN
Intended reading: 'It wasn't that girl who bought it (but someone else).'

Also, in (76), I demonstrate that *ád=* and *=di* are also used to negate other aspects of a nominal phrase; compare (75) vs (76) and notice that these elements surround the quantifier that modifies the noun.

[15] *lā̰* is a grammatical element that is used as a base to host clitics (Foreman 2006), but its origin and meaning is no longer transparent. *lā̰* also appears in the formation of independent pronouns (lā̰ + an = lă̰n '3SG.IF').

(75) *ˈRá ˈbēnny rú.ˈkḭn ˈbæ̰l.*
rá bēnny ru-kḭn bæ̰l
all person HAB-consume meat
'All people consume meat.'

(76) *Ád.ˈrá.di ˈbēnny rú.ˈkḭn ˈbæ̰l.*
ád=rá=di bēnny ru-kḭn bæ̰l
NEG=all=NEG person HAB-consume meat
'Not all people consume meat.'

Moreover, notice that *ádí=* constructions generally result in contrastive focus negative readings, as in (77a). Also, when *ádí=* negates a verbal phrase, it is possible to move the negated verbal phrase after the verbal phrase that contrasts with it, as shown in (77a) vs. (77b).

(77) a. *Á.dí.gu.ˈzyæ̰.nēn, ba.ˈdæ̰d.zī.dā.nēn ˈlǎ̰n.*
ádí=gu-zḭ=an=ēn ba-dæ̰d=zī=dān=ēn lǎ̰n
NEG=COMPL-buy=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN COMPL-give=only=3PL.F=3SG.INAN 3SG.IF
'It is not the case that s/he bought it, they gave it to him/her for free.'

b. *Ba.ˈdæ̰d.zī.dā.nēn ˈlǎ̰n, á.dí.gu.ˈzyæ̰.nēn.*
ba-dæ̰d=zī=dān=ēn lǎ̰n ádí=gu-zḭ=an=ēn
COMPL-give=only=3PL.F=3SG.INAN 3SG.IF NEG=COMPL-buy=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN
'They gave it to him/her for free, it is not the case that s/he bought it.'

There are two more syntactic aspects of *ádí=* that I should mention; first, there are instances in which an NP in the topic position can precede *ádí=*, as shown in (78). Second, as mentioned above, *ádí=* and standard negation can cooccur, as shown in (79). This last example demonstrates that the scope of each negator is defined and specific to the phrase they appear in.

(78) *ˈBǽd, á.díˈJwáyn ba.ˈllṵ̂b lo.næz.*
Bǽd **ádí**=Jwáyn ba´-llṵb low=næz
Pedro NEG=Juan COMPL$_2$-sweep RN.face=road
'Pedro, not Juan, swept the street.'

(79) *Á.dí.ˈdxāp.rǣ kēd.ˈgwǽ.di.*
ádí=dxap=rǣ **kēd**=gu´-æ=di
NEG=girl=DIST.DEM NEG=COMPL$_2$-go=di
'Not that girl didn't go.' / 'It isn't that girl that/who didn't go.'

Finally, just as the clausal negator *kēd=*, *ádí=* is not compatible with the future aspectual marker, as I show in (80). In order to negate a possible future event with a focused element, the potential marker should appear on the verb, as in (81).

(80) * *Á.dí.ˈdxāp.rǣ ˈzûyn ˈzṳyn.*
ádí=dxap=rǣ **z**-uny zṳyn
NEG=girl=DIST.DEM FUT-do work
Intended reading: 'That girl (is) not (the one who) will work.'

(81) *Á.dí.ˈdxāp.rǣ ˈgúyn ˈzṳyn.*
ádí=dxap=rǣ **g**´-uny zṳyn
NEG=girl=DIST.DEM POT-do work
'That girl (is) not (the one who) will work.'

Ádí=, then, is a remnant of a compound morpheme with complex morphology, but it does not acquire an accent and remains non-prominent since neither of its vowels lengthens as expected in this environment (/á/ is before a lenis consonant and /í/ is in syllable-final position). Also, the fact that *ádí=* or *ád=* + *=di* attach to various lexical categories confirms that this morpheme is a (pro)clitic. However, *ádí=* perhaps is a more advanced stage of fusion than *gáti,* the 'not yet' expression negator, since it is more common for the speakers to use the merged form than the separated one.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation: position and scope of the negative marker *kēd=*

In most Zapotec languages there is a preverbal position for focused elements. One might argue then that the negative proclitic *kēd=* occupies this focus position. The negative marker *kēd=*, however, can appear together with a focused NP, as shown in (82). Notice that the position of *kēd=* is fixed and cannot appear before the focused element assuming that it would move to the focus position, as shown in (83). Thus, the position of *kēd=* is before the verb, and due to its clitic status, *kēd=* would cliticize to it if no other proclitics appear.

(82) *[ˈJwáyn]$_{FOC}$ kēd.bá.ˈllû̯b.di lo.ˈnæz.*
Jwáyn **kēd**=ba´-llu̯b=di low=næz
Juan NEG=COMPL$_2$-sweep=NEG RN.face=road
'(It was) Juan (who) didn't sweep the street.'

(83) * *Kēd ˈJwáyn ˈba.llû̯b.di lo.ˈnæz.*
kēd= **Jwáyn** ba´-llu̯b=di low=næz
NEG Juan COMPL$_2$-sweep=NEG RN.face=road
Intended reading '(It was) not Juan (who) didn't sweep the street.'

Also, the scope of *kēd=* is over the verbal predicate, and not over constituents or focused elements. When a focused element is negated, the negative marker *ádí=* is required, as shown in (84). This type of negative construction was discussed in §3.3.

(84) *Á.dí.ˈJwáyn kēd.bá.ˈllû̯b.di lo.ˈnæz.*
ádí=Jwáyn kēd=ba´-llu̯b=di low=næz
NEG=Juan NEG=COMPL$_2$-sweep=NEG RN.face=road
'(It wasn't) Juan (who) didn't sweep the street.'

4.2 Negative polarity

So far, I have identified two negative polarity items in TdVZ, i.e. *nītúy* 'not even one' and *nēkl(ā)* 'nor'. These are discussed in §4.4. and §4.5 respectively.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

The present state of analysis does not allow me to say anything about these yet.

4.4 Reinforcing negation: emphatic negative constructions (*not even one* expressions)

In TdVZ, there is an emphatic negative marker *nītúy=*[16] (*nī=* + numeral 'one'), which modifies a phrase that functions as an argument or as an oblique of a negated clause, as in (85) and (86) respectively. *Nītúy=* 'not even one', then, together with the negated clause, emphasizes that in a negated clause/event, not even one member of a category participates in it or that the event does not take place even once. Thus, *nītúy=* 'not even one' is a negative polarity item that only appears in negative clauses. In (85), note that *nītúy=* is generally followed by the free function word intensifier *tæ̰*, which further emphasizes this expression.

[16] This construction is also discussed by Galant & Foreman (2010) for other Zapotec varieties.

(85) *Kēd.bá.ˈzûyn.di* *nī.túy(ˈtæ̰)ˈbēnny.*
kēd=ba´=zuyn=di nītúy(tæ̰)=bēnny
NEG=COMPL$_2$-arrive=NEG not.even.one(INTS)=person
'Not even one person arrived.'

(86) *Nī.túb.dxi* *kēd.gwǽ.dyan.*
nītúy=dxi kēd=gu´-æ=di=an
not.eve.one=day NEG=COMPL$_2$-go=NEG=3SG.IF
'Not even one day he went.'

Nītúy 'not even one' is polymorphemic, since it can get morpho-syntactically complex. That is, *nī=* 'not even' can be separated from *tuy* 'one' by other elements, as in (87).

(87) *Nīk.txá.ˈtuy* *(ˈtæ̰)* *ˈbēnny* *kéd.bá.ˈzûyn.di.*
nī=kā=txá=tuy (tæ̰) bēnny kēd=ba´=zuyn=di
not.even=AFF=maybe=one (INTS) person NEG=COMPL$_2$=arrive=NEG
'Not even one single person arrived.'

Given that *nītúy* is an emphatic negator, it typically appears in the preverbal position together with the modifying noun as was shown in (86) and (87). Also, the fact that *nītúy* 'not even one' emerges only in negative constructions differentiates this type of negation from other negative constructions discussed in this chapter.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

In addition to *nītú*y 'not even one', another element that could be considered a negative polarity item is *nēkl(ā)* 'nor'. This element could be the conflation of the conjunctive element conjunction *nǣ=* 'and' and the enclitics *=k(ā)* 'as expected' and *=lā* 'also'. *Nēkl(ā)*, which I translate as 'nor', occurs within a negated clause to coordinate two or more NPs (or other type or phrases),[17] as shown in (88). This element is much less common coordinating two clauses, cases such as in (89) were not completely accepted as grammatical for various speakers.

(88) *Kē.drúˈrak.di* *ˈgæl* *nē.kl(ā).bí.ˈza̰,* *nē.kl(ā).ˈgît.*
kēd=rú=r-ak=di gæl nēkl(ā)=biza̰ nēkl(ā)=git
NEG=more=HAB-be.done=NEG milpa CONJ=bean CONJ=pumpkin
'Milpa is no longer harvested (good), nor beans, nor pumpkin.'

[17]Salaberri (2022) refers to this type of constructions as Emphatic Negative Coordination.

(89) *Kē.dbá.ˈyá’.dī.dān* *né.kl(ā).kéd.ˈgwǽ’.dī.dān*
kēd=ba-yā’=di=dān nēkl(ā)=kēd=guˊ-æ’=di=dān
NEG=COMPL$_2$-dance=NEG=3PL.F CONJ=NEG=COMPL$_2$-drink=di=3PL.F
nē.kl(ā)...
nēkl(ā)=
CONJ=
‘They didn’t dance nor (did they) drink, nor…’

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation: negative transport

A case of negative transport that I have identified occurs in complement constructions, specifically with complement taking predicates that select for less finite complements. Less finite complements in TdVZ are those that are restricted to occur with the potential or counterfactual prefixes on their verbs, or they copy the aspectual marker of the main clause/predicate. Thus, negative transport occurs with achievement (e.g., *-yexh* ‘dare’) and desiderative (e.g., *-ka̰z* ‘want’) verbs, among others (see Gutiérrez 2021 for more information on this topic). In (90) and (91), I show an example of negative transport with the predicates *-yexh* ‘dare’ and *-ka̰z* ‘want’ respectively.

(90) *Kēd.ˈgyéxh.dyan* *gú.nya.nnēn.*
kēd=gˊ-yexh=di=an gˊ-uny=an=ēn
NEG=POT-dare=NEG=3SG.IF POT-do=3SG.IF=3SG.INAN
‘S/he won’t dare to do it.’

(91) *Kēd.ri.ˈka̰z.di* *ˈJwáyn* *ˈnyǽ’n* *ˈnis.*
kēd=ri-ka̰z=di Jwáyn niˊ-æ’=an nis
NEG=HAB-want=NEG Juan CNTF-drink=3SG.IF water
‘Juan didn’t want to drink water.’

5 Summary

In this chapter I have described various types of negative constructions in TdVZ, and I have defined the status of the negative markers they use. I have shown that various of these negative markers require the negative morpheme *=di*. In Table 2, I summarize the status and functions of the negative markers in TdVZ.

Also, I have shown that standard negation is syntactic (Dahl 1979) in TdVZ, and I have described the paradigmatic asymmetries that this construction exhibits. Therefore, I consider it to belong to type A/CAT/TAM in Miestamo’s categorization (2005, 2007).

Table 2: Negative markers in TdVZ

	Standard / (mono-)clausal negation	'Not yet' expression	Negative existential	Focus negation
Negative markers	kēd=	gád=, gáti	Kěty	ádí=, ádlā̰dí, ád=
Require *=di*	Yes	Yes	No	Yes
Status	Clitic	Clitic & word when combined with *=di*	Word	Clitic & word when occurs with *lā̰*
Separable with *=di*	Always	Optional	Does not apply	Optional
Used in other negative constructions	Yes: Subordinated clauses and indefinites	Yes: Subordinated clauses, and indefinites	No	Yes: Contrastive clauses
TAM restrictions	Does not co-occur with the Future prefix	Requires the Potential prefix on the verb, no other TAM categories are allowed	No TAM category is allowed.	Does not co-occur with the Future prefix

Moreover, I have discussed other negative constructions that have not received much attention in Zapotec languages: a subtype of standard negation (i.e., 'not yet' expressions), existential negation and focus negation. All these constructions have different negators. However, the negator for 'not yet' expressions and the focus negator (*gád*= and *ád*= respectively) seem formally similar, but their function and scope are different: *gád*= is used to negate clauses that express events that have not occurred while *ád*= is used in focus constructions to mainly negate noun phrases. However, both types of negators occurs with *=di* as a merged element or as a morpheme that occur after the negated element. On the other hand, the existential negator in TdVZ resembles the clausal negator but is not identical to it.

In addition, I briefly described two other aspects of negation in TdVZ: indefinite pronouns, the negative polarity item *nēkl(ā)*=, and empathic negation with *nītúy=* 'not even one'. Indefinite pronouns are formed with the same negators as standard negation, *nēkl(ā)=* coordinates two phrases within a negative clause and *nītúy=* reinforces negation. Table 3 summarizes the negative markers of TdVZ and their functions.

Further research needs to be done in biclausal negative constructions in TdVZ and in other Zapotec varieties to define the quirky behavior of *=di* in subordinate negative constructions. Also, it is important to explore all those constructions that indicate negation to get a better understanding of this phenomenon in this family of languages.

Table 3: Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec negative markers and their functions

Negative marker	Require *=di*	Function	Section
kēd=	yes	Standard negation	2.1
	no	Negation of imperatives	2.2.1
	yes	Negation of interrogatives	2.2.2
	yes	Negation of stative predications	2.3.1–2.3.4
	optional	Negation in non-main clauses	2.3
	yes	Negative Indefinites	3.2
gád=	yes, and not when occurring as *gáti*	'Not yet' expression	2.1
kěty	no	Negating existential	2.3.5
ád=	yes, and not when occurring as *ádí=* or *ádlā̰dí*	Focus/constituent negation	3.3
ā'ā	N/A	Negative reply	3.1
nītúy=	N/A	Emphatic negative construction	4.4
nēkl(ā)=	N/A	Negative polarity item	4.5

Abbreviations

1	first person	IF	informal
2	second person	IMP	imperative
3	third person	INAN	inanimate
ADV	adverb	INDF	indefinite article
AFFT	affective	INTS	intensifier
AFF	affirmative	LOC	locative
AND	andative	NEG	negative
COM	comitative	PL	plural
COMPL	completive	POSS	possessive
CONJ	conjunction	POT	potential
COP	copula	PROG	progressive
CNTF	counterfactual	Q	question marker
DE	discursive element	RECP	reciprocal
DEM	demonstrative	RN	relational noun
DIST	distal	STAT	stative
EXCL	exclusive	SUB	subordinator
F	formal	SG	singular
FOC	focus	TEMP	temporal
FUT	future	VEN	venitive
HAB	habitual		

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Chapter 14

Negation in Chuxnabán Mixe

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Chuxnabán Mixe, a Mixe-Zoquean language spoken in Oaxaca, Mexico, has a complex grammar of negation with different constructions for different types of negative expressions and negative constructions interacting with the grammatical structure of the clause. This chapter zeroes in on the functions and uses of the negative particles *ka'ap* and *këtii*, the negative prefix *ka-*, and the proclitic *nii=*. Further, the interaction with other structures and multiple expressions of negation are examined, in addition to special forms in prohibitives, negative existentials, and multiple negation strategies in non-verbal clauses. In general, the negative particle *ka'ap* can be used in all types of negation. It always precedes the predicate, and its presence triggers a special verb form, including a separate set of person markers. The verb may also include the negative prefix *ka-* instead of or in addition to *ka'ap*. The negative particle *ka'ap* can also directly precede a constituent to be negated. Constituent negation may also be expressed with the negative proclitic *nii=*. A special negative particle *këtii* is used in prohibitives, in clauses with 'neither', in negative polar questions (also non-verbal and existential polar questions), and in tag questions. There is no formal distinction between prohibitives and negative polar questions. Interesting is the fact that non-verbal clauses exhibit multiple strategies for both affirmatives and negatives with different verbalizers and the irrealis enclitic *=ëch* in some negative forms

Keywords: Mixe-Zoquean languages, negative particles, prohibitives, non-verbal negation, negative prefix.

1 The language

Chuxnabán Mixe (ISO: pxm, Glottocode: chux1234) is a Mixe-Zoquean language spoken by about nine hundred people in one village, San Juan Bosco Chuxnabán,

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in Mexico (latitude/longitude: 17°01’09.5”N 95°49’48.2”W). Linguistic vitality is *unsafe*, *vulnerable* or *at risk* following the UNESCO framework (Brenzinger et al. 2003), given that education and literacy development occur almost exclusively in the dominant language Spanish. Nevertheless, all community members still speak the language, and there is intergenerational language transmission.

The Mixean territory includes two hundred and ninety communities divided into nineteen municipalities (Torres Cisneros 1997). The dialects of the villages within a single municipality are generally mutually intelligible, although speakers identify dialectal differences. Geographically, the region differentiates highlands, midlands, and lowlands. The geographic groupings are somewhat reflected in the genetic division of the languages. The Mixe-Zoquean language family includes seventeen languages, according to Ethnologue, subdivided into a Mixean and a Zoquean branch (Eberhard et al. 2019). Chuxnabán Mixe, a Oaxaca Mixean language, belongs to Quetzaltepec Mixe, which is also the municipality of the village. Looking at diachronic developments within the language family, Wichmann (1995: 10) identifies Lowland, Midland, South Highland, and North Highland Mixe. Chuxnabán Mixe belongs to Midland Mixe. Overall, the Mixean dialects spoken in the two hundred ninety communities have been classified for the most part as eight distinct languages with some differences between the sources.

The data for this paper stems from personal fieldwork in the village in 2008 and 2011 where I collected 60 oral narratives (1–15 minutes in length) and 2 dinner-table conversations (30 and 50 minutes in length). I transcribed both conversations and 11 narratives that yielded over 250 examples of negation from the naturally occurring data. This data was complemented with elicitation sessions in 2018 to obtain positive clauses and to fill gaps. Data from grammars of related languages, i.e. Ayutla Mixe (Romero-Méndez 2009) and Sierra Popoluca (Boudreault 2018), was also studied. Unfortunately, negation has received little attention in the grammars, and no detailed study of negation in any Mixean language is available. This paper constitutes the first detailed treatment of the topic within the language family.

The description of negation in Chuxnabán Mixe in this chapter is based on the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and mirrors its structure.

1.1 Typological profile

Chuxnabán Mixe can be characterized as polysynthetic and head-marking with a hierarchical and inverse alignment system based on person, animacy, and topicality. There are independent and dependent verb paradigms for person and aspect and modal markers, although the dependent inflection is a highly language specific category and not related to clausal dependency. These verb inflections also involve verb stem alterations. There is no nominal case marking, except for the locative; and there is optional number marking for animates. Word order is relatively flexible, but generally verb-final. In what follows, I briefly present the person marking system, the dependent and independent verb inflections, and the TAM system.

The most prominent participant in an event is marked or cross-referenced on the predicate, following a hierarchical and inverse grammatical system. The hierarchy is determined by person: first > second > third, animacy: animate > inanimate, and topicality: human/topical > human/non-topical. The position of a participant on the hierarchy is further signaled by direct or inverse alignment. When participants in a clause are such that the actor outranks the undergoer, there is direct alignment. If the opposite occurs, there is inverse alignment, indicated with a special inverse suffix *-ë* (only marked if a third person acts on a second or if a less topical third person acts on a more topical third person). The grammatical indexing system is summarized in Table 1 and the indexes in Table 2.

Table 1: Grammatical indexing system

Relation	Marking	Inverse marker
1 > 2, 1 > 3	1.A	-
2 > 1, 3 > 1	1.P	no
2 > 3	2	-
3 > 2	2	yes
3 > 3’	3.A	-
3’ > 3	3.P	yes

In addition to person, singular and plural forms are distinguished, as shown in (1).

(1) Person hierarchy 1 > 2 > 3

a. *xyuujxp.*
x-yuujx-p
1P-wake.up-ASP.IND
‘You/s/he wake(s) me up.’

b. *myuujxëp.*
m-yuujx-**ë**-p
2O-wake.up-**INV**-ASP.IND
'S/he wakes you up.'

c. *myuujxtëp.*
m-yuujx-**të**-p
2A-wake.up-**PL**-ASP.IND
'You wake them up.'

The person prefixes show two inflections (see Table 2), one for the independent and one for the dependent construction. As with other Mixean languages, all predicates are treated as either independent or dependent, each with its own set of inflectional person and aspect and mood markers, in addition to verb stem changes. In (2a) and (2b), the second person actor is indicated with a different prefix in each construction, *m-* and *x-* respectively. Equally, the example illustrates the two different verb stem shapes and aspect markers.

(2) a. Independent:
maatsyüüjchpy.
m-yaa-tsyüüjch-**p**
2A.IND-CAUS-hurt-**ASP.IND**
'You hurt him.'

b. Dependent:
ka'ap xyaatsyüch.
ka'ap **x**-yaa-tsyüts-**y**
NEG **2A.DEP**-CAUS-hurt-**ASP.DEP**
'You don't hurt him.'

Table 2: Grammatical indexes

Independent paradigm				Dependent paradigm			
Person	S	A	P	Person	S	A	P
1SG	*ø-*	*n-*	*x-*	1SG	*n-*	*n-*	*x-*
2SG	*m-*	*m-*	*m-*	2SG	*m-*	*x-*	*m-*
3SG	*ø-*	*y-*	*ø-*	3SG	*y-*	*t-*	*y-*
1PL.INCL	*ø- -ëm*	*n- -ëm*	*x- -ëm*	1PL.INCL	*n- -ëm*	*n- -ëm*	*x- -ëm*
1PL.EXCL	*ø- -të*	*n- -të*	*x- -të*	1PL.EXCL	*n- -të*	*n- -të*	*x- -të*
2PL	*m- -të*	*m- -të*	*m- -të*	2PL	*m- -të*	*x- -të*	*m- -të*
3PL	*ø- -të*	*y- -të*	*ø- -të*	3PL	*y- -të*	*t- -të*	*y- -të*

Dependent inflection is triggered when a non-core constituent is placed before the predicate. This includes locative or temporal adverbs (e.g., *axë'ëy* 'yesterday', *xëmme* 'always' or *yaa* 'here'), temporal particles (e.g., *tëë* 'before now', *oojts* 'past'), the negative particle *ka'ap* and certain negative words formed with the negator *nii=*, the dubitative *wä'än*, and in questions where the interrogative word is not a core argument (e.g., *ma* 'where'). The labeling of this inflectional distinction is somewhat unfortunate, given that it is not related to dependency, but it conforms to the terminology used in previous work (Romero-Méndez 2009, Wichmann 1995). I have not examined the tense-aspect-mood system in detail, and the analysis presented here is based on the overall data collected (i.e., not including targeted elicitation of tense-aspect-mood), Wichmann's (1995) reconstruction of Mixe-Zoquean, and Romero-Méndez' (2009) analysis of Ayutla Mixe. The different forms as they appear in Ayutla Mixe are presented in Table 3. Note that "Stem A, B, C" are arbitrary labels used by the author to describe the stem alternations in Ayutla Mixe.

Table 3: Verb stems in Ayutla Mixe (from Romero-Méndez 2009)

Type of clause	Independent inflection	Dependent inflection
Neutral aspect (incompletive aspect in other Mixean languages)	Stem B + *-p* (intransitive) Stem B + *-yp* (transitive) Stem B + *-të* + *-p* (plural)	Stem A + *-y* (singular) Stem B + *-t* (plural)
Completive aspect	Stem C Stem C + *-t* (plural)	Stem C + *-y*
Irrealis mood	Stem A′ + *-p* Stem A′ + *-të* + *-p*	Stem A′ + *-t* Stem A′ + + *-të -t*
Perfect (e.g., neutral)	Stem B + *-në* + *-të* + *-p* (plural)	Stem B + *-në* + *-t* (plural)

It is worth mentioning that in addition to the verbal suffixes there are particles encoding tense, aspect, and mood. These are independent words that occur in pre-verbal position, but otherwise show flexible word order. They include the perfective *tëë* 'before now', the past tense marker *oojts*, the imperfective *iich* or *tii iich*, the dubitative *wä'än*, and the hypothetical *keexy*.

2 Clausal negation

In this section, I examine negation strategies based on the type of the negative marker(s) and the structure of the negative clause as a whole focusing on symmetric versus asymmetric negation in the sense of Miestamo (2007, 2009, 2013a,b, 2017) for both constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries. As has been shown (Horn 2010, Kahrel & van den Berg 1994, Payne 1997), negation strategies may interact with marking on other constituents and may result in multiple expression of negation within a clause. The latter may result in negative concord, i.e. multiple negators in a single negation (Horn 2010); as is the case with Chuxnabán Mixe. I distinguish standard negation, i.e. the negation of declarative verbal main clauses (Miestamo 2005), from non-standard negation, which includes negation strategies in prohibitives, existentials, non-verbal clauses, and subordinate clauses.

2.1 Standard negation

It is generally acknowledged that all languages have grammatical means to negate clauses, so every language has one or more constructions that can be identified as standard negation (Miestamo 2005, 2007). In Chuxnabán Mixe, in general and most frequently, the negative particle *ka'ap* is used in standard negation. The negative particle *ka'ap* always triggers dependent inflection (see also §2.1.1), as shown in (3) and (4).

(3) a. *kääpy.*
y-kay-p
3A.IND-eat-ASP.IND
'He eats/ate (something).'

b. *ka'ap tkaanyë.*
ka'ap t-kay-në
NEG 3A.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
'He doesn't/didn't eat (something).'

(4) a. *ja ja'ay tëëjkëtëp.*
ja ja'ay ø-tëëjkë-të-p
DEM people 3S.IND-enter-PL-ASP.IND
'The people entered.'

b. *ka'ap ja ja'ay chimtë'këtë.*
ka'ap ja ja'ay y-tsimtë'kë-të
NEG DEM people 3S.DEP-enter-PL
'The people didn't enter.'

The negative particle occurs most often clause-initially. It can be preceded by arguments and adverbials, as in (5) and (6).

(5) *tääpë Tinnë ka'apës oojts xnyiikaapxtu'utë.*
tääpë Tinnë **ka'ap**=ës oojts x-niikaapxtu'ut-të
this Tino NEG-1.EMPH PST 1P.DEP-defend-PL
'This Tino didn't defend us.'

(6) *tää jyä'chë yaa ka'ap myo'k t'xuujtë.*
tää jyä'ch yaa **ka'ap** y-mo'k t-'xuuj-të
before.now many here NEG 3POSS.corn 3A.DEP-put.chemicals-PL
'Many (people) here don't put chemicals in their corn.'

In (5) and (6), *ka'ap* can be moved before or after any noun phrase or particle, as long as it remains in pre-verbal position. Post-verbal position is ungrammatical. Emphatic or evidential clitics can be attached to it, as in (5) and (7b). In addition, a demonstrative can cliticize to the negative particle; this often seems to occur when evidential clitics are present, and the demonstrative follows the evidential, as in (7b). The negator *ka'ap* also occurs with the particle *jëk* 'already' to express a meaning of 'not anymore', as in (8b) and (9b).

(7) a. *yë'ë pëtsë'ëmp.*
yë'ë ø-pëtsë'ëmp-p
DEM 3S.IND-go-ASP.IND
'She is going out.'

b. *ka'apëkjä'ä ma pyëtsiimp.*
ka'ap=ëk=jä'ä ma y-pëtsiimp
NEG=EVID=DEM there 3S.DEP-go.DEP
'She is not going out.'

(8) a. *jak kääpy.*
jak ø-kääy-p
still 3S.IND-eat-ASP.IND
'He is still eating.'

b. *ka'apëk tkaanyë.*
ka'ap=jëk t-kaay-në
NEG=already 3A.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
'He is not eating anymore.'

(9) a. *miimpëk jä'ä mo'kx.*
ø-miim-p=jëk jä'ä mo'kx
3S.IND-come-ASP.IND=already DEM opossum
'The opossum was already coming.'

b. *ka'apëk jä'ä mo'kx jëkmyinnë.*
ka'ap=jëk jä'ä mo'kx jëk=y-min-në
NEG-already DEM opossum already=3S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
'The opossum wasn't coming anymore.'

Chuxnabán Mixe further has a negative verbal prefix *ka'-* that occurs occasionally in standard negation, as in (10) and (11). It is significantly less frequent than the negative particle *ka'ap* in the data and mostly occurs in non-standard negation in combination with other negative markers (see §3.2). Note that the verbal prefix *ka'-* does not provoke the dependent paradigm. In (10a) and (10b), the dependent marking is triggered by the presence of the subordinator *ko* 'since';[1] in (11a), dependent paradigm appears due to the presence of the preverbal particle *nii.*

(10) a. *ko jëtu'un ja ja'ay ntaa'oyëtë.*
ko jëtu'un ja ja'ay t-naa-'oyë-të
since so DEM people 3A.DEP-CAUS-fix-PL
'Since the people fixed it.'

b. *ko jëtu'un ja ja'ay tka'ja'oyëtë.*
ko jëtu'un ja ja'ay t-**ka'**-ja-'ooyë-të
since so DEM people 3A.DEP-NEG-CAUS-fix-PL
'Since the people didn't fix it.'

[1] *Ko* is a multifunctional subordinator stemming from Spanish *como* 'since' and Spanish *que* 'that'. It is used frequently in narratives and conversations as follows: as a relative pronoun 'that' (the same as Spanish *que*), as a subordinating complementizer 'that' (the same as Spanish *que*), as a subordinating conjunction for adverbial clauses (temporal 'when'; reason "because, since"; condition 'if'; purpose 'so that'), and as an interrogative adverb 'how, why'.

(11) a. *yaakëëjxpy iich ja kääky.*
y-yaa-këëjxpy iich ja kääky
3A.IND-CAUS-end PST DEM tortilla
'They finished the tortilla.'

b. *nii yë'ë tkajakëxy ja kääky.*
nii yë'ë t-**ka**'-ja-këxy ja kääky
PST DEM 3A.DEP-NEG-CAUS-end DEM tortilla
'They didn't finish the tortilla.'

The negative particle and the negative prefix likely derive from the same proto-form and possibly represent different stages in the grammaticalization cycle. Wichmann (1995: 573) reconstructs a proto-Mixean particle **ka:h* for 'no' and a proto-Oaxaca-Mixean particle **kah* with loss of vowel length. It could be speculated that an emphatic form of the negative marker (i.e. *ka'ap*) was used in addition to the original negator and then started to take over (see Van Gelderen 2016). It is also possible that *ka'ap* is the result of univerbation or clitizing of the original negator *ka'-* with an adverbial that triggers dependent marking, since *ka'ap* prompts the dependent paradigm while *ka'-* does not. Now the new negator *(ka'ap)* is taking over, and the old negator (*ka'-)* is used mostly in sentences with constituent negation (see §3.2).

The prefix *ka'-* can also be identified in contructions with *nëm* 'still' yielding a 'not yet' translation, as in (12b), most likely as a lexicalized form.

(12) a. *tëës nkay.*
tëe=ës n-kay-y
before.now=1.EMPH 1S.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
'I have already eaten.'

b. *ka'anëmës nkay.*
ka'a=nëm=ës n-kay-y
NEG-still-1.EMPH 1S.DEP-eat-ASP.DEP
'I haven't eaten yet.'

Similar forms are common in Mixean languages. In fact, Wichmann (1995: 342) proposes a proto-Oaxaca Mixean form **ka'h-näm* for "not yet".

In fast-paced speech, the negative particle *ka'ap* can surface as *ka'a*, occasionally turning into a proclitic *ka'=*, as in (13).

(13) a. *miijts ka'mnëëkx.*
miijts **ka'**=m-nëëkx
2SG NEG=2S-go.DEP
'You didn't go.'

b. *miijts ka'mkay.*
miijts **ka'**=m-kay-y
2SG NEG=2S-eat-ASP.DEP
'You don't eat.'

The ordering of morphemes in the predicate is different in (13) from the previous examples. While the person marker occupies the first slot in the verb template, as in (10) and (11), in (13a) and (13b), the negative marker *ka'=* takes that position, thus clearly distinguishing itself from the prefix. The proclitic seems to be an innovation.

A native speaker confirmed in elicitation sessions that the verb may carry the negative prefix *ka'-* instead of or in addition to the negative particle *ka'ap*, as in (14). Having both markers present as negative concord (Hoekesema 2016) or double negation (Dryer 2005) is therefore grammatical, although it does not occur very often in the data. However, negative concord is the norm with constituent negation (see §3.2).

(14) *niimääjtsk tää ka'ap yë'ë tka'atsu'tsnëtë.*
nii-määjtsk tää **ka'ap** yë'ë t-**ka'**-atsu'tsn-ë-të
AN-two then NEG DEM 3A.DEP-NEG-eat-INV-PL
'[…] then he didn't eat the two […]'

While there do not seem to be any restrictions in the use of the negative particle *ka'ap*, Romero-Méndez (2009: 453) discusses constraints to the use of the negative prefix *ka'-* in Ayutla Mixe. He shows that its use as a sole negator is restricted to clauses where only the subject is overtly expressed, as opposed to the subject and an object. The same holds true for Chuxnabán Mixe, as shown in (15). The negative prefx *ka'-* can be an additional negator to the negative particle *ka'ap* in clauses where subject and object are overtly expressed (15a), but it is ungrammatical as the sole negator in such clauses (15c). The negative particle *ka'ap*, however, can still be used as the sole negator (15b).

(15) a. *Juank ka'ap ja kääky tka'kay.*
Juank **ka'ap** ja kääky t-**ka'**-kay
Juan NEG DEM tortilla 3A.DEP-NEG-eat.DEP
'Juan doesn't eat tortilla.'

b. *Juank ka'ap ja kääky tkay.*
Juank **ka'ap** ja kääky t-kay
Juan NEG DEM tortilla 3A.DEP-eat.DEP
'Juan doesn't eat tortilla.'

c. * *Juank ja kääky tka'kay.*
Juank ja kääky t-**ka**'-kay
Juan DEM tortilla 3A.DEP-NEG-eat.DEP
'Juan doesn't eat tortilla.'

Romero-Méndez (2009: 453) states that the same restriction applies to locative phrases in clauses with motion verbs, thus extending this limitation to non-core arguments and adjuncts. A similar restriction does not apply in Chuxnabán Mixe. In (16) the single negator can be either the negative particle *ka'ap* or the verbal prefix *ka'*-.

(16) a. *yë'ë **ka**'nëëkxp kyamoch.*
yë'ë ø-**ka**'-nëëkx-p y-kam-och
DEM 3S.IND-NEG-go-ASP.IND 3POSS-field-LOC
'He is not going to his field.'

b. *yë'ë **ka'ap** nyiikx kyamoch.*
yë'ë **ka'ap** y-niikx-y y-kam-och
DEM NEG 3S.DEP-go-ASP.DEP 3POSS-field-LOC
'He is not going to his field.'

Other occurrence or co-occurrence restrictions have not been identified for standard negation. The presence of the negative particle, but not the negative prefix, triggers dependent inflection on the predicate. As a result, the structure of the negative clause differs from the affirmative in these instances (cf. asymmetric negation following Miestamo 2005, 2007). However, if the negative prefix *ka'*-acts as the sole negator, the structure stays the same (cf. symmetric negation following Miestamo 2005, 2007).

2.1.1 Constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries

Following Miestamo (2005, 2007, 2009, 2014, 2017), negative constructions can be categorized into symmetric and asymmetric negation by examining the structural differences between negative and corresponding affirmative clauses. Chuxnabán Mixe generally belongs to the category of languages with partial asymmetric negation, given that the most frequent negative marker *ka'ap* is not simply added to a corresponding positive clause. There can be several accompanying constructional differences, i.e. different sets of verbal affixes related to the dependent paradigms. As with other Mixean languages (see Romero-Méndez 2009), in Chuxnabán Mixe predicates in a clause are treated as either independent or dependent, each with its own set of inflectional person indexes, verb stems, and aspectual/mood suffixes. However, dependent paradigms do not specifically relate to negation. Dependency is triggered if a non-core constituent, such as an adverb, a temporal or locative particle, or the negative particle *ka'ap*, precedes the predicate. The distinction between dependent and independent constructions with the negator *ka'ap* is shown in (17).

(17) a. Independent
maatsyüüjchpy.
m-yaa-tsyüüjch-**py**
2A.IND-CAUS-hurt-ASP.IND
'You hurt him.'

b. Dependent
ka'ap xyaatsyüch.
ka'ap x-yaa-tsyüts-**y**
NEG 2A.DEP-CAUS-hurt-ASP.DEP
'You don't hurt him.'

But a temporal particle preceding the predicate, for instance, also triggers dependent marking in an affirmative clause. Therefore, if we negate such an affirmative clause, we find symmetry between the affirmative and the negative, as in (18).

(18) a. Dependent
oojts tiij tuny.
oojts tiij t-tun-y
PST something 3A.DEP-do-ASP.DEP
'He did something.'

b. Dependent
ka'ap oojts tiij tuny.
ka'ap oojts tiij t-tun-y
NEG PST something 3A.DEP-do-ASP.DEP
'He didn't do anything.'

In clauses with the negative prefix *ka'-* as the sole negator, dependent marking does not occur (unless it is prompted by some other element), given that the prefix is part of the predicate and thus not a separate constituent preceding the predicate, as in (19) and (20).

(19) *pën kyamëëmëto'opy ja myaestrë?*
pën **y-ka**'-yaa-mëëmëto'o-**py** ja y-maestrë
who **3A.IND**-NEG-CAUS-obey-**ASP.IND** DEM 3POSS-teacher
'Who doesn't obey his/her teacher?'

(20) *yë'ë ka'nëëkxp kyamoch.*
yë'ë **ø-ka**'-nëëkx-**p** y-kam-och
DEM **3S.IND**-NEG-go-**ASP.IND** 3POSS-field-LOC
'He is not going to his field.'

In addition to a special set of person prefixes and aspect/mood suffixes, predicates show stem variations in dependent and independent inflections, as in (16). Since the predicates in negative clauses are most often inflected as dependent, negative clauses exhibit the following derived asymmetries to corresponding affirmative clauses that are inflected as independent (21).

(21) Properties of negative clauses in dependent inflection
- Separate set of person prefixes (dependent person prefixes)
- Separate set of aspect/mood suffixes (for neutral, completive, and irrealis)
- Different verb stem

Given that these properties are associated with dependent marking and not specifically with negation, they are derived asymmetries and not considered asymmetries of the subtype A/Cat (Miestamo 2013a) that involve changes in the marking of tense, aspect, mood, person, or any (other) verbal categories etc. Rather, there is partial asymmetry in standard negation, depending on all constituents in a clause.

In addition to constructional asymmetries, a language may also display paradigmatic asymmetries (Miestamo 2005, 2007, 2009, 2014, 2017) whereby some grammatical categories are not available in negatives. No such restrictions are found for standard negation in Chuxnabán Mixe. Negatives clauses can occur with any aspect or tense markers.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Negation in non-declarative clauses, such as imperatives and interrogatives, often exhibits special forms not found in standard negation. This section examines prohibitives and negation in interrogatives.

2.2.1 Negative imperatives

In Chuxnabán Mixe, there are multiple ways of expressing prohibitives. Generally, they are formed with a special negative particle *këtii* (or its shortened form *kii*) preceding the negated verb, and the latter may optionally be marked with the irrealis enclitic *=ëch*, as in (24) and (25). This strategy differs from standard negation and thus represents the first type of asymmetry identified. It also differs from affirmative imperatives which are formed by using the bare stem, except in clauses with a first person undergoer. The first person undergoer is marked in both affirmative and negative imperatives as an emphatic enclitic *=ës*, shown in (24) and (25). In prohibitives, the predicate also takes person prefixes, while there are no person markers in positive imperatives. Plural marking occurs in both, but in prohibitives it is omitted if the irrealis is present, as in (25). The positive counterparts in the examples below were obtained through elicitation (22a, 23a, 24a, 25a), while the prohibitive examples stem from narratives or conversations (22b, 23b, 24b, 25b).

(22) a. *tsë'ëkë!*
tsë'ëkë
be.afraid
'Be afraid!' (SG)

b. *kii mtsë'ëkë!*
kii m-tsë'ëkë
NEG.IMP 2S.DEP-be.afraid
'Don't be afraid!' (SG)

(23) a. *tsë'ëkëtë!*
tsë'ëkë-të
be.afraid-PL
'Be afraid!' (PL)

b. *këtii mëtsë'ëkëtë!*
këtii m-tsë'ëkë-të
NEG.IMP 2S.DEP-be.afraid-PL
'Don't be afraid!' (PL)

(24) a. *tukpaat mtëts!*
tukpaat m-tëts
touch 2POSS-tooth
'Touch me with your tooth!' (SG)

b. *kiis* *mtëts* *xukpaatëch!*
kii=s m-tëts x-tukpaat=**ëch**
NEG.IMP=1.EMPH 2POSS-tooth 1P.DEP-touch=IRR
'Don't touch me with your tooth!' (SG)

(25) a. *tukpa'tëtës* *mtëts!*
tukpa'të-të=ës m-tëts
touch-PL=1.EMPH 2POSS-tooth
'Touch me with your tooth!' (PL)

b. *kiis* *xukpaatëch* *mtëts!*
kii=s x-tukpaat=**ëch** m-tëts
NEG.IMP=1.EMPH 1P.DEP-touch=IRR 2POSS-tooth
'Don't touch me with your tooth!' (PL)

The special prohibitive negator always occurs clause-initially in the data; however, it is possible to have adverbs such as *cham* 'now' or *yaa* 'here' preceding it. There is a difference between second person singular prohibitive and second person plural prohibitive; in the latter, a plural suffix *-të* is added, as in (23). In general, the verb takes the same person prefixes as in standard negation and in affirmative declaratives. The pattern follows the independent/dependent distinction outlined in §1.1. Given that in prohibitives there is a negative particle preceding the predicate at all times, the person prefixes on the verb, as well as as the aspect/mood suffixes, always follow dependent inflection. The ambiguity from having the same form for the person indexes for 2A and 1P in the dependent set (i.e. *x-*) is settled by having an obligatory first person undergoer enclitic, if applicable, as in (26). While the first-person enclitic is used optionally for emphasis in other types of clauses, it is obligatory in prohibitives.

(26) a. *këtiis* *xkyöx!*
këtii=**s** **x**-kyöx
NEG.IMP=**1** **1P**-hit
'Don't hit me!'

b. *këtii* *xkyöx!*
këtii **x**-kyöx
NEG.IMP **2A**-hit
'Don't hit him!'

As mentioned above, the irrealis enclitic *=ëch* is optional in these prohibitive constructions, as in (27a) and (28a). The presence of the irrealis is accompanied by a change in the verb stem.

(27) a. *këtiis xkyoxëch!*
këtii=s x-**kyox=ëch**
neg.imp=1 1p.dep-hit=irr
'Don't hit me!'

b. *këtiis xkyöx!*
këtii=s x-**kyöx**
neg.imp=1 1p.dep-hit
'Don't hit me!'

(28) a. *këtii mkë'ë xpyujëch!*
këtii m-kë'ë x-**pyuj=ëch**
neg.imp 2poss-hand 2a.dep-wash=irr
'Don't wash your hands!'

b. *këtii mkë'ë xpyüüj!*
këtii m-kë'ë x-**pyüüj**
neg.imp 2poss-hand 2a.dep-wash
'Don't wash your hands!'

In some clauses with other negative particles, such as *niika'ana* 'never' or *niimaa* 'nowhere', the prohibitive particle *këtii* cannot be used. This occurs because no other negative particle can precede the prohibitive *këtii*, but it can follow it, as in (30a) and (30b). The prohibitive particle can also be omitted, but in these cases the negative prefix *ka'-* is obligatorily added to the predicate, as well as the irrealis *=ëch*, as in (29a). The irrealis then is the only marker signaling a prohibitive meaning, as in (31a). The irrealis is never used in positive imperatives.

(29) a. *niika'na'as xkya'mëkaajpxëch!*
niika'na'a=s x-**ka'**-mëkaajpx=**ëch**
never=1 1p.dep-**neg**-talk=**irr**
'Never talk to me!'

b. * *niika'na'as kii/këtii xkya'mëkaajpxëch!*
niika'na'a=s kii/këtii x-ka'-mëkaajpx=ëch
never=1 neg.imp 1p.dep-neg-talk=irr
'Never talk to me!'

(30) a. *kiis xkyoxëch niika'na'a!*
kii=s x-kyox=ëch **niika'na'a**
neg.imp=1 1p.dep-hit=irr **never**
'Never hit me!'

b. *kiis* ***niika'na'a*** *xkyoxëch!*
kii=s **niika'na'a** x-kyox=ëch
NEG.IMP=1 **never** 1P.DEP-hit=IRR
'Never hit me!'

c. * *niika'na'a kiis xkyoxëch!*
niika'na'a kii=s x-kyox=ëch
never NEG.IMP=1 1P.DEP-hit=IRR
'Never hit me!'

(31) a. *niimaa mka'në'ëkxëch!*
niimaa m-**ka**'-në'ëkx=**ëch**
nowhere 2S-NEG-go=IRR
'Don't go anywhere!'

b. ***niimaa*** *m**ka**'nëëkx.*
niimaa m-**ka**'-nëëkx
nowhere 2S-NEG-go
'You are not going anywhere.'

A single negative particle cannot be used for multiple prohibitives; rather, each verb must be negated separately, as in (32).

(32) a. *kii mtsë'ëkëtë! kii maychë mtaajtë!*
kii m-tsë'ëkë-të **kii** maychë m-taaj-të
NEG.IMP 2S.DEP-be.afraid-PL NEG.IMP much 2S.DEP-think-PL
'Don't be afraid! Don't worry (too) much!' (PL)

b. *kiis mtëts xchukpaatëch! kiis*
kii=s m-tëts x-chukpaat=ëch **kii=s**
NEG.IMP=1 2POSS-tooth 1P.DEP-touch=IRR NEG.IMP=1
xpyü'ookëch!
x-pyü'ook=ëch
2A.DEP-chew=IRR
'[Swallow me entirely!] Don't touch me with your tooth! Don't chew me!'

Following van der Auwera & Lejeune's (2013) distinction of four types of languages with regard to the marking of prohibitives, Chuxnabán Mixe falls under Types III and IV, which include prohibitives with a verbal construction different from the second person singular imperative and a negation strategy identical (Type III) or different (Type IV) from standard negation. Based on Miestamo

& van der Auwera (2007), various asymmetries can be identified in Chuxnabán Mixe prohibitive constructions. Asymmetries referring to differences in negation strategies between declaratives and imperatives include the special prohibitive *kii/këtii* and the irrealis *=ëch*, the latter being obligatory only in clauses without the prohibitive particle *kii/këtii*. The second type of asymmetry comprises differences in the verbal constructions used in positive and negative imperatives. Positive imperatives are formed by using the bare verb stem. The only marking the predicate can take in these constructions is the plural suffix and the first-person enclitic, while prohibitives take person and aspect markers following the same patterns as declaratives, in addition to the obligatory first person undergoer enclitic. To complicate matters further, Chuxnabán Mixe allows another strategy to form prohibitives, like the negation strategy used in declaratives. In addition to constructions with *kii/këtii*, prohibitives can be formed using the negator *ka'ap* and the irrealis *=ëch*, as in (33a) and (34a). In these instances, the irrealis is obligatory.

(33) a. *ka'ap mintëch!*
ka'ap m-min-të=**ëch**
NEG 2S.DEP-come-PL=IRR
'Don't come!'

b. *këtii mintëch!*
këtii m-min-të(=**ëch**)
NEG.IMP 2S.DEP-come-PL(=IRR)
'Don't come!'

c. *ka'ap mintë.*
ka'ap m-min-të
NEG 2S.DEP-come-PL
'They are not coming.'

(34) a. *ka'apës xchë'ëkëch!*
ka'ap=ës x-chë'ëk=**ëch**
NEG=1.EMPH 1P.DEP-afraid=IRR
'Don't be afraid of me!'

b. *këtiis xchë'ëkëch!*
këtii=s x-chë'ëk(=ëch)
NEG.IMP=1 1P.DEP-afraid(=IRR)
'Don't be afraid of me!'

c. *ka'apës* *xchë'ëkë.*
ka'ap=ës x-chë'ëkë
NEG=1.EMPH 1P.DEP-afraid
'You are not afraid of me.'

(33) and (34) illustrate the two strategies used in prohibitives, as well as the structural difference between prohibitives with *këtii* in (33b) and (34b), prohibitives with *ka'ap* in (33a) and (34a), and standard negation with *ka'ap* in (33c) and (34c). Table 4 summarizes the strategies used for imperatives and prohibitives in Chuxnabán Mixe.

Table 4: Summary of imperative and prohibitive strategies. 1U=first person undergoer.

	Bare stem	Person prefix	1U	*këtii*	*ka'ap*	Other negator (e.g. 'never')	*ka'-*	IRR	SG/PL ø/*-të*
Imperative	x		x						x
Prohibitive		x	x	x		(x)		(x)	(x)
Prohibitive		x	x			x	x	x	
Prohibitive		x	x	x		x		(x)	(x)
Prohibitive		x	x		x			x	

While the strategy used to form positive imperatives is very similar to the one found in the closely related Ayutla Mixe, the strategies used to form prohibitives are very distinct. Ayutla Mixe exhibits no special negation strategy for prohibitives (Romero-Méndez 2009: 307). In fact, the same negative particle as in standard negation is used with an irrealis marker, like the strategy with *ka'ap* in Chuxnabán Mixe. In the related Sierra Popoluca, there is a special negator for prohibitives and optatives (Boudreault 2018). The prohibitive particle in Chuxnabán Mixe appears also in other constructions, such as negative polar questions and tag questions, discussed in §2.2.2, and in clauses with 'neither', covered in §4.5.

2.2.2 Questions and answers

This section covers only polar questions. Negative interrogatives are formed using one of two different strategies. In naturally occurring data, the negative particle *ka'ap* is used most often, the same as in standard negation and the negative existential, as in (35a). It is also possible to have the negative prefix *ka'-*, as in standard negation (36).

(35) a. *ka'apap pënë?*
ka'ap jap pën-ë
NEG there someone-Q
'Isn't s/he here?'

b. *ka'ap jap pën.*
NEG there someone
'Nobody is here.' = 'There isn't anyone.'

c. *täp jä'ä.*
EX DEM
'Yes, s/he is here.'

(36) *jamp tii xkya'oyjaawë?*
jamp tii x-**ka**'-yaa'-oyjaaw-ë
there what 2A.DEP-NEG-CAUS-feel.good-Q
'Is there anything that doesn't make you feel good?'

Another strategy in negative polar questions is to use *kii/këtii*, the same particle found in prohibitives. As with prohibitives, *kii* is the shortened form of *këtii*, and the two can be used interchangeably. The only difference between a standard negation and the negative interrogative is the choice of the respective particle, as can be seen comparing (37c) and (37d). There is no formal distinction between the prohibitive and the negative interrogative, as in (37d).

(37) a. *këtii iich miny?*
këtii iich m-miny-y
NEG PST 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
'You didn't come?'

b. *këtii miny?*
këtii m-miny-y
NEG 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
'You are not coming?'

c. *ka'ap miny.*
ka'ap m-miny-y
NEG 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
'You are not coming.'

d. *kii miny!*
kii m-miny-y
NEG 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
'Don't come!' = 'You are not coming?'

The same construction occurs in non-verbal negative interrogatives and in negative existential questions, as in (38–40).

(38) a. *kii iich ja tëëjk chapsëch?*
kii iich ja tëëjk y-tsaps=ëch
NEG PST DEM house 3S.DEP-red=IRR
'Wasn't the house red?'

b. *tsaps iich ja tëëjkë?*
ø-tsaps iich ja tëëjk-ë
3S.IND-red PST DEM house-Q
'Was the house red?'

(39) *kii tii?*
kii tii
NEG what
'Isn't there anything?'

(40) *kii jap pën?*
kii jap pën
NEG there someone
'Isn't s/he (here)?'

In addition, the same negative particle is used in tag questions. The tag question is added to a statement to request a confirmation or disconfirmation of the statement made. In many languages tag questions can consist of a positive or a negative. In Chuxnabán Mixe, it is the negative (41, 42).

(41) *xiipë camepsinë i'ta'any, këtiijë pa'ch?*
xiipë camepsinë i'ta'any **këtii=jë'ë** pa'ch
this.one farmer will.be NEG=DEM buddy
'This one (Salvador) will be a farmer, right buddy?'

(42) *jä'ä ko tëë niiwimpi'të, këtii?*
jä'ä ko tëë y-niiwimpi'të **këtii**
DEM because before.now 3S.DEP-repeat NEG
'Because he repeated (the school year), right?'

In tag questions, the negative particle always appears clause-finally, unlike in negative interrogatives and prohibitives. As a result, it can be easily distinguished from its other uses.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

This section examines negation strategies in non-verbal clauses, including the following clause types: equation, proper inclusion, attribution, locative predication, possessive predication, and existential predication, following Payne (1997: 111–128) and Veselinova (2014). There are several different strategies in Chuxnabán Mixe to form these types of clauses in the affirmative and the negative, including juxtaposition, a verbalizer copula, and an existential copula. For some of the clause types, there are multiple negation strategies. Negation strategies in equation and attribution overlap, as well as in locative and existential predication.

2.3.1 Equative predication (predicate nominals)

Equative constructions refer to sentences where two entities are equated with each other. In Chuxnabán Mixe, equative predication the subject and the non-verbal predicate are juxtaposed with no copula present. In the negative, the negative particle *ka'ap* is added before the non-verbal predicate, and the non-verbal constituent takes a person marker and the irrealis enclitic *=ëch*, as in (43–45). This is the equivalent of the A/NonReal asymmetry identified by Miestamo (2013b: 296–297) for standard negation, but in non-standard negation here.

(43) a. *yë'ë to'oxychëëjk yë'ë maestrë.*
yë'ë to'oxychëëjk yë'ë maestrë
DEM woman DEM teacher
'This woman is the teacher.'

b. *yë'ë to'oxychëëjk ka'ap yë'ëch maestrë.*
yë'ë to'oxychëëjk **ka'ap y**-yë'ë=**ëch** maestrë
DEM woman **NEG 3S**.DEP-DEM=**IRR** teacher
'This woman is not the teacher.'

(44) a. *ëëjts mëëtëkëëk.*
ëëjts mëëtëkëëk
1SG third
'I am the third one.'

b. *ka'apës ëëjts nmëëtëkëëkëch.*
ka'ap=ës ëëjts **n**-mëëtëkëëk=**ëch**
NEG=1.EMPH 1SG 1S.DEP-third=IRR
'I am not the third one.'

(45) a. *chaapë may jyä'äxë'ë.*
chaapë may jyä'äxë'ë
this much wood
'This is a lot of wood.'

b. *chaapë ka'ap myäy jyä'äxëch.*
chaapë **ka'ap** **y**-may jyä'äx=**ëch**
this NEG 3S.DEP-much wood=IRR
'This is not a lot of wood.'

The person marker is always prefixed to the first constituent of the noun phrase or adjectival phrase that functions as the predicate, while the irrealis enclitic can be attached to either constituent. Although the word order in these clauses cannot be changed, the two constituents in equation can generally be switched. This negation strategy is like the one found in Ayutla Mixe in clauses with adjectival or nominal predicates (Romero-Méndez 2009: 408). Romero-Méndez (2009: 418) states, however, that negative equative sentences in Ayutla Mixe differ from other types of non-verbal predication in that there is no person marker and the predicate takes the suffix *-ëp*. He clarifies that only sentences in which there are two referential full noun phrases behave like that. This special negation strategy has not been identified in Chuxnabán Mixe.

However, there is a second type of construction in equative clauses, seen in (46–48). It involves a verbalizer attached to the predicate in both the negative and the corresponding affirmative clause. The verbalizer has different shapes in the affirmative and the negative, and it takes aspect suffixes and the plural suffix. The verbalized predicate is inflected for person.

(46) a. *yë'ës ntaajk'aajchpy.*
yë'ë=s n-taajk-'aajch-p
DEM=1.EMPH 1POSS-mother-VBZ-ASP.IND
'She is my mother.'

b. *ka'apës yë'ë ntaajk'achy.*
ka'ap=ës yë'ë **n**-n-taajk-'**ach**-y
NEG=1.EMPH DEM 1A.DEP-1POSS-mother-VBZ-ASP.DEP
'She is not my mother.'

(47) a. *chääpë yë'ë ntëëjk'aa'täämpy.*
chääpë yë'ë n-tëëjk-'aa'tääm-p
this DEM 1POSS-house-VBZ-ASP.IND
'This is going to be my house.'

b. *chääpë ka'ap yë'ë xchëëjk'aa'ta'antë.*
chääpë **ka'ap** yë'ë **x**-y-tëëjk-'aa'ta'antë
this **NEG** DEM **1P.DEP**-1POSS-house-**VBZ**
'This is not going to be my house.'

(48) a. *chääpëch yë'ë chuump'aajtëp.*
chääpëch yë'ë y-tuump-'aajt-të-p
these DEM 3POSS-worker-VBZ-PL-ASP.IND
'These are his workers.'

b. *chääpëch ka'ap yë'ë tuump'a'të.*
chääpëch **ka'ap** yë'ë **t**-tuump-'**a't**-të
these **NEG** DEM **3A.DEP**-worker-**VBZ**-PL
'These are not his workers.'

It must be noted that all the equated clauses in (46–48) contain a demonstrative and a possessed element. The verbalizer takes different shapes in the present, past, and future tense, as well as in the affirmative and the negative, possibly related to verbal stem apophony, as with lexical verbs. The forms are shown in Table 5.

Table 5: Summary of verbalizer forms in equative clauses

	Affirmative SG	Affirmative PL	Negative SG	Negative PL
Present/Past	*-'aajch*	*-'aajt*	*-'ach*	*-'a't*
Future	*-'aa'täämp*	*-'aa'täämp*	*-'aa'ta'antë*	*-'aa'ta'antë*

The verbalized forms can take plural and aspect marking in both the affirmative and the negative. Negative constructions include the negative particle *ka'ap* and the person prefixes from the dependent set on the verbalized element. Both negation strategies used in equative clauses are also found in attributive clauses with adjectival predicates.

2.3.2 Attribution (adjectival predicates)

Attribution refers to clauses with an adjectival predicate where the predicate represents a stable quality or a temporary state (Hengeveld 1992). Following Payne (1997: 120), attributive clauses usually exhibit identical or similar structures to that of predicate nominal clauses. This is also true for Chuxnabán Mixe. The same two negation strategies presented in the previous section occur in these types of clauses (49–52).

(49) a. *yë'ë 'uk awa'an.*
yë'ë 'uk awa'an
DEM dog wild
'The dog is wild.'

b. *'uk ka'ap y'awa'anëch.*
'uk **ka'ap** **y**-'awa'an=**ëch**
dog **NEG** **3S.DEP**-wild=**IRR**
'The dog is not wild.'

(50) a. *Juank yë'ë iich wij.*
Juank yë'ë iich wij
Juank DEM PST intelligent
'Juan was intelligent.'

b. *Juank ka'ap iich wyijëch.*
Juank **ka'ap** iich **y**-wij=**ëch**
Juank **NEG** PST **3S.DEP**-intelligent=**IRR**
'Juan was not intelligent.'

(51) a. *pejyës ëëjts.*
pejy=ës ëëjts
skinny=1.EMPH 1SG
'I am skinny.'

b. *ka'apës (ëëjts) npejëch.*
ka'ap=ës (ëëjts) **n**-pej=**ëch**
NEG=1.EMPH (1SG) **1S.DEP**-skinny=**IRR**
'I am not skinny.'

(52) a. *Juank wij i'tä'äny.*
Juank wij i'tä'äny
Juank intelligent FUT
'Juan is going to be intelligent.'

b. *Juank ka'ap wij i'tä'äny.*
Juank **ka'ap** wij **i'tä'äny**
Juank NEG intelligent FUT
'Juan is not going to be intelligent.'

Like equative clauses, attributive clauses can be formed with a verbalizer. The future tense, however, exhibits a slightly different structure: clauses include a future marker *i'tä'äny* in both the affirmative and the negative. The only difference in the negative is the presence of the negative particle *ka'ap*. The latter strategy parallels the one in existentials.

2.3.3 Proper inclusion (predicate nominals)

Proper inclusion refers to clauses with a nominal predicate where the predicate is included in a certain class (Veselinova 2013). More specifically, these are clauses in which "a specific entity is asserted to be among the class of items specified in the nominal predicate" (Payne 1997: 114). The negation strategy used in these types of clauses includes the negative particle preceding the predicate, in addition to the predicate taking person prefixes from the dependent set. The verbalized predicate further takes tense and aspect suffixes in the affirmative and the negative, following the sets for the independent and dependent inflection. This negation strategy is identical to the one in equative and attributive clauses except for the absence of the irrealis *=ëch* (53–55).

(53) a. *Juank yë'ë (tu'uk) mëëtuumpë.*
Juank yë'ë (tu'uk) mëëtuum-pë
Juank DEM (one) worker-VBZ
'Juan is a worker.'

b. *Juank ka'ap yë'ë myëëtuny.*
Juank **ka'ap** yë'ë **y**-mëëtun-y
Juank NEG DEM **3S.DEP**-worker-ASP.DEP
'Juan is not a worker.'

(54) a. *Juank mëëtuump iich.*
Juank mëëtuum-pë iich
Juank worker-VBZ PST
'Juan was a worker.'

b. *Juank ka'ap iich myëëtuny.*
Juank **ka'ap** iich **y**-mëëtun-y
Juank NEG PST 3S.DEP-worker-ASP.DEP
'Juan was not a worker.'

(55) a. *Juank yë'ë mëëtun'aamp.*
Juank yë'ë mëëtun-'aamp
Juank DEM worker-FUT.IND
'Juan is going to be a worker.'

b. *Juank ka'ap myëëtun'a'any.*
Juank **ka'ap y**-mëëtun-'a'any
Juank NEG 3S.DEP-worker-FUT.DEP
'Juan is not going to be a worker.'

So far, I have described negation in ascriptive clauses. Veselinova (2013) states that the negation strategies used in ascriptive and existential predication may overlap. The following section examines negation in existential predication.

2.3.4 Existential predication

Existential clauses state the plain existence of an object, and negative existentials often display nonstandard strategies for negation. In Chuxnabán Mixe, negative existentials are formed using the negative existential *ka'ap*, which is the negative particle used in standard negation. In the affirmative, existential clauses are formed with the existential *täp* in the present and past tense, as in (56–58). Adding a location to the clause does not change this structure, as in (57). In the negative, the negative existential *ka'ap* replaces the positive existential (see Veselinova 2013, 2016) and a pronoun *tii* 'what, something' is added, except in the future. The pronoun cannot be omitted in the present and past tense. The future exhibits a different existential: *i'taamp/i'tantëp* for singular and plural, respectively, and the negative existential *ka'ap* is also formed differently in that it does not simply substitute the positive existential but rather appears in addition to a form of the future existential, as in (59) and (60).

(56) a. *täp kwee.*
täp kwee
EX coffee
'There's coffee.'

b. *ka'ap tii kwee.*
ka'ap tii kwee
NEG what coffee
'There isn't any coffee.'

(57) a. *täp kwee kamoch.*
täp kwee kam-och
EX coffee field-LOC
'There's coffee in the field.'

b. *ka'ap tii kwee kamoch.*
ka'ap tii kwee kam-och
NEG what coffee field-LOC
'There isn't any coffee in the field.'

(58) a. *täp iich kwee.*
täp iich kwee
EX PST coffee
'There was coffee.'

b. *ka'ap iich tii kwee.*
ka'ap iich tii kwee
NEG PST what coffee
'There wasn't any coffee.'

(59) a. *i'taamp kwee.*
i'taamp kwee
EX.FUT coffee
'There will be coffee.'

b. *ka'ap i'ta'any kwee.*
ka'ap i'ta'any kwee
NEG EX.FUT coffee
'There won't be any coffee.'

(60) a. *i'tantëp may tuumpëch.*
i'tantëp may tuump-ëch
EX.FUT.PL lots worker-PL
'There will be lots of workers.'

b. *ka'ap i'ta'antë may tuumpëch.*
ka'ap i'ta'antë may tuump-ëch
NEG EX.FUT.PL lots worker-PL
'There won't be lots of workers.'

Following Croft (1991) who identifies three types of languages based on the relationship between the verbal negator and the negative existential, Chuxnabán Mixe fits best into type C, as the negative existential has taken over verbal negation, but the negative constructions used for verbal and for existential predications are completely different. Table 6 summarizes the existential constructions.

Table 6: Affirmative and negative existentials

	Affirmative	Negative
Present	*täp* (+ location)	*ka'ap tii* (+ location)
Past	*täp iich* (+ location)	*ka'ap iich tii* (+ location)
Future	*i'taamp* (+ location) (SG)	*ka'ap i'ta'any* (+ location) (SG)
	i'tantëp (+ location) (PL)	*ka'ap i'ta'antë* (+ location) (PL)

Existential and negative existential clauses can also be formed in the same way as ascriptive clauses with a verbalizer, as in (62). Moreover, there is a third strategy involving an invariant verbalizing suffix *-pë* in both the affirmative and the negative, as in (61).

(61) a. *tää nentu'un to'oxychëëjkëch më'këchpyë.*
tää nentu'un to'oxychëëjk-ëch më'k-ëch-**pë**
EX like.that women-PL strong-PL-VBZ
'Like that, strong women exist.'

b. *ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychëëjkëch më'këchpyë.*
ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychëëjk-ëch më'k-ëch-**pë**
NEG like.that women-PL strong-PL-VBZ
'Like that, strong women don't exist.'

(62) a. *tää nentu'un to'oxychëëjkëch nti'ipë mëk'aajtëpën.*
tää nentu'un to'oxychëëjk-ëch nti'ipë mëk-'**aajt-të-pë**-n
EX like.that women-PL which strong-VBZ-PL-VBZ-ASP
'Like that, strong women exist.'

b. *ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychëëjkëch myëk'a'të.*
ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychëëjkëch **y**-mëk-**'a't**-të
NEG like.that women-PL 3S.DEP-strong-VBZ-PL
'Like that, strong women don't exist.'

(63) a. *ka'ap (tii) kwee pa'akpë.*
ka'ap (tii) kwee pa'ak-**pë**
NEG **what** coffee sweet-VBZ
'Sweet coffee doesn't exist.'

b. ≠ *ka'ap kwee pya'akëch.*
ka'ap kwee **y**-pa'ak-**ëch**
NEG coffee **3S.DEP**-sweet-PL
'The coffee isn't sweet.'

(64) a. *tää iich kwee pa'akpë.*
tää iich kwee pa'ak-**pë**
EX PST coffee sweet-VBZ
'Sweet coffee existed.'

b. *ka'ap iich (tii) kwee pa'akpë.*
ka'ap iich (tii) kwee pa'ak-**pë**
NEG PST **what** coffee sweet-VBZ
'Sweet coffee didn't exist.'

(65) a. *i'täämp kwee pa'akpë.*
i'täämp kwee pa'ak-**pë**
EX.FUT coffee sweet-VBZ
'Sweet coffee will exist.'

b. *ka'ap i'ta'any kwee pa'akpë.*
ka'ap i'ta'any kwee pa'ak-**pë**
NEG EX.FUT coffee sweet-VBZ
'Sweet coffee will not exist.'

As can be seen in (61) and (64), in clauses with the verbalizer *-pë* the negative existential is formed with the negative existential *ka'ap* replacing the positive existential *tää* in the present and past. In the future, the existential changes from *i'täämp* to *i'ta'any* in the negative, as in (65).

A yet different construction is consistently translated as a negative existential, although its literal meaning is 'little, hardly any'. While this would not be considered a true existential construction, it is worth noting.

(66) *amaay meeny amaay tiija'ch.*
amaay meeny **amaay tii'-a'ch**
little money **little** something-VBZ
'There was no money, there was nothing.'

(67) a. *may tiija'ch.*
may tii-'a'ch
lot something-VBZ
'There was something.'

b. *amaay tiija'ch.*
amaay tii-'a'ch
little something-VBZ
'There was nothing.'

In (66) and (67), the adjective *amaay* 'little' is translated as a negative existential. It can occur with the pronoun *tii* 'what, something', like the negative existential *ka'ap*. What is interesting is that the verbalizer *-'a'ch* in constructions with *amaay* has the same shape in both the affirmative and the negative, as in (67), unlike the verbalizer in ascriptive negatives. Further worth mentioning is the pair *may* 'a lot' and its antonym *amaay* 'a little'. It is possible that the initial vowel in *amaay* represents negative derivation. The vowel length of the second vowel in *amaay* could be a parallel development to the stem changes found in predicates.

2.3.5 Locative predication

Locative clauses include structures in which the predicate is a location (Payne 1997: 112). Following Veselinova (2013: 110), locative negation "refers to the negation strategy used in sentences with a locative predicate and a definite subject". These constructions often share features with existentials, but in addition to existence, they specify the location, as is the case in Chuxnabán Mixe. The affirmative includes the existential *täp/tämp* and a tense marker for the future. In addition, the locative can take optional or obligatory demonstratives or pronouns: *tii* 'what', *pën* 'someone', or *ma* 'where'. While the first two are generally optional, the latter is obligatory, as in (70). Moreover, the distal deictic *jap* 'there' can be clitized to the negative particle, as in (71). The distal deictic *jap* 'there' and the pronouns *pën* 'someone' and *tii* 'what' can be omitted (68, 69, 72).

(68) a. *yë'ë tuumpë tämp i'ta'any kamoch.*
yë'ë tuumpë tämp i'ta'any kam-och
DEM worker EX FUT field-LOC
'The worker will be in the field.'

b. *yë'ë tuumpë ka'ap i'ta'any kamoch.*
yë'ë tuumpë **ka'ap i'ta'any** kam-och
DEM worker **NEG FUT** field-LOC
'The worker won't be in the field.'

(69) a. *tämp tuumpëch i'ta'antë kamoch.*
tämp tuump-ëch i'ta'antë kam-och
EX worker-PL FUT field-LOC
'The workers will be in the field.'

b. *tuumpëch ka'ap i'ta'antë kamoch.*
tuumpëch **ka'ap i'ta'antë** kam-och
worker-PL **NEG FUT** field-LOC
'The workers won't be in the field.'

(70) a. *jä'ä mok täp i'ta'any ma mesën.*
jä'ä mok täp i'ta'any ma mes-ën
DEM corn EX FUT where table-LOC
'The corn will be on the table.'

b. *jä'ä mok ka'ap i'ta'any ma mesën.*
jä'ä mok **ka'ap i'ta'any** ma mes-ën
DEM corn **NEG FUT** where table-LOC
'The corn won't be on the table.'

(71) a. *yë'ë tuumpe täpjä'ä kamoch.*
yë'ë tuumpe täp=jä'ä kam-och
DEM worker EX=DEM field-LOC
'The worker is in the field.'

b. *yë'ë tuumpë ka'apap pën kamoch.*
yë'ë tuumpë **ka'ap=jap pën** kam-och
DEM worker **NEG=there someone** field-LOC
'The worker isn't in the field.'

(72) a. *jä'ä mok täp ma mesën.*
jä'ä mok täp ma mes-ën
DEM corn EX where table-LOC
'The corn is on the table.'

b. *jä'ä mok ka'apap tii ma mesën.*
jä'ä mok **ka'ap=jap tii ma** mes-ën
DEM corn **NEG=there what where** table-LOC
'The corn isn't on the table.'

Overall, negation in locative predications is formed with the existential negator *ka'ap* in addition to optional and obligatory demonstratives, pronouns, and deictics, as summarized in Table 7.

Table 7: Location in affirmative and negatives

	Affirmative	Negative
Present	*täp (tii)* + location	*ka'ap jap (tii) (pën)* + location
Past	*täp iich (tii)* + location	*ka'ap jap iich (tii) (pën)* + location
Future	*tämp i'ta'any* + location (SG) *tämp i'ta'antë* + location (PL)	*ka'ap i'ta'any* + location (SG) *ka'ap i'ta'antë* + location (PL)

The future tense shows similarities in shape to negative equative clauses (see Table 5 in §2.3.1). In equative clauses, the same marker appears in singular and plural, unlike in locative constructions. Negative locative constructions can also be formed in the same way as negative existentials involving the verbalizer -*pë*. The constructions are identical to the respective existential clauses, but in addition to predicating existence there is a location, as in (73).

(73) a. *tää nentu'un to'oxychëëjkëch më'këchpyë ma kaajpnën.*
tää nentu'un to'oxychëëjk-ëch më'k-ëch-pë **ma kaajpn-ën**
EX like.that women-PL strong-PL-VBZ **where village-LOC**
'Like that, strong women exist in the village.'

b. *ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychëëjkëch më'këchpyë ma kaajpnën.*
ka'ap nentu'un to'oxychëëjk-ëch më'k-ëch-pë **ma kaajpn-ën**
NEG like.that women-PL strong-PL-VBZ **where village-LOC**
'Like that, strong women don't exist in the village.'

Veselinova (2013: 123–124) notes that there may be a difference between predicating absolute absence, i.e. non-existence anywhere, and predicating absence in a specific location. In some languages, a negative existential used in locatives negates the existence of an entity overall. This can differ from a construction with a different negator in locatives that negates existence in one location but where existence in another location is possible. No such difference has been noted in Chuxnabán Mixe, as illustrated in (74–77).

(74) *ka'ap u'k awa'an-pë yaa jäämyë waakwimp.*
ka'ap u'k awa'an-pë yaa jäämyë waakwimp
NEG dog mean-VBZ here only Oaxaca
'Mean dogs don't exist here, only in Oaxaca.'

(75) *tää u'k awa'anpë jäämyë waakwimp.*
tää u'k awa'an-pë jäämyë waakwimp
EX dog mean-VBZ only Oaxaca
'Mean dogs exist, but only in Oaxaca.'

(76) a. *tää iich kwee pa'akpë.*
tää iich kwee pa'ak-pë
EX PST coffee sweet-VBZ
'Sweet coffee existed.'

b. *ka'ap iich tii kwee pa'akpë.*
ka'ap iich tii kwee pa'ak-pë
NEG PST what coffee sweet-VBZ
'Sweet coffee didn't exist.'

c. *ka'ap iich tii kwee pa'akpë cham tää yë'ë.*
ka'ap iich tii kwee pa'ak-pë cham tää yë'ë
NEG PST what coffee sweet-VBZ now EX DEM
'Sweet coffee didn't exist, but now it does (exist).'

(77) *yë'ë u'k ka'apap ma tëëjkën täpjä'ä kamoch.*
yë'ë u'k ka'ap-jap ma tëëjk-ën täp-jä'ä kam-och
DEM dog NEG-there where house-LOC EX-DEM field-LOC
'The dog is not in the house, (the dog) is in the field.'

Ascriptive, existential, and locative predications are sometimes grouped together as stative predication (Veselinova 2013: 111). This also includes possessive predications. If the same negator is used in all these predications, it is identified as a 'stative negator'.

2.3.6 Possessive predication

Languages usually employ existential and/or locational structures to express the notion of possession. This also occurs in Chuxnabán Mixe. Possessives are formed either using the existential construction with *tää/tamp* and a person prefix and verbalizer with the preposition *mëët* 'with' (78, 80a), or just the existential, or just the person prefix and verbalizer with the preposition *mëët* 'with' (79, 81, 82). If there is an existential present, then the person prefix in the affirmative is from the dependent set, if not, then it belongs to the independent set, unless dependency is triggered otherwise. In the negative, the existential *tää/tämp* is replaced with the negator *ka'ap* and the pronoun *tii* 'what' (80a–80b); and the person prefix is always from the dependent set. As with existential constructions, there is no existential in the future tense, but the verbalizer has a special form, which is different in the affirmative and the negative, '*aa'täämpy* and *'aa'ta'any* respectively. There is yet another strategy to form possessive constructions. In the affirmative, the possessed predicate is marked with a possessive prefix (80c), and in the negative the negator *ka'ap* and the pronoun *tii* 'what' are added (80d).

(78) a. *Xwank tämp tmëët'ach tsuujknë.*
Xwank tämp t-mëët-'ach tsuujknë
Juan EX 3A.DEP-with-VBZ knife
'Juan has a knife.'

b. *Xwank ka'ap tii tmëët'ächy tsuujknë.*
Xwank **ka'ap tii** t-mëët-'ächy tsuujknë
Juan NEG what 3A.DEP-with-VBZ knife
'Juan doesn't have a knife.'

(79) a. *Xwank myëët'aa'täämpy tu'uk tsuujknë.*
Xwank y-mëët-'aa'täämpy tu'uk tsuujknë
Juan 3A.IND-with-VBZ one knife
'Juan will have a knife.'

b. *Xwank ka'ap tmëët'aa'ta'any tsuujknë.*
Xwank **ka'ap t-mëët-'aa'ta'any** tsuujknë
Juan NEG 3A.DEP-with-VBZ knife
'Juan won't have a knife.'

(80) a. *yë'ë u'k tämp tmëët'ach toojkx.*
yë'ë u'k tämp t-mëët-'ach toojkx
DEM dog EX 3A.DEP-with-VBZ food
'The dog has food.'

b. *yë'ë u'k ka'ap tii tmëët'ach toojkx.*
yë'ë u'k **ka'ap tii t-mëët-'ach** toojkx
DEM dog NEG what 3A.DEP-with-VBZ food
'The dog doesn't have food.'

c. *yë'ë u'k choojkx.*
yë'ë u'k y-toojkx
DEM dog 3POSS-food
'The dog has food.'

d. *yë'ë u'k ka'ap tii choojkx.*
yë'ë u'k **ka'ap tii** y-toojkx
DEM dog NEG what 3POSS-food
'The dog doesn't have food.'

(81) a. *yë'ë u'k myëët'aa'täämpy toojkx.*
yë'ë u'k y-mëët-'aa'täämpy toojkx
DEM dog 3A.DEP-with-VBZ food
'The dog will have food.'

b. *yë'ë u'k ka'ap tmëët'aa'ta'any toojkx.*
yë'ë u'k **ka'ap t-mëët'aa'ta'any** toojkx
DEM dog NEG 3A.DEP-with-VBZ food
'The dog won't have food.'

(82) a. *miijts mëët'aachpy meeny.*
miijts m-mëët-'aachpy meeny
2SG 2A.IND-with-VBZ money
'You have money.'

b. *miijts ka'ap tii xmyëët'ach meeny.*
miijts **ka'ap tii x-mëët-'ach** meeny
2SG NEG what 2A.DEP-with-VBZ money
'You don't have money.'

There are three strategies for possessives in the affirmative and two in the negative, as shown in Table 8.

Table 9 provides a summary of negation strategies in non-verbal predication. Overall, equative and attributive clauses exhibit the same structure except for the future forms, and both are formed in the same way as clauses of proper inclusion except for the lack of the irrealis enclitic *=ëch*. While existential and locative constructions are identical, possessive clauses seem to use strategies from both, ascriptive and existential clauses. The existential negator *ka'ap* is the only negator used in all non-verbal clauses.

Table 8: Affirmative and negative possessive clauses

Tense	Affirmative	Negative
Present Strategy #1	*tää/tamp* + DEP PERS + VBZ -*'ach* w/ *mëët* 'with'	*ka'ap tii* + DEP PERS + VBZ -*'ach* w/ *mëët* 'with'
Present Strategy #2	IND PERS + VBZ -*'ach on mëët* 'with'	Same as above
Present Strategy #3	POSS on possessed	*ka'ap tii* + POSS on possessed
Past	Same as above + *iich*	Same as above + *iich*
Future	IND PERS + VBZ *'aa'täämpy on mëët* 'with'	*ka'ap (tii)* + DEP PERS + VBZ -*'aa'ta'any on mëët* 'with'

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

For the most part, negation in complex and dependent clauses does not exhibit any special negation strategies. The negator *ka'ap* occurs in main and subordinate clauses, which are negated separately. In relative clauses, each clause is negated separately, and both main and subordinate clause can be negated at the same time, as in (83) and (84).

(83) *ka'ap toxychëëjk piky [mëti'ipë ka'ap tukjachën*
ka'ap toxychëëjk piky mëti'ipë **ka'ap** t-tukjats-y-ën
NEG woman marry the.one NEG 3A.DEP-know-ASP.DEP-DEP
tuunk].
tuunk
work
'The woman who didn't know how to work could not get married.'

(84) a. *ëëjtsës [mëti'ipë oojts axë'ëy mëkaajpxpo'kxpyën*].
ëëjts=ës mëti'ipë oojts axë'ëy m-kaajpxpo'kx-p-ën
1SG=1.EMPH the.one PST yesterday 2A.IND-greet-ASP.IND-DEP
'I am the one you greeted yesterday.' (lit. 'I am the one from yesterday you greeted.')

Table 9: Summary of negation strategies in non-verbal clauses

	Affirmative	**Negative strategy #1**	**Negative strategy #2**
Equation (nominal predicate)	juxtaposition	*ka'ap* + person + =*ëch*	*ka'ap* + person + VBZ
Attribution (adjectival predicate)	juxtaposition (+*iich* in PST) (+*i'tä'äny* in FUT)	*ka'ap* + person + =*ëch* (+*iich* in PST) (+*i'tä'äny* in FUT, but no =*ëch*)	*ka'ap* + person + VBZ *ka'ap* (+*i'tä'äny* in FUT)
Proper inclusion (nominal predicate)	juxtaposition + -*pë* (+*iich* in PST) (+-*'aamp* in FUT, but no -*pë*)	*ka'ap* + person (+*iich* in PST) (+-*'a'any* in FUT)	
Existential #1	*täp* (+ *iich* in PST) *i'taamp/i'tantëp* (SG, PL) in FUT (but no *täp*)	*ka'ap tii* (+ *iich* in PST) (+*i'ta'any/i'ta'antë* (SG,PL) in FUT	
Existential #2	(DEM) NML + -*pë* *tää* + -*pë* *i'täämp* + -*pë* (FUT)	*ka'ap (tii)* + -*pë* *ka'ap i'ta'any* + -*pë* (FUT SG) *ka'ap i'ta'antë* + -*pë* (FUT PL)	*ka'ap* + person + VBZ – *'a't/'a'të* (SG/PL)
Locative #1 = Existential #1	*täp* + *(tii)* + location/ (+ *iich* in PST) *tämp i'ta'any/i'ta'antë* + location (FUT SG/PL)	*ka'ap jap* + *(tii/pën)* + location (+ *iich* in PST) *ka'ap i'ta'any/i'ta'antë* + location (in FUT SG/PL)	
Locative #2 = Existential #2	(DEM) NML + -*pë* *tää* + -*pë* *i'täämp* + -*pë* (FUT)	*ka'ap (tii)* + -*pë* *ka'ap i'ta'any* + -*pë* (FUT SG) *ka'ap i'ta'antë* + -*pë* (FUT PL)	
Possessive #1	*tää/tamp* + DEP PERS + VBZ -*'ach on mëët* 'with' IND PERS + VBZ -*'ach on mëët* (+ *iich* in PST) (VBZ *'aa'täämpy* in FUT)	*ka'ap tii* + DEP PERS + VBZ -*'ach on mëët* 'with' (+ *iich* in PST) (VBZ -*'aa'ta'any* in FUT)	
Possessive #2	POSS on possessed (+ *iich* in PST)	*ka'ap tii* + POSS on possessed (+ *iich* in PST)	

b. *ka'apës yëëjtsëch [mëti'ipë oojts*
ka'ap=ës y-ëëjts=**ëch** mëti'ipë oojts
NEG=1.EMPH 3A.DEP-1SG=IRR the.one PST
xkyaajpxpo'kxën axë'ëy].
x-kyaajpxpo'kx-y-ën axë'ëy
2A.DEP-greet-ASP.DEP-DEP yesterday
'I am not the one you greeted yesterday.'

c. *ëëjtsës [mëti'ipë ka'ap oojts xkyaajpxpo'kxën axë'ëy].*
ëëjts=ës mëti'ipë **ka'ap** oojts x-kyaajpxpo'kx-y-ën axë'ëy
1=1.EMPH the.one NEG PST 2A.DEP-greet-ASP.DEP-DEP yesterday
'I am the one you didn't greet yesterday.'

d. *ka'apës y'ëëjtsëch [mëti'ipë ka'ap oojts*
ka'apës y-ëëjts=**ëch** mëti'ipë **ka'ap** oojts
NEG=1.EMPH 3A.DEP-1SG=IRR the.one NEG PST
xkyaajpxpo'kxën axë'ëy].
x-kyaajpxpo'kx-y-ën axë'ëy
2A.DEP-greet-ASP.DEP-DEP yesterday
'I am not the one you didn't greet yesterday.'

The same occurs with complement clauses, as in (85–88).

(85) *ntë'këpës [ko yë'ë ka'ap myiita'akëch].*
n-të'këp=ës ko yë'ë **ka'ap** y-miita'akëts-y
1A.IND-fear=1.EMPH COMP DEM NEG 3S.DEP-win-ASP.DEP
'I'm afraid that he is not going to win.'

(86) *mnä'kxk [ko yë'ë ka'ap myina'any].*
n-mnä'kx=k ko yë'ë **ka'ap** y-mina'an-y
1A.IND-regret=EVID COMP DEM NEG 3S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
'I regret that he can't come.'

(87) *yë'ë ka'ap oojts ntaatëy [pen nmiimpyës*
yë'ë **ka'ap** oojts t-naatë-y pen n-miimp-y=ës
DEM NEG PST 3A.DEP-ask-ASP.DEP COMP 1S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP=1.EMPH
ëëjts].
ëëjts
1SG
'He didn't ask if I'm coming.'

(88) *ka'apës niijaawë [pen Carlos tëë kääky*
ka'ap=ës n-niijaaw-ë pen Carlos tëë kääky
neg=1.emph 1a.dep-know-asp.dep comp Carlos before.now tortilla
tkay].
t-kay-y
3a.dep-eat-asp.dep
'I don't know whether Carlos ate tortilla.'

In clauses with an epistemic fixed expression, such as 'I think' (89a), however, the negative particle can take scope over either predicate (89b). To negate both, a different construction must be used (89c).

(89) a. *miinantëp yo'owë.*
ø-miinan-të-p yo'owë
3s.ind-come-pl-asp.ind I.think
'I think they are coming.'

b. *ka'ap yo'owë myiin'a'antë.*
ka'ap yo'owë y-miin'a'an-të
neg I.think 3s.dep-come-pl
'I don't think they are coming.' = 'I think they are not coming.'

c. *ka'apës nmëëpëky ko ka'ap myiin'a'antë.*
ka'ap=ës n-mëëpëk-y ko **ka'ap** y-miin'a'an-të
neg=1.emph 1a.dep-think-asp.dep comp neg 3s.dep-come-pl
'I don't think that they are not coming.'

Lexically idionsycratic negatives do not occur. However, negative potential and negative desiderative clauses exhibit a different structure. While the negator *ka'ap* is used, there is also a second negator *nii=*. The negator *nii=* also occurs in constitutent negation (see §3.2). In the potential, *nii=* surfaces as part of an invariant form *ntiikeepy* 'can't' (90a–90f), which in the future changes to *ntiikäp'a'any* (90g–90h). Used by itself with the negator *ka'ap*, it translates as 'it can't be done', as in (91). The affirmative *nkeejpy* 'can' behaves in the same way.

(90) a. *nkeejpyës nëëkxëch.*
nkeejpy=ës n-nëëkx=ëch
can=1.emph 1s.dep-go=irr
'I can go.'

b. *ka'apës ntiikeepy nëëkxëch.*
ka'ap=ës **ntiikeepy** n-nëëkx=ëch
NEG=1.EMPH NEG.can 1S.DEP-go=IRR
'I can't go.'

c. *nkeejpy mnëëkxëch.*
nkeejpy m-nëëkx=ëch
can 2S.DEP-go=IRR
'You can go.'

d. *ka'ap ntiikeepy mnëëkxëch.*
ka'ap **ntiikeepy** m-nëëkx=ëch
NEG NEG.can 2S.DEP-go=IRR
'You can't go.'

e. *oojts nkeejpyës nëëkxëch.*
oojts nkeejpy=ës n-nëëkx=ëch
PST can=1.EMPH 1S.DEP-go=IRR
'I could go.'

f. *ka'ap oojts ntiikeepy nëëkxëch.*
ka'ap oojts **ntiikeepy** n-nëëkx=ëch
NEG PST NEG.can 1S.DEP-go=IRR
'I couldn't go.'

g. *nkeejpyës nëëkxëch jëpomp.*
nkeejpy=ës n-nëëkx=ëch jëpomp
can=1.EMPH 1S.DEP-go=IRR tomorrow
'I can go tomorrow.'

h. *ka'ap ntiikäp'a'any jëpomp nëëkxëch.*
ka'ap **ntiikäp'a'any** jëpomp nëëkx=ëch
NEG NEG.can.FUT tomorrow 2S.DEP-go=IRR
'I can't go tomorrow.'

(91) *ka'ap (cham) ntiikeepy.*
ka'ap (cham) **ntiikeepy**
NEG (now) NEG.can
'It can't be done (now).'

(92) *ka'apëkä'ä tniikääpx.*
ka'ap=ëk=jä'ä t-**nii**-kääpx-y
NEG=EVID=DEM 3A.DEP-NEG-speak-ASP.DEP
'(The gopher) could not speak (well).'

(93) *ets niika'apëka pi'kana'k tntëkë'ënë tääkë.*
ets **nii=ka'ap**=ëk=ja'a pi'kana'k t-ntëkë'ë-në tääkë
and NEG=NEG=EVID=DEM child 3A.DEP-devour-ASP.DEP like.that
'And he could not devour a child like that.'

The second negator *nii=* can also attach to other predicates or the negator *ka'ap* itself, and the clause assumes a potential or optative meaning, as in (92) and (93).

The optative is formed with a change in the verb stem and the same verbal suffixes found with the copula *i't* in non-verbal negation. These suffixes are glossed as desideratives here. The negator *ka'ap* is used to negate optatives, as in (94b), (95b) and (96b). If there is a change in subject between the main clause and the dependent clause, then an irrealis marker is used in both the affirmative and the negative, and the dependent clause can be introduced by an optional complementizer *ko* (98). If the subject stays the same, the negative desiderative is used in the dependent clause (97).

(94) a. *nëëkx'aampës.*
nëëkx-'aam-p=ës
go-DES-ASP.IND=1.EMPH
'I want to go.'

b. *ka'apës nëëkx'a'any.*
ka'ap=ës n-nëëkx-'a'an-y
NEG-1.EMPH 1S.DEP-go-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
'I don't want to go.'

c. *nëëkx'aampës ënech.*
nëëkx-'aam-p=ës ënech
go-DES-ASP.IND=1.EMPH PST
'I wanted to go.'

d. *ka'apës ënech nëëkx'a'any.*
ka'ap=ës ënech n-nëëkx-'a'an-y
NEG-1.EMPH PST 1S.DEP-go-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
'I didn't want to go.'

(95) a. *ääjts'aampës.*
ääjts-'aam-p=ës
dance-DES-ASP.IND=1.EMPH
'I want to dance.'

b. *ka'apës n'ääjts'a'any.*
ka'ap=ës n-'ääjts-'a'an-y
NEG-1.EMPH 1S.DEP-dance-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
'I don't want to dance.'

c. *ääjts'aanëpës.*
ääjts-'aanë-p=ës
dance-DES-ASP.IND=1.EMPH
'I will want to dance (tomorrow).'

d. *ka'apës n'ääjts'a'any.*
ka'ap=ës n-'ääjts-'a'an-y
NEG-1.EMPH 1S.DEP-dance-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
'I won't want to dance (tomorrow).'

(96) a. *ntsoojkyëpyës miijts mnëëkxëch.*
n-tsoojkyë-py=ës miijts m-nëëkx=ëch
1A.IND-want-ASP.IND=1 2SG 2S.DEP-go=IRR
'I want you to go.'

b. *ka'apës ntsoky miijts mnëëkxëch.*
ka'ap=ës n-tsok-y miijts m-nëëkx=ëch
NEG-1.EMPH 1A.DEP-want-ASP.DEP 2SG 2S.DEP-dance=IRR
'I don't want you to go.' = 'I want you not to go.'

(97) *ka'apës ntsoky ka'apës*
ka'ap=ës n-tsok-y **ka'ap=ës**
NEG-1.EMPH 1A.DEP-want-ASP.DEP NEG-1.EMPH
nkay'ä'äny.
n-kay-'ä'än-y
1A.DEP-eat-DES.NEG-ASP.DEP
'I don't want not to eat.'

(98) a. *ntsoojkyëpyës (ko) (miijts) ka'ap mkayëch.*
n-tsoojkyë-py=ës (ko) (miijts) **ka'ap** m-kay-ëch
1A.DEP-want-ASP.IND=1.EMPH COMP 2SG NEG 2SG-eat=IRR
'I want you not to eat.'

b. *ka'apës ntsoky (ko) miijts mkayëch.*
ka'ap=ës n-tsok-y (ko) miijts m-kay-ëch
NEG-1.EMPH 1A.DEP-want-ASP.DEP COMP 2SG 2SG-eat=IRR
'I don't want you to eat.'

c.

ka'apës	*ntsoky*	*(ko)*	*miijts*	*ka'ap*	*mkayëch.*
ka'ap=ës	n-tsok-y	(ko)	miijts	**ka'ap**	m-kay-ëch
NEG-1.EMPH	1A.DEP-want-ASP.DEP	COMP	2SG	NEG	2SG-eat=IRR

'I don't want you not to eat.'

In some dependent clauses, the negative prefix *ka'-* occurs instead of the negator *ka'ap*, as in (99). This is rare, however.

(99)

ko	*jä'ä*	*kääky*	*kya'ku'uxë.*
ko	jä'ä	kääky	y-**ka'**-ku'uxë
COMP	DEM	tortilla	3S.DEP-NEG-fill.up.DEP

'[...] (and) when he didn't fill up with tortillas [...]'

The same negator *ka-* occurs in lest-clauses, as in (100) and (101).

(100)

je'eyës	*naaxweech*	*nkoo*	*kos*	*nka'ech.*
je'eyë=s	n-naaxweech	nkoo	ko-s	n-**ka'**-ech
only=1	1S.DEP-sit	lest	COMP-1	1S.DEP-NEG-dance.DEP

'I only sat down so that I wouldn't (have to) dance.'

(101)

je'eyës	*oo*	*nëëkx*	*nkoo*	*kos*	*nka'mëkääpx.*
je'eyë=s	oo	n-nëëkx	nkoo	ko-s	n-**ka'**-mëkääpx
only=1	PST	1S.DEP-go	lest	COMP-1	1A.DEP-NEG-talk.to.DEP

'I left so that I wouldn't have to talk to him/her.'

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

No negative lexicalizations have been found in the data.

3 Non-clausal negation

This section treats negative replies to polar questions and negative indefinites, as well as negative concord and asymmetries.

3.1 Negative replies

A negative polar question can be answered either with an affirmative or with a negative clause. The negator *ka'ap* can be used as a single word answer to polar questions or as an answer to a polar question followed by a more elaborate answer that contradicts a previous statement, as in (102). Crosslinguistically, it is common to use negative existentials, such as *ka'ap*, for short, standalone answers 'no' (Veselinova 2013), as in (103).

(102) A: *wi'ix ka'ap oo pën mpuuto'oxy 'i'të?*
wi'ix **ka'ap** oojts pën mpuuto'oxy 'i'të
what NEG PST someone couples there.were
'What, there weren't any couples (present)?'

B: *tämmës to'oxychëëjk.*
tämmës to'oxychëëjk
there.were women
'Yes, there were women (present).'

(103) A: *miimp?*
m-miim-p
2S.IND-come-ASP.IND
'Are you coming?'

A: *kii miny?*
kii m-min-y
NEG 2S.DEP-come-ASP.DEP
'Aren't you coming?'

B1: KA'ap.
'No [I am not coming].'

B2: OY.
'Yes [I am coming].'

(104) A: *yë'ë kii wi'ix tëë m'anë'ëmexëch?*
yë'ë kii wi'ix tëë m-'anë'ëmex=ëch
DEM NEG what TEMP 2A.DEP-tell=IRR
'He didn't tell you anything?'

B: *ka'ap, ka'ap wi'ix tëë inä'äny.*
ka'ap ka'ap wi'ix tëë inä'äny
NEG NEG what TEMP tell
'No, he didn't tell me anything.'

B: *tëës xukowaanë.*
tëë=s x-tukowaanë
TEMP=1 1P.DEP-tell
'Yes, he told me.'

The same positive or negative one-word reply can be used to answer a positive or a negative question retaining the same meaning. In (104), a short pause after the negative particle *ka'ap* indicates a separate intonation unit and thus a one-word answer elaborated in a longer reply.

3.2 Negative indefinites

Negative indefinites are formed using a proclitic *nii=*, the same with constituent negation (see §4.1), different from the negator *ka'ap*. For instance, in negative indefinites such as 'nobody' *niipën* or 'nowhere' *niimaa*, the proclitic *nii=* is added to the interrogatives *pën* 'who' and *maa* 'where', respectively. The presence of a negative indefinite with the proclitic *nii=* generally triggers the negative prefix *ka'-* on the predicate resulting in negative concord, as in (105–107). It is worth noting that the negative proclitic *nii=* is not to be confused with the homophonous prefix *nii-* signaling animacy.

(105) *niipënëka'a* *tääpë* *to'oxychëëjk* *kya'iixa'chë.*
nii=pën=ëk=ja'a tääpë to'oxychëëjk y-**ka'**-'iixa'ch-ë
NEG=someone=EVID=DEM this woman 3P.DEP-NEG-see.meet-INV
'Nobody had met (seen) this woman.'

(106) *niimaa* *kyä'nyëëkxy* *niiyaa*
nii=maa y-**ka'**-nëëkx-y **nii=yaa**
NEG=where 3S.DEP-NEG-go-ASP.DEP NEG=here
kya'näxy.
y-**ka'**-näx-y
3S.DEP-NEG-walk-ASP.DEP
'She is going nowhere, not even here she is coming through.'

(107) *niipën* *jyä'ä* *tka'mënëëkxy.*
nii=pën jyä'ä t-**ka'**-mënëëkxy
NEG=someone there 3A.DEP-NEG-took-ASP.DEP
'Nobody took it there.'

While the three different negators (*nii=, ka'ap, ka'-*) are not attested in a single sentence in naturally-occurring discourse, (108) is deemed grammatical when elicited from a native speaker.

(108) a. *niika'na'a* *ka'ap* *kyäminy.*
niika'na'a **ka'ap** y-**ka'**-min-y
never NEG 3S.DEP-NEG-come-ASP.DEP
'S/he is never coming.'

b. *niika'na'a ma niipën kyänëëkxy.*
niika'na'a ma **nii**=pën y-**ka'**-nëëkx-y
never where NEG=someone 3S.DEP-NEG-go-ASP.DEP
'Nobody ever goes anywhere.'

The negator *niika'na'a* 'never' is a lexicalized form composed of two negators, the negative proclitic *nii=* and the clausal negator *ka'-*, in addition to the temporal pronoun *na'a* 'when'. It can be moved freely in the clause. The negator *nii* occurs also as a separate word (109), but the same as with *ka'ap*, it must always precede the predicate.

(109) *tää nii yë'ë ja kääky tka'kaychäänyë.*
tää **nii** yë'ë ja'a kääky t-**ka'**-kaychääny-ë
then NEG DEM DEM tortilla 3A.DEP-NEG-finish.eat-INV
'Then they never finished eating the tortilla.'

It is sometimes unclear if the the negator *nii=* represents a Spanish loan (Spanish *ni* 'not even' or *ni..ni* 'neither...nor'). Generally, if it is translated as 'not even' or if it is repeated as a separate word, it represents the Spanish loan, as in (110). The Spanish loan *ni* 'not even, neither' can co-occur with the negator *ka'ap* or with the negative prefix *ka'-*.

(110) a. *ni champaat Godë tka'niijaawë.*
ni champaat Godë t-**ka'**-niijaaw-ë
not.even until.now Godo 3A.DEP-NEG-know-ASP.DEP
'[...] not even (until) now Godo knows about it.'

b. *ka'ap tmaakääpxy ni comité ni pën.*
ka'ap t-maakääpx-y **ni** comité **ni** pën
NEG 3A.DEP-call-ASP.DEP neither committee nor someone
'He didn't call anyone, neither the committee nor anyone.'

Wichmann (1995: 572) identifies *ni* as a negator in proto-Mixe-Zoquean, as in **ni to* 'nothing'. The same negator is reconstructed as **ka ti* for proto-Mixean. Thus, the proclitic *nii=* seems to be of Mixean origin, and the formal resemblance to Spanish *ni* is due to chance. What is interesting is that *nii=/ni* can also attach to the negative particle *ka'ap* in negative concord, as in (111).

(111) *ets niika'apëka pi'kana'k ntëkë'ënë tääkë.*
ets **nii=ka'ap**=ëk=ja'a pi'kana'k t-nëkë'ën-ë tääkë
and NEG=NEG=EVID=DEM child 3A.DEP-devour-ASP.DEP like.that
'And he could not devour a child like that.'

In (111) it is unclear if the negator *nii* represents the Spanish loan *ni* and the sentence thus translates as 'and he could not even devour a child like that'.

Negative indefinites can also be expressed using the negator *ka'ap* instead of the proclitic *nii=*, as in (112–113). In fact, any constituent can be negated using the negator *ka'ap* (see §4.1).

(112) *ka'apës pën npaatë tu'unëka inä'äny.*
ka'ap=ës pën n-paat-të tu'unëka inä'äny
NEG=1 someone 1A.EXCL.DEP-find-PL also they.say
'We didn't find anyone, they also said.'

(113) *ka'apëka ma nyiikxy.*
ka'ap=ëk=ja'a ma y-niikx-y
NEG=EVID=DEM where 3S.DEP-go-ASP.DEP
'She is going nowhere.'

Several negative expressions with a temporal reference (e.g. 'never, not ever, not anymore, not yet') are lexicalized. The negator *niika'na'a* or *niina'a* 'never' is a lexicalized form composed of either one or two negators, the negative proclitic *nii=* and the clausal negator *ka'-*, in addition to the temporal pronoun *na'a* 'when'. The emphatic particle *ntim*/*wiintim*/*niintim* translated as 'not ever/never ever' occurs with the negator *ka'ap* or with other negative words, such as 'never' (114–115). It is unclear if this particle includes the negator *nii=*.

(114) *wiintim mëku'uk xkyä'kooxtëch niika'ana'a!*
wiintim m-mëku'uk x-kä'-koox-të=ëch **niika'ana'a**
never.ever 2POSS-friends 2A.DEP-NEG-hit-PL=IRR never
'Never ever hit your friends!'

(115) *ka'ap wiintim jyotkuuk'achy.*
ka'ap wiintim y-jotkuuk-'ach-y
NEG never.ever 3S.DEP-happy-VBZ-ASP.DEP
'She's never ever happy.'

Clauses with negative indefinites can exhibit asymmetries with respect to affirmative clauses. As discussed for standard negation, the negative markers generally trigger the dependent verb paradigm, i.e. a separate set of person and aspect markers along with a change in the verb stem. The negator *ka'ap* always triggers the depedent set, while the negative prefix *ka'-* does not.[2]. When a negative word with the proclitic *nii=* co-occurs with the negative prefix *ka'-* the predicate can occur either in the dependent or the independent, based on the constituents preceding it. If a non-core constituent precedes the predicate, dependent inflection occurs, as in (116); otherwise, independent inflection may be present, as in (117).

(116) *ka'ap pën chë'ëkë.*
ka'ap pën y-tsë'ëk-ë
NEG someone 3S.DEP-be.afraid-DEP.ASP
'Nobody was afraid.'

(117) *niipën kyaamëmëtoowëtë.*
nii=pën ø-**ka**'-yaa-mëmëtoow-ë-të
NEG=someone 3P.IND-NEG-CAUS-obey-INV-PL
'Nobody obeyed him.'

In both examples the constituent 'nobody' represents a core argument, but in (116) the negator *ka'ap* triggers the dependent paradigm, while in (117) the negative proclitic *nii=* does not.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Chuxnabán Mixe does not have an elaborate case system, and no negative derivation has been noted in the data.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In terms of scope of negation, it can be said that any of the three negators must preceed the negated constituent or predicate/verb root, and that each constituent or predicate needs to be negated separately (see §2.1, 2.2.1, and 2.4).

Constituent negation parallels the construction found in negative indefinites (see §3.2). A proclitic *nii=* is added to the negated constituent which triggers the negative prefix *ka'-* on the predicate resulting in negative concord. The proclitic can also occur with numerals, as in *niimääjtsk* 'not the two'. Any constituent can be negated using the negator *ka'ap*, as in (118) and (119).

[2]This can be explained by the negative existential cycle (Veselinova 2016) Negative existentials, such as *ka'ap*, generally form constructions on their own. When they are being used with a verbal predicate, they often require a special form, here the dependent inflection.

(118) *ka'ap tuky ka'ap wi'ix ka'ap iixtëm ëëjts neychukatuujkëmë.*
ka'ap tuky **ka'ap** wi'ix **ka'ap** iixtëm ëëjts n-eychukatuujk-ëmë
neg pieces neg like neg as.seen 1sg 1a.dep-cut-1pl.incl
'[...] not pieces, not like that, not the same way like we cut (the tortillas).'

(119) *miijtsëch ka'ap mtsë'ëkëtëch ka'ap wi'ix*
miijts-ëch ka'ap m-tsë'ëkë-të=ëch **ka'ap** wi'ix
2-pl neg 2s.dep-be.afraid-pl=irr neg like.that
mjata'antë.
m-jata'an-të
2p.dep-happen-pl
'Don't be afraid, nothing like that will happen to you (pl).'

Effects of intonation and stress have yet to be studied for Chuxnabán Mixe.

4.2 Negative polarity

No negative polarity items have been found in the language.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Chuxnabán Mixe does not exhibit a robust case marking system, so no effects are noted on the marking of NPs with respect to negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The fact that multiple negators are possible (see §2.1) and required in some instances (see §3.2) could be considered instances of reinforcing negation, in particular in the rare cases where all three negators occur in the same sentence. It can also be speculated that *ka'ap* can be a univerbation of the negative prefix *ka'-* and a positive element used for emphasis. It can further be speculated that *ka'ap* represents an emphatic form of the negative marker that was used in addition to the original negative prefix *ka-* and then started to take over (see Van Gelderen 2016). Now the old negator *ka'-* is used mostly in sentences with constituent negation.

4.5 Negation and complex clauses

In Chuxnabán Mixe, each clause is negated separately (see §2.4). For coordinate clauses, it can be noted that the negator *ka'ap* gets sometimes translated as 'neither' or 'not yet' when it follows the particle *nen*, whereby *nen* translates as 'also', as in (120) and (121). The prohibitive particle *këtii* is also used to form the negative coordinator *neekëtii* 'neither', as in (122).

(120) *perë nen ka'ap eech agentë jap.*
perë **nen ka'ap** eech agentë jap
but also NEG was town.major there
'[...] but neither was the town major present.'

(121) *nen ka'ap eech ja jëën no'oktë.*
nen ka'ap eech ja'a jëën n-no'ok-të
also NEG was DEM fire 1S.DEP-burn-PL
'[...] and we didn't burn fire yet.'

(122) *neekëtii miny.*
nee**këtii** m-miny
neither 2S.DEP-come
'Neither are you coming.'

This topic needs further study. It must be noted that Chuxnabán Mixe often uses Spanish clause conectors, such as *ni...ni* 'neither...nor'.

5 Summary

Chuxnabán Mixe, the same as its close relatives, has three main negators: the negative particle *ka'ap*, the negative verbal prefix *ka'-*, and the proclitic *nii=* used in constituent negation. A special negator *këtii/kii* is found in prohibitives. Overall, the negator *ka'ap* can be used for virtually any type of negation, including prohibitives (see §2.2.1) and constituent negation (see §3.2). In prohibitives, however, the irrealis enclitic *=ëch* is obligatory with *ka'ap*, to distinguish the clause from standard negation; it is optional with the special prohibitive negator (see §2.2.1). The formal resemblance between the negative particle and the negative prefix potentially points to a common source, whereby the negative prefix may represent the only negator and the negative particle the new form.

As expected, negation strategies in non-verbal clauses show many similarities. Overall, the negative existential *ka'ap* is used as the main negator. Negative constructions in equation and attribution overlap, as well as in locative and existential predication (§2.3). Interesting is the fact that non-verbal clauses exhibit multiple strategies for both affirmatives and negatives with different verbalizers and the irrealis enclitic *=ëch* in some negative forms. Table 11 summarizes the negators used for each type of negation.

Negative concord occurs for the most part in clauses where the negator *ka'ap* is not present. In fact, only *ka'ap* shows unrestricted use as the sole negator in a clause. Although the negative prefix *ka'-* may function as the only negator in a clause, this happens rarely, and there are restrictions associated with its use (see §2.1.1).

While paradigmatic asymmetries have not been noted for Chuxnabán Mixe, constructional asymmetries are sometimes present. There are two main verb paradigms, the dependent and the independent, each associated with a separate set of person prefixes, aspect suffixes, and verb stem shapes. Table 10 summarizes the presence of dependent marking in clauses with different types of negators. The horizontal axis indicates the presence of one or more negative markers in a clause; the vertical axis shows the inflection type on the predicate.

All in all, negation in Chuxnabán Mixe comprises different constructions for different types of negative expressions often with different competing constructions and negative markers interacting with one another and with the grammatical structure of the clause. The main goal of this first comprehensive study of negation in a Mixe-Zoquean language has been to yield a better understanding of negation in Mixe-Zoquean languages to pave the road for future studies, and to contribute to a systematic cross-linguistic comparison of negation.

Table 10: Summary of dependent/independent marking with different negators

	ka'ap	*ka'-*	*nii=*
Dependent	x		
Dependent	x	x	
Dependent	x		x
Dependent	x	x	x
Dependent/Independent		x	x
Dependent/Independent		x	
Dependent/Independent			x

Table 11: Summary of negation in Chuxnabán Mixe

Negation in declarative verbal clauses		Chapter	Examples
ka'ap	preverbal particle triggering special inflection used in independent clauses	2.1	(3–7)
	and in dependent clauses	2.4	(83–88)
ka'-	verbal prefix used in independent clauses	2.1	(10–11)
	and in some dependent clauses	2.4	(99–101)
ka'ap + jëk	"not anymore"	2.1	(8–9)
nen + ka'ap	"neither", "not yet"	4.5	(120–121)
ka'- + nëm	"not yet"	2.1	(12)
ka'ap + nii=	negative potential	2.4	(90–93)
ka'ap (or *ka'-*)	negative optative	2.4	(94–98)
Negation in non-declarative verbal clauses			
këtii or kii	preverbal particle (sometimes with optional irrealis enclitic *=ëch*) used in		
	a) prohibitives	2.2.1	(22–28)
	b) negative polar questions (also in non-verbal clauses)	2.2.2	(37–40)
	c) clauses with "neither" (*neekëtii*)	4.5	(122)
ka'ap + =ëch	preverbal particle + irrealis enclitic *=ëch* used in prohibitives	2.2.1	(33–34)
ka'ap	Preverbal particle in negative polar questions (also in non-verbal clauses)	2.2.2	(35)
ka'-	Verbal prefix in negative polar questions (also in non-verbal clauses)	2.2.2	(36)
Negation in non-verbal clauses (equative, existential, locative, possessive)			
ka'ap (*+ =ëch*)	preverbal particle (for details, see Table 9)	2.3	(43–82)
Non-clausal negation			
nii= + ka'-	proclitic and verbal prefix used in constituent negation and negative indefinites	3.2	(105–107)
ka'ap	particle used in constituent negation	4.1	(118–119)
	and in negative indefinites	3.2	(112–113)
	and in negative replies	3.1	(103–104)

Abbreviations

1	first person	INCL	inclusive
2	second person	IND	independent*
3	third person	INV	inverse
3’	non-salient third person	IRR	irrealis
A	agent(-like) argument of a transitive verb	LOC	locative
		NEG	negative
AN	animate	NML	nominal
ASP	aspect	P	patient(like) argument of a transitive verb
CAUS	causative		
COMP	complementizer	PERS	person
DEM	demonstrative	PL	plural
DEP	dependent*	POSS	possessive
DES	desiderative	PST	past tense
EMPH	emphatic	Q	question
EVID	evidential	S	single argument of an intransitive verb
EXCL	exclusive		
EX	existential	SG	singular
FUT	future	TEMP	temporal particle
IMP	imperative	VBZ	verbalizer

*Please note that these are language-family specific terms and do not refer to dependency in the sense of a complex sentences (where you have a main clause and a subordinate/dependent clause)

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Chapter 15

Negation in Kogi

Dominique Knuchel

This paper discusses negation in Kogi, a Chibchan language spoken in Colombia. For standard negation (i.e. negation of main declarative clauses), three major markers can be identified whose use is dependent on the aspectual interpretation of a clause. These markers can further be used in stative predications, as well as most dependent and non-declarative clauses. In addition, there are dedicated negation markers in clauses marked for modality, optative and imperative mood, and two types of dependent clauses (i.e. circumstantial and purpose clauses). A further aspect of negation in Kogi concerns the expression of phasal polarity. Moreover, a negative existential verb can be used in certain stative predications and abilitive modality. Finally, in non-clausal negation, Kogi makes use of negative indefinite pronouns which consist of an interrogative pronoun in combination with an additive focus particle.

Keywords: Negation markers, Kogi language, phasal polarity, standard negation..

1 The language

This paper details the expression of clausal as well as non-clausal negation in Kogi (ISO: kog, Glottocode: cogu1240), an indigenous language of Colombia. Kogi belongs to the Chibchan language family, where it forms the Arwako subgroup together with its neighboring languages Ika (ISO: arh, Glottocode: arhu1242) and Damana (ISO: mbp, Glottocode: mala1522). The Kogi live in the region of the Sierra Nevada de Santa Marta, a mountain range in the north of Colombia. According to the most recent national census of Colombia which was conducted in 2018 (DANE 2018), the group comprises 15,820 individuals. The language name *Kogi* is commonly used in the anglophone linguistic and anthropological fields,

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while the language is known as *Cogui* in the Spanish-speaking area. The speakers themselves refer to their mother tongue as *Koguian*. The Kogi word *kaggaba* denotes the indigenous group of the Kogi, but also means 'indigenous person' in general.

The present study of Kogi negation is based on first-hand language data that was collected during three fieldwork periods in Colombia between September 2016 and December 2018. The questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) served as a guideline for the investigation of different aspects of negation as well as for the structure of the presentation.

Section §2 discusses the topic of clausal negation and takes into account declarative main clauses (i.e. standard negation), non-declarative clauses, stative predications as well as dependent clauses. §3 discusses negation in the non-clausal domain, more specifically negative replies and negative indefinite pronouns. §4 briefly discusses some other aspects of negation and a summary is provided in §5.

In addition to a general description, negative constructions are analyzed in terms of constructional and paradigmatic (a)symmetry, as proposed by Miestamo (2005). The first type of asymmetry refers to possible structural differences that negation marking causes in a clause. A construction is symmetrical when the negated clause does not differ from the affirmative in any other respect than the presence of a negation marker. As for the second type, a paradigm is symmetrical when the same grammatical categories are available in the affirmative and the negative (i.e. there is no neutralization of distinctions in the negative).

The remainder of this introduction presents some basic points and mentionable traits of Kogi grammar.

The morpho-phonological processes attested in Kogi are numerous and relatively complex, including, for instance, vowel raising, devoicing of intervocalic plosives and fricatives, or the denasalization of morpheme-initial nasal consonants. Some of these morpho-phonological rules are restricted to occur at certain morphological boundaries (e.g. prefix-stem, or stem-anti-clitic).

The basic constituent order is SOV and the language exhibits split ergativity marking on noun phrases conditioned by the referential nature of the noun phrase: personal pronouns follow the nominative-accusative pattern, while non-pronominal noun phrases show ergative-absolutive case marking.

Nominal morphology is fairly simple, involving only few inflectional and derivational processes. A distinction can be made between alienable and inalienable nouns, inalienable possession being marked by nominal prefixes. Case, number and discourse functions are marked by phrasal suffixes at the end of noun phrases.

Verbal morphology, by contrast, shows more complexity. Verbs can have up to three different stem allomorphs which are morphologically conditioned, i.e. their use depends on whether and what kind of inflectional suffixes are attached. Formally, the stem allomorphs differ in the presence of a stem formative *-a* (~ *-ya* ~ *-wa*; glossed as ST), or the deletion of final *k*. For example, the verb 'ascend' can take the form *nitshik* (e.g. with habitual aspect), *nítshika* (e.g. with future tense) or *nitshi* (as an independent verb form).

There are three distinct sets of markers that index core arguments of a clause on the verb. Each of the paradigms is typically associated with a specific argument role, i.e. Set I is preferable with S/A arguments, Set II with P arguments, and Set III with G arguments.

Certain TAM (tense, aspect, mood/modality) categories are expressed exclusively by synthetic verb forms (e.g. potential modality or habitual aspect), while others are denoted by periphrastic constructions involving different auxiliaries (e.g. obligative modality). A number of grammatical categories have both options available which – in semantic terms – can be used interchangeably (e.g. future tense).

A distinctive trait of Kogi grammar is the expression of engagement, i.e. the encoding of (a)symmetries in the distribution and access to knowledge (Evans et al. 2018). Engagement is encoded in four verbal prefixes that reflect two different parameters: epistemic authority (i.e. whose knowledge is targeted) and (non)-shared access (i.e. whether it is exclusive to one of the speech act participants or shared by both) (Bergqvist 2016). These markers are not obligatory but are used by a speaker when they wish to express their epistemic stance related to a proposition. The pragmatic functions of engagement markers are complex and their exact interpretation depends on the discourse context. The use of such a marker, however, can influence the choice of other grammatical categories, such as tense. That is, there is a separate tense paradigm involving a three-way distinction in remoteness.

Besides prefixes, suffixes and clitics, Kogi exhibits a further bound morpheme type which can be labeled anti-clitics. An anti-clitic constitutes the counterpart of the more familiar category of clitics, which are commonly defined as units that constitute independent words on the grammatical level, but are phonologically dependent on another word.[1] Anti-clitics, by contrast, constitute independent words on the phonological level, while they cannot be considered independent words on the grammatical level. An anti-clitic is thus similar to an affix in that

[1]For the concept of wordhood and the distinction between words on the grammatical and phonological level (g-words and p-words) see for example Dixon & Aikhenvald (2003).

it forms part of a bigger grammatical unit. In contrast to affixes, however, an anti-clitic shows less (or no) phonological cohesion. In Kogi, this phonological independence is reflected in the fact that not all morphophonological processes that occur at affix boundaries also occur at anti-clitic boundaries. As an example, let us look at the morphophonological rule *n* ⟶ *l* / *a*__ that applies at the affix-stem boundary. This is illustrated in (1) with the inceptive suffix *-na*, where the initial *n* of the suffix is denasalized after *a*.

(1) galá.
ga-ná
eat-INCEP
'S/he began to eat.'

Example (2) shows the past marker *#ne*, an anti-clitic. Note that # indicates the border between a stem and an anti-clitic. It is evident that the denasalization does not take place at the stem-anti-clitic boundary. This suggests that the verb form in (2) consists of two phonological units, whereas it constitutes a single unit on the grammatical level.

(2) gane.
ga#ne
eat#PST
'S/he ate.'

A further rule concerns the denasalization of *m*: *m* ⟶ *b* / *a*__. This rule, too, is observed at stem affix boundaries, but not at boundaries with anti-clitics. This is illustrated in (3). Note that the anti-clitic here is complex, i.e it consists of *#ne* 'PST' with the second person singular prefix *ma-*. It is apparent that the initial *m* of the complex anti-clitic (#*male)* does not denasalize.[2]

(3) gamale.
ga#ma-ne
eat#2SG.I-PST
'You ate.'

The distinction between affixes and anti-clitics is crucial for differentiating between the two markers *#ne* 'PST' and *-ne* 'NEG.HAB', the negative habitual suffix which is detailed in 2.1.3 below. While both markers seem identical at first sight,

[2]Note also that, while denasalization of *n* does not take place at stem-anti-clitic boundaries, it does so at the affix-anti-clitic boundary within a complex anti-clitic (*#ma-ne* ⟶ *male*).

they differ in their morphophonological behavior. Consider the verb form in (4), which differs from the one in (3) in only one respect: the *m* of the person marker is denasalized to *b*. Thus, the two markers clearly are distinct, one being an anti-clitic denoting past tense, the other one being a suffix expressing negation.

(4) gabale.
ga-ma-ne
eat-2SG.I-NEG.HAB
'You never eat.'

For the purposes of the present discussion, this short illustration, in particular of the distinction between *#ne* 'PST' and *-ne* 'NEG.HAB', should suffice. The issue of wordhood in Kogi and especially the analysis of anti-clitics is a complex one and the interested reader will find more details in Knuchel (2022).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation, i.e. the basic way of negating declarative main clauses, involves a number of different bound morphemes that reflect the aspectual value of a clause. A set of three negation markers, subsumed under the term 'major negation markers' here, is found in all declarative main clauses, namely general negative *-zhá* (§2.1.1), *-kí* 'NEG.IPFV' (§2.1.2) and *-ne* 'NEG.HAB' (§2.1.3). In addition, a dedicated negation marker *-sïng(ze)* can be used with specific modality values and its source, i.e. the negative existential verb *sïng(ze),* features in the negation of abilitive modality (§2.1.4). Two further markers, namely *-gánga* 'not yet' and *-ksá* 'no longer', express values of phasal polarity (§2.1.5).

2.1.1 Negation in perfective clauses: *-zhá*

The negation marker *-zhá* occurs in perfective past and future clauses. Note that perfective verbs are not overtly marked for aspect, and contrast with overtly marked imperfective predicates. The marker *-zhá* does not express perfective aspect, but occurs on verbs with a perfective meaning.

As a general rule, *-zhá* only attaches to lexical verbs, and never to auxiliaries. A first example featuring the past marker *#ne* is given in (5).[3]

[3] Note that the past anti-clitic *ne* is distinct from the habitual past suffix *-ne* for reasons that are apparent in their morphophonological behavior (see §2.1.3).

(5) a. Santa Martali nẽnkale.
Santa Marta-ni *nẽ#nka-ne*
Santa Marta-ALL go#1PL.I-PST
'We went to Santa Marta.'

b. Santa Martali nẽyazhánkale.
Santa Marta-ni *nẽ-a-**zhá#nka-ne***
Santa Marta-ALL go-ST-NEG#1PL.I-PST
'We did not go to Santa Marta.'

Along similar lines, the negation marker occurs on the lexical verb in periphrastic past predicates marked for engagement, such as the one in (6).[4]

(6) a. mebák nak nigungú.
mebák *nak* *ni-gu-ngú*
yesterday arrive SPKR.SYM-do-REC.PST
'S/he arrived yesterday.'

b. mebak nagazhá nigungú.
mebák *nak-a-**zhá*** *ni-gu-ngú*
yesterday arrive-ST-NEG SPKR.SYM-AUX.PFV-REC.PST
'S/he did not arrive yesterday.'

In comparing the lexical verbs in the affirmative clauses with those in the negative ones, it is apparent that the forms differ. In (5), for example, the stem denoting 'go' has the form *nẽ* in the affirmative and *nẽya* (featuring the stem vowel -*a*) in the negated clause. They constitute different inflectional stems, which are conditioned morphologically. That is, *nẽ* is used when an anti-clitic follows, i.e. *#nka-ne* '1PL.I-PST', while *nẽya* (*nẽ-a*) is required when inflectional suffixes such as -*zhá* 'NEG' follow. The same alternation can be observed with *nak* 'arrive' in example (6). It occurs as *nak* without inflectional suffixes, and as *naka* (*nak-a*) before -*zhá* 'NEG'.

It is important to note that this is not a consequence of negation marking specifically but rather a general morphological requirement. Therefore, the periphrastic past constructions can be considered symmetric: while there is a struc-

[4]As noted in the introduction, the functions of engagement markers are complex, and their exact interpretation depends on the pragmatic context. In grammatical elicitation focusing on tense and negation, the speaker symmetric form *ni-* was chosen as the least marked variant. As a pragmatic context that would allow for an interpretation of the engagement marker was absent, I do not include it in the free translation.

tural difference in the form of the verb stem, it is not induced by negation marking.[5]

The periphrastic construction in (6b) has a synthetic counterpart, presented in (7a). However, such constructions cannot take the negation marker, as shown in (7b).

(7) a. mebák ninaggú.
mebák *ni-nak-ngú*
yesterday SPKR.SYM-arrive-REC.PST
'S/he arrived yesterday.'

b. * *ni-nak-a-**zhá**-ngú*
SPKR.SYM-arrive-ST-NEG-REC.PST

States of affairs with future time reference, similar to the recent past construction, can be expressed by either a synthetic verb or by a periphrastic construction, as illustrated in (8). In contrast to the past construction, however, the negation marker *-zhá* can be used in both variants, i.e. either on the synthetic form, as in (9a), or the lexical verb in a periphrastic construction, as shown in (9b).[6]

(8) a. nakalika.
nak-a-líka
arrive-ST-FUT
'S/he will arrive.'

b. nak gualika.
nak *gu-a-líka*
arrive AUX.PFV-ST-FUT
'S/he will arrive.'

(9) a. nagazhálika.
*nak-a-**zhá**-líka*
arrive-ST-NEG-FUT
'S/he won't arrive.'

b. nagazhá gualika.
*nak-a-**zhá*** *gu-a-líka*
arrive-ST-NEG AUX.PFV-ST-FUT
'S/he won't arrive.'

[5] A comparable apparent asymmetry is found in Canela-Krahô (Macro-Ge) as discussed by Miestamo (2005: 69).

[6] The alternation (*k* ~ *g*) between *naka* and *naga* in examples (5) and (6) is morphologically conditioned and should not concern the reader further.

In comparing the affirmative future forms in Table 1 with their negative counterparts in Table 2, we can observe some idiosyncrasies which point to asymmetries between the two constructions, namely in the forms of second person and first person plural.[7] In the second person forms, the person index changes from a pre-stem position to post-stem position in the negated form. First person plural has two possibilities in negation: one in which the person index follows the stem, as in the affirmative, and one in which it precedes the stem. Both forms can be used interchangeably. The verb pairs of first person singular, and third person singular and plural, by contrast, are symmetrical in that the addition of the negative marker does not cause any structural changes. Note that the stem alternation *tuka* ~ *tuga* is conditioned morphologically and depends on the nature of the following suffix.

Symmetry can also be observed in paradigmatic terms, as all distinctions made in the affirmative are possible in the negative.

Table 1: Affirmative synthetic future tense of *tuk* 'drink'

	SG	PL
1	*tukalikue* *tuk-a-líka-uge* drink-ST-FUT-1SG.I	*tugakualika* *tuk-a-kua-líka* drink-ST-1SG.I-FUT
2	*matukalika* *ma-tuk-a-líka* 2SG.I-drink-ST-FUT	*mintukalika* *min-tuk-a-líka* 2PL.I-drink-ST-FUT
3	*tukalika* *tuk-a-líka* drink-ST-FUT	*atukalika* *a-tuk-a-líka* 3PL.I-drink- ST-FUT

In negated future clauses, the negation marker *-zhá* has different allomorphs, as can be seen in Table 2. The allomorph *-zhá* always occurs directly after the stem (which is also the case in past clauses, where the marker exclusively is found in this environment). In the forms in which a person index precedes *-zhá*, the negation marker has the allomorphs *-ná* after *n* (2PL) and *-lá* after *a.* This variation can be explained by the frequent morphophonological process of denasalization *n* → *l* / __*a*.[8] This points to a historically underlying form *-ná*

[7] Note that the 1PL.I allomorph *-kua* used in the affirmative exclusively occurs in future tense.

[8] E.g. *na-* '1SG.INAL' + *nu* 'elder sister' → *nalú* 'my elder sister'.

Table 2: Negative synthetic future tense of *tuk* ‘drink’

	SG	PL	
1	*tuga**zhá**likue* *tuk-a-zhá-lika-uge* drink-ST-NEG-1SG.I-FUT	*tukanka**lá**lika* *tuk-a-nka-zhá-líka* drink-ST-1PL.I-NEG-FUT	*katuga**zhá**lika* *nka-tuk-a-zhá-líka* 1PL.I-drink-ST-NEG-FUT
2	*tukaba**lá**lika* *tuk-a-ma-zhá-líka* drink-ST-2SG.I-NEG-FUT	*tukabi**ná**lika* *tuk-a-min-zhá-líka* drink-ST-2PL.I-NEG-FUT	
3	*tuga**zhá**lika* *tuk-a-zhá-líka* drink-ST-NEG-FUT	*atuga**zhá**lika* *a-tuk-a-zhá-líka* 3PL.I-drink-ST-NEG-FUT	

of the negation marker. The process *n* ⟶ *zh* / *i*_[9] might account for the form *-zhá,* yet there is no element *i* present. For this reason, the allomorphy can be considered morphologically conditioned (at least from a synchronic perspective).

Summarizing the observations for the constructions and paradigms that involve the negation marker *-zhá*, asymmetry is present in the synthetic recent past, as this construction cannot be negated, see example (7) above.[10] In all other respects, negation with *-zhá* is symmetrical.

2.1.2 Negative imperfective *-kí*

Imperfective aspect in affirmative clauses is expressed by a number of markers including *-tok~nok* ‘PROG’[11] which expresses progressive aspect, and the two imperfective markers *-té* ‘IPFV$_1$’ and *-ĩ* ‘IPFV$_2$’. While the functional and distributional properties between the latter two are not yet fully understood, it appears that *-té* often conveys inchoative semantics, focussing on the beginning of a state of affairs, while *-ĩ* is used with stative verbs (see Knuchel 2022 for details). Note that this descriptive shortcoming does constitute a substantial problem for the present discussion, as clauses with either of these markers are negated by one and the same negation marker, namely *-kí* ‘NEG.IPFV’.

[9] E.g. *mi-* ‘2SG.INAL’ + *nu* ‘elder sister’ ⟶ *mizhú* ‘your elder sister’

[10] The same holds for hodiernal and remote past morphemes, which form a single paradigm with the recent past marker.

[11] With 1PL and 2SG/PL subjects, the marker has the allomorph *-nok*, which is segmentally identical with its source, namely the lexical verb *nok* ‘be located’. The marker retains some verbal properties in that it is extended by the stem formative *-a* in certain instances, such as negation with *-kí* (see below in this section).

Imperfectives formed with *-té* 'IPFV$_1$' and *-ĩ* 'IPFV$_2$'can be followed by the imperfective auxiliary *nok*, which is optional in the present and required in other tenses. The negation marker *-kí* attaches to the lexical verb, where it replaces the affirmative imperfective marker, as is illustrated in examples (10–11).

(10) a. inzhi munaté (nzhok).
inzhi mun-a-té ni-nok
yucca grow-ST-IPFV$_1$ SPKR.SYM-AUX.IPFV
'The yucca plants are growing.'

b. inzhi munakí (nzhok).
*inzhi mun-a-**kí** ni-nok*
yucca grow-ST-NEG.IPFV SPKR.SYM-AUX.IPFV
'The yucca plants are not growing.'

(11) a. sui nakzeshĩ.
sui nak-zek-ĩ
cold 1SG.III-feel-IPFV$_2$
'I'm cold.'

b. sui nakzegakí.
*sui nak-zek-a- **kí***
cold 1SG.III-feel-ST-NEG.IPFV
'I'm not cold.'

Clauses with the progressive marker *-tok~nok* have two possible negative counterparts, which appear to be equal in meaning. In (12b), the negative imperfective marker *-kí* attaches after *-tok*, to a form that is extended with the stem vowel *-a*, apparently a retained trait from the marker's source, the full verb *nok* 'be located'. While affirmative progressive verbs accommodate person and tense markers, this is not the case in negated forms. Instead, these categories can be marked on the imperfective auxiliary *nok* (optional in present tense).

(12) a. arróz nugatukkuge.
arróz nuk-a-tok-ka-uge
rice cook-ST-PROG-PRS-1SG.I
'I am cooking rice.'

b. arró z nugatogakí (nzhokú).
*arróz nuk-a-tok-a-**kí** ni-nok-kú*
rice cook-ST-PROG-ST-NEG.IPFV SPKR.SYM-AUX.IPFV-1SG.I
'I am not cooking rice.'

The sentence in (12a) can equally by negated with the clause in (13), which is the same negative construction as the one with *-ĩ* and *-té* imperfectives, examples (10b) and (11b) above.

(13) arroz nugakí (nzhokú).
*arroz nuk-a-**kí*** *ni-nok-kú*
rice cook-ST-NEG.IPFV SPKR.SYM-be-1SG.I.PRS
'I am not cooking rice.'

Negation marking in the imperfective involves constructional asymmetry. First, in the forms with *-ĩ* and *-té*, the aspect markers are dropped in negation. Secondly, negation of imperfectives with *-tok* causes the loss of person and tense marking on the lexical verb. Furthermore, we encounter paradigmatic asymmetry, as the distinction among the different imperfective forms is largely neutralized in the negative domain and all constructions are negated with the same marker *-kí.*

2.1.3 Negative habitual *-ne*

Clauses with habitual meaning, marked with *-ka,* are negated by the suffix *-ne* 'NEG.HAB', as illustrated in example (14).

(14) a. awalinti matukka.
awalinti *ma-tuk-ka*
aguardiente 2SG.I-drink-HAB
'You drink aguardiente (a type of liquor).'

b. awalinti tugabale.
awalinti *tuk-a-ma-**ne***
aguardiente drink-ST-2SG.I-NEG.HAB
'You never drink aguardiente.'

The full paradigms of the verb *tuk* 'drink' in its affirmative and negative habitual forms are given in Table 3 and Table 4.

While in the affirmative habitual, subject person is marked by verbal prefixes, the negated forms feature subject suffixes. The habitual negation marker has an allomorph *-zhe* in the first person singular. This alternation is reminiscent of the one in negated future verbs (see Table 2 above). Similarly to the allomorphy in the negative future, no phonological environment that would account for this change can be determined, as both *-zh(e)* and *-ne* occur after *a.* Thus, it can be

Table 3: Habitual paradigm of *tuk* 'drink'

	SG	PL
1	*tukkuge* *tuk-ka-uge* drink-HAB-1SG.I	*katukka* *ka-tuk-ka* 1PL.I-drink-HAB
2	*ma-tuk-ka* *ma-tuk-ka* 2SG.I-drink-HAB	*mintukka* *min-tuk-ka* 2PL.I-drink-HAB
3	*tukka* *tuk-ka* drink-HAB	*atukka* *a-tuk-ka* 3PL.I-drink-HAB

Table 4: Negative habitual paradigm of *tuk* 'drink'

	SG	PL
1	*tugazhuge* *tuk-a-**ne**-uge* drink-ST-NEG.HAB-1SG.I	*tukankale* *tuka-nka-**ne*** drink-ST-1PL.I-NEG.HAB
2	*tugabale* *tuk-a-ma-**ne*** drink-ST-2SG.I-NEG.HAB	*tugabine* *tuk-a-min-**ne*** drink-ST-2PL.I-NEG.HAB
3	*tugagale* *tuk-a-**gale*** drink-ST-NEG.HAB	*atugagale* *a-tuk-a-**gale*** 3PL.I-drink-ST-NEG.HAB

maintained that the allomorphs are conditioned by morphology. Moreover, third person verbs feature an allomorph *gale,* which is attested exclusively in these forms.

The constructions are analyzed as asymmetric, given that the habitual marker *-ka* is dropped in the negated forms. Habitual aspect is expressed alongside negation by *-ne.* Furthermore, a striking structural difference is the position of subject indexes in the forms of first person plural and second person singular and plural. While these markers are prefixed in the affirmative, they occur after the verb stem as suffixes in the negative habitual.

While the marker *-ka* can have both a habitual and a present imperfective interpretation, *-ne* only negates habitual states of affairs. In other words, there is no one-to-one correspondence between the affirmative and the negative habitual on formal grounds. Rather, the choice of the negation marker depends on the aspectual/temporal interpretation of a clause. For example, the clause in (15) is marked with the first person present/habitual marker, has a present imperfective interpretation and is negated with *-kí*.

(15) a. nahuli nẽkuge.
na-hu-ni *nẽ-ka-uge*
1SG.INAL-house-ALL go-PRS-1SG.I
'I'm going home.'

b. nahuli nẽyakí.
na-hu-ni *nẽ-a-**kí***
1SG.INAL-house-ALL go-ST-NEG.IPFV
'I'm not going home.'

The negative habitual verb forms can be combined with auxiliaries that denote tense to refer to, for instance, past situations as in (16).

(16) a. sukkua nalgukuéng ũwã gákuge nane.
sukkua nal-gu-ku-éng ũwã ga-ka-uge nal#ne
child be-REM.PST-1SG.I-SIM meat eat-HAB-1SG.I AUX#PST
'When I was I child, I had the habit of eating meat.'

b. ũwã gazhuge nane.
*ũwã ga-**ne**-uge nal#ne*
meat eat-NEG.HAB-1SG.I AUX#PST
'I did not have the habit of eating meat.'

2.1.4 Negation in modal constructions

Kogi marks four types of event modality: obligative, volitive, abilitive (for acquired ability) and potential. While the first three are expressed by a combination of a lexical verb and a modal verb, potential modality is expressed through a synthetic lexical verb carrying a modal marker.

Negated clauses marked for modality involve the standard negation markers described above. However, there are further strategies that can be observed in the negation of modality, for example a negative construction which involves the modal suffix *-sïng(ze)* on lexical verbs. Another construction, namely the one of negative abilitive modality, involves the negative verb *sïng(ze)*.

Negation is marked on the modal verb in the constructions that feature one, i.e. obligative, volitive and abilitive. This is illustrated with the obligative modality clauses in (17), which involve a lexical verb marked with *-kue* and the modal verb *agatsa*.[12]

(17) a. colegioli nẽyakue nagatsane.
colegio-ni nẽ-a-kue nak-a-zal#ne
school-ALL go-ST-OBLIG 1SG.III-POSS-be#PST
'I had to go to school.'

b. colegioli nẽyakue nagatsalazhane.
*colegio-ni nẽ-a-kue nak-a-zal-a-**zhá**#ne*
school-ALL go-ST-OBLIG 1SG.III-POSS-be-ST-NEG#PST
'I didn't have to go to school.'

In obligative, volitive and abilitive clauses, markers of standard negation are attached to the modal verb. In this respect, these negative constructions contrast with those unmarked for modality, where the locus of negation marking typically is the lexical verb. Any of the major negation markers can be used, depending on the aspectual value of the clause.

The potential marker *-akka* can have a permissive or abilitive interpretation. Potential verbs consist of a verb stem, followed by a person index and the potential marker, as is shown in (18). Such predicates exclusively accommodate the negative marker *-zhá*.

(18) a. zú kazïnakka.
zï-nuk-a-zïna-akka
ANTIP-cook-ST-1SG.II-POT
'We may cook.'

b. zugazházïnakka.
*zï-nuk-a-**zhá**-zïna-akka*
ANTIP-cook-ST-NEG-1SG.II-POT
'We may not cook.'

[12] The obligative modal verb can be analyzed as consisting of an indirect object marker (typical for experiencer predicates), a possessive marker and the stem *zal* 'be': *agatsa* – *ak-a-zal* (3SG.III-POSS-be). This is reminiscent of the verb form in possessive predication which is based on a different lexeme with the meaning 'be', namely *nal*. For details about possessive predicates see §2.3.

Negation of abilitive clauses that refer to an acquired ability involves the negative existential verb *sïngze*. Its affirmative counterpart *kual* ~ *kue* 'exist' is used with the sense of knowing or being capable of something when indirect object markers index the subject. With this meaning, the verb is used as a modal verb in abilitive clauses, as exemplified in (19a), and is negated by replacing the stem with the negative verb *sïng(ze)* (19b). Note that this polysemy of existence in modal constructions has been observed as well in other languages, where the same expression is used in abilitive and existential constructions. This is noted, for example, by Veselinova (2013) for Hawai'ian. Alternatively, abilitive clauses can be negated with the habitual negative marker, as in (19c).

(19) a. huẽna nakkué.
huẽn-a nak-kué
swim-ST 1SG.III-exist
'I can / know how to swim.'

b. huẽna naksïngze.
huẽn-a nak-**sïngze**
swim-ST 1SG.III-NEG.EX
'I can't / don't know how to swim.' (lit. 'Swimming exists / does not exist to me.')

c. huẽna nakkualagále.
huẽn-a nak-kual-a-**gale**
swim-ST 1SG.III-exist-ST-NEG.HAB
'I can't / don't know how to swim.'

Note that the verb *sïngze* is the negative existential, discussed in §2.3 below.

In addition to negation with the major markers discussed above, obligative, volitive and potential modality verbs may take the suffix *-sïng(ze)*, which is a grammaticalized form of the negative existential verb.[13] The forms *-sïng* and *-sïngze* appear to be interchangeable; the source or original function of *ze* is unknown.

The suffix attaches to the lexical verb (rather than to the modal) and is neutral in terms of modal meaning, i.e. it is used for any of the three modalities. The negation marker replaces the one of modality, as illustrated in (20–21). The type

[13] Cross-linguistically, negative existentials are a common source of markers of verbal negation, cf. the "Negative Existential Cycle" discussed by Croft (1991) or Veselinova (2014), as is the case in Kogi. It must be noted, however, that such developments are often only partial takeovers of the domain of verbal negation, as discussed by Veselinova (2016).

of modality instead is indicated by the modal verb (19b), or can be inferred from context, as in (21b).[14]

(20) a. matṹ nana nakzeshĩ.
matũ-nana nak-zek-ĩ
2sg.II-see-vol 1sg.III-feel-ipfv$_2$
'I want to see you.'

b. alé ngki tũası̃́ng akzeshĩ.
*aléng-ki tũa-**sïng** ak-zek-ĩ*
3sg-top see-neg 3sg.III-feel-ipfv$_2$
'She doesn't want to see [him].'

(21) a. tũanakka.
tũ-a-na-akka
see-st-1sg.II-pot
'I can see [it].'

b. muldetwa tũasĩng.
*muldetwa tũa-**sïng***
well see-neg
'I can't see it well.'

Negation with *-sïng(ze)* can be characterized as asymmetric in both constructional and paradigmatic terms. The negative modality marker replaces affirmative modality markers, which constitutes a structural difference. Moreover, in the case of potential modality (20), person marking on the lexical verb is omitted. As for the paradigmatic structure, the distinction between obligative, volitive and potential is neutralized in the negative paradigm.

The different strategies of negation and their compatibility with different modalities are summarized in Table 5. At present, it is not clear what determines the choice of the standard negation markers or the negative existential.

2.1.5 Phasal polarity

Kogi has dedicated markers of phasal polarity, a category that combines polarity distinctions with temporal/aspectual meanings (van der Auwera 1998, Kramer 2017). This is illustrated in the examples in (22).

[14]In negative modal clauses with *-sïng(ze),* the modal verb is often omitted.

Table 5: Negation in modal clauses

	Structure (3sg, affirm.)	Standard negators	Suffix *-sïng(ze)*	Verb *sïng(ze)*
Obligative	V-*kue agatsé* 'he has to V'	any, on modal V	V-*sïng(ze) agatsé*	–
Volitive	V-*nana akzeshĩ* 'he feels like V-ing'	any, on modal V	V-*sïng(ze) akzeshi*	–
Abilitive	V *akkué* 'he knows how to V'	any, on modal V	–	V *aksïng(ze)*
Potential	V-*akka* 's/he can/may V'	exclusively *-zhá* on lexical verb	V-*sïng(ze)*	–

(22) a. José ya ahuk izhukka.
José ***ya*** *a-hu-k* *i-nok-ka*
José already 3sg.inal-house-loc loc.appl-be.located-prs
'José is already at home.'

b. José ahuk izhukkaga.
José a-hu-k *i-nok-ka-**ga***
José 3sg.inal-house-loc loc.appl-be.located-prs-still
'José is still at home.'

c. José ahuk izhogaksá.
José a-hu-k *i-nok-a-**ksá***
José 3sg.inal-house-loc loc.appl-be.located-st-no.longer
'José is no longer at home.'

d. José ahuk izhogagánga.
José a-hu-k *i-nok-a-**gánga***
José 3sg.inal-house-loc loc.appl-be.located-st-not.yet
'José is not yet at home.'

Expressions of phasal polarity have been characterized as involving "reference points at two related phases implying situations which are contrasted as opposites with different polarity values" (Kramer 2017: 1). More precisely, the expressions *already* and *still* indicate that the proposition *John is at home* holds at a certain reference point, while at the same time referring to a point in time, either preceding (i.e. *already*) or subsequent (i.e. *still*), at which it does not hold. The expressions *no longer* and *not yet,* by contrast, express that the proposition is not the case at a certain reference point, while referring to a reference point, either preceding (i.e. *no longer*) or subsequent (i.e. *not yet*), at which the proposition holds.

In Kogi, the phasal polarity value of ‘already’ is expressed by the Spanish loan *ya* ‘already’ (22a), and the value ‘still’ by the suffix *-ga* (22b).[15] Both negative phasal values are expressed by affixes, namely *-ksá* ‘no longer’ (22c) and *-gánga* ‘not yet’ (22d).

While forms with *-gánga* do not take person marking, this is the case in constructions with *-ksá*, as exemplified in (23). Instead of subject indexes, the subject is referenced with direct object markers in this construction.

(23) huk izhogalaksá.
hu-k *i-nok-a-na-**ksá***
house-LOC LOC.APPL-be.located-ST-1SG.II-no.longer
‘I am no longer at home.’

With regard to tense, no restrictions in the use of *-ksá* and *-gánga* are attested. In other words, negative phasal polarity affixes can be used in clauses with past and present as well as future time reference. The markers only apply in periphrastic constructions where they attach to the lexical verb while tense is marked on the auxiliary. This is illustrated in (24) and (25).

(24) nuzhí nki mulbatá akzegaksá gualika.
nuzhín-ki *mulbatá ak-zek-a-**ksá*** *gu-a-líka*
tomorrow-TOP sickness 3SG.III-feel-ST-no.longer AUX.PFV-ST-FUT
‘Tomorrow, I will no longer be sick.’

(25) mebakke tuang zeshĩ nki nahate nagagánga nigungú.
mebák-ke *tuang zek-ĩ-ki* *na-hate*
yesterday-SUB dark happen-ST-IPFV$_2$-TOP 1SG.INAL-father
*nak-a-**gánga*** *ni-gu-ngú*
arrive-ST-not.yet SPKR.SYM-AUX.PFV-REC.PST
‘Last night, my father hadn’t arrived yet.’

Verbs marked with *-ksá* ‘no longer’ necessarily denote a durative state of affairs, which no longer holds at the time of speaking. Thus, predicates marked

[15]The marker *-ga* is also found with parts of speech other than verbs, e.g. nouns or postpositions, and depending on the context has a number of different functions: in addition to ‘still’, it may be used for emphasis and to denote ‘too, also’ or ‘the same’. This is a common polysemy of markers of ‘still’ (cf. van van Baar 1997).

with *-ksá* always have a perfective reading. States of affairs marked with *-gánga* 'not yet', by contrast, are neutral in terms of aspectual interpretation. That is, depending on the employed auxiliary, it has a perfective (26a) or imperfective (26b) reading.

(26) a. María zugagánga niguá.
*María zï-nuk-a-**gánga*** *ni-gu-á*
María ANTIP-cook-ST-not.yet SPKR.SYM-AUX.PFV-HOD.PST
'María did not cook yet.'

b. María zugagánga nzhok.
*María zï-nuk-a-**gánga*** *ni-nok*
María ANTIP-cook-ST-not.yet SPKR.SYM-AUX.IPFV
'María is not cooking yet.'

While English has distinct expressions for each of the values, there are languages in which there is a relationship in terms of negation between two members, i.e. they constitute a pair of the same expression in an affirmative and a negated form. The Spanish expression *todavía no* 'not yet', for example, is a negated form of *todavía* 'still'. Löbner (1989) characterizes the relationships that hold among phasal polarity expressions in terms of internal versus external negation. In internal negation, an element has the negation in its scope, i.e. (X NOT), whereas in external negation, the element is within the scope of negation, i.e. NOT(X). Thus, the relationship between Spanish *ya* and *ya no* is an internal one and can be conceptualized as (still NOT) = 'not yet'.

Along similar lines, a relationship of internal negation may be postulated to hold between *-ga* 'still' and *-gánga* 'not yet', as it seems that the former is included in the latter. That is, *-gánga* can be considered a negated form of *-ga*, given that one of the syllables is considered a negation marker. While the morpheme *-ga* is not attested as a negation marker in any other environment, it is associated with negation in that it is part of the prohibitive marker *-gabba* (see §2.2.1), and occurs in the third person allomorph of the negative habitual, i.e. *-gale*. At present, I have no conclusive answer to the historical source of *-gánga.*

(A)symmetries in the structure of paradigms, as introduced by Miestamo (2005), can also be determined in phasal polarity systems. Kramer (2017: 16–19) makes a distinction between internal and external (a)symmetry. The internal symmetry relates to expressibility (i.e. a symmetric system has expressions for each of the four values) and morphosyntactic status (i.e. in terms of wordhood / morphosyntactic position) of phasal polarity expressions. Kramer's concept of external symmetry is similar to paradigmatic symmetry as introduced by

Miestamo (2005). That is, the system is symmetric if the same distinctions (e.g. in terms of TAM) in the affirmative can combine with all phasal polarity expressions.

From the internal (a)symmetry perspective, the Kogi system can be considered asymmetric in terms of morphosyntactic status among the expressions. Both negative phasal polarity markers attach to the dependent verb stem. The marker denoting ‘still’ by contrast, occurs in the left most slot of an inflected verb form. Finally, the particle *ya* ‘already’ borrowed from Spanish stands out in that it is an unbound morpheme that is not restricted to only one syntactic slot in the clause. In this respect Kogi is similar to many European languages where expressions for ‘already’ are markedly different from the other phasal polarity expressions (cf. van der Auwera 1998).

In terms of tense, the negative phasal polarity markers show paradigmatic symmetry. That is, all tense distinctions can occur in the corresponding negative polarity constructions. The interactions of negative phasal polarity and aspect are more complex. While *-gánga* ‘not yet’ is compatible with both perfective and imperfective aspect, *-ksá* ‘no longer’ always has a perfective interpretation, in that it denotes events that are completed.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Negative non-declarative clauses generally feature the same negation markers as declarative clauses. Exceptions are imperative and optative clauses with second person subjects, which are negated with the suffix *-gabba.*

2.2.1 Negation of optatives and imperatives

Optative mood, i.e. the expression of hopes or wishes, is marked by the suffix *-lí.*[16] As exemplified in (27), the negation marker *-zhá* is used in the negative clause (27b).

(27) a. hanshibé nakalí.
hanshibé nak-a-lí
good arrive-ST-OPT
‘Hopefully, he will arrive safely.’

[16]The marker *-lí* is generally associated with future reference. It is used as future marker in subordinate verbs and is a component of the future marker *-líka.* When occurring in main clauses, *-lí* denotes an uncertain future.

b. itshuanazháli.
*itshuan-a-**zhá**-lí*
get.lost-ST-NEG-OPT
'Hopefully, he doesn't get lost.'

Optative clauses with second person subjects differ in terms of negation as they employ the dedicated negation marker *-gabba*, as illustrated in (28).

(28) a. hanshibé malẽyalí.
hanshibé ma-nẽ-a-lí
good 2SG.I-go-ST-OPT
'Travel safely!' (lit. 'May you go well!')

b. tashimali mitshuanagabba.
*tashima-ni ma-itshuan-a-**gabba***
woods-LOC 2SG.II-get.lost-ST-NEG.OPT
'May you not get lost in the woods.'

The marker *-lí* is also used in the expression of invitations, which can be conceived of as a mitigated form of commands. For the more prototypical expression of commands, namely imperatives, Kogi has two dedicated markers for second singular and second plural clauses, which is cross-linguistically very common (see van der Auwera & Lejeune 2013). Imperatives featuring *-gua* 'IMP.SG' and *-guĩ* 'IMP.PL' are illustrated in (29).

(29) a. *tũ-gua!*
look-IMP.SG
'Look! (SG)'

b. *tũ-guĩ!*
look-IMP.PL
'Look! (PL)'

Negative imperatives, also called prohibitives (van der Auwera et al. 2013), also feature the negation marker *-gabba,* as shown in (30). The Kogi prohibitive belongs to the fourth type defined by van der Auwera et al. (2013), i.e. it differs structurally from the affirmative imperative and features a negation marker that does not occur in indicative declaratives.

(30) *tũ-a-**gabba**!*
look-ST-PROH
'Don't look! (SG/PL)'

Second person optative and imperative clauses are structurally asymmetrical given that the mood marker is dropped when the clause is negated. Moreover, optative and imperative paradigms can be characterized as asymmetrical, as optative clauses have two types of negative constructions depending on the subject. Moreover, the number distinction found in imperative clauses is neutralized in prohibitives.

It is evident that the negation marker -*gabba* in non-declarative clauses is associated with second person. The same suffix is used in negative circumstantial clauses such as in *walk without looking*, which are discussed in §2.4 below.

2.2.2 Negation in questions

As for interrogatives, there are no dedicated negation markers and the same constructions as in standard negation are used. It can be maintained that questions tend to be marked on auxiliaries, whereas negation markers more commonly attach to lexical verbs. A question formed by the interrogative marker -*é* is illustrated in (31).[17]

(31) a. arróz habbi makungué?
arróz habbi ma-gu-ngú-é
rice buy 2SG.I-AUX.PFV-REC.PST-Q
'Did you buy rice?'

b. arróz habbiazhá makungué?
*arróz habbi-a-**zhá** ma-gu-ngú-é?*
rice buy-ST-NEG 2SG.I-AUX.PFV-REC.PST-Q
'Didn't you buy rice?'

When expressing a request for information with a negative interrogative construction, the speaker typically has reason to believe that the questioned proposition is not the case. This is illustrated in the question-answer pair in (32), in which speaker A, who in fact knows about the condition of speaker B's father, asks for confirmation of his assumption that the father did not come down from the village in the mountains. Speaker B answers the question with the negative reply *nada* and confirms speaker A's assumption.[18]

[17] There are two further interrogative strategies, namely marking only by falling intonation and by engagement markers which target the addressee's knowledge. All interrogative constructions behave alike in terms of negation.

[18] *nada* is borrowed from Spanish *nada* 'nothing' and is used as a sort of emphatic negative reply (see §3.1).

(32) Q: mihate zabazhá?
mi-hate *zabi-a-**zhá***
2SG.INAL-father descend-ST-NEG
'Your father did not come down?'

A: nada ẽki kala akzeshĩ.
nada ẽ-ki *kala ak-zek-ĩ*
no DEM-TOP leg 3SG.III-hurt-IPFV$_2$
'No, his legs are hurting.'

Negative interrogatives are often used as tag questions to seek the interlocutor's confirmation, as in the following examples (33–34) from an interactional, picture-based story building task.

(33) hika nẽshatukka hana agatsé, NALAGALE SHINA?
hika *nẽ-sha-tuk-ka* *hana agatsé nal-a-**gale*** *shi-nal*
something go-CAUS-PROG-PRS like look be-ST-NEG.HAB ADDR.SYM-be
'It looks like he is vending something, DOESN'T IT?'

(34) hũa, somá nóngutse, TŨAKÍ SHIMALA?
*hũa somá nóngutse tũ-a-**kí*** *shi-ma-nal*
look baby little see-ST-NEG.IPFV ADDR.SYM-2SG.I-be
'Look, the baby is little, DON'T YOU SEE?'

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predicates do not exhibit any specialized markers and the major negation markers are used in these constructions. The choice of the marker depends on the aspectual interpretation of a clause, which is often determined by the type of state of affairs in terms of (im)permanence.

In the affirmative domain, equation and proper inclusion in the present tense are typically expressed by juxtaposition of the subject and the predicate. The copula *nal* 'be' is optional in present tense (as in (35a), whereas it is required when markers of tense or modality are employed. This is illustrated in (35) with an example of an equation clause, where *gale* 'NEG.HAB' attaches to the copula.

(35) a. Maríaki nahaba (na).
María-ki *na-haba* *nal*
María-TOP 1SG.INAL-mother COP
'María is my mother.'

b. Maríaki nahaba nalagale.
*María-ki na-haba nal-a-**gale***
María-TOP 1SG.INAL-mother COP-ST-NEG.HAB
'María is not my mother.'

With regard to structural differences, the clauses in (35) differ in the obligatoriness of the copula verb. Note however, that this is not due to negation marking specifically but rather a general morphosyntactic requirement for expressing certain inflectional categories such as negation or tense (e.g. past tense in (36) below).

Adjectives in Kogi can be divided broadly into two classes: those that are used independently, and those that always occur with an auxiliary verb in both attributive and predicative function. The independent class consists of a relatively small number of adjectives which denote properties such as age, color or size. Similar to nominal predicates, adjectival predicates in present tense are juxtaposed with the subject, the copula being optional. The use of inflectional markers requires the copula, as in the past tense forms in (36). The copula is also the base for negation marking, as shown in (36b).

(36) a. zhiklukká nánuge.
zhiklukká nal#ne-uge
tall COP#PST-1SG.I
'I was tall.'

b. zhiklukká nalazhánuge.
*zhiklukká nal-a-**zhá**#ne-uge*
tall COP-ST-NEG#PST-1SG.I
'I was not tall.'

Adjectives belonging to the second class cannot occur on their own but must be combined with an auxiliary in both predicative or attributive use, namely *atsál* for properties that are visually perceivable and *zal* for properties that are perceived through other senses, e.g. taste. These dependent adjectives express properties that can be either temporary or permanent, a distinction which is reflected in the choice of negation marker. More permanent states are negated with the negative habitual (37b), while those that hold temporarily take the negative imperfective (38).

(37) a. hanshi nagatsé.
hanshi nak-atsal
beautiful 1SG.III-AUX
'I'm beautiful.'

b. hanshi nagatsalagale.
*hanshi nak-atsal-a-**gale***
beautiful 1SG.III-AUX-ST-NEG.HAB
'I'm not beautiful.'

(38) a. zhakua hanshi agatsé.
zhakua hanshi ak-atsal
dress clean 3SG.III-AUX
'The dress is clean.'

b. zhakua hanshi agatsaldakí.
*zhakua hanshi ak-atsal-a-**kí***
dress clean 3SG.III-AUX-ST-NEG.IPFV
'The dress is not clean.'

Existential and locative predications are structurally similar in Kogi. That is, both kinds of constructions can feature either a locative verb, the existential verb *kual ~ kue,* or a combination of both. While there are certain characteristics that set the two construction types apart, they are identical in terms of negation, i.e. in both, negation markers attach to the existential verb.

A prototypical existential involves a compound verb consisting of a locative root and the existential verb, as in (39).

(39) baka abaksï zhekue.
baka abaksï zhe-kue
cow black be.located.PL-exist
'There are black cows.'

In some instances, the existential verb can be used on its own, e.g. when referencing shapeless objects (e.g. smoke) or objects whose position is not known. An existential construction may also involve solely a locative verb, in which case they are mainly distinguished from locative predicates on the basis of the order of Figure and Ground noun phrases.

When the Ground NP precedes the Figure NP (40), only an existential reading is possible. Clauses with the order Figure – Ground are prototypical locative predications; however, they can also be interpreted as existential predications (41).

(40) mesak kalta ipá.

a. *mesa-k kalta i-pá*
table-LOC book LOC.APPL-lie

b. *mesa-k kalta i-pa-kue*
table-LOC book LOC.APPL-lie-exist
'There is a book on the table.' (*'The book is on the table.')

(41) kalta mesak ipá.
kalta mesa-k i-pá
book table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie
'The book is on the table.' or 'There is a book on the table.'

Locative predicates prototypically have the structure [Figure – Ground – locative verb], as illustrated in (41), and (42) below. While the existential verb can be used in locative predication instead of a locative verb in some instances (42), the compound verb, such as the one in (39), does not occur in these constructions.

(42) haggi canastali akkué.
haggi canasta-li ak-kué
stone basket-LOC INE-exist
'The stone is in the basket.'

Turning to negation, both existentials and locatives have the same structure, namely imperfective or habitual negation is marked on the existential verb and cannot attach directly to a locative verb. In the case of locative predication, the presence of *kual ~ kue* is a general morphosyntactic requirement for the use of inflectional markers such as tense and also negation, as shown in (43–45).

(43) baka atsïtshi zhekualagale.
*baka atsïtshi zhe-kual-a-**gale***
cow red be.located.PL-exist-ST-NEG.HAB
'There are no red cows.'

(44) mesak kalta ipakualakí.
*mesa-k kalta i-pa-kual-a-**kí***
table-LOC book LOC.APPL-lie-exist-ST-NEG.IPFV
'There is no book on the table.'

(45) kalta mesak ipakualakí.

a. *kalta mesa-k i-pa-kual-a-**kí***
book table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie-exist-ST-NEG.IPFV

b. * *kalta mesa-k i-pa-kí*
book table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie-NEG.IPFV
'The book is not on the table.'

In possessive predications, exemplified in (46–47), either negation marker is attested, depending on the permanence of the situation.

(46) a. puelta nakalé.
puelta nak-a-nal
money 1SG.III-POSS-be
'I have some money.'

b. puelta nakalalakí.
*puelta nak-a-nal-a-**kí***
money 1SG.III-POSS-be-ST-NEG.IPFV
'I don't have any money (on me right now).'

(47) a. nalú nakalé.
na-nu nak-a-nal
1SG.INAL-elder.sister 1SG.III-POSS-be
'I have an elder sister.'

b. nalú nakalalagale.
*na-nu nak-a-nal-a-**gale***
1SG.INAL-elder.sister 1SG.III-POSS-be-ST-NEG.HAB
'I don't have an elder sister.'

An alternative strategy for negation features the negative existential verb *sïng(ze).* These constructions are equal in meaning to the negative locative/existential and possessive clauses discussed above. Both forms *sïng* and *sïngze* can be used interchangeably. As illustrated with the existential constructions in (48), the negative verb replaces the existential verb stem. In Miestamo's (2005) definition, this would thus be an asymmetric construction.

(48) a. puttili ni akkué.
putti-li ni ak-kué
pot-INE water INE-exist
'There is water in the pot.'

b. puttili ni aksïngze.
*putti-li ni ak-**sïngze***
pot-INE water INE-NEG.EX
'There is no water in the pot.'

In locative constructions, *sïng(ze)* is only found in the negation of clauses with the existential verb *kual* ~ *kue*, see example (42), or locative verbs containing the root *te,* as in example (49). The locative verb *te* is typically used for three-dimensional objects or animates in a sitting position.[19]

(49) a. ẽ kalokák ité.
ẽ kaloká-k i-té
DEM chair-LOC LOC.APPL-sit
'He is sitting on the chair.'

b. ẽ kalokák isḯngze.
*ẽ kaloká-k i-**sḯngze***
DEM chair-LOC LOC.APPL-NEG.EX
'He is not sitting on the chair.'

Clauses that involve other locative verbs (e.g. *pa* 'lie (flat objects)' or *sha* 'lie (long objects)') are negated by adding the existential verb and a standard negator, as shown in (50b).

(50) a. plato mesak ipa.
plato mesa-k i-pa
plate table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie
'The plate is on the table.'

b. plato mesak ipakualakí.
plato mesa-k i-pa-kual-a-kí
plate table-LOC LOC.APPL-lie-exist-ST-NEG.IPFV
'The plate is not on the table.'

Finally, the negative verb also occurs in predicative possession, where it is equal in meaning to verbs negated with major negation markers. That is, the affirmative clause in (46a) may also be negated as shown in (51). In these contexts, *sïng(ze)* is neutral in terms of aspectual meaning, i.e. the situation presented in

[19]In addition to the notion of sitting, *te* also occurs in *akté* 'stand (upright)' (negated: *aksïng*) and *agaté* 'lean on' (negated: *agasïng*). With persons, *te* can also denote 'be located' without information about posture (e.g. in 'He is in the village.').

(51) may be interpreted both as temporary (present/imperfective) or as more permanent (habitual). As noted already, the negative existential *sïng(ze)* is part of the SN construction as well. Generally, its uses and polysemy patterns follow well-known cross-linguistic tendencies to encode absence and unavailability, see Veselinova (2013).

(51) puelta nisïng.
*puelta na-i-**sïng***
money 1SG.II-LOC.APPL-NEG.EX
'I don't have any money (on me right now).'

2.4 Negation in dependent clauses

In general, dependent clauses (i.e. relative, complement and most adverbial clauses) feature the same negation markers as found in standard negation. Exceptions are negative purpose clauses and negative circumstantial clauses, as exemplified in this section.

The use of major negation markers in dependent clauses is illustrated here by adverbial clauses, which are introduced by a subordinating verbal affix expressing the temporal or causal relation between events. In the temporal adverbial clause (in brackets) in (52), the negation marker *-kí* attaches to the lexical verb *tũ* 'watch' in a periphrastic construction. The affirmative counterpart of the adverbial clause, i.e. (52b), can be synthetic or periphrastic.

(52) a. [tũakí nokenki] ezua sukkua bicicletak nak.
*tũ-a-**kí*** *nok-éng-ki* *ezua* *sukkua* *bicicleta-k* *nak*
watch-ST-NEG.IPFV AUX.IPFV-SIM-TOP INDF boy bicycle-LOC arrive
'While he isn't watching, a boy on a bicycle arrives.'

b. tũĩ nokengki / tũatokéngki sukkua nak.
tũ-ĩ *nok-eng-ki* / *tũ-a-tok-éng-ki* *sukkua* *nak*
watch-IPFV$_2$ be-SIM-TOP / watch-ST-PROG-SIM-TOP boy arrive
'While he is watching, the boy arrives.'

While there are dedicated subordinating morphemes that denote simultaneity and succession, the notion of anteriority ('before') is expressed with a simultaneous adverbial clause involving the phasal polarity marker *-gánga* 'not yet', as in (53):

(53) [huk nagaganga noguéng] níkala zekalá.

hu-k *nak-a-gánga* *nok-ngu-éng* *níkala* *zek-a-ná*
house-LOC arrive-ST-not.yet AUX.IPFV-PST-SIM rain happen-ST-INCEP
'It started raining before s/he arrived at home.' (lit. 'S/he still hadn't arrived at home…')

Note that constructional (a)symmetries in dependent clauses that take major negation markers are determined by the negative construction, as introduced in Sections §2.1.1 to §2.1.3 above (e.g. imperfective constructions with *-ĩ* as in (52) are asymmetrical).

There are two types of purpose clauses. Purpose of motion (e.g. 'I'm going to the river in order to do laundry.') is expressed by a non-finite verb marked with *-l*. These non-finite predicates cannot be negated. Other purpose clauses involve an unmarked lexical verb in combination with an auxiliary marked with *-amak*, such as the one in (54).

(54) nahí sukkuakũẽ colegioli nẽ akualiamak hiba atshikuge.

nahí *sukkua-kũẽ* *colegio-ni* *nẽ* *a-gu-a-lí-amak* *hiba*
1SG.POSS child-PL school-ALL go 3PL.I-AUX.PFV-ST-FUT-PURP work
atshi-ka-uge
do-HAB-1SG.I
'I work so that my children can go to school.'

In the negative counterpart of finite purpose clauses, the uninflectable particle *guakua* is used in combination with an imperfective form of the lexical verb. Even though *guakua* possibly includes the verb *gu* 'do', it is considered a particle as it does not allow for any person or tense/aspect marking. Given the different forms of the lexical verb and the use of a particle instead of an auxiliary, the construction is clearly asymmetrical, as exemplified in (55).

(55) a. hugaké akiónuge shentá hulunĩ guakua.

hugaké *akió#ne-uge* *shentá* *huldun-ĩ* ***guakua***
door close#PST-1SG.I chicken enter-IPFV$_2$ NEG.PURP
'I closed the door so that the chickens would not enter.'

b. séngaba nẽgua, mapenĩ guakua.

séngaba *nẽ-gua* *ma-pen-ĩ* ***guakua***
slowly walk-IMP.SG 2SG.II-fall-IPFV$_2$ NEG.PURP
'Walk slowly, so you don't fall.'

The negation marker *-gabba* that is found in prohibitive and negative optative mood is also used in negative circumstantial clauses, see (56–57). These clauses express that an event takes place without (or instead of) the occurrence of another event.

(56) stugagabba zuketa.
*zï-tuk-a-**gabba*** *zuketa*
ANTIP-drink-ST-NEG pass.by
'He goes by without drinking.'

(57) eka zïligagabbaki hiúngulak me nẽ kakungueniki hoklék.
*eka zï-nik-a-**gabba**-ki hiungula-k me nẽ*
DEM ANTIP-SOW-ST-NEG-TOP road-LOC only go
ka-gu-ngu-eni-ki hokldék
1PL.I-AUX.PFV-REM.PST-SEQ-TOP play
'Instead of sowing there [on the field], we just went up to the road and played.'

Affirmative equivalents of examples (56) and (57) would imply the realization of two successive events which are expressed by temporal adverbial clauses similar to the one in (45). As such clauses differ from the ones in (56) and (57) in several respects (e.g. in person indexing, which is not possible on the forms with *-gabba*), the constructions can be regarded as asymmetrical.

3 Non-clausal negation

In contrast to clausal negation, negation in the non-clausal domain is considerably less complex in Kogi. In what follows, the properties of negative replies (§3.1.) and negative indefinite pronouns (§3.2.) are discussed. Finally, §3.3 an abessive construction with the meaning 'without'.

3.1 Negative replies

Polar questions, i.e. questions that seek either affirmation or denial, are answered by particles that convey the polarity of the intended answer. In this regard, the system can be classified as a yes/no system, which is the most widely attested type cross-linguistically (see Moser 2018; Sadock & Zwicky 1985).

A polar question is answered affirmatively by *akze* 'yes' or the interjection *aha* [ʔaˈha], and negatively by *no* 'no' (most likely a loan from Spanish) or interjections with falling intonation *mh mh* [ˈʔḿʔm̀], *ah ah* [ˈʔáʔà]. In addition, the Spanish loan *nada* 'nothing' is employed as an emphatic negative particle with the meaning 'no way/anything but', see (32) above. In both negative and affirmative answers, the particle or interjection can be used on its own, but more commonly it is complemented by a repetition of the questioned proposition or some other kind of statement, as in (58).

(58) Q: ekí sigí na mawatũne nagabẽne nala shina?
ekí sigí na ma-a-tũ#ne nak-a-bẽ#ne nal-a
DEM man with 2SG.II-3PL.I-see#PST 1SG.III-3PL.I-tell#PST be-ST
shi-nal
ADDR.SYM-be
'They told me they saw you together with a man. Is that so?'

A: no shäbbial nuka nẽnuge nzha.
no *zï-habbi-a-l nuka nẽ#ne-uge ni-nal*
no ANTIP-buy-ST-PURP only go#PST-1SG.I SPKR.SYM-be
'No, I just went to buy [something].'

A negative reply negates the propositional content of the question, rather than its polarity. Thus, with the negative answer to the question in (59), speaker B negates the proposition (that he went) and thereby affirms speaker A's assumption (that he didn't go).

(59) Q: José-María Santa Martali nẽyazháne?
José-María Santa Marta-ldi nẽya-zhá#ne
José-María Santa Marta-ALL go-NEG#PST
'Didn't José-María go to Santa Marta?'

A: ahah, nẽyzháne naklá.
ahah, *nẽy-a-zhá#ne nak-ná*
no go-ST-NEG#PST SPKR.ASYM-be
'No, he didn't go.'

There are no polarity-reversing particles and the polarity of a negative question as in (53) is simply negated with an affirmative particle.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Indefinite pronouns of the three ontological categories 'person', 'thing' and 'time', which occur in affirmative clauses, are presented in Table 6. To express indefinite reference to persons, Kogi makes use of the numeral *ezua* 'one'. For things, either the noun *hika* 'thing' or the contrastive interrogative pronoun *maile* 'which one' is used (typically in contexts of free choice). With the exception of *maile* 'which one', all of these forms can be used pronominally, as a phrasal head, and also as a nominal modifier. *Maile*, in contrast, can only function as a modifier.

Table 6: Indefinite and interrogative pronouns

category	indefinite	negative indefinite	interrogative
person	*ezua* 'someone, some'	*ni me / me hiega* 'no one'	*me* 'who'
thing	*hika, maile* 'something, some'	*ni hi / hi hiega* 'nothing'	*hi* 'what'
time	*atshuák* 'sometime'	*ni mitsák / mitsák hiega* 'never'	*mitsák* 'when'

The bases of negative indefinite pronouns are interrogative pronouns, which are combined with either of two additive focus particles, namely *hiega* 'too, also' or *ni* 'even'. The former occurs in affirmative contexts, while the latter is exclusive to negative contexts where it co-occurs with verbal negation.

While both variants of a negative indefinite pronoun, e.g. *ni me* and *me hiega* 'no one', are used interchangeably, there can be speaker-dependent preferences for either of the forms. Negative indefinite pronouns consist of two phonological words—forms with *ni* do not undergo the word-internal, morphophonological process of *m* ⟶ *b* (e.g. **nibe*). As for forms with *hiega*, each component retains its own stress.

As shown in (60–61), negative indefinite pronouns are always used together with verbal negation marking. In this respect, Kogi belongs to the cross-linguistically most widespread type where negative indefinites and clausal negation obligatorily co-occur (Haspelmath 1997: 202). The non-negative set cannot occur in negative clauses.

(60) a. ezua nakle.
ezua nak#le
INDF arrive#.PST
'Someone arrived.'

b. ni me nakazháne.
*ni me nak-a-**zhá**#ne*
ADD who arrive-ST-NEG#PST
'No one arrived.'

(61) nahí gamá mani hiega nakzalazhá.
*nahí gamá mani hiega nak-zal-a-**zhá***
1SG.POSS bag where ADD 1SG.III-be-ST-NEG
'I didn't find my bag anywhere.'

As for quantifiers, the set of forms such as *nuk* 'all', *azbuáng* 'some' and *nõwa* 'few' does not include dedicated negative counterparts. That is, the same forms occur in affirmative and negated clauses.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

As for negative derivation or case marking, no strategies are attested. The notion of abessive is conveyed by verbal constructions involving major negation markers, as in (62–63).

(62) sapatu nalakí nẽkuge.
*sapatu nal-a-**kí** nẽ-ka-uge*
shoe be-ST-NEG.IPFV walk-PRS-1SG.I
'I'm walking without shoes.' (lit. 'There are no shoes, I am walking.')

(63) Maríaki pulazhá zúkane.
*María-ki pul-a-**zhá** zï-nuk-a#ne*
María-TOP burn-ST-NEG ANTIP-cook-ST#PST
'María cooked without getting burnt.' (lit. 'She cooked and didn't get burnt.')

4 Other aspects of negation

This section discusses some morphosyntactic, semantic and pragmatic phenomena that are connected to negation but do not constitute negative expressions per se. Note, however, that these areas need further research for a detailed description, as my corpus does not include data that account for every topic of the questionnaire by Miestamo (2025 [this volume]).

4.1 Scope of negation

In order to narrow the scope of negation on a specific constituent, the focus particle *na* can be used in the same way as in affirmative clauses. This is exemplified in (64). The focused element is fronted and typically made prosodically more prominent by intensity or pitch.

(64) a. Pedro na mebák nakne.
Pedro na mebák nak#ne
Pedro FOC yesterday arrive#PST
'Pedro arrived yesterday.'

b. Pedro na mebák nakazháne.
Pedro na mebák nak-a-zhá#ne
Pedro FOC yesterday arrive-ST-NEG#PST
'Pedro didn't arrive yesterday.'

c. mebák na Pedro nakazháne.
mebák na Pedro nak-a-zhá#ne
yesterday FOC Pedro arrive-ST-NEG#PST
'Pedro didn't arrive yesterday.'

4.2 Negative polarity

As for negative polarity items, with the exception of the additive focus particle *ni* (see §3.2), I have not encountered any expressions that exclusively occur in negative contexts.

4.3 Marking of noun phrases in the scope of negation

Case marking of noun phrases in negative clauses is the same as in affirmative clauses. With regard to determiners, the indefinite article *ezua* (cf. *ezua* 'one') is not used in negative clauses, as shown in (65). As noted in §3.2., there are no special determiners that occur in negative clauses, rather the same ones as in affirmatives are used.

(65) a. Martahã ezua zhentá habbine.
Marta-hã ezua zhentá habbi#ne
Marta-ERG INDF chicken buy#PST
'Marta bought a chicken.'

b. Martahã zhentá habbiazháne.
Marta-hã zhentá habbi-a-zhá#ne
Marta-ERG chicken buy-ST-NEG#PST
'Marta didn't buy any chicken.'

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The verbal marker *-shã* can be used to put emphasis on a statement. It occurs in affirmative as well as negated clauses, as illustrated in (66). Note that *-shã* does not attach to the form inflected for tense and negation, but to the auxiliary *nal* ('be'), which is required for the use of the emphasis marker.

(66) a. keigaki hiba atshazhálikue.
keiga-ki hiba atsh-a-zhá-likue
today-TOP work do-ST-NEG-FUT:1SG.I
'I won't work today.'

b. keigaki hiba atshazhálikue nalashã.
keiga-ki hiba atsh-a-zhá-likue nal-a-shã
today-TOP work do-ST-NEG-FUT:1SG.I AUX-ST-EMPH
'I won't work today!'

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

There are no dedicated negative coordinators. Rather, negative clauses each have negation marking on the respective predicate, as in the example in (67).

(67) ahaba akkuezhá ahate akkuezhá.
a-haba akkue-zhá a-hate akkue-zhá
3SG.INAL-mother remember-NEG 3SG.INAL-father remember-NEG
'He didn't remember his mother nor his father.'

Note also that negation markers may not scope over more than one predicate. As shown in (68), each of the coordinated predicates is marked for negation.

(68) colegioli nẽyazhá hiba atshazhá gualíka.
colegio-li nẽ-ya-zhá hiba atsh-a-zhá gu-a-líka
school-ALL go-ST-NEG work do-ST-NEG AUX.PFV-ST-FUT
'S/he won't go to school nor work.'

5 Summary

Negation in Kogi shows particular complexity in the clausal domain. There is a set of major negation markers that are used in all declarative main clauses depending on the aspectual value. These also occur in stative predications, and most dependent and non-declarative clauses. Table 7 summarizes the various attested negation markers as well as their contexts of use.

Table 7: Summary of negation markers

Marker		Environment
zhá	NEG	Perfective aspect; past and future tense, non-modal and modal
kí	NEG.IPFV	Imperfective aspect; past, present and future tense; non-modal and modal
ne	NEG.HAB	Habitual aspect; past, present and future tense; non-modal and modal
sïng(ze)	NEG.EX	Obligative, potential, volitive modality
sïng(ze)	NEG.EX	Abilitive modality, locative clauses, predicative possession
sïng(ze)	NEG.EX	Existential clauses
gabba	NEG	Prohibitive, optative, circumstantial clauses
gánga	‘not yet’	Perfective or imperfective aspect; past, present and future tense
ksá	‘no longer’	Imperfective aspect; past, present and future tense

In Table 8, the constructions discussed in the course of the paper are summarized and their categorization in terms of constructional and paradigmatic symmetry is given. For each asymmetrical construction or paradigm, the differences

Table 8: Summary of constructional and paradigmatic (a)symmetries

Types of clauses	Construction	Paradigm
Past *ne* (pfv)	sym	sym
Past (pfv)		
• synthetic	sym	No negated form
• periphrastic	sym	sym
Future (pfv)	sym	sym
Imperfective *-i, -té*	Loss of ipfv marker	Loss of ipfv distinctions
Imperfective *-tok*	Loss of person/tense marker	Loss of ipfv distinctions
Present/habitual *-ka*		
• habitual context	Loss of prs/hab marker, change of person indexes	sym
• present context	Loss of prs/hab marker	sym
Obligative		
• major neg	sym	sym
• *-sïng(ze)*	Loss of oblig marker	Loss of mod distinctions
Volitive		
• major neg	sym	sym
• *-sïng(ze)*	Loss of vol marker	Loss of mod distinctions
Potential		
• major neg	sym	sym
• Loss of pot and person marker	Loss of mod distinctions	
Abilitive		
• major neg	sym	sym
• *sïng(ze)*	Replacement of stem	sym
Optative		
• non-second person	sym	Additional person distinction (2 / non-2)
• second person	Loss of opt marker	Additional person distinction (2 / non-2)
Imperative	Loss of imp marker	Loss of num distinction
Interrogative	sym	sym
Proper inclusion, equation	sym	sym
Indep. Adjectives	sym	sym
Dep. Adjectives	sym	sym
Existential		
• major neg	sym	sym
• *sïng(ze)*	Replacement of stem	sym
Locative		
• major neg	sym	sym
• *sïng(ze)*	Replacement of stem	Restricted to *te* ‘sit’
Possessive		
• major neg	sym	sym
• *sïng(ze)*	Replacement of stem	sym

between the affirmative and negative domains are indicated.[20] The most common asymmetry in constructional terms concerns the loss of one marker when a negative marker is used. Negation may further induce a change in person marking, either an alternation of the position of indexes or the loss thereof.

Paradigmatic asymmetry often involves a reduction of distinctions, more precisely with regard to aspect (i.e. imperfective), number or modality (in negation with *-sïng(ze)*).

Abbreviations

#	anticlitic boundary	FOC	focus
1	first person	FUT	future
2	second person	HAB	habitual
3	third person	HOD	hodiernal
I	set I argument marker (A)	IMP	imperative
II	set II argument marker (P)	INAL	inalienable possession
III	set III argument marker (G)	INCEP	inceptive
ADD	additive focus	INDF	indefinite article
ADDR	addressee epistemic authority	INE	inessive
		IPFV	imperfective
ALL	allative	LOC	locative
ANTIP	antipassive	NEG	negative
APPL	applicative	OBLIG	obligative modality
AUX	auxiliary	OPT	optative
ASYM	asymmetrical epistemic access	PFV	perfective
		PL	plural
CAUS	causative	POSS	possessive
COP	copula	POT	potential
DEM	demonstrative	PROG	progressive
EMPH	emphatic	PROH	prohibitive
ERG	ergative	PRS	present
EX	existential	PST	past

[20]Note that the table does not include non-main clauses. This is due to two reasons. Firstly, in most dependent clauses (e.g. temporal adverbial), the relation in terms of symmetry depends on the type of negation marker in each case. That is, clauses with perfective aspect take *-zhá* which is a symmetric construction, while imperfective adverbial clauses are negated with *-kí*, which typically implies asymmetry. Secondly, negative purpose and circumstantial clauses cannot explicitly be categorized due to the lack of relevant examples in the data corpus. While it was noted that the constructions can be considered asymmetrical, further research is required for a categorization in terms of paradigmatic symmetry.

PURP	purposive	SPKR	speaker epistemic authority
Q	question	ST	stem-forming vowel
REC	recent	SUB	subordinate clause
REM	remote	SYM	symmetrical epistemic access
SEQ	temporal sequence	TOP	topic
SG	singular	VOL	volitional
SIM	simultaneous		

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Chapter 16

Negation in Yukuna

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This study provides an overview of negation in Yukuna, an Arawak language of Colombian Amazonia. Yukuna has two main negation strategies, Standard Negation (*unká...-la*) and non-verbal negation (*unká...kalé*), that perfectly map onto the verbal versus non-verbal clause distinction in the language. The same markers used in these two strategies cover most domains of negation, from polar questions, non-declaratives, non-main clauses and constituent negation. However, despite the homogeneity of markers, negation in main declarative verbal clauses is symmetric, while negation in non-main and non-finite clauses displays various types of constructional asymmetry. The most frequent type of asymmetry concerns the marking of finiteness in affirmatives versus negatives, with the particularity that in Yukuna, it is the affirmative clause that is overtly marked for nominalization, and hence, shows reduced finiteness in comparison with the corresponding negative, unmarked for nominalization. The marking of negation is thus strongly intertwined with finiteness and the verbal versus non-verbal distinction, two central issues that crosscut the grammar of the language.

Keywords: Arawak, non-verbal predication, finiteness, subordination.

1 The language

Yukuna (ISO: ycn, Glottocode: yucu1253) is a North-Amazonian Arawakan language spoken by less than a thousand speakers in various communities along the Mirití-Paraná river in South Eastern Colombia. The Yukuna language is spoken by the Yukuna and Matapí groups, who are in intense, long-term contact with the Tanimuka (Tukanoan) speaking groups Tanimuka and Letuama. This

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study is based on ongoing work on the Yukuna language by the first author.[1] Typologically, Yukuna is a nominative-accusative language with a canonical SVO constituent order. The lexical word classes are nouns, verbs, adverbs, adjectives, and postpositions. Core arguments are not case-marked, and obliques (henceforth OBL) are marked with postpositions. The nominative argument of verbs (henceforth S) is obligatorily encoded in finite clauses either with a bound person index on the verb, or by an overt S NP rigidly placed immediately before the verb. This marking strategy is identical to the encoding of possessors of nouns, and arguments of postpositions. The accusative argument of verbs (henceforth P) is neither obligatorily encoded, nor indexed on the verb, and its placement within the clause is flexible. The main encoding properties of S, P and obliques are summarized in Table 1.[2]

Table 1: Argument encoding features

	Indexation	Role marking	Word order
S	Yes	No	[SV]
P	No	No	[SV] P ~ P [SV]
OBL	No	Yes	[SV] OBL ~ OBL [SV]

All examples come from firsthand data collected in various Yukuna speaking communities between 2015 and 2018. The corpus contains roughly five hours of transcribed and translated texts, from which we extracted approximately 300 instances of negation marking of various types. The examples are transcribed with a slightly modified version of the practical alphabet used in the Yukuna dictionary (Schauer et al. 2005), based on Spanish.[3] High tone is transcribed with an acute accent, but its surface manifestation is very variable, so the same morpheme may be transcribed with or without an accent depending on the context (e.g. past tense *-cha* is found in examples both as *-cha* and as *-chá*). Lastly, each example contains a source given in brackets indicating the name of its audio

[1]The Yukuna documentation and description project is led by the first author (Lemus Serrano), under the supervision of the second author (Rose). The first author carried out data collection and annotation, extracted and analyzed the data on negation, and wrote the first manuscript of this chapter. The second author provided critical feedback on the analysis of the data on negation, and contributed to the final version of the manuscript.

[2]We use the P label for the accusative argument of transitive verbs, but for practical purposes, we use O when in reference to the typology of word order.

[3]The following alphabetic conventions are used: <j> /h/, <ñ> /ɲ/, <y> /j/, <V’> /V̰/ (creaky vowel), <Ch> /C^{h}/ (aspirated plosive), <jC> /C̥/ (voiceless sonorant)

file, and the ELAN/Flex line. Examples taken from elicitation come from the first author's field notes, and their source is indicated with the notebook and page number. The description of negation in Yukuna in this chapter is based on the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and mirrors its structure.

2 Clausal negation

This section is devoted to the description of various clause-level negation strategies. Here, as in the rest of the chapter, each negation strategy is described according to the guidelines and terminology used in Miestamo (2005, 2025, 2017).

2.1 Standard negation

Negation in declarative main verbal clauses, or Standard Negation (SN), is encoded by a pre-verbal particle *unká* and a verbal suffix *-la*. The negation particle *unká* is phonologically free and morphologically simple in main clauses, unlike its behavior in some subordinate clauses (§2.4). The negation suffix *-la* obligatorily co-occurs with the pre-verbal particle in SN. Therefore, in terms of number of markers and their position with respect to the verb, Yukuna is classed among the type of languages with obligatory double negation (Neg[V-Neg]) in Dryer (2013a). Example (1) illustrates an affirmative transitive declarative clause with an overt S NP and a pronominal P NP. Example (2) shows a negative transitive verbal clause, and illustrates the prototypical position of negative markers in SN.

(1) *Kája ri=pirá nó-cha ri=ikhá.*
already 3SG.NF=pet kill-PST 3SG.NF=PRO
'His pet already killed him.' [ycn0053,33]

(2) ***Unká** wa=wáta-**la** kéelé kujnú.*
NEG 1PL=want-**NEG** DEM.MED cassava
'We do not want that cassava.' [ycn0189,177]

The prototypical placement of the particle *unká* within the clause is after sentence connectors and before the S NP, which typically immediately precedes the verb. This negator can be described as a clause-initial (before all arguments) particle, non-adjacent to the verb. In terms of the relative position of negators with respect to the verb and its arguments, Yukuna belongs to the NegS[V-Neg]O type (type 8) among languages with canonical SVO word order in the typology in Dryer (2013b). The only exceptions to this word order are attested in the focalization of core arguments, where either the S or P NPs are exceptionally placed before the particle *unká*, as in (3). Despite these variations in word order, there are important restrictions concerning the placement of arguments that apply in negative as well as in affirmative polarity (see §3.2 on the placement of indefinite pro-forms).

(3) *É na=apó-chi-ya=o phiyúké, ri=ikhá* ***unká***
then 3PL=wake_up-CAUS-PST=MID all 3SG.NF=PRO **NEG**
*apó-**la**-cha.*
wake_up-**NEG**-PST
'Then they all woke up, (but) *he* did not wake up.' [ycn0189,67]

The negation suffix *-la* is placed after valency markers and before tense. This suffix is compatible with almost all inflectional markers of finite verbs. However, crucially, *-la* is placed in the same paradigmatic position as clausal nominalizers *-ka* EV.NMLZ, and *-kare* PART.NMLZ, as well as with the past imperfective suffixes *-khe* and *-jĩka*.[4] This paradigmatic position of the negative suffix *-la* affects the encoding of negation in all contexts involving markers within the same slot, and leads to multiple instances of asymmetries in non-declarative (see §2.2), and subordinate clauses (see §2.4). In main clauses, the use of the past imperfective suffix *-khe* requires negation to be encoded exclusively with *unká* as in (4). Note that suffix *-khe* is found in affirmative clauses as well (5), and it is thus not a portmanteau negative marker as suggested in Michael (2014).[5]

(4) ***Unká*** *na=amá-**khe** kéelé kájé itewí ri=wakajé.*
NEG 3PL=see-**PST.IPFV** DEM.MED type palm_species 3SG.NF=time
'They did not usually see that type of palm trees at that time.' [ycn0108,149]

(5) *na=nó-**khe** wa=jló kuwajárí, ye'é ...*
3PL=kill-**PST.IPFV** 1PL=for rodent_species armadillo
'they used to kill for us pacas, armadillos...' [ycn0117,80]

[4] These past imperfective suffixes are both very likely diachronically related to nominalizer *-ka*. However, while *-khe* appears to have grammaticalized as a main clause marker, more data is needed to assess the synchronic features of *-jĩka*. See §4.6.4 for a diachronic account of the negation system.

[5] This erroneous description of the past imperfective suffix is likely due to the ambiguous phrasing in Schauer et al. (2005: 314), where the authors suggest that the negative suffix *-la* is replaced by *-khe* in the past imperfective.

In sum, negative declarative verbal clauses have the same word order and argument encoding as affirmative clauses, and hence, they are structurally symmetric. Additionally, the presence of SN markers does not affect the marking of grammatical categories in any way. The paradigms of grammatical markers available in both SN and affirmative declarative verbal clauses are thus symmetric as well.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

This section provides an overview of negation in various types of non-declarative moods and speech acts.

2.2.1 Negative imperatives

Yukuna has a dedicated prohibitive construction with suffix *-niña*. This strategy differs from the second person imperative construction as the latter receives no overt imperative marking. However, they both require the verb to be unmarked for TAM, the S argument to be encoded with a person index, and the P argument to be postverbal. Prohibitives are then both constructionally and paradigmatically symmetric with respect to second person imperatives. Examples (6–7) illustrate the affirmative imperative and prohibitive constructions respectively.

(6) *Pi=ajñá ri=ikhá!*
2SG=eat 3SG.NF=PRO
'Eat that!' [ycn0068,149]

(7) *Pi=ajñá-**níña** ri=ikhá!*
2SG=eat-**PROH** 3SG.NF=PRO
'Don't eat that!' [ycn0108,41]

The prohibitive clearly differs from the SN construction *unká…-la* (§2.1), but it is symmetric with the imperative construction. Hence, Yukuna can be said to belong to the type II in the typology of van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013), among languages where the prohibitive uses the same verbal form as the second singular person imperative and a sentential negative strategy not found in indicative declaratives.

2.2.2 Negative interrogatives

Affirmative polar questions in Yukuna are encoded with a construction using an interrogative particle copula *é* plus a nominalized verb form with suffix *-ka*

EV.NMLZ (8).[6] This construction is identical to polar questions with non-verbal predicates as in (9).

(8) *É pi=jĩ'-chá-ka jíña?*
Q 2SG=grab-PST-EV.NMLZ fish
'Did you grab fish?' [ycn0108,139]

(9) *É palá-ni?*
Q good-NF
'Is it good?' [ycn0504,51]

In contrast, negative polar questions are encoded by using a finite verb form carrying SN markers *unká...-la* (10). Negative polar questions thus radically differ from their affirmative counterparts (8). The major difference between these constructions lies in the marking of finiteness, with affirmatives using an overtly nominalized verb form, and negatives using a finite verb form.

(10) ***Unká** pi=amá-**la** ná iphá-ká=no majṍ?*
NEG 2SG=see-**NEG** INDF arrive-EV.NMLZ=HAB here
'Haven't you seen who it is that came here?' [ycn0041,52]

Despite the structural difference with affirmative polar questions, negative polar questions do not show any major differences with negative declaratives, which corresponds to the most recurrent cross-linguistic scenario according to the preliminary survey in Miestamo (2009).

2.2.3 Negation in the potential mood

Potential modality in affirmative polarity is often encoded by combining the *intentive* particle *jlá* 'try to' with a nominalized verb form using *-kare* PART.NMLZ as shown in example (11).

(11) *Iná i'jra-káre jlá ri=ikhá.*
GNR.PRO lift-PART.NMLZ INTV 3SG.NF=PRO
'One can lift it up.' [ycn0053,72]

In the negative polarity, however, Yukuna uses a finite verb carrying the same markers used in SN, obligatorily preceded by an indefinite pro-adverb – most frequently *méla'jḗ* 'any way', but other pro-adverbs are found in this function as well – as in (12). The intentive particle *jlá* is optional in the negative.

[6] The interrogative particle *é* is homonymous with the postposition *é* 'at', the sentence connector *é* 'then' and the temporal adverbial subordinator *é*.

(12) *Unká* ***méla'jẽ́*** *pi=i'jna-lá na=jwa'té.*
NEG INDF.manner 2SG=go-NEG 3SG=with
'You cannot go with them.' (lit. 'You do not go with them in any way.')
[ycn0063,111]

Similarly to interrogatives, the potential mood shows an asymmetry in the marking of finiteness with nominalized verb forms in the affirmative versus finite verb forms using SN in the negative.

Lastly, this construction only differs structurally from SN in the obligatory use of the negative indefinite. The features of this pro-form are identical to those of other negative indefinites (§3.2). Like other indefinites, the marker in this construction can also be negated through constituent negation, as discussed in (§4.1).

2.3 Negation in stative predications

In Yukuna, all word classes besides verbs can be used predicatively: nouns, adverbs, adjectives and postpositions. These predicates may be encoded through two distinct morphosyntactic strategies: a zero copula construction, and a verbal copula construction, following the terminology of Stassen (1997). The zero copula and verbal copula constructions differ on all grounds, including their strategies of negation marking. The choice of an encoding strategy depends on several criteria: time of reference, polarity and functional subcategory of non-verbal predication.

In the zero copula construction, the non-verbal predicate is placed in clause initial position, followed by its sole argument, with no finite verbal element at all (13). The non-verbal predicate in the zero copula construction is negated with a strategy exclusive to non-verbal constituents, double marked with particle *unká* at the left edge of the predicate, and particle *kalé* at its right edge (14). We refer to this construction as the non-verbal negation strategy. This is the same strategy used in constituent negation described in (§4.1). The non-verbal negation strategy is symmetric on all levels with respect to the affirmative zero copula construction, as the only difference between them is the presence of the negation markers.

(13) *A'jne-jí tá ri=ikhá.*
food-NPOSS EMPH 3SG.NF=PRO
'It is food.' [ycn0063,144]

(14) ***Unká*** *inau'ké* ***kalé*** *nu=ikhá.*
NEG person **NVB.NEG** 1SG=PRO
'I am not a person.' [ycn0068,253]

In contrast, in the verbal copula construction, there is an inflecting copula *i'ma~i'mi*, and the single argument is encoded like the S NP in verbal clauses (15). Non-verbal predicates encoded with the verbal copula construction are negated with the same markers used in SN (*unká…-la*), as in (16). This negation strategy clearly differs from the non-verbal negation strategy in zero copula clauses, but both are double-marked and share a common marker, the negative particle *unká*.

(15) *Inau'ké i'mi-chá.*
person COP-PST
'There were people.' [ycn0151,2]

(16) *Kája* ***unká*** *inau'ké i'ma-**lá**-cha.*
already **NEG** person COP-**V.NEG**-PST
'There were no people anymore.' [ycn0108,77]

The zero copula and verbal copula constructions are used in alternation to encode all six functional types of non-verbal predication, namely, equation, proper inclusion, attributive, locative, existential, and possessive predication. The choice of encoding strategy depends on an interplay between the functional type of non-verbal predication, polarity and time of reference. The preferred encoding strategy (Cop for verbal copula, and Zero for the zero copula constructions) per functional type of non-verbal predication and polarity are summarized in Table 2. In short, in the affirmative, the zero copula construction is the preferred strategy in the present, while the verbal copula construction is the preferred strategy for non-present time of reference. This holds true across all six functional types of non-verbal predication. In the negative polarity, however, there is a distinction between equation, inclusion and attributive predicates on the one hand, and locative, existential and possessive predicates on the other. The former group follows the same pattern as in the affirmative polarity, with the zero copula strategy used in the present, and the verbal copula strategy elsewhere. The latter group, however, only uses the verbal copula strategy regardless of time of reference.

Indeed, the pair of affirmative and negative proper inclusion predicates in the present tense in (13–14) are both encoded with the zero copula strategy. In contrast, the pair of affirmative and negative existential predicates in the present tense in (17–18) show that each polarity is encoded with a different strategy,

Table 2: Preferred encoding per predication type, polarity and tense

<table>
<tr><td></td><td colspan="2">Affirmative</td><td colspan="2">Negative</td></tr>
<tr><td></td><td>Present</td><td>Non-present</td><td>Present</td><td>Non-present</td></tr>
<tr><td>Equation</td><td rowspan="6">Zero copula</td><td rowspan="6">Verbal copula</td><td rowspan="3">Zero copula</td><td rowspan="3">Verbal copula</td></tr>
<tr><td>Inclusion</td></tr>
<tr><td>Attributive</td></tr>
<tr><td>Location</td><td colspan="2" rowspan="3">Verbal copula</td></tr>
<tr><td>Existential</td></tr>
<tr><td>Possessive</td></tr>
</table>

with the zero copula construction in the affirmative, and the verbal copula (with negative markers *unká...-la*) in the negative.

(17) *Ri=é=ko* *inau'ké.*
3SG.NF=at=EMPH person
'There are people there.' [ycn0108,101]

(18) ***Unká*** *kája* *jápá-kaje* *i'ma-**lá**.*
NEG EMPH work-EV.NMLZ COP-**V.NEG**
'There is no work.' [ycn0018,13]

In sum, there are two distinct strategies used in the negation of non-verbal predicates: the non-verbal strategy with *unká...kalé*, and the verbal strategy with the copula *i'ma~i'mi* carrying the same markers as in SN (*unká...-la*). The distribution of these strategies depends on an interplay between tense and functional sub-type of non-verbal predication. Crucially, equation, proper inclusion and attributive predicates allow both the non-verbal negation strategy and the verbal copula with SN markers depending on tense, while location, existential and possessive predicates can only be negated with the verbal copula and SN markers.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In this section, we describe the different negation strategies used in the negation of purpose of motion clauses (§2.4.1), adverbial subordinates with subordinator *lojé* (§2.4.2), adverbial subordinates with other subordinators (§2.4.3), and complement clauses of perception verbs (§2.4.4). Negation in other types of subordinate clauses is not discussed, as they are not attested in the corpus of narratives.

2.4.1 Purpose of motion clauses with *-je*

Yukuna uses the verbal suffix *-je* to encode purpose of motion clauses. The verb marked with this suffix lacks all morphosyntactic features of finite main verbs. Crucially, there is no S marking nor tense in the subordinate verb, which is obligatorily understood as sharing the same subject argument and time-frame as the main clause (19). The resulting construction occupies the role of an oblique argument of the main verb.

(19) *Ri=i'jĩ-chá=no ri=amá-je.*
3SG.NF=go-PST=HAB 3SG.NF=see-PURP.MOT
'He kept going to see it.' (lit. 'He always went to its seeing.') [ycn0041,12]

The negation of purpose of motion clauses is encoded with the non-verbal negation strategy *unká…kalé* as in (20). This strategy is the same one used in the negation of specific constituents in verbal clauses as in example (21) (see also §4.1).

(20) ***Unká*** *kapichá-**je**=o* ***kalé*** *pi=i'jná, i'ma-jé i=i'jná*
NEG die-**PURP.MOT**=MID **NVB.NEG** 2SG=go live-PURP.MOT 2PL=go
'You go (there) not to die, you go (there) to live.' [ycn0058,28]

(21) ***Unká*** *ya'jnáje* ***kalé*** *kháãjĩ́-una i'jná.*
NEG far.towards **NVB.NEG** DEM.PROX-PL go
'These ones did not go far.' (lit. 'These ones went not far.') [ycn0108,87]

Negative purpose of motion clauses are thus entirely symmetrical in comparison with their affirmative counterparts, and the negation strategy used is identical to the construction used in the negation of non-verbal constituents.

2.4.2 Purposive clauses with *lojé*

A second type of adverbial subordinate clause in Yukuna are purposive subordinates, encoded with event nominalizer *-ka* and the subordinating particle *lojé*. The event nominalizer *-ka* is used to create clausal nominalizations, used in a variety of subordinating constructions (see also §2.4.3). Nominalizations with *-ka* EV.NMLZ retain many features of finite clauses (core and oblique arguments, tense and aspect marking), while showing non-finite features typical of nominalizations in the language (loss of modality marking, possibility of combining with demonstratives and postpositions) (Lemus Serrano 2020: 242–243). In purposive subordinate clauses, the verb root carrying nominalizer *-ka* is followed by the purposive subordinating particle *lojé* as in (22), and, optionally, the entire nominalized clause is followed by the postposition *penáje* ‘for’ (23).[7]

(22) *Ri=moto’-chá ri=jlú-wa ri=ikhá, ri=ajñá-ká lojé.*
3SG.NF=cook-PST 3SG.NF=for-REFL 3SG.NF=PRO 3SG.NF=eat-EV.NMLZ PURP
‘He cooked that for himself, in order to eat.’ [ycn0108,41]

(23) *Ri=ikhá ri=pití-ya=nó na=jló na=ajñá-ká lojé penáje.*
3SG.NF=PRO 3SG.NF=take-PST=HAB 3PL=for 3PL=eat-EV.NMLZ PURP for
‘He always brought that to them for them to eat.’ [ycn0041,39]

Given the shared paradigmatic position between nominalizer *-ka* and negative suffix *-la*, most cases involving this nominalizer affect the encoding of negation. In the case of purposive clauses, negation is encoded with a portmanteau negative purposive subordinator *piyá*, used instead of *lojé* after the nominalized verb with *-ka* as in (24). There are no constructional differences between the negative purposive and its affirmative counterpart.

(24) *Kéchámi wa=la’á píño apú ri=tajná-ka=o* ***piyá****.*
then 1PL=do again other 3SG.NF=finish-EV.NMLZ=MID **NEG.PURP**
‘Then we do another one again for it not to finish.’ [ycn0042,75]

2.4.3 Other adverbial subordinates

In addition to purposive clauses with the subordinator *lojé*, Yukuna has several other adverbial subordinate clauses encoded similarly, with nominalizer *-ka* plus a subordinating particle that determines the semantic link between the embedded nominalized clause and the main clause: conditional *chú* (25), cause markers *aű*, *lé*, and *pachá* (26).

(25) *ri=ikhá pi=a’-ká chú na=a’jné …*
3SG.NF=PRO 2SG=give-EV.NMLZ COND 3PL=food
‘if you give that (to them) as their food…’ [ycn0119,28]

(26) *… kawale’ké wáni ri=i’ma-ká pachá*
greedy EMPH 3SG.NF=COP-EV.NMLZ CAUSE
‘because he is very greedy’ [ycn0063,207]

[7] Subordinating particles have grammaticalized from postpositions, and are in fact synchronically homonymous with postpositions (Lemus Serrano 2020: 306–309).

The negation of these clauses is encoded with the same markers used in SN *unká…-la.* However, the resulting construction shows some important differences with the affirmative subordinate clause. Firstly, the nominalizer *-ka* used in the affirmative subordinate is absent from the negative subordinate; and secondly, the subordinator which was placed after the nominalized verb in the affirmative is placed after the negation particle *unká* in the negative, as illustrated in (27–28).

(27) *eyá* ***unká*** *chú pi=matha'-**lá** ka'jnó káru*
then **NEG** COND 2SG=cut-**V.NEG** DUB palm_species
'if you don't cut uh… the palm leaves…' [ycn0119,27]

(28) ***unká*** *pachá nu=e'wé tá iphá-**lá**-cha*
NEG CAUSE 1SG=brother EMPH arrive-**NEG**-PST
'because my brother didn't arrive…' [ycn0108,265]

The asymmetry of this negation strategy with regard to its affirmative counterpart concerns the category of finiteness, with overt nominalizers in the affirmative vs. lack of nominalizing morphology in the negative. The presence of nominalizers has an impact on the degree of finiteness of the lexical verb (reduced in the affirmative with respect to the negative), and leads to structural differences in the placement of subordinating particles in the subordinate clause (verbs with *-la* do not directly combine with postpositions/subordinating particles). However, despite concerning the category of finiteness, the asymmetries identified in Yukuna do not fit into the A/Fin type as defined in Miestamo (2005: 73). Indeed, this label is restricted to the cross-linguistically common cases where the *lexical verb* in declarative main clauses shows reduced finiteness in the negative with respect to the corresponding affirmative.

An additional negation strategy found in adverbial subordinate clauses shows a yet more ambiguous use of the negator *unká*. This is the case in conditional subordinate clauses with event nominalizer *-ka* and subordinator *é*, as shown in (29).

(29) *pi=ka'-jĩ-**ka*** ***é*** *kajrú ri=ikhá*
2SG=throw-FUT-**EV.NMLZ** **COND** a_lot 3SG.NF=PRO
'if you throw it a lot…' [ycn0053,101]

The negation of this conditional clause is encoded exclusively with negator *unká*, making this the second negation strategy where *unká* is used without the negation suffix *-la* (see (4), on the past imperfective suffix *-khe*). The subordinate verb loses its overt nominalization marking, and unlike the preceding cases, it does not carry the negative suffix *-la*. Lastly, and more interestingly, this construction also involves constructional asymmetry, where some of the morphology carried by the verb in the affirmative, including the subordinating particle *é*, is placed next to the negator *unká* in the negative (30). This change in the position of the subordinator is attested only in the context of negation, and thus, cannot be attributed to distributional features of the subordinator itself (i.e. the particle does not show features of 'second position' markers).

(30) *unka-**jĩ-ka*** ***é*** *nu=iphá*
NEG-**FUT-EV.NMLZ** **COND** 1SG=arrive
'if I don't arrive ...' [ycn0053,33]

In sum, the negative adverbial subordinate clauses described in this subsection show important asymmetries with respect to their affirmative counterparts. The asymmetries attested concern the encoding of finiteness, with overt nominalizers in the affirmative, no overt nominalizers in the negative, and a change in the placement of subordinating particles. These asymmetries highlight an important restriction in the encoding of negation, namely, that the negation suffix *-la* shares the same paradigmatic slot with nominalizers like *-ka* EV.NMLZ, used in many subordinate clauses, suggesting that it may have been itself a nominalizer in the past (see §4.6.4).

2.4.4 Complement clauses

The last type of subordinate clauses described here concerns complement clauses of perception verbs. Similarly to other subordinate clauses, including other complement clauses, this type of subordinates are encoded with the event nominalizer *-ka* in affirmative polarity (31). However, unlike other subordinates, the overt marking of nominalization is optional in these complement clauses, leading to many instances of finite subordinate clauses (32).

(31) *Ri=amí-cha* *kajú* *na=ají-cha-ka.*
3SG.NF=see-PST a_lot 3PL=fly-PST-EV.NMLZ
'He saw them flying a lot.' [ycn0041,25]

(32) *Ru$_i$=amí-cha* *kajú* *ru$_j$=apíro'-cha* *tá.*
3SG.F=see-PST a_lot 3SG.F=suck-PST EMPH
'She$_i$ saw that she$_j$ was eating (it) a lot.' [ycn0151,86]

These clauses are negated using the same markers as in SN *unká..-la*, and just like in the preceding cases, the nominalizer *-ka* is absent in the negative clause (33). There are no further asymmetries between the affirmative and negative complement clauses, which are, in isolation, structurally identical to main verbal negative clauses.

(33) *É ri=amí-cha, amá-ri* ***unká*** *líchi i'ma-****lá****-cha palá.*
Then 3SG.NF=see-PST see-NF **NEG** tobacco COP-**NEG**-PST well
'He looked and saw (that) the tobacco was not well.' [ycn0108,134]

To summarize, in §2.4 we described four different negation strategies used in subordinate clauses. Purpose of motion clauses show no asymmetries between affirmatives and negatives (§2.4.1), purposive clauses (§2.4.2), adverbial subordinate clauses (§2.4.3) and complement clauses (§2.4.4) show various types of asymmetries. The attested asymmetries involve differences in the encoding of finiteness and in the placement of subordinating particles. Crucially, we show that in the case of some adverbial subordinates, the affirmative clause is overtly nominalized, while the negative one is not, similarly to the asymmetries attested in polar questions (§2.2.2) and potential modality (§2.2.3). This scenario is the opposite of the usual pattern of asymmetry in main declarative verbal clauses (A/Fin) (Miestamo 2005: 75). We lack systematic typological surveys on negation in non-main clauses (Miestamo 2017: 23–24), so it is unclear whether similar scenarios are attested cross-linguistically.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

No negative lexicalizations used in clausal negation have been identified in Yukuna. Indeed, there are no verbal roots that have merged with negation markers, nor verbs which are negated through a specific construction. Yukuna's SN construction is extremely productive, covering all verbs in the language. The only instance of a lexicalized negative item is the interjection *kaapí*, meaning 'I don't know'.

3 Non-clausal negation

This section describes negative constructions that do not operate at the level of the clause, namely, negative replies to polar questions (§3.1), negative indefinites (§3.2), and lastly, negative derivations (§3.3).

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies to polar questions use either the same marking as SN with *unká...-la* in full negative replies, or just the negative marker *unká* in one-word replies, or both (34).

(34) Q: *Ná pi=amá=no? é ka'jná pi=amá-ka inaá-na?*
INDF 2SG=see=HAB Q DUB 2SG=see-EV.NMLZ woman-PL
'Who did you see? Did you see any women?' [ycn0068,165]

A: ***Unká** nu=jiwaká, **unká** ná nu=amá-**la**.*
NEG 1SG=boss **NEG** INDF 1SG=see-**V.NEG**
'No, boss, I haven't seen anyone.' [ycn0068,166]

Affirmative replies to affirmative interrogatives are introduced with *ã́'a* 'yes'. In the cases where the question is negative itself, affirmative and negative answers are encoded just like in answers to affirmative questions, with *ã́'a* 'yes' followed by an affirmative clause (35), and *unká* 'no' followed by a negative clause (36). Answers to negative questions thus express agreement or disagreement over the propositional content of the question and not its polarity, unlike polarity reversing particles (Holmberg 2015, Enfield et al. 2019).

(35) a. *É pi=amí-cha-ka apa'wélo nu=e'we-ló?*
Q 2SG=see-PST-EV.NMLZ other.F 1SG=sibling-F
'Did you see my other sister?' [ycn0068,234]

b. *"ã́'a" ké ri=ímí-cha, "kája nu=amí-cha ru=ikhá".*
yes like 3SG.NF=say-PST already 1SG=see-PST 3SG.F=PRO
'He said "Yes, I've already seen her".' [ycn0068,234]

(36) a. ***Unká** pi=i'ma-**lá** wa=yukú-ná pi=jiwaká tá Kanumá jló?*
NEG 2SG=tell-**NEG** 1PL=story-AL 2SG=boss EMPH K. to
'Didn't you tell our story to your boss Kanumá?' [ycn0068,199]

b. ***Unká** nu=laké-lo, náje nu=i'má i=yukú-ná?*
NEG 1SG=grandchild-F INDF.reason 1SG=tell 2PL=story-AL
'No, granddaughter, why would I tell your story?' [ycn0068,200]

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Yukuna has one paradigm of indefinite pro-forms, including pronouns and pro-adverbs, that share similar functional and distributional features. These pro-forms include three different roots (*ná* 'nothing, nobody', *náje* 'no reason', *mé* 'no way'), and several morphologically complex forms based on pro-adverbial root *mé* as summarized in Table 3.

Table 3: Indefinite pro-forms in Yukuna

Form	Meaning
ná	nothing/nobody/who/what
náje	no reason/why
méré	nowhere/where
méño'jő	toward nowhere/toward where
méké	no way/how

Functionally, these forms are used as interrogative pro-forms (37) similarly to the English *wh*-series, and as indefinites in negative clauses (38), similarly to the English negative indefinites with *no* (e.g. *nobody*). When used in negative clauses, these pro-forms are exclusively used in combination with overt negation markers, whether SN as in (38) or with non-verbal negation *unká…kalé* in non-verbal predicates or in constituent negation (39) (see §4.1).

(37) *Ná pi=la'á?*
INDF 2SG=do
'What are you doing?' [ycn0063,31]

(38) ***Unká*** *ná pi=la'-**lá**.*
NEG INDF 2SG=do-**V.NEG**
'You don't do anything.' [ycn0117,97]

(39) ***Unká*** *mére=ewá* ***kalé*** *nu=ata'á i=pirá.*
NEG INDF.LOC=around **NVB.NEG** 1SG=steal 2PL=pet
'Nowhere did I steal your pet.' [ycn0068,43]

Indefinite pro-forms show a restricted distribution in contrast to personal and demonstrative pro-forms. In negative verbal clauses, they are always pre-verbal even when encoding the P argument (38) or an oblique argument (40), although both of these constituents are canonically placed in post-verbal position. With respect to negation markers, indefinite pro-forms are placed after the negator *unká* and before either the subject NP if there is one, or the verb carrying a S person index. Besides emphatic discourse markers, they are the only elements that can be placed in this position.

(40) ***Unká*** *ná jló nu=yuí-**la**-je ri=ikhá.*
NEG INDF to 1SG=leave-**V.NEG**-FUT 3SG.NF=PRO
'I will not leave it to anyone.' [ycn0092,117]

In addition to the interrogative and negative uses of these pro-forms, they are also found in contexts of hesitation (41), exemplification (42), or exclamation (43). Crucially, however, they are not found in contexts typical of the so-called *negative polarity* indefinites such as polar questions (e.g. 'Did *anyone* come?'), conditionals (e.g. 'If *anyone* comes'), the standard of comparison (e.g. 'better than *anyone*'), indirect negation (e.g. 'I don't think *anyone* will come'), nor as free choice indefinites (e.g. 'You can do *anything*') (Haspelmath 1997: 37–53).

(41) *Iná ako'ó ri=ikhá ná chojẽ́ ka'jnó? … galón chojẽ́ ka'jnó*
GNR.PRO pour 3SG.NF=PRO INDF into DUB barrel into DUB
iná ako'ó ri=ikhá.
GNR.PRO pour 3SG.NF=PRO
'One pours it into what already? … one pours it into an oil barrel.' [ycn0117,30]

(42) *Wa=ajñá wa=a'jne-wá, ná kujnú ka'jnó, jíña ka'jnó …*
1PL=eat 1PL=food-REFL INDF cassava DUB fish DUB
'We eat our food, like cassava, or maybe fish…' [ycn0042,4]

(43) *Méké palá wani!*
INDF.manner good EMPH
'How good!' [ycn0089,69]

The only clear-cut instances of an indefinite pronoun used in declarative affirmative clauses is the complex form *nákájé* 'something' (44).[8] There are no instances in which the indefinite pro-forms used in negation are found in affirmative declarative clauses with a meaning similar to the *some-* series in English as would be expected of so-called *neutral* indefinites (van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy 2018). Indeed, in order to refer to indefinite humans in affirmative clauses, the generic noun *inau'ké* 'person' is used (45). There is a generic pronoun *iná* 'one', but its meaning is collective, rather than indefinite.

(44) *[…] ri=jña'á ri=jló-wa nákájé […]*
3SG.NF=grab 3SG.NF=for-REFL something
'[…] he grabbed something for himself […]' [ycn0092,142]

[8] This marker is clearly related to *ná*, but it is not used as an interrogative nor as a negative pronoun.

(45) *É ru=amí-cha amí-cha-ri pajlúwa inau'ké.*
then 3sg.f=see-pst see-pst-nf one person
'Then she looked and saw a person.' [ycn0053,59]

In sum, the markers described here have two core functions, as interrogatives and as indefinites used in negation. Typologically, they can be classified in the type "interrogative-based negative indefinites" of Haspelmath's 2013 typology, although there is absolutely no change in form between the two functions. In addition to these two core functions, these pro-forms are used in various other contexts (hesitation, exemplification, exclamation), but they are absent from declarative affirmative clauses. The functions of these pro-forms make it difficult to categorize them among the types of indefinites proposed by Kahrel (1996), namely, neutral, polar or negative indefinites.

3.3 Negative derivation

Yukuna has a privative marker *ma-*, that derives adjectives from nouns (N-less). This prefix is well attested in many other Arawakan languages, and has been reconstructed to Proto-Arawakan (Payne 1991: 377–378). Similar markers are also cross-linguistically common, as shown in Veselinova (2013). The derived adjective is then marked for number with *-ru* in the singular, and *-runa* in the plural.[9] Syntactically, these adjectives function like any other adjective in Yukuna: as noun modifiers (46), attributive predicates (47), secondary predicates in verbal clauses (48), and even on their own without a head noun.

(46) *Nu=e'wé ma-ijlu-rú waícha chúwajá̃.*
1sg=sibling priv-eye-sg come today
'My blind brother came today.' [Elicited, NB5:51]

(47) *Ma-chijné-rú ri=i'mi-chá.*
priv-hair-sg 3sg.nf=cop-pst
'He was hairless.' [ycn0041,125]

(48) *Yewákumi tá yuí-cha-ri=o ma-ijlu-rú, unká ri=ijlú*
Yewakúmi emph stay-pst-nf=mid priv-eye-sg neg 3sg.nf=eye
i'ma-lá-cha.
cop-neg-pst
'It is Yewakúmi who became eyeless, he didn't have eyes.' [ycn0041,153]

[9] Number marking on adjectives derived with *ma-* differs from gender/number marking on other loci as typically the suffix *-ru* is used to encode feminine gender in the singular.

This marker encodes the absence of an entity, and is very similar to negative existential and possessive predicates (48). The opposite meaning is encoded with attributive prefix *ka-*, that also derives nouns into adjectives meaning 'with N'.

4 Other aspects of negation

This section explores further aspects of negation in Yukuna: the scope of negation (§4.1), the reinforcement of negation (§4.4), negation in complex clauses (§4.5), and some final issues in (§4.6).

4.1 Scope of negation

In order to narrow the scope of negation to specific constituents, Yukuna uses the non-verbal negation strategy *unká...kalé* around the negated constituent, while the main verb remains in the affirmative. Very few constituents may be negated in verbal clauses, most often locative adverbs, as shown in example (21) repeated here as (49) with locative adverb *ya'jnájẽ* 'far', and indefinite pro-adverbs as in (50).

(49) ***Unká*** *ya'jnájẽ* ***kalé*** *kháãjĩ́-una i'jná.*
NEG far.towards **NVB.NEG** DEM.PROX-PL go
'These ones did not go far.' (lit. 'These ones went not far.') [ycn0108,87]

(50) ***Unká*** *náje* ***kalé*** *pi=i'jná nu=jwa'té.*
NEG INDF.reason **NVB.NEG** 2SG=go 1SG=with
'You don't have to come with me.' (lit. 'You come with me in no way.') [ycn0053,82]

This non-verbal negation strategy used in constituent negation is also the preferred strategy used in contrastive negation, as with the negative non-verbal predicate in (51). This strategy is further discussed in (§4.5), and (§4.6.2).

(51) ***Unká*** *inaá-na le'jé* ***kalé*** *kéelé mawíru, achiñá-ná*
NEG woman-PL possession **NVB.NEG** MED pineapple man-PL
le'jé, wa=le'jé ri=ikhá.
possession 1PL=possession 3SG.NF=PRO
'That pineapple is not women's possession, it is men's possession, it is ours.' [ycn0091,37]

There are no attested instances of finite verbal clauses with negated core constituents in the corpus. In fact, elicited data reveals that it is agrammatical to negate S NPs with the non-verbal negation strategy in finite clauses. This is shown by the elicited grammaticality judgment example in (52). The only way to narrow the scope of negation to this constituent is by using a pseudo-cleft containing a nominalized verb form instead (53). More data is needed to know whether this restriction applies to both S NPs and O NPs, or to S NPs only.

(52) * ***Unká*** *ru=i'rí* ***kalé*** *ií-cha.*
NEG 3SG.F=son **NVB.NEG** cry-PST
('*Her son* did not cry.') [elicitation, NB8,135]

(53) ***Unká*** *ru=i'rí* ***kalé*** *kéelé* *ií-cha-ri.*
NEG 3SG.F=son **NVB.NEG** DEM.MED cry-PST-NF
'It was not her son the one who cried.' [elicitation, NB8,136]

Although there are no attested cases of core constituents negated with the non-verbal negation strategy in finite verbal clauses, it is possible to focalize both core constituents in negative clauses marked with SN, by placing the focalized constituent before the negative particle *unká*. This is shown with the focalized S NP in (54). This is the only instance in which a S NP is not immediately adjacent to the finite verb in Yukuna.

(54) *É* *na=apó-chi-ya=o* *phiyúké,* *ri=ikhá* ***unká***
then 3PL=wake_up-CAUS-PST=MID all 3SG.NF=PRO **NEG**
*apó-**la**-cha.*
wake_up-**V.NEG**-PST
'Then they all woke up, (but) *he* did not wake up.' [ycn0189,67]

4.2 Negative polarity

The domains of negative polarity items are encoded in Yukuna with a series of negative/interrogative pro-forms, as described in §3.2. Note that these pro-forms also appear in contexts which are not typically associated with negative polarity.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

No negation construction appears to affect the marking of NPs in Yukuna.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Yukuna has a variety of intensifier particles such as *wáni*, *tá*, *chí*, *kája*, and others. All of these markers have subtle differences in meaning and distribution, but broadly speaking, they are found with all constituent types, in both affirmative and negative polarity. When used with SN, they are placed immediately after the negator *unká*, and before the S NP and the verb (55).

(55) *Unká tá wa=jilá i'ma-lá.*
neg emph 1pl=oil cop=neg
'We don't have any oil at all.' [ycn0101,6]

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

As shown in (§2.4), subordinate clauses differ on the specific negation strategy they use. Another difference concerns whether the complex clause allows negation to be marked on either the main or on the subordinate clause, or whether only one of them is marked for negation. The former case is shown by purpose of motion clauses, where negative polarity can be marked on the main verb (56), or on the subordinate verb as in (20) repeated here as (57). Semantically, the former implies that the motion action did not take place, whereas the latter implies that the motion action did occur.

(56) *Kája* ***unká*** *iná i'jna-**lá** matha'-jḗ.*
Then **neg** gnr.pro go-**neg** cut-purp.mot
'Then one does not go to cut.' [ycn0119,29]

(57) ***Unká*** *kapichá-je=o* ***kalé*** *pi=i'jná, i'ma-jé i=i'jná.*
neg die-purp.mot=mid **nvb.neg** 2sg=go live-purp.mot 2pl=go
'You go (there) not to die, you go (there) to live.' [ycn0058,28]

In contrast, in complex sentences with volition verbs, negation marking is only attested on the main verb, and not on the subordinate clause, as in (58). Note that in this case, the negation of the main clause has scope over the negative indefinite *ná* in the subordinate clause.

(58) *Chúwa* ***unká*** *nu=wáta-**la** pi=a'-ká nu=jló ná tá!*
now **neg** 1sg=want-**neg** 2sg=give-ev.nmlz 1sg=to indf emph
'Now I don't want you to give me anything!' [elicited, NB5:482]

Lastly, the marking of negation may also show irregularities in coordination. In sequences of negative verbal clauses, the first one is marked with SN *unká...-la*, while the following clauses omit *unká* and retain only *-la*, as in (59).

(59) *Náje* ***unká*** *pi=ña'-tá-**la**-cha,* *pi=ka'-tá-**la**-cha*
INDF.reason **NEG** 2SG=hit-CAUS-**NEG**-PST 2SG=throw-CAUS-**NEG**-PST
kawáká ri=ikhá tá, *pi=nó-**la**-cha* *ka'jnó ri=ikhá tá?!*
down 3SG.NF=PRO EMPH 2SG=kill-**NEG**-PST DUB 3SG.NF=PRO EMPH
'Why didn't you hit him, throw him down, kill him?!' [ycn0545,37]

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport or negative raising refers to the process whereby a higher-clause negative is interpreted as negating a lower-clause predicate. In Yukuna, the negation strategy used in complex sentences varies according to each subordinate construction, as presented in §4.5.

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation, or the device used for objecting to a previous utterance (Horn 1989: 363), is encoded in Yukuna with non-verbal negation, just like contrastive negation described in (§4.1). This device is often used by repeating a non-verbal constituent mentioned by the interlocutor, in order to emphasize the speaker's disagreement over the interlocutor's wording. In (60), speaker B quotes the indefinite pronoun *ná* used by speaker A, and negates it using constituent negation, as he believes that the answer to the question is obvious. Note that in doing so, the speaker B uses the indefinite pronoun in a syntactic position typical of lexical nouns such as *pána* 'leaf'.

(60) A: *Ná chí ri=iĩ́?* *kéelé íju pi=kulá.*
INDF EMPH 3SG.NF=name DEM.MED leaf 2SG=search
'What is its name? That leaf you search.' [ycn0058,13]

B: *Unká "ná" kalé,* *wayú pána ri=ikhá.*
NEG INDF NVB.NEG bird_species leaf 3SG.NF=PRO
'It is not a "what", it is the leaf of the black vulture.' [ycn0058,14]

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives

The negation particle *unká* is found in several idiomatic, synchronically unsegmentable forms used with non negative meanings: *unkáchiyó* 'before', *unkájĩchiyó* 'almost', *unká kéla* 'otherwise' (61).

(61) *Unkájĩ́chiyó ri=nó-cha jlá ri=ikhá!*
almost 3SG.NF=kill-PST INTV 3SG.NF=PRO
'He almost killed him!' [ycn0053,24]

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations

One of the puzzling features of negation in Yukuna concerns the diachrony of the negator *unká*. This marker is used in almost all negation strategies, most notably, SN (*unká…-la*) and non-verbal negation (*unká…kalé*). Concerning SN, we posit that a plausible diachronic scenario is that *unká* was originally a negative existential stative verb, which was used as a main clause predicate with a subordinate verb nominalized with *-la*. This initially bi-clausal construction later grammaticalized as a monoclausal SN strategy through the Negative Existential Cycle (Veselinova 2016). According to this diachronic hypothesis, the properties of modern Yukuna's negated verbs, and negative clauses, reflect the morphosyntax of pre-Yukuna's bi-clausal constructions. This diachronic hypothesis is based on the shared paradigmatic position of the negative suffix *-la* and clausal nominalizers such as *-ka* EV.NMLZ, and provides a likely account for Yukuna's typologically unusual cases of asymmetry in finiteness in subordinate clauses, whereby the negative shows reduced finiteness with respect to the affirmative (see §2.4.3). The former nominalizing function of *-la* would also explain its incompatibility with the far past imperfective suffix *-khe* in main clauses (see §2.1). Lastly, the proposed diachronic scenario is very likely from an Arawakan perspective, as nominalizations used as a subordinating strategy are widespread in the family (Aikhenvald 1999: 100).

5 Summary

In this chapter, we provided a detailed overview of negation in Yukuna, following the typological questionnaire by Miestamo (2025 [this volume]) revised with Ljuba Veselinova in February 2019. We showed that Yukuna clearly distinguishes verbal and non-verbal clauses, as reported in other Arawakan languages such as Mojeño Trinitario (Rose 2018), and that the two main negation strategies in the language SN *unká…-la* and non-verbal negation *unká…kalé*, perfectly map onto this distinction. We showed that the same markers of SN and non-verbal negation were employed in most other domains, from negation in non-declaratives, to subordinate clauses, and constituent negation. Some exceptional domains with distinct negation markers are the prohibitive and negative purposive subordinate clauses. The Yukuna negative markers are summarized in Table 4.

Table 4: Markers of negation in Yukuna

Domain	Function	Markers
Clausal	Standard Negation	*unká …-la*
	Interrogative	*unká …-la*
	Potential mood	*unká …-la*
	Non-verbal predication	*unká … kalé*
	Purpose of motion clauses	*unká … kalé*
	Constituent negation	*unká … kalé*
	Imperative	*-niña*
	Purposive clauses	*piyá*
Non-clausal	Negative replies	*unká*
	Negative derivation	*ma-*

In terms of (a)symmetries, we showed that both SN and non-verbal negation are symmetrical with respect to the corresponding affirmative verbal and non-verbal predicates. However, there are several cases of constructional asymmetries in non-declarative and non-main clauses. Polar questions and potential modality clauses show an interesting alternation between nominalized verb forms in the affirmative, and finite verb forms marked with the SN markers in the negative. Similarly, certain adverbial subordinate clauses are encoded with a nominalized verb and a post-verbal subordinating particle in the affirmative, while in the negative, the verb is not nominalized, and the subordinating particle is placed after the negator *unká* rather than after the subordinate verb. We argued that these asymmetries in the marking of nominalization are interesting from a diachronic perspective, as they suggest that the origin of SN is a construction with a negative existential verb *unká* and a nominalized verb form with *-la*. Lastly, from a genealogical perspective, Yukuna shares some features with closely related languages, while showing some particularities. Indeed, although negation varies greatly in terms of both form and function within the family (Aikhenvald 1999: 96), some related languages show formally and functionally similar forms, such as the the pre-verbal particle *uká* in Kawiyarí, and *noka* in Baure (Michael 2014: 238). However, according to Michael (2014: 237), Arawakan languages tend to use a single pre-verbal marker in SN (21 out of 27 languages in his sample), whereas obligatory double-marking, specially involving a particle and a suffix, is quite rare. Yukuna is therefore marginal in that respect.

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Abbreviations

1	first person	MED	medial
2	second person	MID	middle
3	third person	NF	non-feminine
AL	alienable	NVB	nonverbal
CAUS	causative	NEG	negative
CAUSE	cause clause	NMLZ	nominalizer
COND	conditional	NPOSS	unpossessed
COP	copula	PART	partitive
DEM	demonstrative	PST	past
DUB	dubitative	PL	plural
EMPH	emphatic particle	PRIV	privative
EV	event	PRO	pronoun
F	feminine	PROH	prohibitive
FUT	future	PROX	proximal
GNR	generic	PURP.MOT	purpose of motion
HAB	habitual aspect	Q	polar question particle
INDF	indefinite		
INTV	intentive	REFL	reflexive
IPFV	imperfective	SG	singular
LOC	locative	V	verbal

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Chapter 17

Negation in Aguaruna

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The chapter describes negation in Aguaruna (Chicham). Verbal negation, including standard negation, makes use of inflectional verbal suffixes, part of a rich system of verbal morphology in the language. Two suffixed negators are selected according to aspect and finiteness of the verb, and a third suffix appears only in some nondeclarative clause types. The verbal paradigms are largely symmetrical, and the only category that is completely neutralized under negation is a distinction between plain and familiar imperative. Nominals can be derivationally negated, and this strategy is the basis for negating clauses with nominal predicates. When marked on the predicate, negation has clausal scope, and this is true both of verbal and nominal predicates. The chapter concludes with a discussion of the diachronic relation between the negative existential verb and one of the verbal negative suffixes, and suggests that the former is the source of the latter.

Keywords: Chicham, Amazonian, grammaticalization, aspect, tense.

1 The language

This chapter describes the grammatical means for expressing negation in Aguaruna (ISO: agr, Glottocode: agua1253), a Chicham language of north Peru. The Chicham family (formerly known as Jivaroan) consists of five closely related languages all spoken in the south of Ecuador and north of Peru, in an area mostly within the Santiago, Pastaza and Marañón River basins. Aguaruna speakers refer to the language as Iiniá Chicham or Awajún, and the latter is the currently preferred label in Peruvian Spanish. Over 56,000 people identified as first language speakers of Aguaruna in the 2017 census (Ministerio de Educación del Perú 2018: 64). Most speakers live in areas of native title in Peru's Amazonas region, with communities also in San Martín, Loreto, and Cajamarca regions. Bilingual

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schools have operated in Aguaruna communities since 1953, and there is a high degree of Aguaruna–Spanish bilingualism.

Much of the data in this chapter comes from Overall (2017a), a full descriptive grammar of Aguaruna. This is supplemented with the author's field data, personal communication with native speakers, and written sources including a translation of the New Testament (La Liga Bíblica 2008) and public social media posts. Examples labelled SLCK were provided in personal communication by Segundo Lucio Cungumas Kujancham.

Aguaruna typically shows SV/APV constituent order, although with considerable freedom of movement for information structural purposes, and NP arguments need not be overt. Nominative-accusative alignment is manifested in case marking of NPs (zero-marked nominative, accusative enclitic *=na*) and verbal agreement, as well as grammatical processes such as nominalization and switch-reference, which distinguish subject (S or A) from non-subjects.

The morphology is both head and dependent marking: at the clause level, subjects and speech-act participant objects are marked with verbal suffixes, and NP arguments are marked for case; within the possessive NP, possessed nouns are morphologically marked as possessed, along with person and number of the possessor, and possessors are marked with genitive case, or accusative case if they are pronominal.

Morphological structure is basically agglutinating, with some fusion. Most allomorphy is the result of regular processes of syncope and apocope that elide the vowels of some CV syllables. The full underlying forms of morphs are cited in the text, while numbered examples show both surface forms and full morphemic forms. In examples, the first line gives the surface form after the application of vowel elision, and the second line gives the underlying morphological forms. Loanwords from Spanish are italicised in the second line. Examples are given in IPA, with the exception of those taken from written sources (such as example (3)), in which the first line (between angle brackets <…>) is in the Spanish-based vernacular orthography, which differs from IPA in the following graphs: <ch> = [tʃ]; <e> = [ɨ]; <g> = [ɰ] (between vowels) or [ŋ]; <h> = [ʔ]; <j> = [h]; <sh> = [ʃ]; <y> = [j]. In the glosses, affixes are separated with hyphens and clitics with equal signs. The analysis of a given form as an affix or a clitic is based on whether the form is associated with a particular word class or a phrasal constituent: affixes are positioned by morphological principles, while clitics are positioned by syntactic principles. See Overall (2017a: 9–10) for a fuller discussion. Square brackets are used in examples to delimit potentially unclear multiword constituents, such as the complement clauses in example (3).

Finite verbs in Aguaruna are marked for the following verbal grammatical categories: aspect, tense, person/number and mood/modality. These categories, along with derivational morphology and polarity, are marked in the verbal word, which is entirely suffixing apart from an unproductive causative prefix. The ordering of the categories is largely as predicted by Bybee (1985), except that the inflectional category of aspect precedes negation in Aguaruna. The productive suffixing morphology can be usefully viewed in terms of morphological slots, as in the schematic overview in Figure 1. The valency-changing derivational morphology of slot A is not obligatory, but the rest of the categories are obligatorily specified, assuming that the paradigms include zero-marked members that contrast meaningfully with overt markers. Consequently, a finite verb can be defined as one that includes specification for all of the grammatical categories in slots B to G.

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G
ROOT	Valency	Object	Aspect	Negation	Tense	Subject	Mood

Figure 1: Productive morphological slots in the verbal word

Aspect marking in slot C forms a set of stems which can then combine with tense (slot E) and other morphology. The major aspectual stems are IMPERFECTIVE and PERFECTIVE. Imperfective is marked with a suffix *-a*, or *-ina* if the subject is plural, while perfective is marked with one of a set of suffixes that also give some further specification of the manner of the action. The selection of perfective suffix is largely lexically specified (Overall 2017a: 328). Less frequently encountered aspectual stems are POTENTIAL and DURATIVE (which combines only with imperative mood and gives the sense of 'keep on doing' or 'do for a while'). The UNMARKED verb root also forms a stem to which nominalizers and some finite verbal forms can be added. Table 1 shows the full range of possibilities for marking in the aspect morphological slot.

Aguaruna has a rich system of tense marking (slot E) with "four synthetic past tenses, plus a past tense nominalizer, and two synthetic future tenses, plus a future nominalizer" (Overall 2017a: 16) in addition to zero-marked present/immediate past tense. There are also various auxiliary constructions and nominalized forms; it is likely that some past tense forms are relatively recently grammaticalized from auxiliary constructions. Note in particular the use of verbs nominalized with the suffix *-u* (see §3.3), which may function in lieu of a finite verb, giving a non-firsthand evidentiality reading (Overall 2014). This construction is very frequent in traditional stories, and can be seen combined with the copula enclitic in

Table 1: Aspect marked/unmarked stems

Stem	Marker(s)	
imperfective	*-a*	singular subject
	-ina	plural subject
perfective	(one of a paradigm of suffixes)	
potential	*-mai*	
durative	*-ma*	only combines with imperative
unmarked	Ø	

(36) *wɨ-u=ai* (go.PFV-NMLZ=COP.3.DECL) 'he went' and without the copula in (40) *dakita-u* (refuse.PFV-NMLZ) 'he refused'.

Although they form morphologically distinct paradigms, tense and aspect markers typically combine in predictable ways. Most notably, non-present tenses almost always combine with perfective aspect. The morphologically unmarked present tense is formed on the imperfective stem, while the perfective stem with no overt tense marker is treated as an immediate past tense (Overall 2017a: 339–340). The remote past tense is unusual in that it can combine with imperfective, perfective, or the unmarked stem (as in (6) below). The unmarked verb stem appears in a few finite verb forms in addition to remote past tense, but these constructions appear to be lexically restricted and unproductive (Overall 2017a: 253).

Aguaruna is a clause-chaining language and makes heavy use of dependent verb forms and nominalizations, with relatively few finite verbs in narrative texts. Dependent verb forms lack tense and mood marking. They are marked for their dependent status, for person of the subject (using a different paradigm from that used in finite verbs) and for switch-reference.

The remainder of this chapter is structured according to the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). Section §2 describes clausal negation, beginning with standard negation then moving on to non-declarative clause types, stative predications, non-main clauses and lexicalized negation. Section §3 describes non-clausal negation, including negative replies, negative indefinites, and negative derivation. Section §4 addresses some other aspects of negation, including questions of scope and marking of NPs under negation. In §4.6 some diachronic observations are presented. Finally §5 offers some concluding remarks.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (SN) is defined as applying to a pragmatically unmarked, finite, declarative clause with a verbal predicate (Payne 1985, Miestamo 2005, 2017). The definition of verbal finiteness provided above makes it relatively easy to identify SN in Aguaruna. SN makes use of two verbal suffixes, *-tʃa* and *-tsu,* which appear in morphological slot D (Figure 1). Examples (1–3) illustrate the use of these suffixes. Note that in both suffixes the affricate is typically changed to a fricative when syncope places it in syllable-final position, following a general allophonic rule (Overall 2017a: 45–46). Also note that the negative suffix *-tʃa* triggers accent shift to the verb root, as in (2a) where the corresponding affirmative form has the accent falling on a suffix (2b) (Overall 2017a: 113).

(1) a. *dakástʃattahai*
daka-sa-tʃa-tata-ha-i
wait-PFV-NEG-FUT-1SG-DECL
'I will not wait.' (Overall 2017a: 403)

b. *dakástathai*
daka-sa-tata-ha-i
wait-PFV-FUT-1SG-DECL
'I will wait.' (SLCK)

(2) a. *waínkaʃmahai*
waina-ka-tʃa-ma-ha-i
see-PFV-NEG-PST-1SG-DECL
'I didn't see it.' (SLCK)

b. *wainkámhai*
waina-ka-ma-ha-i
see-PFV-PST-1SG-DECL
'I saw it.' (SLCK)

(3) a. *<Wika dekatsjai ame tame nunak>*
wi=ka dɨka-tsu-ha-i [amɨ ta-mɨ nu=na=ka]
1SG=TOP know.IPFV-NEG-1SG-DECL 2SG say.IPFV-2SG ANA=ACC=TOP
'I don't know what you're talking about.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 65; Matthew 26:70)

b. <*Mesías Kristu daagtin taatna*
[*mesías* Kristu naa-hu-tinu ta-a-tina=a
Messiah Christ name-PSSD-ATTR arrive-PFV-FUT.NMLZ=COP.3
nunak dekajai>
nu=na=ka] dika-ha-i
ANA=ACC=TOP know.IPFV-1SG-DECL
'I know that Messiah (called Christ) is coming.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 176; John 4:25)

The use of verbal suffixes means that Aguaruna conforms to Dryer's Type 6 (SO[V-Neg]) in his 2013 typology. The SN construction is symmetric (Miestamo 2005), as the negative clause differs from the positive clause only in the presence of the negative marker itself (but note that negative clauses apparently favour the use of topic marking, see §4.3). SN is also symmetric at the level of the paradigm, as all finite declarative clause types can be negated with the same SN constructions (in fact, negative paradigms are consistently symmetric throughout the grammar, while the constructions are asymmetric for imperative/prohibitive, see §2.2.1).

The primary factor in the selection of negative suffix *-tʃa* or *-tsu* appears to be aspect (and see Croft 1991: 10–11 for some parallel cases of aspect-conditioned alternation in SN markers), but because tense and aspect markers rarely vary independently (despite forming distinct paradigms) there are few examples that allow this to be demonstrated robustly.

Within the most frequently encountered finite verb forms, the selection of negator is predictable based on the combinations of aspect and tense: perfective aspect combined with non-present tenses triggers the marker *-tʃa* (this was illustrated with future tense in example (1a), and past tense in (2a)), while imperfective aspect combined with present tense triggers *-tsu* (3a).

The few tensed forms that involve neither perfective nor imperfective aspect show that the selection of negator is only partly predictable from the present/non-present tense distinction. Finite verb forms based on the potential stem are negated with *-tʃa* in past tense (4a) and *-tsu* in present tense (5). These constructions are infrequent, however (Overall 2017a: 336), as the potential stem is typically followed by a nominalizer, and then uses the nominal negation strategy involving the negating/nominalizing suffix *-tʃau* (for example, the form in (4b) was first offered to translate Spanish *no pude cruzar* 'I couldn't cross', and compare (6); see §2.3 for details of the nominal negation strategy).

(4) a. *katiímaitʃamɨ*
katii-mai-tʃa-mɨ
cross-POT-NEG-PST.3.DECL
'One could not cross.' (for example, a flooded river) (SLCK)

b. *katiímaintʃau* *dɨkapsámhai*
katii-mai-inu-tʃau dɨkapɨ-sa-ma-ha-i
cross-POT-NMLZ-NEG.NMLZ feel-PFV-PST-1SG-DECL
'I didn't feel able to cross.' (SLCK)

(5) *wíka* *hiínmaitsuhai,* *húna* *itípka*
wi=ka hiina-mai-tsu-ha-i hu=na itipaka
1SG=TOP go.out-POT-NEG-1SG-DECL DEM.PROX=ACC kilt.ACC
nahánkun *hɨ̃ɰ̃ã́* *puhúttahai*
nahana-ku-nu hɨɰã puhu-tata-ha-i
make.IPFV-SIM-1SG.SS house.LOC live-FUT-1SG-DECL
'I can't go out, I'll stay at home making this kilt.' (agr040719_01)[1]

(6) *tʃitʃasán* *inímtanaʃ* *inimáintʃau*
tʃitʃa-sa-nu inima-ta=na=ʃa inima-mai-inu-tʃau
speak-SUB-1SG.SS ask-NMLZ=ACC=ADD ask-POT-NMLZ-NEG.NMLZ
dɨkapɨ́jahai
dɨkapɨ-ja-ha-i
feel-REM.PST-1SG-DECL
'I felt unable to even ask a question by speaking (because I didn't know Spanish).' (Overall 2017a: 609)

In contrast to the potential forms, remote past tense combined with the unmarked stem is negated with *-tsa* (which Overall 2017a assumes is an allomorph of *-tsu*), and not with *-tʃa* as would be expected if non-present tense were the relevant factor in the selection of negator (7).

(7) *wahúk* *háaha* *núna* *tumáin*
[wahuka ha-a-ha nu=na] tu-mai-inu
how be.sick-IPFV-1SG ANA=ACC say-POT-NMLZ
dɨkáptsajahai
dɨkapɨ-tsa-ja-ha-i
feel-NEG-REM.PST-1SG-DECL
'I didn't feel able to say in what way I was sick.' (Overall 2017a: 402)

[1]Unpublished Aguaruna examples are cited with the code of the recording, currently being prepared for archiving.

The 'normative' form, also combining with unmarked stem, gives a gnomic reading of "the way things are done", and this form is negated with *-tʃa* (8).

(8) *<uvashkam jagkinmayag juushtayame>*
uva=ʃakama haŋki=numa=ja=ka huu-tʃa-tajamɨ
grape=ADD thorn=LOC=ABL=TOP take-NEG-NORM
'We don't pick grapes from amongst thorns.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 19; Matthew 7:16)

Although part of the tense paradigm in Aguaruna, the normative form is synchronically a nominalizer in the other Chicham languages, and the use of *-tʃa* is consistent with its origin in a nominalizer (see §3.3). Similarly, the 'narrative past' tense marker *-haku* appears to have its etymological source in a nominalizer, and this means that it is incompatible with SN suffixes. Instead, a periphrastic negation strategy is used, which involves negating the verb root with the negative nominalizer (see §2.3 and §3.3), then adding the tense marker to an auxiliary verb (9).

(9) *dɨ́katʃu ahakúi*
dɨka-tʃau a-haku=i
know-NEG.NMLZ COP-NARR.PST=COP.3.DECL
utʃíŋmitkatnak
utʃiha-mitika-ta=na=ka
give.birth-CAUS-ACT.NMLZ=ACC=TOP
'(They) didn't know how to make her give birth.' (Overall 2017a: 300)

In sum, finite tensed forms with perfective or imperfective aspect show a clear distribution of negators according to the aspect marking. Combinations of negators with other stems (potential or unmarked) are not readily predictable, and simply depend on different constructions.[2] Such forms have low token frequency and may be paraphrased with constructions that are not strictly verbal, such as the nominalization in (4b) above. In non-finite verb forms, including nominalizations, the marker *-tʃa* is the default (§2.4, §3.3).

The mood marking paradigm in morphological slot G (Figure 1) includes traditional sentence-type markers (declarative, interrogative) and some epistemic markers (e.g. 'counter-expectation', 'speculative' see (48)) as well as a dedicated marker of traditional narrative genre. These other declarative clause types seem

[2]The durative stem appears only in combination with positive imperative and therefore does not combine with negative marking.

to use SN strategies, although there are few examples. Negation in interrogative clauses also uses SN, as described in §2.2.2. Imperative mood is marked in the same morphological slot as tense, and its negation is described in §2.2.1.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Negation of commands

There are three distinct morphological forms for the expression of positive and negative commands in Aguaruna:

(i) Canonical imperative is based on the suffix *-ta* (*-ti* in third person) related to future tense markers and the purpose clause construction;

(ii) The suffix *-mi* marks hortative;

(iii) The apprehensive marker *-i* forms the basis of the prohibitive form – functionally the negative counterpart of imperative.

Table 2 shows an overview of imperative forms and their negated counterparts in Aguaruna.[3]

Table 2: Aguaruna imperative and prohibitive verb forms (Overall 2017b: 68)

person	positive/command		negative/prohibition
	plain	familiar	
2SG	*-ta*	*-kia*	*-i-pa*
2PL	*-ta-hum*	*-khua*	*-i-hupa* or *-i-pa-humɨ*
3SG	*-ti*		*-ĩ-ka*
3PL	*-ti-numɨ*		*-i-numɨ-ka*
1PL	*-mi*		*-tʃa-mi*

Two important points to note are that (i) the *-ta* forms for positive imperative do not extend to 1PL, which only uses the dedicated hortative marker *-mi*; and (ii) only the hortative *-mi* form is negated with the SN suffix *-tʃa* (compare positive and negative forms (10)), while the *-ta* forms all have distinct prohibitive forms based on apprehensive marking, described below. (Note, however, that the etymological source of imperative *-ta*, the immediate future tense marker, can be negated using SN as in (18) below.)

[3]The ‘plain’ versus ‘familiar’ distinction in second person positive imperative is neutralized in prohibitive, which has only a single set of forms.

(10) *<Iina namakji aidau kuitamkami,*
ii=na namaka-hĩ a-ina-u kuitama-ka-mi
1pl=acc river-pssd.1pl exist-pl.ipfv-nmlz care.for-pfv-hort
tsuwapakchami.>
tsuwapa-ka-tʃa-mi
make.dirty-pfv-neg-hort
'Let's look after our rivers, let's not make them dirty.' (*Cultura Awajun*, Facebook post, 9 August 2019; the original post includes the Spanish translation 'No tiremos la basura a nuestros ríos, cuidémosla.')

Prohibitive (negative imperative) forms use the apprehensive suffix *-i* combined with suffixes that indicate person and number. This suffix normally forms a negative counterpart of the purpose clause (§2.4.4), but uses a different set of person suffixes when forming a prohibitive clause, as shown in the rightmost column of Table 2 (compare these to the apprehensive set in Table 3). Note that there are two forms for 2pl: *-hupa* or a form with 2sg *-pa* followed by the 2pl marker from Table 3, i.e. *-pa-humi*. There does not appear to be any semantic distinction between the two forms for second person plural (Overall 2017b: 74, also see Peña 2015: 678 on a similar free variation in Wampis).

The prohibitive construction conforms to the fourth type described by van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013), as it involves a negator that is distinct from that used in SN, and is based on a form that is distinct from the positive imperative.[4]

Examples (11–12) illustrate singular and plural imperative contrasted with prohibitive, (13) shows the alternative plural prohibitive form, and (14) gives a prohibitive in context, from a direct speech report in a recorded narrative. Example (15) illustrates jussive, the third person imperative, and (16) shows its negative counterpart, third person prohibitive, formed with the suffix *-ka*, which is unique to this form.

(11) a. *atʃiktá*
atʃi-ka-ta
grab-pfv-imp
'Grab (it)!'

[4] As noted above, negation of the 1pl hortative form is performed with exactly the same marking as SN, added directly to the positive construction. It is unclear how this compares to crosslinguistic patterns, as there is little typological work directly addressing first person plural prohibitive forms – for example, van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013) restrict themselves to second person prohibitives, and van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova (2020) explicitly exclude 1pl forms for reasons of space.

b. *atʃikáipa*
atʃi-ka-i-pa
grab-PFV-APPR-2.PROH
'Don't grab (it)!' (Overall 2017b: 74)

(12) a. *atʃiktáhum*
atʃi-ka-ta-humɨ
grab-PFV-IMP-2PL
'Grab (it)!'

b. *atʃikáiŋpa!*
atʃi-ka-i-hupa
grab-PFV-APPR-2PL.PROH
'Don't grab (it)!' (Overall 2017b: 74)

(13) *wáinkam ihuípahum!*
wainka-mɨ ihu-i-pa-humɨ
in.vain-2 stab-APPR-2.PROH-2PL
'Don't stab it in vain!' (Overall 2017b: 75)

(14) *atsá, ámɨk miníipa, wíka iʃámainnum*
atsa amɨ=ka mini-i-pa wi=ka iʃama-mai-inu=numa
no 2SG=TOP come.PFV-APPR-2.PROH 1SG=TOP fear-POT-NMLZ=LOC
wíɰahai, ámɨk titú puhustá
wɨ-a-ha-i amɨ=ka titu puhu-sa-ta
go-IPFV-1SG-DECL 2SG=TOP still live-PFV-IMP
'No, don't you come, I'm going into danger, you stay still!' (Overall 2017a: 583)

(15) *<Yutái susatajum yuwati>*
ju-taĩ su-sa-ta-humɨ ju-a-ti
eat-NMLZ give-PFV-IMP-2PL eat-PFV-JUSS
'Give her food and let her eat!' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 79; Mark 5:43)

(16) *útʃi húna saɨ́ptʃihin*
utʃi hu=na saɨpɨ-utʃi-hĩ=na
child DEM.PROX=ACC rind-DIM-PSSD.3=ACC
ijáunakɨʃ juwáwaiŋka
ija-u=na=kɨ=ʃa ju-aw-aĩ-ka
fall.IPFV-NMLZ=ACC=RESTR=ADD eat-PFV-APPR.3SG-PROH
'Don't let the child eat this rind that is falling!' (Overall 2017b: 75)

2.2.2 Negation of questions

Interrogative clauses use the same SN strategies as declarative clauses. Negated content questions (17–18) are rare in published material.

(17) *maʔ, "antúkta" táha! wáŋka ántasmɨ?*
[maʔ antu-ka-ta ta-ha] [waŋka anta-tsu-mɨ]
hey listen-PFV-IMP say.IPFV-1SG.EXCLAM why listen.IPFV-NEG-2SG
'Hey, "listen" I say! Why don't you listen?' (Overall 2017a: 563)

(18) *wáŋka ahápaʃtamɨ?*
waŋka ahapa-tʃa-ta-mɨ
why give.birth.PFV-NEG-IMM.FUT-2SG
'Why aren't you going to give birth?' (Overall 2017a: 354)

Overall (2017a: 394) notes that polar questions often include negative marking, apparently pleonastically ((19), also (26) and (41) below). Example (19) is a rhetorical question: the speaker knows that the addressee has killed the dog, and the question is a rebuke. A more detailed study would be necessary to better understand the pragmatics involved in negated polar questions.

(19) *j̃ãw̃ã́ã íinu maáʃmakum?*
[jawaã ii-nau] maa-tʃa-ma=ka-umɨ
dog 1PL-POSS kill.PFV-NEG-PST=Q-2SG
'Have you killed our dog?' (lit. 'haven't you killed our dog?') (Overall 2017a: 155)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Non-verbal predication in Aguaruna may be encoded by means of an enclitic copula, a verbal copula, or juxtaposition of subject and predicate. Clauses expressing equation, proper inclusion and attribution generally make use of a partially verblike copula =*aita* (with various reduced allomorphs), which is enclitic to a nominal or adjectival predicate and is inflected with finite verbal morphology. The adjective word class is fairly small (Overall 2017a: 130), and many property concepts are encoded with intransitive lexical verbs.

The distribution of the enclitic copula depends on grammatical factors including finiteness and tense. Where the enclitic cannot be used, a separate verbal copula *a-* appears instead. In present tense declarative clauses, the enclitic copula may be omitted, resulting in simple juxtaposition of subject and predicate.

Neither the enclitic copula nor the copula verb is compatible with SN, instead making use of a suffix *-tʃau* (reduced to *-tʃu* following a vowel) affixed directly to the non-verbal predicate. This suffix also nominalizes and negates verbal roots, and etymologically consists of the negative suffix *-tʃa* and nominalizer *-u*, hence Overall (2017a) labels it a 'negative nominalizer', and shows that synchronically it is a suffix in its own right (Overall 2017a: 513–514, 527). Examples in this chapter follow Overall (2017a) in glossing this suffix neg.nmlz 'negative nominalizer'.

Example (20) shows the enclitic copula combining with a negated nominal in the first clause, and a non-negated pronoun in the second clause. Example (21) shows a negated nominal predicate combined with the copula verb, as the enclitic copula cannot appear in this type of subordinate clause. Example (22) shows a negated nominal predicate juxtaposed to the subject in a present tense, declarative clause with third person singular subject.

(20) *pákitʃauwaithi,* *íijaithi*
paki-tʃau=aita-hi ii=aita-hi
white.lipped.peccary-neg.nmlz=cop-1pl.decl 1pl=cop-1pl.decl
'We're not peccaries, we're us (i.e. people).' (Overall 2017a: 406)

(21) *<Atumek judiuchu asajum...>*
atumɨ=ka hudiu-tʃau asa-humɨ
2pl=top Jew-neg cop.sub-2pl.ss
'As you are not Jews…' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 291; Romans 11:24)

(22) *húka* *mídautʃu*
hu=ka mi-nau-tʃau
dem.prox=top 1sg-poss-neg.nmlz
'This is not mine.' (Overall 2017a: 406)

Although the copula verb is not compatible with SN, it does combine with the apprehensive marker in prohibitive clauses, as in (23) (see §2.2.1 above for details of the prohibitive construction).

(23) *kása áipa*
kasa a-i-pa
thief cop-appr-2.proh
'Don't be a thief!' (Overall 2017b: 78)

Existential predications are formed with a verb *a-*, which is morphologically distinct from the homophonous copula verb (Overall 2018, forthcoming). Negative existential is encoded with a verb *atsu-*. The two forms are illustrated in (24)).

(24) a. *ã̃w̃ĩ* *awai* *Western Union*
au=ĩ a-wa-i *Western Union*
DEM.DIST=LOC exist.IPFV-3-DECL Western Union
'There's a Western Union there.'

b. *hũ̃w̃ĩ* *Nieva atsawai*
hu=ĩ *Nieva* atsa-wa-i
DEM.PROX=LOC Nieva exist.NEG.IPFV-3-DECL
'Here in Nieva there isn't one.' (Overall 2017a: 158)

It is tempting to analyse *atsu-* as consisting of the existential verb *a-* and SN suffix *-tsu* (Peña 2015 and Kohlberger 2020 adopt this analysis for cognate forms in Wampis and Shiwiar, respectively), but Overall (2017a: 407) shows that this is unsatisfactory, as both valency-changing morphology in slot (B) and imperfective aspect in slot (C) follow the root *atsu-* (as can be seen in example (29) below), whereas both would be expected to intervene between the root and an SN suffix in slot (D) (see §1, Figure 1). The diachrony of the negative existential is discussed further in §4.6 below.

Locative predication makes use of the lexical verb *puhu-* 'live'. This verb has the sense of "be alive" or "dwell in a place" in its lexical use, but encodes temporary location when used as a copula with a locational predicate, as in example (25). This verb takes the full range of verbal morphology, including SN. Example (26) illustrates the negated form in a question (note that the use of negation here is pleonastic, cf. §2.2.2). Example (27) shows that in a declarative sentence the use of the expected negated form *puha-tsu-wa-i* (live.IPFV-NEG-3-DECL) is dispreferred with a human subject, apparently due to ambiguity with the lexical meaning 'he is not alive'. Instead, the negative existential verb *atsu-* is used.

(25) *<Juwi* *pujawai>*
hu=ĩ puha-wa-i
DEM.PROX=LOC live.IPFV-3-DECL
'He is here.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 151; Luke 17:23)

(26) *<¿Ju* *jega* *juwi* *Simón* *daagtin,* *tikich*
hu hɨɰã hu=ĩ *Simón* naa-hĩ-tinu tikitʃi
DEM.PROX house DEM.PROX=LOC Simon name-PSSD.3-ATTR other
daaji *Pedro* *tutaya* *nu* *pujatsuak?>*
naa-hĩ *Pedro* tu-tajã nu puha-tsu-wa=ka
name-PSSD.3 Peter say-NORM ANA live.IPFV-NEG-3=Q
'Is Simon, also known as Peter, (not) in this house?' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 232; Acts 10:18)

(27) *<juwig atsawai>*
hu=ĩ=ka atsa-wa-i
DEM.PROX=LOC=TOP exist.NEG.IPFV-3-DECL
'He isn't here.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 104; Mark 16:6)

Finally, possessive predication is based on the existential verb, with the possessum encoded as subject and possessor encoded as an object added by the applicative derivation that typically encodes beneficiary or maleficiary, shown in (28). This construction is negated using the applicativized negative existential, as in (29).

(28) *<Siete pag, nuigtú wajumchik namak*
siete paŋka nuiŋtu wahuma-tʃi=ki namaka
seven bread furthermore few-DIM=RESTR fish
ajutjamui>
a-hu-tuhama-wa-i
exist-APPL-1PL.OBJ.IPFV-3-DECL
'We have seven loaves of bread and just a few fish.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 39; Matthew 15:34)

(29) *<minak tudauk atsugtawai>*
mi=na=ka tudau=ka atsu-hu-ta-wa-i
1SG=ACC=TOP sin=TOP exist.NEG-APPL-1SG.OBJ.IPFV-3-DECL
'I have no sin.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 434; 1 John 1:8)

In summary, stative predications in Aguaruna use two strategies distinct from SN: nominal and adjectival predications mark negation on the non-verbal predicate using a derivational suffix, while existential and possessive predications make use of a distinct negative existential verb. Locative predication may use SN, but may also make use of the negative existential verb.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

2.4.1 Preliminaries

Aguaruna makes heavy use of non-finite clause types in clause-chaining constructions, especially in narrative texts. These clauses are morphosyntactically dependent in that they can only appear in a construction with an associated finite predicate: the verbs of dependent clauses are marked for some of the same categories as finite verbs, but lack tense and mood marking. Subject agreement in dependent verbs is marked with a slightly different paradigm from that of finite verbs, and the agreement markers follow suffixes that mark the verb's dependent status and to some extent its semantic relation to the larger construction. Dependent verbs are also marked for switch-reference, indicating whether the subject of the dependent verb is the same as or different from that of a controlling verb (Haiman & Munro 1983).

Non-finite verbs forming temporal clauses are negated with the verbal negator *-tʃa*, and do not show the aspect-based alternation of *-tʃa* and *-tsu* observed in finite verbs, as shown in §2.4.2. The same negator is involved in negating nominalizations, as described in §3.3, apart from one construction that appears to combine *-tsu* with a nominalizer, which is described in §2.4.3. Purpose clauses have a negative counterpart formed with the 'apprehensive' marker *-i*, described in §2.4.4. The same marker forms the basis of the prohibitive forms described above (§2.2.1). Finally, relativization and complementation are mostly achieved through the use of nominalized clauses, as described in §2.4.5.

2.4.2 Temporal subordinate clauses

The most frequently encountered subordinate clauses are sequential clauses, which are formed on the perfective stem, and simultaneous clauses, formed on the imperfective stem plus the 'simultaneous' marker *-ku*, as in (30). Although the imperfective stem is associated with the *-tsu* negator in finite clauses, simultaneous subordinate clauses take the *-tʃa* negator (31–32). I have not encountered any examples of negated subordinate clauses based on the perfective stem. The addition of the topic enclitic *=ka* to any of these clause types forms a conditional clause (as in (32); also see (49) below).

(30) *tíkish wɨ́nakũĩ*
tikichi wɨ-ina-ku-ĩ
other go-PL.IPFV-SIM.3-DS
'When others were going…' (Overall 2017a: 608)

(31) *ɨ́kɨ akihúinaʃkũĩ*
ɨkɨ aki-hu-ina-tʃa-ku-ĩ
yet pay-1SG.OBJ-PL.IPFV-NEG-SIM.1/3-DS
'They're not paying me yet…' (Overall 2017a: 408)

(32) *núna* *waʃín* *duʃíkiaʃkunuk*
[nu=na waʃi=na duʃiki-a-tʃa-ku-nu=ka]
ANA=ACC spider.monkey=ACC laugh.at-IPFV-NEG-SIM-1SG.SS=TOP
tukúmain *awakáhai*
tuku-mai-inu awakɨ-ka-ha-i
shoot-POT-NMLZ overcome-PFV-1SG-DECL
'If I hadn't laughed at that monkey, I would have been able to shoot it.' (agr041102_07)

2.4.3 'Without doing' clauses

Nominalized clauses with the *-tsu* negator and final /k/ (33–35) are analysed by Overall (2017a: 404) as a special construction meaning 'without doing something' (cf. Pellizaro & Náwech 2005: 83; Saad 2014: 64, 96 on a similar construction in Shuar). This is the only construction in which the *-tsu* negator combines with a nominalizer, as nominalizations are normally negated with *-tʃa* (§3.3). There is no positive counterpart to this construction.

(33) *áuhtsuk* *papínak* *puhújahai*
[auhu-tsu-u=ka papi=na=ka] puhu-ja-ha-i
study-NEG-NMLZ=TOP book=ACC=TOP live-REM.PST-1SG-DECL
'I was not studying books.' (Overall 2017a: 263)

(34) *mína* *saíŋnakɨʃ* *úhatsuk…*
[mi=na sai-hu=na=kɨ=ʃa uha-tsu-u=ka]
1SG=ACC brother.in.law-PSSD.1SG=ACC=RESTR=ADD tell-NEG-NMLZ=TOP
'Without telling even my brother-in-law…' (Overall 2017a: 192)

(35) *titú* *puhustá* *áanuk* *tútsuk*
titu puhu-sa-ta aanu=ka tu-tsu-u=ka
quietly live-PFV-IMP DEM.MED=TOP say-NEG-NMLZ=TOP
'Keep calm and don't say that!' (agr041005_22)

2.4.4 Purpose and apprehensive clauses

The negative counterpart of a purpose clause is formed with the apprehensive marker. The apprehensive form is marked with a suffix *-i*, as shown in Table 3 (note that third person singular is marked only with nasalization).

Table 3: Apprehensive marking in Aguaruna (Overall 2017b: 73)

person	singular	plural
1	*-i-ha*	*-i-hi*
	-APPR-1SG	-APPR-1PL
2	*-i-mɨ*	*-i-humɨ*
	-APPR-2SG	-APPR-2PL
3	*-ĩ*	*-i-numɨ̃*
	-APPR.3SG	-APPR-3PL

Overall (2017b: 73–74) notes that the apprehensive verb form is morphologically finite (subject is marked as for declarative verbs apart from the third person forms, and there is no switch-reference morphology), but is generally used in constructions that link its clause conceptually to another finite verb, making it appear functionally like a dependent clause. This is perhaps to be expected, given that it is semantically the negative counterpart of the dependent purpose clause type illustrated in (36). In particular, apprehensive verbs often appear in dependent speech report constructions ((37); the underlined part is the speech report); but (38), consisting of two juxtaposed finite clauses, shows that this is not necessarily the case.[5]

(36)

wɨkaɨɰák	*wɨ́uwai*	*kuntínun*
wɨkaɨɰa-kũ	wɨ-u=ai	[kuntinu=na
walk.PFV-SIM.3.SS	go.PFV-NMLZ=COP.3.DECL	animal=ACC

mantumaátatus
mantu-ma-a-tatus]
kill.APPL-REFL-PFV-INTL.3.SS

'He went walking to kill animals for himself.' (i.e. 'he went hunting') (Overall 2017a: 492–493)

(37)

áimak	*ɨ́mamkɨmas*	*intáhaiŋ*	*tus*
aima-kũ	ɨmamkɨma-sã	[<u>inta-ha-i-ha</u>	tus]
fill.IPFV-SIM.3.SS	be.careful-SUB.3.SS	break-PFV-APPR-1SG	say.SUB.3.SS

'Filling them carefully, lest he should break them…' (lit. '…saying "lest I break them"') (Overall 2017a: 363)

[5] Note that the purpose clause marker itself comes from a combination of the future marker *-ta* with a dependent form of the speech verb: compare the third person purpose clause marker *-tatus* (36) with the third person dependent speech verb *tus* in (37).

(38)

wakítkita	*ámɨk,*	*mantámawainum!*
wakita-ki-ta	amɨ=ka	mã-tama-aw-ai-numɨ
go.back-PFV-IMP	2SG=TOP	kill-2.OBJ-PFV-APPR-3PL

'You go back, lest they kill you!' (Overall 2017a: 491)

The apprehensive forms are the basis of the prohibitive paradigm, the negative counterpart of the imperative, as described in §2.2.1 above.

2.4.5 Relative and complement clauses

Relative clauses are formed with nominalizations, see for example the NP [*hu=na saɨpɨ-utʃi-hĩ=na* [*ija-u=na=kɨ=ʃa*]$_{\text{RC}}$]$_{\text{NP}}$ (DEM.PROX=ACC rind-DIM-3=ACC fall.IPFV-NMLZ=ACC=RESTR=ADD) 'this rind that is falling' in example (16). Negative counterparts can be formed using the negative nominalizer *-tʃau*, for example [*nĩ* [*waina-tʃau=ka*]$_{\text{RC}}$]$_{\text{NP}}$ (3SG see-NEG.NMLZ=TOP) 'one who doesn't know' in example (48) below (and see §3.3 for details of the negative nominalization).

Most complement clauses are formed with nominalizations (a complementation strategy, in Dixon's (2006) terminology), but the verb *dɨka-* can take a juxtaposed finite clause as complement. There do not appear to be any grammatical restrictions on negating the predicate either of the complement or the main clause. Example (39) includes a negated predicate of the complement clause ('they did not enter') while the main predicate ('we know') is positive. Compare this with example (9) above, where the same verb is negated ('(they) didn't know [how to make her give birth]'), and note that when the main clause predicate is negated, the complement clause takes the form of a nominalization.

(39)

<Yamaik	*shiig*	*dekainaji,*	*ditak*	*Apajuin*	*dekaskeapi*
yamai=ka	ʃiiha	dɨka-ina-hi	[dita=ka	apahui=na	dɨkaskɨ-api
now=TOP	well	know-PL.IPFV-1PL.DECL	3PL=TOP	God=ACC	true-TAG

tuinachu	*asag,*	*Apajuí*	*ditan*	*nugká*
tu-ina-tʃau	asa-ahã	apahui	dita=na	nuŋka
say-PL.IPFV-NEG.NMLZ	COP.SUB-PL.3.SS	God	3PL=ACC	land.ACC

anagkuauwa	*nuwig*
anaŋku-a-u=a	nu=ĩ=ka
promise-PFV-NMLZ=COP.3	ANA=LOC=TOP

wayachajui.>
wajã-tʃa-aha-u=i]
enter.PFV-NEG-PL-NMLZ=COP.3.DECL

'Now we know well, that because they don't believe in God (lit. 'they don't say of God "he must be true"'), they did not enter into the land that God promised them.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 398; Hebrews 3:19)

The verb *dakitu-* ‘refuse’, illustrated in (40), is an inherently negative counterpart to *wakɨɰa-* ‘want’, and is discussed further in §2.5.

(40) *dakítau* *apahĩ́hãĩ* *wɨtán*
dakita-a-u [apa-hĩ=haĩ wɨ-ta=na]
refuse-ipfv-nmlz father-pssd.3=com go-act.nmlz=acc
‘He refused to go with his father.’ (Overall 2017a: 530)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The negative existential verb *atsu-* is clearly related to the existential *a-* and the negative suffix *-tsu*, but is best analysed synchronically as a morphologically simple verb root, as shown above (§2.3), and discussed further in §4.6 below. A few other verb roots are semantically negative, at least when translated into Spanish or English, for example *dakitu-* ‘not want’; *tuhintu-* ‘be unable’; *kanina-* ‘not fit’. Note, however, that these verbs do not preclude negated forms of the corresponding positive verbs. For example, (41) shows that *dakitu-* ‘refuse, not want’ is not formally the negation of *wakɨɰa-* ‘want’, since this verb can be negated with SN suffixes.[6] In other words, the meaning of *dakitu-* is not simply the negation of *wakɨɰa-*, but must add some other sense too.

(41) *amɨ́ʃ* *Lima* *wɨ́tasamɨʃ* *wakɨ́ɰasmɨk?*
amɨ=ʃa [Lima wɨ-tasa-mɨ=ʃa] wakɨɰa-a-tsu-mɨ=ka
2sg=qtop Lima go.pfv-intl-2=qtop want-ipfv-neg-2sg=q
‘Do you want to go to Lima?’ (lit. ‘Don’t you want to go to Lima?’) (Overall 2017a: 480)

Two particles function as pro-clauses and are semantically negative: *w̃ã́ãs* ‘I don’t know why’ introduces rhetorical questions (42); and an answer word *atʃá* ‘I don’t know’ (Overall 2017a: 409).

(42) *w̃ã́ãs* *dúʃa* *núnikabia* *muúntaʃ*
wããs nu=ʃa nuni-ka-amaja muunta=ʃa
I.don’t.know.why ana=qtop do-pfv-dist.pst.3 adult=qtop
‘I don’t know why the man did that.’ (Overall 2017a: 401)

[6] Note that the context is a polar question, where the negative marker could be considered pleonastic – see §2.2.2.

3 Non-clausal negation

Aguaruna has a pro-sentence negative particle *atsa* 'no', used for answering questions (§3.1). There are no dedicated indefinite expressions, and strategies for expressing negative indefinites are discussed in §3.2. Negative derivation and negation of nominalizations are described in §3.3.

3.1 Negative replies

The word for 'no' is *atsá*, clearly related to the negative existential *atsu-*. The corresponding affirmative particle is *ĩʔĩ́ ~ hĩʔĩ́ ~ hĩʔá* 'yes'. Both particles are frequently accompanied by repetition of the predicate, and both relate to the polarity of the predicate in the answer, regardless of that in the question. That is, there is no grammatical or lexical indication of whether or not the answer contradicts the question. A third particle *atʃá* 'I don't know', mentioned in §2.5 above, is not normally accompanied by a repetition of the questioned predicate.

Recorded Aguaruna data is largely narrative texts, and there are few examples of question and answer exchanges. The examples below are taken from a Bible translation, and illustrate the four possible combinations of polarity in the question and answer.

Example (43) shows the affirmative particle contradicting the negation in the polar question. Compare with (44), in which a positive question is answered in the affirmative.

(43) *<¿Amina jintinjamnuk akikmakchattawak jega*
amina hintintu-hama-inu=ka akikma-ka-tʃa-tata-wa=ka [hɨɰã
2sg.acc teach-2.obj-nmlz=top pay-pfv-neg-fut-3-q house
Apajuí emematainum kuichik itaata
apahui ɨmɨma-tu-taĩ=numa kuitʃiki i-ta-a-ta
God feel.pride-appl-nmlz=loc money caus-arrive-pfv-imp
tibauwa nunak? tuidau.
ti-mau=a nu=na=ka] tu-ina-u
say.pfv-nmlz=cop.3 ana=acc=top say-pl.ipfv-nmlz
Tama ni ayaak: Ehé akikmaktatui>
ta-ma nĩ aya-a-kũ ɨʔɨ akikma-ka-tata-wa-i
say.ipfv-nsbj/sbj.coref 3sg reply-ipfv-sim.3.ss yes pay-pfv-fut-3-decl
'They said "won't your teacher pay the temple tax?", when they said that to him he replied "yes, he will pay it".' (Note the translation of *temple tax* is literally 'that of which is said "bring money to the house where one praises God"'.) (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 43; Matthew 17:24–25)

(44) *<¿Antamek jujú imataina dusha?*
anta-mɨ=ka huhu imata-ina nu=ʃa
hear.ipfv-2sg=q dem.prox shout-pl.ipfv ana=top
Tama Jisus ayaak: Ehé,
ta-ma Jisus aya-a-kũ ɨʔɨ
say.ipfv-nsbj/sbj.coref Jesus reply-ipfv-sim.3.ss yes
antajai.>
anta-ha-i
hear.ipfv-1sg-decl
'(The priests and teachers asked) do you hear what these (children) are shouting? When they said that, Jesus replied "yes, I hear it"'. (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 49–50; Matthew 21:16)

Turning to negative replies, in (45) a question with positive polarity is answered in the negative, and in (46) a question with negative polarity is answered with negative polarity.

(45) *<¿Apajuí etsegtin taatna*
apahui ɨtsɨhu-tu-inu ta-a-tin=a
God preach-appl-nmlz arrive-pfv-fut.nmlz=cop.3
dukaitam? Nu tamashkam: Atsa,
nu=ka=ita-mɨ nu ta-ma=ʃakama atsa
ana=q=cop-2sg ana say.ipfv-nsbj/sbj.coref=add no
duchauwaitjai, tau.>
nu-tʃau=aita-ha-i ta-u
ana-neg.nmlz=cop-1sg-decl say.ipfv-nmlz
'Are you the one who will arrive to preach on God's behalf? He, when they said that to him, said "no, I'm not that one."' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 170; John 1:21)

(46) *<¿Amesh auna aentsun achikaja nuna*
amɨ=ʃa au=na aɨntsu=na atʃi-ka-aha nu=na
2sg=top dem.dist=acc person=acc grab-pfv-pl ana=acc
jintintaijichukaitam? tusa iniau.
hintintu-taĩ-hĩ=tʃau=ka=ita-mɨ tu-sã ini-a-u
teach-nmlz-pssd.3=neg.nmlz=q=cop-2sg say-sub.3.ss ask-ipfv-nmlz
Tama Pedro ayaak: Atsa, wika
ta-ma Pedro aja-a-kũ atsa wi=ka
say.ipfv-nsbj/sbj.coref Peter reply-ipfv-sim.3.ss no 1sg=top

auna	*jintintaijichuitjai,*
au=na	hintintu-taĩ-hĩ-tʃau=ita-ha-i
DEM.DIST=ACC	teach-NMLZ-PSSD.3-NEG.NMLZ=COP-1SG-DECL

tau.>
ta-u
say.IPFV-NMLZ

'"Are you not a disciple of that person they're holding?" she asked, when she said that Peter replied "no, I'm not his disciple".' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 207; John 18:17)

In all of the above examples, answers to polar questions consist of the particle and repetition of the predicate. An answer may also consist of only the relevant particle, or only the predicate. Table 4 summarizes the combinations of polarity in the question-answer pairs illustrated above.

Table 4: Summary of question and answer pairs in examples

example	polarity of Q	polarity of A	particle used
(43)	Affirmative	Affirmative	*iʔí* 'yes'
(44)	Negative	Affirmative	*iʔí* 'yes'
(45)	Affirmative	Negative	*atsá* 'no'
(46)	Negative	Negative	*atsá* 'no'

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Aguaruna lacks indefinite expressions, both positive (*something, somebody*) and negative (*nothing, nobody*). In contexts where positive indefinites appear in translations, nominalizations (often "headless relatives", see Overall 2017a: 546) are used, whether in positive (47) or negative (48) polarity contexts. Note that example (48) comes from a discussion about the origin of a particular place name. The verb *waina-* 'see' is used with the sense of 'know' when referring to knowing a person or place.

(47) *kánu hapikbáuwa íman tahák*
[kanu hapi-ki-mau=a iman] taha-kũ
canoe pull-PFV-NSBJ.NMLZ=COP.3 INTS.NMLZ clear.IPFV-SIM.3.SS
akaikíuwai
akai-ki-u=ai
go.down-PFV-NMLZ=COP.3.DECL
'(Something) as big as a canoe being dragged had come down clearing a path through the undergrowth.' (Overall 2017a: 551)

(48) *túhã nĩ́ĩ wáintʃauk wainláinatsuastai*
tuhã [nĩ waina-tʃau=ka] waina-ina-tsu-u=a-tsa-tai
but 3SG see-NEG.NMLZ=TOP see-PL.IPFV-NEG-NMLZ=COP.3-SPECL-SPECL
'But one who doesn't know (the place) will probably never know.' (Overall 2017a: 378)

Example (49) is from a text about hunting techniques; the speaker tells how people build hides in places where game animals come to eat fruits, and kill the animals when they arrive. An implicit object (an animal) is simply unmarked in this example, which could just as well be translated 'if we don't kill anything'.

(49) *núniaʃkuik, núu dútika*
nuni-a-tʃa-ku-i=ka [nu dutika]
do-IPFV-NEG-SIM-1PL.SS=TOP ANA do.PFV.1PL.SS
máaʃkuik, káʃiʃ wɨtájamɨ̃
[ma-a-tʃa-ku-i=ka] kaʃi=ʃa wɨ-tajamɨ
kill-IPFV-NEG-SIM-1PL.SS=TOP night=ADD go-NORM
'If we don't do that, if having done all that we don't kill (an animal), we even go at night.' (Overall 2017a: 619)

A strategy consisting of the numeral 'one' plus the restrictive and additive enclitics is used to encode the sense of 'nobody at all' or 'nothing at all' (i.e. 'not even one') in (50); and example (51) shows a similar construction based on the quantifier *matʃik* 'a little bit' with the positive reading 'anything at all'.

(50) *<tujash wika makichik aentsnakesh*
tuhã=ʃa wi=ka makitʃiki aɨntsu=na=kɨ=ʃa
but=ADD 1SG=TOP one person=ACC=RESTR=ADD
etegkeatsjai.>
ɨtɨŋkɨ-a-tsu-ha-i
judge-IPFV-NEG-1SG-DECL
'But I pass judgement on no-one.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 186; John 8:15)

(51) *<Ame machikiuchikesh dutikmainaitkumek>*
amɨ matʃiki-utʃi=kɨ=ʃa dutika-mai-inu=aita-ku-mɨ=ka
2SG bit-DIM-RESTR=ADD do-POT-NMLZ=COP-SIM-2SG=TOP
'If you can do anything at all…' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 87; Mark 9:22)

3.3 Negative derivation and nominalization

Nominalizations are widely used in Aguaruna, forming relative and complement clauses (see §2.4.5) and also functioning in lieu of finite verbs in some constructions (Overall 2014). The nominalizing suffixes are shown in Table 5.

Table 5: Nominalizing suffixes in Aguaruna (Overall 2017a: 504)

suffix	referent	stem(s) selected
-ta	action	unmarked
-inu	subject participant	unmarked or potential
-taĩ	non-subject participant	unmarked
-u	subject participant	perfective or imperfective
-mau	non-subject participant or action	perfective or imperfective
-tinu	participant + future	perfective
-tʃau	participant + negation	perfective, imperfective or unmarked
-haku	subject participant + remote past	unmarked

Some nominalizers can combine with the SN negator *-tʃa* (52), others have their negative counterpart in the nominalizer *-tʃau* (53).

(52) a. *jutã́ĩ*
ju-taĩ
eat-NMLZ
'food' ('what is eaten') (Overall 2017a: 66)

b. *jútʃatãĩ*
ju-tʃa-taĩ
eat-NEG-NMLZ
'inedible' ('what is not eaten') (SLCK)

(53) a. *<nemajin>*
nɨma-hu-inu
follow-APPL-NMLZ
'follower' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 308)

b. *<nemagchau>*
nɨma-hu-tʃau
follow-APPL-NEG.NMLZ
'non-follower' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 308)

The negative nominalizer *-tʃau* is etymologically composed of the negator *-tʃa* and nominalizer *-u*, but Overall (2017a: 513–514) presents arguments for treating it as synchronically non-compositional. In addition to nominalizing and negating verb roots, *-tʃau* also negates nominals, including nouns, adjectives and already nominalized verbs. In the case of adjectives, the negator has a derivational function in forming antonyms e.g. *pɨŋkɨŋ-tʃau* (good-NEG.NMLZ) 'bad'; and see §2.3 for its role in negating stative predications.

The negative nominalizer also functions to negate the derivational suffix *-tin* 'attributive' (54a) giving a privative sense (54b).

(54) a. *núwɨntin*
nuwɨ-tinu
woman.PSSD.3-ATTR
'married man' (i.e. 'possessed of a wife') (Uwarai Yagkug et al. 1998: 88)

b. *núwɨntʃau*
nuwɨ-tu-tʃau
woman.PSSD.3-ATTR-NEG.NMLZ
'bachelor' (Uwarai Yagkug et al. 1998: 88)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Verbal negation has clausal scope. In its derivational function, the nominal negator *-tʃau* has scope over the negated nominal: note in (55) the translation implies 'they do [non-good]' rather than 'they don't [do good]'.

(55) *<tuja aents pegkegchaushkam pegkegchaunak*
tuha aɨntsu pɨŋkɨha-tʃau=ʃakama pɨŋkɨha-tʃau=na=ka
but person good-NEG=ADD good-NEG=ACC=TOP
takaawai.>
taka-a-wa-i
work-IPFV-3-DECL
'But bad people do bad things.' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 19; Matthew 7:16)

When the nominal negation strategy is used to negate a copula clause, however, it appears to scope over the whole clause including any associated dependent clauses. Note the translation of (56): 'I am not [a dog who will be beaten]', as opposed to 'I am [a non-dog] who will be beaten.'

(56) *wíka jãw̃ã́ãtʃuithai, ihuntáŋ*
wi=ka jawaã-tʃau=ita-ha-i ihũ-tu-hã
1SG=TOP dog-NEG.NMLZ=COP-1SG-DECL gang.up-APPL-PFV.3.SS
suwimám átinun
suwima-ma a-tinu-nu
beat.PFV-NSBJ/SBJ.COREF COP-FUT.NMLZ-1SG.SS
'I am not a dog, to be beaten by gangs of people.' (Overall 2017a: 406)

4.2 Negative polarity

An adverb *ɨkɨ* 'yet' is favoured in negative contexts, as in (57), although it does appear in positive contexts too (as in (58)). In conversation, however, *ɨkɨ* can be used alone with the sense 'not yet' (for example, answering a question about whether something has been done).

(57) *ɨ́kɨ kánashai*
ɨkɨ kana-a-tsu-ha-i
yet sleep-IPFV-NEG-1SG-DECL
'I am not sleeping yet.' (Overall 2017a: 409)

(58) *<Tusa Jisus eke chichaak wajai>*
tu-sã Jisus ɨkɨ tʃitʃaa-kũ waha-ĩ
say-SUB.3.SS Jesus yet speak.IPFV-SIM.3.SS stand.IPFV-DS
'As he said that, while Jesus was still speaking…' (La Liga Bíblica 2008: 63; Matthew 26:47)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

There is no obligatory marking of NPs in the scope of negation, but Overall (2017a: 584–585) notes that negated clauses favour the appearance of the topic enclitic *=ka* with one or more constituents of the clause (compare (25) and (27) above, among others). Outside of negative contexts, the topic enclitic is favoured when (re)introducing characters in narrative; for the subjects of verbless and copula clauses; marking contrast; strong assertion; and when adding editorial commentary in narratives (Overall 2017a: 581).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The 'not even one' construction described in §3.2, example (50), gives an intensified negation. I am not aware of any other strategy for reinforcing negation specifically, outside of the general means for expressing speaker's attitude in clauses.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Aguaruna has a highly hypotactic syntax, and there is no formally marked paratactic coordination. Negation of subordinate clauses, including various temporal clause types, is described in §2.4, and negation of nominalizations (which may form relative or complement clauses) is described in §3.3. The apprehensive clause type, which translates as 'lest', is not a subordinate clause syntactically but frequently appears in a speech report construction that links it to another clause – this is described in §2.4.4.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

The bulk of the grammar is identical for all of the Chicham languages, which are very closely related, but some differences are valuable indicators of the progression of grammatical change. These include different paradigms of tense markers and different arrangements of the imperative/prohibitive paradigms.

The negative existential is formed with a verb *atsu-* which cannot be analysed as morphologically compositional, as shown above (§2.3). Although this form could reflect an etymological fusion of the positive existential and the negator (cf. Veselinova 2013: 136–138), a more attractive analysis is that the negative existential verb itself is the diachronic source of the negative suffix *-tsu* through renalysis of an auxiliation construction. As noted above (§1), there is evidence for some verbal tense markers having arisen from phonological fusion of non-finite stems with a following finite auxiliary. This analysis would explain the aspect-based distribution of the two SN negators, by assuming that the *-tsu* suffix entered the system via some type of progressive construction, with the negative existential as auxiliary (cf. Croft 1991). The distinct strategy for negating perfective stems with the suffix *-tʃa* would then be older, and this is consistent with the fact that this marker is also the default in non-finite verb forms. In the typology developed by Croft (1991) and refined by Veselinova (2016) this is Type C: "the negative existential is used as SN but the constructions where it is used differ for the negation of verbs and for the negation of existential predications" (Veselinova 2016: 144). In Aguaruna the difference is morphological, as the separate negative existential verb *atsu-* has fused with the stem to become the suffix *-tsu*, displacing the earlier negator *-tʃa* only in imperfective finite verbs.

5 Summary

In Aguaruna, predicates and nominals can be negated. Verbal predicates make use of two inflectional suffixes, distributed according to aspect and finiteness of the verb, while nominal predicates must use the derivational negator. Negation marked in the predicate has clausal scope, and this is true both of verbal and nominal predicates. A distinct marker *-i* appears in some non-declarative clause types. The verbal paradigms are largely symmetrical, and the only category that is completely neutralized under negation is the plain/familiar imperative distinction (§2.2.1).

There are no dedicated negative indefinites; negative transport or negative raising is not in evidence; and there is no evidence of negation used in non-negative contexts, apart from the possibility of pleonastic negation in polar questions (see §2.2.2 above).

Table 6 gives an overview of the negative markers of Aguaruna, the word class(es) that can host each marker, and their function(s).

Future research will undoubtedly shed light on the subtleties of negation in Aguaruna, and also contribute to a better understanding of the diachronic development of the constructions described here.

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Table 6: Properties of negative markers

marker	word class of host	function(s)	section
-tsu	V	Negation of finite clause types, associated with imperfective aspect and present tense	§2.1
		Marks 'without doing' construction	§2.4.3
-tʃa	V	Negation of finite clause types, associated with perfective aspect and non-present tenses	§2.1
		Negation of subordinate clause types	§2.4
		Negation of hortative clause type	§2.2.1
-i	V	Formation of apprehensive clauses (negative equivalent of purpose clause type)	§2.4.4
		Negation of imperative clause types, except hortative	§2.2.1
-tʃau	V, N, Adj	Derivation of negated nominal from verb	§3.3
		Derivation of negated form of adjective or noun	§3.3
		Clausal negation with nonverbal predicate	§2.3
atsu-	–	Negative existential verb	§2.3
wããs	–	Negative pro-clause 'I don't know why'	§2.5
atʃa	–	Negative pro-sentence, in response to question 'I don't know'	§2.5
atsa	–	Negative pro-sentence, in response to polar question	§3.1

Abbreviations

1	first person	ATTR	attributive
2	second person	CAUS	causative
3	third person	COP	copula
A	most agent-like argument of a transitive clause	DECL	declarative
		DEM	demonstrative
		DIM	diminutive
ABL	ablative	DIST	distal
ACC	accusative	DS	different subject
ACN	action	EXCLAM	exclamative
ADD	additive	FUT	future
ANA	anaphoric pronoun	HORT	hortative
APPL	applicative	IMM	immediate
APPR	apprehensive	IMP	imperative

INTS	intensifier	POT	potential
INTL	intentional	PROH	prohibitive
IPFV	imperfective	PROX	proximal
JUSS	jussive	POSS	possessive
LOC	locative	PSSD	possessed
MED	medial	PST	past
NARR	narrative	Q	polar question marker
NEG	negative	QTOP	topic marker in interrogative clause
NMLZ	nominalizer	RC	relative clause
NORM	normative	REFL	reflexive
NP	noun phrase	REM	remote
NSBJ	non-subject	RESTR	restrictive
NSBJ/SBJ.COREF	non-subject in marked clause is subject of controlling clause	S	single argument of an intransitive clause
OBJ	object	SUB	subordinate
P	most patient-like argument of a transitive clause	SG	singular
PFV	perfective	SIM	simultaneous
PL	plural	SN	standard negation
		SPECL	speculative
		SS	same subject
		TAG	tag question marker
		TOP	topic
		V	verb

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Chapter 18

Negation in Panará

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This chapter presents a detailed account of the morphosyntax of negation in Panará (Jê family, Brazil). Panará displays a wide range of strategies to express negation, with a set of negative adverbs, a negative polarity item in the polysynthetic verbal morphology, an imperative negation marker, and a negative verb. These different strategies interweave to express negation across the grammar of Panará, be it the different moods or the various types of clauses and constituents.

Keywords: negation, polysynthesis, Panará, Jê languages, Amazonian languages.

1 The language

This chapter describes negation in Panará (ISO: kre, Glottocode: pana1307), a Jê language spoken in southern Amazonia, in the Brazilian states of Pará and Mato Grosso. The Panará language (*panärapëë*) is spoken by the Panará nation, from the autonym /panãra/ 'those that are (here)'.

The Panará people entered direct contact with neocolonial Brazilian society in 1973, as a result of the construction of highway BR-163 through their territory on the part of the Brazilian government, at the time an authoritarian military dictatorship. That led to a massive influx of settlers that turned large forested parts of Mato Grosso into areas for the production of cattle and crops such as soy and corn. The Panará lost 90% of their population due to the spread of infectious diseases, and were forcibly relocated to the nearby Xingu Indigenous Park. In the mid-1990s they were finally able to officially demarcate a portion of their original land in which the riverine forest was still intact. The Panará population moved

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back to their homeland on the Iriri river basin, where they made a demographic and cultural recovery.

The Panará people today live in their own officially demarcated indigenous land, the Terra Indígena Panará, spanning half a million hectares. The current Panará population, numbering approximately 650, are almost exclusively in this area, in the villages of Kanaä, Kôtikô, Nänpôôrö, Nänsêpotiti, Sönkâräsän and Sönkwê. In some of these villages there is also presence of Kayapó (speakers of Mẽbêngôkre; Jê, ISO : txu) and Kaiabi (speakers of Kawaiwete; Tupian, ISO: kyz), through kinship connections with Panará living there. Presence of Portuguese as a second language, with different degrees of proficiency, is common in the Panará community. That is especially the case among young men who are currently in the age range between the teens to the fifties. Most women, older people and children have minimal proficiency in Portuguese. A solid passive knowledge of Mẽbêngôkre is not unusual, but very few Panará can speak it fluently.

That the Panará speak a language of the Jê family was first hypothesized by Heelas (1979), an anthropologist and the first researcher to work with the Panará. Further research by Schwartzman (1988) and Rodrigues & Dourado (1993) confirmed that Panará is indeed a language of the Northern Jê branch of the family (Rodrigues 1999).

Panará is a polysynthetic language, in which the verb complex forms a central unit in the clause (1). This verb complex is made up of several proclitics, morphologically bound to the verbal root, that reference various clausal elements. These include core and peripheral participants, mood, directionality, iterativity, a causative applicative, and negation (Bardagil 2018).

(1) *Jy=py=ra=kö=më=ra=kwyy.*
INTR=ITER=3PL.ABS=COM=DU=1SG.ABS=go
'The two of us went away with them.'

Panará case marking follows an ergative alignment, with a morphologically marked ergative argument and a morphologically unmarked absolutive argument. Panará presents two different clause-level grammatical categories corresponding to moods, realis and irrealis, and also an imperative construction. These categories are marked by modal clitics, such as intransitive realis *jy=*, and even though their presence is largely obligatory, they are optionally omitted in marginal cases. Panará verbal morphology presents a reality status distinction between realis and irrealis (Dourado 2001, Bardagil 2015, 2018).

The data presented throughout this paper, unless otherwise indicated, were collected by the author during fieldwork among the Panará. The language is represented using the current spelling for the language. Among the Panará, current orthographic conventions[1] use a diaeresis to represent nasality on vowels, and I have used this notation in the present text.

The description of negation in Panará in this chapter is based on the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and mirrors its structure. Consequently, this paper is organized as follows. §2 provides information on clausal negation in Panará, and §3 deals with negation in non-clausal environments. Following these, §4 describes other aspects of the morphology and syntax of negation in Panará. Finally, §5 concludes the paper and summarizes the grammar of negation in Panará.

2 Clausal negation

This section reports the negation strategies used in Panará to negate clause-level predicates.

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is the term generally used for the mechanism or mechanisms of negation that a language employs in declarative verbal main clauses (Miestamo 2005). Panará has several negators that participate in standard negation: *inkjown*, *pjow* and *rö*. There is also a verbal negation construction, *jy pjow*.

As will be seen throughout the section, standard negation does not alter the syntactic properties of Panará, such as the ergative-absolutive case marking or its quite flexible verb position in the clause (2–3).

(2) *Jy=ra=too* *inkjë.*
INTR=1SG.ABS=fly 1SG
'I went away.'

(3) *Jahä rê=s=anpun* *pakjati inkjë hë.*
here 1SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=see creek 1SG ERG
'Here I saw a creek.'

The most frequent mechanism for standard negation is *pjow* /pjoo/. It is an adverb that appears in a postverbal position or, more specifically, in a position immediately following the predicate head (4–5).

[1] a = /a/, â = /ə/, e = /ɛ/, ê = /e/, y = /ɨ/, o = /ɔ/, ô = /o/, u = /u/

(4) *Jy=∅=pôô pjow kri tä.*
INTR=3SG.ABS=arrive NEG village ALL
'He didn't come to the village.'

(5) *Rê=mä=issi pjow.*
1SG.ERG=3SG.DAT=name NEG
'I didn't name him.'

A second negation marker is *inkjown*, often rendered as [kjowm] with a reduction of the onset and a diphthongised long vowel. *Inkjown* appears in a clause-final position, taking scope over the meaning of the entire predicate (6).

(6) *Mära hë ti=∅=pïri nänkjô inkjown, ti=∅=pïri ikkjyti.*
3SG ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill peccary NEG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill tapir
'He didn't kill a peccary, he killed a tapir.'

Inkjown often appears in a clause that also has a postverbal negation marker, such as *pjow* (7).

(7) *Rê=∅=kâri pjow swa, inkjown.*
1PL.ERG=3SG.ABS=cut NEG tooth NEG
'We didn't cut its teeth, no.'

Even though *pjow* and *inkjown* both appear as standard negators, they are different in two respects. First, *pjow* does not stand on its own as a negative interjection, unlike *inkjown* (cf. §3.1). Second, as mentioned above, *inkjown* is restricted to a clause-final position, whereas *pjow* can only appear in an immediately postverbal position. Rather than a tendency, the data in my corpus shows a solid constraint governing these positional restrictions, as illustrated in (8–9).

(8) *Inkjë hë rê=∅=pïri jäsy inkjown.*
1SG ERG 1SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill deer NEG
'I didn't kill a deer.'

(9) *Näkää hë ti=ra=nsari pjow inkjë.*
snake ERG 3SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=bite NEG 1SG
'The snake didn't bite me.'

The immediately postverbal position of *pjow* is also a position in which other types of adverbial phrases can appear (10), which supports the hypothesis that negation in that position is also phrasal.

(10) *Näkää hë ti=ra=nsari pykkôômä inkjë.*
snake ERG 3SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=bite morning 1SG
'A snake bit me this morning.'

The positional alternation of *pjow* and *inkjown* is summarized in (11) in relation to the position of both the verb and argumental noun phrases in the clause.

(11) a. (NPs) [verb complex] *pjow* (NPs)
b. (NPs) [verb complex] (NPs) *inkjown*

A third, less common standard negation mechanism is *rö*, realized as [rõ] or [nõ]. Its position in the clause mirrors that of *pjoo* and other adverbials, between the verb complex and postverbal constituents. Even though Dourado (2007) initially reported *rö* as being a dedicated noun phrase negator, it is also used in standard negation (12–13).

(12) *Mämä ramä ra=pa rö inpy-ara, jy=ra=too.*
that INE 3PL.ABS=walk NEG man-PL INTR=3PL.ABS=fly
'The men were not there, they had left.'

(13) *Në=ri=npari rö inkj-ara, inkjown.*
1SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=hear NEG woman-PL NEG
'I didn't think about women, no.'

Panará presents a less common standard negation strategy, namely a mood-inflected verbal *pjow* that occurs following the negated clause (14). This is a different syntactic mechanism than the adverbial *pjow* that we saw in earlier examples.

(14) [*Ka hë ka=∅=kukrë*] *jy=∅=pjow.*
2SG ERG 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=eat INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG
'You don't eat.'

In instances such as illustrated in (14), the root *pjow* appears not as an adverb but as a verb. Consequently, it is accompanied by verbal morphology belonging to intransitive verbs, like the realis intransitive modal clitic *jy*.

The verbal negator *jy pjow* (§2.1) also has an additional meaning of a state or event being finished or at an end, as in (15).

(15) *Kjëtowajï jy=∅=titi jy=∅=pjow.*
candle INTR=3SG.ABS=burn INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG
'The candle went out.'

It can be combined with roots that are typically verbal (16), or with nominal roots (17).

(16) *Jy=ra=pëë jy=∅=pjow.*
INTR=1SG.ABS=speak INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG
'I'm done speaking.'

(17) *Jy=∅=pjow inkô-ränkjo.*
INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG water-black
'There's no more coffee.'

The three negation adverbs presented so far are also observed in irrealis clauses (18–20).

(18) *Ka=ti=tä=ra=pari pjow kajapô hë.*
IRR=2SG.IRR=DIR=1PL.ABS=kill.PLAC NEG Kayapó ERG
'The Kayapó will not kill us.'

(19) *Ka=ti=pôôj kri tä inkjown.*
IRR=3SG.IRR=arrive.IRR village ALL NEG
'He won't come to the village.'

(20) *Inkjë ka=∅=kwy rö.*
1SG IRR=1SG.IRR=go NEG
'I won't go.'

Besides the presence of the negative markers, negated declarative clauses are identical to standard affirmative clauses. The very free constituent order of Panará is maintained, and no additional morphological material is present besides the negative element itself. This characterizes Panará as a language with symmetrical standard negation (Miestamo 2005), in which the structure of negatives coincides with the structure of affirmatives.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The previous section outlined the negation mechanisms that belong to main clauses in the two moods exhibited in declaratives, realis and irrealis. This section deals with negation in non-declarative clauses, and with imperative clauses.

In Panará, imperatives are formed with second person, as is usual in the world's languages. Consequently, the second person absolutive clitic *a* is found in intransitive clauses (21), and the second person ergative *ka* in transitive ones (22).

(21) *Py=a=kwyy.*
DIR=2SG.ABS=go
'Go away.'

(22) *Ka=tö=∅=krë sâti.*
2SG.ERG=INTS=3SG.ABS=eat peanut
'Do eat peanuts.'

To negate an imperative clause, *sä* stands in as the negative adverb (23–25).

(23) *A=sï sä.*
2SG.ABS=sit NEG
'Don't sit down.'

(24) *Ka=ra=jökrepajô=kwâri sä!*
2SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=throat=break NEG
'Don't break my throat!'

(25) *Ka=∅=ku=krë sä sokriti.*
2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=bite=eat NEG pet
'Don't eat pets.'

Imperative negator *sä* is not attested in non-imperative clauses, and speakers judge it unacceptable in those contexts. Its position in the sentence identifies it consistently as a negative adverb, as it appears in the postverbal position where both *pjow* and *rö* are also found in non-imperatives, preceding postverbal phrasal material, as seen in (25).

In Panará, polar questions are introduced by the question marker *a.* In content questions, the interrogative pronoun *prë* is used for human referents, and *pjän* or *ju* for non-human referents.(26–27).

(26) *A jy=a=söti inkin?*
Q INTR=2SG.ABS=sleep good
'Did you sleep well?'

(27) *Pjän ka=∅=wajäri?*
what 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=make
'What are you doing?'

When a postpositional phrase contains an interrogative pronoun, pied-piping of the postposition takes place. Questions in Panará can be negated by the three standard negators. The most common is *pjow* (28), with *rö* being used less (30). Negation of questions with *inkjown* is also attested (29), but also presents a lower frequency.

(28) *A ka=s=anpun pjow tititi?*
Q 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=see NEG anteater
'Have you not seen an anteater?'

(29) *A ka hë ka=∅=kuri impo jï inkjown?*
Q 2SG ERG 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=eat cow meat NEG
'You don't eat beef?'

(30) *Pjän rahê ka=tö=∅=pyri rö?*
what CAUS 2SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=take NEG
'Why didn't you take it?'

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Panará presents two broad syntactic mechanisms that correspond to stative predication. In most instances they involve a non-verbal predicate. However, attribution is expressed by means of a verbal predicate, and existential predication is a mixed bag. In this section I introduce each of these types of stative predication and discuss the corresponding negation strategies.

In Panará, equation and inclusion are expressed paratactically, with the argument usually preceding the non-verbal predicate (31–32).

(31) *Ja inkjë jö issê.*
this 1SG POSS bow
'This is my bow.'

(32) *Mära toopytun.*
3SG old.man
'He is a chief/an old man.'

When negated, equative predicates use the negative markers *pjow* (33) and *rö* (34).

(33) *Ja inkjë jö issê pjow.*
this 1SG POSS bow NEG
'This is not my bow.'

(34) *Pârinto sö rö.*
shellfish food NEG
'Shellfish are not food.'

Locative predication follows the same general lines of Panará non-verbal predication. The one argument is followed by a locative phrase, headed by a postposition (35–36).

(35) *Kwy puu jamä.*
manioc field ADE
'There is manioc at the field.'

(36) *Mösy pjow kan ramä.*
corn NEG basket INE
'There is no corn in the basket.'

It is possible that Panará locatives would be better analyzed as existential clauses with locative adjuncts (Overall et al. 2018: 8–10). If this is indeed the case, (36) would present an instance of predicate-final negation with *pjow*, consistent with the distribution of *pjow* seen thus far. The existential structure of locative clauses notwithstanding, there is no dedicated verbal morphology associated with it.

Attribution stands apart from other types of stative predication in that the predicate head projects a verbal complex, rather than using the juxtaposition mechanics of non-verbal predication. Attributive predicates are fully verbal, on par with other types of intransitive verbal predicates, as can be seen from the verbal morphology present in (37–38).

(37) *Paa, jy=ra=kjä-pepeti.*
yes INTR=1SG.ABS=head-soft
'Yes, I'm smart [soft-headed].'

(38) *Mära jy=∅=toopytun.*
3SG INTR=3SG.ABS=old.man
'He is (an) old (man).'

Contrast (38) with the equative, non-verbal counterpart in (32). Incidentally, (38) cannot mean 'he is a chief', suggesting that certain lexicalization processes can affect the nominal form but not the verbal form of a shared root.

The negation of attributive predicates is akin to standard negation of intransitives (39–40), as seen in the previous section (§2.1).

(39) *Jy=ra=kjä-tâti pjow.*
INTR=1SG.ABS=head-hard NEG
'I'm not dumb [hard-headed].'

(40) *Mära jy=∅=toopytun rö.*
3SG INTR=3SG.ABS=old.man NEG
'He is not (an) old (man).'

Possession and belonging more generally also fall into the category of non-verbal predication. Here Panará presents a typical distinction between alienable and inalienable possession. While inalienable possession is expressed by juxtaposition, with the possessor preceding the possessum (41), alienable possession (Nichols & Bickel 2013) is expressed adpositionally. The possessor is encoded as a possessive postpositional phrase, headed by *jö*, and is followed by the possessum (43). It is very common for possession to be negated with *rö* (42), but *pjow* is also attested (44).

(41) *Mära inpimpjâ.*
3SG husband
'She has a husband.' or 'her husband'

(42) *Mära inpimpjâ rö.*
3SG husband NEG
'She is single.' (lit. 'She has no husband') or '(It is) not her husband.'

(43) *Inkjë jö issê.*
1SG POSS bow
'I have a bow.' or 'my bow'

(44) *Inkjë jö issê pjow.*
1SG POSS bow NEG
'I don't have a bow.' or '(It is) not my bow.'

In verbal possessive constructions the lexical root for the possessum appears as the verb in the clause, rather than as an argument, and possession is indicated as a proclitic morpheme (45). This is consistent with the observation by Dourado (2001: 76) that, in these constructions, negative adverb *pjow* appears after the possessum, and not after the morpheme *sö* indicating possession in the verbal complex (46).

(45) *Kjonpe jy=sö=kukre.*
Kjonpe INTR=POSS=house
'Kjonpe has a house.'

(46) *Kjonpe jy=sö=kukre pjow.*
Kjonpe INTR=POSS=house NEG
'Kjonpe doesn't have a house.'

The verb *pan* 'walk' is often used to indicate both existential and locative constructions, with a preference for animate arguments (47). Although it exhibits the verbal morphology associated to intransitive verbs, it often appears without it (48).[2]

(47) *Joopy ra=pan.*
jaguar 3PL.ABS=walk
'There are jaguars.'

(48) *Ju rï ka pan?*
what LOC 2SG walk
'Where are you?'

Existential and locative use of *pan* can be negated using either *rö* or *pjow* (49). Once again, it is unclear whether *inkjown* is also licensed in these contexts besides as the negative reply, as in (50).

(49) *Ippë pan rö.*
non-indigenous walk NEG
'There were no white people.'

(50) *Inkjown, Kôtikô rï ra=pan pjow.*
no Kôtikô LOC 1SG.ABS=walk NEG
'No, I'm not in Kôtikô.'

[2]Having unrealized proclitics on the verb complex is not frequent, but not uncommon in Panará verbal morphology.

Inkjown is present in most, if not all classes of stative predicates. It appears in its usual clause-final position (51–52), but with non-verbal predicates it can also appear in an initial position (53–54). This position for *inkjown* is not available in verbal clausal contexts. Its distribution, the fact that it shows a broad scope over the entire predication, and its use as a standalone negative reply make *inkjown* a solid candidate for a negative existential (Veselinova 2013).

(51) *"Ka=∅=kân=∅=sũn ja: ka=ra=nĩri pjow.*
IRR=1SG.IRR=2SG.DAT=1SG.IRR=tell this 2SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=have.sex NEG
Inkjara inkjown," ti=∅=jãri.
woman-PL NEG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=say
'"I will say this to you: don't have sex. No women," he said.'

(52) *Sõ inkjown.*
food NEG
'[There is] no food,' or 'It's not food.'

(53) *Inkjown pakwa kjokjo.*
NEG banana ripe
'[There are] no ripe bananas.'

(54) *Inkjown kjorinpe.*
NEG rice
'[There is] no rice.'

Both *pjow* and *rö* can appear together with *inkjown*. In such cases, *inkjown* should be seen in its negative reply function (§3.1) rather than as clause-final negation (55).

(55) *Atö pjow, inkjown.*
gun NEG no
'There is no gun, no.'

Panará uses two syntactic mechanisms to form the different classes of stative predicates: non-verbal predication and verbal predication. The three standard negation mechanisms are also employed in stative predicates. While *pjow* is the negation marker that can occur with all subtypes of stative predication, *rö* is also employed. However, these two negative adverbs are not completely interchangeable – especially so in the case of existential and possessive predicates, where their semantics are quite different. *Inkjown* is also a negative marker in non-verbal contexts, but it has a strong tendency to appear clause-initially instead of its clause-final position in main clause negation.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In the previous section we saw the three syntactic mechanisms used in Panará for main clause negation: postverbal adverbs *pjow* and *rö*, and clause-final *inkjown*, besides a dedicated imperative negator *sä*.

The following examples show instances of relative and complement clauses negated using *pjow* (56–57), *rö* (58) and *inkjown* (59).

(56) *Kuupêri hë ti=∅=sün inkin pjow inkô-ränkjo.*
Kuupêri ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=say good NEG water-black
'Kuupêri said that he doesn't like coffee.'

(57) *Patty hë ti=∅=pïra pjow jäsy rê=∅=pïri.*
Patty ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill.REL NEG deer 1SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill
'I killed the deer that Patty didn't kill.'

(58) *Mära hë ti=∅=pyri inkö s=aswâri rö amä.*
3SG ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=take water 3SG.ABS=spill NEG INE
'She brought the water without spilling it.'

(59) *Inpy hë ti=ra=sun rê=tö=∅=pyri pjow atö-sy.*
man ERG 3SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=say 1SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=take NEG gun-grain
'The man said to me that I didn't bring any ammunition.'

Just like in main clause negation, *rö* is less frequent than *pjow* but nonetheless attested. The example in (60) shows a final construction in which negation is indicated with *rö* in both the main clause and the subordinate clause.

(60) *Ka hë ka=kjë=∅=sun rö ra=kwyy rö ahê.*
2SG ERG 2SG.ERG=1SG.DAT=3SG.ABS=say NEG 1SG.ABS=go NEG FNL
'You didn't tell me not to go.'

Besides main clauses and phrasal constituents, the verbal negator *jy pjow* can also negate non-main clauses, such as the temporal clause in (61).

(61) *Inkjë-mëra në=∅=kuri mï sö jy=∅=pjow rahä.*
1SG-PL 1PL.ERG=3SG.ABS=eat caiman food INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG ADE
'We eat caiman when we run out of food.'

In the case of adpositional subordinate clauses, the addition of a negative marker to a final or purpose clause can result in the equivalent of something like 'in order not to' in English. An example of a negative final subordinate clause is given in (62).

(62) *Ka=mä=∅=sun jy=∅=tëë rö ahê.*
2SG.ERG=3SG.DAT=3SG.ABS=say INTR=3SG.ABS=leave NEG FNL
'You told him not to leave.'

3 Non-clausal negation

This section presents the ways in which Panará exhibits non-clausal negation. The same negation markers seen in clausal negation, *pjow*, *rö* and *inkjown*, are also found in non-clausal contexts.

3.1 Negative replies

In Panará, polar questions can be answered by the use of the corresponding affirmative or negative word. The affirmative reply, conveying a positive polarity answer to the question (Moser 2018, Enfield et al. 2019), is the word *paa~ngaa~haa* (63). The affirmative reply can also stand on its own, so that (63A) can be just *paa*.

(63) Q: *A jy=a=inkin ka?*
Q INTR=2SG.ABS=good 2SG
'Are you good?'
A: *Paa, inkin pytinsi.*
yes good very
'Yes, very good.'

The negative counterpart *inkjown* conveys a negative polarity answer (64), and coincides with a root that we already saw functioning as a standard negator in §2.1.

(64) Q: *Ju rï pan ka? Guarantã?*
Q LOC walk 2SG Guarantã
'Where are you? In Guarantã?'

A: *Inkjown, Casai Peixoto rï ra=pan.*
no house Peixoto LOC 1SG.ABS=walk
'No, I'm at the healthcare house[3] in Peixoto.'

It is not uncommon for the negative reply to appear following a negative clause, after a prosodic break (65–66).

(65) *Ti=ra=nsari pjow. Inkjown.*
3SG.ERG=1SG.ABS=bite NEG no
'It did not bite me. No.'

(66) *Në=ri=npari rö inkj-ara, inkjown.*
1SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=hear NEG woman-PL NEG
'I didn't think about women, no.'

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Panará does not have lexicalized negative indefinites. The meaning of roots such as 'nobody' in English is usually conveyed in Panará by saying that something was not done or did not take place, as in (67). In some cases, the interrogative pronoun *prë* appears negated with a meaning equivalent to 'nobody.' This is shown in the following examples (68–69).

(67) Q: *Prë jy=∅=tëë tepi suu?*
Q who INTR=3SG.ABS=leave fish
'Who went fishing?'

A: *Jy=∅=tëë pjow.*
INTR=3SG.ABS=leave NEG
'(S)he didn't go (intended: Nobody went.)'

(68) *Jy=∅=too pjow prë.*
INTR=3SG.ABS=fly NEG who
'Nobody went away.'

(69) *Prë hë pjow ti=∅=inkô=kujä.*
who ERG NEG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=water=carry
'Nobody carried water.'

[3] CASAI: Casa da Saúde Indígena (indigenous healthcare house). These are government houses that serve as residence for indigenous people undergoing medical treatment in the city, and where basic healthcare is administered.

The equivalent of 'nothing' is also not lexicalized in Panará. Usually it is expressed via a negation marker, such as *pjow* or *rö* (70), and usually also the reinforcer morpheme *tö* (71).

(70) *Poswa jy=mä=sâpêri toopytun mä, ti=ho=∅=pjy pjow.*
Poswa INTR=DAT=work old.man DAT 3SG.ERG=INS=3SG.ABS=get NEG
'Poswa worked for the chief and got nothing.'

(71) *Mära hë ti=tö=∅=swâri rö.*
3SG ERG 3SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=to.fish NEG
'He didn't fish anything.'

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Panará lacks an abessive or an equivalent grammatical case to express absence or lack of something. Instead, with nouns the mechanisms used in standard negation are also used to negate existential predication (72–73), as described in §2.3.

(72) *Inkjown tepi.*
NEG fish
'There is no fish.'

(73) *Mära ippëë rö.*
3SG speech NEG
'He is mute.'

Absence or lacking of something is usually expressed with the negator *rö* (see §4.1). Adjectives are negated using also standard negation mechanisms (§2.1), such as *pjow* (74).

(74) *Asâ pjow topjâpjâ Jakjô.*
fierce NEG grandfather Jakjô
'Grandfather Jakjô was not grumpy.'

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Two major crosslinguistic patterns have been observed in the interaction of negation and disjunction (Szabolcsi 2004): negation taking scope over disjunction, such as in English (75), and disjunction taking scope over negation, as in Hungarian (76).

(75) English (Szabolcsi & Haddican 2004: 219)
Mary didn't take hockey or algebra.
'Mary took neither hockey nor algebra.'

(76) Hungarian (Szabolcsi & Haddican 2004: 219)
Mari nem járt hokira vagy algebrára.
Mari not went hockey-to or algebra-to
'Mary didn't take hockey or didn't take algebra.'

The way in which disjunction is realized syntactically in Panará is via juxtaposition of the disjuncts (77). This contrasts with conjunction, where each conjunct is additionally marked with *më* (78).

(77) *Perankô hë ti=∅=pïri ikkjyti jäsy.*
Perankô ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill tapir deer
'Perankô killed a tapir or a deer.'

(78) *Perankô hẽ ti=∅=pïri ikkjyti më jäsy më.*
Perankô ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=kill tapir and deer and
'Perankô killed a tapir and a deer.'

The meaning that emerges in contexts where disjunction is negated, such as in (79), suggests that Panará patterns like English in this aspect and that negation takes scope over disjunction.

(79) *Ka hë ka=∅=kuri pjow kôôtita jï inpo jï.*
2SG ERG 3SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=eat NEG chicken meat cow meat
'You won't eat chicken meat and you won't eat cow meat.'

It is worth noting that the negation markers *pjow* and *rö* exhibit a difference in the scope of negation when interacting with the existential and possessive constructions (§2.3). While *pjow* still expresses predicate-level negation (80), *rö* carries instead a reading of absence (81).

(80) a. *Mära inpimpjâ pjow.*
3SG husband NEG
'She has no husband.'

b. *Kukre pjow.*
house NEG
'(There are) no houses.'

(81) a. *Mära inpimpjâ rö.*
3sg husband neg
'She is husband-less,' or 'She is single.'

b. *Kukre rö.*
house neg
'Without a house.'

4.2 Negative polarity

Even though some elements, such as reinforcer *tö* (§4.4), can combine their semantics with negation, no proper negative polarity items have been found so far in Panará.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

In Panará, no morphological effect is observed on noun phrases that occur under the scope of negation. There is no dedicated negative determiner, just as there is no determiner more generally, and case marking remains the same as otherwise (82–83).

(82) *Joopy hë ti=∅=pïri kôôtita.*
jaguar erg 3sg.erg=3sg.abs=kill chicken
'The jaguar killed a chicken.'

(83) *Joopy hë ti=∅=pïri pjow kôôtita.*
jaguar erg 3sg.erg=3sg.abs=kill neg chicken
'The jaguar didn't kill a chicken.'

4.4 Reinforcing negation

In Panará, negation can be signaled or stressed multiple times in order to achieve an effect of reinforcing a negative meaning. One very common strategy is the use of the verbal proclitic *tö*. In its use in positive polarity contexts, *tö* functions as a modal particle with an epistemic or mirative component. Its meaning relates to the attitude of interlocutors towards the predicate, of stressing or insisting on, as exemplified in (84–85).

(84) *Rê=tö=∅=py kâjasâ.*
1sg.erg=emph=3sg.abs=take machete
'I did take a machete.'

(85) *Ka=tö=∅=krë sâti!*
2SG.ERG=EMPH=3SG.ABS=eat peanut
'Do eat peanuts!'

In negative polarity contexts, *tö* references negation in the verbal complex and contributes an emphatic element to the negative meaning (86–87).

(86) a. *Rê=k=anpun pjow inkjë hë ka.*
1SG.ERG=2SG.ABS=see NEG 1SG ERG 2SG
'I didn't see you.'

b. *Rê=a=tö=npun pjow inkjë hë ka.*
1SG.ERG=2SG.ABS=EMPH=see NEG 1SG ERG 2SG
'I never saw you.'

(87) *Rê=näkää=tö=pïri pjow inkjë hë.*
1SG.ERG=snake=EMPH=kill NEG 1SG ERG
'I absolutely did not kill a snake.'

As several examples throughout this chapter show, it is not uncommon for negation to be indicated by more than one element in a sentence. The context to example (88) is that the consultant is recounting that an old chief called Jakjô was very *swakjörä*: he advised and guided other people. Jakjô would say 'no' to something ill-advised, and the person would absolutely not do it. This is conveyed in the second sentence of the example, which indicates negation with postverbal *pjow*, the negative reinforcer *tö* in the verbal complex, and clause-final *inkjown*.

(88) *"Inkjown," ti=∅=järi. Ti=ra=tö=kwajäri pjow, inkjown.*
no 3SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=say 3SG.ERG=3PL.ABS=EMPH=make NEG NEG
'"No," [Jakjô] said. He [someone else] did not do it, no.'

The adverb *pytinsi* 'very' can be used as another mechanism to reinforce negation (89). It is also used with *jy pjow* (90).

(89) *Rê=ri=npari rö pytinsi.*
3PL.ERG=3PL.ABS=hear NEG very
'They didn't hear them at all.'

(90) *Inkjë-mëra jö kyypa to jy=∅=pjow pytinsi.*
1SG-PL POSS land really INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG very
'Our land is very much gone.'

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Panará does not exhibit dedicated negative coordinators or subordinators. The equivalent of a 'neither... nor' sentence in Panará is expressed by a standard negation element such as *pjow* and the usual symmetric conjunction with *më* mentioned in §4.1.

(91) *Rê=s=anpun pjow Kuupêri më Kypakjä më.*
1SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=see NEG Kuupêri and Kypakjã and
'I saw neither Kuupêri nor Kypakjã.'

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

As mentioned by Salanova (2007) and Alves (2010), in other Jê languages, such as Timbira, Mẽbêngôkre (92) or Kĩsêdjê (93), negation consists of a negative verb that selects the negated element as its dependent, and which appears linearly after the negated clause or phrase (Salanova in prep, Alves & Gildea 2020).

(92) [*Aje ∅=krẽn*] *kêt.*
2SG.ERG 3SG.ABS=eat.NML NEG
'You don't eat.'

(93) [*Kare ∅=khuru*] *khêrê.*
2SG.ERG 3SG.ABS=eat.NML NEG
'You didn't eat.' (Nonato 2014: 7)

Panará *jy pjow* (94), discussed in §2.1, could be considered truly analogous to Jê negation by means of a negative verb that selects the negated clause.

(94) [*Ka hë ka=∅=ku=krë*] *jy=∅=pjow.*
2SG ERG 2SG.ERG=3SG.ABS=chew=eat INTR=3SG.ABS=NEG
'You don't eat.'

5 Summary

Panará presents itself as a language with a robust morphosyntax of negation. Several lexical roots and several syntactic mechanisms are used to express negation, ranging from adverbs to nouns and verbs. These are summarized in Table 1.

Of these, *pjow* is the least marked negator: it is compatible with all types of clause-level negation except for imperatives, and also participates in phrasal

Table 1: Negation in Panará

pjow	declarative	(NP) + V + *pjow* + (NP)
	interrogative	Q + (NP) V + *pjow*/*rö* + (NP)
	stative	stative pred. + *pjow*
		NP + *pjow* + locative pred.
		(NP) + stative V + *pjow* + (NP)
		possessive pred. + *pjow*
		possessive V + *pjow*
	non-main clause	(NP) + V + *pjow* + (NP)
	adjective	NP(N+Adj) + *pjow*
	indefinite	interr. pron. + NEG
		a. nobody: *prë* … *pjow*
		b. nothing: *pjän* … *pjow*
jy pjow	declarative	a. clause + *jy=∅=pjow*
		b. *jy=∅=pjow* + clause
rö	declarative	(NP) + V + *rö* + (NP)
	interrogative	Q + (NP) + V + *rö* + (NP)
	stative	stative pred. + *rö*
		NP + *rö* + locative pred.
		(NP) + stative V + *rö* + (NP)
	non-main clause	(NP) + V + *rö* + (NP)
	adjective	NP(N+Adj) + *rö*
	abessive	NP + *rö*
inkjown	declarative	(NP) + V + (NP) + *inkjown*
	interrogative	Q + (NP) + V + (NP) + *inkjown*
	stative	stative pred. + *inkjown*
		inkjown + existential pred.
	non-main	(NP) + V + (NP) + *inkjown*
	negative reply	*inkjown* + (XP/clause)
sä	imperative	(NP) + V + *sä* + (NP)
tö	reinforcement	(NP) + *tö*=V + NEG + (NP)

negation. It is by far the most frequent negation marker. *Rö* is a less frequent counterpart of *pjow*, sharing its position as a postverbal negative adverb. These two markers lean in opposite directions regarding their favoured constituents, *pjow* being more often used with clausal negation and *rö* with phrasal negation, although both can negate different categories of constituents.

Inkjown does double duty as the negative reply and a clause-final standard negation marker. Its canonical clause-final position suggests that perhaps it should be considered a negative predicate, in line with negation as usually employed in other Jê languages. However, it is different from *jy pjow*, the verbal use of *pjow*, in the lack of corresponding verbal morphology.

One characteristic of Panará negation is its imperviousness to grammatical categories. With the exception of imperatives, which exhibit a dedicated negation marker *sä*, the different grammatical environments that are relevant in Panará morphosyntax are largely compatible with the standard negation mechanisms.

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Abbreviations

1	first person	DIR	directional
2	second person	DU	dual
3	third person	EMPH	emphasis
ABS	absolutive	ERG	ergative
ADE	adessive	FNL	final
ALL	allative	INE	inessive
CAUS	causative	INS	instrumental
COM	comitative	INTS	intensifier
DAT	dative	INTR	intransitive

IRR	irrealis	PLAC	pluractional
ITER	iterative	POSS	possessive
LOC	locative	Q	interrogative
NML	nominal form	REL	relative
NEG	negative	SG	singular
PL	plural		

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Chapter 19

Negation in Mapudungun

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This paper outlines the basics of negation in Mapudungun (South America). Three negative suffixes occur in verbal clauses (*-la*, *-ki*, and *-nu*), and one negative particle occurs in nonverbal clauses (*nu*). The distribution of the negative suffixes is governed by finiteness and mood; tense, aspect, and other grammatical factors are irrelevant for the above allomorphy. Most stative predications are expressed by verbal clauses. However, equational predications can also be expressed by nonverbal clauses. With stative predications, therefore, the occurrence of the negators follows the verbal-nonverbal clause divide. Other than the negator *-nu* also occurring in negative indefinites, the language does not show any negative derivation. Lastly, there is an interesting distribution of the verbs *ngen* and *mülen* in existential predications; the former is also an individual-level copular predicate and the latter also a stage-level one, but with existentials this opposition appears to be neutralized and *ngen* seems to be the preferred option in the negative, while *mülen* is employed in the affirmative.

Keywords: finiteness, existential predication, Mapudungun, nonverbal predication, stative predication.

1 The language

The Mapuche language or Mapudungun (ISO: arn, Glottocode: mapu1245) is a linguistic isolate and is currently spoken mostly in south-central and central Chile, but also in central Argentina (Simons & Fennig 2018). The total number of speakers is somewhat uncertain, ranging from 100,000 when considering only high-fluency speakers to some 250,000 when including semi-speakers; passive speakers seem to be numerous (Zúñiga & Olate 2017). The language had some contact with (southern) Quechuan around the time of the Spanish invasion; since then,

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and especially since the late 19th century, contact with Chilean and Argentinian Spanish has been intense. Its name is spelled *Mapuzugun* or *Mapuzungun* when following other orthographic conventions found in the contemporary literature; I use the Chilean version of the convention called *Alfabeto Mapuche Unificado* for the data presented here. There are several regional varieties of the language, but differences among them are rather modest, despite occasional claims to the contrary – which is one of several reasons for not following the *Ethnologue* or *Glottolog* in postulating an "Araucanian" family. I address the dialect called Central Mapudungun in the present paper.

Mapudungun morphology ranges from synthetic to polysynthetic. Nominal morphology is relatively simple, with virtually no inflection and only limited derivational affixation, but with productive compounding capabilities. Verbal morphology, by contrast, is highly complex: despite lexical affixation being rather limited, there are numerous templatic slots, productive NP incorporation, and multi-radical verb stems (Zúñiga 2017). The morphology is predominantly suffixing and "agglutinative" (i.e., there is no flexivity, and most morphemes show simple exponence and combine concatenatively to form words). With respect to syntax, there are both nominal and verbal clauses. The latter distinguish two kinds of transitive clauses, viz. direct and inverse (Zúñiga 2006: Ch. VII; Haude & Zúñiga 2016). Constituent order patterns seem to have been predominantly VSO in the past; possibly under the influence of Spanish, SVO patterns have become more frequent of late (Zúñiga 2006: Ch. VII).

Based upon original data and the extant descriptions of Mapudungun, this paper presents an outline of negation in the language according to the guiding principles detailed in Veselinova (2014) and Miestamo (2017), as well as the questionnaire prepared by the editors of this volume (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). Essentially the same analysis —but a slightly different framing— is presented in a companion article published by the author and colleagues (Olate et al. 2020). (Unless otherwise specified, examples come from my own field notes.) §2 and §3 present clausal and non-clausal negation, respectively. §4 closes the paper with suggestions for further research.

2 Clausal negation

Mapudungun has four clausal negative morphemes, viz. three verbal suffixes (-*la*, -*ki*, and -*nu*) and one marker usually thought of as negative particle or negative adverb (*nu*).[1] While -*la* and -*ki* are only found with indicative and imperative verb

[1]The old negator *müg* does not seem to be in use anymore; see §3.1 for more details.

forms, respectively (§2.1 and §2.2), *-nu* is found with all other verbs (e.g., with subjunctive and nonfinite forms; §2.4), and *nu* appears with nonverbal elements (e.g., in nominal clauses; §2.3.7).[2] The markers' distribution is essentially based on mood and finiteness, as summarized in Figure 1 below.

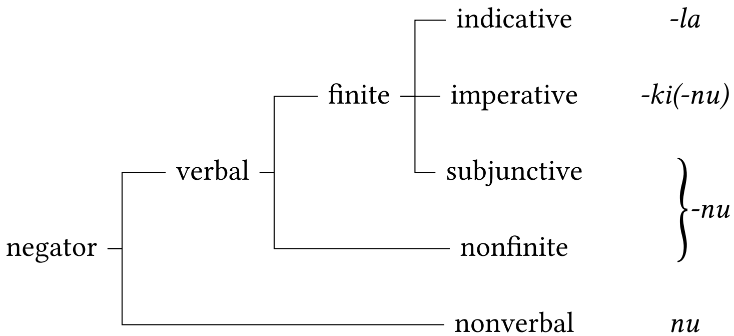

Figure 1: Overview of clausal negators

2.1 Standard negation

Declarative main clauses are headed by a verb in the *i*-marked indicative mood and are negated by suffixing *-la* to the verbal predicate, as in (1).

(1) a. *La-le-i* *tüfa-chi* *üñüm.*
die-RES-IND[3SG] this-ATTR bird
'This bird has died.'

b. *La-le-la-i* *tüfa-chi* *üñüm.*
die-RES-NEG-IND[3SG] this-ATTR bird
'This bird has not died.'

The standard negator *-la* shows neither phonologically nor lexically conditioned allomorphy (unlike other derivational and inflectional suffixes on the verb, which do have phonologically conditioned variants). Moreover, aspectual and/or temporal distinctions do not appear to interact with the standard negator in any way. The only notable exception is the bimorphemic expression of the cessative ('no longer, not anymore'), which consists of *-we* 'already' and negative *-la* (cf.

[2] de Valdivia (1606: 23) mentions that the variety spoken in Santiago by the turn of the 16th century showed *-nu* with some persons in indicative forms as well. I have not found this phenomenon in present-day varieties.

analogous Spanish *ya no*) (2a). There is no dedicated *nondum* 'not yet' element (Veselinova 2017); this meaning is expressed by combining *petu* 'still' with negative *-la* (cf. analogous Spanish *aún no*) (2b).

(2) a. *Küpa-tu-mu-we-la-a-n* *yod.*
come-APPL-2>1.ELS-already-NEG-FUT-1SG.IND more
'You (NSG) do not keep coming for me.'[3] (Salas 2006: 215)

b. *Petu la-le-la-i.*
still die-RES-NEG-IND[3SG]
'S/he has not yet died.'

Lastly, standard negation is symmetrical, both constructionally (i.e., the morphological make-up of indicative verb forms does not change in any other way when negated) and paradigmatically (i.e., the same grammatical categories are available in the affirmative and the negative).

2.2 Negation in non-declarative main clauses

In Mapudungun, structurally special non-declarative main clause types exist for commands, but not for questions. Commands are typically expressed with the zero-marked imperative mood (3a) and were presumably negated with *-ki* in an erstwhile transparent form that is no longer in use (3b).[4]

(3) a. *Langüm-fi-nge* *tüfa-chi* *üñüm!*
kill-3OBJ-2SG.IMP this-ATTR bird
'Kill this bird!'

b. * *Langüm-ki-fi-nge* *tüfa-chi* *üñüm!*
kill-NEG-3OBJ-2SG.IMP this-ATTR bird
(Reconstructed, intended meaning: 'Don't kill this bird!')

Actual present-day negated forms follow two basic patterns, namely one ("subjunctive-like") for all person-number values in which the form takes subjunctive *-l* and subjunctive person-number markers (4a), and one ("hybrid") for 2SG and

[3]This future indicative form can be used either to describe a state of affairs (and be translated in the indicative) or as a polite way to avoid the more direct and potentially rude imperative (and be translated as 'do not keep coming for me!').

[4]The only prohibitive forms given in de Valdivia (1606: 23a–b) have negated subjunctive forms, cf. *elu-l-m-i* 'if you (SG) give' vs. *elu-ki-l-m-i* 'don't (SG) give'. It may well be the case, of course, that this "hybrid" morphological make-up was the original. See also Footnote 6.

3rd person forms in which subjunctive *-l* co-occurs with (affirmative) imperative person-number markers (4b).[5] Both patterns show variation regarding whether *-ki* or *-ki-nu* is used as negator; the double marker *-ki-nu* is often found with subjunctive-like forms and occasionally found with hybrid forms.[6]

(4) a. *Langüm-ki-(nu-)fi-l-m-i tüfa-chi üñüm!*
kill-NEG-NEG-3OBJ-SBJV-2-SG this-ATTR bird

b. *Langüm-ki-(nu-)fi-l-nge tüfa-chi üñüm!*
kill-NEG-NEG-3OBJ-SBJV-2SG.IMP this-ATTR bird
Both: 'Don't kill this bird!'

The morphological make-up of monopersonal forms (i.e., those marking only the person of their subject) is schematically summarized in Tables 1(a)-1(b) below. Note in Table 1(a) the essentially agglutinative pattern for most markers built upon a mood marker (*-l* 'SBJV', zero imperative), a person marker (*-i* '1', *-m* '2' and zero third), and a number marking (*-i* 'SG', *-u* 'DU' and *-n* 'PL'). The portmanteaus that deviate from this are most of the 1SG/2SG markers: *-li* '1SG.SBJV', *-chi* '1SG.IMP', and *-nge* '2SG.IMP'. 3rd-person markers show some portmanteaus as well (*-le* '3SG.SBJV' and *-pe* '3.IMP'), and 3NSG forms include a *ng* element to which the dual and plural endings are affixed, which is bound to the verb in the subjunctive but still somewhat detached in the imperative (see Zúñiga 2014 for details). The 3rd-person hybrid forms in Table 1(b) show some variation between affixing the bare mood marker *-l* and the 3-person-imperative portmanteau *-le*.

Mapudungun negation can be classified as belonging to Type IV in van der Auwera & Lejeune's (2013) model: 2SG prohibitives use a construction other than the 2SG affirmative imperative and a sentential negator not found in the indicative. Only the reconstructed forms (3b) are constructionally symmetrical; both subjunctive-like and hybrid prohibitives show mood-person-number marking that differs from their affirmative counterpart's. As to paradigmatic asymmetry, it is also important to note that some dedicated polypersonal imperative forms are no longer in use (either subjunctive-like or hybrid, either affirmative or neg-

[5] Salas (2006: 146) distinguishes *nu-l*-forms from *ki(-nu)-l*-forms using the terms "(negative) hypothetical subjunctive" and "(negative) volitive subjunctive," respectively. I am grateful to Aldo Olate for reminding me of this alternative terminology.

[6] To judge from the presentation and indirect comments found in older sources (de Valdivia 1606: 23–24 and de Augusta 1903: 166–167), the subjunctive-like pattern might be older than the hybrid one, and the single negator *-ki* definitely appears to be older than the double negator *-ki-nu*. de Moesbach (1962: 124–126) treats the marker *-ki-nu* as a third monomorphemic allomorph in its own right (with a different first vowel, viz. "*kenú* or *kenó*").

Table 1: Selected monopersonal endings

(a) Selected monopersonal endings I

	subjunctive		imperative (SBJV-like)	
	AFF	NEG	AFF[a]	NEG
1SG	*-li*	*-nu-li*	*-chi*	(unattested)
1DU	*-l-i-u*	*-nu-l-i-u*	*-i-u*	*-ki(-nu)-l-i-u*
1PL	*-l-i-n*	*-nu-l-i-n*	*-i-n*	*-ki(-nu)-l-i-n*
2SG	*-l-m-i*	*-nu-l-m-i*	*-nge*	*-ki(-nu)-l-m-i*
2DU	*-l-m-u*	*-nu-l-m-u*	*-m-u*	*-ki(-nu)-l-m-u*
2PL	*-l-m-n*	*-nu-l-m-n*	*-m-n*	*-ki(-nu)-l-m-n*
3SG	*-le*	*-nu-le*	*-pe*	*-ki(-nu)-le*
3DU	*-l-ng-u*	*-nu-l-ng-u*	*-pe eng-u*	*-ki(-nu)-le eng-u*
3PL	*-l-ng-n*	*-nu-l-ng-n*	*-pe eng-n*	*-ki(-nu)-le eng-n*

(b) Selected monopersonal endings II

	subjunctive		imperative (hybrid)	
	AFF	NEG	AFF	NEG
2SG	*-l-m-i*	*-nu-l-m-i*	*-nge*	*-ki(-nu)-l-nge*
3SG	*-le*	*-nu-le*	*-pe*	*-ki(-nu)-l(e)-pe*
3DU	*-l-ng-u*	*-nu-l-ng-u*	*-pe eng-u*	*-ki(-nu)-l(e)-pe eng-u*
3PL	*-l-ng-n*	*-nu-l-ng-n*	*-pe eng-n*	*-ki(-nu)-l(e)-pe eng-n*

[a]Rather than being imperatives in the strict sense of the term, first-person forms and third-person forms are hortatives and jussives, respectively. The 1SG form usually has an optative or a “declarative” value, e.g. *tripa-chi!* ‘I’d like to go out; OK, I’m going to get out now!’ (Salas 2006: 96).

ative); for instance, 2SG>1SG interactions are routinely expressed by the future indicative (see the footnote to (2a) above and Smeets 2008: 185f for more details).[7]

2.3 Negation in stative predications

2.3.1 Introduction

First note that there are two stative copular/existential verbs in Mapudungun, which play an important role in what follows. One is *ngen* 'be/exist$_1$'; it is an individual-level (i.e., permanent-state) predicate and roughly corresponds to Ibero-Romance *ser*. The other is *mülen* 'be/exist$_2$'; it is a stage-level (i.e., temporary-state) predicate and roughly corresponds to Ibero-Romance *estar*.[8] (The opposition between *ngen* and *mülen* is unlikely to be contact-induced, due to its age – both verbs appear with the present-day values in the oldest description of the language (1606) – and apparent consistency – I am not aware of any significant variation regarding the semantics of these verbs, other than some uses of *mülen* that are not parallel to Spanish *estar*.)

Equation is expressed by nominal clauses in Mapudungun and therefore always uses *nu*; all other subtypes of stative constructions (i.e., proper inclusion, property attribution, existence, location, and possession) are expressed by verbal clauses and therefore show the mood- and finiteness-related allomorphy shown in §2.1–2.3.

2.3.2 Proper inclusion

Proper inclusion is typically expressed via verbalization with *-nge* (< *nge-* 'be$_1$' in (5) and (6); but see also §5 below).

(5) a. *Witran-nge-i.*
visitor-be$_1$-IND[3SG]
'S/he is a visitor.'

b. *Witran-nge-la-i.*
visitor-be$_1$-NEG-IND[3SG]
'S/he is not a visitor.'

[7]An analysis of the complex make-up of Mapudungun polypersonal forms lies beyond the scope of the present paper. The interested reader is referred to Zúñiga (2006: Ch. VII) and the appropriate sections in de Augusta (1903), Salas (2006) and Smeets (2008).

[8]There are two homophonous *n*-suffixes in Mapudungun, one of them finite ('1SG.IND') and the other non-finite ('INF'). *Ngen, mülen*, and other verbs in the running text are given in the usual infinitive citation form.

c. *Witran-nge-le-pa-i.*
visitor-be$_1$-PROG-CIS-IND[3SG]
'S/he is (behaving formally, as) a visitor here.' (Smeets 2008: 171, 283)

d. *Witran-nge-le-la-pa-i.*
visitor-be$_1$-PROG-NEG-CIS-IND[3SG]
'S/he is not (behaving formally, as) a visitor here.'

(6) a. *Müna-tremo-pichi-we-che-nge-i-m-i.*
very-beautiful-little-young-person-be$_1$-IND-2-SG
'You (SG) are a very beautiful boy.'

b. *Müna-tremo-pichi-we-che-nge-la-i-m-i.*
very-beautiful-little-young-person-be$_1$-NEG-IND-2-SG
'You (SG) are not a very beautiful boy.' (de Moesbach 1962: 54)

2.3.3 Property attribution

Adjectival stems (which are invariably also inchoative verbal stems) are used with the verbalizer *-nge* (< *nge-* 'be$_1$', e.g. in (7a–7a′), cf. §2.3.2) and aspectual *-le* (< *müle-* 'be$_2$', e.g. in (7b–7b′)); although individual-level forms originally took *-nge*, they appear increasingly unmarked nowadays (e.g. in (7c–7c′)).

(7) a. *Kurü-nge-i* *ti* *ruka.*
blacken-be$_1$-IND[3SG] ART house
'The house is [always] black.' (Sp. *ser*)

a′. *Kurü-nge-la-i* *ti* *ruka.*
blacken-be$_1$-NEG-IND[3SG] ART house
'The house is not [always] black.' (Sp. *ser*)

b. *Kurü-le-i* *ti* *ruka.*
blacken-RES-IND[3SG] ART house
'The house is [now] black.' (Sp. *estar*)

b′. *Kurü-le-la-i* *ti* *ruka.*
blacken-RES-NEG-IND[3SG] ART house
'The house is not [now] black.' (Sp. *estar*)

c. *Kurü-i* *ti* *ruka.*
black(en)-IND[3SG] art house
'The house blackened / is black.' (Sp. *ser*)

c′. *Kurü-la-i* *ti* *ruka.*
black(en)-NEG-IND[3SG] ART house
'The house did not blacken / is not black.' (Sp. *ser*)

2.3.4 Location

In addition to *müle-* 'be$_2$', three productive suffixes express the same notion and are commonly found together with other verbs, namely *-le* (< *müle-* 'be$_2$'), *-nie* (< *nie-* 'have', cf. §2.3.6), and *-künu* (< *künu-* 'leave'). Example (8) shows only an affirmative verb form, but the negative would use the standard negator *-la* (*payla-künu-tu-rke-la-fi*).

(8) a. *Müle-ka-i* *ruka* *mew.*
be$_2$-CONT-IND[3SG] house POSP
'S/he is still in the house.' (Sp. *estar*)

b. *Müle-ka-la-i* *ruka* *mew.*
be$_2$-CONT-NEG-IND[3SG] house POSP
'S/he is still not in the house.' (Sp. *estar*)

(9) *Kisu chi* *wentru* *payla-künu-tu-rke-fi* *ta* *chi* *domo.*
DP ART man get.on.one's.back-leave-REST-REP-3OBJ[3SG] PTCL ART woman
'The man left the woman on her back again, they say.' (Salas 2006: 267)

2.3.5 Existence

We already saw the two existential verbs *ngen* and *mülen* at the beginning of this section. Now also note that they stand in a polarity-based opposition that is still not well understood. Compare the question and the answer in (10), which tend to use different verbs; the affirmative question uses *mülen*, whereas the negative answer apparently favors *ngen* (although *mülen* was also possible, and perhaps still is).

(10) Q: *Müle-i* *chadi?*
exist$_2$-IND[3SG] salt
'Is there any salt?' (de Augusta 1916: 55)

A: *Nge-la-i.* / *Müle-la-i.*
exist$_1$-NEG-IND[3SG] exist$_2$-NEG-IND[3SG]
'No, there isn't any.' (de Augusta 1916: 55, 179)

See also both assertions in (11), which use more closely related elements ("the same verb" *ngen*) but different constructions ((11a) being the default clause with a verbal predicate and a nominal argument, and (11b) being an example of verbalization via *-nge*; cf. §2.3.6).

(11) a. *Nge-la-i* *chadi.*
exist$_1$-NEG-IND[3SG] salt
'There is no salt.' (Smeets 2008: 125)

b. *Chadi-nge-la-i.*
salt-have$_2$-NEG-IND[3SG]
'It is not salty / it does not have salt.' (Smeets 2008: 126)

That the opposition is not triggered by the question-answer frame can be seen from example (12), which shows negative *ngelan* and affirmative *mülen* occurring in the same (non-interrogative) sentence.

(12) *Nge-la-i* *i-al,* *welu petu müle-we-i*
exist$_1$-NEG-IND[3SG] eat-FUT.NFIN but still exist$_2$-already-IND[3SG]
putu-al.
drink-FUT.NFIN
'There is no food, but there still is [something] left to drink.' (Smeets 2008: 200)

Descriptive studies on Mapudungun have not addressed this (partial) polarity-based opposition so far, and my informants produce somewhat inconsistent data and have only rather vague intuitions as to what is at work here, so more research is needed in order to ascertain how advanced *nge-la-* might be on its way to becoming a negative existential. Assuming Mapudungun does not (yet) distinguish negators for existential and other verbal expressions, it belongs to Type A in Croft's (1991) model (see also Veselinova 2014).

2.3.6 Possession

Functionally mirroring the two copular/existential predicates, but showing an unexpected formal distribution, there are two ways to express predicative possession in Mapudungun.[9] One is with the verb *nien* 'have$_1$' (13a); it is an individual-level default predicate used for permanent possession. The other is *ngen* 'have$_2$' (13b); it is a stage-level suffixal predicate used for temporary possession. *ngen*

[9] See Olate et al. (2018) for a comprehensive treatment of possession in Mapudungun.

shows a tendency to be used for temporary possession but this is not so clearcut as it is also used with kinship terms (see below). Both can be covered by Spanish *tener* (*ngen* 'have$_2$' can also be rendered colloquially as *estar con*, lit. 'be with') and English *have*.

(13) a. *Nie-i* *epu* *kawell.*
have$_1$-IND[3SG] two horse
'S/he has two horses.' (individual level: unmarked possession)

b. *Kawellu-nge-i.*
horse-have$_2$-IND[3SG]
'S/he has a horse (right now).' (stage level; marked possession, Sp. lit. *está con caballo*)

Notably, temporary-possession -*nge* is also found with some kinship nouns and even with body-part nouns, e.g. *kure-nge-* (wife-have$_2$-) 'be married (to a woman)', *epu-namun-nge-* (two-foot-have$_2$-) 'be two-footed/legged'.

With nouns where possession expresses ownership (e.g., *ruka* 'house' in (14a)), permanent-possession *nien* 'have$_1$' is the default option. Temporary-possession -*nge* is occasionally used with unmovable objects like houses as well (e.g. in (14b)).

(14) a. *Nie-la-i* *kiñe* *ruka.*
have$_1$-NEG-IND[3SG] one house
'S/he does not have a house.'

b. *Kiñe-ruka-nge-la-i.*
one-house-have$_2$-NEG-IND[3SG]
'She does not have a house (and her husband has more than one wife).' (based on de Augusta 1903: 9)

2.3.7 Equation / identity predication

Nominal clauses are invariably used for equational constructions (i.e., '$NP_X \equiv NP_Y$'), and occasionally for proper-inclusion constructions (i.e., '$NP_X \in \{NP_Y\}$'). To judge from the extant lexicographic evidence, the latter usage seems to have appeared or spread in the 20th century; it may have originated in elliptical constructions (e.g., NP_X NP_Y-*nge-i* > NP_X NP_Y). In general, nominal clauses often include a particle/proclitic *ta*, especially when the second NP is definite. The exact formal (wordhood-related) properties of *nu* in such constructions are still to be investigated.

The examples in (15) illustrate equational constructions; (15a) is the default construction and (15b) is a fronted variant that conveys some sort of emphasis (presumably: contrastive focus).

(15) a. *[Fey-chi domo]$_X$ [(ta) ñi ina-n lamngen]$_Y$.*
DEM-ATTR woman PTCL 1SG.POSS follow-NFIN sister
'That woman is my youngest sister.' (Smeets 2008: 143)

b. *[Iñche]$_Y$ nu, [ta ti]$_X$.*
1SG NEG PTCL ART
'That is not me/mine.' (Smeets 2008: 144)

Examples (16a–16b) illustrate negated proper-inclusion constructions (see §2.3.2 above). (16c) illustrates a slightly different kind of negated equational construction, where the first member of the equation is covert.

(16) a. *Fey$_X$ [wentru]$_Y$ nu.*
DEM man NEG
'He is not a man.' (Smeets 2008: 144) (Also: *fey wentru-nge-la-i,* cf. §2.3.2)

b. *[Tüfa-chi pu che kom]$_X$ [mapuche]$_Y$ nu?*
this-ATTR PL person all M. NEG
'Are these people not all Mapuche?' (Smeets 2008: 144)

c. *Tunte kulli-lle-li rume, Ø$_X$ [mütewe]$_Y$ nu.*
how.much pay-AFF-1SG.SBJV ever much NEG
'No matter how much I paid, it was not much.' (Smeets 2008: 144)

2.3.8 Summary

Table 2 below schematically summarizes the stative constructions presented above. The symbol Σ represents verbal stems (which may be complex in that they may consist of more than just roots, and/or they may include several roots/stems), and {NEG} represents the set of negator allomorphs *-ki*, *-la*, and *-nu*. In addition to the semantic kinds location, attribution, existence, possession, and proper inclusion, individual-level and stage-level predication have to be distinguished in order to properly account for the distribution of the forms. The functional status of *(-)nge(-)* 'be' is quite complex, appearing as it does in both individual-level and stage-level predications of different kinds.

Table 2: Summary of Stative Predication Constructions (Verbal/Non-verbal)

	Individual-level (= unmarked)		Stage-level (= temporary)	
	Affirmative	Negative	Affirmative	Negative
Location	—	—	Σ-	Σ-{NEG}-
Attribution	Σ(-*nge*)-	Σ(-*nge*)-{NEG}-	Σ-*le*-	Σ-*le*-{NEG}-
Existence	—	—	*müle-/nge-*	*nge*-{NEG}-
Possession	*nie-*	*nie*-{NEG}-	NP-*nge*-	NP-*nge*-{NEG}-
Proper inclusion	NP-*nge*-	NP-*nge*-{NEG}-	NP-*nge*-	NP-*nge*-{NEG}-
	NP NP	NP NP *nu*	—	—
Equation	NP NP	NP NP *nu*	—	—

2.4 Negation in dependent clauses

Dependent clauses are headed either by verbs in the *l*-marked subjunctive mood (17) (see also Table 1 above) or by nonfinite verbs that are unmarked for mood and take a specialized ending (e.g., *-el, -lu, -n, -am*; (18) illustrates a *lu*-form). Both kinds are negated by suffixing *-nu* to the predicate.

(17) a. *Feyengün aku-fu-le!*
3PL arrive-RI-3.SBJV
'If only they (PL) would arrive!'

b. *Feyengün aku-nu-fu-le!*
3PL arrive-NEG-RI-3.SBJV
'If only they (PL) would not arrive!' (Smeets 2008: 184)

(18) a. *Ngilla-la-a-i kofke nie-lu plata.*
buy-NEG-FUT-IND[3SG] bread have-NFIN money
'He who has money will not buy bread.'

b. *Ngilla-la-a-i kofke nie-nu-lu plata.*
buy-NEG-FUT-IND[3SG] bread have-NEG-NFIN money
'He who has no money will not buy bread.' (Smeets 2008: 189)

Like standard negation, dependent-clause negation is constructionally and paradigmatically symmetrical. Nevertheless, the negator does show some (free) variation: it can occur either as *-nu* or as *-no*.

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The old nonverbal negator *müg*, which also occurred as *mü*, *mu* or *me*, was used – possibly until the mid-20th century – as negative answer to questions, i.e., as a counterpart to affirmative *may*.[10] Nowadays the default negator *nu* ~ *no*, possibly under the influence of the Spanish negator *no*, has replaced *müg* in this function. (See de Moesbach 1962: 166–167: for more details.) The usual answer to a question also includes the verbal predicate, as seen in example (19).

(19) a. A: *Allkü-i-m-i?*
hear-IND-2-SG
'Did you (SG) hear?'

B: *(Allkü-n) may.*
hear-1SG.IND AFF
'Yes, I did.' (de Moesbach 1962: 166)

b. A: *Allkü-la-i-m-i nga?*
hear-NEG-IND-2-SG DP
'Didn't you (SG) hear?'

B: *Mü (allkü-la-n).*
NEG hear-NEG-1SG.IND
'No, I didn't.' (de Moesbach 1962: 166)

Straightforward negative questions like (19b) above appear to be somewhat disfavored in normal discourse; they are extremely rare in narratives, and speakers seem to prefer to embed negative expressions in affirmative questions and/or reported-speech structures, especially if the clause consists of more than a more predicate, but more research is needed here.

Both affirmative and negative replies above refer to the propositional content, rather than to the polarity of the question. However, see the following example of the usage of *may* in (20b), in which it agrees with the polarity of the negative assertion in (20a) made in a previous section of a reported dialog taken from Salas (2006: 226–227).

(20) a. *Eymu ta ka fele-la-fu-i-m-u ka.*
2DU PTCL PTCL be.SO-NEG-RI-IND-2-DU DP
'You two would not be like that, either.'

[10]I am grateful to Aldo Olate for reminding me of the existence of the old negator *müg*.

b. *Fele-i may. Iñchiw may fele-la-fu-i-i-u.*
be.so-IND[3SG] AFF 1DU AFF be.so-NEG-RI-IND-1-DU
'It is true. We both were certainly not like that.'

It is the postverbal element *ka* (cf. 20a) that is used to refer to the polarity of the question, similarly to the German polarity-reversing particle *doch* (see Moser 2019);[11] see example (21) (based on de Augusta 1916: 71).

(21) Q. *Amu-la-i-m-i nga?*
go-NEG-IND-2-SG DP
'Didn't you (SG) go?'

A. *Amu-n ka.*
go-1SG.IND DP
'I did go.'

3.2 Negative indefinites

As in other South American languages (e.g., in Quechuan), the negator *nu* co-occurs with *rume* '-ever, even, at least' in negative indefinites, as shown in (22).[12]

(22) a. *iney-rume 'who(m)ever'*
iney-nu-rume 'nobody' (cf. *iney* 'who')

b. *chem-rume 'whatever'*
chem-nu-rume 'nothing' (cf. *chem* 'what')

c. *chew-rume 'wherever'*
chew-nu-rume 'nowhere' (cf. *chew* 'where')

Note the opposition in (23) between the negator appearing only on the verb (23a), the negator appearing only in the indefinite expression (23b), and the co-occurrence of two negators in the same clause (23c). (The latter is possibly found with an emphatic function, but more research is needed on this.)

[11] Like *rume* (see §3.2 and §4.5), *ka* is notoriously polyfunctional: as a verbal suffix, it expresses continuity; as an adjectival root, it means '(an)other'; as a conjunction, it means 'and'; preposed to a verb, it usually means 'again' (but apparently not in 20a).

[12] See also §4.5 for other uses of the negators and *rume*. The latter element has a wide variety of (arguably related) functions: as a verbal suffix, it means 'suddenly'; as an adverb preceding adjectives, it means 'very, much, exceedingly'; as a bimorphemic verb stem, it means 'pass there'.

(23) a. *Doy chem-rume nie-ke-la-fu-i-i-n.*
more what-ever have-HAB-NEG-RI-IND-1-PL
'We (PL) did not have anything more.'[13] (Smeets 2008: 244)

b. *Doy chem-nu-rume nie-ke-fu-i-i-n.*
more what-NEG-ever have-HAB-RI-IND-1-PL
'We (PL) had nothing more.' (Smeets 2008: 244)

c. *Chumkaw-nu-rume feypi-la-a-n.*
how-NEG-ever say-NEG-FUT-1SG.IND
'I won't say it under any circumstances.' (Catrileo 2010: 129; orthography adapted)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

There do not appear to exist any lexically idiosyncratic negatives in the language. By a similar token, none of the negators are used as the sole means to derive lexemes. In particular, *nu* is not used as English *-less* with nominal or adjectival stems, or as Latin/Spanish *dis-* ~ *des-* ~ *de-* (e.g., *disculpar* 'excuse') *an-* or *iN-* (e.g., *analfabeto* 'illiterate'), or *no* (e.g., *tratado de no proliferación (de armas nucleares)* 'non-proliferation treaty (for nuclear weapons)'), with nominal or verbal stems. Moreover, Mapudungun speakers do not normally borrow Spanish negative-prefix items but prefer to resort to the vernacular means of expression, i.e. verbal negation. Consider, for instance, that the language expresses 'be difficult' and 'not be difficult / be easy', respectively, via verbalization: *küdaw-nge-* (work-be$_1$-) and *küdaw-nge-la-* (work-be$_1$-NEG-). By a similar token, a negated nonfinite *el*-verb form is turned into an attributive adjective in (24).

(24) *rakiduam-nie-no-el-chi antü mew*
think-have-NEG-NFIN-ATTR day POSP
'someday soon' (lit. 'on the day not thought of', possibly from Spanish *el día menos pensado*) (de Augusta 1916: 119)

Perhaps unsurprisingly, the only element comparable to the English or Spanish negative prefixes is originally verbal, namely *nge-no-* 'not being' (cf. *ngeno longko* 'headless', lit. 'without a head'). In most nonverbal instances, *ngeno* seems to be

[13]The marker *-fu* 'RUPTURED IMPLICATURE' is a "metapragmatic operator that acts to warn against, block, or rupture conventional implicature in speech" (Golluscio 2000: 240). It can have a temporal interpretation ('it is no longer the case that [CLAUSE]'), but it is often orthogonal to temporal considerations ('whatever we expected to happen because of [CLAUSE] did not come to pass').

an adposition ('without') rather than a prefix ('-less'), cf. *ngeno düngu* 'without cause, for no reason' vs. *ngeno fücha düngu* 'for no good reason' (de Augusta 1916: 67). de Augusta (1916) gives a handful of adverbial nonfinite forms that might be good candidates for lexicalization (e.g. *ngeno-rakiduam-n* 'inconsiderately', lit. 'not thinking'; *ngeno-yewe-n* 'shamelessly', lit. 'not being ashamed'), but this area needs much more research. My impression is that present-day speakers regularly use nominalizations that possibly show univerbation, like *ñi newen-nge-no-n* (1SG.POSS strength-be$_1$-NEG-NFIN) 'my weakness', lit. 'my not having strength' (de Augusta 1916: 102).

4 Other aspects of negation

Sections §2 and §3 above outline our current knowledge about negative structures in Mapudungun. Nevertheless, several additional features of Mapudungun grammatical and lexical structure need to be explored in greater detail, both for the language in general and in the context of negation, in order to arrive at a really comprehensive picture. For the most part, I limit myself in the following subsections to making explicit suggestions for further research.

4.1 The scope of negation

Any elements other than verbs that need to be negated take the constituent negator *nu* ~ *no*. Example (25) illustrates a negated adverbial phrase.

(25) *Dewma mari tripantu nie-el tripa-n ñi küdaw-a-el,*
already ten year have-NFIN exit-1SG.IND 1SG.POSS work-FUT-NFIN
welu müte kamapu nu.
but very far.away NEG
'When I was already ten years old, I went away to work, but not very far away.' (Smeets 2008: 245)

Not much is known about scope relations in general in Mapudungun. The scope of negation needs to be addressed by further research.

4.2 Negative polarity

Despite some pioneering work on particles in Smeets (2008: Ch.32), Mapudungun particles are still only poorly understood, so at least some negative or affirmative polarity items might be found there once those items are analyzed thoroughly and exhaustively.

Mapudungun equivalents of English pairs like *no longer / any longer* make transparent use of negators, but equivalents of *somewhat, at all*, etc. do not seem to exist in the language. The main element to take into account here is *(-)rume* '-ever, even, at least'. In addition to what is outlined in Sections 3.2 and 4.5, see for instance the elements *chumül/chumel* 'when' and *chumngechi* 'how', which can be used interrogatively and in assertions, either with or without negation, to signify 'always'/'never' and 'however'/'in no way whatsoever', respectively. It is worth noting that these items differ as to their status as negative polarity items.

Two items related to *chumül/chumel* 'when' merit special attention in the context of polarity items, namely *rumel* and *turpu*. They both seemed to have been used interchangeably a century ago, with the meaning 'always' with an unmarked verb and 'never' with a negated verb (as unmistakably exemplified in de Augusta 1903, 1916), and without the elements *-no-rume* (found on *chumülno-rume* 'never', for instance). Nevertheless, present-day speakers appear to prefer the distribution described in Smeets (2008), where *rumel* is invariably used with unmarked verbs (26a) and *turpu* only occurs with negated verbs (26b) (and is customarily translated as 'never').[14]

(26) a. *Rumel küpal-a-i yewün.*
always$_1$ bring-FUT-IND[3PL] present(s)
'They always bring presents.' (Smeets 2008: 555)

b. *Eymi turpu tripa-ke-la-i-m-i.*
2SG always$_2$ go.out-HAB-NEG-IND-2-SG
'You (SG) never go out.' (Smeets 2008: 559)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Mapudungun does not have case morphology or adpositions that mark either core or peripheral grammatical relations. The only candidate for case status is the enclitic postposition *mew ~ mu ~ mo*, but it does not interact with negation in any special way,[15] so no case alternations of the Russian, Finnish, or Basque type are found in the language. To the best of my knowledge, neither spatial, temporal nor causal adpositions interact with negation in any way.

[14] The specialization process seems to have begun a long time ago. In Coña (1995), which collects narratives by a Mapuche chieftain of the early 20th century, *turpu* appears only with negated verbs, and *rumel* appears five times with an unmarked verb and only once with a negated verb.

[15] See Smeets (2008: 61–67) who treats the semantically void postposition *mew* as "instrumental case suffix".

Neither the conditions governing the use of determiners nor the regularities shown by information-structure categories like topics and focuses are well understood for Mapudungun, so this is an area where much more research is needed.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Very little is known about Mapudungun prosody, so future research will hopefully show how negation can be prosodically reinforced, if at all. The only pattern I am aware of that may turn out to be related to reinforcement is the co-occurrence of two negators in the same clause (example (23c) above). See also example (29) below.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

With affirmative clauses, *ka* 'and' can, but need not, be used as coordinator. The Mapudungun equivalent to expressions with negative coordinators (like English *neither … nor…*, or Spanish *ni… ni…*) uses the element *rume* 'even, at least' (see §3.2) in the units following the first one (if they are only two, in the second unit). See in example (27) from de Augusta (1916: 253) how all units may structurally parallel, each with the same negator (27a), or only the first is a complete clause while the others are elliptical (27b).

(27) a. *I-ke-la-n, umag-ke-la-n rume.*
eat-HAB-NEG-1SG.IND sleep-HAB-NEG-1SG.IND even
'I neither eat nor sleep.'

b. *Juan "razón nie-i" pi-la-a-i-m-i-mew, Pedro no rume.*
Juan reason have-IND[3SG] say-NEG-FUT-IND-2-SG-3A P. NEG even
'Neither Juan nor Pedro will agree with you (SG).' (lit. 'Juan won't tell you "It's correct," [and] neither will Pedro.')

The language has an adversative conjunction *welu* 'but', equivalent to English *but* (and Spanish *pero*) in *this is not a cat, but it is a dog*, but there is no equivalent to English *but* (and Spanish *sino*) in *this is not a cat but a dog*. The usual way to express [*not* PROPOSITION$_1$ *but* PROPOSITION$_2$] is simply to express the first proposition in the negative and the second in the affirmative, and juxtapose both, as in example (28).

(28) *Juan fem-la-i, Pedro fem-i.*
Juan do.so-neg-ind[3sg] P. do.so-ind[3sg]
'Juan did not do it, but Pedro did.' (de Augusta 1916: 356)

I am not aware of any element equivalent to the English negative conjunction *lest* in Mapudungun.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Unfortunately, not much is known about clause linkage idiosyncrasies, and metalinguistic targeting (e.g., "metalinguistic negation"). Raising/control phenomena have attracted some attention in the literature (see some notes on argument marking with affirmative raising and control predicates in Zúñiga 2019, and references therein), but the question of negative transport ("negation raising") has not been explored yet.

Co-occurrence of different negators in different loci of the same clause is found in corpora and can be easily elicited, but the factors conditioning this phenomenon, as well as its possible interaction with parallel co-occurrences in non-standard Southern Cone Spanish, have not been studied yet (as mentioned in §3.2). It seems that reinforcement/emphasis of some sort is involved; the idea conveyed by *chumkawnorume* in (29) is 'no matter how hard they tried'.

(29) *Kiñe kentu tu-i-ngün toki. Feymew ulel-fi-i tachi pu orkon*
one group take-ind-3pl axe with.them hit-3obj-ind[3] art pl post
katr-a-fu-el engün, welu chumkaw-no-rume katrü-la-fi-i-ngün.
cut-fut-ri-nfin 3pl but how-neg-ever cut-neg-3obj-ind-3pl
'A group (of people) took some axes. They used them to hit the posts in order to cut them, but they did not succeed.' (lit. 'they did not cut them.') (Salas 2006: 248; orthography adapted)

It is worth noting that the verbal negators co-occur with some other markers in combinations that have drawn some attention in the previous literature and will hopefully be addressed systematically soon (Zúñiga et al. 2024). The markers *-we* 'already' and *-pe* 'dubitative' are particularly salient in this regard. I have glossed the combined sequence *-we-la* as cessative elsewhere (Zúñiga 2006), because it expresses the meaning 'no more, not anymore' (30a); it is compositional, however, and partly unexpected only because other languages belong to the 'no more' type instead of the 'already not' type (van der Auwera 1998). The sequence *-pe-la*, by contrast, is not compositional: it expresses confidence/likelyhood, i.e., an epistemic modal meaning not simply derivable from the negated dubitative (30b).

(30) a. *Doy wangkü-l-nge-we-la-i.*
more bark-APPL-PASS-already-NEG-IND[3SG]
'They did not bark at him anymore.' (Salas 2006: 262)

b. *Aña-pela-a-i.*
hurt-MOD-FUT-IND[3SG]
'It is probably going to hurt.' (Smeets 2008: 250)
(cf. *aña-pe-a-i* 'it may hurt')

Finally, as to the diachrony of negation, nothing is known about the negators' origins – which is unlikely to change in the future, unless some documented languages can be shown to be genealogically related to Mapudugun and some linguistic reconstruction can be conducted. The oldest grammatical description (de Valdivia 1606) already records *-nu* in the same form as it is found today, making it unlikely for the marker itself to be a Spanish loan. This may also hold for the particle *nu*.

The apparent expansion of *-nu* in the imperative paradigms is possibly due to, or may at least have been reinforced by, contact with Southern Cone Spanish. In the latter language, the only dedicated imperative form is 2SG affirmative *canta* 'sing!';[16] all others are (originally) subjunctive forms (see Table 3). (Note that imperative and subjunctive forms still differ in the affirmative with respect to the admissible location of the clitic group (CLT).)

Table 3: Southern Cone Spanish imperative and present subjunctive (*a*-class verbs)

	Affirmative		Negative	
	Imperative(=CLT)	(CLT=)Subjunctive	(CLT=)Imperative	(CLT=)Subjunctive
2SG	*cant-a*	*cant-e-s*	*no cant-e-s*	
3SG	*cant-e*		*no cant-e*	
1PL	*cant-e-mos*		*no cant-e-mos*	
2PL/ 3PL	*cant-e-n*		*no cant-e-n*	

[16] This also holds for Rioplatense Spanish and other similar varieties, which have, e.g., a *voseante* 2SG imperative *cantá* alongside or instead of the etymological, non-*voseante*, *canta*. See Baquero Velásquez & Westphal Montt (2014) for a recent analysis and references.

5 Summary

The negators presented and discussed in this paper are summarized in Figure 2 below. The standard negator *-la* and the imperative negative *-ki* have a limited occurrence vis-à-vis the default negators *-nu* (bound) and *nu* (possibly more autonomous), which occur in a variety of contexts. Rather than transitivity, tense, or aspect, the factors conditioning the observed allomorphy in Mapudungun are finiteness and modality (with clausality and verbality playing a background role, so to speak).

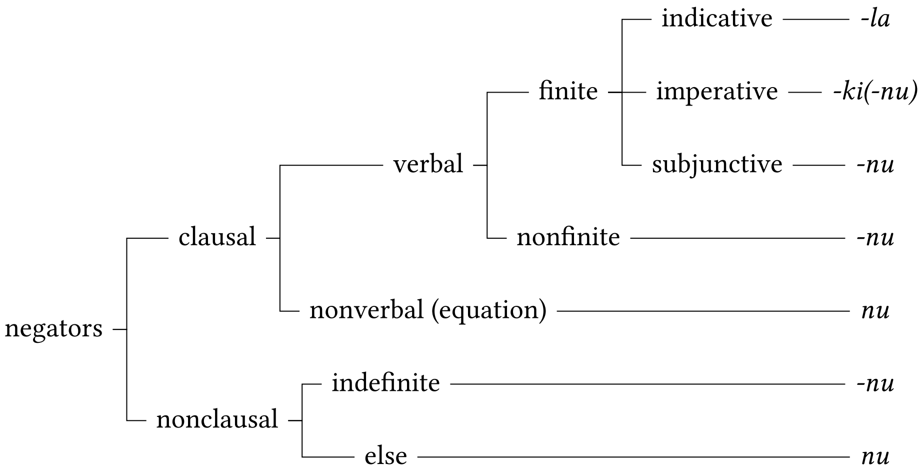

Figure 2: Overview of Mapudungun negators

Abbreviations

1	first person	ATTR	attributive
2	second person	CLT	clitic group
2>1	second person acting on first person	CIS	cislocative
3	third person	CONT	continuative
A	agentive participant of bivalent predicate	DEM	demonstrative
AFF	affirmative	DP	discourse particle
APPL	applicative	DU	dual
ART	article	ELS	extended local scenario
		FUT	future
		HAB	habitual

IMP	imperative	PL	plural
IND	indicative	POSP	postposition
INF	infinitive	PROG	progressive
MOD	modality	PSR	possessor
NEG	negation	REP	reportative
NFIN	nonfinite	RES	resultative
NP	noun phrase	REST	restitutive
NSG	nonsingular	RI	ruptured implicature
OBJ	object	SBJV	subjunctive
PTCL	particle	SG	singular
PASS	passive		

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Name index

Negation in the world's languages III

This book is volume III of the three-volume work *Negation in the world's languages*, which constitutes a major step forward in the comparative study of negation. It includes 43 chapters describing the negation system of one language each, following a typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire. The questionnaire is a comparative tool organized according to functional subdomains of negation. It highlights aspects of negation that have been found salient in typological research, such as standard negation, negation in non-declaratives, negation of stative predications and negative indefinite pronouns. At the same time it aims at a comprehensive coverage of the domain of negation and also allows room for language specific features to be highlighted. By using the questionnaire, the chapters have produced comparable datasets of the negation systems of a wide variety of languages from different families and areas. The contributions are also good examples of the fruitful cooperation between typologists and descriptive linguists in the context of diversity linguistics. On the one hand, typological knowledge is essential for language description as it helps descriptive linguists see their data in a broader perspective, ask new questions and come up with new analyses. On the other hand, typologists are crucially dependent on work done by descriptive linguists for their data collection.

The selection of languages is mainly a result of the response to an open call for papers, originally launched for the workshop on negation organized in connection with the Syntax of the World's Languages VIII conference in Paris in 2018. To balance the representation of different continents, authors working on languages from the areas that were initially least covered were invited to take part. The languages are distributed across the three volumes according to geography, following the macroareal divisions in the Glottolog. The first volume includes languages from Africa, the second one covers languages from Eurasia, and the third one brings together languages from Papunesia, Australia, North America and South America.